Patrologia Pacifica: Selected Papers Presented to the Western Pacific Rim Patristics Society



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4

General Editor
Basil Lourié

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Patrologia Pacifica: Selected Papers Presented to the Western Pacific Rim Patristics Society

3rd Annual Conference (Nagoya, Japan, September 29 – October 1, 2006) and other patristic studies

Edited by

V. Baranov

Basil Lourié



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ÉDITORIAL

C'est en tremblant que nous présentons maintenant le tome 4 de notre revue. N'étant qu'un enfant de quatre ans, elle apprend à faire ses premiers pas. Dès le début, elle rencontre, dans la communauté scientifique, un appui et bien des regards amicaux.

Ce support se révèle surtout évident de la part de nos amis qui sont devenus les membres de notre Conseil éditorial sous la présidence de Sebastian Brock. Chacun des membres de ce Conseil est pour nous un repère et un guide dans le domaine correspondant qui aidera au Comité éditorial de ne pas perdre sa route. En outre, la participation dans notre Conseil éditorial, c'est une marque de confiance et d'amitié de la part des revues et des organisations que nous considérons comme nos sœurs aînées, sinon nos parents… Ce sont la Société des Bollandistes avec sa revue *Analecta Bollandiana* (Robert Godding, s.j., directeur), la revue *Oriens Christianus* (Hubert Kaufhold, éditeur) et l'Institut des Sources chrétiennes (Bernard Meunier, directeur).

La compétence du Comité et du Conseil éditoriaux se porte également sur la revue *Scrinium* et ses deux séries supplémentaires que nous venons d'établir dans l'année courante (2008) : *Scripta ecclesiastica* (chez la maison éditoriale Axiōma, St. Pétersbourg, Russie) qui s'est concentrée sur le christianisme médiéval, et *Orientalia Judaica Christiana: the Christian Orient and its Jewish Heritage* (chez Gorgias Press, Piscataway, NJ, États-Unis), dont le but n'est pas difficile à deviner à partir du titre seul. Le premier volume des *Scripta ecclesiastica* (Barbara Crawford, *The Churches Dedicated to St. Clement in Medieval England. A hagio-geography of the seafarer's saint in 11th century North Europe*) est déjà paru. Le premier volume des *Orientalia Judaica Christiana* (Madeleine Petit, Basile Lourié, Andrei Orlov, éds. *L'Église des deux Alliances. Mémorial Annie Jaubert (1912–1980)*) doit paraître à peu près au même temps que le tome présent.

C'est un très grand hommage que de publier, dans ce tome, une partie des travaux de la Troisième Conférence de l'Asian Pacific Early Christian Studies Society (ci-devant Western Pacific Rim Patristics Society) qui a eu lieu à Nagoya, Japon, en 2006. Cela nous a donné la raison d'intituler le tome entier *Patrologia Pacifica* et de le consacrer, dans sa plus grande partie, aux matières patristiques.

Basile Lourié
Scrinium
Rédacteur en chef

ОТ РЕДАКЦИИ

Несмотря на то, что журнал выходит всего лишь в четвертый раз, мы уже успели почувствовать, как гостеприимно принимают его в научном сообществе.

Наиболее очевидным выражением такого приема стало создание, в помощь Редколлегии, Редакционного совета журнала, который возглавил Себастиан Брок (Оксфорд). В Редакционный совет вошли те ученые, чьи исследования являются для нас образцовыми в соответствующей области, и мы очень надеемся на их помощь в дальнейшей деятельности Редколлегии. Кроме того, участие в Редакционном совете нашего журнала — это и знак доверия и дружбы со стороны тех журналов и организаций, которые нам особенно близки и которые нас вдохновляют своей деятельностью. Это Общество Болландистов с его журналом критической агиографии *Analecta Bollandiana*, Брюссель (руководитель Робер Годдэнг, О.И.), журнал *Oriens Christianus*, Мюнхен (редактор Губерт Кауфхольд), и Institut des Sources chrétiennes, Лион (директор Бернар Мёнье).

В компетенцию Редколлегии и Редакционного совета журнала теперь входят не только собственно журнал *Scrinium*, но и две серии его приложений, которые были основаны в текущем году (2008): посвященная средневековому христианству *Scripta ecclesiastica* (в издательстве Axiōma, С.-Петербург, Россия) и *Orientalia Judaica Christiana: the Christian Orient and its Jewish Heritage* (в издательстве Gorgias Press, США), тематика которой достаточно ясна из названия. Первый том *Scripta ecclesiastica* (Barbara Crawford, *The Churches Dedicated to St. Clement in Medieval England. A hagio-geography of the seafarer's saint in 11th century North Europe*) только что вышел. Первый том *Orientalia Judaica Christiana* (Madeleine Petit, Basile Lourié, Andrei Orlov, éds. *L'Église des deux Alliances. Mémorial Annie Jaubert (1912–1980)*) должен выйти из печати одновременно с настоящим томом журнала.

Большую честь для нашего журнала представляет возможность издать в настоящем томе часть трудов Третьей Конференции Asian Pacific Early Christian Studies Society (до января 2008 называвшегося Western Pacific Rim Patristics Society), состоявшейся в Нагойе, Япония, в 2006 году. Благодаря этому мы решили посвятить настоящий том, преимущественно, работам в области патристики и дать ему название *Patrologia Pacifica*.

В. М. Лурье
Главный редактор журнала *Scrinium*

LIST DES ABBRÉVIATIONS

ПСР*Л*	—	Полное собрание русских летописей
ХВ	—	*Христианский Восток*
AB	—	*Analecta Bollandiana*
ACO	—	E. Schwartz (ed.), *Acta Conciliorum Oecumenicorum*, t. I–III (Berlin, 1924–1940; repr. 1960–1965)
ACW	—	Ancient Christian Writers
AEMA	—	A*rchivum Eurasiae medii aevi*
AM	—	ʻAmätä Məḥrät = An de la Grâce (calendrier éthiopien)
BETL	—	Bibliotheca Ephemeridum Theologicarum Lovaniensium
BHG	—	F. Halkin, *Bibliotheca Hagiographica Graeca*, vol. I–III (Bruxelles, 1957) (Subsidia Hagiographica, 8a)
BHL	—	Bibliotheca Hagiographica Latina
BHTh	—	Beiträge zur historischen Theologie
BSGRT	—	Bibliotheca scriptorum graecorum et romanorum Teubneriana
BSOAS	—	Bulletin of the School of Oriental and African Studies
BZ	—	*Byzantinische Zeitschrift*
CCSG	—	Corpus Christianorum. Series graeca
CPG	—	M. Geerard, *Clavis Patrum Graecorum* (Turnhout: Brepols) I (1983), II (1974), III (1979), IV (1980), Supplementum (1998) (Corpus Christianorum)
CSCO	—	Corpus Scriptorum Christianorum Orientalium
CSEL	—	Corpus Scriptorum Ecclesiasticorum Latinorum
CSHB	—	Corpus scriptorum historiae Byzantinae
CFHB SB	—	Corpus Fontium Historiae Byzantinae, Series Berolinensis
DOP	—	*Dumbarton Oaks Papers*
EA	—	S. Uhlig (Hrsg.), *Encyclopaedia Aethiopica*, vol. I: A–C, vol. II: *D–Ha*, vol. III: He–N (Wiesbaden, 2003, 2005, 2007)
EO	—	*Échos d'Orient*
GCS	—	Die griechischen christlichen Schriftsteller der ersten drei Jahrhunderte (Leipzig, 1897sqq.)
JECS	—	*Journal of Early Christian Studies*

JTS	—	*Journal of Theological Studies*
Mansi	—	J. D. Mansi (ed., cont. J.-B. Martin, L. Petit), Sacrorum Conciliorum Nova et Amplissima Collectio, t. I–LIII (Florentiae—Venetiis—Parisiis/Lipsiae, 1759–1927)
OCA	—	Orientalia Christiana Analecta
OCP	—	*Orientalia Christiana Periodica*
PG	—	J. P. Migne (acc.), *Patrologiae cursus completus. Series graeca*, t. 1–161 (Parisiis, 1857–1866)
PL	—	J. P. Migne (acc.), *Patrologiae cursus completus. Series latina*, t. 1–225 (Parisiis, 1841–1864)
PO	—	Patrologia Orientalis
PTS	—	Patristische Texte und Studien
RÉB	—	*Revue des études byzantines*
RHE	—	*Revue d'histoire ecclesiastique*
ROC	—	*Revue de l'Orient Chrétien*
RSR	—	*Recherches de science religieuse*
SC	—	Sources Chrétiennes
Scr	—	*Scrinium*
SP	—	*Studia Patristica*
TEG	—	Traditio Exegetica Graeca
TLG	—	Thesaurus Linguae Graecae (http://www.tlg.uci.edu/)
VC	—	*Vigiliae Christianae*
WUNT	—	Wissenschaftliche Untersuchungen zum Neuen Testament
ZKG	—	*Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte*
ZDMG	—	*Zeitschrift der deutschen morgenländischen Gesellschaft*

Patrologia Pacifica

PREFACE

It is my great pleasure to introduce the Western Pacific Rim Patristics Society (WPRPS) and its annual conferences.

At a social gathering of Australian and Japanese scholars and international guests at St. Benet's Hall, Oxford, on Thursday evening, August 23, 2003, during the 14th International Conference of Patristic Studies, the idea was proposed of creating a regional society for scholars, graduate students and other interested people in the countries of the western Pacific rim involved in early Christian and late antique studies. The idea was warmly welcomed and the Society was established. The WPRPS has been designed to advance research and teaching in these fields in these countries and to promote international co-operation and collaboration among scholars of the region. The society will be open to others throughout the world.

The inaugural conference was held at the University of the Sacred Heart, Tokyo, in September, 2004. A second Conference was held including the Conference: *Prayer and Spirituality in the Early Church*, at the Australian Catholic University in Melbourne, in July, 2005. The third Conference was held at Nanzan University in Nagoya, Japan, in September, 2006 with more than fifty participants from Australia, Hungary, India, Japan, the Philippines and Russia. After the Nagoya Conference we met again at the Prayer and Spirituality Conference in Melbourne in January 2008 including delegates from Canada and Korea. The steering committee decided to change the Society's name to the Asian Pacific Early Christian Studies Society (APECSS) to emphasize the good relationship between Patristic studies, New Testament studies and late antique studies in the Asian and Pacific region in a broader sense. The next Conference is to be held at Tohoku Gakuin University in Sendai Japan from September 10–12 in 2009.

In this *Patrologia Pacifica,* five papers have been selected from the papers presented at the third WPRPS Conference Nagoya in 2006. I express my cordial gratitude to the editor and contributors. I do hope this volume will open a new page for our co-operation.

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Chief Executive Delegate of the Asian Pacific Early Christian
Studies Society (former Western Pacific Rim Patristics Society)

Vladimir Baranov
Novosibirsk

BYZANTINE DOCTRINES ON THE RESURRECTED BODY OF CHRIST AND THEIR PARALLELS IN LATE ANTIQUITY

This study originated as an attempt to reconstruct the theological system of Byzantine Iconoclasts and to discover its doctrinal sources. The comparison of extant fragments of the original Iconoclastic writings and Iconodulic polemics showed that the Iconoclasts seem to uphold the doctrine on the radical change of qualities of Christ's Body after the Resurrection: Christ's coarse material body becomes subtle casting off its material and circumscribable elements, thus becoming utterly undepictable.[1] The doctrine on the spiritual state of God revealing himself in no way through the sense of vision is emphasized in the Scriptural *florilegium* of the Iconoclastic Council of Hiereia (754).[2] The *florilegium* also contains a verse from II Cor 5:16[3] that is related to the Iconoclastic understanding of the dichotomy between Christ's state after the Resurrection and ours still expecting it. The argument on radical change of qualities is presented in its clearest form in a fragment from the *Peuseis* of the Iconoclastic Emperor-theologian Constantine V:

> You depict Christ before Christ's Passions and Resurrection. But what [can] you say about that which is after the Resurrection? Then the reality is not in those things: the body of Christ was assigned with

(1) Cf. Mansi, 13, 336D. On the Iconoclastic doctrine of Christ's Resurrected body see В. А. Баранов, Искусство после бури — богословская интерпретация некоторых изменений в послеиконоборческой иконографии Воскресения, in: М. С. Тарасова, И. А. Припачкин, И. И. Иванов (ред.), *Золотой, Серебряный, Железный: Мифологическая модель времени и художественная культура* (Курск: Издательство Курского госпедуниверситета, 2002) 34–49; V. A. Baranov, The *Vita Tarasii* as a Source for Reconstruction of the Iconoclastic Theology, *Scr* 2 (2006) 331–339; idem, The Theological Background of the Iconoclastic Church Programmes, in: F. Young, M. Edwards, and P. Parvis (eds.) *SP* 40 (Leuven: Peeters, 2006) 169–172.

(2) Mansi, 13, 280DE–285BC.

(3) "Even though we have known Christ according to the flesh, now we know Him thus no longer."

> incorruptibility and immortality (ἄφθαρτον γὰρ λοιπὸν τὸ σῶμα Χριστοῦ καὶ τὴν ἀθανασίαν κληρωσάμενον). How then for you those things will give way to depiction and how will be depicted that which entered without any hindrance to the disciples while the doors were closed?[4]

The next problem was to identify the sources of this Iconoclastic doctrine and to locate the Iconoclasts within the line of development of a certain theological tradition. In several important aspects the Christology of the Iconoclasts followed the Origenist theology based, in turn, on the wider Platonic doctrine on the dichotomy between the material and noetic (or "spiritual" in Christian terms) realms. As I have argued elsewhere, the Iconoclasts followed this tradition and built their polemics on the necessity of Christ's soul as a mediator between the divinity and the flesh,[5] and of intellectual contemplation of the divinity, deprived of all sensual perception necessarily connected with matter and multiplicity.[6] In this case Christ's casting off material components of his body corresponds to a general Origenist paradigm of eschatological spiritualization of creation and its return to primordial unity with God along with the destruction of transitory material bodies.[7]

Yet if we attempt to verify our hypothesis on the Origenist inspiration behind the notion of changing material qualities in the Resurrection, and to seek for another possible influence, we may note in the above fragment that the qualities of "incorruptibility and immortality" which were granted to Christ's body after the Resurrection are, in fact, technical terms widely used in the Antiochean theological tradition to describe the spiritual *katastasis*.[8] In the Eucharistic doctrine of

(4) *PG* 100, 437B.

(5) V. A. Baranov and B. Lourié, The Role of Christ's Soul-Mediator in the Iconoclastic Christology, in: Gy. Heidl, and R. Somos (eds.) *Origeniana Nona* (in print).

(6) В. А. Баранов, Образ в контексте эпистемологических подходов иконоборцев и иконопочитателей, in: *AKADEMEIA: материалы и исследования по истории платонизма* 5 (Санкт-Петербург, 2003) 390–407; V. A. Baranov, Origen and the Iconoclastic Controversy, in: L. Perrone et al. (eds), *Origeniana Octava. Origen and the Alexandrian Tradition*, vol. 2 (Leuven: Peeters, 2003) (BETL 164) 1043–1052.

(7) For this doctrine in Evagrius of Pontos, see A. Guillaumont, *Un philosophe au désert. Évagre le Pontique* (Paris: Librarie Philosophique J. Vrin, 2004) 384f.

(8) Most often used four qualities: "incorruptability," "immortality," together with "impassibility" and "immutability" (R. Beulay, *La Lumière sans*

the Byzantine Iconoclasts that speaks of the Eucharist as the real body and blood of Christ and yet "the true image of Christ's natural flesh,"[9] we may find a striking resemblance to the Eucharistic doctrine of the Antiocheans: for Theodore of Mopsuestia as well the Eucharist has dual character — the Gifts are simultaneously the real body and blood of Christ, and sign and image.

One of the first interpretations of Theodore's doctrine of the Sacraments was advanced in the 1941 study by Wilhelm de Vries. According to him, Theodore perceives the Eucharistic gifts as "empty" symbols which merely give a hope for us to enjoy the benefits of the future world.[10] De Vries links this position to Theodore's Christology and argues that Theodore of Mopsuestia regarded the Sacraments from an eschatological perspective — the present life Sacraments (primarily Baptism and the Eucharist) give a believer only a hope to achieve in the future age the immutable and immortal state which Christ obtained after his Resurrection, whereas there is no real spiritual change occurring with the Sacraments now.[11] He assumes that Theodore's Sacramental exegesis does not entail a real presence in the Eucharist and is nothing more than a mere symbol.

In response, Oñatibia objected that de Vries, in proclaiming the view on the "empty symbolism" of Theodore of Mopsuestia, ignored the specific doctrine of Theodore on the relations between the type

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forme. Introduction à l'étude de la mystique chrétienne syro-orientale (Chevetogne: Éditions de Chevetogne, n. d) 190–191. On Theodore of Mopsuestia's doctrine of two *katastases* in general, see R. A. Norris, *Manhood and Christ: A Study in the Christology of Theodore of Mopsuestia* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1963) 160–172.

(9) Mansi, 13, 264BC, for more details, see V. A Baranov, The Doctrine of the Icon-Eucharist for the Byzantine Iconoclasts, in: Av. Cameron (ed.) *SP. Papers Presented at the Fifteenth International Conference on Patristic Studies held in Oxford 2007* (forthcoming).

(10) W. de Vries, Der 'Nestorianismus' Theodors von Mopsuestia in seiner Sakramentenlehre, *OCP* 7 (1941) 91–148; idem, Das eschatologische Heil bei Theodor von Mopsuestia, *OCP* 24 (1958) 309–338, and his remarks on Theodore in idem, *Sacramententheologie bei den Nestorianern* (Rome: Institutum Orientalium Studiorum, 1947). The arguments of de Vries and his opponents, Luise Abramowski and Ignatio Oñatibia, together with his own remarks are summarized in F. G. McLeod, The Christological Ramifications of Theodore of Mopsuestia's Understanding of Baptism and the Eucharist, *JECS* 10.1 (2002) 41ff.

(11) W. de Vries, Das eschatologische Heil bei Theodor von Mopsuestia, *OCP* 24 (1958) 319; and idem, Der 'Nestorianismus' Theodors von Mopsuestia in seiner Sakramentenlehre, *OCP* 7 (1941) 111.

and the archetype.[12] This doctrine ultimately bounds type and archetype in a way that the former is realized in the latter. So as the types and symbols of the Old Testament are to be fulfilled in the future life of the Church, the Sacraments are such types that guarantee a hope that their future fulfillment will be granted to a faithful Christian. The grace of the Sacrament gives the participant in a real but embryonic way a certain potential participation in the future immortal life. Oñatibia concludes that Theodore did believe that a certain real transformation occurs with the Sacrament, although he postponed its full actualization to the Age to come. Even in the application of the terminology of "symbols" and "signs" to express the real presence of Christ in the host,[13] Theodore is in agreement with other Fathers of the fourth century.[14] This ultimate parallelism between the type and the archetype highlights the role of the priest in Theodore's exegesis: the celebrating priest offers the Eucharistic sacrifice as a representative of Christ, the high priest, who offered His own Body as a sacrifice at his death on the Cross.[15]

Luise Abramowski advanced additional arguments in favour of this view on Theodore's Sacramental theology, using the liturgical interpretational approach to Theodore's Sacramentalism. She takes the common "prosopon" of Christ as the object of worship, and thus concludes that Theodore's concept of union between the two natures in Christ was not simply moral but ontological. Then she analyses the notion of participation in Theodore: through Baptism, Christ becomes the proper Son of God and through baptism Christians become adopted sons and daughters of God, the latter typologically depending on the former. Although the accent in Theodore's Sacramentalism is put on baptism (the baptized person naturally participates in the human nature of Christ and thus, can participate in the grace of the Spirit just as Christ did, though not fully but partially), the Eucharist is also indispensable since it provides the baptized person with necessary

(12) I. Oñatibia, La vida cristiana, tipo de las realidades celestes. Un concepto basico de la teologia de Teodoro de Mopsuestia, *Scriptorium Victoriense* 1 (1954) 101, and 128–133.

(13) Cf. Theodore of Mopsuestia, *Commentary on Matthew*, *PG* 66, 713B.

(14) I. Oñatibia, La vida cristiana, tipo de las realidades celestes. Un concepto basico de la teologia de Teodoro de Mopsuestia, *Scriptorium Victoriense* 1 (1954) 119.

(15) Ibid., 122.

spiritual nourishment.[16] Thus, in her conclusions Luise Abramowski joins Oñatibia: both baptism and the Eucharist are types which not only hint at future realities but really participate in them.

Finally, the same view on the Sacramentalism of Theodore of Mopsuestia was buttressed by Frederick McLeod who treated the problem from the point of view of Theodore's approach to the Scriptural notion of "the image of God."[17] Theodore, as opposed to Origen and the Alexandrines, was opposed to any spiritual interpretation of the image of God, believing that creatures had to have a visible and palpable image of the transcendent God which was Christ, the visible bond of creation and recapitulation of the broken unity of creation. Since the Scripture also names Adam and Eve as images, Theodore constitutes the relationship of type/archetype between them and Christ; this relationship secures the organic unity of people as members of Christ's body, the Church. This chain of types conditions the meaning of the Sacrament: as opposed to de Vries, who thought that participation in the Sacrament had to entail supernatural participation in the divine nature, and could not find anything close in Theodore, McLeod suggests, that, rather, the participation in the Sacrament in Theodore entails participation in Christ's bodily life, and a person's bond to Christ's body in this life though baptism and the Eucharist secures the participation of this person in the immortal life of Christ's resurrected body. In this way, the Sacraments are two-fold: they have both an active impact on one's life, gathering the communicants into one organic unity with Christ's body in this life, and serve as a pledge of future immortal life.

Fully accepting the arguments of the above authors, yet another argument can be advanced: Theodore of Mopsuestia's doctrine of the Sacraments as symbol, *typos*,[18] which has its ontological counterpart

(16) L. Abramowski, Zur Theologie Theodors von Mopsuestia, *Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte* 72 (1961) 281–283; the English translation of the article is L. Abramowski, The Theology of Theodore of Mopsuestia, in: idem, *Formula and Context: Studies in Early Christian Thought* (Ashgate: Variorum, 1992) no. 2; the discussion of the arguments of de Vries and Oñatibia see on pp. 5–13 [pp. 267–274 of the original publication].

(17) F. McLeod, The Christological Ramifications of Theodore of Mopsuestia's Understanding of Baptism and the Eucharist, *JECS* 10.1 (2002) 53f.

(18) Cf. Theodore of Mopsuestia: "Every sacrament consists in the representation of unseen and unspeakable things through signs and emblems. Such things require explanation and interpretation, for the sake of the person who draws nigh unto the sacrament, so that he might know its power. If it

in reality, seems to be also ultimately connected with the Antiochean doctrine of two *katastases* or two states of reality: the state of mortality, corruption, and corporeality in the present age, and the state of immortality, impassability, and spirituality in the future age. It is only the "future" for us, since Christ after his Resurrection already exists in the age of spirituality. However, we, on earth, still remain in the corporeal condition until the general resurrection and establishment of spiritual *katastasis*, the first fruits of which are given to every Christian at baptism. Theodore of Mopsuestia thus expresses this Antiochean doctrine, in a way which gives a clue as to how the Iconoclasts' icon of the Eucharist differs from its prototype, the real body of Christ:

> It is with justice, therefore, that when He gave the bread He did not say: "This is the symbol of my body," but: "This is my body"; likewise when He gave the cup He did not say: "This is the symbol of my blood" but: "This is my blood," because He wished us to look upon these (elements) after their reception of grace and the coming of the Spirit, not according to their nature, but to receive them as if they were the body and blood of our Lord. Indeed, even the body of our Lord does not possess immortality and the power of bestowing immortality in its own nature, as it was given to it by the Holy Spirit; and at its resurrection from the dead it received close union

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only consisted of the (visible) elements themselves, words would have been useless, as sight itself would have been able to show us one by one all the happenings that take place, but since a sacrament contains the signs of things that take place or have already taken place, words are needed to explain the power of signs and mysteries" (A. Mingana (ed. and trans.), *Commentary of Theodore of Mopsuestia on the Lord's Prayer and on the Sacraments of Baptism and the Eucharist*, Woodbrook Studies, vol. 6 (Cambridge, 1933) 17 (hereafter, Mingana) = R. Devreesse, and R. Tonneau (eds.), *Les homélies catéchétiques de Théodore de Mopsueste: reproduction phototypique du Ms. Mingana Syr. 561 (Selly Oak Colleges Library, Birmingham)* (Rome, 1966) (Studi e Testi 145) 325 (hereafter: Devreesse–Tonneau). Cf. Cyrus of Edessa, East Syrian theologian of the mid-sixth century and close follower of the theology of Theodore of Mopsuestia: "For (all sacraments) are signs and types, either of those things that once were and have passed away and are not seen, or of those things that have not yet been and are looked for" (W. Macomber (ed. and trans.), *Six Explanations of the Liturgical Feasts by Cyrus of Edessa* (Louvain: Secrétariat du CSCO, 1974) (CSCO 356, Syr. 156) 39). On the theological methods of Cyrus of Edessa, see W. Macomber, The Theological Synthesis of Cyrrus of Edessa, an Eastern Syrian Theologian of the mid Sixth Century, *OCP* 30 (1964) 5–38, 363–384.

> with the Divine nature and became immortal and instrumental for conferring immortality on others.[19]

The Eucharist for Theodore of Mopsuestia serves as an image of Christ's body which was transformed after His Resurrection, the image given to us as a token of future realities or as a seed of a future plant. Theodore writes that God:

> …showed all this love to men, not because He received from us anything worthy of this good will, as it is by His grace and mercy that He made manifest to us a love for the sake of which the Only Begotten Son of God, God the Word, was pleased to assume a man for us, whom he raised from the dead, took up to heaven, united to Himself, and placed at the right hand of God. And He vouchsafed unto us participation in all these, and gave us also the Holy Spirit, whose first fruits we are receiving now as an earnest. We shall receive all (the fruits) when we shall have communion with Him in reality and when "our vile body shall be fashioned like unto His glorious body" (Phil 3:21).[20]

The material Sacraments correspond to our state in the material *katastasis* whereas Christ as first-born from the dead already exists in a different, glorious state of reality. What does this mean in terms of the qualities of Christ's Resurrected body? Theodore of Mopsuestia gives the answer about the quality of the resurrected body — it has been

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(19) Mingana, 75 (= Devreesse–Tonneau, 475).

(20) Mingana, 98 (= Devreesse–Tonneau, 537), cf. Mingana, 65, and Cyrrus of Edessa: "Furthermore, when she [Mary] wanted to cling to him, he forbade her saying: 'I have not yet ascended to my Father.' Rather, go unto my brethren and say to them: 'I ascend to my Father and your Father, my God and your God,' to teach her thereby, or rather, through her the blessed Apostles, that he had become completely different after his resurrection from the dead, and that he would not remain on earth but would be taken up to heaven as one who had attained dwelling there and conjunction with the Father from the perfection of the Resurrection" (ed. Macomber, 101, 21–29). The cloud wrapped Christ at the Ascension to prevent the disciples from being blind of Christ's glorious appearance (Ibid., 136). However, Christ does not lose his corporeality (Ibid., 139, 16–24). On the Antiochean liturgical exegesis of Theodore of Mopsuestia, see R. Taft, The Liturgy of the Great Church: An Initial Synthesis of Structure and Interpretation on the Eve of Iconoclasm, *DOP* 34/35 (1982) 62–65; R. Bornert, *Les Commentaires de la divine liturgie de VIIe au XVe siècle* (Paris: Institut Française d'études byzantines, 1966) (Archives de l'Orient Chrétien 9) 80–82.

transformed from the material state of this *katastasis* into the spiritual state of the spiritual *katastasis* :

> …incorruption, glory and power will come then to man through the working of the Holy Spirit, which affects both soul and body, the former with immortality and the latter with immutability; and that the body which will rise from the dead and which (man) will put on will be a spiritual and not a natural body.[21]

Thus in search for the doctrinal sources of the Iconoclasts' notion of Christ changing the material qualities of his body in the Resurrection, becoming "God-like" and immaterial, we arrive at a paradoxical intermediate conclusion — both the Alexandrine Origenist tradition of Christ's subtle body after his Resurrection[22] and Theodore of Mopsuestia's (who, we should note, was an ardent opponent of the Alexandrians in general and Origen in particular) "spiritual" reality of the second *katastasis*, which people still living in the material realm contemplate in signs and symbols, seem to bear resemblance, first, to our Byzantine Iconoclasts, and, second, to each other. In order to resolve the riddle or at least to give a more definite answer concerning the sources of Iconoclastic theology we are compelled to take one

(21) Mingana, 56 (= Devreesse–Tonneau, 423–425). Cf. 1 Cor. 15: 42–44: "Thus also the resurrection from the dead. What is sown in corruption, is risen in incorruption, what is sown in dishonour, is risen in glory, what is sown in weakness, is risen in power. The body of the soul is sown ["natural body" according to the King James Bible translation], the body of the spirit is risen (Οὕτω καὶ ἡ ἀνάστασις τῶν νεκρῶν. σπείρεται ἐν φθορᾷ, ἐγείρεται ἐν ἀφθαρσίᾳ· σπείρεται ἐν ἀτιμίᾳ, ἐγείρεται ἐν δόξῃ· σπείρεται ἐν ἀσθενείᾳ, ἐγείρεται ἐν δυνάμει· σπείρεται σῶμα ψυχικόν, ἐγείρεται σῶμα πνευματικόν)."

(22) See the detailed discussion in В. В. Петров, Учение Оригена о теле воскресения в контексте современной ему интеллектуальной традиции, in: П. П. Гайденко, В. В. Петров (ред.), *Космос и душа: Учения о вселенной и человеке в античности и в Средние века* (Москва: Прогресс–Традиция, 2005) 577–615; L. Hennesey, A Philosophical Issue in Origen's Eschatology: The Three Senses of Incorporeality, in: R. Daly (ed.), *Origeniana Quinta, Papers of the Fifth International Origen Congress, Boston College, 14–18 August 1989* (Leuven: University Press, 1992) 378; H. Crouzel, La doctrine origénienne du corps ressucité, *Bulletin de Littérature Écclésiastique* 81 (1980) 241f., and D. G. Bostock, Quality and Corporeity in Origen, in: H. Crouzel, and A. Quacquarelli (eds.), *Origeniana Secunda* (Rome: Edizioni dell'Ateneo, 1980) (Quaderni di "Vetera Christianorum" 15) 323–337 on the philosophical background of Origen's doctrine.

more step back to see what anthropological doctrines existed in the formative periods of both Alexandrine and Antiochean theologies. Since Christian discussion of resurrected bodies in Late Antiquity had its counterpart in Platonist anthropological discussions,[23] we should briefly turn to the Platonist doctrine of the luminous or ethereal body, the vehicle (ὄχημα) of the soul.

Although the principal elements of the doctrine of the luminous body, the vehicle of the soul, can be found in Plato and Aristotle,[24] the doctrine seems to have been most actively used by the Neoplatonists.[25] Plotinus used the concept, but it was not essential for his theory of a personal mysticism of a philosophical soul, which, even in the incarnate state dwells in the intelligible world united to its higher undescended essence by means of intellectual contemplation. According to Plotinus, the soul receives the vehicle when it descends from heaven and casts it off on the way back to the intelligible world.[26] Porphyry as well made some developments of the theory — first light and ethereal, the vehicle absorbs moisture from the air and becomes material and even visible during the descent, and only theurgy and philosophy can enhance the ascent of this heavy substance which dissolves back into the heaven.[27]

It was Iamblichus, who elaborated the theory of the soul's vehicle, in its most crucial points — composition, generation, and the fate of the vehicle — in opposition to the Porphyrian concept.[28] In Iamblichus' psychology, even the higher part of the soul is distinct from the Intellect;[29] the soul is immersed in matter and cannot immediately cast off its

(23) R. Sorabji, *The Philosophy of the Commentators 200–600 AD: A Sourcebook*, vol. 1 (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2005) 221–241, esp. 229ff.

(24) A. P. Bos traces the origins of the doctrine of the vehicle of the soul back to Aristotle himself (A. P. Bos, The "Vehicle of the Soul" and the Debate over the Origin of this Concept, *Philologus* 151 (2007) 31–50).

(25) R. Sorabji, *The Philosophy of the Commentators 200–600 AD: A Sourcebook*, vol. 1 (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2005) 221.

(26) Plotinus, *Enneads* IV, 3, 15, 1–3 (cf. also 9), and IV, 3, 24.

(27) E. R. Dodds, Appendix II: The Astral Body in Neoplatonism, in: idem, *Proclus: The Elements of Theology. A Revised Text with Translation, Introduction and Commentary* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1963) 318–319 with references.

(28) J. Finamore, *Iamblichus and the Theory of the Vehicle of the Soul* (Chico: Scholars Press, 1985) 11f.

(29) On the difference of Plotinian and Iamblichian concepts of the soul, see C. Steel, *The Changing Self: A Study on the Soul in Later Neoplatonism: Iamblichus, Damascius and Priscianus* (Brussels: Paleis der Akademien, 1978) 28f.

body (literally or figuratively — in a way of philosophical ecstasis) and return to the One: their divinity can be slowly recovered by means of bodies in the interaction with the natural universe by means of theurgical rites. In these rites, the soul gradually finds its proper divinity by unifying itself with the divine powers diffused in the material world. Theurgy used the correspondence between objects from the natural world (stones, herbs, etc.) and their analogies inside the soul. The importance of theurgy for Iamblichus pre-conditioned the importance of the notion of the vehicle of the soul since such a medium justified the theurgical methods of working on the mind by material means. This luminous envelope could itself receive divine visions (φαντασίαι) for which it should be first prepared by theurgy.[30]

This active elaboration of the "subtle body" doctrine in the philosophical schools of the first centuries of the Christian era may, perhaps offer an explanation for the curious similarity between the Alexandrine Origenist doctrine on Christ's spiritual body after the Resurrection[31] but before the final *apokatastasis* when everything should return back into the original monad, and the Antiochean doctrine on the subtle body of Christ in the second spiritual *katastasis.* This similarity can be explained by the early fusion of the philosophical doctrine of the ὄχημα and the notion of the "spiritual" body from Apostle Paul's Epistle (1 Cor 15:44: "It is sown a natural body; it is raised a spiritual body").

It is a known fact that active interaction and mutual influence of pagan philosophy and the Christian religion took place in Late Antiquity — it is just enough to mention a pagan teacher Libanius, whose students in Antioch included not only the pagan historian Ammianus Marcellinus, but also numerous civil officials of the Christian Empire and great Christian theologians Basil of Caesarea, John Chrysostom

(30) Cf.: "This sort of invocation [theurgy] … makes us, who through generation are born subject to passions, pure and unchangeable" (E. des Places (ed.), *Jamblique: Les mystères d'Egypte* (Paris: Les Belles Lettres, 1966) 42, 2–5; quoted in G. Shaw, Neoplatonic Theurgy and Dionysius the Areopagite, *JECS* 7.4 (1999) 578).

(31) Origen speaks about the resurrection as a transition from the body made-by-hands to the spiritual body not made-by-hands and its qualities in the *De principiis* III, 6, 4 (H. Görgemanns, H. Karpp (Hrsg.), *Origenes vier Bücher von den Prinzipien* (Darmstadt: Wissenschaftliche Buchgesellschaft, 1976) (Texte zur Forschung 24) 652–654).

and Theodore of Mopsuestia.[32] Thus, it is not surprising that the Alexandrine school with its philosophical background and the heritage of such a Christian Platonist as Origen, who thoroughly used the ὄχημα doctrine, and the Antiochean school with its "Scriptural" bent could both understand the enigmatic "spiritual body" of Paul in terms of the Platonist doctrine of the ὄχημα. In addition, both schools might have shared a common archaic teaching on the glorious state of Christ and saints in the Heavenly Kingdom in opposition to his earthly state of "a man of sorrows" (Is 53:3).[33] This common layer might have been shared from the times before the Arian Controversy where the two schools of theology were formed in the process of attacking different premises upon which the Arian doctrine on the inferiority of the Gospels' Jesus to the Father was built.

In fact, the opposition between the two theological schools (Antiochean literalism vs. Alexandrine allegorism),[34] usually taken for grant-

(32) On the school of Libanius, see R. Cribiore, *The School of Libanius in Late Antique Antioch* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2007).

(33) Cf. Athenagoras: "We are persuaded that we shall quit this earthly life for a heavenly life superiour to the present one, enjoying forever with God in his presence a changeless and impassible state of soul, not like beings of flesh, though we may retain it, but rather like spirits of heaven." (*Legatio* 31.4, quoted in M. Edwards, Origen No Gnostic; or on the Corporeality of Man, *JTS* n. s. 43 (1992) 36–37). Hyppolitus repeats the same doctrine: "men in the resurrection will be like angels of God, to wit, in indestructability, immortality and incapacity of loss. For the indestructable essence generates nothing and is not generated, does not grow, sleep, hunger, thirst, suffer or die; it is not wounded by nails and spears, does not sweat and does not shed blood. Such are the natures of angels and of souls released from the body, since both these are of another kind, and different from the creatures of the present world which are visible and will parish" (*Fr. de Resurrectione* 254, quoted in M. Edwards, Origen No Gnostic; or on the Corporeality of Man, *JTS* n. s. 43 (1992) 37).

(34) On the difference between both exegetical methods, see M. Simonetti, *Lettera c/o Allegoria: Un contributo alla storia dell'esegesi patristica* (Rome: Institutum Patristicum "Augustinianum," 1985) (Studia Ephemeridis "Augustinianum" 23); J. Hughes (ed.), M. Simonetti, A. Bergqvist, and M. Bockmuhl (trans.), *Biblical Interpretation in the Early Church: A Historical Introduction to Patristic Exegesis*, (Edinburgh: T and T Clark, 1994); R. Greer, *The Captain of Our Salvation: A Study in Patristic Exegesis of Hebrews* (Tübingen: J. C. B. Mohr, 1973) (Beiträge zur Geschichte der biblische Exegese 15); and on interaction of both exegetical methods on the principles of Christology, see a paper, presented at the Nogoya Conference: I. Perczel, Biblical Interpretation and Christology in the Early Stages of the Nestorian Controversy, Paper presented at the

ed, can be assessed in different qualitative terms.[35] As far as theology is concerned, R. Macina modified the radical thesis of A. Guillaumont who argued about the ultimate opposition of the Antiochean school, and of Theodore of Mopsuestia in particular, to the theological constructions of Origenism,[36] and suggested a hypothesis which may support the above mentioned assertion on the common archaic layer in both theologies. In the analysis of the exegetical methods of the school of Antioch, R. Macina suggested that the cosmology and anthropology of Theodore of Mopsuestia were created as a response, very close in form but different in its implications to that of Origen and based on the principle "to pluck the roses but leave the thorns."[37] Macina goes on to suggest: "Il se pourrait que la théorie des 'deux catesteses' de Théodore soit une réaction à cette construction origéniste [double creation: spiritual and corporeal], et en prenne le contre-pied exact, en posant, elle aussi, deux catastases, qui — contrairement à celle des origénistes — ne sont pas successives, mais coexistantes."[38]

Third Annual Conference of the Western Pacific Rim Patristic Society "The Use of the Gospels in Early Christianity." Nanzan University, Nagoya, Japan, 29 September – 1 October, 2006.

(35) See J. Guillet, Les éxegèse d'Alexandrie et d'Antioch. Conflit ou malentendu?, *RSR* 34 (1947) 257–302. The article is an attempt to balance the view on the radical difference between the two exegetical schools, and on the "literalism" of the Antiochean school. In his analysis on the Sacramental theology of Origen and Theodore of Mopsuestia, Frederick McLeod concluded that "The common use of language [the terms "symbol," "type," "participation," etc. — *V. B.*] calls into question the portrayal of Theodore and Origen as two radically opposed exegetes, one insisting only on a literal interpretation of the Bible and the other seeing the necessity for an allegorical interpretation to explain difficulties in scripture. The fact that Theodore and Origen speak of baptism and the eucharist in the same terms indicates that, if there is not some overlapping in their thought, they share at least a common religious tradition on how to speak of these sacraments in an acceptable way" (F. McLeod, The Christological Ramifications of Theodore of Mopsuestia's Understanding of Baptism and the Eucharist, *JECS* 10.1 (2002) 50).

(36) A. Guillaumont, *Les 'Kephalaia Gnostica' d'Évagre le Pontique et l'histoire de l'Origénisme chez les grecs et chez les syriens* (Paris: Éditions du Seuil, 1962) (Patristica Sorbonensia 5) 183–185.

(37) R. Macina, L'homme à l'école de Dieu: d'Antioche à Nisibe: Profil herméneutique, théologique et kérygmatique du mouvement scholiaste nestorien, *Proche-Orient Chretien* 33 (1983) 97 and n. 279, p. 96–97.

(38) R. Macina, L'homme à l'école de Dieu..., n. 121, pp. 42–43. Late Nestorian theologians report on Theodore of Mopsuestia and Diodore of Tar-

Yet three hundred years is too large a period to automatically connect the Iconoclasts with their fourth century predecessors. In order to understand better the background of the doctrine about the subtle Resurrected body, we need to look in the sixth century theological debates, where both Origenian and Antiochean theologies were banned from the Constantinopolitan church. Neither among the two sets of anathemas against the Origenists, nor among the anathemas against Theodore of Mopsuestia can we find the doctrine about the subtle body of the Resurrection condemned except the most excessive version of this doctrine, stating that resurrected bodies (both of Christ and ours) become spherical and ethereal.[39] Yet does this little interest mean that this doctrine was so insignificant or marginal for the "big" sixth century controversies that it was not followed by any significant theologian and was simply passed over in silence by the theological Councils of the time? Indeed not.

In a study on the theology of the second Iconoclasm, V. M. Lourié discovered what seems to have been the intermediate source of the Iconoclastic doctrine of Christ's subtle Resurrected body. Looking closer at a strange question by Patriarch John Grammaticus to Theophanes the Confessor concerning the state of Christ's flesh in the Sepulcher,[40] V. M. Lourié noticed that at least one theologian in the sixth century

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sus' belief in the doctrine of the final apokatastasis (R. Beulay, *La Lumière sans forme. Introduction à l'étude de la mystique chrétienne syro-orientale* (Chevetogne: Éditions de Chevetogne, n. d) n. 73, p. 195); cf. Guillaumont, *Les 'Kephalaia Gnostica'...*, 181, on accusations of Theodore of Mopsuestia in Origenism on the grounds of difference between Christ and the Word.

(39) The fifth anathema from the Edict of Justinian (E. Schwartz (ed.), *Acta Conciliorum Oecumenicorum*, t. 3 (Berlin, 1940) 213, 25–26), and the tenth anathema of the Fifth Ecumenical Council (Ibid., 249, 19–22).

(40) When Theophanes the Confessor was interrogated by the Iconoclastic Patriarch John Grammaticus, he was specifically asked: "In the tomb in which Christ's body lay, where was his divinity?" to which the Confessor replied: "Divinity is everywhere, but in your heart, oh, adversary of God! (S. Efthymiadis, Le Panégyrique de S. Théophane le Confesseur par S. Théodore Stoudite (BHG 1792b). Édition critique, *AB* 111 (1993) 280). For the dossier of Patristic texts related to the problem of the relationship between the Word, body, and soul in the period when the dead body of Christ was in the tomb, see J. Lebon, Une ancienne opinion sur la condition du corps du Christ dans la mort, *RHE* 23 (1927) 5–43, 209–241; J. Lebourlier, À propos de l'état du Christ dans la mort, *Revue des sciences philosophiques et théologiques* 46 (1962) 629–649; 47 (1963) 161–180.

was pre-occupied with a very similar theological problem,[41] that is Eutychius, the Patriarch of Constantinople (552–565, 577–582).

In his *Moralia on Job* Pope Gregory the Dialogist informs us of the "heretical" doctrine of Patriarch Eutychius, which appeared in a book by the Patriarch as well as in personal conversations of the two hierarchs. According to Pope Gregory, Eutychius wrote that "...corpus nostrum in illa resurrectioni gloria erit impalpabile, ventis aereque subtilius,"[42] to which Pope Gregory replied that according to Rom 6: 9 (*Christus resurgens a mortuis, jam non moritur, mors illi ultra non dominabitur*), a change of body in the Resurrection does not occur, to which Eutychius responded that: "Cum scriptum sit: *Caro et sanguis regnum Dei possidere non possunt* (1 Cor 15: 50), qua ratione credendum est resurgere veraciter carnem?" implying by his question the absence of Christ's flesh after His Resurrection. The Pope pointed that the two meanings of the word "flesh" must be distinguished: one signifies human nature in general, and the other signifies sin, about which the Apostle spoke.

The "flesh" of the resurrection is that "glory" which Christ and the faithful receive in the Resurrection. Eventually Eutychius repented in professing this doctrine and finished his life with the words: "Confiteor quia omnes in hac carne resurgemus." Thus, in the theology of Patriarch Eutychius in sixth century Constantinople we can find a familiar doctrine on the change of the material body into a new "glorious" and subtle body after the Resurrection.[43]

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(41) B. Lourié, Le second iconoclasme en récherche de la vraie doctrine, in: M. F. Wiles and E. J. Yarnold (eds.), *SP* 34 (Leuven: Peeters, 2001) 153–155. The previous study on the subject: Y.-M. Duval, La discussion entre l'apocrisiaire Grégoire et le patriarche Eutychios au sujet de la résurrection de la chair. L'arrière-plan doctrinal oriental et occidental, in: J. Fontaine, R. Gillet, S. Pellistrandi (eds.), *Grégoire le Grand: Colloques internationaux du Centre national de la recherché scientifique, Chantilly, 15–19 septembre 1982* (Paris: Centre national de la recherché scientifique, 1986) 129–158 was not available to me.

(42) *Moralia on Job*, book 14, chapter 56, 72; M. Adriaen (ed.), *S. Gregorii Magni Moralia in Iob. Libri XI–XXII* (Turnhout: Brepols, 1979) (Corpus Christianorum, Series Latina 143A) 743, 4–5. On the theological position of Patriarch Eutychius see also B. Lourié, Un autre monothélisme: le cas de Constantin d'Apamée au VI[e] Concile œcuménique, in: *SP* 29 (Leuven: Peeters, 1997) 290–303.

(43) B. Lourié, Le second iconoclasme en récherche de la vraie doctrine, in: M. F. Wiles, E. J. Yarnold (eds.), *SP* 34 (Leuven: Peeters, 2001) 153, n. 28.

The doctrine of Patriarch Eutychius found several mighty adversaries.[44] Besides Pope Gregory the Dialogist, it was Emperor Justinian who opposed it with an entirely different doctrine on Christ's body, namely, the view that Christ's body did not *obtain* incorruptibility, impassability, etc. after the Resurrection but possessed these qualities from the beginning, from the moment of the Incarnation. We mainly know about Justinian's alleged "aphthartodocetism" from his adversaries, especially from Eustratius, the biographer of Patriarch Eutychius, who reports in his *Vita Eutychii*, that Justinian held the tenet that "The body of Lord Jesus Christ became incorruptible from the very beginning of the union (ἄφθαρτον τὸ σῶμα… ἐξ αὐτῆς ἑνώσεος γεγενῆσθαι)."[45] Eustratius interprets Justinian's doctrine as pure docetism, which almost ruined the whole world. Evagrius Scholasticus as well reports that Justinian:

> …called the body of the Lord incorruptible and unreceptive for the physical and blameless passions; thus he said that the Lord had already eaten before the passion as he did after the resurrection; that he experienced no change or alteration from his formation in the womb onwards, not even in the voluntary and physical passions, just as after the resurrection of his holy body.[46]

The position of Justinian, however, cannot be identified with the Apthartodocetism of the Monophysite Gaianists, though such connection was made by the contemporaneous heresiologists in order to cast doubts on the Orthodoxy of the aged Emperor, who was becoming quite unpopular towards the end of his reign and who could be best criticized on the basis of the issues of faith.

In assessing the Orthodoxy of Justinian, the majority of scholars agree that, first, the Emperor-theologian certainly did not fall under

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(44) For another study of the debate between Eutychius and Pope Gregory, that, however, does not contain any principal advancements since the study of B. Lourié, see В. Б. Прозоров, Реальность плоти воскресшего тела (спор Григория Великого с Константинопольским патриархом Евтихием), in: *Д.* М. Андреев, А. *И.* Неклесс, В. Б. Прозоров (ред.), *Эсхатологический сборник* (Москва: Алетейя, 2006) 98–108.

(45) Eustratius, *Vita Eutychii*, IV, 33, quoted in A. Grillmeier, *Christ in the Christian Tradition*, vol. 2, part 2: *The Church of Constantinople in the Sixth Century* (London: Mowbray, 1995) 469.

(46) J. Bidez and L. Parmentier (eds.), Evagrius. *Ecclesiastical History* (Amsterdam: Adolf M. Hakkert Publisher, 1964) IV, 39, 16–23 [p. 190], quoted in Grillmeier, 469.

the influence of the denial of Christ's humanity, as "the heresy of Aphtharodocetism" was perceived at his time, and, second, that Justinian most certainly remained Chalcedonian; he denied the Monophysite formula of "one nature" and confessed two natures of Christ.[47] Though the problem of Justinian's "Aphtharodocetism" is far from being settled, it is possible to suggest that Justinian's doctrine of the constancy of the qualities of Christ's Body before and after His Resurrection was worked out in opposition to the doctrine which we know about in the writings of Patriarch Eutychius. This doctrine taught about the radical change of qualities of Christ's Body after the Resurrection, and the same doctrine we also detected in Origen and his followers in the Alexandrine school as well as in Theodore of Mopsuestia and his followers from the School of Antioch. It is likely that in promulgating what became known as the "doctrine of Justinian's Aphtharodocetism," the Emperor tried "to close a hole" left by the anti-Origenian and anti-Antiochean Councils, which left this doctrine out of consideration.

Theological discussions of the status of Christ's resurrected body were not limited to the debate of Patriarch Eutychius and Pope Gregory. In the second half of the sixth century Patriarch Anastasius I of Antioch (559–570, 593–599) in his *Sermon on the Transfiguration* builds up his argument on the basis of a doctrine that in the second coming of Christ of which the transfiguration is a foreshadowing, Christ will come not in the body he had while living on the Earth but in a spiritual

(47) A. Grillmeier, *Christ in the Christian Tradition*, vol. 2, part 2: *The Church of Constantinople in the Sixth Century* (London: Mowbray, 1995) 471–473. See also M. Jugie, L'Empereur Justinien a-t-il été aphtharodocete?, *EO* 31 (1932) 399–402; F. Carcione, L''aftartodocetismo' di Giustiniano: una mistificazione strumentale del dissenso politico-religioso, *Studi e ricerche sull'oriente cristiano* 7 (1984) 71–78. Strictly speaking, the doctrine on the state of the Resurrected body did not have to be tied with a traditional Christological division: a set of aphthartodocetic works were composed in the Armenian Church at the time when it was officially accepting the Council of Chalcedon (630–717) (M. van Esbroeck, The Aphthartodocetic Edict of Justinian and Its Armenian Background, in: E. Livingstone (ed.), *SP* 33 (Leuven: Peeters, 1997) 584). According to the *Synaxarion* of Constantinople, which expresses the official ecclesiastical attitude of the Constantinopolitan Church, Emperor Justinian is a saint and never fell into a heresy, see the *Synaxarion* of Constantinople under November 14 (H. Delehaye (ed.), *Synaxarium Ecclesiae Constantinopolitae* (Bruxellis: Socios Bollandianos, 1902) col. 224,1f).

and heavenly body which he has had since his Resurrection.[48] This body is not only incorruptible but also is "less dense" and less material than Christ's former body, and our bodies will become just the same after the general Resurrection.[49]

However, the doctrine of Anastasius seems to have been also aimed at refutation of certain adversaries, who believed in the "crude," material Resurrection. Dirk Krausmmüller, whose argument I will summarize here, identified a representative of this trend — priest Timothy of Antioch (6th/7th C.), whose views on the quality of the Resurrected body are manifested in his *Sermon on the Transfiguration*. Timothy considers the bodies of Moses and Elijah who appeared at the Transfiguration solid, "carnal," and material, and "while Timothy still insists on the superiority of the glorified body the difference between it and the earthly bodies is now simply one of degree."[50] A similar view can be already found in Ephraem of Amida who was the Patriarch of Antioch under Justinian and a fighter against the Origenist monks in Palestine.[51] Ephrem insists that the resurrected body will only be "better" than the body of Adam before the Fall but will not be turned into a soul.[52]

The conflict of two concepts ("carnal" and "spiritualistic") is testified by a Letter of Maximus the Confessor, where he complained about the spread of "a new dogma about the resurrection" whose main points were "that at the resurrection the bodies will again be kept alive through phlegm and blood and red and black bile and drawing in of air and sensible food so that nothing extraordinary at all will appear

(48) τὸ μετὰ ἀναστάσεως μεταστοιχειωθὲν ἐπὶ τὸ πνευματικὸν καὶ επουράνιον (*PG* 89, 1365A6/7). Anastasius returns to this theme at the end of his interpretation (cf. *PG* 89, 1376B9–13.) The doctrine of Patriarch Anastasius was analyzed in D. Krausmüller, The Real and the Individual. Byzantine concepts of the Resurrection, part 1, *Gouden Hoorn / Golden Horn* 5. 1 (summer 1997), accessed at http://www.isidore-of-seville.com/goudenhoorn/51dirk.html on Jan. 3, 2008.

(49) τὸ ἴδιον σῶμα μεταποιήσας εἰς ἀφθαρσίαν (*PG* 89, 1365A5/6; cf.: *PG* 89, 1376C2). Cf.: ἀπὸ τῶν παχυτέρων ἐπὶ τὰ πνευματικὰ σώματα μεταστοιχείωσιν (*PG* 89, 1376B11/12), and: τοῦ παχυτέρου κόσμου (*PG* 89, 1365C9). D. Krausmuller rightly observes that the opposite quality which is implied by the comparative here would be λεπτότερον.

(50) D. Krausmüller, Timothy of Antioch. Byzantine Concepts of the Resurrection, part 2, *Gouden Hoorn/Golden Horn* 5. 2 (winter 1997–1998), http://www.isidore-of-seville.com/goudenhoorn/52dirk.html on Jan. 3, 2008.

(51) Cf. E. Schwartz, *Kyrillos von Skythopolis* (Leipzig, 1939) 191.

(52) Ephrem of Amida, *Five Chapters to Anatolius Scholasticus* (R. Henry (ed.), Photius, *Bibliotheca*, vol. 4, (Paris, 1965) cod. 229, p. 253b30–35, p. 139).

through the resurrection compared with the present life apart from the fact that one will not be able to die again."[53]

Finally we should return for a moment to the Iconoclastic debate. According to the Iconodulic refutation, the Iconoclasts interpreted the Scriptural verse from 2 Cor. 5: 16 in a radically different manner from that of two passages from John Chrysostom and Cyril of Alexandria cited at the Sixth Session of Nicea II,[54] which expressed the Iconodulic interpretation of the passage: Christ's existence "not according to flesh" means the sameness of his body with the only difference that it obtained after the Resurrection freedom from any passion and suffering such as hunger or thirst.[55]

Why were the Alexandrine Cyril of Alexandria and Antiochean John Chrysostom considered the best fit for the position of the Iconodules on the retaining of the material element in the Resurrected body? Cyril's single and divine subject of Christology, especially in its earlier period before the Nestorian Controversy, must have been shaped by his domestic fight with the remnants of Origenism in Alexandria. Marie-Odile Boulnois amply showed that the Cyrillian doctrine of retaining the sameness of the resurrected body was developed in direct opposition to Origenist eschatological doctrines probably common among certain monks at the time of Cyril. Although the foundation of these doctrines for Cyril are not purely polemical but rather soteriological and Christological: Christ was resurrected in his own body and not in a kind of alien temple of different substance.[56] Unfortunately, as far as

(53) Maximus the Confessor, *Epistula* 7 (*PG* 91, 433C4–12), quoted in D. Krausmüller, Timothy of Antioch...

(54) For Cyril of Alexandria, see P. Van den Ven, La patristique et hagiographie du Concile de Nicée de 787, *Byzantion* 25–27 (1955–1957) no. 26, p. 350 (Mansi, 13, 320E–324B, esp. 321E; from Cyril of Alexandria's *Sermon against the Synousiasts*). For John Chrysostom, see Ibid., no. 41, p. 352 (Mansi, 13, 288D, from John Chrysostom's *Eleventh Homily on the Second Epistle to the Corinthians*), and no. 42, p. 353 (Mansi, 13, 289E, from John Chrysostom's *Tenth Homily on the Second Epistle to the Corinthians*). For a similar interpretation of the verse, see Theodore the Studite, *Antirrheticus* II (*PG* 99, 385CD).

(55) Or, in theological terms, after the Resurrection, Christ puts away the "natural" of "blameless" passions (cf. B. Kotter (Hrsg.), Johannes von Damaskos. *Expositio fidei. Die Schriften des Johannes von Damaskos*, B. 2 (Berlin—New York: Walter de Gruyter, 1973) (PTS 12) 162, 9–10; Ibid., 237, 92ff, and esp. 238, 104–105).

(56) M.-O. Boulnois, Le resurrection des corps selon Cyrille d'Alexandrie: une critique de la doctrine origénienne?, *Adamantius* 8 (2002) 83–113; Idem, Cyrille d'Alexandrie est-il un témoin de la controverse origéniste sur l'iden-

I know there is so far no comprehensive study of John Chrsysostom's eschatological doctrine which may show similar traits but developed in opposition to the radical "Antiochism" of such contemporary theologians as Theodore of Mopsuestia.

Thus, we may conclude that the doctrine of radical changes of bodily qualities after the Resurrection and transformation of the material body into a "spiritual" one was not a property of only one theological school. It appears not only among such Christian Platonist theologians as Origen, Dydimus and Evagrius but in Theodore of Mopsuestia's theory of the spiritual *katastasis*, 150 years later in Eutychius of Constantinople and Anastasius of Antioch, and another hundred years later among the Byzantine Iconoclasts. Although the eschatological doctrine of changing bodily substance until the sixth century had never been in the mainstream of theological debates, it has been countered, perhaps on different grounds, by such theologians as Cyril of Alexandria and John Chrysostom whose prove-texts, especially concerning the exegesis of 2 Cor 5:16, were later used by the Byzantine Iconodules for combating their Iconoclastic adversaries.

SUMMARY

This paper focuses on the opposing views concerning the qualities of Christ's Resurrected body expressed by the Byzantine Iconoclasts in the Definition of the Council of Hiereia (754) and by the Byzantine Iconodules in the refutation of the Definition at the Second Council of Nicaea (787). According to the Iconodules, who used the authority of Antiochean John Chrysostom and Alexandrian Cyril of Alexandria, Christ's resurrected body retains its material component but casts off certain natural limitations of the human body. Another trend is represented by the Iconoclasts and such theologians as Alexandrian Origen and Antiochean Theodore of Mopsuestia. In spite of their specific and different theologies they held that in the resurrection a radical change occurs with Christ's body and it becomes subtle, casting away its dense material elements. The paper finds parallels with the doctrine of a subtle body among neo-Platonic philosophers, traces the tentative development of the doctrine into the Iconoclastic period, and attempts at challenging the popular view on the theological opposition between the two main theological schools of late antiquity as far as their doctrines of Christ's Resurrected body are concerned.

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tité de corps mortel et de corps ressuscité? in L. Perrone et al. (eds.), *Origeniana Octava. Origen and the Alexandrian Tradition*, vol. 2 (Leuven: Peeters, 2003) (BETL 164) 843–859.

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Sendai

ORIGEN AS A BIBLICAL SCHOLAR IN HIS COMMENTARY ON *THE GOSPEL ACCORDING TO MATTHEW XVII:29*

Introduction

Although Origen in producing many commentaries and homilies and constructing the *Hexapla* influenced the development of the later Christian tradition, especially Biblical Theology, most of Origen's writings were lost due to the heresy charges against him in the sixth century. One of the most controversial aspects of Origen's theology was his understanding of the resurrection. In this study I want to show on the basis of Origen's *Commentary on the Gospel according to Matthew* XVII:29, how Origen expanded the critical principle of Alexandrian philological tradition to his Biblical exegesis, and I want to clarify the significance of his exegetical method for the formation of Canonical principle in Early Christianity.

With the process of the globalization of the world, we need new and pluralistic approaches which take into consideration the cultural situation of Alexandria which realized unprecedentedly the principle that "the productive meeting of cultures stems from a common life of different communities."[1] Charles Kannengiesser is the pioneer in this direction, who organized the international *Origen Colloquim* under the theme of "Origen of Alexandria — His World and his Legacy" at the University of Notre Dame (Indiana) in 1982.[2] In 1987 Bernhard Neuschäfer published his ground breaking study *Origenes als Philologe*[3] which shed light on Origen's exegetical method and cogently replaced his widespread image as an allegorical exegete with a philo-

(1) G. G. Stroumsa, Alexandria and the Myth of Multiculturalism, in: L. Perrone et al. (eds), *Origeniana Octava. Origen and the Alexandrian Tradition*, vol. 1 (Leuven: Peeters, 2003) (BETL 164) 23.

(2) Ch. Kannengiesser, W. L. Peterson (eds.), *Origen of Alexandria—His World and his Legacy* (Notre Dame: University of Notre Dame Press, 1988) (Christianity and Judaism in Antiquity 1).

(3) B. Neuschäfer, *Origenes als Philologe* (Basel: Friedrich Reinhardt Verlag, 1987).

logical Biblical exegete. In this direction, new approaches appeared in Origenian studies. We can certainly recognize such a decisive shift of scholarly interest in the *Colloquium Origenianum Octavum* in 2001, which was held under the theme of "Origen and the Alexandrian Tradition," in concurrence with the reconstruction of the famous Alexandrian Library.[4]

Ch. Jacob delivered a lecture at the opening session under the title of "Bibliotheque, livre, texte: formes de l'erudition alexandrine" which pointed out such a possible influence upon Origen, and the paper presented by J. A. McGuckin ("Origen as Literary Critic in the Alexandrian Tradition") located the literary background of Origen's exegetical activity in the continuity between the background of the Great Library in Alexandria and the Schola-Library at Caesarea.[5] Now we have more understanding of Origen's literary activity in relation to the religious-cultural situation in ancient Alexandria and Caesarea, where Origen encountered different intellectual religious trends (Judaism, Hellenistic philosophies and Gnosticism) and was involved in intellectual dialogues and religious controversies in an incomparable manner. But we have not come up with an assessment of Origen's unprecedented achievement in the ancient cultural situation and subsequent ages.

In this study, I want to show on the basis of textual evidence from Origen's *Commentary on the Gospel according to Matthew* XVII:29 that Origen expanded the critical principle of the Alexandrian philological tradition ("interpreting Homer only by means of Homer")[6] to his exegetical principle ("Scripture should be interpreted from Scripture"), and I would like to clarify the significance of Origen's Biblical exegesis in the context of the Alexandrian philological tradition.

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(4) See L. D. Reynolds, N. G. Wilson, *Scribes and Scholars; A Guide to the Transmission of Greek and Latin Literature* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, ³1991); Mostafa El-Abbadi, *Life and Fate of the Ancient Library of Alexandria* (Paris: Unesco, 1990).

(5) J. A. McGuckin, Origen as Literary Critic in the Alexandrian Tradition, in: L. Perrone et al. (eds), *Origeniana Octava. Origen and the Alexandrian Tradition*, vol. 1 (Leuven: Peeters, 2003) (BETL 164) 121–136.

(6) The phrase comes from Porphyry, *Questions Homericae ad Illiadem* (ed. H. Schraeder 297.16). Concerning Origen's use of his exegetical method, McGuckin suggests that "This principle has often been claimed as a «pure Biblicist» or rabbinic axiom. It emanates from the learned Hellenists" (McGuckin, Origen as Literary Critic…, 123, n. 11).

1. On the formation of Origen's image as an eminent Christian allegorist

Concerning Origen's relation to Biblical interpretation, the fact that his triple (literal–moral–spiritual) exegetical method which corresponds to his threefold anthropology (body–soul–spirit)[7] has been overemphasized or misunderstood, seems to have influenced his unjust or negative estimation, because such a method, especially his allegorical interpretation, appeared indiscernible from that which flourished among Hellenistic philosophers and Gnostic groups to interpret various myths. Consequently, Origen has been regarded as an eminent allegorical exegete in the long Church History, whether by his opponents or by his adherents.

But as this study will indicate, if we examine how Origen deals with allegorical interpretation in his works, we can recognize that since Origen was conscious of subversive power embraced in the allegorical method,[8] he used this method extremely deliberately and sometimes with definite restraint in a controversial context with Gnostics and Hellenistic philosophers. Therefore it is necessary to reconsider Origen's notorious image as an allegorical interpreter, why such a widespread estimation was formed of him and became well-established in the following Christian tradition despite his controversial intention.

To trace the process of forming such an evaluation contrary from Origen's intention, the study of Neuschäfer can shed new light on this problem. He noticed that the hermeneutical-exegetical charges against him were advanced concentrating on the antithetical pair of *historia-allegoria* under the influence of the Antiochian critics (i.e. Diodore of Tarsus), Hieronymus and Epiphanius.[9] According to Jon F. Dechow, Epiphanius of Cyprus "singles out Origen as the key representative of an entire strain of Alexandrian allegorical exegesis that provides a pattern of allegorizing to justify any heretical aberration and start a chain reaction affecting all Christian doctrine."[10]

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(7) For the new approach to his threefold exegesis, see E. A. Dively Lauro, *The Soul and Spirit of Scripture within Origen's Exegesis* (Boston and Leiden: Brill, 2005).

(8) D. Dawson, *Allegorical Readers and Cultural Revision in Ancient Alexandria* (Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press, 1992).

(9) Neuschäfer, *Origenes als Philologe…*, 11–16.

(10) J. F. Dechow, The Heresy Charges against Origen, in: L. Lies (ed.), *Origeniana Quarta. Die Referate des 4. Internationalen Origeneskongresses (Inns-*

But when we presuppose Origen's exegetical activity against the Alexandrian philological background, it is important to notice that respect for allegorical interpretation in the case of textual interpretation is essentially contrary to the ethos and tradition of Alexandrian philology.[11] According to the study of Akira Nomachi, Alexandrian philology is tied with the words written in the text and aims at the determination of the authenticity of the text based on the comparison of manuscripts, as its Homeric study indicates, whereas the allegorical interpretation of the text is a fundamental method of the Pergamian philology which was adopted against the Alexandrian philology. Originally the Greek term "allegoria" means etymologically "one thing said, another intended (ἀλληγορέω from ἀλλὸ ἀγορεύω)," in other words a variant of the text, so it was an exegetical method to find out the author's intention somewhere other than in the words written in the text. And in the case of Origen, he seemed to perceive the strong tension between these two cultural currents.

2. The influence of Paul upon the Biblical interpretation of Origen

Although Origen was not preoccupied *per se* with each word written in the Scriptural texts as literalists were, he seems to have gradually embraced the Scriptures as a Canonical principle. We know that Origen was strenuously engaged in the construction of the *Hexapla* and the formation of the Canonical list (Eusebius, *Church History*, VI, 25). John McGuckin formulates Origen's Canonical notion as "the idea of a universal system of explaining the inner rationale of a Canon of inspired literature; one that has demonstrable coherence, and can be navigated with a precise 'hermeneutical astrolabe.'"[12] So, we may say that Origen shifts the term "allegory" from the Hellenistic-Gnostic meaning (the method to find out author's intention somewhere other than in the words written in the text) to the Canonical principle based on the Alexandrian philological method (Scripture should be interpreted from Scripture in so far as it has the inner rational).

In my opinion, such a shift could be inspired by his reception of Pauline theology in the last twenty years of his life, where Origen un-

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bruck, 2.–6. September 1985) (Innsbruck, 1987) (Innsbrucker theologische Studien 19) 116.

(11) A. Nomachi, *Mysterious Ancient City Alexandria* (Tokyo, 2000) 152–154 (in Japanese).

(12) McGuckin, Origen as Literary Critic…, 125.

dertook the composition of his Commentaries and Homilies,[13] and constructed his theological treatises. I pointed out before that Origen resorted to Pauline passages when he closed or concluded his discussions in his theological works such as *Peri Archon* and *Contra Celsum*.[14] Recently Christoph Markschies maintained Origen's "Paulinism" and said, "Origen endeavored to understand Paul in the framework of the whole Bible (especially of the Old Testament) in an inclusively 'Canonical reading.'"[15]

This tendency seems to appear from the latter part of the *Peri Archon* where there prevails an anti-Marchionite polemics. According to Charles Kannengiesser, *Peri Archon* traced the complex process of the formation, and could be divided into two main parts. He called the first part (preface, book I – book II, chapter 3 and recapitulation) "*Peri Archon* proper," because "It is the treatise *Peri Archon* originally written by Origen, as a consistent 'body of doctrine,' with a symmetrical preface and recapitulation, which encompasses eleven chapters, the last three of which forming an annex, eight others being divided by the author into two expositions." After that Origen added to his original *Peri Archon* a series of lectures and put together the bulk of writing which form now *Peri Archon* book II, chapter 4 through book IV, chapter 4. In this latter part prevails anti-Marchionite polemics, and the style is much looser, the homiletic address is turned to the church community.[16]

As I showed at the last conference of the West Pacific Rim Patristic Society in Tokyo (2004), when Origen quotes *Galatians* 4: 21–31 as textual evidence for his spiritual exegesis in *Peri Archon* IV,2,6, he emphasizes

(13) Origen composed his Commentaries on Philemon, Ephesians, Philippians, and Colossians after 233, his Homilies on I Corinthians around 240, his Commentary on Romans in 244, and a great number of lost Homilies and Commentaries.

(14) M. Demura, The Resurrection of the Body and Soul in Origen's *Contra Celsum*, in: E. A. Livingstone (ed.), *SP* 18.3 (Leuven, 1989) 385–391; idem, The Biblical Tradition of resurrection in Early Christianity; Pauline Influence on Origen's Theology of Resurrection, *Annual of the Japanese Biblical Institute* 25–26 (1999–2000) 135–151; idem, Origen's allegorical interpretation and the Philological tradition of Alexandria, in: *Origeniana Nona* (in press).

(15) See the entry of C. Markschies, Paul the Apostle, in: J. A. McGuckin (ed.), *The Westminster Handbook to Origen* (London, 2004) 167–169.

(16) Ch. Kannengiesser, Origen, Systematician in *De Principiis*, in: *Origeniana Quinta*, Papers of the 5th International Origen Congress. (Boston College, 14–18 August 1989) (Leuven, 1992) (BETL 105) 395–405.

the fact that the notion of allegorical interpretation (ἀλληγορούμενα) can be found in this Pauline text. According to Biblical scholar Takaaki Haraguchi, these Galatian passages may be called "Christian Midrash" following the Judaic Midrash whose feature consists of "starting from Scripture" and "interpreting one Biblical passage from another Biblical passage."[17] It is important to note that Origen adopted the method of allegorical interpretation based on the Pauline passage, in contrast to the allegories of Greek philosophers and Gnostics of his time which had been developed as a rationalistic interpretative method of ancient myths.[18]

When Origen discusses triple meanings of the Bible, he mentions these Pauline passages (Gal. 4: 21–31) to illustrate the "allegorical meaning" in the *Peri Archon*, but in the *Contra Celsum* IV,44, where he replies to his adversary Celsus, he refrains from applying "allegory" to his Biblical interpretation to the best of his ability as following: "It is not we who teach that brides and maidservants are to be interpreted as *tropologia*, but we have received this from wise men before us. One of them said these words in order to arouse the hearer to the *tropologia*, 'Tell me, you who read the law.'" Then Origen considers Pauline allegorical interpretation of Hagar as "this Jerusalem" and Sarah as "the Jerusalem which is above" to be his paradigm of *tropologia*. The reason why he replaced the notion of *allegoria* with the term *tropologia*, might be found in the fact that he noticed the eschatological dimension of this Pauline passage.[19] If it is the case that "the contrast of this Jerusalem with the Jerusalem to come is a theme found in Judaic and Christian apocalyptic literatures" and "it is the initiative of Paul that applied this eschatological symbolism to the historical horizon of the relation between Judaism and Christianity,"[20] we might say that we can recognize such a Pauline soteriological and eschatological perspective in Origen's *tropologia*.

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(17) T. Haraguchi, *A Commentary on the Epistle to the Galatians* (Tokyo, 2004) 194 (in Japanese). On the typical logical structure of the Midrash, see J. Neusner, *What is Midrash?* (Philadelphia: Fortress, 1987) 8–9, 13.

(18) M. Demura, Origen and the Philological tradition of Alexandria in the Commentary according to Matthew XVII, 29–30, *Church and Theology (The Research Association of Tohoku Gakuin University)* 43 (2006) 23–47 (in Japanese).

(19) J. D. G. Dunn showed that the eschatological dimension to Paul's handling of the scriptures marks his exposition off quite clearly from Philo's (J. D. G. Dunn, *The Epistle to the Galatians* (Peabody: Hendrickson, 1993) 248).

(20) Haraguchi, *A Commentary…*, 199.

3. Origen's Commentary on the Gospel according to Matthew XVII:29

Finally we will turn to Origen's *Commentary on the Gospel according to Matthew* XVII:29 to confirm Origen's "Paulinism" also in his Gospel Commentary. This Commentary was composed in his later years and was not transmitted as a whole. We have eight books in Greek, from X to XVII, which cover Matt. 13:16–22:33, and also a Latin translation of an unknown translator.[21] Here I use the Greek text of his *Commentary on the Gospel according to Matthew* XVII:29 from the edition of *GCS*[22] to survey how Origen interpreted Matthew 22:23–33, the passage known as the dialogue on the Resurrection of the Dead, in his Matthean Commentary.

When we notice the structure of his exegetical process in this text, at first we recognize the fact that Origen shifts the setting of the dialogue of Jesus and the Sadducees to that of the controversy between Paul and his opponents in the Corinthian Church, on the grounds that such a negative attitude toward the resurrection of the dead was also conceived by some Corinthians who declared to be no resurrection at all at the time of the Apostle. And then Origen develops the discussion mainly quoting texts from the First Letter of Paul to the Corinthians 15:12, 15:19, 15:29f., and 15:30, and especially the Letter to the Romans 8:11 which seems to be an important testimony for his idea, i.e. "he will give life to your mortal bodies *through his Spirit which dwells in you* (ζῳοποιήσει τὰ θνητὰ ὑμῶν σώματα διὰ τὸ ἐνοικοῦν αὐτοῦ πνεῦμα ἐν ὑμῖν)."

Then Origen contrasts Pauline testimonies of the resurrection with the quotations from the Old Testament which could promote literal interpretations of the resurrection, i.e., "all the flesh shall see the salvation of God (ὄψεται πᾶσα σὰρξ τὸ σωτήριον τοῦ θεοῦ)" in the Book of Isaiah 40:5, and in the Book of Job 19:25: "that my Redeemer who is to stand upon the earth is everlasting, and my skin which bears those

(21) H. Crouzel, *Origen: The Life and Thought of the First Great Theologian* (San Francisco: Harper & Row, 1989) 42–43. Ch. Kannengiesser, *Handbook of Patristic Exegesis,* vol. 1 (Leiden: Brill, 2004) 43.

(22) E. Benz, E. Klostermann (Hrsg.), *Origenes Werke* (Leipzig: Hinrichs, 1935) (GCS, 10) 663–672. Recently H. Vogt published the German translation of this work (H. Vogt, *Origenes Der Kommentar zum Evangelium nach Mattäus, I–III* (Stuttgart, 1993)).

will be resurrected (ὁτι ἀέννaός ἐστιν ὁ ἐκλύειν με μέλλων ἐπὶ τῆς γῆς, καὶ ἀναστῆσαι τὸ δέρμα μου τὸ ἀνατλοῦν ταῦτα)."

And finally Origen explains the reason for a series of quotations from the Pauline passages which testify to the spiritual interpretation of the resurrection, and says: "because they can show what is meant by the word 'resurrection' in this Gospel text (ὁση δύναμις καθαίρωμεν τὸ ἐν τῇ ἐκκειμένῃ λέξει τοῦ εὐαγγελίου σημαινόμενον ἀπὸ τῆς ἀνάστασις φωνῆς)."

Here we see that Origen gradually focuses on the Pauline notions and articulates the meaning of the word resurrection in the Gospel of Matthew in terms of Pauline expressions.

Conclusion

From this survey we confirm that Origen characterized his inquiry into the deeper meaning of the Biblical passage on the basis of the Pauline testimony in contrast to the allegory used outside of Christianity. But here we need to ask why his exegetical method has suffered from long-standing hostile criticism. From my survey of his polemical discussions unfolded in his works, I would like to attract attention to the actual situation of his church communities in Alexandria and Caesarea, which were exposed to a strong attack against Christian teachings and Biblical texts. I suppose the fact that Pauline Letters were accepted favorably among the Gnostics in Origen's time would have made his critical intention in his exegetical method indiscernible, and besides the connection between his triple exegetical method and allegory were presumed to be suspicious in the following Church history.[23]

If we pay attention to the recipient situation of the Pauline Letters in the early Christianity, we can see that the Pauline Letters were not so influential on second century Christian writings. Campenhausen asserted that the evaluation of Paul during the second century was drastically underestimated because of the exclusive favoritism toward him among heretical groups like Marcionites and other Gnostic sects, and as a result, Paul was disregarded entirely among devout Orthodox circles.[24] And moreover, Irenaeus and Tertullian testified that it was difficult for the public to discern the heterodoxy of their opponents in

(23) See Demura, The Biblical Tradition of resurrection...

(24) H. von Campenhausen, *The formation of the Christian Bible* (Philadelphia, 1972) 177f. See also W. Schneemelcher, Paulus in der griechischen Kirche des zweiten Jahrhunderts, *ZKG* 75 (1964), 5ff.; E. Pagels, *The Gnostic Paul—Gnostic Exegesis of the Pauline letters*. (Philadelphia, 1992).

public discussion because of their similarity with the Christian Church viewpoint.[25] If we realize as Simonetti comments on Origen, that "no-one before him had made a commentary in any systematic way on an entire book either of the Old Testament or the New Testament,"[26] Origen really deserves the name of the founder of Biblical Theology.

SUMMARY

Although Origen, in producing many commentaries and homilies and constructing the *Hexapla*, greatly influenced the development of the later Christian tradition, especially biblical theology, most of his writings were lost due to the heresy charges against him in the 6th century. One of the most controversial aspects of Origen's theology was his understanding of the resurrection. In this study, I would like to show based upon Origen's *Commentary on the Gospel according to Matthew* XVII, 29–30 how Origen expanded the critical principle of the Alexandrian philological tradition to his exegetical principle, and to clarify the significance of his exegetical method for the formation of canonical principle in early Christianity.

(25) Irenaeus, *Adversus haereses*, III,15.2: Tertullian, *De praesciptione haereticorum*,18; See K. Koschorke, *Die Polemik der Gnostiker gegen das kirchliche Christentum* (Leiden, 1976); H. Strutwolf, *Gnosis als System* (Göttingen, 1993); C. Markschies, Valentinianische Gnosis in Alexandrien und Ägypten, in: L. Perrone et al. (eds), *Origeniana Octava. Origen and the Alexandrian Tradition*, vol. 1 (Leuven: Peeters, 2003) (BETL 164) 331–346.

(26) J. A. Hughes (trans.), Manlio Simonetti, *Biblical Interpretation in the early church: An Historical Introduction to Patristic Exegesis* (Edinburgh, 1994) 40.

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ORIGEN'S INTERPRETATION OF LUKE 1:35: "THE POWER OF THE MOST HIGH WILL OVERSHADOW YOU"

Introduction

Origen has been considered a Marian doctor by the Latin 12th century.[1] According to him, Mary is the type, the model of the spiritual, the "pneumatic." The words of the Archangel Gabriel to Mary, answering her question on how the conception of Jesus might occur, offer a key passage to enter Origen's Mariology: "The angel said to her, 'The Holy Spirit will come upon you, and the power of the Most High will overshadow you; therefore the child to be born will be holy; he will be called the Son of God'" (Lk 1:35).

We will focus on these words: "The power of the Most High will overshadow you." According to Origen what is this "power"? What does its "overshadowing" Mary mean? Our method will consist in reading the most significant passages where Lk 1:35 is quoted and interpreted by Origen. We will start with the *Homilies on Saint Luke* and then, following in chronological order, we will open the *Peri Archon*, the *Commentary* and *Homilies on the Song of Songs* and the *Homilies on Joshua*.

1. Homilies on Luke

Let us first listen to the third-century teacher as he comments in his *Homilies on Luke*. Actually the only homilies on the New Testament which we have from Origen are the 39 homilies on Luke which survived in Jerome's Latin translation. This translation is remarkably faithful.[2] Origen also wrote a *Commentary on Luke* in five books, which

(1) Cf. H. Crouzel, Introduction, in: idem (ed.), *Homélies sur S. Luc* (Paris: Cerf, 1962) (SC 87) 10ff.

(2) "Contemporary scholarship has a high estimate of the accuracy of Jerome's translation; it can be read with confidence that one is reading Origen himself, and not some other Origen whom it pleased Jerome to constuct" (J. T. Lienhard, Introduction, in: *Origen. Homilies on Luke — Fragments on Luke*

are lost.[3] Only a few commentaries on the Gospel according to Luke have survived and Origen's homilies on Luke are the only extant work on either the Infancy Narrative before Hilary's commentary on Matthew (ca. 355).[4] The date of Origen's *Homilies on Luke* must be somewhere between Origen's moving to Caesarea (probably in 233) and the *Commentary on Matthew* (244), which mentions the *Homilies on Luke*.[5]

The 39 homilies on Luke are focused on the first four chapters of the Gospel. *Homilies* 1 to 33 treat Luke 1:1 to 4:27, with the exception of three passages: 1:33–38, 2:3–7 and 2:18–20.[6] Since Origen's homilies on Luke treat six to ten verses each, it seems that three homilies were lost, and one of them may have contained some explanations on Luke 1:35. In the sixth homily, commenting on the first part of the narrative of the Annunciation (cf. Lk 1:26–33),[7] as expected Origen says nothing about Lk 1:35; and then in the seventh homily he passes over to the narrative of the Visitation (cf. Lk 1:39–45). Nevertheless, insights into Lk 1:35 can still be read in three homilies.

• First one has to go to the **fourth homily**. There Origen comments on the annunciation to Zachary (cf. Lk 1:13–17).[8] "With the spirit and power of Elijah he will go before him" (Lk 1:17): Zachary's prophecy about his son offers an interesting distinction between *spirit* and *power*; in order to give an account of it, Origen quotes Lk 1:35:

> "He will go before Christ in the spirit and power of Elijah" (cf. Lk 1:17). Luke does not say, "in the soul of Elijah", but, "in the spirit and power of Elijah — *in spiritu et virtute Heliae*." Power and spirit dwelt in Elijah — *fuit in Heliae virtus et spiritus* — as in all the prophets and, with regard to his humanity, in the Lord and Savior as well. A little

(Washington, D.C.: The Catholic University of America Press, 1996) (The Fathers of the Church, A New Translation 94) xxxvi).

(3) Jerome refers to this work in his preface to the *Homilies on Luke* (cf. SC 87, 93–94).

(4) The Fathers commented and preached mainly on Matthew and John, saying little about Luke, and practically ignoring Mark. Apart from Origen's homilies on Luke, we still have 156 homilies by Cyril of Alexandria, preserved in Syriac, and Ambrose's *Exposition of the Gospel according to Luke*, in ten books.

(5) Cf. Lienhard, Introduction..., xxiv.

(6) *Homilies* 34 to 39 treat isolated passages from Luke, from chapter 10 to chapter 20.

(7) Cf. *Homilies on Luke*, 6, 3–9; SC 87, 145–153.

(8) Cf. Ibid., 4; SC 87, 129–135.

> later in the Gospel the angel says to Mary, "The Holy Spirit will come upon you, and the power of the Most High will overshadow you — *Spiritus sanctus superveniet in te et virtus Altissimi obumbrabit tibi*" (Lk 1:35). So the spirit that had been in Elijah came upon John as well, and the power that Elijah had also appeared in John.[9]

Thus, according to Origen, *spiritus* and *virtus* are two distinct realities.[10] The quotation of Lk 1:35 as an illustration of this distinction seems to lead to the conclusion that the power of the Most High is not the Holy Spirit. One has to distinguish the coming of the Spirit from the overshadowing of the power of the Most High. Two passages where Lk 1:35 is quoted point out the identity of the *spiritus*:

• The **fourteenth homily** gives the beginning of Origen's exegesis on the presentation of Jesus in the Temple (cf. Lk 2:21–24).[11] Joseph and Mary were fulfilling the scriptural commands: "As it is written in the law of Moses, every male that opens the womb shall be called holy to the Lord" (Lk 2:23, formulated from Ex 13:2 and Num 8:16); and: "Three times in the year every male shall appear in the sight of the Lord God" (Ex 34:23). In a very concrete manner, Origen reflects upon the opening of Mary's womb:

> "Every male that opens the womb…" This phrase has a spiritual meaning. For you might say that "every male is brought forth from the womb" but does not open the womb of his mother, in the way that the Lord Jesus did. In the case of every other woman, it is not the birth of an infant but intercourse with a man that opens the womb. [8.] But the womb of the Lord's mother was opened at the time when her offspring was brought forth, because before the birth of Christ a

(9) *Homilies on Luke*, 4, 5, Lienhard, 19; SC 87, 133–135.

(10) In the *Commentary on Matthew*, Origen comments on this same verse (Lk 1:17), underlying that John had the **spirit** of Elijah and not his **soul**. The spirit that John received from Elijah was not Elijah's own spirit but the *pneuma* which may happen simply to be in him. Thus, Elijah had a special spirit, but it afterwards rested on Eliseus, and when John was born it passed to him (cf. *Commentary on Matthew*, 13, 2; GCS, 40, 178, 14–17). See J. Dupuis, *« L'esprit de l'homme », Etude sur l'anthropologie religieuse d'Origène* (Desclée de Brouwer, 1967) (Museum Lessianum section théologique 62) 129–131. Cf. also M. Maritano, L'argomentazione scritturistica di Origene contro i sostenitori della metensomatosi, in: G. Dorival and A. Le Boulluec (eds.), *Origeniana Sexta, Origène et la Bible / Origen and the Bible, Actes du Colloquium Origenianum Sextum, Chantilly, 30 août – 3 septembre 1993* (Leuven: University Press, 1995) 254–255.

(11) Cf. *Homilies on Luke*, 14; SC 87, 217–231.

> male did not even touch her womb, holy as it was and deserving of all respect. I dare to say something. At that moment of which Scripture says, "The Spirit of God — *Spiritus Dei* — will come upon you, and the power of the Most High will overshadow you" (Lk 1:35), the seed was planted and the conception took place; without an opening of the womb, a new offspring began to grow.[12]

Since Mary is a virgin mother, her womb was opened only at the very moment of Jesus' birth and not at the very moment of his conception. Let us notice that here Origen modifies the original text of Luke which has: "The Holy Spirit." Thus quoted, Lk 1:35 clearly attests to the divine origin of Jesus: the *Spiritus* is "the Spirit of God — *Spiritus Dei*."

• Next, in the **seventeenth homily** Origen comments on Lk 2:35–38, that is, on Symeon's prophecy about the Child Jesus and his mother. Reflecting on Joseph's fatherhood, Origen quotes Lk 1:35. Through the words of Gabriel at the Annunciation, Luke "clearly handed down to us that Jesus was the son of a virgin, and was not conceived by human seed."[13]

Then, reflecting on the nature of the sword which will pierce Mary's soul, according to Symeon's prophecy, Origen speaks of the scandal endured during Jesus' passion by Mary as well as by the Apostles:

> You know, Mary, that you bore as a virgin, without a man. You heard from Gabriel, "The Holy Spirit will come upon you, and the power of the Most High will overshadow you" (Lk 1:35). The "sword" of infidelity "will pierce" you, and you will be struck by the blade of uncertainty, and your thoughts will tear you in pieces when you see him. You had heard him called the Son of God. You knew he was begotten without a man's seed.[14]

Mary's scandal and suffering come from the violent contrast between her certainty of the divine origin of her son and his passion. According to Origen, Lk 1:35 is the plain attestation of the divine origin of Jesus: he was not conceived by a human seed, but he is the Son of God and son of Mary.

Listening to the *Homilies on Luke*, we learn that the power of the Most High has to be distinguished from the Holy Spirit who is the "Spirit of God." According to Origen, when giving the account of the

(12) *Homilies on Luke*, 14, 7–8, 60; SC 87, 227.

(13) Ibid., 17, 1, 70; SC 87, 251.

(14) Ibid., 17, 7, 73; SC 87, 259.

descent of the Holy Spirit upon the virgin Mary for the conception of her son, Luke clearly affirms Jesus' divine origin. But here, due to the fact that the homily on Lk 1:33–38 has not passed down to us, we have no specific development on the "overshadowing" of the power of the Most High.

In order to discover what Origen draws from this expression about the identity of Jesus, one has to open his commentary and *Homilies on the Song of Songs*, his *Homilies on Joshua* and, first of all, his great work: the *Peri Archon*.

2. Peri Archon

Prior to the *Homilies on Luke*, Origen may have begun writing the *Peri Archon*, addressed to educated Christians who had philosophical training, in 222 when Origen was thirty-seven years old and had been the head of the *Didaskaleion* for nineteen years.

Let us first of all try to find out what is for Origen the "power of the Almighty." In Book I, Origen distinguishes the different ἐπίνοιαι of the Son of God, that is, many insights we can have on him, many scriptural or non-scriptural ways we have of considering him.[15] The Son of God is Wisdom, the Word, Life, Light, Resurrection, Truth, etc. He is also "Power":

> According to the expression of the apostle, that Christ "is the power of God," it ought to be termed not only the breath of the power of God, but power of power.[16]

The power (δύναμις) of the Most High is nothing but his Wisdom and his Word, that is, his Son, who performs all the activity of God *ad extra*, who is born from the Father like the Will that comes from the Intelligence.[17] The *Peri Archon* calls him the *Virtus Dei*, the *Vigor Dei*.

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(15) Cf. *Peri Archon*, I, 2, and *Commentary on John*, I, 23–42 (SC 120, §§ 125–289). See also H. Crouzel, Le contenu spirituel des dénominations du Christ selon le livre I du *Commentaire sur Jean* d'Origène, in: H. Crouzel, A. Quacquarelli (eds.), *Origeniana Secunda* (Rome, 1980) 131–150; J. Wolinski, Le recours aux ἐπίνοιαι du Christ dans le *Commentaire sur Jean* d'Origène, in: Dorival, Le Boulluec, *Origeniana Sexta...* 465–492.

(16) *Peri Archon*, I, 2, 9, A. Roberts and J. Donaldson (eds.), *Ante-Nicene Fathers*, vol. 4 (Peabody: Hendrickson Publishers, 1994) 249; SC 252, 131.

(17) Cf. H. Crouzel, *Théologie de l'image de Dieu chez Origène* (Paris: Aubier, 1955) (Théologie, 34) 89–90.

So, the "power of the Most High" which has come over the Blessed Virgin Mary could be the Son of God. How can it be said as "overshadowing her"? What is this shadow?

In the short chapter 6 of Book II, Origen meditates on the Incarnation of Christ.[18] He begins by reminding his readers of the Word's remarkable attributes, and then shows what an extraordinary thing it was that he should come down and live among men. Existing from all eternity like all souls, the soul of Jesus (cf. Jn 10:18) is attached to him, "inseparably and indissolubly in Him, as being the Wisdom and the Word of God, and the Truth and the true Light, and receiving Him wholly, and passing into His light and splendor."[19] The soul of Christ has always been immersed in the Word.[20] To illustrate this, Origen takes the comparison of iron heated in fire,[21] and then he comments on an inspiring expression found in the book of Lamentations: the soul of Christ is like the "shadow of Christ." Let us quote this subtle passage:

> 7. I think, indeed, that Jeremiah the prophet, also, understanding what was the nature of the wisdom of God in him [Christ], which was the same also which he had assumed for the salvation of the world, said, "The breath of our countenance is Christ the Lord — *Spiritus vultus nostri Christus Dominus* —, to whom we said, that under His shadow we shall live among the nations — *in umbra eius vivemus in gentibus*" (Lam 4:20). And inasmuch as the shadow of our body is inseparable from the body, and unavoidably performs and repeats its movements and gestures, I think that he, wishing to point out the work of Christ's soul, and the movements inseparably belonging to it, and which accomplished everything according to His movements and will, called this the shadow of Christ the Lord, under which shadow we were to live among the nations.[22]

As the nations who came to salvation through faith we live hidden in this "shadow of Christ." In order to grasp something of this mystery which is perhaps beyond "the apprehension of the human mind," Origen quotes other passages referring to the "shadow" and first of all Luke 1:35:

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(18) Cf. *Peri Archon*, II, 6; SC 252, 308–325.

(19) Ibid., II, 6, 3, 282; SC 252, 315.

(20) Scholars do not agree as to the nature of this union according to Origen. Cf. C. Vagaggini, *Maria nelle opere di Origene* (Roma: Pont. Institutum Orientalium Studiorum, 1942) (Orientalia Christiana 131) 102–103.

(21) Cf. *Peri Archon*, II, 6, 6, 283; SC 252, 321.

(22) Ibid., II, 6, 7, 284; SC 252, 323.

> We see also very many other statements in holy Scripture respecting the meaning of the word "shadow," as that well-known one in the Gospel according to Luke, where Gabriel says to Mary, "The Spirit of the Lord shall come upon you, and the power of the Most High shall overshadow you" (Lk 1:35). And the apostle says with reference to the law, that they who have circumcision in the flesh, "serve for the similitude and shadow of heavenly things" (Heb 8:5). And elsewhere, "Is not our life upon the earth a shadow?" (Job 8:9). If, then, not only the law which is upon the earth is a shadow, but also all our life which is upon the earth is the same, and we live among the nations under the shadow of Christ, we must see whether the truth of all these shadows may not come to be known in that revelation, when no longer through a glass, and darkly, but face to face, all the saints shall deserve to behold the glory of God, and the causes and truth of things (cf. 1 Cor 13:12).[23]

Here Luke 1:35 is quoted in a passage dedicated to the explanation of a verse very dear to Origen: "The breath of our countenance is Christ the Lord — πνέυμα προσώπου ήμῶν χριστὸς κυρίου, — [has been taken with us in our corruptions], to whom we said, that under His shadow we shall live among the nations" (Lam 4:20). The literal sense refers to king Sedecias, the Anointed, that is, the "Christ of the Lord," who was the last king of Judah: made prisoner by Nebuchadnezzar, he was brought to Babylon. Already present in the literature of early Christianity,[24] Lam 4:20, tirelessly quoted and interpreted by Origen, is a key text for his Christology. Usually omitting the words "has been taken with us in our corruptions," he applies it to Christ, stating that the "shadow" of the Anointed one is the soul of Christ, his humanity, in which we live here below on earth.[25]

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(23) *Peri Archon*, II, 6, 7, 284; SC 252, 325.

(24) On the quotations of Lam 4:20 in the literature of early christianity, see J. Daniélou, Christos, Kyrios, *Mélanges J. Lebreton*, t. 1, *Recherches de Science Religieuse* 39 (1951) 338–352.

(25) See other passages where Origen quotes and interprets Lam 4:20: *Commentary on John*, II, 4 (A. Roberts, J. Donaldson (eds.), *Ante-Nicene Fathers*, vol. 9 (Peabody: Hendrickson Publishers, 1994) 326); *Commentary on the Song of Songs*, III, 5 1957) (T. C. Lawler, W. J. Burghardt (eds.), *Origen, the Song of Songs: Commentary & Homilies* (ACW 26) 182; SC 376, 531); *Homilies on Joshua*, VIII, 4 (C. White (ed.), B. Bruce (trans.), Origen, *Homilies on Joshua* (Washington, D. C.: Catholic University of America Press, 2002) (The Fathers of the Church 105) 88; SC 71, 227); *Dialogue with Heraclides*, 27 (R. Daly (trans.), *Origen: Treatise on the Passover and Dialogue with Heraclides* (New York: Pau-

According to this exegetical context of *Peri Archon* II, 6, 7, the shadow of the Power of the Almighty in Lk 1:35 is the soul of Christ which was united with the human body born of the Blessed Mother. Indeed the union of the soul of Christ with the Word models it entirely on him. But, although it possesses the plenitude of the divinity, it is only a shadow, it softens the divine light, so that our human eyes could bear it. Let us notice that here the theology of the Incarnation comes into line with the exegesis. Studying the Scriptures we proceed from the visible letter to the invisible Word; enjoying the visible humanity of Christ, the believer is led towards the treasure of Wisdom which is hidden in him. The shadows are the starting point; they already offer presence and knowledge of the Beloved, but not yet in their fullness. One has to walk from shadow to Reality, from the soft radiance of the humanity of Jesus to the splendor of the Word.[26]

This enables us to understand the meaning for Origen of Lk 1:35, "The power of the Most High will overshadow you": the shadow of the power of God who will come upon Mary is nothing else but the Shadow of the Word, the preexistent soul of Jesus. Origen concludes in a very humble way, aware of the grandeur of the mystery he tries to explore:

> The above, meanwhile, are the thoughts which have occurred to us, when treating of subjects of such difficulty as the incarnation and deity of *Christ*. If there be any one, indeed, who can discover something better, and who can establish his assertions by clearer proofs from holy Scriptures, let his opinion be received in preference to mine.[27]

3. Commentary on the Song of Songs

According to historians, Origen began composing the great commentary on the Song of Songs around 240. Eusebius says that Origen composed the first five books in Athens around the year 240, and wrote the other five somewhat later at Caesarea in Palestine.[28]

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list Press, 1992) (ACW, 54) 78); *Commentary on Matthew*, XV, 12; *FragLam*. 116 (GCS, III, 276).

(26) Cf. J. Daniélou, W. Mitchell (trans.), *Origen* (London: Sheed and Ward, 1955) 264–265.

(27) *Peri Archon*, II, 6, 7, 284; SC 252, 325. Such a kind of statement is frequent; it can be found also for instance in *Peri Archon*, II, 3, 7; SC 252, 271–273.

(28) Cf. Eusebius, *The History of the Church…*, VI, 32,2.

Since the *Commentary* has not survived in its original text, one has to make use of the Latin version made by Rufinus. Whatever may be the possible shortcomings of the translation, here we listen to Origen as a mystic master. As Jerome says, referring to this commentary in the Prologue to the translation of the homilies, "while Origen surpassed all writers in his other books, in his *Song of Songs* he surpassed himself."[29] Origen sings of the nuptials of Christ and the Church, and, with increasing importance as the commentary goes on, of the bridal union of the Logos with the human soul.

In book III, section 5, Origen explains Ct 2:3: "As the apple tree among the trees of the wood, so is my Nephew among the sons; in his shadow I desired and sat, and his fruit was sweet in my throat" (Ct 2:3). What is this shadow in which the Church is looking forward to sit? To understand something of its mystery, according to his usual method, Origen quotes other passages containing the same expression. After having cited Lam 4:20, his commentary draws upon a new quotation:

> You see, then, how the prophet, moved by the Holy Spirit, says that life is afforded to the Gentiles by the shadow of Christ; and indeed how should His shadow not afford us life, seeing that even at the conception of His very body it is said to Mary: "The Holy Spirit shall come upon you, and the power of the Most High shall overshadow you" (Lk 1:35). As therefore, at His body's conception the overshadowing was that of the Most High, His own shadow will justly give life to the Gentiles. And justly does His Bride the Church desire to sit beneath the shadow of the apple tree, in order, surely, that she may be made partaker of the life that is in His shadow.[30]

The shadow under which the Church is willing to sit is a shadow which gives life: it is the life-giving shadow of Christ. Quoting and interpreting Lk 1:35, it seems that Origen distinguishes the overshadowing of the Most High and the very shadow of Christ. According to the insights received from the reading of the *Peri Archon* and from the text of Luke himself, we can say that the "overshadowing of the Most High" is precisely the overshadowing of the *Power* of the Most High, that is, the overshadowing of the Son himself, the Word; at the same

(29) *Prologue* to the *Homilies on the Song of Songs* (ACW, 26) 265; SC 37, 59.

(30) *Commentary on the Song of Songs*, III, 5, R. P. Lawson (trans.), *Origen: The Song of Songs, Commentary and Homilies* (Westminster, MD: New Press, 1957) (ACW 26) 182; SC 376, III,5,10–11, 529–531.

time we can also affirm that the very shadow of Christ is his soul, his humanity.

4. Homilies on the Song of Songs

The two *Homilies on the Song of Songs* were pronounced very likely only a few years after the composition of the *Commentary*, probably before 244. In other words, they are works of maturity, since Origen was more than fifty-five years old. They survive only in the Latin translation made by St. Jerome. Although the identification of the Bride with the Church is predominant, some passages still make room for the individual soul as Christ's bride.

In his second homily, commenting again on "Beneath His shadow I desired and sat" (Ct 2:3), Origen tries to unveil the nature of the "shadow" in which the Bride is willing to sit. He explains:

> Indeed, strictly speaking, we cannot converse with Him at first; rather, we enjoy at the beginning what may be called a sort of shadow of His majesty; and it is for that reason that we read also in the prophets: "The breath of our face, the Lord Christ, to whom we said: 'Under His shadow shall we live among the Gentiles'" (Lam 4:20), and pass over from one shadow to another; for "to them that dwelt in the region and shadow of death, to them light is arisen" (Isa 9:2); so that our passing over is from the shadow of death to the shadow of life. Advances are always on this pattern: a person desires at the outset to be at least in the shadow of the virtues. And I think myself that the birth of Jesus also originated from — not in — the shadow, but was consummated in the truth. "The Holy Spirit," it is said, "shall come upon you, and the power of the Most High shall overshadow you" (Lk 1:35). The birth of Christ took its inception from the shadow; yet not in Mary only did His nativity begin with overshadowing; in you too, if you are worthy, the Word of God is born. See, then, that you may be able to receive His shadow; and, when you have been made worthy of the shadow, His body, from which the shadow is born, will in a manner of speaking come to you; for "he that is faithful in a little will be faithful also in greater things" (Lk 16:10).[31]

Following the pattern of Jesus' birth which originated from (*ab*) the shadow, the dialogue with the Bridegroom has to start from his life-giving shadow, in order to be consummated in the Truth. Contrasted

(31) *Homilies on the Song of Songs*, II, 6 (Lawson, *Origen: The Song of Songs*…, 293–294; SC 37, 91).

with image and shadow, Truth is the divine realities which are prefigured by the earthly symbols. If Jesus' soul is the shadow of the Word, the Word is the Truth of this shadow. From shadow into Truth, the birth and growth of the Word within the soul of the faithful is one of the favorite themes of Origen. In this way, the motherhood of Mary has an exemplary role: she has to be imitated by every Christian.[32] Luke 1:35 expresses the fruitful starting point of this path. The conception of Jesus in the Virgin bears its fruit of salvation only if Christ is born in each one of us:

> For what does it profit if I should say that Jesus has come in that flesh alone which he received from Mary and if I should not show also that he has come in this flesh of mine?[33]

But it is not enough to allow Christ to be born within oneself, one has to make room for him in order to allow him to grow. One has to move forward in order to reach the Truth, to move from Christ's humanity to his divinity.

5. Homilies on Joshua

The *Homilies on Joshua* seem to belong to the last years of Origen. They could be contemporaries of the persecution of Decus (249/250).[34] They were preserved only in Rufinus' Latin translation, the faithfulness of which is very reliable. Bearing witness to the concerns of a pastor for his flock, these homilies draw the story of the Christian life from baptism to resurrection and the heavenly rewards.

In the eighth homily, Origen tries to explore the "mystery" of Jos 8:29, "the king of Ai was hanged on twofold wood — *rex Gai in ligno gemino dicitur esse suspensus* — τὸν βασιλέα τῆς Γαι ἐκρέμασεν ἐπὶ ξύλου διδύμου" (Jos 8:29). Looking for the deep meaning of this verse, Origen says:

> Truly, one coming of Christ in lowliness has been accomplished, but another is expected in glory. By a certain mystic word in Holy

(32) Cf. C. Vagaggini, *Maria nelle opere di Origene* (Roma, Pont. Institutum Orientalium Studiorum, 1942) 113–114.

(33) *Homilies on Genesis*, 3 (R. E. Heine (trans.), *Origen. Homilies on Genesis and Exodus* (Washington, D. C.: Catholic University of America Press, 1982) (The Fathers of the Church 71) 101; SC 7, III, 7, 123.

(34) P. Nautin favored other dates: according to him they could have been pronounced earlier in the years 239–242 (cf. P. Nautin, *Origène. Sa vie et son œuvre* (Paris: Beauchesne, 1977) 401–405).

> Scriptures, this first coming in the flesh is called his shadow, just as the prophet Jeremiah declares saying, "The Spirit of our countenance, Christ the Lord, of whom we said to ourselves, 'In his shadow we shall live among the nations — *Spiritus vultus nostri Christus Dominus cuius nos diximus: in umbra eius vivemus in gentibus*'" (Lam 4:20). But also Gabriel, when he was proclaiming to Mary concerning his birth, says, "The power of the Most High will overshadow you — *Virtus altissimi obumbrabit tibi*" (Lk 1:35). Because of that, we understand how many things are dimly shadowed at his first coming, the completion and even perfection of which will be consummated by the second coming. And the apostle Paul says, "He raised us with him and made us sit with him in the heavens" (Eph 2:6). Certainly we do not yet see believers either to have been already raised or to have sat down in the heavens, yet these things have indeed been dimly shadowed through faith; for by the mind and by hope we are lifted up from earthly and dead works, and we raise up our heart to heavenly and eternal things. In his second coming, however, this will be fulfilled: those things that to now we have only anticipated by faith and hope, we shall then also physically hold in their effective reality.[35]

Once again quoted in connection with Lam 4:20, which is christologically interpreted, Luke 1:35 expresses the same event: the first coming of Christ in our flesh. Origen invites his audience to the journey already exposed in the second homily on the Song of Songs: starting with the shadow one is called to enter the plenitude of truth. The first coming of Christ in our flesh is a shadow: the shadow of a reality that his second coming will bring to completion. Nevertheless, one has to start, by faith, with what is offered in the Incarnation. In this shadow the anticipation of what is to come is present.

Conclusion

The reading of Origen's exegesis of Lk 1:35 provides us with some of his major theological and mystical themes. It is linked with the exegesis of Lam 4:20, a key verse for Origen's Christology. According to the three passages of the *Homilies on Saint Luke*, Lk 1:35 clearly bears witness to the divine origin of the Son of Mary. Not explored in these remaining homilies on Luke, the nature of the "overshadowing" of the power of the Most High is unveiled in the *Peri Archon*: this shadow which will come upon Mary is the shadow of the Word, the preexis-

(35) *Homilies on Joshua*, VIII, 4 (White, Bruce, *Origen. Homilies on Joshua*…, 88–89; SC 71, 227.

tent soul of Jesus. Quoted and interpreted both in the *Commentary* and the *Homilies on the Song of Songs* in reference to Ct 2:3, Lk 1:35 is an invitation to commune with Christ in the shadow of his glory. From shadow to reality, Lk 1:35 describes the initial and fruitful stage of the journey of the soul. The preparation for the full revelation of his glory is the contemplation of his incarnation. At last, in the *Homilies on Joshua*, quoting Lk 1:35 in order to explain the twofold wood of Jos 8:39, Origen invites his listener to enter the very dynamism which links the two comings of Christ: from shadow to reality.

Reading and studying our file of texts, we are able to observe Origen at work: he is inseparably exegete and mystic, and he invites his hearer or reader to become both as well. His exegesis corresponds to Christian growth. Lk 1:35 expresses the fruitful shadow from which everybody has to start: "The birth of Christ took its inception from the shadow; yet not in Mary only did His nativity begin with overshadowing; in you too, if you are worthy, the Word of God is born."[36]

SUMMARY

Starting from the *Homilies on Saint Luke*, this paper intends to investigate Origen's understanding of Lk 1:35. The power of the Most High is nothing but his Wisdom and his Word, i.e. his Son. The shadow of the Word seems to be the preexistent soul of Jesus. The maternity of Mary has an exemplary role, since our life here below on earth also takes place in the shadow of the Word, which is his humanity. The growth of Christ within the soul leads from the shadow of his humanity to the Truth of his divinity. Thus, Origen's interpretation of Lk 1:35 enables us to discover some of his major mystical themes.

(36) *Homilies on the Song of Songs*, II, 6 (Lawson, *Origen: The Song of Songs*…, 293; SC 37, 91).

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JOHN CHRYSOSTOM'S USE OF LUKE 16:19–31

The aim of this article, by examining the way in which John Chrysostom interprets and applies the parable of the rich man and Lazarus, is to assess how this parable fits into his theology of salvation and, more importantly, what relationship he draws between it and the topics of wealth and poverty and care for others (usually the giving of alms).[1]

In terms of the writing and preaching of John Chrysostom, there has been considerable analysis over the last two centuries of his exegesis[2]

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(1) The research on which this article is based constitutes part of a larger project, *Poverty and Welfare in Late Antiquity*, supported by a Discovery Project grant awarded Pauline Allen, Bronwen Neil and myself by the Australian Research Council. Our approach is to examine the subject from two different perspectives by way of three focused studies: one on Antioch and Constantinople via the writings of John Chrysostom; one on North Africa via the writings of Augustine; and one on Italy via the works of Leo I. In this way we hope to be able to trace the continuities and discontinuities in thought and practice between three distinct geographic regions across the later fourth to mid fifth centuries CE. The two perspectives from which we examine these geographic regions are those of the reality (economic, material, social) of poverty and welfare, in so far as this can be recovered, and of the discourse about poverty and welfare that these three influential Christian clerics employ. The project, which runs from 2006–2008, is in its early phase and this article constitutes a preliminary analysis of one aspect of the second of these two perspectives: the Christian discourse. For preliminary results from analysis of the first perspective see W. Mayer, Poverty and society in the world of John Chrysostom, in: W. Bowden, A. Gutteridge, C. Machado (eds.), *Social and Political Life in Late Antiquity* (Leiden: Brill, 2006) (Late Antique Archaeology 3.1) 465–484; and Idem, Poverty and generosity towards the poor in the time of John Chrysostom, in: S. Holman (ed.), *Wealth and Poverty in Early Church and Society* (Grand Rapids, MI: Baker Academic, 2008) 140–158.

(2) E.g., R. C. Hill's numerous articles and books on John's Old Testament exegesis; H. Amirav, *Rhetoric and Tradition: Chrysostom on Noah and the Flood* (Leuven: Peeters, 2003) (TEG); F. Asensio, El Crisóstomo y su visión de la escritura en la exposición homilética del Génesis, *Estudios Bíblicos* 32 (1973) 223–255, 329–356; G. Astruc-Morize and A. Le Boulluec, Le sens caché des Écritures selon Jean Chrysostome et Origène, *SP* 25 (1993) 1–26; G. Bady,

and theology,[3] and a smaller quantity of work on his moral stance on wealth and poverty,[4] but no study which focuses on this particular parable in his works or on its role in his discourse on poverty. Rudolf

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La méthode exégétique du Commentaire inédit sur les Proverbes attribué à Jean Chrysostome, *SP* 37 (2001) 319–327; L. Brottier, « Et la fournaise devint source »: l'épisode des trois jeunes gens dans la fournaise (Dan. 3) lu par Jean Chrysostome, *Revue d'Histoire et de Philosophie Religieuses* 71 (1991) 309–327; D. A. Garrett, *An Analysis of the Hermeneutics of John Chrysostom's Commentary on Isaiah 1–8 with an English Translation* (Lewiston, NY: Edwin Mellen Press, 1992) (Studies in the Bible and Early Christianity 12).

(3) E.g., M. Zitnik, *Theos philanthropos* bei Johannes Chrysostomos, *OCP* 41 (1975) 76–118; Th. N. Zeses, *Anthropos kai kosmos en te oikonomia tou Theou kata ton hieron Chrysostomon* (Thessaloniki: Patriarch. Hidruma Paterikon Meleton, 1971) (Analekta Blatadon 9); Idem, *He soteria tou anthropou kai tou kosmou (kata ton hag. Ioannen Chrysostomon)* (Thessalonike: Paterika 2, ^{2}1992); B. H. Vandenberghe, La théologie du travail dans Saint Jean Chrysostome, *Revista española di Teología* 16 (1956) 475–495; P. G. Alvés de Sousa, Pneumatología de los textos sacerdotales de San Juan Crisóstomo, in: *Teología del sacerdocio* 17: *La Pneumatología en los Padres de la Iglesia*. Facultad de Teología de Norte de España — Sede de Gurgos, Instituto «Juan de Avila» (Burgos: Ediciones Aldecoa, 1983) 63–78; I. Baán, L'aspect pneumatoligique de la vie morale du chrétien selon Jean Chrysostome, *Augustinianum* 37 (1997) 327–331; L. R. Barnard, *Christology and Soteriology in the Preaching of John Chrysostom*, unpub. D. Th. diss., Southwestern Baptist Theological Seminary, 1974; B. Bobrinskoy, L'Esprit du Christ dans les sacraments chez Jean Chrysostome et Augustin, in: C. Kannengiesser (ed.), *Jean Chrysostome et Augustin*. *Actes du colloque de Chantilly 22–24 Septembre 1974* (Paris: Éditions Beauchesne, 1975) (Théologie historique 35) 247–249; E. Boularand, *La venue de l'homme à la foi d'après saint Jean Chrysostome* (Roma: Univ. Greg., 1939) (Analecta Gregoriana 18); J.-P. Cattenoz, *Le baptême, mystère nuptial: théologie de saint Jean Chrysostome* (Venasque: Éd. du Carmel, 1993) (Centre Notre-Dame de Vie 5).

(4) O. Andrén, On works of charity in the homilies of St. John Chrysostom, in: G. Swensson (ed.), *Kyrkorna och diakonien. Nagra Ekumeniska och Internationelle Perspektiv. Festskrift till diakonissan Inga Bengtzon* (Uppsala: Pro Veritate, 1985) 39–52; R. Finn, *Almsgiving in the Later Roman Empire. Christian Promotion and Practice (313–450)* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2006); M. J. De Vinne, *The advocacy of empty bellies: Episcopal representation of the poor in the late Roman empire*, unpub. PhD diss. (Stanford, 1995); A. Carillo de Albornoz, *San Juan Crisóstomo y su influencia social en el imperio bizantino del siglo IV* (Madrid: Ist. pedag. FAE, 1934); G. Florovsky, St John Chrysostom: The prophet of charity, *St Vladimir's Seminary Quarterly* 4 (1955) 37–42; B. Gordon, The problem of scarcity and the Christian Fathers: John Chrysostom and some contemporaries, *SP* 22 (1989) 108–120; D. L. Greeley, St. John Chrysostom, prophet of social justice, *SP* 17.3 (1982) 1163–1168.

Brändle's detailed study of the pericope Matt 25:31–46 in John Chrysostom's works is the closest analogy.[5] Of perhaps even greater interest in regard to the gospel pericope that is the focus of this article, contrary to the prevailing image of John Chrysostom as one of the greatest expositors of the Pauline epistles, it is his use of the gospels that has in reality excited the greatest interest.[6] Within this body of scholarship one might expect interest in the gospels of Matthew and John to dominate, since two lengthy series of homilies in which John exegetes them survive.[7] But in fact the attention of scholars focuses almost exclusively on his use of Matthew.[8] Examination of his use of Lukan pericopes is

(5) *Matthäus 25,31–46 im Werk des Johannes Chrysostomus. Ein Beitrag zur Auslegungsgeschichte und zur Erforschung der Ethik der griechischen Kirche um die Wende vom 4. zum 5. Jahrhundert* (Tübingen: Mohr, 1979) (Beiträge zur Geschichte der biblischen Exegese 22).

(6) For discussion of his exegesis of Pauline material see, e.g., M. Mitchell, *The Heavenly Trumpet: John Chrysostom and the Art of Pauline Interpretation* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 2000); F. M. Young, John Chrysostom on 1 and 2 Corinthians, *SP* 18.1 (1986) 349–352; B. Aland, Trustworthy preaching: Reflections on John Chrysostom's interpretation of Romans 8, in: S. K. Soderlung and N. T. Wright (eds.), *Romans and the People of God. Essays in honor of Gordon D. Fee on the occasion of his 65th birthday* (Grand Rapids, MI—Cambridge, UK: William B. Eerdmans Publishing Company, 1999) 271–280; P. G. Alvés de Sousa, Fil 2,6 en los escritos de San Juan Crisóstomo, *Scripta theologica* 15 (1983) 83–106; A. D. Callahan, John Chrysostom on Philemon: A response to Margaret M. Mitchell, *Harvard Theological Review* 88 (1995) 149–156; F. Cocchini, Da Origene a Teodoreto: la tradizione esegetica greca su Gal 2,11–14 e la controversia origeniana, in: W. A. Bienert, U. Kühneweg (hrsg.), *Origeniana septima: Origenes in den Auseinandersetzungen des 4. Jahrhunderts* (Leuven: Leuven University Press, 1999) 293–309; B. Dehandschutter, *Meketi hydropotei*: Some Notes on the Patristic Exegesis of 1 Timothy 5:23, *Louvain Studies* 20 (1995) 265–270; Sr S. Donegan, John Chrysostom's exegesis of Romans 5:12–21: does it support a doctrine of original sin?, *Diakonia* 22 (1988–1989) 5–14; M. M. Garijo Guembe, La justificación por la fe y no por las obras en las Homilías «in Epistolam ad Romanos» de Juan Crisóstomo, in: *Quaere Paulum. Miscelánea a Monseñor Dr. Lorenzo Turrado*, vol. 39 (Salamanca: Bibliotheca Salmanticensis, 1981/82) 237–243.

(7) *In Matt. hom. 1–90* (CPG 4424), *PG* 57–58; *In Joh. hom. 1–88* (CPG 4425), *PG* 59,23–482 and M.-É Boismard, A. Lamouille, *Un évangile pré-johannique*, I–III, 6 vols. (Paris: Librairie Lecoffre, 1993–1996) (Études bibliques n.s. 17–18, 24–25, 28–29).

(8) E.g., S. Zincone, Essere simili a Dio: l'esegesi crisostomiana di Mt 5:45, *SP* 18.1 (1986) 353–358; Idem, Aspetti del rapporto uomo-donna nelle Omelie di Giovanni Crisostomo sul Vangelo di Matteo, in: M. Maritano

singularly rare. This is somewhat peculiar when we consider that six homilies in which Luke 16:19–31 is the primary focus survive,[9] while the parable receives mention to a greater or lesser degree in, at the very least,[10] a further thirty-eight homilies, three letters, six treatises and three commentaries. While it is likely that at least one and perhaps four of the homilies which focus on the parable were delivered at An-

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(a cura di), *"Historiam prescrutari." Miscellanea di studi offerti al prof. O. Pasquato* (Roma: Ateneo Salesiano, 2002) 863–870; R. Wetzel, *Das vierundzwanzigste Kapitel des Evangelisten Matthäus in der Auslegung durch die griechischen Väter Origenes und Chrysostomus*, diss. (Tübingen, 1978); A. Uleyn, La doctrine morale de S. Jean Chrysostome dans le commentaire sur S. Matthieu et ses affinités avec la diatribe, *Revue de l'université d'Ottawa* 27 (1957) 5–25, 99–140; W. Turek, La bestemmia contro lo Spirito Santo (Mt 12, 31–32) in Giovanni Crisostomo, in: M. Maritano (a cura di), *"Historiam prescrutari". Miscellanea di studi offerti al prof. O. Pasquato* (Roma: Ateneo Salesiano, 2002) 839–847; J. H. Barkhuizen, John Chrysostom on the parables in the Gospel of Matthew: A study in Antiochean exegesis, *Ekklesiastikos Pharos* 80 (1998) 160–178; A. Bastit-Kalinowska, Chrysostome et l'exegese des *Homélies sur Matthieu*: L'exemple de la pericope des mages (Mt 2, 1–12), in: *Giovanni Crisostomo: Oriente e Occidente tra IV e V secolo, XXXIII Incontro di Studiosi dell'Antichità Cristiana, Augustinianum 6–8 maggio 2004* (Roma: Institutum Patristicum Augustinianum, 2005) (Studia Ephemeridis Augustinianum 93) 315–333; E. Dal Covolo, L'*omelia* 50 del Crisostomo *sul vangelo di Matteo*. Un «caso» di sproporzione esegetica, in: *Giovanni Crisostomo: Oriente e Occidente tra IV e V secolo, XXXIII Incontro di Studiosi dell'Antichità Cristiana, Augustinianum 6–8 maggio 2004* (Roma: Institutum Patristicum Augustinianum, 2005) (Studia Ephemeridis Augustinianum 93) 355–362. For rarer comment on his exegesis of John and Mark see M. Aucoin, Augustine and John Chrysostom: Commentators on St. John's prologue, *Sciences ecclésiastique* 40 (Montréal, 1963) 123–131; G. Ferraro, *Lo Spirito Santo nel Quarto Vangelo: i commenti di Origene, Giovanni Crisostomo, Teodoro di Mopsuestia e Cirillo di Alessandria* (Roma: Pont. Ist. Orientale, 1995) (OCA 246); J. Förster, *Die Exegese des vierten Evangeliums in den Johannes-Homilien des Chrysostomus*, unpub. diss. (Berlin, 1951); C. A. Evans, Patristic interpretation of Mark 2:26, when Abiathar was high priest, *VC* 40 (1986) 183–186.

(9) *De Lazaro conciones 1–4, 6–7* (CPG 4329), *PG* 48, 963–1016 and 1027–1054.

(10) The number is likely to be greater since the research on which this paper is based relies primarily on a word search for the name Lazarus via the TLG (Thesaurus Linguae Graecae), plus a manual search of the ninety homilies on Matthew by scripture verse. A search for references to the rich man of the parable alone (that is, where Lazarus receives no mention) is not yet complete.

tioch,[11] the letters and at least one of the treatises stem from the period of John's exile,[12] while yet another of the treatises belongs to the first year of his diaconate.[13] His use of the parable thus spreads across the full breadth of his career.

Because of their extended focus on the topic, in the first four homilies on Luke 16:19–31 we can observe most of the range of how John approaches the exegesis of this parable and applies it to ethical exhortation. For John, while the parable is primarily soteriological — it teaches that God is just and that the virtuous who suffer in this life will be rewarded in the life to come, while the wicked who prosper will be punished;[14] and that we are called to repentance now before it is too late — it also reminds us about the proper use of wealth (that it should be spent on others in alsmgiving and love of the poor), it teaches us about the nature of virtue (that is, that one should suffer with patience and a thankful heart), and it teaches us to look not at the surface ('rich' and 'poor'), but to discern what lies behind people's masks and so emulate what should truly be emulated (Lazarus' spiritual wealth rather than the rich man's material wealth). Poverty and wealth, which seem tangential to the soteriological message of the par-

(11) In the opening to *De Lazaro conc. 4* (*PG* 48,1007.8–12) John mentions his failure to continue to preach on the parable at the previous synaxis because of the festivals of Babylas and the twin martyrs (in this context clearly Juventinus and Maximinus; see W. Mayer, *St John Chrysostom. The Cult of the Saints* (New York: St Vladimir's Seminary Press, 2006) 89–90). The festivals of all of these martyrs are indigenous to Antioch, which locates *conc. 4* there also. The internal indications that *conc. 1–4* were preached in sequence are sufficient to suspect that all four were preached in the same year.

(12) *Epp. 5, 8, 10 ad Olymp.* (CPG 4405), SC 13bis,120–124, 158–216, 242–304; and *Quod nemo laeditur sed a seipso* (CPG 4400), SC 103. The letters were written in the second half of 404 (see R. Delmaire, Les «lettres d'exil» de Jean Chrysostome. études de chronologie et de prosopographie, *Recherches Augustiniennes* 25 [1991] 71–180, at 147). In *ep. 17 ad Olymp.* (SC 13bis, 384. 33–34) John cites the treatise *Quod nemo laeditur* by title and says that it was recently written. Delmaire (148) dates the letter to spring 407, which locates the treatise in the third year of John's exile.

(13) *Adv. oppugnatores vitae monasticae liber 3* (CPG 4307), which Noel Lenski dates with book 2 separately from book 1, locating it in 381 (N. Lenski, Valens and the monks: Cudgeling and conscription as a means of social control, *DOP* 58 (2004) 93–117, at 103–104).

(14) An exegesis which is closely aligned to the Lukan beatitudes (Lk 6: 20–26).

able, are thus brought into play via discussion of true wealth and true poverty, and via John's definition of virtue, in which the giving of alms plays a central role.[15]

In the first homily, John takes up the topic in response to a festival on the previous day which he associates with drinking, revelry and overeating.[16] This leads him via a lengthy prooimion to the sequel of the previous day's sermon (in which staying away from excess — *whether you eat, drink, or do anything, do all to the glory of God* [1 Cor. 10:31] — featured prominently). In the present sermon we now see the person who lives in excess punished and paying the price for it (exemplified by the parable of the rich man and Lazarus).[17] That the rich man is associated with wickedness is indicated by how he ended up (in Hell). That he lived a life totally free of adversity is indicated by Luke's remark that he had a good time every day (Lk 16:19).[18] Even before we learn the final result, his inhumanity and cruelty are demonstrated by his contempt for the poor man at his gate. If he could ignore a person who was in such a pitiful state and right at his gate, it indicates that he showed no pity towards anyone else.[19] After emphasising the rich man's wickedness, inhumanity and cruelty at some length,[20] Lazarus is introduced as by contrast righteous and a person who exercises virtue. Just as the rich man's end and his behaviour in this life indicate his character, so Lazarus' character is indicated by how he ends up (in Abraham's lap) and by his patience concerning his poverty.[21]

After a number of digressions, John asserts that the fact that Lazarus did not criticise God (blaspheme) is indicated by the angel escort assigned him.[22] This makes Lazarus all the more remarkable, since he endured extreme poverty. John finds nine ways in which he paid a harsh price: (1) he suffered extreme ill health; (2) he didn't even get to eat the crumbs falling from the rich man's table; (3) he was too weak

(15) On almsgiving as the pinacle of all good works in John's writings see Brändle, *Matthäus 25,31–46...*, 189.

(16) *De Lazaro conc. 1*, *PG* 48, 963.2–30.

(17) Ibid., 970.14–22.

(18) Ibid., 970.52–58.

(19) Ibid., 970.59–971.2.

(20) Ibid., 971.44–972.2.

(21) Ibid., 972.2–7.

(22) Ibid., 975.22–40. The assertion is made more lively and effective by the quotation of the kinds of criticisms John frequently hears.

to fend off the dogs from licking his sores; (4) he suffered isolation;[23] (5) his isolation was exacerbated by experiencing it at the rich man's gate (in the middle of others revelling, who were completely unmoved by his plight); (6) his anguish was amplified by knowing that a man who exhibited no virtue lived so well, while Lazarus who exhibited every virtue experienced such horrors; (7) he had no one else to share his experience, which might have provided comfort; (8) he didn't even have the comfort of the resurrection, but lived with the thought that there was no remediation for his sufferings beyond this life; and (9) it is common nature for people to judge the poor as being responsible for their own suffering.[24] This latter point leads John to compare Lazarus to Job (Job 4:2,6) and Paul (Acts 28:4), both of whom were likewise thought to have deserved their fates.[25] A common lay interpretation of the parable is then addressed — namely that if the rich man was punished there after he died, the result was a draw (0–0), but if he also enjoyed his own possessions there in honour, then the rich man came out ahead (2–0).[26] John is horrified by this response and is at pains to disabuse his listeners of the idea that the righteous and the wicked will receive equal reward when they die.[27] The remainder of the homily is spent in arguing that one shouldn't confuse externals with what people are like inside. The rich man in reality was ulcerated on the inside, as Lazarus was on the outside; just as the dogs licked Lazarus' wounds, so demons licked the rich man's sins; and just as the one was starved for food, the other was starved of virtue. Ultimately no one can escape God's judgment and punishment, as a consequence of which we shouldn't consider the rich blessed, but those who live in virtue; nor ought we to condemn the poor, but rather the wicked.[28]

In the second homily John moves from the situation of the two protagonists in the parable while alive to their situation after death. His aim on this occasion is to teach the rich person to think that wealth is no great thing without virtue and the poor to think that poverty is

(23) By *eremia* John here means absence of household support, i.e., family or servants who might provide care (see *Quod nemo laeditur* 10, SC 103, 108.29–34). This is distinct from a lack of someone to share his experience, which he lists as a separate point (7).

(24) *De Lazaro conc. 1*, *PG* 48, 975.41–977.47.

(25) Ibid., 977.47–978.11.

(26) Ibid., 978.12–16.

(27) Ibid., 978.16–35.

(28) Ibid., 978–981.

nothing evil.[29] This lesson can be drawn from the parable, since death brought a reversal of circumstance for the rich man and Lazarus so that everyone knew who the real rich person was and who it was who was truly poor.[30] So poor was the rich man in death that he couldn't even get hold of a drop of water and in a reversal of roles it was he who came begging to Lazarus[31] — and not even directly to Lazarus, but via a mediator, Abraham.[32] Lazarus, on the other hand, received an angel escort into the lap of Abraham.[33] This leads John to the analogy that in the present life poverty and wealth are just masks, which death strips away, exposing what was inside.[34] He then draws a lesson concerning repentance. What happened to the rich man counsels us to seek repentance in this life, since the parable shows that we have no recourse to it after death. In death, even if we were rich and powerful, we stand before the judge stripped of everything and everyone.[35]

A question prompted by this section of the parable is why Lazarus didn't end up in the lap of some other righteous person, but rather Abraham. John replies that this is because Abraham was hospitable towards strangers and so seeing Lazarus with Abraham is a criticism of those who are not (a pointed message for the rich man).[36] As he reflects further on the issue of hospitality he argues that hospitality towards the outcast and those who are unknown is a much greater virtue than hospitality towards those who have high status and so almsgiving (which he associates with *philoxenia*) is about avoiding scrutinising the object of it first, but rather giving even to those who are undeserving, as exemplified by both Abraham and Job. This is because we don't know whether or not we are providing hospitality towards angels. The deserving aspect of the poor lies solely in their need. If we start

(29) *De Lazaro conc. 2*, *PG* 48, 981.20–10.

(30) Ibid., 986.18–21.

(31) In *De Lazaro conc. 6*, *PG* 48, 1039 John points out that the rich man's words to Abraham ("pity me", Lk 16: 24) are the same words employed by beggars.

(32) *De Lazaro conc. 2*, *PG* 48, 986.16 and 990.37–48.

(33) Ibid., 984.38–46.

(34) Ibid., 986–987. The same idea is adduced in *De Lazaro conc. 6*, *PG* 48, 1032–1035.

(35) *De Lazaro conc. 2*, *PG* 48, 985.35–586.15. Cf. *Non esse ad gratiam concionandum*, PG 50, 657.

(36) *De Lazaro conc. 2*, *PG* 48, 988.48–51; repeated in *De Lazaro conc. 6*, PG 48, 1039.

scrutinising our fellow servants, then God will do the same to us and so, if we persist in demanding an account of them, it is we who are likely to lose God's philanthropy.[37] This latter idea ties in with another argument put forward in this homily, namely that money is the Lord's regardless of its source. The rich person's role is as executor of money that belongs to one's fellow servants of God and which ought therefore to be distributed to the poor.[38]

In the third homily the topic of repentance again receives attention. Resuming discussion at the point where the rich man begs Abraham to send Lazarus, John says that if, like the rich man, we were there and hearing Abraham's reply when there was no opportunity for repentance, we would have reason to howl, but since we're hearing this here, we can wash away our sins, acquire direct speech with God (*parrhêsia*), and convert our lives through fear of what happened to him. God speaks of the punishment to come ahead of time, because he'd prefer us to avoid it.[39] John next moves onto exegesis of the verb "ἀπέλαβε" (Lk 16:25: Τέκνον, μνήσθητι, ὅτι ἀπέλαβες σὺ τὰ ἀγαθά σου). This, he explains, is used instead of the simple root verb in order to express the idea of repayment. No matter how evil a person is, they have usually done one or two good things. This particular verse of the parable indicates that the rich man, no matter how sunken into wickedness, did some good, while Lazarus, no matter what peak of virtue he'd attained, had at least sinned a little. Basically, regardless of their experience in this life, both arrive naked after death, stripped of the little good or the little sin they have done and everything is restored to balance in terms of the judgment meted out. Hence, when we see someone living in wickedness, but suffering nothing terrible here, we shouldn't consider them blessed but weep for them, since they'll be stripped of their little good and will endure everything terrible there (as did the rich man). Likewise, when we see a virtuous person suffering here, we should consider them blessed and imitate them, since stripped of their sin, they will be rewarded amply there (as in the case of Lazarus).[40] This idea that God's judgment is evenhanded and that

(37) *De Lazaro conc. 2*, *PG* 48, 989–990.

(38) Ibid., 988.6–32.

(39) Ibid., 996.15–44.

(40) *De Lazaro conc. 3*, *PG* 48, 996.49–997.50. John develops exegesis of the same verb in *De Lazaro conc. 6*, PG 48, 1040–1044 in a similar fashion, adducing Job, Ahab and Judas alongside Lazarus.

after death we will receive punishment or reward in proportion to what is required to make up an equilibrium is central to John's interpretation of this parable. The conclusion that naturally flows from this, namely that our sufferings here on earth have the capacity proportionally to carve away our payment for sin in the next life, is an idea which he frequently expresses. This argument as a whole is used to explain why the righteous often suffer here on earth.[41]

Another idea raised in this homily which recurs elsewhere in his exegesis of the parable is that criticism of God, whether one is rich or poor, does not result naturally from either condition, but is a matter of choice (free will). One of John's reasons for reading the parable to his audience is to show that not even wealth can benefit the person who is lazy, while not even poverty can harm the person who is alert. It is neither poverty nor sickness that compel a person to curse God, but rather disposition or dereliction of virtue.[42] A similar idea is expressed in the homily *De peccata fratrum non evulganda*. There he argues that being rich isn't bad but rather the bad use of wealth, nor is poverty good, but rather the good use of poverty. The rich man in this parable was punished not because he was rich, but because he was cruel and inhumane, while the poor man in Abraham's lap was praised not because he was poor, but because he bore his poverty with gratitude. By nature some things are good, some bad, others neutral. Wealth and poverty fall into this last category. It is according to the choice (will) of the user that they become good or bad.[43] If one uses one's wealth for philanthropy it becomes a basis for good; if we use it for greed, theft and violence, we've reversed position. In this latter case it is not wealth that is responsible, but the use of wealth for violence. So in the case of poverty, if we endure it nobly, giving thanks to God, we will receive a crown. But if we criticise God's foreknowledge (*pronoia*), we've used it badly.[44]

In the fourth homily, which examines the rich man's plea to Abraham to at least send Lazarus to warn his brothers, the themes of God's just balancing of rewards and punishments, the inherent goodness in God's plan that the righteous suffer here on earth, and that the parable

(41) *De Lazaro conc. 3*, *PG* 48, 1004–1005.

(42) Ibid., 1002.

(43) On the connection for John between this essentially Stoic viewpoint and wealth and voluntary poverty (asceticism) see Mayer, Poverty and generosity... (n. 1).

(44) PG 51, 355.45–356.16. Cf. *Illud Isaiae: Ego dominus deus feci lumen* (CPG 4418, *PG* 56, 147–148).

is a warning to the rich not to be proud and a comfort to the poor are all repeated. The explanation for why Abraham refuses to send Lazarus does give rise to some new material, however. The rich man's plea demonstrates the beneficial effect of the punishment on him (suddenly he is more concerned for others), while the reaction of the Jews (a rare reference to them by John in the context of this parable), who refused to listen to Moses or the prophets, demonstrates the pointlessness of sending someone from the dead.[45] As John explains, the teaching of the prophets (scripture) is more trustworthy than any message from the dead and, in any case, Hell itself is like the secular lawcourts (ineffective as a deterrent).[46] What is of interest in this homily as John wraps up his exegesis of this parable and the lessons to be drawn from it is the bringing together of the notion of salvation by grace, on the one hand, and of works righteousness on the other. The latter is an idea that more naturally stems from his thesis that the good works we perform in this life have a direct impact on the judgment we will receive. Discussion of the role of the conscience as our own internal judge and how it leads to repentance leads him to argue that confession isn't about letting God know what we've done (since he knows it already) but about our learning how much pardon we are in need of, and how substantial is God's grace.[47] By the end of the homily, however, after adducing the exemplum of Joseph to demonstrate how like Lazarus he did not complain when he was cast into slavery but waited for God's plan to work itself out, he returns to the idea of utilising the conscience immediately when we sin to avoid future punishment, in which almsgiving (*eleemosyne*), among other more personal actions, plays a significant role.[48]

God's *pronoia*; theodicy; the role of good works in mitigating punishment; why the righteous suffer; not considering the rich blessed and avoiding despising the poor; not criticising God when we suffer, but giving thanks in poverty; using wealth and poverty in a good way; taking comfort from Lazarus, since our life could never be as bad as his; and the role of almsgiving in virtue are all themes that arise throughout John's homilies, treatises, commentaries and letters, whenever this parable is adduced. Of interest when we look beyond these homilies is what moral faults prompt him to adduce the parable.

(45) *De Lazaro conc. 4*, *PG* 48, 1009.

(46) Ibid., 1010.1–25.

(47) Ibid., 1011–1012.

(48) Ibid., 1016.39–51.

Excess of one kind or another, as in the cases we have just observed, is an obvious trigger. Less obvious is the abuse of supernatural powers such as amulets to effect healing. In the single instance in which this practice prompts him to adduce the parable, John first adduces the exemplum of the paralytic by the pool who simply waited for God's help for years, despite watching others being healed (Jn 5:1–9). Lazarus too, he then argues, struggled the whole time with starvation, illness and isolation, not just for thirty-eight years, but his entire life. Yet, despite all that he suffered he chose not to resort to supernatural aid but rather to die in that state than to betray any portion of his piety. Resort to such aid by the audience is thus unpardonable.[49] Another trigger is despondency. In his eighth letter to Olympias the punishment which the rich man received in Hell is used to comfort her. Despite the chasm, from heaven Lazarus could see the rich man enduring torment, and hear him and respond. Olympias is counselled to reflect that in the next life she will have this same advantage in regard to those who are currently persecuting John.[50] In another letter addressing her depression he takes a slightly different tack, adducing the rich man's punishment in order to advise her to mourn for John's persecutors because of the inescapable punishment that awaits them.[51]

In these instances issues of justice, punishment and the virtuous bearing of suffering are the primary focus. In other examples it is poverty and wealth. In his fourth homily on Matthew, John adduces the exemplum of the three youths in the furnace (Dan 3), which then becomes an extended metaphor. Enduring the furnace of poverty becomes preferable to bowing down to mammon, while those who choose poverty in preference to this will be radiant both here and in the next life. Those who are rich unjustly here, on the other hand, will pay the ultimate penalty there. Lazarus, he claims, exited this furnace no less radiant than the three youths, while the one who was rich in the form of bowing down to the image was condemned in Hell. This leads him to exhort: let the rich hear this, who inflame the furnace of poverty. Meanwhile, let us descend into the furnace of poverty and introduce the dew of almsgiving and extinguish the flame so that we might share their

(49) *Adv. Iudaeos or. 8*, *PG* 48, 936.

(50) *Ep. 8 ad Olymp.*, SC 13bis, 200. It is not insignificant that the parable is adduced in this letter just as John has finished praising Olympias' hospitality and charity.

(51) *Ep. 5 ad Olymp.*, SC 13bis, 122.

crowns (i.e., those of the three youths and Lazarus).[52] Here the parable is enveloped within a more fully developed Old Testament exemplum. Together they both direct the attention of the audience to how they should deal with poverty and consider wealth, advice which is familiar from John's exegesis of the Lazarus parable throughout his works. In another homily, however, he addresses the issue of what happens in a case where poverty is so severe that the injunction towards caring for others (*eleemosyne*) is unable to be carried out. In that case, like Lazarus, one is crowned for the virtue of patience alone (all that a person so severely constrained is capable of), and for enduring all that one suffers with a thankful heart.[53] On a rare occasion Lazarus is adduced in an entirely different way — as proof that a martyr must have been escorted to heaven by angels, since Lazarus was honoured in this way.[54]

The scriptural exempla with which John links this parable are of interest. In some cases it is the two ways (Matt 7:13–14),[55] in others the foolish virgins (who were rejected because they failed in almsgiving: Matt 25:1–13).[56] The three youths in the furnace, Job, Abraham, and Joseph are all commonly adduced. When poverty and wealth are the focus of advice, Matt 25:35–36 is at times linked with the parable.[57] When Lazarus' endurance of sickness rather than poverty is the focus, we also see him linked with Paul's colleague Timothy.[58] The association of the parable with the paralytic by the pool (Jn 5:1–9) is more rare.[59] In some cases the parable is found clustered together with a number of these exempla.[60]

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(52) *In Matt. hom. 4*, *PG* 57, 53–54.

(53) *Exp. in psalm. 127*, *PG* 55, 367.31–368.12.

(54) *De s. Droside*, *PG* 50, 689.

(55) E.g., *Ep.5 ad Olymp.*, SC 13bis, 122; and see *De Lazaro conc. 7*, *PG* 48, 1047–1054, where he uses Matt 7: 13–14 to interpret the parable of Lazarus and the rich man, seguing from one into the other.

(56) E.g., *In Matt. hom. 78/79*, *PG* 58, 711–712; *Adv. oppugn. vitae monasticae*, PG 47, 374.

(57) E.g., *In Matt. hom. 81/82*, *PG* 58, 736 (which also links Lazarus to the foolish virgins).

(58) E.g., *In Phil. hom. 15*, *PG* 62, 274 (which also links Lazarus with Job, Daniel and the three youths).

(59) See *In paralyticum demissum*, *PG* 51, 58.

(60) E.g., *Ep. 10 ad Olymp.*, SC 13bis, 262–278 (Job, Paul, three youths in furnace, Joseph); *In illud Isaiae: Ego dominus*, *PG* 56, 147–148 and 152 (Job, Abraham, Joseph).

For John, while the parable is primarily soteriological, it also offers significant scope for drawing out moral advice on the topics of wealth, poverty and almsgiving. This is achieved as much by drawing conclusions from the consequences of the rich man's chosen use of his wealth, as it is by equating Lazarus' uncomplaining patience concerning his lot with virtue and a thankful heart. From these readings of the parable messages about how one should approach poverty and wealth (as inherently neutral) and how they should be used (for good) are readily drawn. Praise of the virtue of almsgiving (*eleemosyne*) and, on once occasion, explicitly *philoptochia* (love of the poor)[61] develops as a natural consequence. These virtues are held up for emulation by those who are not so poor that they cannot give something, while for the truly indigent, like Lazarus, poverty is promoted as a virtue in itself, when linked with avoidance of criticism of God, and thankful and patient endurance of one's lot. It is in this respect that the strongly soteriological message of the parable has a role to play. In John's broader discourse on poverty, the *telos* of our earthly existence (our eternal existence) is of far greater importance than life itself. The two are seamless and the consequences of behaviour here are played out with inevitability in the life to come. The two corollaries of this — that both suffering and lack of suffering here are balanced out in the life to come, and that the judgment to come is unstoppable but not unalterable and can be mitigated in advance by one's behaviour here — are vividly expressed in this parable. The rich man pays the price for his cruelty and unwise use of wealth on earth; Lazarus is rewarded in heaven for his wise use of his poverty here. The rich man is shown in death to be truly poor (he has not even a drop of water to drink); Lazarus is shown in death to be truly rich (he is honoured with an escort of angels). So poor in reality is the rich man that he is never named, while the man who appeared so poor as to be anonymous is not only honoured with a name, but his name is passed down through posterity. The rich man's repentance after death and his concern for his brothers comes too late for his own soul, but it does show the beneficial effect of the rich man's punishment. Lazarus' unending suffering on earth, on the other hand, helps to explain why God allows the virtuous to suffer here; they will receive the reward for their virtue in heaven.

In the end, while for John the parable is not always explicitly about poverty and wealth, it is fundamentally about what happens to the

(61) See *De Lazaro conc. 6*, *PG* 48, 1034.

soul after death and about God's just judgment. These soteriological concerns play an important role within his discourse on poverty to the extent that, even when no explicit connection is drawn, concerns about wealth, poverty and care for others lurk not far below the surface.[62]

SUMMARY

The way in which John Chrysostom interprets and applies the parable of the rich man and Lazarus is examined with a view to how it fits into his theology of salvation and, more importantly, what relationship he draws between the parable and the topics of wealth and poverty, and the giving of alms. Homilies 1–4 and 6–7 *De Lazaro* are the primary focus, but the exemplum is examined within the context of John's other homilies, letters and treatises also. It is concluded that, whereas the parable is more often interpreted by John with a view to salvation and eschatology, concerns about wealth, poverty and care for others are usually not far from his mind.

(62) In 2005 an article on John Chrysostom's exegesis of Luke 16:19–31 appeared, which I discovered too late to include in my discussion here. M. Signifredi, L'esegesi di Giovanni Crisostomo sulla parabola del ricco e del povero Lazzaro (*Lc* 16,19–31), in: *Giovanni Crisostomo: Oriente e Occidente tra IV e V secolo* (Roma: Institutum Patristicum Augustinianum, 2005) (Studia Ephemeridis Augustinianum 93) 429–442. The author focuses on John's eschatology and on Lazarus as an exemplar of virtue.

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THE THEOLOGICAL AND PHILOSOPHICAL BACKGROUND OF BASIL OF CAESAREA'S TRINITARIAN THEORY, FOCUSING ON THE COMPARISON BETWEEN HIS WORKS AND "HIS" *EP*. 38*

There was definitely a transformation or development in Basil of Caesarea's theological teaching, especially in the Trinitarian theory. Such a maturing of his thought must naturally be affected by contemporary theological factional rivalries and supported by his understanding of ancient Greek philosophy. However, it is not necessarily easy to follow his theological development and clarify some philosophical influences on his Trinitarian theory. In order to untangle such a difficult problem, on the one hand, my article will focus on the *Epistle* 38 conventionally included in the edition of Basil's letters, which quite a few scholars now hold to be by Gregory of Nyssa, not Basil.[1] On the

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(*) A shorter version of this article was read at the Western Pacific Rim Patristics Society 3rd Annual Conference, Nanzan University, Nagoya, September 30, 2006, and its published version which is faithfully documented from it is Shigeki Tsuchihashi, Some Philosophical Influences on Basil of Caesarea's Trinitarian Theology — Concerning 'his' *Epistula* 38–, in: K. Demura, N. Kamimura (eds.), *Patristica*, supplementary vol. 2: *Festschrift in Honour of Shinro Kato on His 80th Birthday* (Nagoya: Shinseisha, 2006) 57–70. This article is its developed version which is close to and based on the version delivered at the Conference, but which is different from it in title and might be improved and developed in many parts (except a few overlapping in sections 3 and 4). I am grateful to John Cawte for reading and revising the manuscript closely in early drafts.

(1) Those who regard Gregory of Nyssa as the real author of *Ep. 38* are R. M. Hübner, Gregor von Nyssa als Verfasser der sog. ep. 38 des Basilius in: J. Fontaine, Ch. Kannengiesser (eds.), *Epekatsis* (Paris, 1972) 463–490, G. C. Stead, Why Not Three Gods? in: H. R. Drobner. Ch. Klock (eds.), *Studien zu Gregor von Nyssa und der christlichen Spätantike* (Leiden, 1990) 149–163, L. Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy: An Approach to Fourth-century Trinitarian Theology* (Oxford—New York, 2004) 187–221, etc. On the other hand, today, the

other hand, in comparing it with his other works and letters, I will come close to his final stage, or limit, in so far as this is possible. So in my article, firstly, some interpretations about the backgrounds of Basil's Trinitarian teaching are briefly presented. On the basis of this outline, secondly, some arguments concerning various stages of the development of his Trinitarian thought will be specifically outlined and compared. Thirdly, the argument in the main part of *Epistle* 38 will be analyzed in detail in order to exemplify the philosophical framework and strategy of this Cappadocian author's Trinitarian theology. Finally, some interpretations about the philosophical background of Basil's Trinitarian teaching are outlined. This article aims to cast light on some philosophical aspects of his Trinitarian thought.

1. Some Interpretations about the Background of Basil's Trinitarian Thought

The role which Basil played in fourth-century theology and ecclesiastical politics was prominent and significant, but never easy to clarify. Hence, first of all, we will consider the theological background and the development of Basil's Trinitarian thought. Needless to say, this article cannot present such an extensive overview of the Trinitarian controversy of the fourth century, and this is not its aim. For the present purpose, I think, focusing on the concept of ὁμοούσιος is the key to elucidating the development of Basil's Trinitarian thought in the latter half of the fourth century. In other words, our question is: was Basil the father of the neo-Nicene or pro-Nicene theology? If so, was Basil ever a *Homoiousian*?

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representative defender of Basil is only V. H. Drecoll, *Die Entwicklung der Trinitätslehre des Basilius von Cäsarea: Sein Weg vom Homöusianer zum Neunizäner* (Göttingen, 1996) 297–331. In the former part of the 20th century, for example, G. L. Prestige, *God in Patristic Thought* (London—Toronto, 1936) 276, believed *Ep*. 38 to be Basil's. In addition, as a third position, P. W. Fedwick, A Commentary of Gregory of Nyssa or the 38th Letter of Basil of Caesarea, *OCP* 44 (1978) 31–51, concludes that a decision cannot be reached on the basis of external evidence, and J. Zachhuber, *Human Nature in Gregory of Nyssa — Philosophical Background & Theological Significance* (Leiden—Boston—Köln, 2000) 61–93, insists that *Ep. 38* corresponds to both Basil's later works and Gregory's teaching, so-called a common "Cappadocian" position.

According to the traditional view of Zahn[2] and von Harnack,[3] 1) the term ὁμοούσιος was originally associated with the controversy between monarchian and pluralistic understanding of the Trinity, and 2) the "neo-Nicene" theology (neo-Nicenism) finally reinterpreted and even revoked the original, unitarian meaning of the Nicene ὁμοούσιος; that is, to put it schematically, from ὁμοούσιος at Nicaea in 325 as ταυτοούσιος ("the same and one substance"), through the Synod of Ancyra in 358, to ὁμοούσιος at Constantinople in 381 as ὅμοιος κατ' οὐσιάν ("like according to essence"). In this theory, the father of the neo-Nicene theology is Basil of Ancyra, as the leader of the Homoiousians, and not Athanasius nor Basil of Caesarea.

However, this theory is no longer held (of course, not unanimously, except in Germany, at least). Firstly, in the 350s, the existence of a party which independently can be called Nicene is extremely questionable. In the Synod of Antioch in 341, Athanasius, an advocate of the Nicene homoousion, was deposed, and those who supported its creed "probably found both Arius' language and the Athanasian/Marcellan theology unacceptable."[4] Homoousian (essence)-terminology disappeared from the forefront of history, and then homoiousian (likeness)-terminology assumed a central position. Therefore, secondly, it is impossible for Homoiousians, like Basil of Ancyra, to react against the Nicene homoousion which had already been repealed. According to recent research, those who prominently rose into power in the latter half of the 350s are the "Homoians," that is a pro-subordinationist group. They insisted that "the Son is 'like' (*homoios*) the Father although distinct and ontologically inferior."[5] Among them, especially, Aetius and his disciple Eunomius led the most subordinationist faction and were called "Anomoians," because they argued that the Father and the Son were "unlike" (*anomoioi*) according to essence. In contrast to them, the other bishops, who thought of the Son as "like the Father according to essence" and were thereby called "Homoiousians," were hostile to the Anomoians and gathered around Basil of Ancyra to promulgate homoousios as ὅμοιος κατ' οὐσιάν (like according to essence) in the 358 Synod at Ancyra. They were, however, deposed by radical Ho-

(2) Th. Zahn, *Marcellus von Ancyra* (Gotha, 1867) 8–32.

(3) A. von Harnack, N. Buchanan (trans.), *History of Dogma*, vol. 4 (New York, 1958).

(4) Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy…*, 432.

(5) Ibid.

moians in the Synod at Constantinople as early as 360. According to an Anomoian's report,[6] possibly, Basil of Caesarea might have also attended this Synod, solicited by Eustathius of Sebaste. In addition, he seems "to have had some personal connection with Basil of Ancyra and he was strongly opposed to the 360 Homoian Creed."[7] Therefore, traditionally, he has been regarded as a Homoiousian. But the case is much more complicated.

What we should draw attention to here first of all is the existence of the neo-Nicene party headed by Meletius of Antioch. Those neo-Nicenes, the Meletians, were regarded as schematized from Homoians, not breakaway Homoiousians. So, in the 360 Homoian Synod, their bishops replaced deposed Homoiousians, for example, Meletius replaced Eustathius of Antioch, and Athanasius of Ancyra replaced Basil of Ancyra. At least, in the judgment of another Nicene group led by Paulinus in Antioch, Meletius appeared to be put in office by "Arians." As a result, there was fierce hostility between the Meletians and Homoiousians. After that, Meletius was exiled to Armenia, and moved closer towards approving Nicene homoousios.[8] Consequently, Basil of Caesarea probably managed to maintain his association with both camps. If this were the case, was Basil a Homoiousian or not?

2. *Comparison between Basil's* Ep. *236, 361 and* AE *II.4*

Fortunately, in his early correspondence (*Ep*. 361) with Apollinarius of Laodicea (dated about 360–361), we may gain insight into his real intention about Homoiousianism. The central part of the letter is:

> For we have supposed that whatever by way of hypothesis the substance (οὐσία) of the Father is assumed to be, this must by all means be assumed as also that of the Son. So that if anyone should speak of the substance of the Father as "intelligible light (φῶς νοητόν), eternal, unbegotten," he would also call the substance of the Only-begotten "intelligible light, eternal, unbegotten." And in such a meaning the phrase "like without a difference" (ἀπαραλλάκτως ὅμοιος) seems

(6) This anomoian is Philostorgius. Cf. Eusebius of Caesarea, *Historia ecclesiastica*, ed. Schwartz, GCS 9, IV 12.

(7) Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy…*, 188f. According to R. P. C. Hanson, Basil "was alienated from Dianius because the latter had signed the Creed of Constantinople" (R. P. C. Hanson, *The Search for the Christian Doctrine of God: The Arian Controversy 318–381 AD* (Edinburgh, 1988) 680).

(8) Cf. H. Chadwick, *The Church in Ancient Society — From Galilee to Gregory the Great* (Oxford, 2001) 292–294, 344–347.

> to me to accord better than "consubstantial" (ὁμοούσιος). For light which has no difference from light in the matter of greater and less cannot be the same — because each is in its own circumscription of existence (ἐν ἰδίᾳ περιγραφῇ τῆς οὐσίας) — but I think that "like in substance entirely without variation" (ὅμοιος κατ' οὐσίαν ἀκριβῶς ἀπαραλλάκτως) could be said correctly.[9]

In this quotation, we can certainly find the homoiousian phrase "like in substance" (ὅμοιος κατ' οὐσίαν). But, according to Prestige, Basil's position here is fully Athanasian taken in connection with *Ep*. 9, and the phrase "like in substance entirely without variation" amounts to the same thing as the homoousion.[10] On the other hand, according to Zachhuber's new elucidation, Basil's argument here seems to reject both the homoiousian approach and Athanasius' homoousian view, because it "is not his generation from the Father that accounts for the Son's divinity in the first place, but the community of *logoi*: whatever can be said of the Father *qua* substance holds equally good for the Son too."[11] Whichever interpretation we follow, Basil's standpoint seems to be not simply homoiousian. What is more, he has not yet determinately elucidated a unity between the Father and the Son, or the personal distinction of Father, Son, and Spirit, either. In this regard, Basil's theology in these early years is obviously immature.

We will, then, turn to his *Adversus Eunomium* I and II dated about 363 or 364. In this phase of the development of his Trinitarian thought, applying the Stoic concept of οὐσία to his own οὐσία, Basil is able to logically ground the unity of the three hypostases on the unity of substance. For instance, in *AE* II, 14, *ll*.1–20:

> Yet, to this argument, who in his right mind would add, that they whose names are distinct, must necessarily differ also in their substances (κατὰ τὰς οὐσίας)? For the appellations (προσηγορίαι) of Peter and Paul and all persons in general are distinct, yet the substance of all is one. Hence we are identical to each other in most things; only

(9) R. J. Defferrari (tr.), *Basil. Letters*, vol. 4 (Cambridge, MA, 1950) 335. Translations of all letters are taken (with some minor changes) from Defferrari's edition.

(10) G. L. Prestige, *St Basil the Great and Apollinaris* (London, 1956) 18. Additionally, the author insists that in the *de Spritu sancto* (45) "the real meaning of the monarchy was seen in a unity of ousia, though he [Basil] does not actually employ the term "identity" (ταυτότης)" (Prestige, *God in Patristic Thought*, 230).

(11) Zachhuber, *Human Nature in Gregory of Nyssa…*, 53.

> in terms of what are considered each one's peculiarities (ἰδιώμασι) have we been made different one from the other. It follows that the appellations signify not the substances, but the properties which characterize (χαρακτηρίζουσιν) each one. So that when we hear "Peter," we do not grasp (νοοῦμεν) his substance by means of his name (I here call "substance" the material subject (τὸ ὑλικὸν ὑποκείμενον), which the name does not in the least signify), but we register the concept (τὴν ἔννοιαν ἐντυπούμεθα) of what are considered his peculiarities. … So that the name, on the one hand, demarcates (ἀφορίζει) for us the character (χαρακτῆρ) of Peter, but, on the other hand, it in no way represents (παρίστησι) the substance itself.[12]

In his early treatise, *Ep*. 361, Basil has often used οὐσία for particular substance. As a result of such an understanding, he has been faced with a dilemma concerning substance: if no substance can exist without its being in any person, the undivided divine substance subsists dividedly in each of three divine persons. Therefore, against the Neo-Arian who insisted on a distinction between the substance of the Father and of the Son, Basil had to shift the emphasis from particular to common οὐσία. In the quotation above, then, he finds a solution to these difficulties in the Stoic concept of οὐσία as an indefinite substratum or material (ἄποιος ὕλη).

However, in *Ep*. 236 dated 376, late in his life, Basil has recourse to the Aristotelian distinction between κοινόν and ἴδιον.

> But substance and person (ὑπόστασις) have the distinction that the general (τὸ κοινόν) has with reference to the particular (τὸ καθ' ἕκαστον); for example, just as "a living creature" has with reference to "a particular man (τὸν δεῖνα ἄνθρωπον)." For this reason we confess one substance for the Godhead, so as not to hand down variously the definition of Its existence (ὁ τοῦ εἶναι λόγος), but we confess a person that is particular (ὑπόστασις ἰδιάζουσα), in order that our conception (ἔννοια) of Father and Son and Holy Spirit may be for us unconfused and plain.
>
> … Therefore, we must add the particular to the general and thus confess the faith; the Godhead is something general, the paternity something particular, and combining these we should say: "I believe in God the Son."[13]

(12) Translation is that of P. Kalligas, Basil of Caesarea on the Semantics of Proper Names, in: K. Ierodiakonou (ed.), *Byzantine Philosophy and its Ancient Sources* (Oxford, 2004) 42).

(13) Defferrari, *Basil. Letters*…, 401, 403.

If, here, the distinction between ἴδιον and κοινόν might be understood as the Aristotelian distinction between concrete particular existence (the primary substance) and common species (the secondary substance), a divine unitary shared nature would be not any essential principle, but an abstract and nominalistic universal. Can we find out any suggestion to ease this concern about "the Aristotelian route"? My answer is "yes." So, let us explore that possibility, closely and specifically analyzing *Ep*. 38, in the following section.

3. Philosophical Structure of Ep. *38*

The reason this letter was written was that there was a tendency at that time,[14] which identified the conception of "person" (ὑπόστασις) with that of "substance" (οὐσία). Many arguments over the doctrine of the Trinity "fail to discover any difference between the general conception of substance (τὸ κοινὸν τῆς οὐσίας) and that of persons (ὑποστάσεις)" (1,1–2).[15] For this reason, some insist on the attribution of one person (μία ὑπόστασις) to God; and others, vice versa, insist on the division of the substances (οὐσίαι) into three.

Hence in this section, we shall focus especially on the following development: from [1] the distinction between the proper and universal names or terms (ὀνόματα), through [2] the οὐσία–ὑπόστασις distinction, finally to [3] its application to the theory of Trinity. The point here is the identification of the relationship between κοινόν and ἴδιον with the relationship between οὐσία and ὑπόστασις. So the distinction of a universal concept from an individual concept is explained on the basis of the distinction of the species of "man" from individual men, such as Paul, Silvanus, and Timothy.

(14) According to Hübner (Hübner, Gregor von Nyssa…, 490), *Ep*. 38 was written by Gregory in 379–380, shortly before the Council of Constantinople. On the other hand, according to Drecoll (Drecoll, *Die Entwicklung*…, 324), it was written by Basil between 375 and 379, the year when he died, on the basis of the date of *Ep*. 236 and *Ep.* 214.

(15) In the following, references in the text will be to section and line of Courtonne's edition (E. Y. Courtonne, *Saint Basile, Lettres*, 3 vols. (Paris, 1957–1966).

3.1. The Distinction between Proper and Universal Names (Terms)

According to the Cappadocian author's semantic theory,[16] all names (ὀνόματα) are divided into the following two classifications:

a) universal names, "which are predicated (λεγόμενα) of subjects plural and numerically diverse, have a more general meaning (καθολιωτέρον σημασία)" (2,1–3).

b) "other proper names have a very specific denotation (ἰδικωτέρα ἡ ἔνδειξις)" which indicates "a limitation to a particular thing (περιγραφή)," "so far as the individuality of the object is concerned (κατὰ τὸ ἰδίαζον)"(2,11–15).

We can take as an example, "man." "When you say 'man,' you thereby indicate (δείκνυμι) the common nature (κοινὴ φύσις)" (2,4) in distinction from individual men. It is by means of "a further note of distinction (ὑποδιαστολή)" (2,10) that we understand, not merely man in general, but "Peter" or "John" in particular.

Now, we should notice that both proper names and universal names have a dual function: reference and signification. It seems clear that the proper name indicates a concrete thing (πρᾶγμα) in a deictic way, but, at the same time, it has another function to convey the notion (ἔμφασις / ἔννοια) of individual things. In other words, the proper name signifies characteristic properties or peculiar notes (γνωρίσματα / ἰδιότες / ἰδιώματα) of a particular thing, by which we can differentiate it from others and identify it. On the other hand, the universal name not only has a deictic function to indicate the common nature (φύσις) as mentioned before, but also signifies common properties of all the individuals which we could call by the name. To put it differently, a universal meaning of the thing predicated (κοινότης τοῦ σημαινομένου) by the name is common to all alike (ὁμοίως) who are included under the same name (2,8–9). The question we have to ask here is: what entity does the proper term's signification correspond to? What entity does the universal term's reference correspond to? The former entity is related to the particular φύσις or ὑπόστασις and the latter with the common φύσις or οὐσία.

(16) For an attempt to find out the modern and creative idea in Basil's semantics of proper names, cf. Kalligas, Basil of Caesarea…, 31–48.

3.2. The Οὐσία–Ὑπόστασις Distinction

What is at the core of the understanding of the difference between οὐσία and ὑπόστασις is the consideration in the process of recognition, as below:

> Someone who says "man" causes in a hearer's mind "a sort of vague concept (διάνοια)" by means of "the indefiniteness (ἀόριστον τῆς σημασίας) of the term used," so that "the nature (φύσις) of the thing is indicated by the name (ὄνομα)," but "the thing which subsists (ὑφεστώς)" (in that nature) and "is specifically (ἰδίως) indicated by the name is not signified (σημανθῆναι)" (3,2–6).
> On the other hand, someone who says "Paul" designates the nature (φύσις) which subsists (ὑφεστώσαν) in the object (πρᾶγμα) indicated by the name (3,6–8). It seems clear that this particular nature is a *hypostasis*.

First of all, what should be noticed is that only in 2,1–19 and 3,1–8, the author uses a pair of terms: name (ὄνομα) and nature (φύσις). Before and after those lines in this context, however, he uses another pair of terms: λόγος and οὐσία. In the Epistle, the universal name is never used to indicate οὐσία. With such a usage of terms, I think, the author deliberately develops an argument in a subtle way such that we can distinguish between the semantic or ordinary language level and the metaphysical or analytical knowledge level. This method, that is, a transition from a kind of vague whole which is more knowable for us by its name (ὄνομα) to a determinate formula (λόγος) by which principles become known to us, seems to be very similar to the Aristotelian method of physics.[17] In the following, I would like to elucidate a shift from a semantic stage of the relationship between ὄνομα and φύσις to a metaphysical stage of the relationship between λόγος and οὐσία in an Aristotelian way.

Firstly, although the common nature (φύσις) is indicated (δηλωθῆναι) by the name, such as "man," vaguely (3,4–5), in the case of "the οὐσία of men" an account (λόγος) is sought (2,21). According to the previously mentioned Aristotelian method, the common nature

(17) Cf. Aristotle, *Physica* A1, 184a10–b14, esp., 184a21–b10: "Now what is to us plain and obvious at first is rather confused masses, the elements and principles of which become known to us later by analysis. Thus we must advance from generalities to particulars; for it is a whole that is best known to sense-perception, and a generality is a kind of whole, comprehending many things within it, like parts. Much the same thing happens in the relation of the name (ὄνομα) to the formula (λόγος)."

which the name shows or indicates, but does not signify, is some sort of whole. Aristotle says, "a name, e.g. 'round,' means vaguely a sort of whole; its λόγος analyzes this into its particular senses."[18] Therefore, universal or common φύσις is, I should contend, humankind as sort of whole including its individuals,[19] such as Paul and John. Someone who says "man" can, for example, enumerate Paul and John as a man, but he does not know its principle or essence which causes something to be a man. It is οὐσία that causes something to be a man, and it is only an account (λόγος), or "formula of being" λόγος τῆς οὐσίας), that can describe οὐσία.

Now that we have elucidated what οὐσία is, we will be able to understand how the philosophical framework that has been observed so far is used to define the most important key word, *homoousion*, in the Nicene creed. In the Epistle the author writes:

> Whatever accounts (λόγοι) show the substance of Paul will apply to the other men as well. Those who are described with the same "formula of being" λόγος τῆς οὐσίας)[20] are consubstantial (ὁμοούσιοι) with one another" (2,24–26).

The substance (οὐσία) in this context is neither the individual like the thing (πρᾶγμα) pointed out by proper names, nor the common φύσις as a sort of whole indicated by universal names, but a principle or essence by which all men are caused to be a man "in the same way (κατὰ τὸ αὐτὸ ὄντων)" (2,20). Therefore, *homoousion* means that the individuals have the same cause and essence, and are made to exist in the same way.

Secondly, when someone uses the proper name (ὄνομα) to refer to the individual thing (πρᾶγμα), the author says that he designates the particular nature (φύσις) subsisting in that thing. In that case, what kind of entity does that particular φύσις correspond to? It is, I think, some sort of whole in each individual, which corresponds to a bundle of the object's particular properties. In other words, such a φύσις as some kind of whole or integrity in the thing is the necessary condition of the possibility for anyone to indicate the individual thing, such as

(18) Aristotle, *Physica* A1, 184b11–12.

(19) Cf. Zachhuber, *Human Nature in Gregory of Nyssa…*, 61–93. Although the argument of my interpretation is different from the one that he espouses, our conclusions are rather similar.

(20) This phrasing is Aristotelian. Translation is given according to Zachhuber (cf. Zachhuber, *Human Nature in Gregory of Nyssa…*, 71).

"the certain man (ἄνθρωπός τις),"[21] by proper name, e.g. "Paul." That person who can only designate the individual as "Paul," however, knows nothing yet about what is the nature, or what causes him to be that individual. At this phase, the author first proposes his new thesis: "that which is specifically (ἰδίως) referred to is indicated by the expression 'ὑπόστασις (person)' (3,1–2), which causes it to be the individual or is 'the principle of individuation.'"[22] It should be noticed here that the οὐσία could not actually exist without being individualized by the ὑπόστασις. It is by the addition of particular notes (ἰδιώματα)[23] that the conception of substance regarded as indeterminate leads to the recognition of concrete things. At the same time, however, the individuation through the ὑπόστασις could not be realized without the οὐσία as a universal essence to be individualized. It is significant that both are complementary.

3.3. The Application to the Theory of the Trinity

So far we have found our author 1) developing an argument concerning the οὐσία–ὑπόστασις distinction from the semantic level to the metaphysical level, and 2) emphasising the distinction between the unifying and causing *ousia* and individualizing *hypostasis*. In this phase of the argument, he transfers the philosophical framework and the principle of the differentiation in the aforesaid speculation to "divine dogmas" (ἐπὶ τῶν θείων δογμάτων), namely the theory of the Trinity.

What should not be overlooked here is that οὐσία in God the Father, the Son, and the Holy Spirit cannot be described, for example, as "God," just as the universal name, e.g., "man," cannot describe οὐσία but only indicates the common φύσις. Because, if my interpretation is not incorrect, it is only λόγος that can describe the οὐσία, and the οὐσία in itself is not God as a πρᾶγμα, but the cause of their being God.[24] Therefore, the οὐσία-concept in the theological context can-

(21) Cf. *Ep. 38*, 3,14–17. In this quotation from *Job* 1:1–2, Job is mentioned not as "ἄνθρωπος" but as "ἄνθρωπός τις."

(22) Zachhuber, *Human Nature in Gregory of Nyssa…*, 78.

(23) For example, "the name, the place," …and "the marks which reveal his character, and all such external adjuncts as will differentiate him" (3,19–25).

(24) In this regard, however, "the author" explicitly emphasizes that our mind cannot depend upon "a definitely prescribed conception (νόημα)" about, for example, what "the being of the Father (τὸ εἶναι τοῦ Πατρός)" is, [sc. the οὐσία of the Father], because "we are sure that it is beyond all concep-

not be translated as "God," otherwise either unitarianism or tritheism would be introduced.[25]

Keeping this in mind, then, what we have to confront is a sort of dilemma as below. On the one hand, the three Persons subsist as individuals. On the other hand, three Persons are, however, still unified and *homoousioi*, namely, one as nature and substance. So, if no substance can exist without its being in any hypostasis, it would be a sort of paradox to maintain that the divine substance subsists *in its own hypostasis*. Because the *undivided* substance would subsist *in three hypostases*, that is, should have been already divided into three. This paradox, which is expressed in the Epistle using a double oxymoron as "united separation and disunited connection," will be solved by the author, 1) through an illustration of the rainbow,[26] 2) through exemplifications from the Scriptures and their exegeses,[27] and 3) implicitly through his philosophical strategy. In this article, the third solution is the most important. That is, just as (1) there should be, on the semantic level, the complementarity or interdependency between universal signification and particular reference, and (2) on the metaphysical

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tion" (3,33–36). However, on the other hand, the author merely and without any arguments presupposes that "the same account of Being Uncreated and Incomprehensible (ὁ τοῦ ἀκτίστου καὶ τοῦ ἀκαταλήπτου λόγος) is to be attributed to the Father, to the Son, and to the Holy Ghost" (3,38–40).

(25) In other words, the overestimation of three ὑποστάσεις entails tritheism, on the other hand, the overemphasis on the one οὐσίᾳ brings about unitarianism. In the latter case, rejection of the individuality of the Son or the Holy Spirit brings about Sabellianism, and denial of the deity of the Son entails subordinationism.

(26) For a natural scientists' explanations of the rainbow which Basil seems to borrow, cf. Diogenes Laertius, *Vitae* VII, 152f = Poseidonius, *Frgm*. 335. According to the epistle (section 5), that "which is disunited and at the same time connected" in the Holy Trinity can be explicated "by analogy from things which appear to our sense-perceptions," for example, the brilliancy of the rainbow which "is both continuous with itself (συνεχὴς πρὸς ἑαυτήν) and separated (διήρηται)" (5,25–26).

(27) For example, the author refutes the wrong Christology based on Hebr. 1:3: If we regard a Person (ὑπόστασις) as "the conflux of the individual traits of each member of the Trinity (συνδρομὴ τῶν περὶ ἕκαστον ἰδιωμάτων)" (6,5–6), then "the Son has been formed by the individual traits (γνωρίσματα) of the Father" and "there no longer remains to the Father exclusively to be called 'unbegotten (ἀγεννήτως εἶναι)' in a sense peculiar to Himself alone" (6,16–17).

level, the complementarity between essence and individuality, so we should also find out, (3) on the theological level, the interdependency between the divine essence (οὐσία) and the individual ὑποστάσεις. The ὑποστάσεις (three Persons) cannot be God nor even be regarded as God without the οὐσία, and, at the same time, the latter could not exist actually without the former.

To put it specifically, the unifying relationship among three Persons is eventually developed as below.

1) "Every blessing (ἀγαθόν) which is bestowed on us by power divine" is ascribed to "the working of the Grace (τὸ Πνεῦμα)" as the Apostle says (1 Cor. 12:11). (4,2–4)

2) However, "this supply (χορηγία) of blessings" does not take "its origin" from the Holy Spirit alone, but are brought about by the Only-begotten God (μονογενὴς θεός) as the source and cause (ἀρχηγὸς καὶ αἴτιον) through the Spirit (4,6–8). Additionally, in response to John 1:3, "all things were made by Him [the Son] and in Him cohere" (4,11–13). By the power of the Son "all things are brought into being from non-being" (4,15–17).

3) However, additionally, not "even by this power without a beginning (ἀνάρχως)," but "there is a power which exists without generation or beginning" (ἀγεννήτως καὶ ἀνάρχως ὑφεστῶσα), that is "the cause of the cause of all things that exist (αἰτία τῆς ἁπάντων τῶν ὄντων αἰτίας)" (4,17–19), namely the Father.

4) At the same time, "it is impossible for a man, if he has not been previously enlightened by the Spirit, to arrive at a conception of the Son" (4,21–22).

4. Some Interpretations about the Background of Basil's Trinitarian Thought

We have outlined the development of Basil's Trinitarian thought, and, by closely analyzing *Ep*. 38 in comparison with his other works before it, have come close to his final stage, if this letter is his, or, if not, we have reached his limit. It may be promising, then, to proceed to the discussion about its philosophical background, in order to get a key to the understanding of the intricate argument. Indeed, many previous researchers have given various interpretations in regard to the question of the doctrines which lead the underlying Epistle's argument: among Platonic, Aristotelian, and Stoic doctrines, which plays a leading role? And the point here is, I think, how its concept of οὐσία should be interpreted.

(1) The Platonic Background

In the fourth century, generally, some sort of Platonism was pervasive and assumed among the Cappadocian Fathers, but, all the more, its influence beyond such general assumptions has proved very difficult to exemplify. For Basil, according to Rist, "there is not a trace of the influence of Neoplatonic speculation in that area of Trinitarian theology from which the Council [of Nicaea] had excluded Platonism forever."[28] Nevertheless, some scholars[29] insist that Basil's concept of common οὐσία as the underlying substratum is due to the influence of the Platonic understanding of universals, which have ontological priority over and are independent from particular things. Such a concept of the "common stuff," however, appears to be rather Stoic, not Platonic, and such a view of the universal is also manifestly ascribed to Gregory of Nyssa.[30] At least, the author of the *Epistle* 38, whether Basil or Gregory, does not develop an argument about the ontological priority and independency of the universal οὐσία; indeed, that would be against his intention in the Epistle. Therefore, we need not ponder over the question of the Platonic background here.

(2) The Stoic Background

It has been made clear by the research[31] done during the last century, especially since Hübner,[32] that Stoic thought, particularly the logic and physics of the Stoics, permeate the thoughts of and play a central role in Basil and his younger brother Gregory of Nyssa, whether in their cosmology or their theology. Thus, in order to find a solution to the trinitarian difficulty mentioned above, Basil has recourse to Stoicism.

According to Stoicism, concrete individuals consist of an indefinite substratum (ὑποκείμενον) or material (ἄποιος ὕλη), the Stoic οὐσία

(28) J. M. Rist, Basil's "Neoplatonism". Its Background and Nature, in: J. P. Fedwick (ed.), *Basil of Caesarea. Christian, Humanist, Ascetic*, vol. 1 (Toronto, 1981) 220.

(29) J. Lebon, Le sort du "consubstantial" nicéen, in: *RHE* 48 (1953) 641–657; A. M. Ritter, *Das Konzil von Konstantinopel und sein Symbol. Studien zur Geschichte und Theologie des 2. Ökumenischen Konzils* (Göttingen, 1965) 286–291.

(30) Cf. D. L. Balás, The Unity of Human Nature in Basil's and Gregory of Nyssa's Polemics against Eunomius, *SP* 14.3 (1976) 275–281.

(31) A. Grillmeier, *Christ in Christian Tradition* (London, ²1975) 367–377; R. G. Tanner, Stoic Influence on the Logic of St. Gregory of Nyssa, *SP* 18.3 (1989) 557–584.

(32) Hübner, Gregor von Nyssa…

as the first category, and qualities as the second category which are subdivided into a common quality (κοινῶς ποιόν) and a particular quality (ἰδίως ποιόν). For the Stoics, neither the underlying substratum nor the common qualities exist taken by themselves. Applying the Stoic οὐσία to his own οὐσία = ὑλικὸν ὑποκείμενον (*Adversus Eunomium* I.15, *ll*. 30–35; II.4, *ll*. 3–13), Basil can logically ground the unity of the three hypostases on the unity of substance.

Drecoll, however, criticises the fact that Basil's distinction between κοινόν and ἴδιον does not correspond with the Stoic contrast between ἄποιος ὕλη and κοινῶς/ἰδίως ποιόν.[33] Because, behind this Stoic contrast, there is the distinction between passive ὕλη and active ἄιτιον. In that case, Basil's concept of κοινὸν τῆς οὐσίας belongs to the realm of αἴτιον, not to the realm of ὕλη. Therefore, in so far as *Ep.* 38 is concerned, the concept of οὐσία cannot be interpreted as the indefinite substratum in the Stoic way, though, as a whole, the Stoic influence upon Basil's Trinitarian thought is undeniable.

(3) The Aristotelian Background

In terms of the distinction between κοινόν and ἴδιον in the present Epistle, its author insists that the individual cognitive note (γνωρίσματα) must be added to the indefinite concept of οὐσία in order to recognize concrete individuals. According to Drecoll, this insistence suggests the Peripatetic background, especially the Aristotelian analysis of a definition in *Topica*, and Hübner also clearly emphasizes its similarity to Aristotle's *Categories* and *De Interpretatione*.

However, assigning three ὑποστάσεις to a common οὐσία = a common species (εἶδος) as an Aristotelian secondary substance in *Categories* and thus maintaining unity as members of a species, that is, taking the so-called "Aristotelian route," falls short of the more promising theory of the Trinity. Because, "the identification of the second substance in *Categories*" as an abstract and nominalistic universal "with the *eidos* of the central books of *Metaphysics*" is obviously questionable, unless an argument mediating between the two is developed in the way we interpreted it in 3.2. In addition, we need to balance "the input from Stoic logic with Aristotelian elements mediated by later philosophical sources,"[34] as seen in the following.

(33) Cf. Drecoll, *Die Entwicklung*…, 319.

(34) D. G. Robertson, Stoic and Aristotelian Notions of Substance in Basil of Caesarea, *VC* 52 (1998) 394.

(4) The Synthetic or Eclectic Background in Late Ancient Philosophy

Finally, in contrast with the aforesaid approach, neither one particular author nor one particular school of thought, but late ancient synthetic interpreting developments of Aristotle's philosophy, which have to take into account some strand of non-Aristotelianism, need to be focused on. In particular, what needs to be noticed is a tendency to substitute the Aristotelian terminology for Stoic terminology in the logical realm from the late second century on. As a result, the view of *Ep*. 38 also cannot avoid becoming some kind of synthesis of the two theories; the Aristotelian and the Stoic. According to Zachhuber, on the one hand, the author holds names to indicate things (πράγματα) in accordance with the Aristotelian theory. On the other hand, "the Stoic doctrine, too, seems to have left its traces in the *Epistle 38* in so far as it recognises a relation of the names to universal and particular elements."[35] Additionally, the Platonic and Peripatetic concept of *incorporeal forms* combined with the Stoic notion of *corporeal qualities*, allows us finally to find the conception of the universal or the common οὐσία (the secondary substance in Aristotelian meaning) as the whole composed of the primary substances as its parts.[36]

This attractive interpretation is exemplified by several texts, for example, *Categories* (ch. 5, 2a14–17), *De Interpretatione* (ch. 7, 17a38–17b1), Porphyry's *Isagoge* (7,27–8,4), and Boethius' commentary (*in de Int*., II,7). And it is also in part similar to my interpretation. Concerning the authorship of *Ep. 38*, however, Zachhuber's insistence that the Epistle should be treated as documenting "the Cappadocian" teaching, neither Basilian nor Gregorian respectively, but collectively,[37] is unacceptable, because the concept of a "Cappadocian" position with little difference overestimates a common tradition in Cappadocians, and "blurs important differences"[38] among them. In other words, the expression of "the Cappadocian author of the *Epistle* 38" is a rightly cautious reservation to avoid a clear-cut decision, but, at the same time, can also suggest abandonment of further investigation into the truth.

(35) Zachhuber, *Human Nature in Gregory of Nyssa…*, 82f.

(36) Ibid., passim, esp. 83, 89.

(37) Ibid., 63. Zachhuber insists that "it does not appear that there is a clear-cut distinction to be made between Basil's and Gregory's approaches to the *ousia-hupostasis* distinction and the understanding of the homoousion" (ibid., 61).

(38) Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy…*, 205, n. 60.

Epilogue

As the Stoic influence upon Basil is undeniable (as seen in 4), if the author regards the common *ousia* not as the indeterminate substratum in the Stoic way, but as the universal species in the Aristotelian way in the *Epistle* 38, then he is not Basil, but Gregory of Nyssa. However, this contrast between Basil and Gregory by means of a differentiation among philosophical backgrounds is somewhat schematically over-simplified. Both Basil and the author of the Epistle are more flexible and complicated, not only philosophically, but also theologically (as seen in 1). In other words, whether the real author of *Ep*. 38 is Basil or Gregory, I am convinced that clarifying this letter's argument could cast light on some philosophical aspects of Basil's Trinitarian thought. Now that we have given a general overview of the development of his theology, we can finally say with certainty that Basil was one of the fathers of pro-Nicene theology, no more and no less.

SUMMARY

In my article, some interpretations about the backgrounds of Basil's Trinitarian teaching are briefly presented. On the basis of this outline, some arguments on various stages of the development of his Trinitarian thought will be specifically outlined and compared. Then the argument in the main part of *Epistle* 38 will be analyzed in detail in order to exemplify the philosophical framework and strategy of this Cappadocian author's Trinitarian theology. Finally, some interpretations about the philosophical backgrounds of Basil's Trinitarian teaching are outlined. In the course of this argument, the article aims to cast light on some philosophical aspects of his Trinitarian thought.

Other Patristic Studies

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CONTROVERSIE SUL SABATO E SUL MILLENNIO SECONDO I *GÄDL* INEDITI DI TÄWÄLDÄ-MÄDƏḪN E DI FIQƏṬOR

Introduzione

C'è un solo codice con i *gädlat* (gli "agoni" o combattimenti spirituali) di Abunä Täwäldä-Mädəḫn e di Abunä Fiqəṭor, conservato nello storico monastero di Däbrä Maryam[1] del distretto di Qoḥayn in Eritrea.[2] Abunä Täwäldä-Mädəḫn è un discepolo di Ewosṭatewos,[3] della terza generazione, vissuto all'epoca di Zär'a Ya'əqob.[4] Secondo il colo-

(1) Dalla Vita di Eustazio sembra che Däbrä Maryam sia un nome dato da Eustazio stesso quando dall'Armenia si recò in Etiopia cavalcando la nube dello spirito. Il cenobio in precedenza si chiamava Wägrä Kəssahe: fu poi rinominato Däbrä Maryam perché quel monte era diventato simile alla Gerusalemme celeste nella quale gli angeli e gli arcangeli lodavano solerti Dio, notte e giorno, senza interruzione. Allo stesso modo, i sacerdoti e i monaci che Eustazio aveva generato nello spirito lodavano Iddio di notte. Cf. Б. Турaев (*изд.*), *Monumenta Aethiopiae hagiologica*, III: *Vita et Miracula Eustathii* (Санкт-Петербург, 1905) 135.136. Sul viaggio che Eustazio ha compiuto dall'Armenia fino a Wägrä Kəssahe cavalcando il carro di luce cf. anche G. Lusini, *Studi sul monachesimo eustaziano (secoli XIV–XV)* (Napoli, 1993) (Studi Africanistici, Serie Etiopica 3) 45–49; idem, Per una storia delle tradizioni monastiche Eritree: le genealogie spirituali dell'Ordine di Ēwosṭātēwos di Dabra Ṣarābi, in U. Zanetti, E. Lucchesi (éds.), *Aegyptus Christiana. Mélanges d'hagiographie égyptienne et orientale dédiés à la mémoire du P. Paul Devos, Bollandiste* (Genève, 2004) (Cahiers d'orientalisme 25) 249–272, cf. 257–258.

(2) L'edizione del *gädl* (66 fogli in pergamena con grafia eccellente che testimonia degnamente la fama dello *scriptorium* di Däbrä Maryam) insieme ad una sua traduzione annotata è già stata terminata dal sottoscritto e si spera che la pubblicazione potrà essere messa a disposizione dei lettori nel prossimo futuro.

(3) Ewosṭatewos nacque il 21 *Ḥamle* [15 Luglio] 1273 ca., morì il 18 Mäskäräm [15 Settembre], 1352 ca. Cf. G. Fiaccadori, Ewosṭatewos, in *EA*, vol. 2, 469.

(4) Cf. Z. Kinefe-Rigb, Bibliography of the Ethiopic Hagiographical Traditions, *Journal of Ethiopian Studies* 13/2 (1975) 93–94.

fone dell'Ottateuco di Däbrä Maryam,[5] Abunä Täwäldä-Mädəḫn sarebbe diventato abate del monastero di Däbrä Maryam otto anni prima dell'arrivo in Etiopia del metropolita Bartolomeo[6] nel 1398/99 (quindi nel 1391/92). Un'altra autorevole fonte della Vita di Abunä Täwäldä-Mädəḫn e di Abunä Fiqəṭor è l'"Operetta di Yoḥannəs",[7] composta nel diciannovesimo anno del regno di Zär'a Ya'əqob e nel settimo del priorato di Gäbrä Krəstos, immediato successore di Fiqəṭor come abate di Däbrä Maryam.[8] Il *gädl* di Abunä Täwäldä Mädəḫn lo presenta come un monaco austero che conduceva un severo regime di vita ascetica; un uomo con convinzioni solide, non negoziabili neppure nelle circostanze più rischiose e travagliate. Tra le molteplici qualità di Abunä Täwäldä Mädəḫn, l'agiografo ricorda ripetutamente la sua passione per gli studi ed il suo zelo per l'insegnamento delle Scritture. Il suo *gädl* parla spesso della "casa dell'insegnamento", che sembra essere stata un'istituzione importante, seguita con amore e tenacia da Abunä Täwäldä Mädəḫn. Frequentare la "casa dell'insegnamento" era un requisito fondamentale della comunità. La regola monastica prevedeva sanzioni contro i disertori. Al f. 24vb si legge: "colui che, se non è a causa di una sua malattia, sottrae un'ora [alla frequentazione della casa], tre flagellazioni; chi fa passare un'altra ora sette flagellazioni, se poi è fino alla sera, nove flagellazioni". Abunä Täwäldä Mädəḫn stesso testimonia che "tutti i giorni della sua vita erano centotrenta anni da quando era nato" (ff. 19vb–20ra).

Il secondo personaggio del *gädl*, Abunä Fiqəṭor è un discepolo di Abunä Täwäldä Mädəḫn, e suo successore nella guida del monastero di Däbrä Maryam. Il *gädl* offre soltanto poche informazioni biografiche su Abunä Fiqəṭor, precedute da un ampio prologo teologico. Si legge che Fiqəṭor è nato nella provincia orientale di Betä Säma'ət,[9] da

(5) Cf. G. Lusini, *Il "Gadla Absādi" (Dabra Māryām Sarā'ē)* (CSCO 557 Aeth. 103) (Louvain, 1966), testo, pp. 79–92; tr., pp. 56–67.

(6) Cf. Lusini, *Il "Gadla Absādi"*..., testo, p. 90; tr., p. 66.

(7) L'"Operetta di Yoḥannəs" è una nota che appare alla fine dei primi fascicoli del voluminoso *Gädlä Säma'ət* di Däbrä Maryam.

(8) Cf. A. Bausi, Su alcuni manoscritti presso comunità monastiche dell'Eritrea, *Rassegna di Studi Etiopici* 38 (1994, ma 1996) 50–57. Per la successione degli abati di Dabrä Maryam, cf. anche Б. Тураев, *Исследования в области агиологических источников истории Эфиопии* (Санкт-Петербург, 1902) 364, che cita: Ewosṭatewos, Absadi, Romanos, Märqoräwos, Täwäldä Mädḫən, Fiqəṭor e Matewos.

(9) Così il *gädl* di Ewosṭatewos sostiene che questi apparteneva ad una nobile famiglia del luogo in cui "sorgeva il sole". Cf. Тураев, *Monumenta*

Täṭämqä Mädḫən, uomo retto e timorato di Dio. Il nome della madre era Amätä Maryam. Entrambi sono descritti come persone giuste davanti a Dio. Ebbero due figli: Fiqəṭor e Yonas. "Prima che potesse distinguere il bene dal male," Täṭämqä Mädḫən condusse Fiqəṭor a Betä Gäbäz, luogo dei monaci, e lo affidò ad Abba BäṢälotä Mika'el, figlio spirituale di Ewosṭatewos. Il suo agiografo lo descrive come un uomo saggio, ben versato nei libri dei Profeti e degli Apostoli e nella loro interpretazione (f. 44va). E aggiunge che Abunä Fiqəṭor trascorse tutti i giorni della sua vita insegnando nella pace (f. 62ra). L'agiografo afferma che ogni sua azione rispondeva alle indicazioni della Scrittura. Dopo aver detto "che liberava gli afflitti e rallegrava i tristi e intercedeva per i prigionieri presso i re e i principi e li salvava dalla loro disgrazia" (e.g. nei ff. 60rb–60va), si permette di indicare il principio da cui scaturiva questo tipo di comportamento: "Come dice Giobbe: quanto a me, io piango per ogni afflitto e lacrimo se vedo una persona sofferente, ho stretto a me ciò che è buono" (Gb 30,25). Uno dei carismi per i quali Fiqəṭor è lodato più di una volta è la chiaroveggenza. La sua predizione più celebre riguarda l'arrivo in Etiopia dei metropoliti Mika'el e Gäbr'əl.[10] La già menzionata "annotazione di Yoḥannəs" gli riserva alcuni elogi che sembrano una sintesi delle sue gesta. Il testo dice: "Egli fu predicatore di libertà di fronte a coloro che si radunarono in assemblea; egli fu testimone del banchetto del Monte Ṣəyon davanti al re ed ai soldati".[11]

I due *gädl* oltre che ad offrire notizie storiche importanti (alcune inedite), sono una composizione di altissimo valore letterario. Il *gädl* di Abba Fiqəṭor in particolare, è una brillante testimonianza del vivace clima accademico-spirituale che all'epoca si respirava nel celebre monastero di Däbrä Maryam.

Il parossismo sul sabato

La memoria di Täwäldä Mädəḫn e di Fiqəṭor è legata in modo particolare a due questioni religiose che hanno avuto una grande risonanza nella chiesa e nello scenario politico dell'Etiopia medievale: l'osservanza del sabato e il millenarismo. La *vexata questio* della venerazione

Aethiopiae hagiologica, III…, 3. Identica informazione del *gädl* di Absadi: Lusini, *Il "Gadla Absādi"*..., 4.

(10) I due metropoliti arrivarono ad Aksum nel 1438, e furono accolti dal re Zär'a Yaʿqob che si trovava allora nell'antica città. Cf. Taddesse Tamrat, *Church and State in Ethiopia 1270–1527* (Oxford, 1972) 228–229.

(11) Cf. Bausi, Su alcuni manoscritti..., 48.

del sabato, per la quale il fondatore Ewosṭatewos dovette pagare un prezzo molto alto, continuò ad essere una ferita aperta anche dopo il suo auto-esilio (nel 1337) e morte in Armenia (nel 1352). La venerazione del sabato insieme alla domenica e con pari dignità di questa è uno, se non il più importante, dei tratti distintivi del monachesimo eustaziano. È una prassi che rivendica il proprio fondamento nei libri dell'Antico e del Nuovo Testamento, e in una serie di testi a carattere giuridico e normativo, quali la Didascalia e il Sinodos. Stupisce lo zelo e il rigorismo (al limite del fanatismo) con cui il sabato era scrupolosamente osservato. Seguono alcuni passi tratti dai nostri *gädl* che illustrano la visione degli eustaziani sul sabato: "... riguardo alla venerazione dei sabati, e riguardo al loro viaggiare, se si avvicinava il sesto giorno e si faceva sera non si allontanavano in alcun modo, né verso destra, né verso sinistra, ma là riposavano il sabato e la domenica. Fosse anche un paese di omicidi o briganti, o anche una terra di animali selvatici, fosse anche una terra di morte, fosse anche una terra di calamità e malattia e collera. Oppure una terra di fame e sete, e qualunque cosa accadesse, non v'era modo per cui viaggiassero, ma là trascorrevano il sabato e la domenica. E anche a proposito del cibo e della bevanda non facevano assolutamente alcunché, se non ciò che avevano preparato nel sesto giorno, secondo quanto era stato scritto nella legge [Es 16,22–30]. E nell'ordinamento degli Apostoli è lo scritto che dice: 'compite le vostre opere nei cinque giorni, nel sabato e nella domenica non fate alcun lavoro' [ff. 44vab–45ra].[12] Il loro motto era: 'Beati coloro che muoiono a motivo della Parola di Dio!' [f. 44vab]". Osservare il sabato o meno era dunque una questione di vita o di morte. Essi preferivano morire piuttosto che contravvenire a questo precetto:[13] "Speravano di morire per la Parola di Dio (osservando il sabato)" (f. 46ra). I sabati non erano parentesi di ozio ma tempo di preghiera e di apprendimen-

(12) Sull'osservanza del sabato nel libro del Sinodos con le relative promesse cf. testo pp. 80–83; tr. pp. 38–40. Molto interessante il puntiglioso elenco delle attività interdette durante il giorno del sabato, stilato dal C. Conti Rossini, col concorso di L. Ricci (ed.), *Il Libro della Luce del Negus Zar'a Yāqob (Mäṣḥafä Berhān)* (Louvain, 1965) (CSCO 262, Aeth. 52), testo, pp. 27–29; tr., pp. 16, 20–22.

(13) Significativo l'episodio avvenuto mentre Ewosṭatewos viaggiava verso Gerusalemme sul dorso di un cammello. Vi furono delle incomprensioni fra il cammelliere e alcuni monaci da una parte, ed Ewosṭatewos dall'altra. I primi decisero di proseguire il viaggio per non morire di sete mentre Ewosṭatewos preferì morire piuttosto che infrangere il precetto di viaggiare durante i sabati. Cf. Typaев, *Monumenta Aethiopiae hagiologica*, III…, 79–80.

to delle scritture, come si legge, ad esempio, al f. 16rb: "durante i sabati ed anche nelle feste Täwäldä-Mädəḫn ha fatto ascoltare ai suoi figli i libri dell'Antico e del Nuovo Testamento". Un secolo dopo Ewosṭatewos, Giyorgis di Sagla, nel capitolo 26 del suo "Libro del Mistero", dedicherà un capitolo intero in difesa dell'osservanza del sabato.[14] La questione del sabato ha contrapposto diametralmente la Chiesa ufficiale, con i metropoliti egiziani e i monaci eustaziani in una posizione di antagonismo, rischiando uno scisma in seno alla Chiesa etiopica. I prelati alessandrini respingevano con veemenza, come un ritorno al giudaismo la prassi di celebrare il sabato, e gli Eustaziani dal canto loro si difendevano affermando che il rispetto del sabato era un comandamento divino. Si tratta di una lotta ad oltranza per il potere, o almeno per l'autorità. Una lotta che ha causato tante sofferenze. Il *gädl* di Täwäldä-Mädəḫn offre un impressionante resoconto di persecuzioni, prigionie e di torture inflitte dalla Chiesa ufficiale, in collaborazione con il braccio secolare, come misure punitive per la celebrazione del sabato. Ci sono racconti di fughe, con gli stenti e i pericoli che normalmente accompagnano situazioni del genere. Ma c'è anche la statistica tragica che parla di duecento e sette monaci morti durante il regime di persecuzione (f. 15ra). Il *gädl* di Täwäldä-Mädəḫn registra una visita del metropolita Bartolomeo nel Särayä per chiedere agli eustaziani di abbandonare l'osservanza del sabato. L'agiografo non specifica né la data né la località esatta dell'incontro. Si limita a riferire il rifiuto di Täwäldä-Mädəḫn e dei suoi di violare il sabato, e delle drammatiche conseguenze subite per mano del governatore Särayä in seguito al loro diniego. Furono costretti a fuggire e a rifugiarsi nel Ḥamasen (cf. ff. 3va–4rb e seguenti). Undici mesi dopo, il re Dawit convocò Abba Täwäldä Mädəḫn "per rendere giustizia secondo gli ottantuno Libri". L'abbate radunò tutti i suoi discepoli per considerare l'invito del re e alla fine concordarono di recarsi all'incontro. L'agiografo racconta che "Täwäldä Mädəḫn e i suoi giunsero a Ayda, il paese del re e ... trascorsero in essa la stagione delle piogge (f. 7rb). ... E mentre erano ad Ayda, raccolti nella chiesa della Madonna, (e) nella chiesa stavano celebrando la festa del Natale[15] del nostro Signore, li circondarono i soldati del re con armi (f 8ra)... Arrivarono dov'era il vescovo, e insieme a lui erano i soldati del re. E fecero stare in piedi Abba Täwäldä Mädḫən e gli

(14) Cf. Yaqob Beyene (ed., tr.), *Giyorgis da Saglā. Il Libro del Mistero (Mäṣḥafä Məsṭir)* (Louvain, 1993) (CSCO 532, Aeth. 97; 533, Aeth. 98), testo, p. 100–175; tr., p. 61–99.

(15) I.e. il 7 Gennaio.

dissero: 'Viola il sabato!'. Ed egli disse a loro: 'Non violerò il sabato di Dio'" (9rab). Nonostante i pesanti castighi fisici e psicologici inflitti per ordine di Abunä Bärtolomewos, il monaco e i suoi compagni si attennero al loro credo pro-sabato in maniera decisa, e forse, preso atto della loro fermezza, il metropolita escogitò una stravagante formula di compromesso che più che risolvere il contenzioso sembra una via d'uscita dignitosa per il prelato. L'agiografo dice: "E vi era un sacerdote che amava Dio, istruito nei libri, e assennato e calmo, mite e umile, che amava le persone, e il suo nome (era) Abba Marqos e disse al vescovo: 'Quanto a questi santi non torneranno indietro, non si ritireranno e non violeranno il sabato, fino a quando moriranno. Ordunque di' loro: 'Osservate i sabati dei Cristiani!'.[16] E il vescovo fu d'accordo con questa parola e accolse il consiglio di Abba Marqos e gli disse: 'Va bene!'. E Abba Marqos si recò da Täwäldä [f. 11vb] Mädḫən e con lui (si recarono) i grandi dell'Egitto e gli dissero: 'Onora il sabato come cristiano!'. Ed egli disse loro: 'Va bene! E che sia fatta la volontà di Dio!'. E radunarono i santi e sciolsero i collari di ferro dai loro colli e li gettarono nel fuoco e li bruciarono. Invece la catena che era nella mano di Abba Täwäldä Mädḫən si sciolse da sé e si slegarono le catene dalle sue mani e uscirono per volontà di Dio. E fecero pace con il vescovo [f. 12ra] e ritornarono alla loro patria dopo essere stati benedetti da lui e si misero d'accordo con lui [12rb]". Il *gädl* di Abunä Täwäldä Mädḫən fornisce una notizia ancor più singolare e clamorosa, ossia il cambiamento radicale del re Dawit riguardo alla venerazione del sabato: "E a proposito dei sabati, il re Dawit ordinò che venerassero i sabati secondo quanto Dio aveva stabilito, e se qualche persona veniva trovata in cammino il giorno di sabato, comandò che gli amputassero i suoi piedi e se una donna metteva mano sulla pietra da macina e macinava che gli tagliassero le mani [f. 15rab]".[17] C'è una versione dei fatti analoga a quelli esposti sinora nel colofone dell'Ottateuco di Däbrä Maryam, redatto da Yosṭinos. Il cronista racconta che di fronte all'audacia delle

(16) La condizione implicita rivolta agli Eustaziani era quella di prendere le distanze dal sabato giudaico.

(17) Anche nel Conti Rossini, Ricci, *Il Libro della Luce...* (CSCO 262), testo, p. 70; tr., p. 42, si legge una condanna durissima contro i trasgressori del sabato: "In questo mondo ti colga la condanna a morte, o stolido, violatore del sabato, sia per mano del re, sia per mano dei governatori, sia per mano dei demoni! Ti colga la condanna a morte, com'è detto nel Sinodo di Simone il Cananeo: «Chi lo abroghi e preferisce lavorare in esso, muoia! E chi attenda in esso ad un lavoro, perisca, quell'uomo, di fra il suo popolo»".

vittime delle torture e all'inflessibilità della loro posizione circa l'osservanza del sabato, gli aguzzini dovettero ricorrere ad una formula intesa a salvare la loro faccia e la pelle dei dissidenti: "Andatevene pure, ma onorate (il sabato) come Cristiani!".[18] Nella narrazione del *gädl* di Abunä Täwäldä Mädḫən, l'eroico alfiere del credo pro-sabato, nonché la vittima principale degli abusi del re e del metropolita è l'abbate di Däbrä Maryam. Gli Annali di 'Addi Nä'ammən non lo escludono, ma lo mettono in secondo piano: "L'anno 51 della misericordia uscì (dall'Egitto) abba Bärtä Lomewos (sic!). L'anno 52 della Misericordia salirono al paese dell'Amḥara il nostro padre Filəṗṗos e i figli del nostro padre Ma'əqäbä Ǝgzi'ə e il loro numero era di dodici,[19] abba Täwäldä Mädḫən di Däbrä Maryam, abba Muse di Däbrä Sälam, abba Matewos di Mayä Sägla, Danə'el di Gädamawi, Ṗäwlos di Ǝgəʷd, Marqos di Adəyabo, Matewos di Mayä A'əraf, Ṭimotewos di Alga Barya, Arke ledəs di Dägʷa'əle, Matewos di 'Ad Qäwə'o, Ṭimotewos di 'Ad Gäba. Ritornarono al loro paese nel 56 anno della Misericordia".[20] Interessante notare che il *gädlä* Filəṗṗos che parla ampiamente della diatriba sul sabato e delle peripezie di Filəṗṗos nell'Amḥara, in tutta la vicenda non nomina mai abba Täwäldä Mädḫən.[21] Lo menziona una volta soltanto per dire che è stato uno dei dodici maestri d'Etiopia[22] che si sono recati da Filəṗṗos quando la fama di quest'ultimo si era diffusa dappertutto. Filəṗṗos "li istruì sulla grandezza del primo sabato con molte ammonizioni, affinché lo celebrassero alla stessa stregua del giorno di domenica".[23] L'abate del monastero del Bizän fu dunque "istrutto-

(18) Cf. Lusini, *Il "Gadla Absādi"*..., 91. Da rilevare comunque che, rispetto alle informazioni riguardanti le vessazioni subite dagli Eustaziani per mano della Chiesa ufficiale e delle autorità secolari che si riscontrano nel *gädl* di Abunä Täwäldä Mädḫən, il resoconto del colofone è stringatissimo.

(19) Il C. Conti Rossini, Il Gadla Filpos ed il Gadla Yoḥannes di Dabra Bizan, *Memorie della Reale Accademia dei Lincei*, ser. 5a, VIII (1901) 61–170, cf. 112, parla di centoventi delegati che trasportavano il loro padre di malferma salute su una lettiga.

(20) Cf. J. Kolmodin, *Traditions des Tsazzegga et Hazzegga. Annales et documents* (Upsal, 1914) A23, A24, A30.

(21) Cf. Conti Rossini, Il Gadla Filpos..., 111–120.

(22) La lista dei maestri corrisponde al già citato testo edito da Kolmodin. Da notare che, mentre negli Annali Abba Muse di Däbrä Sälam appare al secondo posto, nel *Gädlä Filəṗṗos* egli risulta al nono. Inoltre, in entrambi gli elenchi vi sono undici e non dodici nominativi.

(23) Cf. Conti Rossini, Il Gadla Filpos..., 107.

re" di abba Täwäldä Mädḫən, abate del monastero di Däbrä Maryam (stabilito da Ewosṭatewos). Ma la controparte non è da meno quanto a oggettività storica e apertura di mente: nessun accenno a Filəppos nel *gädl* di Täwäldä Mädḫən. Come rileva Taddesse, tutto questo non può che esser indice delle rivalità e del desiderio di assicurarsi il primato all'interno della comunità eustaziana.[24] Ciascuna agiografia ha tratto acqua al proprio mulino. Ritornando alla disputa in presenza del re Dawit e del metropolita Bärtolomäwos, secondo i già citati Annali di 'Addi Nä'ammən, la comitiva eustaziana si mosse verso l'Amḥara nell'anno 52 della misericordia, che corrisponde al 1399/1400. Il *gädlä Filəppos*[25] menziona il mese di Aprile: è quindi verosimile che il processo sull'osservanza del sabato, istigato dal metropolita e sottoscritto dal re Dawit abbia avuto luogo nell'anno 1400. Il *Libro della Luce*, attribuito al re Zär'a Ya'əqob, offre un quadro della situazione all'epoca della disputa: "I discepoli di Mā'qaba Egzi' osservavano i sabati, sabato e domenica; ma non entravano nella dimora reale né nella dimora dei metropoliti, e non prendevano il sacerdozio, perché nella reggia non vigeva l'osservanza del sabato, e nella dimora dei metropoliti il sabato era abolito, e lo mettevano in comune con gli altri cinque giorni per compiere i lavori, e riguardavano come Giudei coloro che lo osservavano, li anatematizzavano e non consentivano loro di entrare nella chiesa. Perciò i discepoli di Mā'qaba Egzi' stettero per molti anni in esilio, avendo abbandonato le loro chiese, perché i metropoliti li avevano colpiti di anatema affinchè non osservassero il sabato. Mio padre Dāwit, re d'Etiopia, capo dei re, come ebbe inteso che molti erano periti di fame, di sete, per armi e per bocca delle fiere mentre vagavano per il deserto, inviò dei messaggeri affinchè raccogliessero i discepoli di Mā'qaba Egzi' dalla loro dispersione e li facessero rientrare nello loro chiese ... Il re comandò altresì ai discepoli di Mā'qaba Egzi' di osservare entrambi i sabati, come gli Apostoli avevano prescritto nel Sinodo".[26] Non vi sono dati precisi sul numero e sulle figure dei delegati eustaziani che hanno partecipato all'assemblea.[27] Ad una fase iniziale di ostilità e di vessazioni da parte di Dawit e soprattutto da parte del metropolita e dell'abate del monastero di Ḥayq, seguì un cambiamen-

(24) Cf. Taddesse Tamrat, *Church and State in Ethiopia*…, 214, n. 1.

(25) Conti Rossini, Il Gadla Filpos... 117.

(26) Cf. Conti Rossini, Ricci, *Il Libro della Luce...* (CSCO 262), testo, pp. 145–146; tr., p. 82.

(27) Circa gli avvenimenti in quell'assemblea, cf. Conti Rossini, Il Gadla Filpos..., 111–120.

to di rotta a favore degli Eustaziani, che riuscirono ad ottenere la regia sanzione di poter celebrare il primo sabato alla stessa stregua della domenica.[28] Diversamente dal racconto del *gädl* di Täwäldä Mädḫən, che riporta il presunto decreto di Dawit (f. 15rab) secondo cui il re avrebbe abbracciato ufficialmente la venerazione del primo sabato, sembra invece che per la corte e per le chiese non-eustaziane dovessa restare in vigore la posizione tradizionale "anti-sabato" della Chiesa alessandrina. Per Dawit l'apertura agli Eustaziani era una misura di compromesso intesa a placare entrambi le parti.[29] Tuttavia la controversia continuò a trascinarsi fino al 1450, quando Zär'a Ya'əqob convocò un concilio a Däbrä Məṭmaq e lo presiedette in persona. Il re aveva già da tempo preso la decisione (politica) di adottare la dottrina degli eustaziani riguardo al sabato e di chiederene l'osservanza da tutti i suoi sudditi. I vescovi egiziani Gäbr'el e Mika'el abrogarono i decreti dei loro predecessori, Salama II (1348–86) e Bärtälomäwos (1398/9–1436?),[30] rinnegando così la dottrina contraria all'osservanza del sabato. Si "allinearono" quindi con Zär'a Ya'əqob nell'accogliere la venerazione del sabato insieme alla domenica. Nella Chiesa etiopica, l'osservanza dei due sabati iniziava al tramonto di venerdì e terminava al tramonto di domenica.[31] I due *gädl* sembrano autentici strumenti apologetici, abbondantemente provvisti di argomentazioni bibliche e canoniche in difesa del culto del sabato e della sua diffusione. Ci sono promesse, formulate direttamente oppure accennate in modo abile per coloro che avrebbero accolto e diffuso la venerazione del sabato. Sia Abunä Täwäldä-Mädəḫn che Abunä Fiqəṭor sono presentati come apostoli eroici e infaticabili della causa dell'osservanza del sabato. Un culto che sopravvive fino al giorno d'oggi.[32] È interessante notare che

(28) Osserva Taddesse Tamrat, *Church and State in Ethiopia…*, 217: "The house of Ewostatewos emerged from the struggle with tremendous success. Its status was suddenly transformed from one of an actively persecuted minority sect into that of a respectable school". I nostri due *Gädl* testimoniano sia il regime di vessazione che precede il decreto reale sia il clima di distensione che avrà luogo in seguito.

(29) Cf. ibid.

(30) Per questa cronologia, cf. G. Fiaccadori, Aethiopica minima, *Quaderni utinensi* VIII (13–14) (1989, ma 1993) 151 e 163.

(31) Cf. Getatchew Haile, Ethiopian heresies and theological controversies, in: A. S. Atiya (ed.), *The Coptic Encyclopedia*, vol. 3 (New York, 1991) 985.

(32) Le persone che si considerano "mature" nella fede evitano con cura di bere, ad esempio, acqua attinta i giorni di sabato e di domenica, o di consu-

nel *gädl* di Abunä Yonas (1396ca.–1491), l'osservanza del sabato "a costo della morte" cesserà di essere un *leit-motif*.

Il Banchetto del Monte Sion

Premessa.

Per comprendere meglio il dibattito sul millenarismo in Etiopia,[33] è opportuno soffermarsi brevemente sul retroterra lontano di questo concetto che nei nostri due *gädl* è espresso con la circonlocuzione "(Banchetto del) Monte Sion". Generalmente, per millenarismo si intende il regno che il Messia stabilirà sulla terra prima della fine dei tempi. 1 Ts 4,17; 1 Cor 15,23; Ap 20,1–6,[34] sono alcuni dei dati biblici su cui poggia tale articolo di fede. Il punto essenziale del credo millenarista è che Cristo verrà di nuovo su questa terra alla fine dei tempi

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mare il caffè macinato il sabato o la domenica. Questo fino al giorno d'oggi, in varie parti dell'Eritrea e del Təgray.

(33) Molto interessante il cartellone (un unico foglio) con una complessa sintesi grafica, purtroppo poco conosciuta, di Asräs Yänesäw. Il titolo in amarico assai prolisso dice: **የምሳሐ ደብረ ፅዮንን ጥሪ ለሚጠባበቁ ሰዎች ማሳሰብያ ፕሮግራም የሰላም ቀን መቀሠጠርያ። ይህ ጽሑፍ ጠቃሚነቱ የሰላሙን ዘመን ለሚናፍቁ ከክፉ ሥራ እንዲ ጠነቀቁ አስታዋሽ በመሆኑ ነው ። ይህ ባ፬ መዓዝን የተጻፈው የቀን ቁጥር በኢዮቤል በዓመተ ኅድገት በ፫ በ ፫ቱ ሚዛኖች ተመዝኖ ይገኛል ። ኢዮቤል ፴፱ ቁ. ነው ፡ ዓመተ ኅድገት ፫ው ፲ ጊዜ ነው ። ይህ ጽሑፍ የተተረጐመ ከ፩ኛው ነቢይ ከኄኖክና ከሙሴ ከዳዊት ከኢሳይያስ ከኤርምያስ ከዳንኤል ከኢዩኤል ከዘካርያስ ከ፬ ወንጌላውያን ነው ። እርግጠኛው የበዓላት መገኛ መንገድ ይህ ነው ። በኮከበ ጽባሕ ማተሚያ ቤት አሥመራ ታኅተመ** = "Promemoria programmatico e calendario di pace per le persone che attendono il pranzo del Monte Ṣəyon. L'utilità di questo scritto consiste nel fatto che ricorda a quelli che bramano (la venuta del)l'era della pace di astenersi dal cattivo operato. Questo scritto della data (messo) nei quattro angoli, si trova nel giubileo, nell'anno del condono, pesato nelle misure di 70 e 3. Il giubileo è il numero 49, l'anno del condono è il 70 (moltiplicato per) dieci volte. Questo scritto è stato tradotto dal primo profeta, Enoch e da Mosè, da Davide, da Isaia, da Geremia, da Daniele, da Gioele, da Zaccaria, dai quattro evangelisti. Questa è la strada sicura per trovare (le date) delle festività. È stato stampato nella tipografia Kokäbä Ṣəbaḥ Asmära". Il quadro di Asräs Yänesäw, pubblicato appunto ad Asmara e senza data, oltre all'esposizione descrittiva dei calcoli riguardanti il millennio, presenta diverse griglie con il computo del millennio.

(34) G. Biguzzi, *Apocalisse, Nuova Versione, Introduzione e Commento* (Milano, 2005) 16, dice che "fin dai primissimi secoli cristiani ricevette particolare enfasi la profezia del regno millenario di Ap 20,1–6, in cui si vedeva il punto d'arrivo delle speranze escatologiche sia giudaiche che evangeliche".

per instaurare il suo regno. Non è possibile conoscere la durata di tale regno (intermedio) ma si sa in che cosa consiste. Esso comprende: il ritorno di Cristo, la resurrezione dei santi, il giudizio generale e l'emergere di una nuova creazione.[35] La visione di un regno messianico che darà vita ad una nuova creazione la si riscontra già in alcuni passi di Ezechiele (e.g. 1–3; 37; 40–48). Si tratta di un regno che si insedierà prima del giudizio finale. Il millenarismo è dunque la concezione giudeo-cristiana della dottrina della Parousia che prevedeva il trionfo di un re terreno da una parte e l'emergere di un nuovo creato dall'altra. C'è un'eco di questa visione nell'Ascensione di Isaia,[36] che prima delinea le caratteristiche del regno dell'Anticristo, soprannominato Beliar, e poi dice: "Ma dopo 1332 giorni verrà il Signore con i suoi angeli e le schiere dei santi dal settimo cielo, con la gloria del settimo cielo, e getterà nella Geenna Beliar e le sue potenze, e darà riposo a coloro che troverà nella carne in questo mondo praticanti il bene — e il sole si vergognerà, — e a tutti coloro che a causa della fede avranno maledetto Beliar e i suoi re. I santi invero verranno con il Signore nelle loro vesti che si trovano in alto, nel settimo cielo; con il Signore verranno coloro i cui spiriti sono vestiti, scenderanno e saranno nel mondo. E conforterà coloro che saranno stati trovati nella carne con i santi, nelle vesti dei santi, e il Signore servirà coloro che avranno vegliato in questo mondo. E dopo ciò si trasformeranno nelle loro vesti in alto, e la loro carne sarà lasciata nel mondo" (4,14–17). È un brano affine al linguaggio e allo scenario apocalittico della letteratura neo-testamentaria. Infatti in questi ultimi, gli elementi portanti che accompagneranno la seconda venuta di Cristo sono: la sconfitta dell'Anticristo (Ap 19,19) con la sua successiva precipitazione nello stagno di fuoco (Ap 19,20; 20,3; 2 Ts 1,9). I santi già deceduti saranno richiamati a vita (Ap 20,4; 1 Cor 15,23; 1 Ts 4,16). I santi ancora in vita saranno trasfigurati (1Ts 4,17) ed entrambi regneranno con Cristo sulla terra insieme a Cristo (Ap 20,4) in un arco di tempo che si chiama epoca del riposo (2 Ts 1,7) o mille anni (Ap 20,4). Ad esso seguirà il giudizio ultimo che risulterà nella resurrezione dei reprobi per la condanna, e la trasfigurazione dei giusti, che è una seconda resurrezione, e l'entrata nella vita che non perisce (1 Cor

(35) Cf. O. Cullmann, *Königsherrschaft Christi und Kirche im N.T.* (Bâle, 1941) 14.

(36) L'Ascensione di Isaia, un antico scritto apocrifo il cui testo integrale è conservato solo in gə'əz, riflette l'ambiente siro-palestinese. Per un'ampia analisi di questo testo, cf. E. Norelli, *L'Ascensione di Isaia. Studi su un apocrifo al crocevia dei cristianesimi* (Bologna, 1994).

15,25; 1 Ts 4,17; Ap 20,13). Il nocciolo dottrinale consiste dunque nel credo in uno stadio intermedio nel quale i santi risuscitati sono ancora sulla terra in attesa dell'ingresso nella loro condizione finale. La grande incognita è la natura la durata di questo stato.

Il "Monte Ṣəyon" nei nostri due Gädl.

Il "regno del monte Ṣəyon" è una delle tematiche forti che appaiono nelle due agiografie: ma mentre nel *gädl* di Abunä Täwäldä-Mädəḫn si riscontra soltanto un riferimento generale, per di più in forma di supplica ("... perché ci inviti al monte Ṣəyon dei mille anni e ci computi con i sacerdoti e con i re e affinché ci dia il regno dei cieli" ... f. 18vb), nel *gädl* di Abunä Fiqəṭor, la questione del regno del monte Ṣəyon si presenta come un autentico cavallo di battaglia che antagonizza aspramente due schieramenti e che coinvolge in prima persona il monaco Fiqəṭor e il re Zär'a Ya'əqob. Il *gädlä* Fiqəṭor descrive con passione e con una palese partecipazione emotiva del narratore, le circostanze e i contenuti dell'accesa diatriba. L'agiografo offre una cronaca (o un melodramma?) su uno scontro tra le fazioni opposte, all'insegna della "prova del fuoco". Un contenzioso rovente presieduto dal regnante stesso. Il *gädl* dice: «E di nuovo il re rispose e disse loro: "Che cosa dite a proposito del monte Ṣəyon? È ora, o deve ancora venire?". E il beato Fiqəṭor rispose e gli disse: "Noi certamente, come ci hanno insegnato i nostri padri che hanno compreso i libri dei Profeti e degli Apostoli, (sosteniamo che) il regno del monte Ṣəyon, la speranza dei santi, avrà luogo al termine dei settemila anni.[37] Secondo quanto ha promesso Dio. ... E quelli che

(37) Il primo testimone che parla del settimo millennio è la *Lettera di Barnaba*: «Il sabato è ricordato al principio della creazione: "Iddio compì in sei giorni le opere delle sue mani; il settimo giorno le aveva finite, vi si riposò e lo santificò". Badate, figlioli, a ciò che è detto: "Finì in sei giorni". Vale a dire: in seimila anni il Signore finirà ogni cosa. Il giorno presso di lui rappresenta mille anni (Sal 89,4). Lui stesso mi rende testimonianza col dire: "Ecco che il giorno del Signore sarà come mille anni" (2 Pt 3,8). Dunque, figlioli, in sei giorni, cioè in seimila anni ogni cosa sarà finita. "Riposò nel settimo giorno" (Gen 2,2), e cioè: quando suo Figlio venendo annienterà il tempo del malvagio, giudicherà gli empi e muterà il sole, la luna e le stelle, allora riposerà con onore il settimo giorno ... La Scrittura continua infine, rivolgendosi agli stessi: "Non ne posso più delle vostre neomenie e dei vostri sabati". Badate a ciò che vuol dire: non i sabati presenti mi sono grati, ma quello che ho fatto: quello in cui terminerò ogni cosa, per porre inizio a un ottavo giorno, cioè ad un altro mondo"» (15,3–5. 8), cf. M. Erbetta, *Gli Apocrifi del Nuovo Testamento, Lettere e Apocalissi,* vol. III (Torino, 1969) 31. Della stessa matrice il seguente passo di

entreranno in quel regno sono tutti gli eletti, quelli che sono liberi dal peccato (ff. 48vb–49ra)"». Il primo punto di divergenza fra i due campi opposti è dunque di carattere cronologico: riguarda il tempo in cui il grande evento dovrà essere realizzato. Dalla risposta dei delegati Eustaziani guidati da Fiqəṭor, *in tandem* con l'Aqqabe Sä'at di Ḥayq, Abba Amməḫa LäṢəyon, si evince che sia loro che il monarca propendevano per una escatologia futura. Il *gädlä* Fiqəṭor traccia un profilo anche della posizione opposta: "E in quei giorni sorsero degli eretici che dicevano che non c'è la resurrezione del Monte Ṣəyon (f. 53va)". Dal seguito del racconto non è difficile dedurre che si trattava di una corrente che credeva in una "escatologia realizzata". «... quando (il re Zär'a Ya'əqob) udì questa parola comandò che fosse convocata una grande assemblea, perché si radunassero i grandi del suo regno, i sacerdoti e i sommi sacerdoti, i *nəburänä 'əd*, e i maestri e tutti i monaci, i principi e i governatori, gli ufficiali e i dignitari e tutti gli anziani del popolo e ci fu una grande assemblea (f. 53vb). E il re disse loro (f. 54ra) con voce soave e con labbra eloquenti: "Vi amministrino la giustizia i dotti. E discutete in base agli ottantuno libri della legge e separatevi a vicenda; quelli che dite che c'è la risurrezione del Monte Ṣəyon e quelli che dite che non c'è. E li separò, ciascuno secondo il suo schieramento, come il pastore divide le pecore dai capri: sono infatti riconoscibili i figli di Dio e i figli del demonio. Dopodiché stettero in piedi il nostro padre Fiqəṭor e Abba Amməḫa LäṢəyon, Aqqabe Sä'at di Ḥayq, ricolmi di sapienza, colombe del vangelo. (f. 54rb) E numerosi monaci che erano con loro si misero al lato destro. Invece gli eretici, stettero in piedi al lato sinistro e ci fu un grande contraddittorio. E dalle persone che stavano alla destra, discussero Abba Amməḫa LäṢəyon e Abba Fiqəṭor e dissero loro: "Che cosa dunque desiderate che vi facciamo ascoltare dai libri?". E quegli eretici scelsero l'Apocalisse e tutti si unirono in questa parola. E quegli eretici interpretarono con una parola di falsità che non era retta, che Bə'el Zebul aveva fatto loro pronunciare. Essi dissero: "Il mondo in cui viviamo, questo è il regno del Monte Ṣəyon e il pranzo è invero (f. 54va) il Corpo e il Sangue". E (li) contraddissero le persone di fede

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Ireneo: "Tanti sono i giorni in cui il mondo è stato creato, altrettanti sono i millenni in cui sarà portato a termine. Per questo la Scrittura dice: 'Dio terminò le sue opere il sesto giorno e il settimo giorno si riposò di tutte le sue opere'. Ciò è ad un tempo racconto di cose passate e profezia delle cose future. Se, infatti, 'i giorni del Signore sono come mille anni' e 'in sei giorni è terminato ciò che è stato fatto' è evidente che questo compimento è di seimila anni" (*Adv. haer.* 28, 3, *PL* 7, col. 1200).

dicendo: «Non dice forse il Figlio del Tuono — "Risorgeranno i morti e Satana sarà sconfitto e tutti saranno sacerdoti del Signore e i suoi anni saranno mille (allusione ad Ap 20,1–6)?" 'E in questo mondo ci sono anche i menzogneri e i fornicatori e tanto peccato di ogni genere. Sono forse tutte persone del Monte Ṣəyon? Per questo si è manifestata la vostra menzogna! Come fate dunque a paragonare il Monte Ṣəyon con questo mondo passeggero (1 Cor 7,31; 1 Gv 2,17) se coloro che vivono in esso sono tutti mortali? Quando mai sono risorti i morti? (f. 54vb) Quando mai è stato incatenato Satana? Guardate, di grazia, verso il popolo cristiano! Sono forse diventati tutti Cristiani? Infatti, i sacerdoti sono davvero pochi e la maggior parte del popolo non ha il sacerdozio. E con che cosa aggiungerete i cinquecento anni? Volete forse vanificare la parola del Figlio del Tuono? Per questa ragione non accoglieremo la vostra parola perché state delirando invano. (f. 55ra)' ... E per questo si alzarono con coraggio Abba Fiqəṭor e Abba Ammәḫa LäṢəyon (f 55rb) e li contraddissero e li vinsero con giustizia e rettitudine. E neanche con questo abbandonarono la loro malizia ma li opposero, confutandoli per due giorni. E nel terzo giorno, il re li convocò tutti e li fece stare in piedi davanti a lui e fu chiarita la parola di tutti e due (gli schieramenti). E il santo fu fortificato nello Spirito Santo, perché era zelante per la fede cristiana e non desiderò rendere vana la speranza dei santi. E immediatamente alzò la sua voce il re Zär'a Ya'əqob, invocando l'Antico e il Nuovo (Testamento), perché egli era sazio di Libri. E rispose ad essi con mitezza e non incutendo terrore ma come un amico che parla con il (f. 55va) suo amico. E gli eretici parlarono come all'inizio, ma lui li sconfisse nella giustizia con quegli stessi argomenti che essi adducevano ... dopodiché il nostro padre Fiqəṭor desiderò allontanare l'eresia dal cuore di tutti i credenti. E disse (f. 55vb) al re, a gran voce: "Ordina che appicchino fuoco come a Käladəyon ed entriamoci io e questo ribelle, e il fuoco sia il nostro giudice, perché si accerti l'insegnamento di Cristo e le persone non vadano errando qua e là, in mezzo (a questa disputa)!". E in quell'istante il re ordinò che accendessero il fuoco e (lo) accesero e le sue fiamme si sollevarono, perché forte è la parola del re. E dopo questo, corse il nostro padre Fiqəṭor, lasciando le sue vesti perché indossava pelli di pecora conciate. Corse veloce per entrare nel fuoco, a tal punto che (f. 56ra) tutti i radunati temettero. E anche lo stesso re rimase stupito all'osservare il suo coraggio. E disse a quell'eretico: "Va'! anche tu entra con lui. Infatti è meglio per te morire per la tua fede". Ma (quegli) rispose dicendo: "Ho peccato! Mi pento, perché il nostro Signore ha comandato che ognuno si salvi attraverso il pentimento". E cadde per terra e divenne tremebondo e spaventato e gridò a gran voce dicendo:

"Perdonami! Perdonami! e d'ora in poi mi dichiaro interdetto nel nome della Trinità che non parlerò e non (f. 56rb) insegnerò e che non dirò che non vi è la risurrezione del monte Ṣəyon!". ... E il nostro padre Fiqəṭor ebbe il coraggio di entrare (nel fuoco), dicendo: "Colui che ha salvato Anania, Azaria e Misaele, egli mi salverà!". E giunse ad entrare (nel fuoco), tanto che il fuoco passò sopra la sua testa e lo coprì con la sua fiamma, perché ci fu un fuoco oltremodo grande, tanto che coprì il cielo con il suo fumo. E immediatamente il re alzò la sua voce e disse: "Afferratelo! Afferratelo velocemente, prima che entri (f. 56va) nel fuoco! E i servi del re corsero immediatamente e lo afferrarono perché non entrasse (nel fuoco) e il re e tutto il suo esercito gioirono perché in Etiopia non si trovò un simile fatto fra i suoi predecessori. Infatti durante i suoi giorni si rettificò la fede nel(la dottrina del) monte Ṣəyon...».

Sintesi storica della dottrina del monte Ṣəyon in Etiopia.

Come è stato già rilevato, sia la vita di Täwäldä-Mädəḫn che quella di Fiqəṭor fanno uso dell'espressione "monte Ṣəyon". Si tratta della forma abbreviata di un linguaggio analogo che all'epoca era espresso con locuzioni quali, "banchetto/pranzo del monte Ṣəyon", "pranzo delle nozze" oppure "convito dei mille anni". L'ultima espressione, "convito dei mille anni" è la forma più vicina a quella usata nel *gädl* di Fiqəṭor, e sembra derivare da alcuni passi dell'Antico e del Nuovo Testamento, come ad esempio: Is 25,6–8;[38] 31,9; 54,11; 65,18; 2 Baruc

(38) I commentari (*andəmta* = testo in *gə'əz* e commenti in amarico) su questa pericope di Isaia dicono che il convito che il Dio degli eserciti offrirà al suo popolo è: 1. Il vino che permetterà loro di bere a Gerusalemme. 2. Il suo Corpo, il suo Sangue e lo Spirito Santo che Dio consentirà ad essi di ricevere in questo mondo, nella Chiesa. Cf. **ትንቢተ ፡ ኢሳይያስ ፡ ከቀድሞ ፡ አባቶች ፡ ሲወርድ ፡ ሲዋረድ ፡ የመጣው ። ንባቡና ፡ ትርጓሜው (በአንድምታ) ። በሊቃውንት ፡ ጉባኤ ፡ ተመርምሮ ፡ ለመመሪያ ፡ የታተመ ። አሳታሚ ፡ - ትንሣኤ ፡ ማሳተምያ ፡ ድርጅት ። አዲስ ፡ አበባ ፡ ፲፱፻፺፯ ፡ ዓ. ም.** = *Tənbitä Isayyəyas, Käqädmo Abbatoč siwärd siwwarräd yämäṭṭaw nəbabunna tərgwamew (bäandəmta). BäLiqawənt Guba'e tämärəməro lämäğämmärya yätattämä. Asattami Tənsa'e masattämya dərğğət* (*La Profezia di Isaia. Come è stata tramandata dai Padri antichi*. Testo e commentari *andəmta*. Stampato per la prima volta dopo essere stato esaminato dal sinodo dei dotti. Editrice: Tənsa'e (Addis Ababa, 1997) (AM) 171–172. La prima interpretazione non specifica di quale Gerusalemme si tratti, ma dalla spiegazione successiva che offre una risposta differente e complementare si può pensare che l'interprete si riferisca alla Gerusalemme celeste. I commentatori cercano quindi di tenere aperte tutte e due le possibilità: leggono il passo isaiano in una duplice chiave escatologica, quella futura e quella presente.

29,5–8; Enoch 10,18–19; Giubilei 23,26–31; Mt 8,11; 22,2; Ap 20,4–6.[39] Ap 14,1[40] parla dell'Agnello ritto sul monte Sion accompagnato dagli eletti. Ap 19,6–9[41] si occupa delle nozze dell'Agnello. Oltre alla Scrittu-

(39) Sono meritevoli di nota i commenti su questa pericope. I *tərgwame* (i.e. testo e commenti in gə'əz) dicono che mille anni è una "cifra perfetta" (sic!), che probabilmente significa "cifra arrotondata". Per numero tondo si intende una cifra approssimativa e citano 2 Pt 3,8: "davanti a Dio un giorno è come mille anni e mille anni come un giorno solo". Citano anche 2 Sam 2,5: "la sterile ha concepito sette volte" mentre in realtà Anna ha avuto un solo figlio. E ancora Sap 7,2: "Io ero nel sangue per dieci mesi". L'interprete osserva che la gravidanza dura nove mesi e non dieci. Si tratta di spiegazioni che scoraggiano una interpretazione letterale della cifra. Cf. R. Cowley, *The Tradional Interpretation of the Apocalypse of St John in the Ethiopian Orthodox Church* (Cambridge, 1983) (Oriental Publications 33) 147. I commentari *andəmta* offrono altre spiegazioni. Leggono la resurrezione proclamata dal testo dell'Apocalisse come una "resurrezione della mente" e il regno dei mille anni come "l'era dell'Incarnazione". La resurrezione della mente è quella che precede la resurrezione della carne, e si riferisce a colui che viene trovato degno di ricevere il suo Corpo e il suo Sangue. I commentatori offrono una seconda spiegazione a proposito dei mille anni. "Se si dice che i mille anni avverranno dopo la parousia, in tal caso si tratta di una cifra arrotondata, ma è meglio che essi siano predicati al periodo che precede la parousia, così ci si riferisce all'era dell'Incarnazione". Cf. Cowley, *The Tradional Interpretation of the Apocalypse…*, 353.

(40) Il *tərgwame* (interpretazione in gə'əz) a 14, 1 dice che il monte Sion è Gerusalemme, citando a supporto il Sal 78, 68–69: "Il Figlio di Dio ritto su di esso conferma che il consiglio nascosto fin dalla creazione del mondo sarà realizzato su di esso. Là è morto, e là è risorto; là è apparso ai suoi discepoli dopo la sua resurrezione dai morti e da lì ha inviato i suoi puri apostoli, lo Spirito Santo. Là condurrà la sua battaglia contro costui — il falso ... inoltre là darà la ricompensa ai giusti e la punizione ai peccatori". Cf. Cowley, *The Tradional Interpretation of the Apocalypse…*, 125. D'altro canto, i commentari *andəmta* spiegano la presenza dell'Agnello sul monte Sion come il momento della Parousia: ivi, p. 306.

(41) Il *tərgwame* a 19, 9 dice che la festa delle nozze è il regno dei cieli che Dio ha preparato per coloro che lo amano, perché regnassero insieme a lui nelle loro anime e nel loro corpo; cosicché l'altissima Gerusalemme che deve sostituire questo mondo transitorio possa essere chiamata "nuovo cielo e nuova terra". Cf. Cowley, *The Tradional Interpretation of the Apocalypse…*, 139. Dalla breve rassegna di ciò che i commentari esprimono a proposito del "regno dei mille anni" si può concludere che gli esegeti non hanno preso una posizione netta sul millenarismo. Piuttosto, sembra che essi abbiano optato per un linguaggio ambivalente che forse non avrebbe scontentato nessuno. È inverosimile che i commentatori (che hanno avuto la loro migliore stagione all'epoca di Gondär) fossero ignari delle controversie intorno alla questione

ra, nella letteratura religiosa etiopica, ci sono testi extra-biblici, come i *Miracoli di Gesù*, la *Dottrina degli Arcani* e i *Miracoli di Maria*[42]. Il Sinassario del 3 Ṭagumen (8 Settembre) dice: "Io sono Raffaele, colui al quale Dio ha comandato di dare cose buone ai santi nelle nozze dei mille anni sul monte Sion, quando il nostro Signore Gesù Cristo avrà fatto bere loro dalla coppa che è stata certamente colmata di onore, mentre essi staranno accanto a lui quando Egli siederà sul santo trono".[43] Vi è un'allusione alla durata dei mille anni nel *Libro dei misteri dei cieli e della terra*.[44] Il *Dəggwa* è un altro testo che contiene alcuni riferimenti al monte Ṣəyon. Nei canti in onore della Madonna del Patto della misericordia del 16 di Yäkkatit (23 Febbraio), si legge: "Quando il tuo Figlio regnerà sul monte Ṣəyon, concedimi o Vergine di stare in piedi, a destra, con le pecore benedette".[45] Di uguale tenore il linguaggio della preghiera *Ḥaddafe Näfs* = "Traghettatore (o anche "Purificatore") dell'anima" dell'anafora mariana *Eructavit*: "O popolo cristiano, come vi siete riuniti in questa santa chiesa, allo stesso modo vi raduni nel santo monte di Sion e nella Gerusalemme liberatrice che sta in cielo, e come avete ascoltato questa Messa di Maria, così vi faccia ascoltare il suono delle arpe e cantici soavi che fanno rinverdire le ossa e che portano in estasi i cuori...".[46] Nel *gädl* di Ewosṭatewos ci sono riferimenti al

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del chiliasmo, ma è un loro uso non lasciarsi trascinare nelle polemiche. Infatti, si nota il medesimo orientamento per quanto concerne la Cristologia. I commentari normalmente restano lontani dall'impiego di formule connotate e distintive delle varie correnti.

(42) C'è un miracolo che parla "di coloro che disprezzano il monte Ṣəyon": cf. **ተአምረ ፡ ማርያም ፡ በግእዝና ፡ ባማርኛ ። አዲስ ፡ አበባ ፡ ፲፱፻፷፩ ዓ. ም.** *Tä'ammərä Maryam Bägə'əznna Bä'amarəña* (Miracoli di Maria in *Gə'əz* e *Amarəña*), (Addis Ababa, 1961) (AM) 132–136.

(43) Cf. E. A. W. Budge, *The Book of the Saints of the Ethiopian Church. A Translation of the Ethiopic Sinaxarium* (Mäṣḥafä Sənksar, made from the Mss Oriental 660 and 661 in the British Museum. Vol. I: Mäskäräm, Ṭəqəmt, Ḫədar; Vol. II: Taḫsas, Ṭər, Yäkkatit; Vol. III: Mäggabit, Miyazia, Gənbot; Vol. IV: Säne, Ḥamlä, Nähasä, Pagumen) (Cambridge, 1928) 1277.

(44) J. Perruchon, I. Guidi, *Le Livre des mystères du ciel et de la terre* (Brepols, 1907) (PO 1) 85–86.

(45) Cf. **መጽሐፈ ፡ ዚቅ ፡ ወመዝሙር ። አዲስ ፡ አበባ ፡ ፲፱፻፸፱ ፡ ዓ. ም.** = *Mäṣḥafä Ziq wäMäzmur* [Libro dell'Innario e del Canto] (Addis Ababa, 1979) (AM) 141.

(46) **መጽሐፈ ፡ ቅዳሴ ። ከቀድሞ ፡ አባቶች ፡ ሲወርድ ፡ ሲዋረድ ፡ የመጣው ፡ ንባብና ፡ ትርጓሜው ። አዲስ ፡ አበባ ፡ ፲፱፻፹፰** = *Mäṣəḥafä Qəddase. Käqädmo Abbatoč siwärd siwwarräd yämäṭṭaw nəbabənna tərgwamew* [Il

"monte Ṣəyon" come a una realtà futura. Ewosṭatewos parla di "nozze dei cieli", e sulla via per Gerusalemme, al momento del congedo dai suoi discepoli, li rincuora assicurando loro che si sarebbero incontrati di nuovo presso il "monte Ṣəyon".[47] Alla domanda che Ewosṭatewos rivolge a Gesù circa la ricompensa per coloro che avrebbero celebrato la sua memoria, per quelli che avrebbero fatto trascrivere il suo *gädl*, per quelli che avrebbero invocato il suo nome, Gesù gli promette "che avrebbero gioito e si sarebbero rallegrati con lui nel monte Ṣəyon nel pranzo dei mille anni".[48] Il pranzo escatologico nella nuova Gerusalemme appare come epilogo in alcuni *gädl* eustaziani. L'*explicit* del *gädl* di Abunä Dəmyanos dice: "Al nostro padre Pawlos che ha fatto scrivere questo libro della vita di Abunä Dəmyanos, il Signore grande, scriva il suo nome nella colonna d'oro, con inchiostro di giustizia. Lo faccia gioire insieme ai suoi figli e ai figli dei suoi figli nella nuova Gerusalemme quando preparerà la mensa per i suoi eletti".[49] L'*explicit* del *gädl* di Abunä Yonas di Bur eleva una preghiera perché "Dio ci raduni sul monte Ṣəyon con un convito, per la preghiera di Abunä Yonas solare e per l'aiuto dell'eletto Abunä Ewosṭatewos e per l'intercessione della nostra Signora Maria, la perla".

Il "monte Ṣəyon" è una espressione lapidaria che in realtà nasconde angosce, tensioni e dispute di carattere escatologico che hanno agitato l'Etiopia medievale.[50] Getatchew Haile propone uno stralcio dai *Mi-*

Libro della Messa. Com'è stato tramandato dagli antichi padri. Testo e commenti] (Addis Ababa, 1988[3]) (AM) 264.

(47) Cf. Тураев, *Monumenta Aethiopiae hagiologica*, III…, 41; 65; 77, n. 9; 99, n.; 123, n.

(48) Cf. Ibid., 120, n. 20; 122. Vi sono altre agiografie ancora, nelle quali si parla del convito del monte Sion come il premio che Dio accorda ai suoi santi. Un accenno, e.g., nel I. Guidi, Il 'Gadla 'Aragâwi', *Reale Accademia dei Lincei, Memorie della Classe di scienze morali, storiche e filologiche*, ser. 5a, II (1895) 79.

(49) Cf. Tedros Abraha, *Il Gädl di Abuna Demyanos, Santo Eritreo (XIV/XV Sec.)*. Edizione del Testo Etiopico e Traduzione Italiana (Brepols, 2007) (PO 50.2, № 223) 229.

(50) Il convito del monte Sion era collegato con l'attesa del compimento degli ottomila anni che in gergo popolare si chiamava **ስምንተ ፡ ሺህ** = "ottavo millennio" (in amarico), il temibile appuntamento con la fine del mondo e conseguente giudizio universale. Per una sintesi di questo abbinamento cf. **ባሕረ ፡ ሐሳብ ። የዘመን ፡ ቁጠራ ፡ ቅርሳችን ፡ ከታሪክ ፡ ማስታወሻ ፡ ጋራ ።** Getatchew Haile, *Baḥrä Ḥassab. Yäzämän Qʷäṭära Qərsaccən KäTarik Mastawäša gara* (Computo. Il calcolo delle epoche secondo il nostro patrimonio [culturale] insieme ad un pro-memoria storico) (Collegeville, 2000) 20–24.

racoli di Maria (inedito) giudicandolo come un saggio che offre una versione chiara della dottrina del monte Ṣəyon. Esso dice: "... Quando nostro Signore verrà nella sua seconda venuta ... i morti risorgeranno. Nostro Signore siederà sul trono della sua gloria sul monte Ṣəyon per giudicare il mondo intero. La Gerusalemme celeste scenderà insieme a tutti i santi e ai martiri e starà in cima al monte Ṣəyon, a Gerusalemme, di fronte al monte degli Ulivi. In mezzo ad essi c'è una valle profonda, chiamata Valle di Giosafat. Là c'è una chiesa, costruita sulla tomba della Nostra Signora, la doppiamente Vergine Maria ... all'ultimo giorno, essa diventerà come una nave e porterà i cristiani che hanno osservato le feste della nostra Signora, la doppiamente Vergine Maria, e che sono stati misericordiosi con i poveri e con gli sfortunati, per il suo nome. Li farà gioire con lei nel regno del cielo e li farà ereditare la vita eterna".[51] La questione del monte Ṣəyon, che ha attirato l'attenzione di teologi illustri come Giyorgis di Sagla,[52] appartiene ad un ventaglio più ampio

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Le teorie sul settenario e sull'ottonario che di volta in volta affiorano nella religiosità etiopica sono maturate in ambiente alessandrino. È qui che si sviluppa il tema dei sette giorni come tempo totale del mondo, seguito dall'ottavo giorno che è la vita eterna. A partire da Clemente Alessandrino questa dottrina sarà quella di Origene e dei Cappadoci. Clemente Alessandrino parla del "tempo che, attraverso le sette età del mondo, conduce alla restaurazione (ἀποκατάστασις) del riposo supremo (= ogdoade)" (*Strom.* IV 25, 159, in: SC 463, pp. 320–323; J. Daniélou, *La teologia del Giudeo-Cristianesimo* (Bologna, 1974) 453). Il millenarismo ha affascinato e diviso gli animi e le menti, fin dall'antichità. La canonicità dell'Apocalisse fu contestata (e.g. da Gaio) appunto a causa dei passi sui mille anni. Cerinto (100 AD ca.) fu accusato per aver dato una lettura materiale, quindi fuorviante del millenarismo. Si possono ricordare le contrapposizioni fra Marcione che muoveva obiezioni alla fede nella Parusia e Tertulliano che la difendeva (cf. *Adv. Marc.* III 24, *PL* 2, col. 384–386). Origene condanna una interpretazione letterale dei mille anni (*Sui Princip*i II, 11,2–3, *PL* 11, col. 241–243). Ugualmente respinta la posizione di Ticonio e di altri che concepivano il millennio come il tempo della chiesa, cf. Daniélou, *La teologia...*, 428.

(51) Questo passaggio è stato tratto dal EMML 5492, f. 24b. Cf. Getatchew Haile, Däbrä Ṣəyon, in *EA*, vol. 2, 43.

(52) Giyorgis di Sagla o anche di Gassəčča, scrittore prolifico e assai pungente, ha vissuto all'epoca del re Dawit (1379/80–1413). Il Libro del Mistero (composto intorno al 1424, un trattato teologico corposo e altamente polemico, l'Horologion sono alcune delle sue produzioni più conosciute. Oltre alla questione del convito del monte Sion, Giyorgis di Sagla si è distinto per la sua posizione che favoriva l'osservanza del sabato insieme alla domenica. Ciò è stato un fattore importante nel cambio di atteggiamento del re Dawit, in un

di dottrine controverse che sono state motivo di contrasti forti, spesso anche violenti.[53]

Tra i protagonisti eccellenti della disputa millenarista figurano gli stefaniti: un movimento che prende il nome da Abunä Ǝsṭifanos del monastero di Qʷäyyəṣa nel Təgray.[54] Si tratta di una famiglia monastica che ha subito vessazioni e torture spaventose da parte del re Zär'a Ya'əqob con l'appoggio della Chiesa ufficiale. La colpa di Ǝsṭifanos e dei suoi seguaci era il loro rifiuto di prostrarsi davanti alla croce, davanti alle immagini della "doppiamente Vergine",[55] davanti al re e ogni volta che si facevano i loro nomi. Un altro capo di imputazione addebitato agli Stefaniti dal re Zär'a Ya'əqob era la loro presunta negazione dell'esistenza del "monte Ṣəyon". Il monaco e i suoi seguaci hanno respinto con sdegno l'accusa, definendola come un tranello dolosamente inventato dalla corte. Il *gädl* di Abunä Ǝsṭifanos riferisce che il fondatore del movimento fu convocato più volte, a rispondere della sua presunta negazione del monte Ṣəyon in un processo pubblico alla presenza del re.[56] Sembra che gli Stefaniti fossero dell'opinione che il regno del monte Ṣəyon fosse presente per il fedele che osservava la

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primo momento ostile alla venerazione del sabato e ai monaci eustaziani, suoi corifei: G. Colin, "Giyorgis of Sägla", in *EA*, vol. 2, 812.

(53) Pienamente condivisibile l'affermazione di R. Beylot, Le Millénarisme, article de foi dans l'Église éthiopienne, au XVᵉ siècle, *Rassegna di Studi Etiopici* 25 (1971–1972, ma 1974) 31 che respinge la percezione di immobilismo che l'Occidente ha avuto riguardo al Cristianesimo etiopico. Come dimostra la controversia sui "mille anni", la cristologia non è stata l'unico campo di battaglia.

(54) Ǝsṭifanos nacque nel 1397/98 circa a Maräwa, località "a oriente di Aksum", e morì nel 1437 AM. Per una sintesi sulla sua storia, cf. S. Kaplan, D. Nosnitsin, Ǝsṭifanos, in: *EA*, vol. 2, 390–391.

(55) Da rilevare che il disagio con il culto delle icone e della croce aveva già fatto capolino all'epoca di Yagbə'a Ṣəyon (1285–1294): G. Fiaccadori, *Teofilo Indiano* (Ravenna, 1992) (Biblioteca di «Felix Ravenna» 7) XXXV–XXXVII.

(56) Cf. Getatchew Haile, Journey to Heaven. The Popular Belief of Reward and Punishment in Ethiopian Christianity, in: V. Böll, *et alia* (eds.), *Studia Aethiopica. In Honour of Siegbert Uhlig on the occasion of his 65th Birthday* (Wiesbaden, 2004) 99; Getatchew Haile, *The Gəʿəz Acts of Abba Ǝsṭifanos of Gʷəndagʷende* (Louvain, 2006) (CSCO 619, Aeth. 110; CSCO 620, Aeth. 111), testo, p. 60–61; tr., pp. 52–53. È curioso che né il nome di Fiqəṭor né i fatti clamorosi narrati nel suo *gädl* siano menzionati nel *gädl* di Ǝsṭifanos e dei suoi discepoli. Non vi è traccia di Fiqəṭor neanche nelle cronache (pubblicate) di Zär'a Ya'əqob.

volontà di Dio senza pregiudizi di natura cronologica. La Chiesa e la corte hanno rivolto la medesima accusa anche contro ZäMika'el e Gämaləyal.[57] Giyorgis di Sagla dedica buona parte di un suo trattato (contro Bitu) opponendosi con forza a coloro che negano l'esistenza del banchetto del monte Ṣəyon: "... quanto a coloro che sostengono non esservi convito nel monte Sion: giuro per la mano di Gesù Cristo che per loro non vi sarà partecipazione al banchetto dei mille anni".[58] Il misterioso contenuto dei mille anni dell'Apocalisse e la modalità della sua attualizzazione è stato oggetto di discussione in trattati teologici come il Libro della Trinità,[59] attribuito al re Zär'a Ya'əqob. Il Libro della Trinità denuncia la presunta identificazione del convito del monte Ṣəyon con il banchetto eucaristico da parte dei dissidenti e mette minacciosamente in guardia il popolo cristiano dall'insegnamento degli eretici. Merita attenzione, ad esempio, il monito che dice: "Non credete e non ascoltate la parola di coloro che si sono ribellati alla fede, gli eretici che dicono che i mille anni dei santi non esistono, se non in questi tempi,[60] e che il banchetto è il corpo e il sangue di Cristo, che non hanno trovato nei libri sacri e non hanno sentito dagli eruditi dotti ma che al contrario hanno vomitato questo errore dal rutto del loro cuore, per rovinare i credenti e le credenti".[61] Il Libro della Trinità aggiunge: "Quanto a questo mondo, quale pranzo di nozze[62] potrebbe esserci? In

(57) Cf. E. Cerulli, *Il Libro etiopico dei Miracoli di Maria e le sue fonti nelle letterature del Medio Evo latino* (Roma, 1943) 113–114. La proposizione principale della compagine dei mika'eliti, su cui poggiava il loro intricato impianto teologico, era "l'inconoscibilità di Dio". Il *Libro della Luce* annovera anche un tale 'Aṣqā fra i protagonisti della corrente mika'elita. Cf. Conti Rossini, Ricci, *Il Libro della Luce...* (CSCO 262), testo, p. 126–131; tr., p. 71–74.

(58) Cf. Yaqob Beyene (ed., tr.), *Giyorgis da Saglā. Il Libro del Mistero (Mäṣḥafä Məṣṭir)* (Louvain, 1990) (CSCO 515, Aeth. 89; 516, Aeth. 90), testo, p. 203–209; trad., p. 122–126. R. Beylot, "Le Millénarisme, article de foi dans l'Église éthiopienne, au XVe siècle", *Rassegna di Studi Etiopici* 25 (1971–1972, ma 1974) 31–43, p. 34, rileva giustamente che il contesto in cui Giyorgis di Sagla colloca la refutazione di tale eresia nulla ha a che vedere con il dogma dell'Eucarestia.

(59) Cf. K. Wendt (ed.), *Das Maṣḥafa Milād und Maṣḥafa Sellāsē des Kaisers Zar'a Yā'qob*, II (Louvain, 1963) (CSCO 235, Aeth. 43), testo, p. 31–43; tr., p. 28–38.

(60) Cioè, nell'epoca presente.

(61) Wendt, *Das Maṣḥafa Milād*…, 39–40.

(62) Il testo gə'əz usa l'endiadi: (**ምሳሕ ፡**) **ዘመርዓ ፡ ዘክብካብ** = (il pranzo) delle nozze, del convito nuziale.

questo mondo c'è piuttosto travaglio, lutto, sofferenza, fatica da parte del maledetto Satana, per corrompere i credenti e le credenti".[63] Vi è un'altra precisazione del Libro della Trinità che vale la pena di menzionare. È l'ennesima presa di distanza da "quei menzogneri che dicono che il monte Ṣəyon è la chiesa e il convito e il Corpo e il Sangue di Cristo. Colui che sostiene questo, avrà la sua porzione rimossa dall'albero della vita e dalla città santa".[64] L'escatologia esposta nel *gädl* di Fiqəṭor e le battaglie condotte per difenderla da proposte escatologiche identiche a quelle raccontate dalle fonti coeve, prese in considerazione in questa sede, fanno parte di un medesimo contesto storico. Sono informazioni che si completano a vicenda e confermano il fatto che all'epoca di Zär'a Ya'əqob, questioni riguardanti l'escatologia fossero tematiche di grande attualità. Alla stessa stregua del Libro del Mistero e del Libro della Trinità, il *gädlä* Fiqəṭor condanna con estrema durezza l'equiparazione da parte degli eretici del banchetto sul monte Ṣəyon all'Eucarestia. I difensori dell'escatologia realizzata, almeno secondo la versione dei loro avversari, avrebbero sostenuto che il banchetto del monte Ṣəyon, altro non sarebbe che il banchetto eucaristico. Il *gädl* di Fiqəṭor non fa il nome degli "eretici". Quando lancia la clamorosa sfida di affrontare la prova del fuoco, Fiqəṭor si limita a dire: "Ordina che appicchino il fuoco come si fece in Caldea, ed entriamoci, io e questo eretico" (f. 55vb). Niente nomi dunque: una lacuna che non consente di stabilire la loro identità, né di avanzare ipotesi, anche perchè gli Stefaniti si sono dissociati dalla controversia sulla dottrina del Monte Ṣəyon. Il *gädl* di Fiqəṭor non indica la località esatta in cui è avvenuto lo scontro: un altro spiacevole vuoto di informazione.[65] D'altro canto, negli scritti dei Mika'eliti finora conosciuti "non vi è nessuna traccia della negazione della Cena sul Monte Ṣəyon".[66] Da rilevare, per in-

(63) Wendt, *Das Maṣḥafa Milād*…, 42.

(64) Ibid., 43.

(65) Le vite degli Stefaniti parlano di Aksum come luogo scelto da Zär'a Ya'əqob per discutere "l'esistenza del monte Ṣəyon", e come data suggeriscono il 97° anno di Grazia = 1444/45. Cf. Taddesse Tamrat, Some Notes on the Fifteenth Century Stephanite "Heresy", *Rassegna di Studi Etiopici* XXII (1968) 110. Cf. anche Getatchew Haile, *The Gə'əz Acts of Abba Ǝsṭifanos...*, testo, p. 60; tr., p. 52.

(66) Cf. E. Cerulli, *Scritti Teologici Etiopici dei Secoli XVI–XVII. Tre opuscoli dei Mikaeliti* (Città del Vaticano, 1958) (ST 198) XII, XIII. Cerulli aggiunge: "È possibile che tale eresia sia stata attribuita a torto ai Mikaeliti, mentre però della sua diffusione in Etiopia non è lecito dubitarne".

ciso, che rimane difficile da dimostrare l'affermazione ipotetica di Cerulli che "la negazione dell'esistenza della Cena sul monte Sion sia da intendere probabilmente come dubbi sulla transubstanziazione"[67]. Già il fatto di usare in un contesto etiopico il termine "transubstanziazione", un termine tecnico (né biblico, né patristico) che ha un suo retroterra storico particolare,[68] sembra una scelta improponibile. C'è poi il ben noto rischio delle affermazioni accompagnate da qualifiche come "probabilmente" che possono in seguito assurgere al rango di certezze. La certezza che abbiamo è che sia il *gädl* di Fiqəṭor sia le fonti coeve prendono di mira i sostenitori dell'escatologia realizzata, ossia di coloro che identificano il convito messianico con la mensa eucaristica, e la Gerusalemme celeste con la Chiesa. In più, nel nostro *gädl*, gli eretici sono senza volto.

Il gädl *di Fiqəṭor: testimone della riconciliazione fra antichi rivali.*

Nel *gädl* di Fiqəṭor c'è un aspetto storico degno di nota. Il fatto che i delegati eustaziani e Abba Ammәḫa LäṢәyon, *'aqqabe sä'at* di Ḥayq, abbiano stretto un'alleanza per presentarsi come un unico fronte contro "gli eretici" è un segnale estremamente significativo — che i loro rapporti erano decisamente cambiati per il meglio. È ben noto che nella gravissima crisi riguardante l'osservanza del sabato insieme alla domenica, all'epoca di Dawit e anche dopo, c'era stata una profonda spaccatura. La corte, la sede di Alessandria rappresentata dal Metropolita Bärtolomäwos e i monaci di Däbrä Ḥayq con il loro violento rifiuto di venerare il sabato schierati da una parte, e dall'altra parte, i monaci Eustaziani che difendevano il loro credo "pro-sabato", senza volere cedere minimamente ai loro avversari. Un contenzioso durissimo[69] che si è talvolta tradotto in pene e sanzioni molto pesanti da parte del re e della Chiesa. L'imprigionamento di uno dei membri più

(67) Cerulli, *Scritti Teologici Etiopici...*, XI.

(68) Per una sintesi sulla storia e sul signicato di questo termine, cf. C. Vollert, Transubstantiation, in: *New Catholic Encyclopedia*, vol. 14 (Washington, DC, 1981) 259–261.

(69) La controversia sul sabato e alcuni dei suoi sviluppi, come il rifiuto di ricevere gli ordini sacri, sono stati letti dagli storici come l'espressione del desiderio di autonomia, di affrancamento dalla sede di Marco. La "Casa di Eustazio" aveva infatti rotto le relazioni con la Chiesa ufficiale per oltre un secolo. Cf. M. L. Derat, Däbrä Mәṭmaq, in: *EA*, vol. 2, 34–35; Taddesse Tamrat, Some Notes…, 111–112.

prominenti della famiglia eustaziana, Filippos di Däbrä Bizän, proprio all'interno del monastero di Ḥayq, dal 1400 al 1404, sotto la custodia vigile del potente *'aqqabe sä'at* Säräqä Bərhan (1400–1403),[70] è uno degli esempi più eclatanti del tipo di rapporto che vigeva tra loro. Il viaggio, fra tante insidie, di Fiqəṭor fino al lontano monastero di Ḥayq, in cerca del libro di Baruch prima, e poi il sodalizio fra gli ex-rivali nella disputa intorno al "regno del monte Ṣəyon" sono elementi che dimostrano non solo una tregua momentanea o un provvisorio patto di convenienza, ma una realtà di distensione tra quelli che in passato erano stati i carcerieri degli eustaziani e le loro "vittime".

SUMMARY

This article introduces Täwäldä Mädəḫn and Fiqəṭor, two little known monastic leaders who lived during the reigns of Dawit (1379/80–1413) and Zär'a Ya'əqob (1434–68). They are disciples of the third and fourth generation of Ewosṭatewos (born 1273 ca. died 1352), the influential reformer and chief advocate of the veneration of the Saturday together, and with equal dignity with the Sunday. There is only one known *Gädl* of both Täwäldä Mädəḫn and Fiqəṭor (66 *folia*), kept in the historic monastery of Däbrä Maryam in Qoḥayn district, in southern Eritrea. The *Gädl* which will be available to readers in the near future is a source of new and interesting historical information. The finely written *Gädl* is a literary masterpiece and reflects an extraordinary erudition, a thorough knowledge of the Bible, of Patristic and Liturgical texts, including literature like the *Hermae Pastor*. It is a witness to the fame of Däbrä Maryam as a prestigious *Scriptorium* and a lively center of learning. The two biografies are framed around two controversies which flared in medieval Ethiopia: the long standing row about the Sabbath which brougth the Ethiopian Church to a near schism. The crisis caused by opposing views of Millennium is the other virtually unknown historical page registered by *Gädlä* Fiqəṭor. The acrimonious argument over the Sabbath has been supplemented with the new data offered by the *Gädlä* Täwäldä Mädəḫn. This paper tries to analize the contents of the concept of Millennium, its origin and evolution in general, and makes an attempt to provide a critical reflection on the doctrinal significance of *Däbrä Ṣəyon* and of its history in Ethiopia, based on original documents.

(70) Cf. Taddesse Tamrat, The Abbots of Däbrä-Hayq 1248–1535, *Journal of Ethiopian Studies* VIII.1 (1970) 103.

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STRATEGIES OF NAMING IN THE POLEMICS BETWEEN EUNOMIUS AND BASIL OF CAESAREA IN THE CONTEXT OF THE PHILOSOPHICAL TRADITION OF ANTIQUITY

Eunomius, a representative of the Neo-Arian heretical party and its second leader (after his teacher Aetius), expounded his theory in his *Apology*, written in 359. Eunomius' doctrine implies the opposition of God as the highest principle that has no prior cause for existing, and Christ, God's product — the very fact of Christ being derived and preconditioned excludes regarding his existence to be of the same kind as that of his initial cause.[1] Since Christ was born, he had a cause of his existence, therefore, according to Eunomius, Christ cannot be called God according to his essence; his essence is creation.[2] Similarly, Christ's essence is expressed with the notion "offspring" (γέννημα),[3] while God's essence is denoted as "unbegotten" (ἀγέννητος).[4]

In general, Eunomius' words to denote essence differ from the terms that result from abstracting efforts of the human mind to form the image of an object's essence; Eunomius called these latter words κατ' ἐπίνοιαν and thought they might be ignored.[5] Eunomius' doctrine was opposed by Basil of Caesarea who presented his view in the treatise *Contra Eunomium* (early 360s), where he rejected Eunomius' position expounded in the *Apology*. Basil of Caesarea maintained that words do not denote any essence, but only features of what is denoted, since essence is neither comprehensible, nor denotable by words.

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(1) Eunomius' *Apologia*, VII is quoted throughout the article as cited in the critical edition: R. Vaggione (ed. and trans.), Eunomius. *The Extant Works* (Oxford, 1987).

(2) *Apol*., XII.

(3) *Apol*., XII, 6–7.

(4) *Apol*., VII, 11.

(5) *Apol*., VIII.

And the way we understand God and express our understanding is only κατ' ἐπίνοιαν[6]. In his *Apology for the Apology* (the late 380s), written in response to *Contra Eunomium* of Basil of Caesarea, Eunomius advanced more arguments for his theory of ἐπίνοια[7] and developed a concept of human language as granted by God.[8]

Following the article by J. Daniélou,[9] the idea that Eunomius' theory of language was in the line of Neoplatonic views on language became prominent in scholarly circles. Moreover, Daniélou regarded Eunomius' doctrine, in general, as an embodiment of Neoplatonic influence on Christianity with its hierarchical type of ontology which implied the descending of unity to multiplicity, and with its "mystical" theory of words, according to which things were named by God. In Daniélou's opinion, the name "Unbegotten," attributed to God by Eunomius, was one of those God-given names. Addressing Proclus' treatment of Plato's *Cratylus*, Daniélou found parallels between Eunomius and Proclus in the way they distinguished names granted by God and names given by human beings. This led Daniélou to suppose a common source for both doctrines and to suggest that this source might have been Nestorius, father of the Neoplatonist Plutarchus of Athens. Finally, Daniélou came to a connection between Eunomius' teaching of language and Iamblichus' tradition of Neoplatonic exegesis of the *Cratylus* (though, such a tradition has not been reliably established for Iamblichus' school). It is evident that Daniélou's opinion was conditioned by Gregory of Nyssa's polemic judgment that Eunomius' position had been inspired by Plato's *Cratylus*.[10]

Daniélou's concept, as it were, was subject to criticism. Thus, L. Wickham stated it was wrong to put Eunomius' teaching in terms of a Neoplatonic system. He pointed out that the Neoplatonic principle of emanation was absent in the hierarchical type of ontology of

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(6) Basil of Caesaria followed Origen (*In Joannis*, 6, 19, 107 [Blanc]) in the tradition of using ἐπίνοια as referring to God. It seems that the latter was followed by Arius himself (in the *Thalia* apud Athanasius, *De synodis*, 15, 3, 26ff [Opitz]). Thus, Eunomius and Aetius (*Syntagmation*, 12 [Wickham]) changed the traditional attitude toward using this notion as reference to God.

(7) Gregorius Nyssenus, *Contra Eunomium*, II (P. Schaff (ed.), Gregory of Nyssa, *Dogmatic Treatises, etc.* (New York, 1892) 179.6–180.1).

(8) Ibid., II, 408–409, 417, etc.

(9) J. Daniélou, Eunome l'arien et l'éxegése néoplatonicienne du Cratyle, *Revues des études grecques* 69 (1956) 412–432.

(10) Gregorius Nyssenus, *Contra Eunomium*, II, 404.

Eunomius. Eunomius' view on the nature of language, according to L. Wickham, was not influenced by Neoplatonic exegesis of the *Cratylus* but rather caused by his literal treatment of the Bible.[11] L. Wickham argued that the Anomeans widely used Stoic philosophical terms, particularly, in their theory of meaning, though the content of the Anomean teaching showed no influence of the Stoic philosophy.[12] Wickham's idea on the Stoic background of the Neo-Arian doctrine was followed by S. Hebbruggen-Walter[13] who paid attention to the fact that by dividing the notions of the Father and the Son, Eunomius distinguished the respective essence denoted with the notions using the Stoic term τὸ σημαινόμενον, introducing thereby the principle of the "identity of meaning and essence." S. Hebbruggen-Walter followed Wickham in pointing out the influence of the Stoic propositional logic on Aetius' argumentation.[14]

Later on, J. Rist[15] rightly referred Eunomius' ἐπίνοια (interpreted as the mind's abstracting from an objectively given content of thought) to the Stoic doctrine, witnessed by Diogenes Laertes and Sextus Empiricus.[16] This shows that Eunomius abundantly drew on the scholastic writings of his time, particularly, on the works of the grammarians. Concerning the "mystical" theory of language that claimed to be peculiar for Eunomius, J. Rist maintained that, on the one hand, it dated as far back as the time of the Chaldean Oracles, while, on the other hand, the "mystical" theory of God-given names in Iamblichus, and before him in Origen, was quite unlike what we see in Eunomius.[17] Though J. Rist did not dwell on it, the fact is that both Origen's and Iamblichus' teachings on theurgical rites were characterized by a magical treat-

(11) L. Wickham, The *Syntagmation* of Aetius the Anomean, *JTS* 19 (1968) 558, n. 1.

(12) Ibid., 561, n. 1.

(13) S. Hebbrüggen-Walter, Augustine's Critique of Dialectic: Between Ambrose and the Arians, in: K. Pollman, M. Vessey (eds.), *Augustine and the Disciplines. From Classiciacum to Confessions* (Oxford, 2005) 184–205.

(14) Ibid., 194–196.

(15) J. Rist, Basil's "Neoplatonism": Its Background and Nature, in: P. Fedwick (ed.), *Basil of Caesarea: Christian, Humanist, Ascetic* (Toronto, 1981) 188.

(16) See Gregorius Nyssenus, *Contra Eunomium*, II, 179.6–180.1. For passages from Stoics' works referred to as sources for Eunomius, see *Stoicorum veterum fragmenta* II, 87; 89 [Arnim]. A similar passage from Sextus: *Adversus mathematicos*, VIII, 58–60 [Mutschmann, Mau].

(17) Rist, Basil's "Neoplatonism"…, 186–187.

ment of words, and it was stated that words and objects are naturally, and not simply conventionally, connected from which the importance of the formal aspect of wording was inferred, whereas the meaning of a word or a name was neglected.[18] Origen and Iamblichus emphasized the special importance of sacred language whose word meanings were of no practical importance. Therefore, Origen focused on Jewish names of God, denying any magical force for their translated versions.[19] Iamblichus, too, persistently preferred the names of Oriental Gods.[20] However, we do not find anything similar in Eunomius' writings; on the contrary, for him significant words are "Unbegotten" (the true name of God) and "Offspring" (the true name of Christ), that is, semantically meaningful words, resulting from his idea of what was named; he verbosely expounded on why God is "Unbegotten" on the basis of his axiomatically established principles.

Danielou's concept was often accepted uncritically. Thus, M. Neamtu in his review of ideas, based on Basil's and Gregory's of Nyssa polemics with Eunomius, considered the meaning of a natural word (which is inferred from the idea of God-established language) characteristic for Eunomius' doctrine that "Unbegotten" was one of the God-given words.[21] Because of this, M. Neamtu accused Eunomius of inconsistency in his explaining numerous words applied to God as

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(18) More about Origen see in J. Dillon, The Magical Power of Names in Origen and Late Platonism, in: R. Hanson, H. Crouzel (eds.), *Origeniana Tertia. The Third International Colloquium for Origen Studies* (Rome, 1985) 203–216. About Iamblichus, see G. Shaw, *Theurgy and the Soul. The Neoplatonism of Iamblichus* (University Park, PA: The Pennsylvania State University Press, 1995) 111–112.

(19) Origenes, *Contra Celsum*, V, 12, 45 [Borret].

(20) "But, you say, 'the hearer looks to what is meant (τὰ σημανόμενα), so that the thought remaining the same is self-sufficient, whatever the name may be' [this must have been Porphyry's phrase. — *D. B.*]. But things are not the way you anticipated. For if names were laid down by convention (κατὰ συνθήκην), taking one name in place of another would make no difference. But if names depend on the nature (τῇ φύσει) of things, then the names that better resemble that nature are, for sure, also more pleasing to the gods" (Iamblichus, *De mysteriis*, VII, 5, 257). Then Iamblichus says that divine names in the case of translation from sacral into other languages lose their force (τήν γε δύναμιν).

(21) M. Neamtu, The Unfolding of the Truth. Eunomius of Cyzicus and Gregory of Nyssa in the Debate over Orthodoxy (360–381), *Archæus* 6 (2002) 93.

having one meaning, namely, "Unbegotten."[22] Finally, Neamtu characterized Eunomius' doctrine as "vocalism" and pointed out its kinship with the theurgical jargon, popular among the political elite in Eunomius' time.[23]

Another contemporary scholar, S. Douglas, tried to reconsider the debates between Eunomius and the Cappadocian fathers in terms of modern philosophy of language taking Eunomius' teaching of language in an utterly absolute way. Thus, he analyzed it through the opposition of words established naturally (κατὰ φύσιν) and words established conventionally (κατὰ θέσιν), though mistaking the latter method of word generation for generating them in an arbitrary way (that is, from his point of view, κατὰ θέσιν meant "conventionally"). Eunomius' attitude proves to correspond to the principle of κατὰ φύσιν as opposed to κατὰ θέσιν ;[24] his theory is referred to by Douglas as the "Cratylian" type of name-giving interpretation. Eunomius' probe into the essence through its lexical identification shows that his system leaves no gap (διάστημα) between language, knowledge and speech.[25] The notion of διάστημα is considered by Douglas to be fundamental for understanding the controversy between the Cappadocian fathers and the Neo-Arians concerning the language of essence: Eunomius did not discern speech, denotation or object,[26] which shows that his system was within the "essence horizon;" the Cappadocian

(22) Neamtu, The Unfolding of the Truth..., 94.

(23) Ibid., 97. M. Neamtu seems to agree with P. Gregorius' view presented in the article: P. Gregorius, Theurgic neo-Platonism and the Eunomius-Gregory Debate: An Examination of the Background, in: L. Mateo-Seco, J. Bastero (eds.), *"Contra Eunomium I" en la produccion literaria de Gregorio de Nisa. VI Coloquio Internacional sobre Gregorio de Nisa* (Pamplona: Univ. De Navarra, 1988) 217–236. Coming from general considerations and, particularly, taking into account the derivative character of the trinity in Eunomius' as well as in Plotinus', Porphyry's and Iamblicus' interpretations, Gregorius persisted in referring to Eunomius as adherent to theurgical rites and even as obsessed by theurgy (p. 230), but he failed to give any support of this statement.

(24) S. Douglass, *Theology of the Gap: Cappadocian Language Theory and the Trinitarian Controversy* (New York: Peter Lang, 2005) 95.

(25) Ibid., 98.

(26) In this point the position of S. Douglas is close to R. Vaggione, see R. Vaggione (ed. and trans.), Eunomius, *The Extant Works* (Oxford, 1987) 45, n. 4.

fathers, on the contrary, recognized a gap between the three aspects, which is attributed by Douglas to their deconstructive strategies.[27]

Another scholar, R. Mortley, relies on a single well-known quotation to conclude that the Neo-Arian teaching descended not only from Neoplatonism, but had a bearing on Gnosticism as well.[28] Seeing no gap between linguistic and ontological aspects in wording, Eunomius ontologized language, which, according to R. Mortley, corresponds to the Gnostic trends expressed in the *Gospel of Truth* by the ontologized linguistic formula, "The name of the Father is the Son."[29]

We cannot agree with reducing Eunomius' doctrine to the specific Late Antique teachings and with presenting the Neo-Arian–Cappadocian debate as an argument between the followers of classical teachings and followers of non-classical pagan doctrines, which often is the case. In our opinion, the objective of the Cappadocian fathers was more complicated and not easily solvable, since Eunomius' discourse, as we believe, belonged to classical Greek learning.

The linguistic argumentation of Eunomius in his *Apology* is not the same as in the *Apology for the Apology*. Eunomius' view in the *Apology* is based on the true classical language model (in Kopecek's opinion, this model is derived from the Middle Platonist concept, while we will consider it below in terms of Stoic teaching). But it is in the *Apology for the Apology* that Eunomius first develops his argument from the "established words." This gave rise to judgments that his language theory is magical when it is applied by extrapolation to the first *Apology*. But even accepting this logic does not enable us to identify a dominating magical or sufficient Neoplatonic effect on Eunomius' theory of language,[30] because it is quite in accord with how language was interpreted by the representatives of various Greek schools (see below). The only point where Eunomius' theory converges with that of Iamblichus,

(27) Douglass, *Theology of the Gap…*, 106.

(28) R. Mortley, "The Name of the Father is the Son" (Gospel of Truth 38), in: R. T. Wallis, J. Bregman (eds.), *Neoplatonism and Gnosticism. Papers presented at the International Conference on Neoplatonism and Gnosticism, March 18–21, 1984* (Albany, 1992) 241–242, 246–249.

(29) *Euangelium Veritatis*, 38 [Malinine].

(30) However, the *Apology for the Apology*, unlike the first *Apology*, shows the influence of the Neoplatonic doctrine (that of Iamblicus, to be precise) on Eunomius' arguments against Basil of Caesarea's statements. This influence is related to ontology (see D. Biryukov, Neoplatonic Elements in Neo-Arian Doctrine (Eunomius and Iamblichus), *Вестник молодых ученых* 4 (2006) 37–43).

as a sort of identity between lexical and ontological aspects, is a passage mentioned in passing in the *Apology* and expanded in the *Apology for the Apology*, maintaining that all predicates applied to God's essence have the same meaning ("Unbegotten"), because otherwise God's essence would be compound.[31] This implies that all predicates applied to the essence of God are essential. We find the same in Iamblichus' reasoning that no discourse of gods can contain essential properties accompanied with particularizing ones, for whatever is thought about gods must be thought of essence.[32]

Let us first consider Eunomius' argumentation given in his *Apology*. As it was said concerning Eunomius' interpretation of the notion of ἐπίνοια, he rejected any abstracting efforts of the human mind to think about God appealing to any real intuitively given axiomatic fact. Generally, Eunomius' theological method was based on mental intuition concerning God and the Son, justified by reference to the Scripture. Calling God's essence "Unbegotten" was not achieved in any mystical way, which would not be significant, but by naming through intuitive insight into what the essence of God must be, that is, according to Eunomius, having no beginning being caused by itself. So, the essence of God is "Unbegotten," [33] the same way as the name of the Son's essence is "produced."

Eunomius' reasoning "from names" is of interest to us:

> As for showing that the Son too is one, being only-begotten, we could rid ourselves of all care and trouble in that regard simply by quoting the words of saints[34] in which they proclaim the Son to be both "offspring" and "thing made," since by distinguishing the names (τῶν ὀνομάτων) they show the difference in essence as well. … Therefore, in accordance with the teaching of the Scriptures we call the Son "offspring" (γέννημα). We do not understanding his essence to be one thing and the meaning (τὸ σημαινόμενον) of the word which designates it to be something else. Rather, we take it that

(31) *Apol.*, XVII; Gregorius Nyssenus, *Contra Eunomium*, II, 523–531.

(32) Iamblicus, *De mysteriis*, 1, 4, 12–13.

(33) *Apol.*, VII, 1–3, 10–11. The fact that "Unbegotten" was treated by Eunomius as the essential quality of God rather than a "mystically" perceived name, is seen from the following quote: "God, whether these sounds are silent, sounding, or have even come into existence, and before anything was created, both was and is unbegotten" (*Apol.*, VIII, 5).

(34) Prov 8:22, cf. 1 Cor 1:24.

> his substance is the very same as that which is signified by his name, granted that the designating applies properly to the essence.[35]

Eunomius said the name of the Son's essence could not diverge from "meaning" (τὸ σημαινόμενον). On the one hand, somewhat similar phrasing was used in the text of the Second Creed of Antioch (341): "…the names [of Father, Son and Holy Spirit] not being given without meaning or effect, but denoting accurately (σημαινόντων) the peculiar subsistence (ὑπόστασιν), rank and glory of each that is named… ."[36] But the discourse itself had, perhaps, been suggested to Eunomius by his teacher Aetius whose *Syntagmation* also contained similar passages:

> If being unbegotten is revelatory of essence, it is reasonable for it to be contrasted with the offspring's essence. If "being unbegotten" has no meaning (σημαίνει) *a fortiori* "offspring" reveals nothing. How could nonentities be contrasted? If, again, the word "being unbegotten" is contrasted with the word (προσφορὰ) "generate," silence following the utterance of the words, the Christian hope turns out to begin and stop; it is based on magnificent language but not on what the natures really are (ἐν φύσεσιν οὕτως), which is the intended meaning (σημασία) of the names.[37]

Both the text of the Second Creed of Antioch and Aetius suggested that under certain conditions naming may signify (σημαίνει) the object denoted and may correspond to the object's nature. But Eunomius' dealing with linguistic questions was deeper, his discourse was more sophisticated and formalized than that drafted by the text of the formula of Antioch and by Aetius, in particular; Eunomius started to use the notion of "meaning" (τὸ σημαινόμενον). How important the theory of "meaning" was for Eunomius can be seen in the passage from Gregory of Nyssa where St. Gregory described the method of Eunomius' reasoning from the *Apology for the Apology*: "I do not like to insert in my own work the nauseous stuff our rhetorician utters,

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(35) ἀλλ' αὐτὴν εἶναι τὴν ὑπόστασιν, ἣν σημαίνει τοὔνομα ἐπαληθευούσης τῇ οὐσίᾳ τῆς προσηγορίας (*Apol.*, XII, 1–4, 6–9; trans. R. Vaggione).

(36) Hahn, no. 154, (G. L. Hahn, *Bibliothek der Symbole und Glaubensregeln der alten Kirche* (Breslau: Morgenstern, ³1897) 185–186); trans. J. N. D. Kelly, *Early Christian Creeds* (London, 1950) 269.

(37) *Synt.*, XVI [Wickham]; trans. Wickham, The *Syntagmation* of Aetius the Anomean…, 546–547.

or to display his ignorance and folly to contempt in the midst of my own arguments. He goes on with a sort of eulogy upon the class of significant words which express the subject (λόγων τῶν σημαντικῶν τὸ ὑποκείμενον φανερούντων)."[38] Eunomius' attention to language issues and "meaning" discourse moves us to inquire into the linguistic aspect of his doctrine in terms of philosophical approaches to the nature of language in Antiquity.

Th. Kopecek saw the influence of Middle Platonist ideas on Eunomius' idea of the relation between an object's nature and an object's name.[39] He referred to Albinus, who regarded the knowledge of correct name usage as part of dialectics and noted that skillful name use relied upon learning the object's nature and naming objects in accordance with it.[40] In Th. Kopecek's opinion, both Albinus and Eunomius had the same view on language as having a conventionally natural character, that is, names were established and, at the same time, they expressed the object's nature, because it was considered to be the true way of naming objects, although Eunomius[41] and, as far as we can judge, Albinus admitted that by no means all names are true names as most of them are arbitrarily given by people with no regard to the object's nature.[42]

We must say that similar views on the nature of language were spread in Antiquity and can be found among the Stoics. It was Stoic terms that Eunomius used in his doctrine about the correspondence of subject and name, which, as we believe, reveals the influence of Stoics, rather than that of Albinus. In other words, we agree with the opinion of L. Wickham and S. Hebbruggen-Walter about the wide usage of Stoic terms by the Neo-Arians, but we do not share L. Wickham's opinion that Stoic influence can be seen only in the terms used but had nothing to do with the doctrinal content.[43]

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(38) Gregorius Nyssenus, *Contra Eunomium*, III, 5, 23.4–24.4.

(39) Th. Kopecek, *A History of Neo-Arianism*, vol. 2 (Philadelphia, PA: The Philadelphia Patristic Foundation, 1979) 321, 328–332.

(40) *Epitome* VI, 10–11 [Louis].

(41) *Apol*., XVII, 1–5; Gregorius Nyssenus, *Contra Eunomium*, III, 5, 21, 10–12.

(42) To note in passing, J. Rist who is not likely to know T. Kopecek's arguments, asserts that, as for the nature of language correlation, Albinus' position was not the same as that of Eunomius (Rist, Basil's "Neoplatonism"…, 186).

(43) Eunomius' Orthodox contemporaries often accused him of using "technology" in his theologizing, which appeared as following the principles

It is true that the notion of "meaning," identical with the term "lekton," is fundamental for the Stoics. The invention of this term enabled them to achieve much better understanding of language and language processes as compared to Aristotle. Aristotle's three-component scheme: object–thought–sound[44] — was transformed by the Stoics into a four-component scheme: signifier (sound)–signified (meaning denoted by a word or a name)–signification (thought)–referent (object).[45] This changed the Stoic interpretation of dialectics to include knowledge about the signifier and the signified among other elements.[46] This discourse differed from another one widely used by the Stoics to clarify the "correctness of name." We are speaking here of the etymological approach that deduced the object nature from its name and was a technique widespread in popular Stoicism. This practice that was introduced to Stoa by Zeno, was based on either the Stoics' belief that sounds in a natural way imitate an object's properties,[47] or on their belief that some wise men once established true names corresponding to objects' natures so we could understand them from the objects' names.

In Chrysippus' time, alongside with the vision of language based on etymological studies,[48] a doctrine of meaning as "lekton" emerged to become later a classical Stoic teaching. According to A. Lloyd,[49] the two theories within the same philosophical school were in conflict with each other as it was perceived by the Stoics themselves. Examin-

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taken from the philosophical schools of Antiquity. One of the most frequent accusations was that he followed Chrysippus (Basilius, *Contra Eunomium*, *PG* 29, col. 516; Gregorius Nazianzenus, *Oration 32*, 201C; Hieronymus, *In Nahum* II, 215). E. Vandenbussche (E. Vandenbussche, La part de la dialectique dans la théologie d'Eunomius le technologue, *Revue d'histoire ecclésiastique* 40 (1944–1945) 53–55) explained the accusation of Eunomius of using "technology" in his philosophy of language, under the influence of Stoic teaching.

(44) Aristoteles, *De interpretatione*, 16a3–7.

(45) In general see *Stoicorum veterum fragmenta* II, 166; *Adversus mathematicos*, VIII, 11–12). Sextus mentioned but did not emphasize the third element of the succession, namely, "thought." "Meaning" differs from "thought" in belonging to the language system, while the latter is an extra-linguistic phenomenon.

(46) *Stoicorum veterum fragmenta* II, 122.

(47) Ibid., 146; Augustine, *De dialectica* VI [Munteanu].

(48) *Stoicorum veterum fragmenta* II 896; 1063; 1069.

(49) A. Lloyd, Grammar and Metaphysics in the Stoa, in: A. Long (ed.), *Problems in Stoicism* (London: The Athlone Press, 1971) 65–66.

ing this question, A. Long came to the conclusion that both theories were likely to have been developed by the Stoics under the influence of Plato's *Cratylus* that may have been involved in the reading curriculum of the Stoics under Chrysippus. A. Lloyd recognized five attitudes toward the nature of language in the *Cratylus*; three of them are present in Stoic writings: the so-called "formal naturalism" (*Cratylus*, 388b–390a; 393d), "etymological naturalism" (*Cratylus*, 397a ff), and "phonetic naturalism" (*Cratylus*, 421b–426d). The latter two correspond to different aspects of stoic etymological doctrine. But according to A. Long, it was "formal naturalism" from the *Cratylus* which denied the importance of word phonetic structure, that encouraged Stoic philosophers to develop their theory of the "lekton." Indeed, this position suggests an independence of word meaning from its phonetic properties and, therefore a possibility of rendering one and the same meaning with different words in different languages.[50] The Stoic theory of "meaning", that is, of something that was regarded by the Stoics as an intermediate link between the word and the object[51] (while Aristotle upheld a gap between the word and the thought)[52] may serve as a good basis for further developing a theory of giving adequate names for objects whose nature is known. There was such a theory in the Hellenistic era, and it was known for the Stoics, and later for Eunomius in connection with the notion τὸ σημαινόμενον. The following passage from Diogenes Laertes (VII, 83) is relevant here concerning the Stoics:

> In regard to "correctness of names" (περί τ' ὀνομάτων ὀρθότητος),[53] the topic of how customs (οἱ νόμοι) have assigned names to things,[54] the wise man would have nothing to say. Of the two linguistic practices (συνήθειαν) which do come within the province of his virtue,

(50) See A. Long, Stoic Linguistics, Plato's Cratylus, and Augustine's De dialectica, in: D. Frede, B. Inwood (eds.), *Language and Learning. Philosophy of Language in the Hellenistic Age* (Toronto, 2005) 44.

(51) SVF II, 168.

(52) See A. Lloyd, Grammar and Metaphysics in the Stoya, in: *Problems in Stoicism*…, 65. Aristotle suggested isomorphism between an object and thought.

(53) See *Cratylus*, 383ab.

(54) "Assigning names to things" here is interpreted as an etymological technique. This is inferred from the discourse about the "correctness of names" presented in the *Cratylus* where correctness is identified as οἱ νόμοι.

> one studies what each existing thing is (τί ἐστι), and the other what it is called (τί καλεῖται).[55]

As the passage shows, two doctrines — "correctness of name" (that is, the etymological doctrine) and "correctness of meaning" — were not easily compatible in the Stoic School.[56] Two language practices mentioned here as opposed to etymology and acceptable for Stoic wise men corresponded, according to Long and Sedley,[57] to two sections of Stoic dialectics that are described by Diogenes Laertes (VII, 43) as exploration of "what each existing thing is" corresponding to the science of the signified (τὸ σημαινόμενον), while exploration of "what it is called" is the science of sounds; etymological studies are not mentioned as a section of the Stoic dialectics (because it was regarded as unworthy of a wise man's attention).

Following one of the Stoic practices (name-giving by means of the signified τὸ σημαινόμενον to objects whose nature is known) as well as Stoic acceptance of "formal naturalism," Eunomius rejected something that was also neglected by Stoic wise men: etymological practice of judging about the nature of what is named coming from how the word sounds. Describing his method Eunomius wrote:

> …we need not try to conform meanings (τὰς σημασίας) to names (τοῖς ὀνόμασι) exactly or try to distinguish those of differing expressions, but must rather direct our attention to the concepts (ἐνοίαις) inherent in the underlying objects and accommodate the name (τὰς προσηγορίας) accordingly (for the natures of objects are not naturally consequent on the verbal expressions: rather, the force of the names (ἡ τῶν ὀνομάτων δύναμις)[58] is accommodated

(55) Diogenes Laertes, VII, 83 = *Stoicorum veterum fragmenta* II 130; trans. Long–Sedly. We follow Long and Sedly in explaining this fragment (LS 31C). As for using συνήθεια as a linguistic practice, see the reference of Long and Sedly to the fragment (SVF III, 137).

(56) See: A. Long, D. Sedley, *The Hellenistic Philosophers*, vol. 2: *Greek and Latin Texts with Notes and Bibliography* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1987) 187–188.

(57) Ibid.

(58) Eunomius used ἡ δύναμις here but, unlike Iamblichus and Origen who imparted a magical meaning to it (see notes 19, 20 above), he used it as a scholastic term. For Iamblichus "the force of the names" is the antithesis of "meanings" (τὰ σημαινόμενα) (he opposed his magical interpretation of names to Porphyry's scholastically looking discourse) Eunomius, in contrast, treated ἡ δύναμις as "meaning" following its frequent use in scholastic texts

to the objects in accordance with their proper status (κατὰ τὴν ἀξίαν)).[59]

As it is demonstrated, Eunomius suggests that objects should be named on the basis of their nature and following the principle of formal naturalism. He admits that names may lexically and phonetically differ,[60] thus denying that one can make any judgment about the nature of objects on the basis of how their names sound, since the nature of the object does not correspond to how the object's name sounds.[61] However, his practice was aimed at assigning definite meaning to particular words referring to concrete objects. It is noteworthy that Eunomius distinguished and used for his argument all four components, characteristic for the Stoic discourse: sound–signified (or "meaning")–thought (or "notion")–object.

Basil of Caesarea's views on language structure as shown by his polemics with Eunomius, corresponds to Aristotle's threefold scheme: sound–thought–subject, where "the meaning" is identical to the thought, with no application of "the meaning" to describing language processes. Although Basil might sometimes show a Stoic linguistic discourse in his works,[62] besides using the language of Stoic physics and epistemology in his polemics with Eunomius, his linguistic argumentation was mainly based on Aristotle's discourse lacking the notion "meaning" as a phenomenon of language. This was partly due to the fact that Aristotle's discourse emphasized the communicative function of language,[63] to be more exact, its compliance with the

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of Antiquity. Cf. Sextus Empiricus, *Adversus mathematicos*, VII, 38–42; Stoicorum veterum fragmenta II, 132; Alexander Aphrodisiensis *apud. Simplicius In Aristotelis physicorum libros commentaria*, 12, 17 [Diels].

(59) *Apol*., XVIII, 4–9; trans. R. Vaggione, emended.

(60) It is obvious here that Basil's argument: "the object nature does not follow the names but, vice versa, names are invented (εὑρηται) after objects" (CE, 580, 26) is incorrect, because Eunomius shared it himself.

(61) Cf. *Apol*., XIX, 1–4.

(62) See, for example, *Homily* 16 (*PG* 31, col. 477.3–6) where Basil distinguished the word pronounced (ὁ τῆς φωνῆς προφερόμενος) from the internal word (ἐνδιάθετος), which somewhat resembles the Stoics' λόγος προφορικὸς and λόγος ἐνδιάθετος.

(63) Aristotle was a classical follower of the idea of all word meanings having been formed by social convention, see "[name] by convention (κατὰ συνθήκην), because no name is a name by nature (φύσει), but [only] when it has become a symbol (σύμβολον). For at any rate even the inarticulate noises

whole language community rather than with elitism in establishing language meanings, preferred by the Stoics.[64] Thus, Basil's criticism of Eunomius' doctrine rested on loosing the rigid relation between word, meaning, thought, and referent, maintained by Eunomius. Thus, as far as the notion "son," is concerned, it indicated something substantial (that is, God the Son) but sometimes Eunomius used it to denote the non-substantial as well.[65] Concerning the term "Unbegotten," Basil also did not accept Eunomius' approach, treating it at least in two ways in his *Contra Eunomium*: as meaning what is not characteristic of God[66] and as indicating the specific being of God the Father,[67] — hence showing that the word meaning depends on the context of its usage. This meant that God's names were not of noematic status but might be interpreted through propositions, that is, by means of statements about God. Another tactic in Basil's refutation of Eunomius' theory was his transition from Eunomius' discourse on common names to that of proper names, that is, the words that exclude self-knowledge by their definition. It is noteworthy that both tactics avoid a discourse about the meaning of language, instead focusing discussion on cognitive processes; the respective passages from the *Contra Eunomium* are found to mention "word," "thought," "subject" but contain no reference to "meaning."[68]

One more point of divergence between the views of the two theologians is apparent if we consider their polemics in terms of the well known paradigm of Antiquity φύσει — θέσει, that dealt with the origin and nature of human language. To oppose the Epicurean doctrine about the natural but spontaneous and mindless origin of human words related to certain objects from the very beginning,[69] phi-

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of beasts for example indicate something, but none of them is a name" (Aristoteles, *De interpretatione*, 16a, 26–29).

(64) Etymologizing, on the contrary, implied ordinary participants of the language participants.

(65) *Contra Eunomium*, PG 29, col. 588.34–41.

(66) Ibid., 536.2–3.

(67) Ibid., 605.31–34.

(68) About names as judgments (propositions) see Basil, *Contra Eunomium*, *PG* 29, col. 533.35–536.38. About discourse on proper nouns, used by Basil to explain the status of the names "Father" and "Son," see Basilius, *Contra Eunomium*, *PG* 29, col. 577.31–580.30. The latter passage contains elements of Stoic logic and physics, rather than those of the doctrine of language.

(69) Epicurus, *Epistula ad Herodotum*, 75 [Arrighetti].

losophers developed two concepts of the dispensing of names (θέσις ὀνομάτων) that were in opposition to each other. One concept was that names were established in accordance with the object's nature, by a certain reasoning agent — a wise man, dialectician, demon or god (a principal point in this case was the elitism of the name-giver(s)). The other concept assumed that the name-object relation was established through acceptance by all the language community members, that is, arbitrarily, regardless of the nature of objects being named. The former position combined the principles φύσει and θέσει, that is, both establishment and nature of words (unlike the Epicurean position that denied θέσει). It was reflected in the *Cratylus* (387d4–5, 389d4–6), by Albinus (VI, 10), described in detail by Ammonius,[70] and is likely to have been used by the Stoics as well, taking into account Long's rather convincing treatment of their "formal naturalism,"[71] as well as Cicero's teaching on the God-ordained establishment of names.[72] The latter position that opposed φύσει and θέσει, and asserted that the language names were established (θέσει) by a convention of all members of the language community, was shared by Aristotle.[73]

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(70) In his *De interpretatione* I, 3 (34–40b), Ammonius notes the double meaning of "nature-based naming" (when names are said to be the products of nature and when they are said to correspond to the nature of objects), as well as the double meaning of "convention-based naming" (when it is believed that any human being could give any name to an object and when it is stated that names were ordained by the name giver). As a result, Ammonius concludes: "It is clear, that the second interpretation of 'nature-based naming' coincides with the second case of 'convention-based naming.'"

(71) See Long, Stoic Linguistics…, 36–55, especially p. 40–49. It is noteworthy that many authors of Antiquity advanced the view on names as having been established by God, without speaking about names' correspondence to the named objects' nature, but implying it, see Cicero, *Tusk. disp*., XXV, 62; *De rep*., III, 2; Origenes, *Contra Celsum*, V, 30; Philo, *Legum allegoriae*, II, 14–15 [Mondésert].

(72) See note 71 above. G. Rudberg ascribes these passages to Poseidonius, as well as the passage from Philo mentioned above (G. Rudberg, *Forschungen zu Poseidonius* (Uppsala, 1918) 56–57).

(73) See also: Nigid. *Fig. ap. Gell. Noct Att*, X, 4,1. Proclus attributes this position to Democritus and Hermogenes, see: Proclus, *In Cratylum*, XIV, p. 5, 17–20; XVI, p. 26–27 [Diels]. As far as we know, Aristotle never used the notion θέσει in its technical meaning; the philosophical tradition of Antiquity used Aristotle's κατὰ συνθήκην as synonymous to θέσει, see Origen, *Contra Celsum*, I, 24; Proclus, *In Cratylum*, 15, 27–30; 16, p. 28–30.

Therefore, Eunomius' doctrine of language, in general was characterized by the combination of the widespread principles of Antiquity, φύσει and θέσει. The above quotations (*Apol*. XII, 1–9; XVIII, 4–9) show, that in his first *Apology* Eunomius emphasized the agreement between the true names of God and the Son and their natures, suggesting the names' divine origin and believing that every real Christian could and should establish true names. Moreover, in the same work Eunomius wrote about names occurring κατ' ἐπίνοιαν which, unlike true names, did not signify any object, about homonymous words (having the same sound structure, but different in their meaning, for example, "eye" referring to God as opposed to that referring to the human being[74]), and about synonyms sounding different but having the same meaning, which, in the case of divine names, all (for example, the Father and "He who is") meant "Unbegotten."[75]

According to Th. A. Kopecek, when Eunomius involved synonyms in his argument, he allowed for some convention, that is, for certain social agreement in establishing word meanings.[76] It holds true concerning Eunomius' linguistic world picture but only at the stage of finding true names, while after the names have been established, conventionalism becomes of no importance at all. Kopecek seems wrong in treating the principle of "dispensing of name" (θέσει) as being identical to that of "convention," which becomes obvious when he describes Albinus' views on language, whose meaning of θέσει was, in fact, establishing names by dialecticians (not by convention) in accordance with an object's nature. Regarding Eunomius's teaching which was similar to the doctrine of Albinus, Kopecek attributes the same view to Eunomius (names correspond to the objects' nature (φύσει), at the same time, they were established by convention (θέσει)). Though Eunomius coupled φύσει and θέσει, meaning some reasonable agent of name establishment, so did Albinus. While it is only implied in the first *Apology*, the *Apology for the Apology* contains the explicit teaching of Eunomius; it was maintained that names were ordained by God in accordance with the nature of the object named,[77] and Christians must learn the origin of these true names.

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(74) *Apol*., XVI, 1–2.

(75) See note 31.

(76) Kopecek, *A History of Neo-Arianism*…, vol. 2, 331–332.

(77) Gregorius Nyssenus, *Contra Eunomium*, II, 417 (concerning θέσει); Ibid., II, 545 (concerning φύσει).

Eunomius's teaching is considered by Daniélou to be similar to the doctrine of Proclus. In fact, both combine φύσει and θέσει. Proclus understands θέσει as convention-based, when opposing it to φύσει,[78] but sometimes θέσει is coupled with φύσει when he writes that names are given by gods, demons, or human beings.[79]

We may object to Danielou's view, first, that coupling φύσει and θέσει was the position widespread in Antiquity; second, that, according to Proclus, the names given by human beings are of divine origin like those given by God, though to a lesser degree, and Proclus just in passing mentioned the names that were given by chance,[80] which is in contrast to Eunomius' argumentation in which such names (in his terms given κατ᾽ ἐπίνοιαν) were given an important role, and such names were typical for the Stoic School; third, that Proclus' teaching about divine names is related to his teaching about emanation, while Eunomius' system did not accept any sort of emanation of God.

Similarly, we cannot agree with M. Troyano's statement that it was the Cappadocian Fathers, rather than Eunomius, who followed the principle of coupling φύσει and θέσει.[81] Similar to T. Kopecek, M. Troyano misinterprets θέσει coupled with φύσει as name establishment by convention, rather than by a reasonable dispenser who knew the nature of the objects. Therefore, M. Troyano is right when saying that in the Cappadocians' view, language is a phenomenon that exists due to a convention; but what is wrong here, in our opinion, is that she puts the Cappadocians' doctrine into the wrong context. In fact, Basil's position corresponds to an interpretation of words and names as being dispensed by convention,[82] while he considers communication as the main function of language.[83]

(78) Proclus, *In Cratylum*, 15, 1–3; 16, 5–27.

(79) Ibid., 18, 9–20, 21; *Theol. Plat.* 1, 29, 124.3–12 [Saffrey and Westerink].

(80) Proclus, *In Cratylum*, 73, 1.

(81) M. Troiano, I Cappadoci e la questione dell'origine dei nomi nella polemica contro Eunomio, *Vetera Christianorum* 17 (1980) 338–339.

(82) Basil, *Contra Eunomium*, *PG* 29, col. 632.44.

(83) This position is clearly expressed in Basil, *Homily* 3, *PG* 31, col. 23, 5–14.

SUMMARY

To sum up, Eunomius' argumentation "from names" should not be simplified and reduced to the statement that names are mystical expressions of the essence of the named or the identification of the lexical meaning as its ontological correlate. In the *Apology* Eunomius believed that he knew the natures of the Father and the Son, and wanted to attach definite terms to them by means of an intermediate element between thought and word, namely, by "meaning," perhaps following the practice adopted by the Stoic School. Based on Aristotle's paradigm, Basil's strategy was aimed at destroying Eunomius' word–referent relation. Considering the polemics between Eunomius and Basil in terms of the paradigm of "dispensing names" of Antiquity shows that Basil's position was in line with Aristotle's scheme of establishing names by people's convention. Eunomius' position was in line with the scheme widespread in the Hellenistic time but not alien to the Stoics — establishing names by a dispenser in accordance with the nature of what was named.

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THE JEWS IN THE NEGLECTED CHRISTIAN WRITING "THE WORD OF SAINT BARSABAS, ARCHBISHOP OF JERUSALEM, ABOUT OUR SAVIOUR JESUS CHRIST AND THE CHURCHES" OF THE SECOND — EARLY THIRD CENTURY*

The only manuscript to which we owe the transmission of "The Word of Saint Barsabas, Archbishop of Jerusalem, about our Saviour Jesus Christ and the churches [and about the chief priests],"[1] is the Old Georgian manuscript *Athos Iviron* 11 dating to the 10th century. The text was published with a French translation and introductory notes in 1982 in *Patrologia Orientalis* by the Belgian Jesuit Michel van Esbroeck. However, this seems to have produced little reaction in the scholarly milieu apart from the registration of the writing in the *Clavis Patrum Graecorum* (no. 1685) and in some other patristic handbooks.[2]

Meanwhile, the editor's claims concerning the date of the probably Greek original of the text (2nd century) and its place of provenance (Palestine, possibly Jerusalem), as well as its archaic theology coupled

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(*) The references to the scholarly works and journals are abbreviated in accordance with Theologische Realenzyklopädie. Abkürzungsverzeichnis, 2., überarbeitete und erweiterte Auflage, zusammengestellt von S. M. Schwertner (Berlin—New York, 1994). TEG which is absent in this list means "Traditio exegetica graeca." The patristic authors and their writings are quoted according to the abbreviations used in G. W. H. Lampe, *A Patristic Greek Lexicon* (Oxford, 1961) XI–XLV.

(1) The words "and about the chief priests" are a later addition to the title, see M. van Esbroeck (introd., éd. du texte géorgien inédit et trad. française), *Barsabé de Jérusalem sur le Christ et les églises* (Turnhout, 1982) (PO 41/2) 29–31.

(2) See, however, F. Manns, Une nouvelle source littéraire pour l'étude du judéo-christianisme, *Henoch* 6 (1984) 165–180 and S. C. Mimouni, La tradition des évêques chrétiens d'origine juive de Jérusalem, *SP* 40 (2006) 452.

with the considerable length of the document (over 40 PO pages), calls for an examination of van Esbroeck's theses and for further efforts in the contextualization of the "Word" in the history of early Christian literature.

In this article I will present some observations concerning the role of the Jews in the text of Barsabas. Dealing with this question, we shall touch upon the problem of the different sources of the "Word" and its overall purpose. Incomplete and preliminary as it is, this article is to be understood as a kind of invitation for further study of Barsabas' work. In order to give a general impression of the document to be discussed, a summary of its contents and van Esbroeck's considerations about the author and the dating should be offered.

Content

The "Word of Saint Barsabas" can be described as a collection of Old Testament testimonies[3] about Christ and the Church. With this hermeneutical principle in mind, the author goes through several biblical stories, starting with the first chapter of the book of Genesis and reaching Moses at the end of his discourse. In particular, he looks at the stories of Adam in Paradise, Noah and the flood, the annunciation to Sarah and her laughter, Isaac's benediction of Jacob and Esau's reaction, Jacob's benediction of his sons, Joseph's story, and Moses and the Exodus. Thus, the continuous typological Christ-and-Church-oriented exegesis of the Old Testament can be seen as the primary concern of the author.[4]

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(3) We use this word in a non-terminological sense, even though the study of the relationship of the "Word" to the genre of testimonies, i.e. "Bibelkommentare, die entweder eine Folge von Zitaten mit jeweils daran anschließenden Interpretation oder lediglich interpretirende Paraphrasen der entsprechenden atl. Texte bringen" (M. Kamptner, Art.: Testimoniensammlung, in: S. Döpp, W. Geerlings (Hrsg.), *Lexikon der antiken christlichen Literatur* (Freiburg—Basel—Wien, ^{3}2002), 674a), would certainly be rewarding.

(4) Cf. Barsab., Christ. 1 (PO 41, 64,9–10): ყოველივე წერილი ქრისტის თჳს და ეკლესიათა თჳს გამოჩნდებიან; "the whole Scripture becomes clear because of Christ and the Churches," the English translation here and in the following excerpts is mine, unless the translator is named. About the term "Scripture(s)" (წერილი / წერილნი) as designation of the Old Testament in contrast to the Gospel(s) (სახარებაჲ / სახარებანი), see below.

Author

The editor shows that the "Archbishop Barsabas" who is named in the title of the "Word" appears in a few Christian sources as the third bishop of Jerusalem, Barsabas Justus, the man whose exact place in the bishop list of the Jerusalem See and whose very historicity remain a matter of discussion.[5] Van Esbroeck seems to presuppose the existence of a Jerusalem bishop, named Barsabas in the 2nd century, but is nevertheless skeptical that he was the real author of the "Word."[6] In view of Barsabas' being an unknown figure in Christian literature, van Esbroeck, who identifies the author simply as Barsabas, is certainly right in saying that the additional "Pseudo" before his name would be unnecessary.

Dating

In addition to van Esbroeck's considerations about the dating,[7] one could observe that the terminological distinction between the Gospels and the "Writings" (meaning the Old Testament), as made in ch. 42, fits the second century situation with the canon of the Holy Scripture and is less likely the more we move away from this period.[8] Despite van Esbroeck's skepticism concerning the originality of the term "Trinity" in ch. 26,[9] it seems not to contradict directly the early dating of the text of Barsabas as this term is evidenced for the first time in the

(5) van Esbroeck, *Barsabé…*, 12–31.

(6) Ibid, 31.

(7) Ibid., 59–60 with conclusion "quelque part au IIe siècle à Jérusalem" (Ibid., 59).

(8) Cf. Lampe, *A Patristic Greek Lexicon…*, s.v. γραφή. Barsabas' usage of the terms "Scripture(s)" and "Gospel(s)" corresponds approximately to that of St. Irenaeus of Lyon, cf.: "Einige Male nimmt er diese Bücher (i.e. the Gospels) auch mit dem Alten Testament zusammen und bezeichnet sie dann ohne Unterschied mit den altgeheiligten Namen als Herrenschriften, "die Schriften" oder "die Schrift." Doch geschieht dies nicht regelmäßig, sondern nur gelegentlich und fast wie im Versehen. Im allgemeinen hängen diese Begriffe ... immer noch an den Büchern des Alten Testaments. Man erkennt daraus beides: einerseits die tatsächliche Bedeutung, die die neutestamentlichen Schriften für Irenäus bereits besitzen, und andererseits die Neuheit und fehlende Sicherheit ihres Geltungsanspruchs und ihrer Autorität" (H. F. von Campenhausen, *Die Entstehung der christlichen Bibel* (Tübingen, 1968) (BHTh 39) 220).

(9) Cf.: "Nous pensons que le terme «Trinité» a naturellement été introduit par une copiste" (van Esbroeck, *Barsabé…*, 48).

second part of the 2nd century.[10] The fact that most of the traditions which Barsabas shares with other Christian authors can be found in St. Hippolytus of Rome († 235) makes the dating in the late 2nd – early 3rd century an acceptable starting point to continue efforts in searching for a balanced approach to the problem of the dating.[11]

Polemics against the Jews

An appropriate question to start with in the discussion about the work of Barsabas is his interpretation of the role of Jews in Sacred History. A remarkable point is that Barsabas avoids speaking about the rejection of the Jewish people by God or even about the inferiority of their election.[12] Van Esbroeck summarizes Barsabas' position as "the complementarity of two callings,"[13] i.e. of the Jews and the Gentiles. We shall now have a closer look at the meaning of this description.

One of the relatively few places where we find a saying that may shed some light on what Barsabas thought about the place of the Jews in the history of salvation is his brief comment on two verses from Jacob's blessing of Judah in Gen. 49:11a (LXX): "To the vine he tethers his colt, and to the tendril of the vine the colt of his donkey" (ch. 36).

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(10) Thphl. Ant., Autol. 2:15 (SC 20, 138,19, Bardy). However, St. Theophilus' naming of the persons of the Holy Trinity as God, Logos and Sophia could presuppose an earlier stage in the development of the Trinitarian terminology than Barsabas' speaking about, "Father, Son and the Holy Spirit" (ch. 26).

(11) About the localization see our concluding remark below.

(12) In an early Christian text as long as Barsabas' where the controversy with the Jews is a theme throughout (see more about this below) such a reserved attitude deserves to be noticed. We don't find statements in Barsabas like those in Barn. 4:6–7: "Do not imitate certain people … saying: "Their covenant is ours also." Ours, indeed; but they lost it once and for all", translation slightly altered according to J. A. Kleist, (trans., notes), *The Didache, The Epistle of Baranabas, The Epistles and the Martyrdom of St. Polycarp, The Fragments of Papias, The Epistle to Diognetus* (Westminster, MD—London, 1948) (ACW 6) 41. Cf. also Ps.-Cypr., adv. Jud. 5: interfecerunt enim Dominum et latronem liberaverunt. ob hanc ergo causam coactus est Dominus facere novum testamentum; "for they murdered the Lord and set free a thief. Therefore the Lord was moved to make a new covenant" (CSEL III/3, 138,4–6, Hartel), and Ps.-Cypr., adv. Jud. 7: hic est qui rupit vetus suum testamentum et scripsit novum; "He is the One Who tore up His old covenant and wrote a new one" (CSEL III/3, 140,15–16, Hartel).

(13) "La complémentarité des deux choix" (van Esbroeck, *Barsabé…*, 49).

Barsabas addresses his explanations to an abridged quotation from the Biblical text where the second part of the verse is shortened:[14]

> “გამოაბას ვენაჴსა ვირი იგი მისი და კაცჳ იგი” გამოაცხადებს ორსა მას ერსა მომავალსა მას მერმესა ერსა, ხოლო ვენაჴი იგი ჭეშმარიტად ქრისტე არს ვითარცა თჳთ წამებს: “მე ვარ ვენაჴი ჭეშმარიტი.”
> “He will tether to the vine his donkey and the colt” means two nations, <two> coming future nations. But the vine is truly Christ, as He witnesses Himself: “I am the true vine.”[15]

Michel van Esbroeck, whose translation of the passage differs slightly from ours, brings a number of close parallels to this exegesis from early Christian writers. A careful reading of the parallels, both known and unknown to van Esbroeck, shows that the Christian authors of the second and third centuries interpreted the two colts of Gen. 49:11 as two callings *to Christ* and/or *of Christ*. Properly speaking, there is only one calling of Christ directed to the Jews and the Gentiles respectively. The most expressive example can be given from Hipp., antichr. 10 (GCS Hippolyt I, 10,10–14, Achelis):

> “δεσμεύων πρὸς ἄμπελον τὴν ὄνον αὐτοῦ,” τουτέστι τὸν ἐκ περιτομῆς λαὸν πρὸς ἑαυτοῦ κλῆσιν, αὐτὸς γὰρ ἦν ἡ ἄμπελος, “καὶ ἐν τῇ ἕλικι τὸν πῶλον τῆς ὄνου αὐτοῦ,” τὸν λαὸν τὸν ἐξ ἐθνῶν ὡς νέον πῶλον εἰς αὐτὸν ἑνῶν, ὡς περιτομὴν καὶ ἀκροβυστίαν εἰς μίαν πίστιν καλῶν.
> “To the vine he tethers his donkey,”[16] that means <His> calling to Himself the nation of circumcision, for He Himself was the vine.[17] “And to the tendril of the vine the colt of his donkey”[18] <means His> joining with Himself like a young colt the nation of the pagans in order to call the circumcised and uncircumcised people into one faith.

The comparison of this and other patristic commentaries on Gen. 49:11a–b[19] with the passage from the 36th ch. of “Word” of Barsabas

(14) Barsab., Christ. 36 (PO 41, 94,14–18).

(15) John 15:1.

(16) Gen. 49:11a.

(17) Cf. John 15:1.

(18) Gen. 49:11b.

(19) Cf. Just., dial. 53:1–4 (PTS 47, 156,1–158,28, Marcovich), Hipp., fr. 22–23 in Gen. (GCS Hippolyt I, 59,17–60,7, Achelis), Hipp., ben. Jac.18 (PO 27,1/2, 80,8–11, Brière) and Greg.-Illib., Tract. Orig. 6,330–385 (CChr.SL 69, 51,330–53,389, Bulhart). About Gregory of Elvira’s dependence of St. Hip-

makes it clear that "two nations" can only mean Jews and Gentiles. The interpretation of the "vine" as Christ[20] shows that Barsabas most probably follows here the exegetical traditions mentioned above[21] and couldn't have understood the tethering of the two colts to the vine in any other way than the calling of *both* the Gentiles *and* the Jews to Christ.[22]

An indirect confirmation of this interpretation can be seen in Barsabas' exegesis of two miraculous feedings in the Gospel of Mathew: Matt. 14:13–21 and Matt. 15:32–39 in ch. 26–27. Barsabas deals with these two texts in connection with his comment on Gen. 27:27–28 in ch. 18ff where he understands Isaac's words of blessing to his son Jacob, "God give you dew from heaven and the richness of the earth, corn and new wine in plenty," as foreshadowing the sacrament of the Eucharist. According to Barsabas, Esau came to receive his father's blessing, heard that Jacob took it away and, "started weeping because he hadn't become worthy to receive the bread of the offering and the cup. He is the nation of the Jews, which didn't become worthy of the New Testament, but the new nation became worthy of the benediction of the cup of the Communion wine."[23]

In the ch. 26 of "Word," Barsabas uses the two feeding stories of Matt. 14 and Matt. 15 to corroborate his idea that the first or elder brother — that is Esau, who means the Jews — didn't receive the Eu-

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polytus see D. Bonwetsch, Der Weissagungsbeweis aus Gen. 49 in der älteren Kirche, *Neue Kirchliche Zeitschrift* 20 (1909) 882 (here the *Tractatus Origenis* are still dealt with as a work of Novatian).

(20) Cf. Barsabas' reference to John 15:1 and the allusion to the same Scripture in the cited text of Saint Hippolytus.

(21) Cf. e.g. Hipp., ben. Jac. 18 (PO 27,1/2, 80,8–9, Briére): εἶτα φησίν· "δεσμεύων πρὸς ἄμπελον τὴν ὄνον αὐτοῦ καὶ τῇ ἕλικι τὸν πῶλον τῆς ὄνου αὐτοῦ," σημαίνων τὰς δύο κλήσεις πρὸς αὐτὸν ὡς ἄμπελον δεσμευομένας.

(22) This is more ambiguous in the following interpretation of Isaac's blessing of Manasseh and Ephraim in Gen. 48:8ff by Hipp., ben. Jac. 11 (PO 27,1/2, 46,11–48,2, Briére): ἐν γὰρ τῷ ἐναλλάξαι τὰς χεῖρας καὶ τὸν νεώτερον υἱὸν τοῦ Ἰωσήφ, λέγω δὴ τὴν Ἐφραίμ, εἰς τὰ δεξιὰ μεθιστάναι, τὸν δὲ Μανασσὴν τὸν πρωτότοκον εἰς τὰ ἀριστερά, ἔδειξεν δι᾽ αὐτῶν δύο κλήσεις καὶ δύο λαοῦς γιγομένους· καὶ τὸν μὲν νεώτερον διὰ πίστεως εἰς δεξιὰν τοῦ Χριστοῦ εὑρισκόμενον, τὸν δὲ πρεσβύτερον λαόν, τὸν ἐν τῷ νόμῳ καυχώμενον, εἰς ἀριστερὰν μετατιθέμενον.

(23) See the Georgian text in Barsab., Christ. 25 (PO 41, 84,2–6, van Esbroeck).

charist, whereas the blessing received by the younger one foreshadows that it shall be given to the Christians.

Barsabas understands two similar stories in the Gospel of Mathew as two brothers. The first story in Matt. 14 corresponds to the elder brother, Esau, while the feeding in Matt. 15 illustrates the giving of the Eucharist to the Christians and is connected with Jacob. Three points in Matt. 14 are put forward: first, Christ didn't break the bread but simply gave it; second, the people were lying on the grass, which indicates their fleshly nature because flesh is compared with grass by the prophet Isaiah;[24] third, the people stayed only one day. On the other hand, in Matt. 15 Christ blessed, broke and gave the bread;[25] then He told the people to sit on the earth, which means the preaching of the Gospel through all the earth (Ps. 18:5 LXX), and they stay with Christ for three days: a sign of the Holy Trinity.

By means of this exegesis, the author argues that, whereas in the second feeding (Matt. 15:32–39) the sacrament of the Eucharist is revealed, in the first feeding (Matt. 14:13–21) the mystery of the bread and wine is not given to the Jews. The striking point is that, according to Barsabas, Christ preformed His miracle of multiplying bread for both groups, i.e. for the Gentiles *and* the Jews as well, which in my eyes, can be compared with the twofold calling of the pagans and the Jews in the commentary on Gen. 49:11a in ch. 36.

In ch. 25 Barsabas provides some further remarks which make his position concerning the calling of the Jewish people even clearer. Barsabas says, that Christ's words about the new and old wine-skins in Matt. 9:17 mean the old nation of the Jews and the "calling of the pagans:"[26]

> ჩინება წარმართთაჲ ახალი თხიერი, ხოლო თხიერი ძუელი ერი იგი ძუელი ჰურიათაჲ,რაჲმეთუ არა შეიწყნარნეს მცნებანი ქრისტჱსნი.
>
> The calling of the pagans <is> the new wine-skin, the old wine-skin <is>, however, the old nation of the Jews, because they did not accept the teaching of Christ.

The chance not to become the "old wine-skins" lies in the acceptance of Christ's teaching, which the nations performed and the Jews

(24) Jes. 40:6.

(25) Actually, Matt. 14:18 uses almost the same words as Matt. 15:36: εὐλόγησεν καὶ κλάσας ἔδωκεν in the first case, and εὐχαριστήσας ἔκλασεν καὶ ἐδίδου in the second.

(26) Barsab., Christ. 25 (PO 41, 84,10–12, van Esbroeck).

failed to do. According to the quotation, the "calling" is equal to the "teaching" or "commandments"[27] of the Lord, which was directed likewise to the Gentiles and the Jews.

Thus, "the complementarity of two callings" in Barasabas means two callings of Christ simultaneously addressed to the Gentiles and to the Jews. A calling independent of Christ is unknown to Barsabas. According to him, the Jews are actually excluded from the Christian mysteries and have no part in the New Covenant with God, but they were and, maybe, even are invited to both.

The general recognition of Christ by the Jews will take place in His second glorious coming. The text of the 38 ch., where this event is described, leaves the possibility open that recognition will not necessarily entail conversion, but independent of this detail, the traditional pattern of the blindness of Israel[28] lasting till the eschatological time justifies the suggestion that the author probably put not too much hope in a change of mind soon among the Jews not believing in Christ.

On the other hand, Barsabas explains in ch. 35 the praising of the Lord by children in Ps. 112:1–3 (LXX) as being made by the Gentiles and then mentions the praising by the elders in Ps. 106:32 (LXX). Though no explicit connection of this second praising with the Jews is established, nothing seems to contradict the conclusion that the Church of Barsabas consisted of former Gentiles and a perhaps numerically smaller group of converted Jews.

These observations lead us to the question about the general role of the Jews in the "Word." Simply going through the work of Barsabas makes it clear that the author permanently insists on the deeper meaning of the Holy Scripture being favorable to Christians from a Gentile background and, accordingly, unfavorable to the Jews. We find this kind of argumentation in chs. 11, 14, 16, 18, 20, 25, 26, 28, 33, 35, 38 and 41. In chs. 30, 33, 40 and 42, Barsabas explicitly refutes the false exegetical opinions of the Jews, which provides the author with the opportunity to introduce Christian ones.

Therefore, we would hardly be wrong in stating that, starting with the 11th chapter of his work, Barsabas uses the typological exegesis of the Old Testament in order to encourage his Gentile fellow-believers in a situation where the influence of the Jewish understanding of the Old Testament was a considerable factor.

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(27) The literal translation of მცნებანი.

(28) Cf. e.g. Rom. 11:25.

This notion is supported by Barsabas' borrowing from a source which was also used by St. Hippolytus in his commentary on Jacob's blessings. Manlio Simonetti demonstrated, that in his exegesis of Gen. 49 St. Hippolytus is dependent on some — in Simonetti's view — probably oral traditions going back to the middle of the 2nd century. The main concern of these traditions is, according to Simonetti's analysis, exactly the same as those of the chapters of Barsabas' work, which come after the 10th: Christ and His Church as foreshadowed in the Old Testament writings in the situation of theological discussions with the Jews.[29] M. van Esbroeck is of the opinion that Barsabas and Hippolytus were independent of each other using a source for their explanation of Jacobs blessings,[30] which can hardly be another one than that reconstructed by Simonetti. The usage and extension in its own sense of the unknown source by Barsabas indicates the similarity of the situation, which produced the text of Barsabas and his and St. Hippolytus' common source.

Another point that demonstrates that Barsabas' work appeared in an environment where the Christian relationship with the Jews was of great importance to the Christian community is the case of borrowing Jewish exegetical traditions in chs. 3–4 and 10. This case deserves a thorough examination.

While commenting on Gen. 2:15 in ch. 4, Barsabas says:[31]

> "დაადგინა ადამი სამოთხესა საქმედ და ცვად." ვის თჳს სცვიდა? ვინ იყვნეს მპარავ? ადამ მარტოჲ იყო ცოლითურთ. ანუ რასა იქმოდა სამოთხესა შინა? რაჲმეთუ სრულიად სიტყჳთა ღმრთისაჲთა აღშენებულ იყვნეს ნერგნი იგი, არამედ საიდუმლოჲ წერილ არს, რაჲმეთუ დაადგინა იგი სამოთხესა შინა, ესე არს ეკლესიაჲ, რაჲთა იქმოდის სიმართლესა და დაიმარხნეს მცნებანი.
>
> "He [God] put Adam in Paradise to work <it> and to guard <it>."[32] What did he guard against? Who were the thieves? Adam was alone with <his> wife. Or, what did he work at in Paradise? For these plants were edified [or: made to grow?] by the word of God alone. But, what is written is a mystery. For He put him in Paradise, that is, the Church, to work <at> righteousness and to keep the commandments.

(29) M. Simonetti, Note su antichi commenti alle Benedizioni dei Patriarchi, *Annali delle Facoltà di Lettere-Filosofia e Magistero dell' università di Cagliari* 28 (1960) 449.

(30) van Esbroeck, *Barsabé...*, 37–39.

(31) Barsab., Christ. 4 (PO 41, 66,11–18, van Esbroeck).

(32) Gen. 2:15.

The task of working and guarding imposed upon Adam in Gen. 2:15 is thus applied to the righteousness and the commandments of God. This theme is developed further in ch. 10:[33]

> შკუეთუ სამოთხე იგი ეკლესიაჲ არს ღმრთისაჲ, შენ ხარ ადამი, პირველი იგი ჴორციელი. შეიმოსე შენ დიდებაჲ, იქმენ ფრთხილ და ნუ გარდახუალ მცნებათა, არამედ იქმოდე სიმართლესა, და ყავ მშუდობაჲ, რაჲთა შეხუდე სამოთხესა მას შინა, რომელ არს ეკლესიაჲ ღმრთისაჲ, და მოვიდეთ სასუფეველსა მას ცათასა.
> If Paradise is the Church of God, you are Adam, the first carnal <man>.[34] Put on the glory, be vigilant, don't offend the commandments, but work <at> righteousness and make peace so that you will come into Paradise, which is the Church of God, and we shall reach the kingdom of heaven.

The preoccupation of the first man in Paradise with the commandments of God is considered here a model for all Christians. As a parallel to working and guarding in Gen. 2:15 applied to the commandments of God, van Esbroeck points to the Palestinian Targum, which extends the scripture in question in the following way:[35]

> The Lord God took Adam ... and made him dwell in the garden of Eden to labour in the law and to keep its commandments.

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(33) Barsab., Christ. 10 (PO 41, 70,16–21, van Esbroeck).

(34) van Esbroeck, *Barsabé...*, 71 n. 46 suggests that the Greek original word rendered at this place was προτοπλάστης.

(35) van Esbroeck, *Barsabé...*, 209, n. 10. The English translation is quoted according to M. Maher (trans., introd., notes), *The Aramaic Bible*, vol. 1B, *Targum Pseudo-Jonathan: Genesis* (Edinburgh, 1992) 23. The same idea can be found in the Christian apologetic of the 2nd century St. Theophilus of Antioch, Autol. 2:24 (SC 20, 158,22–25, Bardy). M. van Esbroeck's reference to "Ad Autolicum, 3 (SC 20), p. 118," cf. M. van Esbroeck, *Barsabé*, 209, n. 10 is not correct. Cf. also Cyr., dial. Anth. et Steph. 25: ⲁⲛⲑⲓⲙⲟⲥ· ⲉⲣⲉⲁⲇⲁⲙ ⲟⲛⲁϣ ⲛϩⲉ ⲙⲡⲁⲧⲫⲁⲣⲁⲃⲁ. ⲕⲩⲣⲓⲗⲗⲟⲥ· ⲉⲫⲧⲛⲧⲱⲛ ⲉⲛⲱϩⲛ ⲉⲧϩⲙⲡⲙⲁ ⲉⲧⲙⲙⲁⲩ· ⲭⲟⲧⲡ ϩⲱⲱϥ ⲛⲕⲁⲣⲡⲟⲥ ⲉⲧⲉⲛⲉⲛⲧⲟⲗⲏ ⲙⲡϫⲟⲓⲥ ⲛⲉ, "Anthimus: Of what kind had Adam been (literally: is) before he disobeyed (παραβαίνω)? Cyrillus: He was (literally: is) like the trees <which were> there, being himself laden with fruits (καρπός), that is, the commandments (ἐντολή) of the Lord," cited according to the edition of W. E. Crum (Hrsg. und übersetzt), A. Ehrhard (Beitrag), *Der Papyruscodex saec. VI–VII der Phillippsbibliothek in Cheltenham. Koptische theologische Schriften* (Straßburg, 1915) (Schriften der Wissenschaftlichen Gesellschaft in Straßburg 18) 8,10–12. The authorship of St. Cyril has been asserted by A. Ehrhard, Zur literarischen und theologischen Würdigung der Texte, in: ibid., 145–154, cf. also CPG 5277.

Another close parallel to the exegesis of Barsabas can be found in the *Questiones in Genesin* I:14 by Philo of Alexandria:[36]

> Why does (God) place the man in Paradise for two things, to work and guard it, when Paradise was not in need of work, for it was complete in all things as having been planted by God, and was not in need of a guardian, for who was there to be harmed?

A short note from the Jewish text known as the *Slavonic Apocalypse of Enoch* (2 Enoch), which, as well as Philo's work, was written in the first century AD, demonstrates an acquaintance with the same tradition, cf. slHen 31:1:[37]

> And I (i.e. God) created a garden in Edem, in the east, so that he (i.e. Adam) might keep the agreement and preserve the commandment.

Thus, both Barsabas's idea of applying the working and guarding from Gen. 2:15 to the righteousness and the commandments of God and the argumentation for doing so have antecedents in the Jewish exegesis of this biblical verse. This choice turns out to have some surprising consequences. As we have seen, Barsabas understands Paradise as the Church.[38] This understanding is very common in early Christian literature, its characteristic mark being the interpretation of the trees of the garden of Eden in their multiplicity as an allusion to the Church as the society of the holy ones. A conclusive example can be advanced

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(36) The English translation from the Armenian is quoted according to R. Marcus (trans.), *Philo, Supplement I, Questions and Answers on Genesis* (London—Cambridge, 1961) 9.

(37) The English translation according to F. I. Andersen, 2 (Slavonic Apocalypse of) Enoch (Late First Century A.D.) with the Appendix: 2 Enoch in *Merilo Pravednoe*, in: J. H. Charlesworth (ed.), *The Old Testament Pseudepigrapha*, vol. 1: *Apocalyptic Literature and Testaments* (New York, 1983) 152. About the dating of 2 Enoch cf.: "Das Hen(sl) ist somit in das I. Jh.n.Chr. noch vor dem Jahre 70 zu datieren." (Ch. Böttrich, *Das slavische Henochbuch* (Gütersloh, 1995) (Jüdische Schriften aus hellenistisch-römischen Zeit V 1–9) 813). For a list of rabbinical evidences, see T. Kronholm, *Motifs from Genesis 1–11 in the Genuine Hymns of Ephrem the Syrian with particular reference to the influence of the Jewish exegetical tradition* (Uppsala, 1978) (Coniectanea biblica Old Testament series 11) 76, n. 96.

(38) Cf. Barsab., Christ. 10: "If Paradise is the Church of God …" and Barsab., Christ. 3 (PO 41, 64,21, ed. van Esbroeck): "What is Paradise if not the Church of God?" (PO 41, 70,14, van Esbroeck).

from the 3rd century commentary on the book of Daniel by St. Hippolytus of Rome:[39]

> Ὅτι δὲ ὁ παράδεισος ἐν Ἐδὲμ ὑπὸ τοῦ Θεοῦ φυτευθεὶς εἰς τύπον καὶ εἰκόνα ἐγένετο τῆς ἐκκλησίας, σαφέστατά ἐστιν ἐπιγνῶναι τοὺς φιλομαθεῖς <...> Ἐδ<ὲ>μ οὖν <εἴ>ρηται τόπος τρυφῆς, τ<ουτέστ>ι<ν> παράδεισος· "κατὰ ἀνατολὰς" ἐφυτεύετο, ξύλοις ὡραίοις καὶ καρποῖς παντοδαποῖς κεκοσμημένος, ὥστε ἔστι νοῆσαι τὸ σύστημα τῶν δικαίων τόπον εἶναι ἅγιον, ἐν ᾧ ἡ ἐκκλησία ἐφυτεύετο. οὔτε γὰρ ψιλὸς τόπος δύναται καλεῖσθαι ἐκκλησία, <οὔτε> οἶκος διὰ λίθου καὶ πηλοῦ ᾠκοδομημένος· οὔτε αὐτὸς καθ᾽ ἑαυτὸν ἄνθρωπος δύναται καλεῖσθαι ἐκκλησία· οἶκος γὰρ καταλύεται καὶ ἄνθρωπος τελευτᾷ. τί οὖν ἐστιν ἐκκλησία; σύστημα ἁγίων ἐν ἀληθείᾳ πολιτευομένων. ἡ οὖν ὁμόνοια καὶ ἡ ἐπὶ τὸ αὐτὸ τῶν ἁγίων ὁδὸς τοῦτο γίνετα ἐκκλησία...
>
> Those who love learning can clearly realize that the Paradise in Eden planted by God became a type and an image of the Church <...> So Eden means "a place of delight," that is Paradise. It was planted "in the east" and adorned with fruit-bearing trees and fruits of every kind, so that one can understand that the congregation of the righteous ones is <that> holy place where the Church was planted. For neither bare land nor a house built of stones and clay can be called "the Church," not even a man by himself can be called a Church: since a house is exposed to destruction and a man is subject to death. What, then, is the Church? It is the community of the saints living according to the truth. Therefore, it is the unanimity and the common way of the saints in the unity which makes up the Church.

This imagery of the community as a group of plants cultivated by God has Biblical roots[40] and was explored in the Essene literature from Qumran, where it takes clear paradisaic traits: the members of the Qumran community are described as trees of life watered with the waters of holiness.[41] The Christian usage of this image belongs to the very center of the mystery of baptism: the person being baptized is spoken to as a tree which will be planted by God in His Garden,

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(39) Hipp., Dan. 1,18 (GCS Hippolyt I/1, 40,19–21; 42,6–15, Bonwetsch and Richard). About Church as society in St. Hippolytus' ecclesiology, see A. Hammel, *Kirche bei Hippolyt von Rome* (Gütersloh, 1951) (Beiträge zur Förderung christlicher Theologie 49) 42–46.

(40) Cf. e.g. Jes. 60:21.

(41) 1QH 8,4–13. Another pre-Christian evidence is PsSal. 14:2 (324,2. Viteau): ὁ παράδεισος τοῦ κυρίου, τὰ ξύλα τῆς ζωῆς, ὅσιοι αὐτοῦ.

i.e., the Church.[42] One of the earliest witnesses of this idea is found in the 11th Ode of Solomon with its unmistakable baptismal context, cf. OdSal 11:16.18–19 (52,35–36; 53,9–13, Charlesworth):[43]

> And He took me to His Paradise,
> Wherein is the wealth of the Lord's pleasure ...
> And I said, Blessed, O Lord, are they
> Who are planted in Thy land,
> And who have a place in Thy Paradise;
> And who grow in the growth of Thy trees,
> And have passed from darkness to light.

Keeping in mind this understanding of the trees of Paradise widely accepted in early Christian literature, we can state that the author of the "Word," while also understanding Paradise as the Church, uses a different Jewish tradition which interprets the task of working and guarding imposed upon Adam in Gen. 2:15 as having in mind not the plants of Paradise, but the commandments of the Lord. Because Adam's state in Paradise is transmitted to every Christian in ch. 10, not only the first

(42) Concerning baptism as the entry into Paradise in the early Christian period, cf.: "Que d'abord le baptême soit une entrée au Paradis, c'est un des thémes de la catéchèse baptismale élémentaire" (J. Daniélou, *Sacramentum futuri. Études sur les origins de la typologie biblique* (Paris, 1950) (Études de theologie historique 16); for patristic evidence, see Ibid., 16–17, Idem, Catéchèse pascale et retour au Paradis, *MD* 45 (1956) 100–103, Idem, *Liturgie und Bibel. Die Symbolik der Sakramente bei den Kirchenväter* (München, 1963) 42ff, and P. Miquel, Art. Paradis. Dans la tradition chrétienne, in: *DSp 12* (Paris, 1984) 193. The baptismal context is evident also in Barn. 11:10–11, where the trees planted by the river are associated with recently baptized Christians, though the Paradise motif is not explicit here. About the baptismal connotations in Barn. 11:10–11, see F. R. Prostmeier, *Der Barnabasbrief*, (Göttingen, 1999) (Kommentar zu den apostolischen Vätern 8) 430–432 and J. N. Rhodes, *The Epistle of Barnabas and the Deuteronomic Tradition. Polemics, Paraenesis, and the Legacy of the Golden-Calf Incident* (Tübingen, 2004) (WUNT 188) 63–64; for further literature on the question, see Ibid., 63 n. 96. Cf. also Or., Cant. III 8,9 (SC 376, 572,4–10, Brésard, and Crouzel): „In quo loco possumus nos catechumenos ecclesiae intelligere, super quos ex parte aliqua confirmatur ecclesia. Habet enim et in ipsis non parum fiduciae et spei plurimum quod et ipsi fiant aliquando arbores fructiferae, ut plantentur in paradiso Dei ab ipso agricola Patre. Ipse enim est qui plantat huiusmodi arbores in ecclesia Christi, quae est paradisus deliciarum…" and Or., ad Gen. 2:15–17 (TEG 1, 180,1–5, Petit).

(43) See J. Daniélou, Art. Odes de Salomon, in: *Dictionnaire de la bible. Supplément* 6 (Paris, 1960) 682–683. The translation by Charlesworth is quoted.

man but also everyone in the Church is seen by Barsabas as alone (Adam's wife doesn't play any role in the "Word") and confronted only with the tasks of being just and working at righteousness, cf. ch. 4:

> "He [God] put Adam in Paradise to work <it> and to guard <it>." … Adam was alone with <his> wife.

and ch. 10:

> If Paradise is the Church of God, you are Adam, the first carnal <man>. Put on the glory, be vigilant, don't offend the commandments, but work <at> righteousness …

One of the few Christian writers known to us who use at length this Jewish exegesis found in Barsabas[44] is St. Ephrem the Syrian in his commentary on Genesis 2:15.[45] St. Ephrem's ecclesiology in general is, however, in perfect agreement with the understanding of the Church as the community of the saints, cf. Ephr., de parad. 6,7,1 (CSCO 174 Syr.78, 21,1, Beck) and Ephr., de parad. 6,8,1 (CSCO 174 Syr. 78, 21,7, Beck):

He planted the magnificent garden, He built the pure Church.	ܢܨܒ ܠܗ ܐܠܗܐ ܓܢܬ ܥܕܢܐ ܒܢܐ ܠܗ ܐܠܗܐ ܥܕܬܐ ܕܟܝܐ
The congregation of the holy ones is a type of Paradise.	ܥܕܬܐ ܕܩܕܝܫܐ ܗܝ ܛܘܦܣ ܕܦܪܕܝܣܐ

Another not less surprising feature of the first ten chapters of Barsabas' work is his radical disconnection of Adam and Christ, which is the more unusual in a text dedicated to the types of Christ in the Old Testament. As we have seen, Adam is the type of every believer, not that of Christ.[46] This circumstance has probably to do with the total absence

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(44) The same idea can be found also in the Christian apologetic of the 2nd century St. Theophilus of Antioch, Autol. 2:24 (SC 20, 158,22–25, Bardy) as well as in Sever., creat. 5:5 (*PG* 56, 478,7–31, Montfaucon) and in Proc. G., ad Gen. 2:15 (*PG* 87.I, 160C–D, Mai) whereas Procopius partly depends on Severus. In all three cases, however, the conclusion about Adam's being alone in Paradise is not drawn and no ecclesiological implications from the exegesis in question are discernable.

(45) Ephr., comm. in Gen. 2:7 (CSCO 152, Syr. 71, 29,16–28, Tonneau).

(46) According to van Esbroeck, *Barsabé...*, 57–59, it is the author's polemics against the Ebionites which accounts for this odd absence of any reference to Christ in connection with Adam. In my opinion, van Esbroeck's arguments for the presence of such polemics in the work of Barsabas are less than convincing. The question deserves further investigation.

of any mention of Jews in chapters one to ten. The main concern of the author here is the appeal which is several times repeated to remain in Paradise, i.e. in the Church (ch. 3, 6 and 10). This practical attitude is in its turn not represented in the rest of Barsabas' text, which hints at the possibility of two different sources of chapters 1 to 10 and 11 to 44 being mechanically combined at the last phase of an editing process.

At this point, one could summarize that, on the one hand, the combination of the moderated polemics against the Jews together with leaving the door open for them to follow Christ's calling, and, on the other hand, the borrowing in a unique way from the Jewish exegetical traditions forms one of the remarkable characteristics of our text.

Finally, in conclusion I would like to add an observation. The role of the Jews pointed out above does not, of course, contradict van Esbroeck's localization of the original version of the "Word" as being Palestine. Some details, however, leave open the possibility of alternatives to the Palestinian localization. For example, commenting on Joseph's coloured robe from Gen. 37 in ch. 39, Barsabas says that it prefigured the incarnation of Christ who in His human body put on like a garment all nations believing in His name. He names as examples of these nations, "Jews and Gentiles: Assyrians and Persians."[47] Although the acquaintance with both latter nations is not impossible in Palestine, their mention might sound more natural closer to the borders of the Persian empire, somewhere in Syria or Mesopotamia.

SUMMARY

Die Veröffentlichung des „Wortes des hl. Barsabas über unseren Erlöser Jesus Christus und über die Kirchen" in 1982 wurde in der einschlägigen Fachliteratur kaum wahrgenommen. Indes laden sowohl der Inhalt dieses Werkes (archaisch anmutende Auslegung des Buches Genesis auf Christus und die Kirche) als auch seine von dem Herausgeber M. van Esbroeck angenommene Datierung und Verortung (2. Jh., Jerusalem) zu einer eingehenden Beschäftigung mit der Schrift des Barsabas ein. Die vorliegende Studie liefert neue Beobachtungen, die für das hohe Alter des Dokuments (möglicherweise spätes 2. – frühes 3. Jh.) sprechen, und versucht die Stellung des Autor gegenüber den Juden zu bestimmen. Die Analyse der Exegese des Barsabas lässt auf ein Milieu schließen, in dem die Christen mit paganen Hintergründen zwar überwiegen, die jüdische Präsenz andererseits eine bedeutende Rolle spielt.

(47) Barsab., Christ. 39 (PO 41, 102,18–19, van Esbroeck).

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BOOK INQUISITION IN SIXTEENTH AND SEVENTEENTH CENTURY RUSSIA

At the turn of the fifteenth and sixteenth century Russian culture encountered the issue of Inquisition as sanctioned by law, and a systematic method for prosecuting and punishing heretics, sorcerers, and other heterodox-minded people. The society had to closely face the issue due to the spread of the Novgorod-Moscow heresy that became very influential and had the support of the princely power. As is well known, the heresy was opposed by Archbishop Gennady of Novgorod and Joseph of Volotsk (Joseph of Volokolamsk). In this fight, they won a victory at the Council of 1504, when the heretics were convicted and burned in Moscow. But even several years before the Council, Archbishop Gennady held in Novgorod a show execution of heretics. Caps were put on the heads of the convicts (the European symbol and attribute of heresy), which then were burned on the heads of the victims.[1]

The execution ignited polemics in Church circles. In response to unknown opponents Joseph of Volotsk composed the "Treatise on the Condemnation of the Heretics,"[2] which defended the necessity and legitimacy of the execution. A reply Epistle by Vassian Patrikeev was written on behalf of the "Transvolga hermits."[3] Vassian denied the Church the right to torture and kill sinners. He believed that repentant sinners must be forgiven, and that those unrepentant should be kept in prison.

It is important to note that Gennady of Novgorod justified his inquisitorial actions by referring to the actions of the "shpanskij" (Spanish) King.

Did these inquisitional attitudes, that obviously were expressed by a portion of learned men, have an impact on the attitude toward reading and possessing heretical and magical books? We can get the answer to this question from an analysis of the Index of false books and

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(1) С. М. Соловьев, *История России с древнейших времен*, т. 5 (Москва, 1961) 274.

(2) *Библиотека литературы Древней Руси*, т. 9 (Санкт-Петербург, 2000) 184–207.

(3) Ibid., 216–221.

other materials, including those that were a part of the *Skitskij Ustav* (the Scete Rule) of the Russian edition.[4]

Since Gennady himself viewed his actions in a wider European context, prior to the analysis of Russian Slavic materials it is important to recall what were the attitudes of the West-European Inquisition towards false books.

The history of burning books in Europe due to censorship had a very long history. In 435 Emperor Theodosius II and Valentinian III ordered to have burned all the books of the Nestorians. In France in the thirteenth century Jewish literature was actively burned, in the first place the Talmud books. Starting in 1376 according to the Bull of Pope Gregory XI, the Inquisition started to address books. In the fifteenth century each person who had a heretical book in his possession and did not turn it over to the Inquisition within an eight day period, was suspected of heresy.

Yet such actions began to be performed on an especially large scale later, in the fifteenth century, in the same Spain that served as a model for Gennady. Starting in the beginning of the sixteenth century, there was introduced strict censorship of books and other publications. In 1546 the Spanish Inquisition started to periodically publish more extensive indexes of prohibited books than the indexes of the papal curia. The publication of each new index entailed purging of all public and private libraries again and again with no exceptions for even the most high-ranking people. Thus, in 1602 the books of the Queen's spiritual father were purged.[5]

The book inquisition in Spain evolved in such a manner, and, obviously, such a development seemed desirable for the Russian leaders

(4) We use the term "*Skitskij Ustav* of the Russian edition" for a stable collection of the chapters with monastic content that was shaped in the Old Russian literary tradition in the end of the 15th C. The *Skitskij Ustav* of this type that was included into a well known collection of Cyril of Belozersk (for the publication, see Г. М. Прохоров, *Энциклопедия русского игумена XIV–XV вв. Сборник преподобного Кирилла Белозерского* (Санкт-Петербург, 2003) 158–165) was used as the initial part of this collection. Presently the *Skitskij Ustav* of the Russian edition is being prepared for publication (by me and E. V. Belyakova) according to the Ms. Russian National Library, Pogodin Collection 270. The Index of true and false books from this manuscript has been published in И. М. Грицевская, *Индексы истинных книг* (Санкт-Петербург, 2003) 174–176.

(5) Г. Ч. *Ли*, *История инквизиции в средние века*, т. 1 (Санкт-Петербург, 1911) 348–349; т. 2, 572; т. 3, 298–303.

of Gennady's type. The traces of such sentiments are reflected in the indices of true and false books and in some other materials from the fourteenth to the seventeenth centuries.

An Index forming a part of the *Skitskij Ustav* of the Russian edition that we marked as belonging to the second brief recension (the *Ustavnaya* group)[6] contains a recommendation on the burning of false books introduced in the preamble to the actual list of books. The following table provides a comparison of the original rule from the Kormchaya Book of the Old Slavonic edition and a recension of the same rule from the Index.

Comparison of the 60th Apostolic Canon and Canons from the Indexes of the false books from the Brief recensions:

60th Apostolic Canon according to the Efrem Kormchaya Kniga[7]	*From the introduction to the Index of false books*
Иже лженаписаныя нечьстивыих книг яко святы в церкви почитает на пагоубоу людьм и причтоу. да извержется.	Аще ли кто ложна писаниа книжнаа яко свята в церкви предлагает и почитает нечестивыа яко святы на соблазн всем людем, аще причетник да извержется сана, а книги да сожгутся.
The one that honors falsely written impious books in the church as if they are holy, for the destruction of people and clergy, let him be defrocked.	If someone offers false writings in the church and honors them as holy for the temptation of all people, if he is a clergyman, let him be defrocked, and the books be burnt.

We can see that the ordinance to burn the books did not exist in the Apostolic Canon which was the source for the Canon from the Index of true and false books. Yet, it is important to note that there existed a Synodical canon that recommended burning false writings — the sixty third canon of the Sixth Council proposed to commit to fire false "martyrologies." Incidentally, this canon was included separately into a collection of canons appended to the cited index and entitled "Canon 63 of the Sixth Council."[8]

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(6) Грицевская, *Индексы истинных книг*... 22–37.

(7) В. Н. Бенешевич, *Древне-славянская Кормчая XIV титулов без толкований*, т. 1, вып. 1 (Санкт-Петербург, 1906) 74.

(8) "Canon 63 of the Sixth Council. Those treatises that were truly written by the enemies and that dishonor Christ's martyrs and drive to disbelief the

However, already in one of the brief versions of the *Skitskij Ustav* of the Russian edition that adjoin the *Okozritel'nyj Ustav* of the early seventeenth century (State Historical Museum, Synodalnaya Collection 953, hereafter: Collection of Jeremiah of Kazan), the recommendations are more stern. In the very end of the Index, after the 63d Canon of the Sixth Council, the text is added: "…we decree not to read [the books] in church before the people, **but commit to fire those who accept them**,[9] or those who attend them as true, we condemn. Deliver us, oh Word and Son of God, from all these, take us away from the net of the devil by the prayers of the One who gave birth to Thee and all the saints. Amen (…в церкви пред людьми не повелеваем чести, **но та убо огневи предати сия ж приемлющая**, или яко истиннымъ внимающих проклинаем. От сих всех избави нас сыне божии слове изми от сети диаволе молитвами тебе рождшиа и всех святых. Аминь)." Thus it is suggested not only to burn the book but also to execute the owner of the book.

In order to understand the meaning of this reading, we should briefly describe the whole "Collection of Jeremiah of Kazan." This Codex is a convolute that contains the *Okozritel'nyj Ustav* in its first part, and a brief recension of the *Skitskij Ustav* of the Russian edition[10] with

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listeners, we decree not to read before the people in church but to commit to fire. But we condemn those people that accept them or attend them as true. Deliver us, oh Word and Son of God, from all these, take us away from the net of the devil by the prayers of the One who gave birth to Thee and all the saints. Amen [Иже от враг истинне списаныя мучеником словеса, яко да христовы мученики безчествуют и к неверию приводят слышащаа, в церкви перед людьми не повелеваем чести, но та убо огневи предати. Сия же приемлющая или яко истинным внимающих проклинаем, от сих всех избави нас Сыне Божий Слове, изыми от сети диаволя молитвами тебе рожшиа и всех святых. Аминь]" (see И. М. Грицевская, *Индексы истинных книг* (Санкт-Петербург, 2003) 175).

(9) Similar to the famous phrase "execute you shall not, forgive" the meaning of this text entirely depends on the punctuation mark. This text can be also read as: "…but commit to the fire, while those who accept them or attend them as true, we condemn." In this publication punctuation follows the manuscript.

(10) The layout of the book is *in octavo*. Watermarks of the second part belong to the end of the 20s — beginning of the 30s of the seventeenth century (*Филиграни XVII в. по рукописным источникам. ГИМ. Каталог* (Москва, 1988) nos. 100, 520, 521). We could not clearly identify the watermark of the first part but it seems that it looks like a coat of arms close in its outline to the

additions. One of these additions is the "Private Rule of Prayer for a Monk Given by Jeremiah the Archbishop of Kazan to his Disciples while Living as Archimandrite in the Monastery of the Divine Transfiguration" (fol. 355v), which is why we entitled the Collection: the "Collection of Jeremiah of Kazan."

It is known that when the Archbishop Jeremiah of Kazan (d. 1581) was young, he was a novice of Theodosius, the Archbishop of Novgorod when the latter lived in the Joseph of Volokolamsk monastery after leaving his see. We also know that Theodosius gathered around himself a small circle of Scribes, whose members had several collections. These collections included Novgorod materials, evidently brought by Theodosius from Novgorod.[11]

Thus it seems fair to believe that both parts of the Codex can be traced to the circle of Archbishop of Jeremiah, the disciple of Archbishop Theodosius. It is possible that the first part was created shortly after the death of Jeremiah by his disciples, and the second part was written by the same people, but at a later date.

Thus, changes in the Index of true and false books of this Codex might have been directly influenced by two traditions — of Gennady and of Joseph of Volotsk. In our view, the "collection of Jeremiah" appeared within the framework of these traditions, and severe punishment for the heretics was their characteristic trait.

We relate the further development of the Index, in particular the emergence of the extended recension of the Index, to the Joseph of Volokolamsk monastery.[12] Here the norm of burning books and executing their owners does not depend on punctuation marks and sounds quite clear: "If a certain spiritual father knows that he has such a one among

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mark that belongs to the document of 1609 (E. Laucevičius, *Popierius Lietuvoje XV–XVIII a.* (Vilnius, 1967) no. 1316). Thus the first part of the convolute is earlier than the second. The state of its first and last pages shows that for a certain time it existed separately. This part was copied by the same but very unstable hand.

(11) А. И. Плигузов, *Полемика в русской церкви первой трети XVI столетия* (Москва, 2002) 354; О. А. Абеленцева, Формулярник Новгородского архиепископа Феодосия (РНБ, Q.XVII.50) и его рукописная традиция в XVI–XVII вв. in: *Труды отдела древнерусской литературы* 53 (2003) (Санкт-Петербург) 122–158.

(12) И. М. Грицевская, Индексы истинных и ложных книг в Волоколамском монастыре, in: *Книжные центры Древней Руси* (in print). For the text edition of the Index, see Грицевская, *Индексы истинных книг*... 179–183.

his [spiritual] sons, and he knows such things through his repentance and [yet] gives him indulgence in such things accepting him for frequent repentance without penance and without banning him from the Church or himself does the same above-mentioned heretical sorcery, let him be defrocked according to the rules of the Holy Fathers, and be condemned with the above-mentioned heretics, and let the writings **be burned on his body** (Аще которыи отець духовныи. ведаа у себе таковаго въ сынех. а ведаа то в покаании его. иметь ему в том потаковие деати. приемля его на частое покаание без опитемии и без отлученаа цьрковнаго. или имет самъ тож творити преж речннаа сиа еретичскаа влъхвованиа. да изврьжется сана по правилом святых отець. и съ прежреченными еретикы. с теми да будет проклят. а написаннаа та **на теле его да съжгутся).”**

Note that “on his body” in some copies had a variant “on his forehead.”

The extended recension was extremely widespread, had many variants and is known from a large number of manuscripts.[13]

Just to show that this norm was widespread, we should note that there existed one more Index of false books known from manuscripts from the fifteenth century. This was the spurious canon of the Chalcedon Council entitled: “The Rule of the Chalcedon council concerning uncorrected books that should not be read by the Orthodox since the heretics wrote from their own mind and not from the Holy Spirit” (the earliest recension indicated by A. I. Yatsimirskij[14] — Russian State Library, Collection of the Troitse-Sergieva Lavra 756, 15th C., fols. 378v–379v; we used another manuscript — Synodal 569, 16th C., fols. 265v–267v). Here we have the following instruction: “if anyone will have a heretical writing in their possession and believe its sorcery, let him be condemned with all the heretics, and **let the books be burned on the top of their heads** (иже кто имет еретическое писание у себя дръжати и влъхвованию их веровати со всеми еретики да будут прокляти. а **книги на темени их сожещи)**.”

The phrasing demanding punishment with fire for reading false books passed to the Index of the printed *Cyrill Book* (Moscow Printing Yard, 1644), created on the basis of the Index from the extended recension. The first Russian printed Index ends with the words: “If spiritual

(13) Грицевская, *Индексы истинных книг*... 59–62.

(14) А. И. Яцимирский, *Библиографический обзор апокрифов в южнославянской и русской письменности*, вып. 1 (Петроград, 1921) 9–10.

fathers know that they have such spiritual children, and know such things through their repentance and [yet] give them indulgence in such things accepting them for frequent repentance without penance and without banning them from the Church or commit the same above-mentioned heretical sorcery, according to the rules of the Holy Fathers let them be defrocked, and be condemned with the above mentioned heretics, and **let the** writings **be burned on their bodies** (аще котории отцы духовнии, ведают у себе таковых детеи духовных, слыша от нихъ в покаянии ихъ, и имитъ имъ в том потаковы деяти приемля их часто на покаяние без епитемеи, и без отлучениа цьрковнаго. или имитъ сами тоже творити прежереченная еретическая волхвования, то по правиломъ святыхъ отецъ да извергутся сана и с прочими еретики да будутъ прокляти **а писанная на телесехъ ихъ да сожгутся)**."

It is difficult to say how consistently and regularly all these rules were followed in the early period, but we have evidence that they were in fact implemented in the seventeenth century. Gregory Katoshikhin thus writes in his book *On Russia during the reign of Aleksey Mikhailovich*: "They burn a person alive for blasphemy, for church robbery, for sodomy, for sorcery, for black magic, for distorting books when someone starts to interpret [them] in an offensive manner against the Apostles and the Prophets and the Holy Fathers with blasphemy (жгут живого за богохулство, за церковную татьбу, за содомское дело, за волховство, за чернокнижство, за книжное преложение, кто учнет вновь толковать воровски против Апостолов и Пророков и Святых Отцов с похулением)."[15]

The way the issue was handled, however, was far from being acceptable to all, even among the monks of Joseph of Volokolamsk monastery. The men of learning who copied the Indexes containing this rule, did not always treat it without explicit or implicit polemics. Thus, in the *Sbornik* of the State Historical Museum, Synodal collection 569, immediately after the quoted "Rule of the Chalcedon Council…" at fols. 267v–268r an entry is located: "The Bishop should punish with love and not with torment."

The extended recension that was generally well-spread in the Volokolamsk collections, was not always copied until its very end, and sometimes the last paragraph was simply omitted. Thus the phrase

(15) *О России в царствование Алексея Михайловича.* Сочинение Григория Котошихина (Санкт-Петербург, 1840) 91–92.

about burning is absent from the collection of the Ryazan Hierarch Leonid who was made monk in the Joseph of Volotsk monastery before 1554 and who was an ardent follower of Joseph (Russian State Library, Volokolamsk Collection 566).

The peculiar characteristic of punishment — the burning of the heretical book on the body (or on the head) of the heretic is notable. Such a punishment is not mentioned in the known history of the Western European Inquisition. Yet it is this punishment that was imposed on the heretics by Gennady — as was said above, he burned caps on the heads of the sinners.

Incidentally, vague memories of this kind of penalty for deviation from the official ideology existed in the milieu of the Old Believers until very recently. For example, in 1997 the words of an Old Believer of the Fedoseev Consent from the village of Sejma of the Nizhny Novgorod region was recorded: "When my great grandfather Ivan Kozyrev was alive, the authorities burned a «tonsure» on the heads of all the villagers. This was the punishment for Old Belief. The Raskolniks did not have passports — this is how they could be seen right away ."[16]

Apparently this type of punishment went back to the ancient monastic Penitentiary "Precepts of the holy fathers concerning monks", that was often copied in Russian manuscripts. The recensions of this very popular in the Russian literary tradition Penitentiary were published many times,[17] and its oldest known copies go back to the 13th century.[18] The analysis of the work by S. Smirnov points to its Greek sources and relates it to the group of the "bad nomocanons" which,

(16) И. М. Грицевская, История и современность сейминского старообрядчества, in: *Мир старообрядчества: история и современность*, вып. 5 (Москва, 1999) 217–242. It seems that the respondent who did not possess real knowledge about the phenomenon yet who was raised in the literary traditions of Old Believers and Old Believers' resistance to the authorities, thus reinterprets the custom which Nizhny Novgorod Old Believers of the 19th century had of shaving "tonsures" on their heads.

(17) С. Смирнов, *Материалы для истории древнерусской покаянной дисциплины* (Москва, 1912) 32–38; М. И. Горчаков, К истории епитимийных Номоканонов (пенитенциалов) Православной Церкви, in: *Из отчета о XVI присуждении наград графа Уварова* (Санкт-Петербург, 1874) 98–102 (review of the book: А. С. Павлов, *Номоканон при Большом Требнике* (Одесса, 1872)).

(18) Ustyug Kormchaya of the 13th C. (Rumyantsev 230, fols. 122–126); Troitskij Sbornik (Tr. 12, fols. 49–52); Novgorod Kormchaya, 1280s (Synodal 137, fols. 547–549).

according to the researcher, are mentioned in the Indices of the false books. The same Penitentiary is included into the *Skitskij Ustav* of the Russian edition.

The Penitentiary under consideration is extremely rigorist and includes very harsh punishments. They are particularly harsh when relating to violations of property regulations in a coenobitic monastery. Thus it says: "if the Superior Father finds in the cell of the monk a garment or a boot or up to a copper coin — let it be burned on the monk's head." In other place the Penitentiary says the following: "if gold or silver will be found [on a runaway monk] — let it be burned on his head. If he does not die, the penance requires 40 days before communion and 25 prostrations a day for 6 years (Аще обрящют у него [у беглого монаха] злато и сребро — да съжгут ему на главе его. Аще не умрет опитемьи — 6 лет причастие по 40 днех поклон 25 на день)."[19] Perhaps, it was exactly this Penitentiary that provided Gennady and other figures from his circle with the type of punishment which they applied to the heretics, as well as with the idea for punishing scribes involved in the dissemination of false writings.

To what extent is the idea of identifying a punishment for reading books and for property violations legitimate?

Demanding punishment with fire is known to us from the example of another writing included in the already quoted *Skitskij Ustav* of the Russian edition (Russian National Library, Pogodin Collection, fols. 469v–470v). This writing is another spurious rule of the Chalcedon Council.[20] It is marked in the manuscripts as "the rule of the Holy Fathers in Chalcedon at the Fifth (sic!) Council concerning those who offend the Holy Church." Besides the *Skitskij Ustav* of the Russian edition, the rule was included into a great number of copies starting with the fourteenth century. It was included twice (!) into such works as *Sofijskaya* and *Chudovskaya* Kormchaya Books (we should recall that the

(19) In accordance with Old Russian penitential discipline, this passage should be probably understood as follows: the prostrations should be made every day for 6 years, and communion can be taken only once a year at Easter Day after 40 days of Lent.

(20) *Российская историческая библиотека*, т. 6 (Санкт-Петербург, 1880) 145. The spurious rule of the Chalcedon Council is published here according to the Collection of the 14th C. (State Historical Museum, Chudov Collection 21, fol. 95). For another edition, see В. Н. Бенешевич, *Сборник памятников по истории церковного права, преимущественно русского, кончая временем Петра Великого*, вып. 1 (Петроград, 1914) 74–77.

researcher of the *Chudovskaya* Kormchaya connected it with the circle of Gennady of Novgorod[21]). The rule says that the people who persist in their claim to Church property should be "burned by fire."

The origin of the spurious rule remains unclear, but it seems obvious that it was in use among the monks of the Gennady's and Joseph's circle.

In fact, we know of two spurious rules, allegedly accepted at the Fourth Ecumenical Council (at Chalcedon) concerning Church property and false books. Both rules in the case of perseverance in sin insist on the same form of punishment — fire. It can be suggested that these two rules emerged from a single source. Unfortunately, we cannot tell anything more precise about this source except noting its typical inquisitorial attitudes. It is possible that both rules appeared still in Byzantium or came from the southern Slavs, and only further research can clarify the issue.

In conclusion, the scribes of the fifteenth and sixteenth centuries were not united on the issue of punishment for reading false books. The range of opinions was very wide — from burning books and approval of painful penalty for reading and disseminating them to implicit or open debate with this point of view.

As a rule the scribes close to the circles of Gennady of Novgorod and Joseph of Volotsk called for more strict penalties. The issue of reading false books was on the same level as the issue of property of coenobitic monasteries, and trespassers of the prescribed norms on both issues were perceived as deserving to be cleansed with fire.

In terms of its origin this view is only partly related to the Western influence — to the desire to follow in the footsteps of the "shpanskij" King. There also existed Byzantine sources, in particular, the monastic Penitentiary known from ancient times, as well as purely Russian precedents (for example we know that in 1277 the Novgorod people burned four sorcerers on the courtyard of Yaroslav[22]).

A rigid view on reading false books seems to have become dominant and was fixed both in Church law and in actual penal practices in the seventeenth century.

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(21) Р. Г. Пихоя, Пермская Кормчая, in: *Общественное сознание, книжность и литература периода феодализма* (Новосибирск, 1990) 171–175; idem, Пермская Кормчая, *Исторический архив* 1 (2001) 187–210.

(22) *Никоновская Летопись*, т. 10 (Санкт-Петербург, 1862).

SUMMARY

The article reviews normative documents pertinent to apocryphal, heretical and magical books in Old Russian society. Since the issue became extremely important in the late 15th and the early 16th century, some texts on punishment for reading and dissemination of such books appear in the *milieu* of Archbishop Gennady of Novgorod and Joseph of Volokolamsk. Thus, burning such books and the owners is prescribed in the recensions of the *Indices of True and False Books* going back to the Volokolamsk monastery and in the Russian recension of the *Skitskij Ustav* (Scete Rule) related to the circle of Gennady of Novgorod. The same punitive norms are contained in a spurious canon on the "uncorrected books" of the Council of Chalcedon. This canon was probably of Bulgarian origin, but was extensively copied in Russia. In the sources reviewed, the issue of the "false books" was considered as important as the status of the coenobitic monastery's propriety, and the transgressions of the corresponding norms in both instances were considered as liable to be purified by fire.

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SOME OBSERVATIONS ON THE THEOLOGICAL ANTHROPOLOGY OF ISAAC OF NINEVEH AND ITS SOURCES

1. Introduction

The anthropological outline of Isaac of Nineveh (7th century) is based primarily on Theodore of Mopsuestia and Evagrius Ponticus, authors who are well known to represent very different, if not contradictory, anthropologies: Antiochian and Alexandrian, respectively. Isaac of Nineveh belongs to the large tradition of East Syriac mystics that flourished from the middle of the seventh century through the end of the ninth century and he is one of the most original theoretical minds among the exponents of this literary movement, like John of Dalyatha, Dadisho Qatraya, Joseph Hazzaya, etc. With regard to its relation to the Alexandrian and Antiochian legacies of Christian thought, this movement as a whole is characterised by a fertile synthesis of the thought of Evagrius Ponticus and of Theodore of Mopsuestia. While the latter had been the main christological and exegetical authority in the East Syriac Church since the last decades of the 5th century, the former became only gradually an authority in matters of ascetical practice and spirituality. It was probably the School of Nisibis, where most of the East Syriac bishops and high clergy received their theological education in the 6th century, that imparted to these two authors such outstanding authority.[1] Babai the Great, in the introduction to his Commentary on Evagrius' *Capita Gnostica*, gives us a testimony of their authority by referring to Theodore and Evagrius as "teachers of

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(1) This article is a revised form of a paper presented at the "Third Annual Archbishop Iakovos Graduate Student Conference in Patristic Studies" organized by the Stephen and Catherine Pappas Patristic Institute of the Holy Cross Greek Orthodox School of Theology in Brookline, Massachusetts (March 15–17, 2007).

Cf. A. H. Becker, *Fear of God and the Beginning of Wisdom: the School of Nisibis and Christian Scholastic Culture in Late Antique Mesopotamia* (Philadelphia, 2006) 113–126 and 175–178.

the church."[2] Of course, the substantial differences between these two theologies could not have escaped the attention of the best East Syriac theologians, who tried in fact to mediate between them.[3]

This short article intends to contribute to a better understanding of the explicit and, mostly, implicit answers that Isaac of Nineveh gives to the question of what a human being is. In order to understand Isaac's own thesis one would have to investigate the way in which he modifies his main theological sources, namely Theodore and Evagrius, and uses them to compose a new synthesis. In this article I will try to make only a rough sketch of his synthetical method of working, which I intend to investigate further on,[4] at the risk of sacrificing accuracy and completeness. Nevertheless, I hope to focus on the most important elements of Isaac's anthropology.

2. The Character of Isaac's Anthropology

Isaac of Nineveh considers Man as a being whose existence is based on his relationship with God. In Isaac's thought Man's constitutive components, according to the common concepts of Late Antiquity, i.e. a body and a two-part or three-part soul, become, as it were, different means of communication in the all-inclusive relationship between God and humans, losing thus their "ontological independence." Accordingly Isaac is not especially interested in defining these components or describing in an exact manner the activities assigned to each. On the contrary, he is rather inconsistent in using anthropological or psycho-

(2) Babai the Great, *Commentary on the Capita Gnostica* (W. Frankenberg (ed.), *Evagrius Ponticus*, AGWG.PH NS XIII.2 (Berlin, 1912), 17).

(3) L. Abramowski, "Der Stupor, der das Gebet unterbricht" — Evagrius, Cent. Suppl. 30, in Übersetzung, Original (?) und Interpretation, in: M. Tamcke, A. Heinz (Hrsg.), *Zu Geschichte, Theologie, Liturgie und Gegenwartslage der syrischen Kirchen* (Münster—Hamburg—London, 2000) 15–32, here: 25.

(4) A thorough investigation of this subject would need to overcome a number of essential difficulties: firstly, Isaac did not expose his anthropology or his theological thought on the whole in a clearly structured dogmatic treatise, but rather in numerous mostly short passages scattered in his voluminous Oeuvre, so that the researcher has to reconstruct the outline of his "system" by comparing his sometimes seemingly inconsistent statements; secondly, the anthropologies of both of his precursors have not been sufficiently explored, in spite of the progress of research in patristics in the last 4–5 decades, one of the reasons being the precarious state of the surviving sources (on these difficulties as regards Theodore of Mopsuestia, see F. G. McLeod, *The Image of God in the Antiochene Tradition* (Washington, D.C., 1999) 63).

logical notions and, as observed by Sebastian Brock, does not follow the terminological distinctions that had already been established by the Syriac mystical authors of earlier centuries, whose work Isaac had read.[5] That's why it would seem inadequate to begin studying Isaac's anthropology by analysing the role he assigned to the mentioned components of the human being. Therefore, bearing in mind Isaac's view that the existence of the human being consists in his relationship with God, the first question to be posed should rather be: what are the milestones in the relationship between Man and God? Only a preliminary answer to this question could help answer the question of Man's Being.[6] In Isaac's work, as well as in a significant part of patristic literature, the answer to the former question should be sought primarily in the interpretation of three main points: Man's creation as God's image, the fall of Man as parting from his Creator, and the eschatological salvation that has already occurred in Christ and is, at the same time, still to be expected. Isaac rarely writes on the creation of humans in an explicit manner, as is expected from a work of ascetical monastic literature. However, it is quite clear that he considers the creation of Man as a second stage of the Creator's work, subordinated to the creation of the immaterial angels.[7] But this subordination — applying, remarkably enough, only to this present world — is a subordination within an ontological communion of humans and angels, since both are conceived of as being noetic natures. Isaac refers to the angels after almost every general statement about humans, underlining thus this ontological communion between them.[8]

(5) S. Brock, "Introduction" to his translation: Isaac of Nineveh (Isaac the Syrian), "*The Second Part*", *Chapters IV–XLI* (CSCO 555) (from now on cited as: Brock) XVII.

(6) Cf. S. Chialà, *Dall' ascesi eremitica alla misericordia infinita — Ricerche su Isacco di Ninive e la sua fortuna* (Firenze, 2002) 150–158; cf. J. B. Chabot, *De S. Isaaci Ninivitae vita, scriptis et doctrina* (Louvain, 1892) 73–79.

(7) See II, 3.2.7. The Latin number refers to the "Second Part" of Isaac's works, the first Arabic number to the number of the Discourse (the "Second Part" includes 41 Discourses); as the third Discourse of the "Second Part" contains 4 units with one hundred Capita Gnostica each, the second Arabic number refers to these 4 units, while the third Arabic number refers to the number of the cited Capitum. When the cited passage comes from the Discourses 4–41 of the "Second Part," that have been edited and translated from Sebastian Brock, I cite his translation (see footnote 5); when the cited passage comes from the Discourses 1–4, that haven't been edited yet, the translation is mine.

(8) See e.g. II, 3.1.35; II, 3.1.43; II, 3.2.71.

3. Isaac's Anthropology and its Sources

3.1. The Influence of Theodore of Mopsuestia: Creation and Fall

According to Isaac, humans were created mortal already in the first place: "*We are not mortal because we sinned; but because we are mortal, we fall into sin. The power of freedom stands between the path of life and the path of death; and one can only chose one of these two ways.*"[9] This is a thesis of Theodore of Mopsuestia,[10] which enjoyed broad reception among East Syriac theologians.[11] Isaac defends this even against the letter of the Bible: "*Furthermore, the Scripture says that death would not have been introduced to our nature, if Adam had not sinned, although it is obvious that humans were created mortal already before they sinned, as testified by their natural constitution.*"[12] In what sense does the "*natural constitution*" of humans testify to their mortality? Isaac's view on this point can only be reconstructed on the basis of the following passage from the surviving fragments of Theodore's commentary on Genesis: "*The* [corporal] *form of masculine and feminine* [humans] *shows by itself, that* [God] *was equipping Man for the mortal life, as this form demonstrates from the very beginning, potentially, the making of children.*"[13]

In developing further his thought on the biblical connection between sin and death, Isaac also interprets the biblical narration of the fall of Man in a way that is considerably different from the letter of the Scripture: "*It was not disobedience which introduced death to the house of Adam, nor did transgression remove them from Paradise, for it is clear that God did not create Adam and Eve to be in Paradise, just a small portion of the earth; rather, they were going to subjugate the entire earth.*"[14] And how should one interpret the biblical narration, in which the expulsion from Paradise and the curse of death are explicitly presented as

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(9) II, 3.3.2.

(10) See the Greek fragments of Theodore's commentary on Genesis: *PG* 66, 633–646, esp. 641.

(11) See e.g. Ph. Gignoux, Introduction, in: Narsai, *Homélies sur la création* (Turnhout, 1968) (*PO* 34, 3/4) 501–502.

(12) II, 3.4.89.

(13) See *PG* 66, 641; cf. A. Ziegenaus, *Das Menschenbild des Theodor von Mopsuestia* (München, 1963) 65–81; cf. A. Vööbus, Regarding the Theological Anthropology of Theodore of Mopsuestia, *Church History* 32 (1964) 115–124, here 117–118; cf. J. Dewart, *The Theology of Grace of Theodore of Mopsuestia* (Washington, D.C., 1971) 37–40.

(14) II, 39.4 (Brock, 164).

God's punishment for Adam's and Eve's disobedience? According to Isaac — who is once again following Theodore,[15] — God acts in this narration like a teacher, who hides the truth from his immature pupils for their own good: "*Just as He decreed death, under the appearance of a sentence, for Adam because of sin, and just as He showed that the sin existed by means of the punishment — even though this punishment was not His real aim: He showed it as though it was something which Adam would receive as a repayment for his wrong, but He hid its true mystery, and under the guise of something to be feared, He concealed His eternal intention concerning death and what His wisdom was aiming at: even though this matter might be grievous, ignominious and hard at first, nevertheless in truth it would be the means of transporting us to that wonderful and glorious world. Without it, there would be no way of crossing over from this world and being there.*"[16]

God's acts are "pedagogically" hiding the truth in a double sense: He makes humans believe, firstly, that they are being punished for their disobedience with the death penalty, and, secondly, that death is terrible. One should mention here the traditional patristic view of death as a necessary evil, which is good inasmuch as it does not allow sin to be perpetuated.[17] Nevertheless, Isaac's view differs significantly from the traditional one, as it considers death as the means of entering the future world of eschatological fulfillment, lending thus to death a definitively positive accent that prevails over the negative one.

This interpretation of God's action towards humans as a sort of "pedagogical" tactic is however not limited to the narration of Genesis — or to the Bible altogether, — but can be expanded to God's revelation towards human beings in this world as a whole: "*So you should see that, while God's caring is guiding us all the time to what He wishes for us, as things outwardly appear it is from us that He takes the occasion for providing, His aim being to carry out by every means what He has intended for our advantage. All this is because He knew beforehand our inclination towards all sorts of wickedness, and so He cunningly made the harmful consequences which would result from this into a means of entry to the future*

(15) See the summary of Theodore's "Contra defensores peccati originalis" (CPG 3860) given by Photius of Constantinople: R. Henry (ed.), Photius, *Bibliothèque*, t. II (Paris, 1960) 177–183, here esp. 179.

(16) Ibid.

(17) See e.g. Π. Νελλας, *Ζῶον Θεούμενον — Προοπτικὲς γιὰ μιὰ ὀρθόδοξη κατανόηση τοῦ ἀνθρώπου* (Ἀθήναι, 2000) 70–72.

good and the setting right of our corrupted state. These are things which are known only to him."[18]

The creation of human beings on an ontological level inferior to that of angels, the incompleteness of their existence, marked by mortality, and even sinfulness, understood as a consequence of mortality, were necessary in order to enable humans (as well as angels) to perceive the true magnitude of the world-to-come and realize, thanks to the insight into their own sinfulness, that they have not earned this magnitude themselves and do not deserve it in any way.[19] Isaac does not argue any further for this conception of the history of creation, which is at least partially inspired by Theodore. The reader is probably supposed to accept it as the mystery of the present world; in the future world, says Isaac, an explanation of this mystery will be simply superfluous.[20]

From this basic thesis of God's "mono-causality" in the history of creation, Isaac, with admirable consistency, draws the following conclusions concerning human existence:

1. Even "*the inclination to evil/to sin*"[21] in the human being (and in the angels) is an integral part of God's plan. The passions contesting the ascetics are consequently "a service to God," with the exception of pride, understood apparently as a refusal to conform with God's plan for the world.[22] Nevertheless, a person is always responsible for his decision to translate a sinful inclination into action.

2. Free will, which was described by church fathers like Gregory of Nyssa as being the peak of God's image in human beings and has been passionately defended also by Theodore of Mopsuestia against Jerome's doctrine of the original sin, plays only a minor role in Isaac's anthropology.[23] As a matter of fact, there are several passages in his surviving works that seem to negate, more or less openly, its importance.[24] In two passages of his *Capita Gnostica*, which put up for discussion the relation between human ascetical effort and divine Grace, Isaac refor-

(18) II, 39.5 (Brock 164–165).

(19) See II, 3.4.87.

(20) See II, 3.3.70.

(21) The Syriac expression goes back to the Syriac translation of Theodore's works (see Brock, 165, n. 5).

(22) See II, 3.4.23.

(23) Cf. R. A. Norris, *Manhood and Christ — a Study in the Christology of Theodore of Mopsuestia* (Oxford, 1963) 173–190.

(24) See e.g. II, 5.2 (Brock, 6–7).

mulates his relativizing treatment of free will into an aspect distinction: while from a human point of view Grace comes as an answer to human effort, from God's point of view Grace is always there, even if one fails to perceive its presence. But the human point of view is at the same time right and wrong, while God's point of view is of course always right.[25]

3. This aspect distinction, deduced from the ascetical experience, corresponds to Isaac's observations on the history of salvation as a whole[26]. Although God, according to the letter of the Scripture, seemingly reacts to the acts of human beings, He truly acts, according to Isaac, only on His own initiative and always in accordance with His own original plan for the advantage of humans. God appears as a retaliator not only in the Scriptures, but also in the personal experience of many humans with this same goal, namely the greatest possible advantage of those needing such a representation of God in order to achieve some spiritual progress.[27] Following Theodore of Mopsuestia and the entire East Syriac tradition,[28] Isaac sees God as a pedagogue and the creation as a school.

4. The real freedom of a human being consists in self-transcendence, in a "crossover" to God's own freedom; that is, real freedom is an aspect of deification. Through the ascetical way of life under "the law of freedom,"[29] the human will must be purified with permanent exercise in discerning good inclinations from bad ones and thus be liberated from all passions of body and soul. In this way, thanks to the indwelling of the Holy Spirit, the human being can furthermore reach a level of liberty that supersedes every law and effort of the will, because the one who "entered the field of the Holy Spirit" is not steered any more by his own will, but by the will of God.[30] However, in this world this kind of freedom can only be given temporarily, as a foretaste of the world-to-come.[31]

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(25) See II, 3.3.16 and II, 3.3.18.

(26) It is this fundamental aspect distinction that makes it possible to reconcile Isaac's treatment of free will with his confirmation of human responsibility for sin.

(27) See II, 3.1.11.

(28) See Th. Heinthaler, Die verschiedenen Schulen, durch die Gott die Menschen lehren wollte. Bemerkungen zur ostsyrischen Schulbewegung, in: M. Tamcke (Hrsg.), *Syriaca II* (Münster, 2004) 175–192.

(29) See II, 14.34 (Brock, 77).

(30) See II, 3.2.49.

(31) See II, 2.6.

3.2. The Influence of Evagrius Ponticus: God's Image in Man and its Fulfilment

According to a patristic interpretation of Genesis 1:26, deification, as the process of becoming like God, is the realization of God's image in the human being. Consequently, the notion of deification itself presupposes an interpretation of the statement, humans are an image of God, or, in a more symbolical language, an answer to the question of the proper place of God's image in the human being.

Theodore of Mopsuestia, in contrast to the theology represented by many church Fathers (e.g. Gregory of Nyssa[32]) and most of all by the Alexandrian tradition,[33] held that God's image in the human being does not consist of the noetic part of the soul.[34] He argued instead, that the human being is God's image in the sense that he was created to represent Him, the true king of all, in the realm of visible creation, i.e. to rule over the visible world like a caring king. In the visible creation humans represent God, Theodore maintains, just like the images or statues of the emperor standing in the cities of the Roman Empire represented the absent emperor.[35]

Isaac locates God's image in the noetic part of the soul, deviating thus clearly from Theodore's position: "*When the Mind gains consciousness of the beauty of its own nature, it begins to grow in the mystical way, in which angels grow. In that moment it is held worthy of receiving the divine revelations and of standing in communion even with the angels. As it stands in the ancient beauty of its nature, that was given to it at the moment of its creation, it receives in a natural manner the theory of its own Prototype.*"[36] The Mind comes into contact with the only real image of God, Christ: "*The word of the Scripture named Adam an image of God, picturing thus the real fulfillment of this name in Christ.*"[37]

Isaac's quoted statements exemplify a large number of passages, primarily from his *Capita Gnostica*, describing the progress of the as-

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(32) See Gregory of Nyssa, *De hominis opificio* XVI (SC 6) 151–161.

(33) See for example A. G. Hamman, "Introduction" to: *L'homme icône de Dieu — La Genèse relue par l'Église des Pères* (Paris, 1998) 9–53, esp. 31 and 41–42 ; cf. J. Behr, *Asceticism and Anthropology in Irenaeus and Clement* (Oxford, 2000) 135–151.

(34) Cf. McLeod, *The Image of God...*, 50–51.

(35) Cf. Ibid., 65–66.

(36) II, 3.2.72.

(37) II, 3.2.67.

cetic efforts as, firstly, a gradual concentration of the human I in the pure or naked Mind, achieved through the gradual transcendence of sensory perception, of ethically indifferent everyday thoughts, and then also of all dianoetical acts, and secondly, as a restitution of the original noetic nature of humans, which represents the bond of all humans with the Son, the Paradigm of all Minds. This description of the ontological background of the ascetical way of life goes back to Evagrius Ponticus. Evagrius had developed this as an integral part of a holistic doctrine, systematizing under Origenian influences all the main contents of Christian dogmatics, from creation and fall to incarnation, from passion and resurrection to the eschatological salvation.[38] Isaac had studied thoroughly Evagrius' so-called *Letter to Melania* and his *Capita Gnostica* — both in Syriac translation — as the large number of quotations and loans from both works clearly demonstrates.[39] Evagrianism has been of fundamental importance for East Syriac mystical theology on the whole.

4. Isaac's Synthesis of the Two Traditions

The doctrinal elements that Isaac borrowed, as shown, from his two main sources are enough to make visible the difficulties inherent in any attempt of reconciling these different anthropological approaches. Under the originally platonic presupposition, that the Noetic is immortal — a presupposition that was, as is well known, widely accepted in late antique theology and is, seemingly at least, also shared by Isaac — the Evagrian conception of the human being as a noetic nature appears at first sight to be incompatible with the Theodore's interpretation of Genesis, maintaining that human beings were created mortal. This contradiction becomes all the more evident, if one considers the systematic framework, to which the mentioned doctrinal elements belong. One only has to think e.g. on the one hand of the primate of eschatology in Theodore's thought, that conceives of the proceeding of human history as a continuous progress from the initial imperfection of the present state-of-being towards the fulfilment of All in the future state-of-being, and on the other hand to think of the Evagrian theory of human history as the process of reaching again the original state of perfect unity of all minds in the divine Mind, a state that was

(38) Cf. A. Guillaumont, *Les "Kephalaia Gnostica" d' Évagre le Pontique et l'histoire de l'Origénisme chez les Grecs et chez les Syriens* (Paris, 1962) 37–39.

(39) Cf. Chialà, *Ricerche su Isacco di Ninive...*, 101–113.

disrupted by the "original sin" of the minds.[40] Isaac was surely well aware of these important discrepancies between his two main sources. How did he attempt to overcome them?

Isaac makes the mediation between the anthropological approaches of Theodore and of Evagrius possible first of all by not borrowing the latter's thought, that the material world emerged as a result of the fall of noetic beings from their original oneness in God. This thought — together with the concept of creation — is a central aspect of the Evagrian theory of the emergence of the visible world.[41] This reduction of the cause of the material world to the original sin of spiritual beings would be completely incompatible with the consistent cosmological and anthropological optimism of Isaac, for whom the development of God's history with humans is an uninterrupted progress towards the fulfilment of All in the new world, so that even "the fall of Man," Adam's sin, is only apparently a failure. On the other hand, Isaac adopts neither Theodore's doctrine on the meaning of God's image in human beings, nor its central notion of man's free will.

Isaac took his entire concept (based on a certain Bible hermeneutics) of the history of salvation from Theodore, while borrowing from Evagrius the description of God's relationship with humans in terms of the ontology of Mind. Correspondingly, he had to omit Theodore's ontological-anthropological positions, as well as Evagrius' speculative "history of Being." By these significant omissions, Isaac deprived both anthropologies of their character as "closed" holistic systems; in this way, he was able to combine them as different, more complementary than contradictory, aspects of his own anthropological synthesis. Isaac reads Theodore's history of salvation as an anthropology "from below," and Evagrius' ontology as an anthropology "from above," exploiting thus the possibilities of a dialectical mediation that were already inherent in the thought of his two precursors and in the two theological traditions they represent.

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(40) One may consider as a counterweight to this pronounced Protology the Evagrian theory of eschatological perfection, leading the minds to a state of absolute equality in the Holy Spirit that will be even superior to their original unity in the divine Mind. This theory makes the temporary structures of the created Being, even of the spiritual one, appear rather relative and provisional.

(41) Cf. Guillaumont, *Les "Kephalaia Gnostica"*..., 42.

SUMMARY

This article intends, firstly, to point out the high tensions between the Evagrian and Antiochian (Theodoran) lines of anthropological thought in Isaac of Nineveh's work. Isaac develops an "unconventional" anthropology, that goes back in its main points to Theodore of Mopsuestia's interpretation on the biblical narrative of Man's creation and fall: according to Isaac, Man was created as a mortal being and his fall was from the very beginning a part of God's plan of salvation, whose eschatological aim consists in the elevation of the whole mankind to a radicaly new state of eternal being in God's love, after death and through death. But at the same time Isaac maintains, following the Evagrian tradition, that the human being has been created as a spiritual substance, who has to redeem his fall by returning to his original natural state of being in Christ. This article attempts to demonstrate how Isaac tries to combine these two that different traditions in a new anthropological synthesis.

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Leuven

THE ENCAENIA OF ST SOPHIA: ANIMAL SACRIFICE IN A CHRISTIAN CONTEXT

One of the questions that has preoccupied scholars engaged with the account of the building of the Great Church of St Sophia in Constantinople,[1] a mid-Byzantine legend dated traditionally to the eighth or ninth century, is whether any historical value could be accorded to various elements of the narrative — the story proved to abound in factual mistakes and anachronisms.[2] Even more so, the passage describing the dedication of the newly built church of St Sophia, and especially the animal sacrifices offered by the emperor Justinian as a part of the ceremony, has been usually considered fictitious and legendary.

> Upon finishing the church and the sacred ornaments on the twenty-second of December, he [Justinian] went out from the Palace with a procession to the gates of the Augusteion leading to the Horologion, mounted on a four-horsed chariot. He sacrificed a thousand bulls, six thousand sheep, six hundred deers, a thousand swine, birds and cocks ten thousand each, and gave it out to the poor and needy. He also dispensed thirty thousand measures of grain. He was distributing

(1) The *Diegesis* is used henceforward as a shortened form for the account of the building of St Sophia in Constantinople: *Διήγησις περὶ τῆς οἰκοδομῆς τοῦ ναοῦ τῆς Μεγάλης Ἐκκλησίας, τῆς ἐπονομαζομένης Ἁγίας Σοφίας*, edited by Th. Preger, *Scriptores originum constantinopolitanarum* (Leipzig: Teubner, 1901–1907), vol. 1, 74–108; vol. 2, 284–289. The critical edition, which is used in the present work, is made by E. Vitti, *Die Erzählung über den Bau der Hagia Sophia in Konstantinopel. Kritische Edition mehrerer Versionen* (Amsterdam: A. M. Hakkert, 1986).

(2) C. Mango, Byzantine Writers on the Fabric of Hagia Sophia, in: R. Mark and A. Ş. Çakmak (eds.), *Hagia Sophia from the Age of Justinian to the Present* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1992) 41–56; G. Dagron, *Constantinople Imaginaire: Études sur le recueil des "Patria"* (Paris: Presses Universitaires de France, 1984); A. Berger, Santa Sophia fra storia e legenda, in: *Santa Sofia ad Istanbul. Sei secoli di immagini e il lavoro di restauro di Gaspare Fossati 1847–49* (Mantova: Casa del Mantegna, 1999) 29–38; J. M. Egea, *Relato de cómo se construyó Santa Sofía según la descripción de varios codices y autores* (Granada: Centro de Estudios Bizantinos, Neogriegos y Chipriotas, 2003) 14–19.

> all this until three o'clock of the same day. Then the emperor Justinian entered with a cross and accompanied by the patriarch Eutychius, and breaking free from the hands of the patriarch from the imperial gates he ran alone to the ambo; he stretched out his hands and said: "Glory be to God who made me worthy to accomplish such a work; I have vanquished you, Solomon!" After the entrance he gave largesse and distributed three *kentinaria* to the people having Strategius the *magister* pour it onto the ground. On the following day he celebrated the opening of the church, offering the same and even more abundant whole-burnt sacrifices, and up to the holy Epiphany, during fifteen days, he was giving feasts to all, distributing alms, and bringing thanksgivings to the Lord. In this way he finished the work of his desire.[3]

Dagron explained this curious account of animal sacrifices, asserting that the author intended to model his story on the Old Testament narrative of Solomon's Temple. It is impossible to deny the close resemblance of the passage with the Biblical account of the dedication of the Temple. The description of the dedication of St Sophia could have been inspired, as Dagron is inclined to believe, through the intermediary of Josephus Flavius's *Jewish Antiquities* rather than by the Old Testament directly.[4] The recurrence of the same words in both texts, if not whole phrases, justifies such a close association of the two accounts. However, when questioning the credibility of the animal sacrifice that accompanied the dedication ceremony in the *Diegesis*, Dagron deemed it as shocking and provoking nothing but laughter to a Byzantine reader, who was certainly aware that the sacrifice offered to God was the bloodless sacrifice, that is the Eucharist.[5] He considered this part of the description in the *Diegesis* as contradictory to the evidence derived from an anonymous sixth-century *kontakion* for the *encaenia* of St Sophia which plainly speaks of spiritual sacrifice rather than the sacrifice of animals: "Here sacrifices of the mind in spirit and in truth, not in reeking smoke and streams of blood, are offered untiringly as an odour of sweetness onto God."[6]

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(3) Vitti, *Die Erzählung...*, 463–464.

(4) Dagron, *Constantinople Imaginaire...*, 297–298.

(5) "Les sacrifices sanglants dont est accompagnée la fête de la dédicace ne pouvaient que choquer ou faire rire un lecteur byzantin auquel on ressassait que l'eucharistie était un « sacrifice non sanglant »..." Dagron, *Constantinople Imaginaire...*, 306.

(6) "Νοητῶς αἱ θυσίαι ἐνταῦθα ἐν τῷ πνεύματι καὶ ἀληθείᾳ, οὐκ ἐν κνίσσαις καπνῶν καὶ αἱμάτων ῥοαῖς ἀνενδότως θεῷ εἰς ὀσμὴν εὐωδίας

In a recent article, Lourié offers a new perspective on animal sacrifice at the celebration of the dedication of St Sophia as described in the *Diegesis*.[7] In view of all the scattered data pertaining to the history of animal sacrifices in the Christian context, which has been largely ignored by modern scholars but recapitulated in his study, Lourié argues that the account of the dedication of St Sophia has a high degree of plausibility. The assumption that the second ceremony of the dedication was indeed conducted with the "bloodless sacrifices" — according to the *dedication hymn* that was composed for the ceremony of 562 — does not prevent Lourié from believing that animal sacrifice could have been made during the first dedication. He comments that thus far we do not have at our disposal sufficient material to allow reconstruction of the real liturgical order of the church dedication in the sixth century, let alone its perception in the middle Byzantine period.[8]

Indeed, it would be extremely intriguing to provide a possible solution to the puzzle — a task which is actually undertaken here — of why the Byzantine author would introduce into his account, of such a significant Constantinopolitan church, material which, if Dagron is correct, could be immediately censored and discarded as outrageous and fictitious. It is quite remarkable that the account of the dedication followed by the bloody sacrifices was accepted by the religious public and church authorities and, while it became popular and remained the sole narrative of the dedication of the church, circulated without any attempt at expurgation.[9] The passage could certainly appear shocking, as Dagron

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προσάγονται." C. A. Trypanis, *Fourteen Early Byzantine Cantica* (Vienna: E. Becvar, 1968) 146. Translation by A. Palmer, The Inauguration Anthem of Hagia Sophia in Edessa: a New Edition and Translation with Historical and Architectural Notes and a Comparison with a Contemporary Constantinopolitan Kontakion (With an appendix by L. Rodley) *Byzantine and Modern Greek Studies* 12 (1988) 143. Cf. John 4:24.

(7) В. М. *Лурье*, Из Иерусалима в Аксум через храм Соломона: архаичные предания о Сионе и Ковчеге Завета в составе Кебра Негест и их трансляция через Константинополь *Христианский Восток* n.s. 2 (2000) 156–161, 202–206.

(8) *Лурье*, Из Иерусалима в Аксум..., 157.

(9) The sheer number of surviving manuscripts is usually considered sufficient proof of the popularity of the *Diegesis* — there are more than 80 codices transmitting the narrative in Greek. More than that, the narrative was translated into Latin, different dialects of Slavonic, Medieval Georgian, which made it known in other parts of Christendom too. Lourié points out that the attitude towards the *Diegesis* was apparently quite serious and there was no

believes it indeed was, in view of the explicitly condemning stance of the Byzantine Church on the issue of animal sacrifices.[10] This study will investigate whether the offering of animal sacrifice could really have been an element of a factual way of celebration of the *encaenia* in the early stages of the Christian liturgy. If not, then there must have existed a powerful incentive for this description to have been included in the *Diegesis*, a description which is not only fictitious but indeed fantastic, in a Christian perspective. Thus the question arises, which will be dealt with in the course of the present study, of whether the biblical narrative of the dedication of the Temple was the only and sufficient paradigm for such a depiction or were there other agencies and models that motivated and at the same time justified the introduction of the description of animal sacrifices into the account of the *encaenia* of St Sophia.

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alternative account of the building and dedication of St Sophia ever created (*Лурье*, Из Иерусалима в Аксум..., 156, n. 46). The oldest of the Georgian manuscripts containing the *Diegesis*, namely the thirteenth-century Ms. A-70, suggests that the narrative was the official text for the celebration of the church dedication (О. Беридзе, *Византийский трактат о построении храма Св. Софии и его средневековый грузинский перевод* (Тбилиси, 1982) 9–12). The Georgian translation of the *Diegesis* was set around May 11 (the manuscript does not give the exact date for the feast which, however, can be established fairly precisely through the surrounding entries) and commemorated, probably, one of the biggest restorations of St Sophia's celebration which was timed to coincide with the *encaenia* of Constantinople (А. И. Пападопуло-Керамевс, Из истории греческих этимологиков, *Журнал Министерства Народного Просвещения* 319 (1898) 115–119. Cf. *Theoph. Cont*. V.79 The Constantinopolitan tradition of the *encaenia* on May 11 (or the nearest adjacent Sunday) was kept also in Kievan Rus: О. В. *Лосева*, *Русские месяцесловы XI–XIV веков* (Москва: Памятники исторической мысли, 2001) 88. Although there is no surviving equivalent evidence about the liturgical usage of the *Diegesis* in Byzantium, the Georgian hagiographical collection reflects, almost without doubt, the Byzantine liturgical tradition. It is very likely that the composition of the Byzantine *Diegesis* was intended for a particular function — it was meant to serve as the commemoration account for the annual *encaenia* of St Sophia in Constantinople.

(10) See, for example a homily by Theodoret of Cyrrhus, Graecarum affectionum curatio VII: De sacrificiis, *PG* 83, 991–1006. P. Canivet (ed. and French trans.), Theodoret of Cyrrhus, *Thérapeutique des maladies helléniques*, vol. 2 (Paris: Cerf, 1958) (SC 57) 296–309; also, treatment of sacrifice by Eusebius of Caesarea in the sections IV.9–20 of his *Praeparatio Evangelica*. E. des Places (ed.), O. Zink (French trans.), Eusebius of Caesarea, *La préparation évangélique. Livres IV–V, 1–17* (Paris: Cerf, 1979) (SC 262) 126–209.

The following exposition, therefore, will offer a review of the problem of animal sacrifices within the system of the Early Christian liturgical practices. The pieces of surviving evidence strongly suggest that animal sacrifice was not a phenomenon entirely foreign to the Early Christian liturgy. Contrary to the prevailing opinion that denies the existence of any form of animal sacrifice as a part of Christian worship, the survival of ritual immolation of animals in the Christian milieu is convincingly corroborated by a number of texts. The enactment of animal sacrifice is reflected in the literature of the Early Christian and Medieval period, which presents nowadays a unique source for reconstruction of the old customs.

Only after such an examination can a relevant analysis of the description of animal sacrifices that allegedly accompanied the dedication ceremony of St Sophia be undertaken. The acknowledgement of the historical place of animal sacrifice in the Christian culture can open a new perspective onto the animal sacrifices of Justinian at the dedication of St Sophia, so minutely described in our legendary *Diegesis.* The following analytical review of available material, therefore, seeks to demonstrate that, besides unequivocally evidencing the existing practice, the scattered records pertaining to animal sacrifices in the Christian setting expose a number of parallels with the description in the *Diegesis.* After an overview of the source material demonstrating the practice of animal sacrifice in the Medieval Latin, Armenian, and Byzantine traditions — tentatively grouped for the sake of clarity — the passage of the *Diegesis*, narrating of Justinian's immolation of animals at the dedication of St Sophia, will be re-examined in light of the surviving records. The interpretation of the curious section of the *Diegesis*, offered at the end of this article, will hopefully contribute to a better understanding of its seemingly bizarre content.

The problem of animal sacrifice in a Christian context

Needless to say, an odd juxtaposition of the words "Christian" and "animal sacrifice" evokes immediately a certain degree of perplexity. Indeed, this formulation sounds more as a contradiction or a paradox rather than a realistic phenomenon. As it is widely known, the Christian religion does not practice or even justify any sacrificial offering of animals. In the very core of Christianity lies the sacrifice of Jesus Christ that is regarded as the only adequate and sufficient act for the expiation of sins and redemption of all humankind. As the tenth chapter of the letter to Hebrews expounds, the sacrificial death of Christ once

and for all abolished any other type of animal sacrifice.[11] The animal offerings of the Old Testament that preceded the sacrifice of Christ are declared no longer relevant and overall redundant. The only form of sacrifice — the "bloodless" sacrifice known as the Eucharist — has been firmly introduced into the Christian liturgy entirely replacing the Old Testament sacrificial system.[12]

Thus, there is no place left for the ritual of animal sacrifice in the system of Christian beliefs. What is more, the practice of animal sacrifice has been deemed as abominable; it has often been condemned as idolatrous and even demonic from the early centuries of Christianity onward.[13] The formal stance of Church theologians, therefore, has been always explicitly intolerant of any form of animal sacrifice — even a gift-offering version of *kourbania* — which was recurrently labeled as a barbarian practice and a trace of a pagan error.[14] Consequently, the very possibility of the existence of animal sacrifice in the Christian liturgy has been generally rejected as unreasonable and hostile to Christian theology and the official policy of the Byzantine Church.

No wonder then, that the ritual of animal sacrifices in the context of Christian culture has been a rather controversial issue. Yet recently the

(11) Cf. J. Dunnill, *Covenant and Sacrifice in the Letter to Hebrews* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1992). A. N. Chester, Hebrews: The Final Sacrifice, in: S. W. Sykes (ed.), *Sacrifice and Redemption: Durham Essays in Theology* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1991) 57–72.

(12) E. R. Falardeau, *A Holy and Living Sacrifice: the Eucharist in Christian Perspective* (Collegeville: Liturgical Press, 1996); C. Buchanan, *Essays on Eucharistic Sacrifice in the Early Church* (Bramcote: Grove Books, 1984); F. Young, *The Use of Sacrificial Ideas in Greek Christian Writers from the New Testament to John Chrysostom* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1979); G. Aulén, *Eucharist and Sacrifice* (Edinburgh: Oliver and Boyd, 1958); R. J. Daly, *The Origins of the Christian Doctrine of Sacrifice* (Philadelphia: Fortress Press, 1978).

(13) The most extensive theological treatment of sacrifices, both animal and human, is given by Eusebius in his *Preparatio Evangelica*, IV.9–20. A later example of condemnation of any sort of sacrifice is found in Nicodemus of the Holy Mountain in his commentary on the canon 99 of the Sixth Ecumenical Council, see n. below.

(14) S. Georgoudi, L'égorgement sanctifié en Grèce moderne: les « Kourbania » des saints, in: M. Detienne, J.-P. Vernant (éds.), *La cousine du sacrifice en pays grec* (Paris: Gallimard, 1979) 291, n. 3; Nicodemus of the Holy Mountain, *Πηδάλιον τῆς νοητῆς νηὸς τῆς Μιᾶς Ἁγίας Καθολικῆς καὶ Ἀποστολικῆς τῶν Ὀρθοδόξων Ἐκκλησίας* ([Reprint] Thessalonica: Publishing House of V. Regopoulos, 1998) 309–310, especially n. 2.

research of some scholars has led to recognition of the fact that indeed there were rituals in Early Christianity that involved the practice of slaying animals.[15] The phenomenon of sacrifices as a part of Christian worship, however, has received very little attention as compared to its pagan Hellenic counterpart.[16] Unfortunately, even monographs devoted specifically to the theme of Christian sacrifice do not consider the phenomenon of Christianised animal sacrifice at all.[17] Nevertheless, as the reviewed evidence will disclose, there are sufficient grounds to maintain that animal sacrifices were indisputably practiced in a Christian context in Late Antiquity and the Middle Ages.

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(15) D. J. Pallas, *La 'Thalassa' dans l'Église Chrétienne* (Athens: L'Institut Français d'Athènes, 1952); C. Grottanelli, Appunti sulla fine dei sacrifici, *Egitto e Vicino Oriente* 12 (1989) 175–192; J. Tixeront, Le rite du matal, *Bullettin d'ancienne littérature et d'archéologie chrétiennes* 3 (1913) 81–94; Лурье, Из Иерусалима в Аксум..., 202–206. It should be acknowledged that a substantial amount of material dealing with the question of animal sacrifices in the Christian culture was brought to light by scholars interested particularly in the Armenian ritual of *matał.* A significant part of the research on Armenian sacrifices was carried out by F. Conybeare who published some textual sources relating to this phenomenon and whose scholarship has often been indispensable for anybody approaching the issue of animal sacrifices in the Christian world. Of special interest is his collection of texts: F. Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum being the Administration of the Sacraments and the Breviary of the Armenian Church together with the Greek Rites of Baptism and Epiphany* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1905). Equally important are his pioneering articles: F. Conybeare, Les sacrifices d'animaux dans les anciennes églises chrétiennes, *Revue de l'histoire des religions* 44/1 (1901) 108–114, and idem, The Survival of Animal Sacrifices inside the Christian Church, *American Journal of Theology* 7/1 (1903) 62–90.

(16) There are numerous publications on the topic of animal sacrifices in Antiquity. See, for instance, R. K. Yerkes, *Sacrifice in Greek and Roman Religions and Early Judaism* (London: Adam and Charles Black, 1953); W. Burkert, *Homo Necans — Interpretationen altgriechischer Opferriten und Mythen* (Berlin: de Gruyter, 1972); M. Detienne and J.-P. Vernant, *La cuisine du sacrifice en pays grec* (Paris: Gallimard, 1979); the collection of essays by different authors: *Le Sacrifice dans l'Antiquité* (Geneva: Fondation Hardt, 1981). Visual representations of animal sacrifice in Greek Antiquity have been studied by F. T. Van Straten, *Hiera Kala: Images of Animal Sacrifices in Archaic and Classical Greece* (Leiden: Brill, 1995). The books referred to above provide extensive bibliographies for further consultation.

(17) E.g. R. J. Daly, *Christian Sacrifice: The Judeo-Christian Background Before Origen* (Washington, D.C.: Catholic University of America Press, 1978).

Survival of sacrifice in Late Antiquity

Before going into an exploration of animal sacrifices within the system of Christian ritual, let us review briefly the state of Hellenic cults and practice of pagan sacrifices in Late Antiquity, in the period when Christianity became the official religion of the Roman Empire.

A great many sources demonstrate that pagan cults did not disappear immediately with the advance of Christianity.[18] Certain rituals appeared to be deeply rooted in the society and were very hard to extirpate. The ceremonial of animal sacrifice constituted an inherent part of the Hellenic pagan religion and turned out to be one of such intractable customs.

The eradication of paganism with its deeply embedded rites and practices became one of the long-lasting struggles to be faced by the first Christian Emperors. After the formal introduction of Christianity on the terrain of the Holy Roman Empire a number of decrees and laws were promulgated recurrently censoring the Hellenic cults and, particularly, the public ceremonies that involved the offering of sac-

(18) The process of Christianization and lingering pagan practices, especially sacrifices, are fairly well studied. I do not consider it necessary, therefore, to enter into the discussion of survival of animal sacrifices as a part of the old religious systems. This subject has been comprehensively presented in several works of F. R. Trombley, who studied a vast number of epigraphic, hagiographic, and legal data that irrefutably document the persistence of animal sacrifices even into the ninth century. See, for instance: F. R. Trombley, Paganism in the Greek World at the End of Antiquity: The Case of Rural Anatolia and Greece, *Harvard Theological Review* 78 (1985) 327–352; idem, Monastic Foundation in Sixth-century Anatolia and Their Role in the Social and Economic Life in the Countryside, *Greek Orthodox Theological Review* 30 (1985) 45–59; idem, *The Survival of Paganism in the Byzantine Empire during the Pre-Iconoclastic Period (540–727)* (Ann Arbor: University Microfilms, 1981). One of his recent studies contains also a comprehensive bibliography: F. R. Trombley, *Hellenic Religion and Christianization, C. 370–529*, 2 vols. (Leiden and New York: Brill, 1995). Evidence of surviving pagan sacrificial customs in Early Medieval Europe is analyzed by B. Filotas in chapter 2.6 of his book: B. Filotas, *Pagan Survivals, Superstitions and Popular Cultures in Early Medieval Pastoral Literature* (Toronto: Pontifical Institute of Medieval Studies, 2005) 105 ff.; see especially pp. 108–110 on animal sacrifices. See also K. W. Harl, Sacrifice and Pagan Belief in Fifth- and Sixth-Century Byzantium, *Past and Present* 128 (1990) 6–27; K. Dowden, *European Paganism: The Realities of Cult from Antiquity to the Middle Ages* (London and New York: Routledge, 2000) 167–175.

rifices.[19] The earliest legislative acts aimed at repression of the pagan sacrifice date to the reign of Constantine the Great.[20] Following Constantinian law, a row of other edicts and decrees were promulgated by Constantine's successors who directed their imperial codifications against the pagan cults and sacrificial rituals.[21]

The process of eradication of the Hellenic religion was very much reversed through the reigns of Julian the Apostate (361–363) and Valens (364–378), under whom the previous legislation against sacrifice became largely a formality.

Thereafter, the composition and publication of the *Theodosian Code*, with its laws being officially enacted in 438, put the repression of pagan sacrifices on a new footing. This collection revived the imperial edicts of the previous century, which proves that the reality of ongoing sacrifice and other manifestations of pagan religion was still patent at that time. Consequently, the laws compiled into a collection of Theodosius II (408–450) reflect, if anything, the survival of Hellenic cults and their obstinate sacrifices.

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(19) The legislations of the first Christian emperors of the Roman Empire were published in the compilation of the laws known as the *Codex Theodosianus* (*C. Th.*), edited by Th. Mommsen, *Theodosiani libri XVI cum constitutionibus sirmondianis* (Berlin: Weidmann, 1905). The problems of making, purpose and sources of the *Theodosian Code* are discussed in the collection: J. Harries, I. Wood (eds.), *The Theodosian Code: Studies in the Imperial Law of Late Antiquity* (London: Duckworth, 1993). For English translation of the Code accompanied by commentary, glossary and bibliography see C. Pharr, *The Theodosian Code and Novels and the Sirmondian Constitutions* (New York: Greenwood Press, 1952).

(20) The decrees were promulgated on December 17, 320 (*C. Th*. 16.10.1) and December 25, 323 (*C. Th*. 16.2.5). For discussion of the historicity of Constantine's proscription of sacrifice see T. D. Barnes, Constantine's Prohibition of Pagan Sacrifice, *The American Journal of Philology* 105/1 (1984) 69–72. Barnes' discussion of Constantinian laws against sacrifice is a response to the arguments propounded by H. A. Drake in the review of T. D. Barnes, *Constantine and Eusebius* in *The American Journal of Philology* 103/4 (1982) 462–466.

(21) The list of imperial decrees against sacrifice by the first Christian Emperors is provided in P.-P. Joannou, *La legislation impériale et la christianisation de l'empire romain (311–476)* (Rome: Pontificum Institutum Orientalium Studiorum, 1972) (*OCA* 192). Some of the early legislations proscribing sacrifices were promulgated in 341 (*C. Th*. 16.10.2); 353 (*C. Th*. 16.10.5); 356 (*C. Th*. 16.10.6); 364 (*C. Th*. 9.16.7); 381 (*C. Th.* 16.10.7); 392 (*C. Th*. 16.10.12); 435 (*C. Th*. 16.10.25), etc.

The *Theodosian Code* was not the last legislation against the manifestations of the pagan religion however, and the pagan sacrifice continued to be censored in the imperial edicts even through the mid-eighth century. The *Ecloga* of the emperors Leo III and Constantine V attests that the pagan sacrifice had place in the Mid-Byzantine milieu.[22] This legal document compiled in the eighth century explicitly addressed and sought to suppress the pagan practice of sacrifice that still occurred at that time.

As a matter of fact, the imperial laws systematically dealt with the public ceremonial, addressing the private pagan practices only sporadically. The private pagan sacrifice lingered about in the Late Antique subculture after the cessation of the public sacrificial rituals. Thus, the private sacrifice proved to be ineradicable even by the most stringent penalties, whereas the public sacrifices declined by the late fourth century and virtually ceased in the cities by the early fifth century. With the greatest secrecy or, at times, with the connivance of civil officials, private sacrifice continued to be performed at the later stages of Late Antiquity and gradually drifted into the realm of "popular" religion. As it happens, the existence of a law does not presuppose widespread public obedience to it and practice can be often found at variance with prescribed norms.

Conversion to Christianity often took the form of forceful measures, such as legislations and administrative methods aimed at suppressing the local pagan cults and rituals connected with them. Yet it was noticed already in the early centuries of the Christian era, as revealed by some sources which will be discussed later, that a more efficient way of conversion was not a complete eradication of old rituals and cultural customs, but their adaptation to the new religion — the process that is defined as the "Christianization of rituals" in modern scholarship.[23]

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(22) "Οἱ ἀποστάται καὶ θυσίας καὶ ναοὺς ποιοῦντες κατηγορείσθωσαν ἀπὸ παντὸς ἀνθρώπου· καὶ εἰ μὲν ἀπὸ ἑλλήνων χριστιανοὶ ἐγένοντο καὶ ἐβαπτίσθησαν, τῇ ἐσχάτῃ ὑπόκεινται τιμωρίᾳ." *Appendix* 3.16. L. Burgmann, Sp. Troianos, Appendix Eclogae, in: D. Simon (ed.), *Fontes Minores III* (Frankfurt on Main: Vittorio Klostermann, 1979) 105. An English translation of this important source has been made by E. H. Freshfield, *A Manual of Roman Law: The Ecloga Published by the Emperors Leo III and Constantine V of Isauria at Constantinople A.D. 726* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1926) 115–141.

(23) For the discussion of the phenomenon of "Christianization of rite," cf. Trombley, *Helenic Religion and Christianization*, vol. 1, 147–168.

In fact, the process of "Christianization of rite" was not a short-term event, but it subsisted over a period of many centuries; in this regard, Late Antiquity witnessed the most intensive phase of Christianization. The old pagan rituals that underwent some sort of alteration and adjustment to the new religious system are called "Christianized" rites. Respectively, the expression "Christianized animal sacrifice" is used to refer to the ritual of animal sacrifice that was modified and infused with new meaning in accordance with the system of Christian beliefs. It is therefore legitimate to speak about a special Christianized form of animal sacrifice, which, in spite of superficial similarities, differed substantially in expression and conceptualization from its explicitly pagan counterpart.

Some reservations however should be made. Although the term "Christianized sacrifices" is a conventional way to refer to the phenomenon of animal sacrifice practiced in the Christian context, it is not an entirely adequate way to address this particular custom. The term "Christianized sacrifice" usually presupposes that the Christian rite evolved from its pagan model; that is to say, such formulation implies the conversion of a pagan ritual by emptying it of its primary content and giving it a new Christian meaning. Yet, this was not always the case. We do possess some records, treated below, that clearly point to the adaptation of specifically pagan rituals to the needs of the new religion. Yet on the other hand, some evidence suggests that the ritual slaying of animals naturally evolved from the Jewish, or rather Old Testament, sacrificial system, and not from the Hellenic paganism. Animal sacrifice, from this point of view, is the Christian continuation of the Old Testament Jewish ceremonial practice. If true, such a perspective would call for a different terminology, and a formulation "Christian animal sacrifice" would do more justice. By now, there is no uniformity of opinion as to this disputed issue of the origins of the phenomenon of sacrificing animals in the Christian culture; it is not impossible, though, that the two religious systems — Hellenic paganism and Old Testament Judaism — played a role in the development and shaping of a Christian variant of the rite of animal sacrifice.[24] Thus, although I adhere to a traditional usage of the term "Christianized sacrifices", the above reservation should be kept in mind.

(24) The mixed origins of the Christianized sacrifices were noted by Nicodemus of the Holy Mountain who proscribed contemporary practices of *kourbania* as the renewal of both Hellenic and Jewish sacrificial traditions (Nicodemus of the Holy Mountain, *Πηδάλιον*, 309, n. 2).

Animal sacrifice in the Christian West

There are several sources that evidence the practice of Christianized sacrificial rituals in the Western parts of Christendom. A vivid description of miracles connected with the enactment of animal sacrifice can be found in the poem 20 of Paulinus of Nola. This poem is the twelfth of the *natalicia* cycle written for the feast day of St. Felix — the saint with whom animal offerings were usually associated.[25] Supernatural help in fulfilling the author's yearly vow on the feast of St. Felix provided him with a theme to narrate a chain of similar marvellous events:

> Felix's birthday was now blossoming as it had in previous years, but I had nothing with which to mount the feast which my vow had made annual. The day was drawing near, and I had no resource available of any kind. But suddenly my well-endowed patron bestowed on me two hogs and a calf with which to spread a generous table, and from their flesh the poor were fed.[26]

From the poem 20 of Paulinus of Nola it is clear that offerings of animals, mostly species of pigs and oxen, were enacted by farmers in fulfilment of their vows. The meat of the slaughtered animals was meant to be distributed to the poor of the neighbourhood which, if failed to be observed, could provoke a severe punishment. Instant retribution for a failure to discharge a vow in its entirety and a greedy appropriation of a major part of the flesh is the plot of the first narrative. After repentance and fervent prayer to St. Felix, the farmer who was struck by an illness resolved to give all the appropriated parts of the sacrificed animal to the poor and made a miraculous recovery.

> He ordered the hog to be brought, and then all the parts of it to be given to the poor. For himself he asked only that life be granted and that his food be the sight of plenty being given to the poor. … The needy, their hunger satisfied, offered words of thanks to God, and their sated bellies asked pardon for the donor. As soon as the vow has been duly completed, the debtor was loosed from the grasp of the inner bonds he had incurred. His feet were healed by the Lord's

(25) The *natalicia* poems were devoted to the feast that marked the entry of St. Felix into eternal life, that is his physical death, which was celebrated on January 14. The twentieth poem has been dated to January 406. Cf. P. G. Walsh (trans.), *The Poems of St. Paulinus of Nola* (New York: Newman Press, 1975) 6.

(26) *The Poems of St. Paulinus of Nola*, 157.

> pity, and like a horse released or a bird breaking a snare he rushed forth, skipping along like a bounding deer.[27]

The second miracle recounts how some farmers, coming to Nola from the region beyond Beneventum, could not bring the fattened hog as a vow because it was too overweight to walk on its feet. They were bound, therefore, to replace it with a number of piglets they deemed equivalent to the motionless animal. How great was their wonder when they saw the hog miraculously ready and, seemingly, even willing to be slaughtered in one of the cottages on their way back from Nola. How the hog could find the way to an unknown region was a question that bewildered the author.[28]

The third story is a sentimental description of a heifer, promised as a gift-offering from its birth, that fiercely refused to be yoked into a wagon, yet surrendered with pleasure when brought to be sacrificed:

> The heifer which had revolted and refused human bonds was led without a struggle to a peaceful death. Unschooled by the yoke, it offered its neck to the axe. It joyfully poured out its blood to fulfil its masters' vow, and to provide the poor with food from its slaughtered body.[29]

These preposterous yet somewhat comical stories related by Paulinus of Nola could point to the continuing existence of animal sacrifices in the Italian Campagna at the turn of the fourth and fifth centuries. Animals were sacrificed in fulfilment of a vow to a saint or martyr. All of the examples disclose that vital elements of sacrifice were feasting the community and distributing the meat of the slaughtered animals to the poor.

That sacrificial offerings continued to be practiced in a Christian context in other Roman provinces can also be inferred from an accusation expressed by Faustus, to which Augustine gives an extensive apologetic response in his *Contra Faustum*. It is usually interpreted as speaking of animal sacrifices which instead of being offered to idols were transformed for the veneration of martyrs:

> You have turned their [i.e. gentiles'] sacrifices into love-meals, idols into martyrs, whom you venerate with similar offerings; you appease ghosts of the dead with wine and sacrificial feasts; you celebrate the

(27) *The Poems of St. Paulinus of Nola*, 163–164.

(28) Ibid., 167–170.

(29) Ibid., 172.

> sacred days of the gentiles together with them … but certainly you do not change anything about your life.[30]

In his *De civitate Dei* Augustine also explains the practice of sacrificial offerings that was apparently misunderstood already in his times and perceived as if honouring not God but the martyrs themselves. Here, the point of contention is not the futility of animal sacrifices in general, but their correct application: Augustine defends the Christian practices of venerating martyrs with sacrifices offered at their shrines as indeed directed to the God of the martyrs and not the martyrs themselves:

> But which of the faithful has ever heard a priest standing at an altar, even one built over the holy body of a martyr for the honour and worship of God, say when he prayed, 'I offer sacrifice to thee, O Peter, or Paul, or Cyprian?' For it is to God that sacrifices are offered at their memorials, Who made them both men and martyrs, and united them in heavenly honour with the holy angels. We celebrate such sacrifices both so that we may give thanks to the true God for their victories, and so that, as we renew our memory of them, we may urge ourselves to imitate them in winning such crowns and palms, invoking the same God to our aid.[31]

Afterwards, however, Augustine notes that the better-instructed Christians in most countries do not generally practice such a custom. Yet even if there are some who still offer sacrifices at the shrines of the martyrs, Augustine concludes, those who offer them know that these are not sacrifices to the martyrs but to their God.[32]

At the dawn of the seventh century, the Pope Gregory the Great wrote to Mellitus, bishop of London, a letter full of wise instructions and practical advice for efficient conversion of the local inhabitants to Christianity. This letter, partially adduced by Bede in his *Ecclesiastical History*, is famous for the concessions counseled by the Pope in the process of advancing Christianity among the heathen population. With great eagerness for the spread of Christianity, Gregory advised against

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(30) J. Zycha (ed.), *Sancti Avreli Augustini De utilitate credendi, de duabus animabus, contra Fortunatum, contra Adimantum, contra epistulam fundamenti, contra Faustum* (Vienna: Tempsky, 1891) (CSEL 25), 538. It has been suggested that "offerings" (*votes*) in this context mean animal sacrifices. Cf. Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 80, note *a*; Tixeront, Le rite du matal..., 88–93.

(31) R. W. Dison (ed. and trans.), Augustine, *The City of God against the Pagans* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1998) 357.

(32) Ibid., 357.

the fanatic destruction of the pagan temples. He suggested that upon a removal of idols a due ritual of consecration consisting of sprinkling with water, setting up the altars and deposition of relics should be performed. In this manner the *fana idolorum* should be turned to good use for the purposes of the new religion and the service of the true God: "When this people see that their shrines are not destroyed they will be able to banish error from their hearts and be more ready to come to the places they are familiar with, but now recognizing and worshipping the true God."[33] Thereafter, the Pope Gregory the Great made similar allowance for the old rituals of animal sacrifices, which did not have to be entirely prohibited and eliminated, but used up and carefully infused with a new meaning to the glory of the true God.

> And because they are in the habit of slaughtering much cattle as sacrifices to devils, some solemnity ought to be given then in exchange for this. So on the day of the dedication or the festival of the holy martyrs, whose relics are deposited there, let them make themselves huts from the branches of trees around the churches which have been converted out of shrines, and let them celebrate the solemnity with religious feasts. Do not let them sacrifice animals to the devil, but let them give thanks to the Giver of all things for His bountiful provision. Thus while some outward rejoicings are preserved, they will be able more easily to share in inward rejoicings. It is doubtless impossible to cut out everything at once from their stubborn minds: just as the man who is attempting to climb to the highest place, rises by steps and degrees and not by leaps.[34]

Gregory found justification for his conceding to the pagan custom in the Old Testament example of the Israelites keeping the Egyptian tradition of sacrifice. With reference to Leviticus 17:1–9, Gregory reminded that the Lord "preserved in his own worship the forms of sacrifice which they were accustomed to offer to the devil and commanded them to kill animals when sacrificing to him."[35] Thus animal sacrifices, though outwardly similar, remained no more the same: they profoundly differed in their meaning since they were offered to the true God and not to the idols.

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(33) B. Colgrave, R. A. B. Mynors (eds.), *Bede's Ecclesiastical History of the English People* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1981) 107.

(34) Ibid., 107–109. Cf. Conybeare, The Survival of Animal Sacrifices..., 87–88; Tixeront, Le rite du matal..., 89.

(35) *Bede's Ecclesiastical History*, 109.

This unequivocal allowance for the sacrificial practices of the newly converted people reveals how and why some pagan rituals became integrated into Christian culture. In this respect, the letter is a unique voice from the past expressing the official ecclesiastical view of condoning the practice of animal sacrifice along with other elements of the ancient pagan religion. Pagan ritual practices, no doubt, were accepted into the Christian tradition only upon a relevant adaptation — the process known as "Christianization" of ritual. Another aspect that should be emphasized in the context of the present enquiry — as a valuable backdrop to the description of sacrifices conducted by Justinian at the dedication of St Sophia in the *Diegesis* — is the advice to conduct animal sacrifices in connection with the Christian feast of the dedication. It appears from this passage that there was a special association of the church dedication feasts with the ritual immolation of animals.

A custom of sacrificing an animal at Easter is also testified to among the liturgical practices of the Roman Church. Some ninth-century authors record that such a custom of offering a paschal lamb, which was subsequently consumed by the priests and all the faithful, was still in use in the church at their times. Eneus of Paris made a note of the accusations uttered by the Greeks against Latins who had offered a lamb, according to the Jewish custom, placing it on the altar along with the Eucharistic offering of the body and blood of Christ.[36] Similarly, Walafrid Strabo speaks about offering a paschal lamb as an ancient vestige that originated from the Jewish superstitions and was transmitted into his own times, but recently constricted to a great extent by the efforts of the "wise." He recounts that the lamb was placed next to or under the altar on the day of Easter, consecrated with an appropriate benediction, and consumed on the same day of the Resurrection before any other "corporeal meal."[37] Although Eneus of Paris and Walafrid Strabo do not speak explicitly of ritual immolation of the lamb, yet the com-

(36) *Liber adversos Graecos*, praefatio (*PL* 121, 690A): "…quare agnum simul cum corpore Christi et sanguine in Pascha super altare ponamus, et more Iudaeorum offeramus."

(37) *De rebus ecclesiasticis*, xviii (*PL* 114, 938D–939A): "Unde quorundam simplicium error de iudaicarum superstitionum seminario natus, et ad nostra usque tempora quaedam vetustatis extendens vestigia, iam ex magna parte sapientium studio compressus est… Illum dico errorem quo quidam agni carnes in Pascha, iuxta vel sub altari eas ponentes, benedictione propria consecrabant, et in ipsa resurrectionis die ante caeteros corporales cibos de ipsis carnibus percipiebant."

parison of the offering to the Jewish customs would imply that the animal was indeed perceived as a sacrifice.

Another piece of evidence confirming that the Medieval Roman Church practiced ritual offering of a paschal lamb comes from a letter of the twelfth-century Armenian bishop Nerses Shnorhali (d. 1173).[38] He speaks of the local Armenian custom of immolating a lamb at Easter as received from Rome by Gregory the Illuminator. The letter implies that this custom was still observed in his times by the Franks, even with greater care than by the Armenians.

> And although the rules laid down by our Illuminator are to be received, as proceeding from the Holy Spirit; nevertheless he did not by his own authority institute the custom of sacrificing the lamb at the Pascha, but he received it from the Roman Church, and he handed it onto us, just as it is kept up at the present time all over the Church of the Franks, with greater diligence and care than we exercise. For they after they have roasted the lamb, lay it inside the *tabernacle* under the sacrifice on the day of Pascha; and after they have communicated in the Mystery, the priest divides, and gives a portion to each; and they eat it up in the church itself before they partake of any ordinary food.[39]

The elements of ceremonial offering and eating of a paschal lamb, if not necessarily its official sacrifice, continued to be practiced in the Roman church. The twelfth-century *Ordo* states that it was the custom to eat the meal of a lamb right after the Easter mass.[40] There are references to such a ritual performed at the papal court even at a much later period. An instance of a similar practice in the seventeenth century is adduced by the editor of the Greek *Euchologion*, J. Goar. Defending the old Byzantine ritual in his notes to the prayer for a paschal lamb (which will be examined in due turn), the seventeenth-century editor

(38) Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 77–85;

(39) English translation by Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...,* 82; see also the discussion of this fragment by Tixeront, Le rite du matal..., 92, and Лурье, Из Иерусалима в Аксум..., 158, note 52.

(40) *Romani ordines* XI.48, XII.35 (*PL* 78, 1044D–1045A, 1079B–1080A). Cf. Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 513–514; A. Sharf, Animal Sacrifice in the Armenian Church, *Revue des études arméniennes* 14 (1982) 434; Tixeront, Le rite du matal..., 93.

referred to a similar contemporary custom practiced by the Pope and tacitly accepted by the Roman Church.[41]

The Armenian tradition of animal sacrifice

We have already referred to the sacrificial practices of the Armenians; now it is time to deal with their tradition in detail. The custom of animal sacrifice in the Armenian culture received a dominant place in the scholarly explorations of this phenomenon.[42] The importance of the Armenian material lies in the fact that this culture has the most distinct and long-lasting tradition of Christianized animal sacrifice. The sources disclose that sacrifices have been a regular part of the Christian Armenian culture from the early centuries of the Christian State and survived into the modern age. Another reason for a special attention to the Armenian ritual, though rarely noted, lies in the fact that the Medieval Armenian liturgical practices often reflect a very old layer of the Early Byzantine liturgy.[43] Thus, the presence and long-lasting popularity of animal sacrifice in the Armenian ecclesiastical culture might indicate the existence of a similar custom in the pre-Byzantine liturgy of, particularly, Palestine as well as other regions of the Christian Orient.

The tradition holds that the animal sacrifices in Armenia were enjoined by Gregory the Illuminator himself, soon after he converted to Christianity the last pagan king of Armenia, Tiridates III (298–330). According to the version recounted in the canons traditionally attributed to Sahak (387–439),[44] Gregory did this in response to the complaints of

(41) J. Goar, *Euchologion sive rituale Graecorum* ([Reprint] Graz: Akademische druck. Verlagsanstalt, 1960) 567.

(42) Sacrificial rituals are also attested to among other Eastern Christian communities, as those of Georgia, Syria and Mesopotamia. They, however, escaped the detailed scrutiny of scholars, contrary to the case of the famous Armenian ritual of *matał.* On animal sacrifices among the Palestinian Arab Christians see A. Jaussen, "L'immolation chez les nomades à l'est de la mer Morte, *Revue biblique* n.s. 3 (1906) 91–114. Conybeare adduces some contemporary evidence on the rite of animal sacrifice as still practiced in east Syria: Conybeare, Survival of Animal Sacrifices..., 82–84. For Georgian rituals, see *Лурье*, *Из Иерусалима в Аксум*..., 205, and F. Cumont, St. George and Mithra 'The Cattle-Thief', *Journal of Roman Studies* 27/1 (1937) 63–71.

(43) Pallas, *La 'Thalassa' dans l'Église Chrétienne...*, 113.

(44) F. C. Conybeare, The Armenian Canons of St. Sahak, Catholicos of Armenia (390–39 A.D.), *American Journal of Theology* 2 (1898) 828–848.

the sons of the pagan priests, who had previously been supported in their service to pagan cults by portions of the offerings. With the conversion to the new religion and abolition of the animal sacrifices, they had no other means to sustain their living. Gregory, therefore, decreed that the priests should be given a tithe of everything, as it was instituted for the Levitical priests under the Law of the Old Testament. There also followed a detailed list of the parts of the animals that were to be given to the priests.[45] Although other accounts reason the introduction of animal sacrifices in different ways, it is usually Gregory who is credited with perpetuation and adaptation of the custom.[46]

The so-called "canons of Sahak" give clear instructions as to when the ritual had to be observed. According to this collection of rules, the sacrifice of *matał* was offered on special occasions. First of all, at Easter, the paschal lamb was immolated. Animals could be sacrificed on dominical feasts, such as Epiphany, Pentecost and, possibly, Transfiguration. The sacrifices could take place every Sunday and, in commemoration of the dead — on the third, ninth, and fortieth day after the decease. The offering of animals was to be made on the feast days of the principal saints and on the day of the dedication of the altar, which was a part of the church dedication ritual. The latter occasion was supposedly meant to imitate the ceremony conducted by Solomon at the dedication of the Temple of Jerusalem.[47] Yet another version traces the ritual immolations during the celebration of church dedication back to Constantine the Great who, along with his mother Helena and the Pope Silvester, allegedly celebrated the dedication of the Anastasis church in Jerusalem with lavish animal sacrifices.[48]

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(45) This is the version recounted in the canons attributed to St. Sahak which was written, probably, before the year 440; similar explanation of the history of *matał* is contained in a letter written by the twelfth-century bishop Nerses Shnorhali. English translation of the texts is given by Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 67–71 and 77–85.

(46) For the sources recording other versions of the introduction of animal sacrifices in Armenia, see Sharf, Animal Sacrifice..., 418–419.

(47) This is assumed on the basis of the spurious *Canons of St. Thaddeus* (Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 76; Tixeront, Le rite du matal..., 82; Sharf, Animal Sacrifice..., 422). The evidence of the *Canons* will be discussed later.

(48) This tradition will be discussed below. Cf. Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 76, n. *a*; Tixeront, Le rite du matal..., 82; Sharf, Animal Sacrifice..., 422.

One of the integral elements of the full *matał* ceremony was the banquet following the sacrifices. Save for Easter, when only household members shared the meal, the poor were necessarily invited to participate in the celebration, called *agape* similar to the early Christian tradition of a love-meal. Thus, for instance, the Armenian text (traditionally attributed to the catholicus John Mandakuni (478–490), but which might have been a later composition) while condemning the detestable sacrifices of an animal acquired by robbery or in another immoral way encouraged welcoming the poor to banquets in response to the words of Christ:

> Why then should any one dare to offer such sacrifices as are abominable and an occasion to Gehenna, or to destroy the welcome of the poor to his banquet by the honours he pays to the powerful and the rich, who want not? This is what Christ forbad when he said: Whenever thou holdest a feast or a reception of the poor, invite not thy brethren or thy neighbours or thy friends, nor the wealthy, in order that they too may invite thee, and so there may be to thee a return. But whenever thou holdest a reception for the salvation of thy soul, invite the poor and the maimed, the blind and the halt. And blessed art thou, for there shall be to thee a return in the kingdom of the righteous.[49]

Along the same lines, the catholicus Nerses II (548–557) asserted that "in the agapes the priests shall not venture to carry off portions according to the canons, but shall give them to the poor there and then in the presence of the master of the agape."[50]

At the later stages, probably by the ninth century, a complete system was created, codifying the rules for selecting the victim and fixing the rituals to be followed for different kinds of *matał*.[51] The surviving prayers for different instances of animal sacrifices reveal more the nature of the given custom. It is clear from these prayers that the development of the Armenian ritual was influenced by the Jewish system of animal sacrifices and it was exactly this feature that was frequently imputed to the Armenians.[52] In spite of the numerous parallels with

(49) Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 74.

(50) Ibid., 75.

(51) See the documents illustrating the history of the rites of *matał* presented by Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 67–85.

(52) The "Jewishness" of Armenian sacrifices was often despised and condemned in the anti-Armenian polemics. For instance, such attitudes are

the Jewish sacrifices, some scholars still insisted on the pagan character of Armenian *matał*.[53] It seems likely that though the ritual itself may have developed on the basis of old pagan rites, as the story of Gregory's adaptation of the old religious rituals recounts, it was profoundly influenced and modified by the Jewish rituals of animal sacrifice. The features that the ritual acquired in the process of its adjustment to the Christian liturgy make it indeed resemble the Old Testament sacrifices,[54] which are often recalled in the prayers accompanying the ceremony of *matał*. Thus, for instance, the prayer that is a part of the canon for animal sacrifice evokes the biblical examples of Abel, Noah, and Abraham:

> … thou has pleased that our kind should worship and adore thee with altars and sacrifices of good things, even such as Abel the just presented onto thee, and as Noah when he went forth from the ark and offered a sacrifice that smelled with a sweet savour unto the Lord God; and Abraham presented before thee the true whole burnt-offering of trial and testing, which foreshadowed thy inviolate death upon the cross.[55]

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illustrated in the writing of the Armenian renegade catholicus Isaac: "Οὗτοι οὖν οἱ θεομάχοι Ἀρμένιοι, πάλιν τὰς Ἰουδαϊκὰς θυσίας ἀνακαινίζοντες, καὶ βόας καὶ ἀμνοὺς καὶ πρόβατα θύοντες, δι᾽ αὐτῶν ἄφεσιν ἁμαρτιῶν λαβεῖν ἐλπίζοντες, καὶ ἐν αὐτοῖς τὰς ἐλπίζας ἔχοντες, καὶ διὰ τῆς αὐτῶν μεταλήψεως ἁγιασθῆναι νομίζοντες, καί ἐν ταῖς τοιαύταις θυσίαις καὶ οὐκ ἐν τῷ σώματι, καὶ αἵματι τοῦ Χριστοῦ καυχώμενοι, πῶς οὐκ εἰσὶ προφανῶς Ἰουδαῖοι καὶ χριστομάχοι;" (*Oratio invectiva contra Armenios*, Oratio I, *PG* 132, 1184B l.14–C8). The *Panoplia Dogmatica* of Euthymius Zygadenus also reveals that the Armenian sacrifices were regarded as Jewish, and not pagan: "Τοῦ Κυρίου ἡμῶν Ἰησοῦ Χριστοῦ τὰς ζωοθυσίας παύσαντος ἐν τῷ μεταδοῦναι τοῖς μαθηταῖς τοῦ μυστικοῦ δείπνου, καὶ εἰπεῖν, *Τοῦτο ποιεῖτε εἰς τὴν ἐμὴν ἀνάμνησιν*, τουτέστιν οὐ τὸ Ἰουδαϊκὸν, ἀλλὰ τὸ τηνικαῦτα μυστικῶς παραδεδομένον, τοὐναντίον οἱ Ἀρμένιοι διαπράττονται, βοᾶς, καὶ ἀμνοὺς, καὶ πρόβατα θύοντες κατὰ τὴν Ἰουδαϊκὴν λατρείαν, καὶ τὰς φλιὰς τοῖς τῶν τεθυμένων αἵμασι χρίοντες, καὶ τὰς ἐλπίδας τῆς σωτηρίας μᾶλλον ἐν τοῦτοις ἔχοντες" (*PG* 130, 1184C l. 10 – D l. 4).

(53) This view, in particular, is advocated in the article Sharf, Animal Sacrifice..., 417–449.

(54) The Armenian theologians, however, responding to frequent accusations had to develop explanations of how their sacrifices differed from the Jewish tradition. For the argument against the "Jewishness" of the Armenian *matał* see the epistle written by the twelfth-century bishop Nerses Shnorhali in Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 78–85.

(55) Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 55.

In a relevant prayer for the sacrifice of a paschal lamb, again, mention is made of the Patriarchs — Abraham, Isaac, and Jacob — when pleading for increase and multiplication of the household of the person offering the sacrifice. The parallel with the Old Testament sacrifices is all the more evident: "And may this sacrifice be to thee for reconciliation, as was the sacrifice of Abel."[56]

Animal sacrifices in Byzantine Christianity

Having shown that animal sacrifice was a current phenomenon in the context of the Christian culture — be it the Eastern or Western tradition, Late Antique or Medieval period — it is time to turn to material pertaining specifically to the Byzantine milieu. The survival of animal sacrifices in the Byzantine tradition has been generally refuted. The writings of the Byzantine authors, from the early centuries of Christendom, overtly condemn and revile such customs. It was not just the authority of the New Testament that provided the background for attacks on the old religion of sacrifice. Often, a potent factor that gave birth to the Byzantine criticism of animal sacrifices was found in the writings of Greek sceptics and ascetic thinkers, who formed the schools of the Neo-Pythagoreans and Neo-Platonists.[57] A particularly vivid example containing such attitudes is the *Preparatio Evangelica* of Eusebius, who derived most of his arguments against animal sacrifices from Porphyry's *De abstinentia*.[58]

An additional driving force behind the incrimination of the sacrificial rites that developed in the seventh century was the desire of the Byzantines to distance themselves from the liturgical practices of the Monophysite world that kept such customs alive and thriving.[59] Much of the condemnation of the animal sacrifices, therefore, has been expressed in polemics against the sacrificial customs of the Armenians. Most frequently, the criticism of the Armenian practices entailed a struggle against the "Jewishness" of their customs.

One of the sanctions addressing the customs of the Armenians (apparently those residing mainly in eastern Asia Minor and north-eastern Greece — parts, which were under Byzantine jurisdiction) was canon 99 of the Council in Trullo (692):

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(56) Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 65.

(57) Ibid., 89.

(58) Eusebius of Caesaria, *Preparatio Evangelica*, IV.9–20.

(59) Лурье, Из Иерусалима в Аксум..., 158–159.

> We have heard that in the land of the Armenians the following also happens: there are some who boil pieces of meat on the holy altars and then offer to the priests those pieces set aside for them, apportioned in the Jewish fashion. In as much as we are responsible for keeping the church undefiled, we ordain that it be not permitted for any priest to accept portions of meat so set aside. They must be satisfied with those portions which the person providing the animal wishes to give them, and he must do the giving outside the church building. Any priest not acting accordingly is to be removed.[60]

This regulation is quite interesting and has already generated some bafflement among scholars.[61] Strangely enough, while censuring the practices of the distribution of meat to the priests, which plainly was just an element of *matał*, the canon does not address the practice of animal sacrifice itself. The twelfth-century canonist Theodore Balsamon, commenting on this rule, believed that animal sacrifice ceased to exist among the Armenians since Christianity had abolished it. In his commentary he stated that the custom of animal sacrifice had fallen into disuse and that the cooking and distribution of meat were the only vestiges of the ancient practices that were to be censured.[62] His explanation, however, is rather contrary to the existing data that overtly point to the fact that the Armenians did not abandon their rituals of *matał* neither in the times of the Council, nor in the period when Balsamon was compiling his commentary. For instance, among those listed in the catalogue of deviations from Orthodox dogma compiled by the twelfth-century monk Euthymius Zigadenus on the order of the emperor Alexius I (1081–1118), the Armenian practice of *matał* is described as still being in use:

> Although our Lord, Jesus Christ, ended animal sacrifice by giving portions to his disciples from the mystical supper, and saying, "Do this in remembrance of me" — that is not the Jewish meal but that of which they had then mystically partaken — the Armenians do the opposite: they sacrifice bulls, lambs and sheep according to Jewish ritual, and then smear their doorposts with the blood of the victims, preferring to place in these their hopes of salvation. That is why they do not partake of the body and blood of the Lord at the

(60) Translation by Sharf, Animal Sacrifice..., 435. G. A. Rhalles, M. Potles (eds.), *Σύνταγμα τῶν θείων καὶ ἱερῶν κανόνων*, vol. 2 (Athens: G. Chartophylakos, 1852) 543.

(61) Sharf, Animal Sacrifice..., 435–439.

(62) *PG* 137, 860B–861A.

> festival of Easter, but of a lamb, which they sacrifice in Jewish fashion and then roast, expecting thereby to be hallowed and released from their sins.[63]

Two other Byzantine polemical works against the Armenians written in the period close to that of Theodore Balsamon — one ascribed to St. Nicon (1059–1067)[64] and the second, already mentioned, by the twelfth-century renegade Armenian catholicus Isaac[65] — also make it clear that the ματάλια, being the Greek term for the Armenian *matał*, were far from being abandoned. All of this makes the canon regulation and then the explanation given by Balsamon more than curious in their silence, or ignorance, of the ritual of animal sacrifices.

A better reason for canon 99 of the Council in Trullo ignoring the ritual of the animal sacrifice, as suggested by Sharf,[66] could be that something very similar to *matał* could have existed among the Byzantines themselves. However dubious such an argument *ex silentio* can be, it is to this conclusion that the surviving Byzantine prayers for animal sacrifice point as well.

Indeed, a rather lucid parallel to the Armenian ritual of *matał* is found in Byzantine prayers for animal sacrifices.[67] Conybeare who, in-

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(63) Translation by Sharf, Animal Sacrifice..., 438; Euthymius Zigadenus, *Panoplia Dogmatica* (*PG* 130, 1184D).

(64) Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 76: "Περὶ τῆς δυσσεβοῦς θρησκείας τῶν κακίστων Ἀρμενίων … Ἀλλὰ καὶ τὰ νομικὰ σχεδὸν πάντα, ἃ κατηργήθησαν, εἰσέτι τελοῦσι. θύουσι γὰρ τὸν ἀμνὸν τῇ μεγάλῃ κυριακῇ, καὶ τὰς φλιὰς χρίουσι, καὶ τὰ ὀστᾶ τούτου καίοντες, τηροῦσι τὸν χοῦν μετὰ τοῦ αἵματος εἰς τύπον καθαρσίου … καὶ μέντοι καὶ ὑπὲρ τῶν νεκρῶν θυσίας προβάτων καὶ βοῶν ποιοῦσι καὶ οὐκ ἄλλως ἡγοῦνται σωθήσεσθαι τὸν τεθνεῶτα εἰ μὴ ἐν τοῖς τρίτοις αὐτοῦ καὶ τοῖς ἐννάτοις καὶ τεσσαρακοστοῖς αἱ τοιαῦται θυσίαι ἐπιτελεσθῶσι. Πρὸ δὲ τοῦ τυθῆναι τὰ τοιαῦτα θύματα, ἅλας ἐπευλογοῦντες, εἰς τροφὴν αὐτοῖς διδόασι. Καὶ μέντοι καὶ ἐπὶ ταῖς κεφαλαῖς αὐτῶν, εὐχάς τινας ἐπιλέγουσι, καὶ οὕτω σφάζουσιν, ὀνοματίζουσι δὲ τὰς τοιαύτας θυσίας Ματάλια."

(65) "Αἵρεσις κη'. Ἡ βδελυκτὴ θυσία κατὰ τῶν Ἑβραίων. Φέρουσι βοῦν ἢ κριὸν, καὶ γραμμάζουσι μετὰ βαμμάτων κοκκίνων, καὶ εἰς τὰ κέρατα αὐτῶν ὀπώρας παντοίας, καὶ φέρουσιν αὐτὸν εἰς τὴν θύραν τῆς ἐκκλησίας, καὶ ἀλείφουσι μετὰ βουτύρου τὰ μέλη τοῦ βοός, εἴτε τοῦ κριοῦ. Καὶ θύουσιν αὐτὰ ἐις τὴν θύραν τῆς ἐκκλησίας· καὶ λέγουσιν αὐτὸ Δεσποτικὴν θυσίαν" (*Oratio invectiva contra Armenios*, Oratio II, *PG* 132, 1237A l.1–8).

(66) Sharf, Animal Sacrifice..., 437.

(67) In his edition of the earliest manuscript of the *euchologion*, the eighth-century codex from the Barberini collection at Rome, J. Goar omitted more

cluding the prayer from the codex *Barberini gr.* 336[68] into his collection of sources on animal sacrifice along with other Byzantine prayers from later manuscripts, pointedly made note of the contradiction between the official "reviling of the Armenians" by the Byzantines and, at the same time, preservation of the "incriminated rites" in their own prayer collections.[69] The prayer for the sacrifice of a bull,[70] in the earliest manuscripts of the Byzantine *euchologion*, was to be read on a saint's day and begged for material and spiritual blessings in a manner closely resembling that of the Armenian *Canon of Dominical blessing*.[71]

> O thou in place of thy beloved Isaac didst accept the ram from the patriarch Abraham, and didst accept and wast well pleased with the widow's offering laid before thee. Thou hast also commanded us thy sinful and unworthy servants to offer sacrifices of irrational animals and birds in behalf of our souls; do thou, Lord, king that lovest mankind, accept the offering of these thy servants laid before thee in commemoration of this thy holy one, and deign to lay it up in thy heavenly treasures; bestowing on them plenteously enjoyment of the goods of this world of thine along with all things that are to

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than a sixth part of the original texts of the manuscript. For the most part, it has been reasoned, his omissions were the texts for the offices that had long ago passed into the *Horologion.* Among the seven prayers that allegedly have been omitted by sheer accident, a prayer for the sacrifice of bulls can be found (A. Strittmatter, O. S. B., The *Barberinum S Marci* of Jacques Goar, *Ephemerides Liturgicae* 47 (1933) 329–367). Recently a new edition of the *Euchologion Barberini* has been made which includes the parts omitted earlier: S. Parenti, E. Velkovska (eds.), *L'eucologio Barberini gr. 336*. (Roma: Edizioni Liturgiche, ²2000).

(68) It has been convincingly argued that this *euchologion*, the oldest known today, represents the Italo-Greek recension of the Byzantine rite. Narrower dating has been also suggested: the second half of the eighth century. The questions of provenance and dating are briefly treated in the introduction to the recent edition of Parenti and Velkovska (*L'eucologio Barberini gr. 336...*, 19–21). An important contribution to the discussion of dating is made by Ch. Konstantinidis, L'Ordo de la dédicace des Églises selon le rite byzantin vers la moitié du VIII[e] siècle, in: *Πεπραγμένα τοῦ Θ΄ διεθνοῦς βυζαντινολογικοῦ συνεδρίου* (Thessaloniki: Myrtide, 1956) 206–215.

(69) Conybeare, Survival of Animal Sacrifices..., 80.

(70) *Εὐχὴ ἐπὶ θυσίας βοῶν*; Parenti, Velkovska, *L'eucologio Barberini gr. 336...*, 213.

(71) For the Armenian *Canon of Dominical Blessing* and the variety of prayers on different occasions of *matał*, see Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 54–67.

> their interest. Fill full their granaries with fruit, corn, and wine and oil, and make their souls worthy to be full of faith and righteousness. Multiply their beasts and flocks. (For him) in whose behalf they bring to thee as ransom and in requital this animal, for sacrifice, let its fat be as an acceptable fragrancy before thy holy glory, and the shedding of its blood bread of the richness of pity. Let the offering of its flesh be a healing of bodily sufferings. For not idly is this our task performed, but in commemoration of thy holy sufferings.[72]

In the same manuscript, there is also an equivalent prayer for the sacrifice of a lamb,[73] which meant, as a variant reading from the *Grottaferrata* manuscript confirms,[74] the sacrifice of a paschal lamb. In these prayers, similar to the Armenian canon, the Old Testament examples are regularly recalled.

Besides the prayer for the sacrifice in this earliest surviving manuscript of the *Euchologion*, a number of prayers are transmitted in later manuscripts representing regional or chronological variants.[75] Later collections included the prayers for the blessing of salt,[76] which the victim was made to eat — an element which was also a significant part of the Armenian *matał*, as well as of the ancient Jewish ritual: "with all of thy sacrifices shalt thou offer salt."[77]

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(72) Translation by Conybeare, Survival of Animal Sacrifices..., 80–81.

(73) *Εὐχὴ ἐπὶ τοῖς προσφέρουσιν ἀμνόν;* Parenti, Velkovska, *L'eucologio Barberini gr. 336...*, 218.

(74) In his edition of the prayer from the *Barberinus gr.* 336, Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 413, presented also variant readings from the manuscripts *Grottaferrata* Γ.β.10 and *Bodley Auct.* E.5.13.

(75) The collection of Byzantine *euchologia* by Dmitrievskij contains a number of prayers pertaining to animal sacrifices. Their titles and contents vary. Thus, codex *Sinaiticus gr.* 959 (eleventh century), has *Εὐχὴ ἐπὶ προσφερόντων θυσίαν*; *Sinaiticus gr.* 957 (tenth century.) — *Εὐχὴ ἐπὶ θυμάτων*; *Sinaiticus gr.* 973 (twelfth century) — *Εἰς θῦμα μνήμης ἁγίου, Εὐχὴ εἰς θυσίαν*; А. Дмитриевский, *Описание литургических рукописей, хранящихся в библиотеках православного востока*, т. 2, Εὐχολόγια (Киев, 1901), 6, 46, 113, 451 (hereafter Дмитриевский, II). Cf. also Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 414, 436–438.

(76) *Εὐχὴ ἐπὶ θυσίαν ἅλατος;* Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 437; Дмитриевский, II, 113, 798.

(77) Leviticus 2:13; Numbers 18:19; Ezekiel 43:24. For the place of salt in the Jewish rite see s.v. "salt" (*Encyclopaedia Judaica*, vol. 14, cols. 710–711). In the Armenian tradition this ritual is believed to be introduced by Gregory the Illuminator himself to distinguish pagan sacrifices from Christian ones

These surviving prayers cannot be disregarded, as they often are in the study of the rituals of animal sacrifices. Indeed, they should be taken into consideration as the most valuable and irrefutable evidence. Even if the prayers continued to be copied when the ritual itself had already died out and some manuscripts preserving them reflect nothing but an outdated practice — which is apparently the case of the sixteenth-century manuscripts[78] — yet they remarkably confirm that such practices were current in the earlier stages of Byzantine liturgy.

The Byzantine prayers, however, should be considered in the context of their place of origin. The ritual recorded in the manuscripts of *Barberini* and *Grottaferrata*, transmitting the prayers for the animal sacrifices, represent predominantly the Byzantine rite as it was in use in parts of Italy. Therefore, the custom as reflected through these prayers should be associated with the periphery rather than the capital of the Byzantine Empire. Nevertheless, there is an implication that the Constantinopolitan liturgy was not devoid of the practice of animal sacrifices either: the earliest Constantinopolitan *euchologion* of the Paris codex *Coislin. gr.* 213[79] contains a similar prayer for the sacrifice of animals entitled *Εὐχὴ ἐπὶ θυσίας κτηνῶν*.[80]

The existence of Byzantine prayers strongly suggests that in spite of critique and hostile attitudes, animal sacrifices remained a current practice in the Byzantine Empire.

Contemporary customs of ritual immolations of animals that survived in some regions of Greece and Turkey have also been traced to Byzantine origins.[81] Ethnographers and folklorists have usually in-

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(cf. Armenian prayer for the consecration of salt: Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 57).

(78) Codex 134 of the library of the Holy Sepulchre in Constantinople (1584) has the prayers εὐχὴ ἐπὶ θυσίων, εὐχὴ ἐπὶ θυσίας εἰς βοῦν; *Дмитриевский*, II, 806, 1054. Another sixteenth-century manuscript, 469 of the Dionyssiou monastery at Athos (1572) contains εὐχὴ ἐπὶ θυσίαν κτηνῶν and εὐχὴ ἐπὶ θυσίαν εἰς βοῦν; *Дмитриевский*, II, 798.

(79) This is the oldest surviving *euchologion* of Constantinople, copied in 1027 by the scribe Strategios, who was a chaplain of St Sophia. This *euchologion* is considered to be a redaction for a private usage, as deduced from a long series of devotional prayers: J. Duncan, *Coislin 213. Euchologe de la Grande Eglise. Dissertatio ad Lauream* (Rome, 1983).

(80) *Дмитриевский*, II, 1014; Duncan, *Coislin 213...*, 149.

(81) Besides Armenian and Georgian sacrificial rites that have been practiced well into modern times (described in the works of Conybeare, The Survival of Animal Sacrifices..., *passim*, and *Лурье*, *Из Иерусалима в Аксум...*, 205)

terpreted the Modern Greek custom of sacrificing animals for certain feasts, the *kourbania*, as a survival of pagan Greek religion and considered it entirely alien to Greek Orthodox culture.[82] In doing so, they often imagined ancient and modern Greece as bound tightly together by religious continuity while failing to take notice of the whole intermediary period.[83] An alternative interpretation of this custom, placing it within the Judeo-Christian context, was propounded and advocated by Stella Georgoudi.[84] She convincingly associated the ritual of *kourbania* with Orthodox Byzantine culture and argued for the Jewish-Christian character of this custom. Her exploration of contemporary folk rituals against the background of hagiographical and liturgical data retrospect the modern popular practices onto the Medieval times and corroborate the view that Byzantine tradition was in possession of a Christianized sacrificial system.

Animal sacrifices, when being eliminated or marginalized from the official ecclesiastical culture, settled conveniently in the sphere of popular religion[85] — the realm that often found its reflection in medieval

there has been substantial material brought up concerning the Christianized animal sacrifices in Modern Greece and Turkey (cf. Georgoudi, L'égorgement sanctifié en Grèce moderne...). The summary of studies devoted to the subject of contemporary sacrifices including some original descriptions of the ritual immolations in a Christian setting are presented by Pallas, *La 'Thalassa' dans l'Église Chrétienne...*, 102–109.

(82) Out of the numerous studies produced on the issue of the relation between Modern Greek customs and the Hellenic pagan cults, still useful remain some older works: J. C. Lawson, *Modern Greek Folklore and Ancient Greek Religion: A Study in Survivals* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1910); M. P. Nilsson, *Greek Popular Religion* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1947).

(83) A critique of such an approach has been poignantly expressed by C. Mango: "This field has been pre-empted by folklorists whose methods are a puzzle to the historian. It is not, of course, inconceivable that certain remnants of pagan beliefs and practices should have survived the conversion of the common people to Christianity and lived on for centuries, transformed and misunderstood, but to be convinced of the existence of such continuity, we need a chain of evidence that is simply not there" (C. Mango, Discontinuity with the Classical Past in Byzantium, in: M. Mullet, R. Scott (eds.), *Byzantium and the Classical Tradition* (Birmingham: University of Birmingham, Centre for Byzantine Studies, 1981) 55.

(84) Georgoudi, L'égorgement sanctifié en Grèce moderne..., 271–307.

(85) F. R. Trombley, Popular Religion, in: A. Kazhdan et al. (eds.), *Oxford Dictionary of Byzantium*, vol. 3 (Oxford and New York: Oxford University Press, 1991) 1695–1696.

hagiographical texts. Thus hagiographical literature appears useful for gleaning evidence for reconstruction of Byzantine cultural and religious phenomena. Though it might be dangerous to claim the same trustworthiness of the hagiographical material as of what is generally considered more "serious" sources, such as chronicles and histories, yet hagiographical narratives have often proved to be valuable material for distilling reliable details of medieval history.[86] Even more so, they tend to reflect the *realia* of everyday life and culture that chronographers and historiographers considered too trivial to record — in this way, hagiography can provide unique insights into everyday life and ordinary practices not available from other types of sources.

Hagiographical legends, therefore, offer fascinating glimpses into popular Christianity, in the context of which the practice of animal sacrifice continued to flourish. The cult of St. George was particularly favoured with sacrificial offerings.[87] The cycle of miracles of St. George contains several allusions to animal sacrifices. A story that goes back probably to the fifth century relates the following incident.[88] A peasant called Theopistos made a promise to St. George to offer one of his two lost oxen as a sacrifice if the saint helped him to find them. After a su-

(86) See, for example, an excellent article by F. Halkin, Byzantine Hagiography in the Service of History, in: *Proceedings of the XIIIth International Congress of Byzantine Studies* (London: Oxford University Press, 1967) 345–354.

(87) There seems to be a long-lasting connection between the ritual slaying of animals and the cult of St. George. In certain regions that experienced considerable Byzantine influence, sacrifices on the saint's feast day have been continually practiced throughout the Middle Ages until our time. Most famous for this tradition is a Georgian region of Mingrelia. The seventeenth-century French traveller Jean Chardin visited the monastery of Ilori in Mingrelia. His notes preserve a detailed description of the feast of St. George that involved the immolation of a bull. Besides, he recorded the rituals of sacrificial offerings made on tombs (J. Chardin, *Voyage de monsieur le Chevalier Chardin en Perse et autres lieux de l'Orient*, vol. 1 (Amsterdam, 1711) 78 ff., cited in: Cumont, St. George and Mithra..., 63–65. In the same century the Russian legate Fedot Elchin described the celebration of the main Georgian feast of St. George that included the sacrifice of a bull and subsequent distribution of the meat (cf. Лурье, Из Иерусалима в Аксум..., 205). The curious Georgian custom was still in practice as late as the middle of the nineteenth century: its crucial element was the sacrifice of an ox which mysteriously entered the church ready for sacrifice on the day of the yearly festival of St George (Cumont, St. George and Mithra..., 63).

(88) J. Aufhauser (ed.), *Miracula S. Georgii* (Leipzig: Teubner, 1913) 44–64.

pernatural revelation of the place where the two animals were peacefully feeding, Theopistos went back on his promise to St. George and offered just a kid. The saint appeared in a dream once again reminding Theopistos of his promise to offer one of his bulls and reassured the peasant of his presence at the sacrificial feast. Yet the farmer did not take seriously the warning of St. George and with the agreement of his wife decided to slaughter just a sheep and a little lamb. In spite of further threatening apparitions of the saint in dreams Theopistos continued in his obstinacy to not sacrifice the promised animal, persuading himself that what he saw in dreams was no more than his own imagination. When, however, St. George promised to send fire and burn him as well as his entire house, the intimidated man resolved to sacrifice all his livestock, which was the last order of the saint. The rich and the poor of the village, as well as the priests, all participated in the sacrificial feast and chanted liturgical hymns to the saint from the evening till the morning. In the end, as befits a hagiographical story, a miracle occurred: at the prayer of St. George, who came to the sacrifice as he had promised, all the animals came back to life in threefold number to the astonishment and wonder of the people.

Several references to animal sacrifices offered to the same saint are found in the collection of miracles preserved only in different Slavonic dialects.[89] Scholars generally agree that this collection of miracles existing only in Slavonic is a translation of older versions of Byzantine origin that have been lost. These accounts vividly depict life in the Medieval Greek milieu. Yet some scholars assume that two miracles recounting the events connected with Bulgarian history are local, that is Old Bulgarian, compositions.[90] Though the manuscripts of Slavonic miracles of St. George are later, dated to the fourteenth-seventeenth

(89) Surviving manuscripts testify to the existence of Russian, Bulgarian, Ukrainian and Belo-Russian versions of miracles. For the discussion of the manuscripts, concise analysis of the collection, review of earlier scholarship and edition of the miracles see Б. Ангелов, Сказание за железния кръст, in: idem (ed.), *Из старата българска, руска и сръбска литература*, т. 3 (София, 1978) 61–98.

(90) The narratives supposedly of local Bulgarian origin are the following: "A miracle about an iron cross and about a Bulgarian" (in some manuscripts this miracle is divided into two: about deliverance of George the Bulgarian and about the healing of his wife) and "A miracle about Clement who was delivered by St. George in a battle," (Ангелов, *Из старата българска, руска и сръбска литература...*, 84–86 and 91–95 respectively). Both miracles refer to the events of the war of Tsar Symeon against the Hungarians.

century, the narratives allegedly reflect the society of the ninth-tenth centuries.[91]

Whatever the provenance of the original compositions, it does not have a major forbearance on the present discussion since animal sacrifices offered to St. George are an element common to the narratives of both Byzantine and arguably Slavonic origin and must represent the widespread tradition that originated early in the Byzantine milieu and was transmitted to other cultures as well, possibly along with the process of Christianization. Significantly, however, the compilation has been recognised as a valuable source revealing different aspects of political and cultural life of the communities, both Byzantine and Bulgarian, and disclosing a variety of religious and everyday customs. Therefore, the evidence of animal sacrifices, as recorded in the miracle accounts, should be given considerable weight. The frequency with which animal offerings are mentioned emphasizes the popularity and prominence of this ritual.

The fourth miracle of the collection, that has its setting in the military events of the Bulgarian war against the Hungarians, refers to animal sacrifices that were offered by the protagonist of the account, an unnamed Bulgarian soldier. After a miraculous escape from pursuing Hungarian horsemen, the Bulgarian soldier was counselled in a dream to buy another horse before going into the battle because the first one would die of a wounded leg. The man who appeared in a dream with a radiant face revealed himself as George, the slave of Christ. To him, upon wakening, the Bulgarian soldier brought praises and before going to war called a priest who conducted the holy liturgy. As a part of the liturgical celebration a number of animals were slaughtered — oxen, sheep and pigs, ten of each species — and their meat was distributed to the poor.[92]

Another interesting miracle bears the title "about a herder who was bitten by a snake." It narrates of a young lad who was nearing death because of the poisonous bite of a snake but was healed by the intervention of St. George through the intermediary of an old monk. Having escaped approaching death the young herder had to repent of a recent misdeed — he had sold some sheep in his herd which belonged to a widow, and had sworn to her that they had been eaten by wolves — and promised to return threefold for each sheep. He also

(91) Ангелов, *Из старата българска, руска и сръбска литература...*, 75.

(92) Ibid., 86.

vowed to give to the poor the tenth part of his flock on St. George's day through to the end of his life.[93]

The plot of the ninth miracle from the same collection is also set in the war period. The soldier, this time named Clement, when praying for deliverance from Hungarian horsemen vowed to St. George to bring on his feast day quite abundant sacrificial offerings: cows, oxen, sheep, and pigs, ten of each kind. After he safely escaped, he made it a custom until the last days of his life to prepare banquets that lasted for three days on the feast day of the saint. On the first day all kinds of maimed people were invited, on the second — priests and monks, and, finally, on the third day Clement feasted his relatives and friends. All this time he devoted himself to serving his guests and to generous almsgiving.[94]

Another hagiographical source of considerable value for our reconstruction of the Byzantine ritual of animal sacrifices is the *Life of St. Nicholas of Sion*.[95] It has been assumed that the author of the life, who remains unknown, had recourse to some original records of the monastery and made good use of them, providing in his composition precise figures, names, itineraries, and even the ailments of those seeking cure at the monastery.[96] The historicity of this life, therefore, has been highly esteemed and its data drawn upon for the reconstruction of the social and economic situation in sixth-century rural Anatolia.[97]

Chapters 54–57 of the hagiographical narrative abound in detailed descriptions of the sacrificial offerings enacted by St. Nicholas. All of the animals slaughtered were oxen, which were sacrificed, without exception, at the shrines of martyrs and archangels in the Lycian hinterland. It can be construed from the discourse that the church officially sanctioned the sacrificial rituals since they were authoritatively conducted by the holy man himself and, at times, constituted a part of a larger liturgical celebration:

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(93) Ангелов, *Из старата българска, руска и сръбска литература...*, 90.

(94) Ibid., 91–93.

(95) I. Ševčenko, N. Patterson-Ševčenko (text and trans.), *The Life of St. Nicholas of Sion* (Brookline, MA: Hellenic College Press, 1984).

(96) For a general discussion of the life see the introduction to the edition of Ihor Ševčenko and Nancy Patterson-Ševčenko.

(97) F. R. Trombley, Monastic Foundations in Sixth-century Anatolia and Their Role in the Social and Economic Life of the Countryside, *Greek Orthodox Theological Review* 30/1 (1985) 45–59.

> And in those days the servant of God Nicholas journeyed to the shrine of Saint George in Plenion. And the clerics from Plenion came along with their Christ-loving flock, singing litanies and carrying venerable crosses, and met the servant of God at the renowned Saint's [shrine]. And he went along with them from there, along with seven oxen. And they went to the shrine of Saint George, where the servant of God slaughtered the seven oxen. And crowds gathered, so that there were two hundred place settings.[98]

A great feast indispensably followed the sacrifices, to which the saint called all the local population. The celebrations were bountiful and food was usually left over. Such festivities, nothing new, have repeatedly featured the animal sacrifices in other sources. The hagiographer of the *Life of St. Nicholas of Sion* also reinforces the evidence inferred from Augustine's writings that the sacrificial offerings were enacted by Christians at the shrines of the martyrs.

It is particularly manifest in the hagiographical accounts of St. George and St Nicholas of Sion that the Christianized sacrifices offered to the saint had a charitable rather than expiatory character. Often they were a part of a larger liturgical celebration and sometimes enacted as a fulfillment of a preceding vow. It is noteworthy that the description of sacrificial offerings in the cycle of miracles of St. George shows that the Byzantine custom closely resembled its Italian counterpart connected with the cult of St. Felix, as recounted by Paulinus of Nola.

A motif parallel to the one described by Paulinus of Nola — the animals coming on their own accord to the place of sacrifice[99] — is found in Byzantine hagiography as well. The life of Athenogenes narrates of a mysterious event that happened each year on the feast day of the saint: after the liturgical reading of the Gospels, a doe with its fawn entered the church. The doe, upon offering its fawn to the saint, left the church. Thereafter, the young animal was sacrificed and eaten by the congregation.[100]

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(98) *The Life of St. Nicholas of Sion*, 87.

(99) *The Poems of St. Paulinus of Nola*, 167–170.

(100) The miracle is recounted in a Greek version of the *Passion* of the saint, chapters 28 and 40, in P. Maraval, *La passion inédite de S. Athénogène de Pédachthoé en Cappadoce (BHG 197b)* (Brussels: Société des Bollandistes, 1990) (Studia hagiographica 75) 58–60, 80. A rather curious fact has been pinpointed by Maraval — the passages containing the descriptions of the sacrifice of the fawn are absent from the Armenian version; ibid., 22, n. 79; 61, n. 64. A shortened version of the hagiographic story is given in the *Synaxarium*: "Λέγεται

The examined material vividly depicts the ritual in action. It shows that that animal sacrifices remained current in the Christian setting of Byzantine communities. Significant, in this respect, is the fact that the sacrificial rituals were often celebrated with active participation of the local clergy.[101] Even if not a part of speculative theology and official ecclesiastical policy, animal sacrifice was a factual part of a popular form of Medieval Christianity. The countryside appears to create the most auspicious conditions for the continuation of sacrifices in a new Christianized form. Indeed, the agricultural milieu, that is believed to have been originally the cradle of sacrifice, remained the favourable environment for its preservation. The rural ethos of small agricultural communities was difficult to reorganize in the process of Christianization. It demanded a different approach, which was indeed found in adapting the old customs for a new religious usage. In the Christian setting they were transformed and given a different meaning: being emptied of their function as sacrificial offerings for sins they regained a new significance of fellowship and thanksgiving sacrifices with a strong emphasis on the charitable aspect of the entire sacrificial ceremony.

Animal sacrifice and the church dedication: Re-evaluation of the Diegesis

The exposition of the sources that pertain to the phenomenon of animal sacrifices in the Christian context, if anything, can reassure us that the sacrifices of the *Diegesis* were not so outrageous and shocking for the medieval Byzantine audience as they may seem to a modern reader. What is more, one cannot but notice that the animal sacrifices

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δὲ περὶ αὐτοῦ ὅτι πρὸ τῆς κατασχέσεως ἀπελθὼν εἰς τὸ μοναστήριον, τοὺς μαθητὰς αὐτοῦ οὐχ εὗρε, προκατεσχέθησαν γάρ· τὴν δὲ ὑπαντήσασαν αὐτῷ ἔλαφον, ἣν ἀνεθρέψατο ἐν μονῇ, εὐλόγησε καὶ ἐπηύξατο μὴ κυριευθῆναι ὑπὸ τῶν κυνηγετῶν τὸ σπέρμα αὐτῆς, ἀλλὰ καθ᾽ ἕκαστον χρόνον ἄγειν ἐν τῇ μνήμῃ αὐτοῦ αὐτήν τε καὶ τὰς ἐξ αὐτῆς μελλούσας φύεσθαι μόσχον ἕνα· ὃ καὶ γέγονεν. Ὁρᾶται γὰρ μετὰ τὴν ἀνάγνωσιν τῶν ἁγίων εὐαγγελίων ἐν τῇ ἐκκλησίᾳ εἰσερχομένη ἡ ἔλαφος καὶ τὸν νεαρὸν αὐτῆς ἀνατιθεῖσα τῷ ἁγίῳ καὶ πάλιν ἐξιοῦσα· ὃν θύοντες οἱ συνειλεγμένοι εὐωχοῦνται εἰς δόξαν τοῦ ἁγίου μάρτυρος καὶ τιμήν." Delehaye, *Synaxarium*..., col. 826, l. 14–27. This particular instance of sacrifice has been considered by F. Cumont, L'archevêché de Pédachtoé et le sacrifice du faon, *Byzantion* 6 (1931) 521–533. Cf. also Cumont, St. George and Mithra..., 66; Pallas, *La 'Thalassa' dans l'Église Chrétienne*..., 109–110.

(101) Cf. also Pallas, *La 'Thalassa' dans l'Église Chrétienne*..., 110.

at the feast of *encaenia* of St Sophia have a clear correspondence with various descriptions of the ceremonies of animal sacrifice. Feasting of the poor and giving alms was frequently an integral part of Christianized sacrificial ceremonies. In conformity with the surviving records reviewed above, the sacrificial offerings that were made by Justinian in the description of the *Diegesis* were also distributed to the poor and the needy.

The major correspondence, however, is detected in the association of the animal sacrifices with the particular occasion of the church dedication. A few pivotal pieces of evidence demonstrate a close relationship of Christianised animal sacrifices with the dedication ceremonies of newly built churches. The recommendation to conduct animal sacrifices in connection with church dedications has been already noted above in the discussion of the letter of Gregory the Great to Mellitus. In the Armenian tradition, the offering of *matał* was also enjoined at the dedication of an altar of a newly built church. Additional evidence of such practices in the Eastern Christian liturgy is derived from the following source. This source is the apocryphal canons of St. Thaddeus — a work, which apparently was not concocted before 500, but possibly as late as 700. The Armenian version of the canons was perhaps compiled on the basis of the *Syriac Didascalia*, which appears to have been composed in the first half, even the first decades, of the third century.[102] There is a clear instruction to celebrate the church dedication with the ritual sacrifices following the example of Solomon's dedication of the Temple:

> …The apostle said: When the bishop sets up the altar (i.e. in a newly built church) it is proper on the same day to slay victims, bulls and rams and sheep; as Solomon did when he built his temple, and set

(102) The most recent edition and English translation have been made by A. Vööbus, *The Didascalia Apostolorum in Syriac*, 4 vols. (Louvain: Secretariat du corpus SCO, 1979) (CSCO 401–402; 407–408). The question of dating is discussed in P. Galtier, La date de la Didascalie des Âpotres, *Revue de l'histoire de religions* 42 (1947) 315ff; R. H. Connolly, *Didascalia Apostolorum* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1929) xci. On the nature of the *Syriac Didascalia* see V. C. van Unnik, The Significance of Moses' Law for the Church of Christ According to the Syriac Didascalia, in: *Sparsa Collecta: The Collected Essays of W. C. van Unnik*. Part III (Leiden: Brill, 1983) 8 ff. For the discussion of Jewish-Christian content, see Ch. E. Fonrobert, The *Didascalia Apostolorum*: A Mishnah for the Desciples of Jesus, *JECS* 9/4 (2001) 483–509.

> up the altar; and it was pleasing to God, and the Lord snuffed up the sweet smell.[103]

The pattern of Old Testament dedication looms large in the *Diegesis* as it also does in this passage from the canons of St. Thaddeus. The *topos* of comparison of Christian churches with the Temple of Solomon was rather commonplace.[104] It is no wonder that the ritual of Solomon's celebration of the dedication had an essential impact on the development of Christian rituals of dedication, which might have absorbed Jewish elements. Animal sacrifices must have been considered a too significant part of the glorious ceremony of the dedication conducted by Solomon to be omitted in its corresponding Christian ritual.

Another eloquent witness that the ceremony of the church dedication was to be accompanied by sacrificial offerings in the Christian context comes from a Coptic compilation describing the ecclesiastical office as it was practiced in twelfth-century Egypt. Although the compilation is attributed to Abu Salih the Armenian, it has been proved to have nothing to do either with the Armenian rite in general or Abu Salih in particular.[105] It contains the material of Coptic origin that underwent numerous re-workings, yet can be safely considered as representing the rituals of the Coptic church which, in its turn, must have penetrated into the Coptic liturgy at an earlier stage when there was no confessional division with Byzantium.[106] It is plausible, therefore, that a similar office of church dedication was practiced in the early Byzantine liturgy as well. The office of the church dedication, prescribed by the eleventh-century patriarch of Alexandria Anbâ Sinuthius, runs as follows:

> [This patriarch] also established that in the rite of consecration of churches the same customs should be followed as in all the churches of Egypt; and he bade the metropolitan direct the Abyssinians to slay at the completion of the building of a church twelve beasts, namely four oxen, four sheep, and four goats, three at each side of the church,

(103) Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 76–77.

(104) A bright example of the imitation of the Temple is presented in M. E. Heldman, Architectural Symbolism, Sacred Geography and the Ethiopian Church, *Journal of Religion in Africa* 22 (1992) 222–241, especially pages 232–235.

(105) U. Zanetti, Abu l-Makarim et Abu Saliḥ, *Bulletin de la Société d'archéologie copte* 34 (1995) 85–138.

(106) Лурье, Из Иерусалима в Аксум..., 160–161.

> and that they should distribute [the flesh] of all [of them] on the day when they ceased from the building of the church, as a gift to God who had helped them to complete a house in which offerings should be made to him and in which his name should be commemorated, and supplications and prayers and praises should be offered.[107]

It is evident that the pattern of immolations prescribed for the dedication of a church according to the given Coptic rite demonstrates close affinity with the abundant animal sacrifices offered at the dedication of St. Sophia. Another common aspect of the two ceremonies, along with the variety of animals immolated, is a charitable distribution of the meat to the people.

The most tangible model of the sacrifices at the *encaenia* of St Sophia, however, can be found in Armenian texts relating to the celebration of the Encaenia in Jerusalem that initially included the celebration of the dedication of the Holy Sepulchre[108] and the discovery of the Holy

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(107) B. T. A. Evetts (ed. and trans.), A. J. Butler (notes), *The Churches and Monasteries of Egypt and Some Neighbouring Countries, attributed to Abû Sâlih, the Armenian* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1895) 291. In the footnote to this text Butler pointed out that this custom of sacrificing animals was probably derived from the Jews and remained in Abyssinia after the conversion of the people to Christianity. He also mentioned other Coptic customs of slaying animals; which generally resemble those discussed above. Thus, a buffalo or sheep was commonly slain and given to the poor when the Copts visited the tombs of relatives during regular celebrations of Christmas, Epiphany, and Easter.

(108) The Holy Sepulchre is a later name for the complex erected by Constantine at the allegedly historical places of Golgotha and the tomb where Christ was buried. In the early sources the two buildings were differentiated: the church of Anastasis, built over Christ's tomb to commemorate it rather as a scene of his resurrection, and the *Martyrium* Basilica, which was a construction incorporating the rock of Calvary. Besides the rotunda and basilica, there was an inner *atrium* where the huge gemmed cross was erected in remembrance of Jesus' crucifixion. The literary and archaeological evidence suggest that the first building at the site was the Basilica. Apparently, it was already at the place when the pilgrim from Bordeaux was passing through Jerusalem in 333: "…a sinistra autem parte est monticulus Golgotha, ubi dominus crucifixus est. Inde quasi ad lapidem missum est cripta, ubi corpus eius positum fuit et tertia die resurrexit; ibidem modo iusso Constantini imperatoris basilica facta est, id est dominicum, mirae pulchritudinis..." (P. Geyer (ed.), *Itinerarium Burdigalense* ([Reprint] New York and London: Johnson Reprint Corporation, 1964]), 593, l. 4 – 594, l. 5. The Anastasis Rotunda was built a few years later. Yet, as a record in Egeria's diary points out, it was consecrated on the same day as the Basilica: "Item dies enceniarum appellantur quando sancta eccle-

Cross.[109] The first text, which is the *Menologion* entry for the feast of the Encaenia in Jerusalem, September 13,[110] describes the dedication of the Anastasis church in Jerusalem. It recounts the hagiographical version of the dedication: Constantine the Great, his mother Helena and bishop Silvester are told to have celebrated the festival of church dedication over an entire octave sacrificing rams and steers.[111]

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sia, quae in Golgotha est, quam Martyrium uocant, consecrate est a Deo; sed et sancta ecclesia, quae est ad Anastase, id est in eo loco ubi Dominus resurrexit post passionem, ea die et ipsa consecrata est Deo." (P. Maraval (intro., ed. and trans.), Egeria, *Journal de voyage* (Paris: Les éditions du Cerf, 1982) (SC 296) 262. Eusebius, however, reserved the term *martyrium* (μαρτύριον) for the tomb itself. For a fuller analysis of the terminology, see Walker, 237, 268–269; R. Ousterhout, The Temple, the Sepulchre, and the Martyrion of the Saviour, *Gesta* 29/1 (1990) 44–53, esp. 50–51. For the architectural history of the Holy Sepulchre, see Ch. Coüasnon, *The Church of the Holy Sepulchre in Jerusalem* (London: Oxford University Press, 1974); V. Corbo, *Il Santo Sepolcro di Gerusalemme. Aspetti archeologici dalle origini al periodo crociato* (Jerusalem: Franciscan Printing Press, 1981).

(109) It is necessary to stress the significance of Armenian and Georgian sources for the reconstruction of the early phase of the Byzantine liturgy. Thus, the liturgy of the Encaenia is fairly well reconstructed on the basis of surviving Armenian and Georgian lectionaries (M. Tarchnischvili (trans.), *Le Grand Lectionnaire de l'Église de Jérusalem (V^e–VIIe siècle)*, vol. 2 (Louvain: Secrétariat du Corpus SCO, 1960) (CSCO 205, *SI* 14) 36–40; A. Renoux, *Le codex Arménien Jérusalem 121. Edition comparée du texte et de deux autres manuscrits* (Turnhout: Brepols, 1971) (PO 36/2), 361–363. A valuable eye-witness account of the Encaenia festival in Jerusalem comes from the pen of a pilgrim from Gaul Egeria. She mentions that the Encaenia commemorated both the church dedication and the discovery of the Cross (ch. 48.1–2): "Harum ergo ecclesiarum sanctarum encenia cum summo honore celebrantur, quoniam crux Domini inuenta est ipsa die" (Egeria, *Journal de voyage*, 262–264). The English translation and commentary on Egeria's diary was made by J. Wilkinson, *Egeria's Travels to the Holy Land* (Jerusalem: Ariel Publishing House, Warminster: Aris & Phillips, 1981). The early history of the Encaenia and the imperial ideology behind it have been studied by M. A. Fraser, *The Feast of the Encaenia in the Fourth Century and in the Ancient Liturgical Sources of Jerusalem* (PhD Thesis, University of Durham, 1995); idem, Constantine and the Encaenia, *Studia Patristica* 39 (1997) 25–28.

(110) Cf. Manuscripts of the Bodleian Library in Oxford *Marsh* 438, ff. 46v–48r and *Arm. c.* 3, ff. 53v–55r. The text remains unedited and largely unknown to the wide public.

(111) Conybeare, *Rituale Armenorum...*, 76, n.a.

Another text, known as a rather serious historical source, is an excerpt from the Armenian "History of Heraclius" ascribed to Sebeos.[112] It describes the restoration of the Holy Cross to Constantinople by the Emperor Heraclius. Although there is no clear-cut reference to ritual sacrificing, the oxen mentioned in this context could hardly be meant for anything else but sacrificial purposes:

> Then the next day they held another service in the great cathedral which was called Ayia Sophia and they celebrated the feast of the Holy Cross, which was the 14th day of the month September, with plenty of oxen, sweet-smelling incense and shining luminaries, for they decided to celebrate the feast of the Holy Cross during eight days.[113]

The ceremony of the restoration of the Holy Cross, as the story goes, was celebrated in Constantinople on September 14 following the celebration of "the great day of the dedications on September 13."[114] Since the two feasts originated from essentially the same festival,[115] we can conclude that they reflect a common tradition. Significantly, both the commemoration entry in the Armenian *Menologion* and the passage from the "History of Heraclius" by Sebeos are unanimous in describing the two feasts constituting the Encaenia as being celebrated with animal offerings. The evidence derived from these sources strongly suggests that animal sacrifice was a vital element in the Early Byzantine liturgy of the Encaenia.

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(112) J.-P. Mahé, Critical Remarks on the Newly Edited excerpts from Sebēos, in: Th. J. Samuelian, M. E. Stone (eds.), *Medieval Armenian Culture* (Chico, CA: Scholars Press, 1984) 218–239.

(113) Mahé, Critical Remarks..., 232.

(114) Ibid.

(115) Although initially the festival of the Encaenia included the celebration of the church dedications (Anastasis and Martyrion) and the feast of the Cross, with time the celebration of the Cross became a dominant element and totally eclipsed the dedication part. The feast of the Cross, in its turn, was modified with additional elements — if at the beginning it was the commemoration of the discovery of the True Cross by Helena, later it received a new layer of meaning with the "recovery of the Cross" motif, which celebrated the restoration of the Cross by the emperor Heraclius. For the development of the feast of the Cross, see L. van Tongeren, *Exaltation of the Cross: Towards the Origins of the Feast of the Cross and the Meaning of the Cross in Early Medieval Liturgy* (Leuven—Paris—Sterling, VG: Peeters, 2000).

The similarity between the two *encaenia* that were celebrated with ritual sacrificial ceremonies — the Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre and the dedication of the Great Church of St. Sophia — is difficult to consider a mere accident. It suggests the familiarity with the "Encaenia of the Holy Sepulchre" tradition transmitted in the Armenian sources and, quite likely, its conscious imitation in the *Diegesis*. In fact, there were some deeper ideological reasons for such a deliberate mimesis. The church of the Holy Sepulchre was construed from the very beginning as the New Jerusalem or the New Temple.[116] The same high status was later advocated for Constantinople and the church of St Sophia which assumed the role of the major religious shrine and focus of pilgrimage.[117] The construction of the image of St. Sophia as the New Temple necessitated its representation as superseding not only the Temple of Solomon, but also the Holy Sepulchre, for the topmost status of the latter had been already established by various means.[118] The author of the *Diegesis* had to tackle the dual ancestry and was bound to promote St. Sophia as excelling both its rivals: the Temple of Solomon and the Holy Sepulchre.[119] To attain this goal, the author had at his dis-

(116) Thus, already Eusebius of Caesarea in his *Vita Canstantini* claimed the status of New Jerusalem for the Holy Sepulchre in F. Winkelmann, *Über das Leben des Kaisers Konstantins* ([Reprint] Berlin: Akademie Verlag, 1991) (GSC Eusebius, I/I), III, 33.1–2.

(117) B. Flusin, Construire une nouvelle Jérusalem: Constantinople et les reliques, in: M. A. Amiz-Moezzi, J. Scheid (eds.), *L'orient dans l'histoire religieuse de l'Europe. L'invention des origins* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2000) 51–70; B. Bitton-Ashkelony, *Encountering the Sacred. The Debate on Christian Pilgrimage in Late Antiquity* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2005) 201–206; cf. *Vie de s. Daniel le Stylite*, in : H. Delehaye (ed.), *Les saints stylites* (Brussels: Société de Bollandistes, 1923) 12.

(118) The "Temple-Holy Sepulchre" imagery is discussed by J. Schwartz, The *Encaenia* of the Church of the Holy Sepulchre, the Temple of Solomon and the Jews, *Theologische Zeitschrift* 43 (1987) 265–281.

(119) The church of St. Sophia is likened to both the Temple and the Holy Sepulchre already in the sixth century hymn of Romanos the Melodist. The achievements of the imperial pair who founded the church are plainly declared as surpassing the accomplishments of all the previous emperors. The church, it is implied, excelled the preceding foundations as well. *On Earthquakes and Fires*, 22–23, in: J. Grosdidier de Matons (ed.), Romanos le Mélode, *Hymnes*, vol. 5 (Paris: Cerf, 1981) (SC 283), 494–496. English translation of the hymn can be found in R. J. Schork, *Sacred Songs from the Byzantine Pulpit: Romanos the Melodist* (Gainesville: University Press of Florida, 1995) 184–195.

posal methods of literary imitation and symbolic appropriation of the Temple widely employed in various religious compositions.[120]

Conscious appropriation and transfer of the motif of sacrificing at the Encaenia in Jerusalem, like the Old Testament description of the sacrifices at the dedication ceremony of the Temple, into the *Diegesis* of St. Sophia was a technique to ascribe the equal or even superior importance to the Great Church of Constantinople. Animal sacrifices must have been viewed as a crucial element of the ceremony that would add weight to establishment of the image of St. Sophia as *The* Temple and assert its pre-eminence.

As a conclusion to what has been said above, I want to propose an alternative solution to the puzzle of the animal sacrifices in the *Diegesis*, which is contrary to both the complete negation of the phenomenon and the allegation of the historicity of the description. It is possible to assume that the author and the audience of the *Diegesis* were aware of Christian rituals of animal sacrifice which were observed either in earlier times or by some contemporary Christian communities, more likely in peripheral regions of the Empire. Possibly, the curious passage from the *Diegesis* reflects the "popular memory" or current perception of how the ceremony must have happened: it was naturally expected that the *encaenia* of such a great shrine as St Sophia had also a very special and distinct celebration. The medieval author, who almost doubtless was acquainted with the narrative tradition, literary or oral, of the greatest (for Byzantine Christians) dedications of the Temple and the Holy Sepulchre that were necessarily accompanied by sacrificial ritual, could not but imagine the *encaenia* of St. Sophia conducted in a similar way. Thus, I suggest that the description of lavish animal sacrifices upon the initiative of the emperor was deliberately introduced into the canvas of the narrative, following the tradition recounting the major *encaenia*, as a popular theme that was accorded extraordinary significance. The plot with the enactment of sacrifices was intended as a powerful means for enhancing the eminent status of its imperial founder and for securing a special prestige for the topmost event of the dedication of St. Sofia, the prominence of which would also be imparted to the church dedicated.

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(120) More on the subject of *translatio Templi*, although in the Ethiopian context, can be found in the article of Лурье, Из Иерусалима в Аксум... See also M. E. Heldman, Architectural Symbolism, Sacred Geography and the Ethiopian Church, *Journal of Religion in Africa* 22 (1992) 222–241, especially pages 235–237.

Addenda

A couple of scholarly studies dealing with the topic covered in this article were brought to my attention after the paper was completed and submitted for publication. The most relevant to my own enquiry is the article of N. D. Barabanov, «Благочестивые заклания. Традиции публичных жертвоприношений в византийском приходском православии [Pious Immolations. Traditions of public sacrifices in the Byzantine parish piety]», *Византийский Временник* 63 (2004) 89–113. N. D. Barabanov examines a number of textual data pertinent to the issue of animal sacrifice in Byzantium as a phenomenon of popular religion that, because of being rather profitable for the Byzantine clergy, was leniently tolerated and even practiced by the priests circumventing official regulations of the Byzantine church.

The second work is the book by M.-Z. Petropoulou, *Animal Sacrifice in Ancient Greek Religion, Judaism, and Christianity, 100 BC to AD 200* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2008). This just-out-of-print fundamental monograph on animal sacrifice in Greek, Jewish and early Christian religions is only of marginal importance for the present study. It treats material much earlier than the scope of the present article that essentially focuses on Late Antique and Medieval periods. Yet, it could be consulted as a useful resource on the practice and attitudes towards animal sacrifice in the pagan and Jewish contexts — the milieu where Christianity first emerged. Treating the issue of animal sacrifice as viewed by early Christians in the period before the Temple destruction (AD 70) and, then in the span between AD 70 and AD 200, M.-Z. Petropoulou arrives at some interesting conclusions. She considers that there indeed could be some groups of Christians in the pre-AD 70 period that continued to practice the Jewish cultic rites, which necessarily involved the ritual slaying of animals. Such sacrificial practices, as the reviewed evidence testifies, were entirely rejected by the Christians in the second century. Having completed her exhaustive study of animal sacrifice in the defined chronological framework, the author, quite justifiably, does not protrude her inquiry any further. The only reference to Late Antique sacrifice offered to Christian martyrs and the sacrificial feasts held in honor of local saints is found on page 263 and note 137, which is repeated later on page 294 and note 10. The history of animal sacrifice in the Late Antiquity and Middle Ages, therefore, still remains to be written.

On this occasion, I would like to express my gratitude to B. Lourié and N. D. Barabanov for making this additional material known and

available to me. I am also thankful to B. Lourié and my supervisor P. Van Deun for helpful comments and suggestions made in the process of my work on this article.

SUMMARY

The article proposes a plausible explanation for the Christianized ritual of animal sacrifice enacted at a ceremony of church dedication as described in the Byzantine legend of the building of St. Sophia in Constantinople. In order to provide a relevant context for such a reconstruction of models and sources that might have inspired the anonymous author to incorporate this curious motif into his account, considerable attention has been devoted to a re-appraisal of the problem of animal sacrifice within the system of Late Antique and Medieval liturgical practices. For that reason, a detailed overview of the source material pertaining to Medieval Latin, Armenian and Byzantine traditions has been given. The account of the celebration of the *encaenia* of St. Sophia, which described lavish animal immolations conducted by the emperor Justinian, has been re-examined in the light of surviving evidence. The conclusion reached in the process of the present study suggests that the theme of animal sacrifice was not that alien and bizarre to the Byzantine audience as it had been thus far believed, and that this motif must have played a significant role in presenting the church of St. Sophia as equal to, or rather surpassing previous great religious foundations — the Jerusalem Temple and the Holy Sepulchre — and securing special prestige to its imperial founder, Justinian the Great.

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MICHEL PSELLOS CONTRE MAXIME LE CONFESSEUR : L'ORIGINE DE L' « HÉRÉSIE DES PHYSÉTHÉSITES »

La fin du XIe siècle, c'est l'époque de la formation définitive de la collection byzantine des œuvres du S. Maxime le Confesseur. Aujourd'hui nos connaissances de l'héritage maximien dépendent à peu près totalement de ce qu'ont pu collectionner à cette époque. (Une grande partie a été déjà perdue, à ce qu'on peut juger par le corpus maximien, encore inédit, qui subsiste en géorgien[1].) On sait qu'à l'époque, on recourait souvent aux manuscrits maximiens dans les discussions dogmatiques. Le manuscrit maximien de la seconde moitié du XIe siècle, l'*Angelicus gr. 120*, en est le meilleur témoin. On y voit les scholies marginales adressées à Jean Italos, le moine Nil et à l'évêque Léon de Chalcédoine, des figurants des grands procès dogmatiques de l'époque.[2]

Le statut de la théologie maximienne vers la moitié du XIe siècle sera l'objet central de la communication présente.

Bien que la christologie dyothélite ait été hors de question depuis longtemps, il n'en était pas de même en ce qui concerne la totalité de l'œuvre théologique de Maxime. Les controverses iconoclastes en ont fait une preuve. À vrai dire, le VIe Concile Œcuménique se n'est pas prononcé par un seul mot sur la mémoire de Maxime (sauf sa condamnation dans le discours de la tête des monothélites Macaire d'Antioche ; parmi les Pères du Concile, personne n'a lui imputé ces mots contre Maxime). Les iconoclastes ne suivaient Maxime non plus, et leurs opposants n'ont pas senti qu'il serait opportun, au cours de la polémique, d'avoir recours à son autorité.

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(1) V., pour les œuvres maximiennes qui ne sont accessibles qu'en géorgien, M. van Esbroeck, La question 66 du «Ad Thalassium» géorgien, dans : A. Schoors et P. Van Deun, *Philohistôr. Miscellanea in honorem Caroli Laga septuagenarii* (Leuven, 1994) (Orientalia Lovaniensia Analecta, 60) 329–337.

(2) J. Noret, Une allusion à Léon de Chalcédoine et non à un ps.-saint Cédonius. Datation des scholies de l'*Angelicus gr.* 120, *AB* 108 (1990) 320–322.

Certes, la théologie maximienne a été réclamée par les défenseurs des icônes, mais cela ne voulait pas dire qu'elle soit devenue, même après leur victoire, une théologie tout à fait officielle.

Il est jusqu'ici difficile de comprendre qu'est-ce qui s'est fait à cette théologie pendant les *Dark Ages* de la théologie byzantine, entre la moitié du IXe jusqu'à la moitié d'XIe siècle. La situation vers la fin d'XIe siècle est maintenant beaucoup plus claire : on y voit que la théologie des défenseurs des icônes aussi bien que la théologie maximienne ont été généralement oubliées. On en peut se convaincre grâce aux affaires de Léon de Chalcédoine et Eustrate de Nicée, où personne ne saurait pas expliquer les détails de la doctrine orthodoxe sur l'humanité du Christ.[3]

Une renaissance théologique se fera attendre jusqu'à la moitié du siècle suivant dont la personne la plus proéminente sera Nicolas, évêque de Méthone. Toutefois, jusqu'à la chute de Constantinople en 1204, le point central de la plupart des discussions théologiques restera la différence entre l'union avec le Dieu φύσει (par nature) ou θέσει (par adoption, littéralement, « par position »), soit pour l'humanité du Christ, soit pour ceux qui sont sauvés.

La figure de Michel Psellos restait toujours à l'arrière-plan des querelles théologiques. Jean Italos qui a été condamné le premier dans la série de ces querelles théologiques, était son disciple. Eustrate de Nicée, lui aussi condamné pour l'hérésie, était, à son tour, un disciple d'Italos. Certes, le moine Nil a été condamné (vers 1087 environ) comme si un copain de Jean Italos, pour la même hérésie des φυσεθεσιτῶν. Enfin, certes, c'est le texte de Maxime sur l'union hypostatique, qu'un auteur des scholies dans un manuscrit des *Quaestiones ad Thalassium* a opposé à l'hérésie des φυσεθεσιτῶν Italos et moine Nil.[4] Mais personne, jusqu'ici, n'a examiné la possibilité de la responsabilité de Michel Psellos de l'origine de cette hérésie mystérieuse des « physéthésites ».

1. L'hérésie des « physéthésites »

Formellement, ce n'étaient pas que Italos et le moine Nil qui ont été condamnés pour l'hérésie nommée « physéthésite ». Cependant, la

(3) B. Lourié, Une dispute sans justes : Léon de Chalcédoine, Eustrate de Nicée et la troisième querelle sur les images sacrées, *SP* 42 (2006) 321–339. Pour un contexte plus large, voir : В. М. *Лурье*, при участии В. А. Баранова, *История византийской философии. Формативный период* (Санкт-Петербург, 2006).

(4) Il s'agit du manuscrit *Angelicus gr. 120*, v. ci-dessus.

problématique de la déification de l'humanité, dans le Christ et dans l'Église, restait central pour toute la polémique dogmatique au-dedans de Byzance, de Jean Italos à Michel Glykas vers l'année 1200.[5] Il est donc important d'en examiner les racines.

Dans une longue énumération des erreurs de Jean Italos dans le *Synodicon de l'Orthodoxie*[6] (introduite par le synode constantinopolitain de 1076–1077), la christologie occupe la place première, même avant les condamnations de ses erreurs « helléniques » :

> « Ceux qui tendent d'introduire de quelque façon un examen et un enseignement nouveaux touchant l'ineffable économie de l'incarnation de notre Sauveur et Dieu, et d'examiner suivant quel mode Dieu le Verbe s'est uni à la pâte humaine (τῷ ἀνθρωπίνῳ φυράματι), et suivant quel principe il a divinisé la chair assumée, et s'évertuent à jongler avec les distinctions dialectiques : 'de nature et d'adoption', à propos du prodige surnaturel des deux natures de l'homme et du Dieu (καὶ λόγοις διαλεκτικοῖς φύσιν καὶ θέσιν ἐπὶ τῆς ὑπὲρ φύσιν καινοτομίας τῶν δύο φύσεων[7] τοῦ Θεοῦ καὶ ἀνθρώπου λογομαχεῖν πειρωμένοις), anathème » (p. 56/57).

Il est pourtant symptomatique qu'une expression correcte au lieu de celle de φύσις et θέσις n'a été jamais proposée, ni par le synode cité, ni par le second synode contre Italos en 1082.

L'hérésie de Nil le Calabrais a été condamnée entre 1084 et 1094 (vers 1087 environ).[8] La source principale en est « Le livret de pénitence » de Nil[9] contenant huit anathématismes. Ces anathématismes forment un système doctrinal contre une hérésie qui n'est pas un simple

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(5) V., par exemple, J. Meyendorff, *Christ in Eastern Christian Thought* (Crestwood, NY, ²1987) 195–201. Pour la revue la plus détaillée des querelles christologiques de l'époque, on saurait se profiter même aujourd'hui de M. Jugie, *Theologia dogmatica christianorum orientalium, ab Ecclesia Catholica dissidentium*, t. II et III (Parisiis, 1933 et 1930).

(6) Ce sont l'édition et la traduction de J. Gouillard qui seront toujours citées, par la page seulement (p. du texte grec / p. de la traduction française) : J. Gouillard, Le *Synodikon* de l'Orthodoxie. Édition et commentaire, *Travaux et mémoires* 2 (1967) 3–316.

(7) L'expression de Grégoire de Nazianze, comme l'a noté Gouillard (p. 57, n. 263) : *Oratio XXXIX* (*PG* 36, 348D).

(8) V., pour la chronologie, Gouillard, Le *Synodikon* de l'Orthodoxie..., 202–206.

(9) Édité et traduit dans Gouillard, Le *Synodikon* de l'Orthodoxie..., 299–303.

avatar du monophysisme ou du nestorianisme quelconque, ni même une dérivée du paulicianisme supposée ici par Nina Garsoïan.[10]

D'abord, dans l'anathématisme premier, on rappelle encore une fois les φύσις et θέσις :

> « Quiconque dire que la nature assumée de Dieu le Verbe a été divinisée par adoption ou grâce, qu'il soit anathème. Il faut, en effet, bannir, comme étrangères à l'Église, les expressions et 'par grâce' et 'par adoption' et 'par nature', pour n'admettre et révérer comme approuvée que celle de 'au-dessus de la nature' (Εἴ τις κατὰ θέσιν ἢ χάριν τὸ πρόσλημμα τοῦ Λόγου καὶ Θεοῦ τεθεῶσθαι λέγοι, ἔστω ἀνάθεμα. Χρὴ γὰρ καὶ τὸ κατὰ χάριν καὶ τὸ κατὰ θέσιν καὶ τὸ κατὰ φύσιν παραδραμόντας ὡς τῆς ἐκκλησίας ἀλλότρια τὸ ὑπὲρ φύσιν μόνον ἀποδέχεσθαι καὶ τιμᾶν ὡς ἐγκεκριμμένον)… (p. 300/301).

On voit que même dans ce contexte on ne mentionne pas l'union hypostatique, tout en se limitant d'une phrase très imprécise de l'union « au-dessus de la nature ». D'ailleurs, la scholie à la margine du manuscrit maximien sur l'hérésie des « physéthésites » Italos et Nil vise précisément une définition maximienne de l'union hypostatique.

Le reste des anathématismes du « Livret » de Nil visent à protéger la doctrine christologique des problèmes posés par des interprétations incorrectes des relations des deux natures (sauf le dernier, le 8e : anathématisation de quiconque qui prétende d'avoir une révélation nouvelle du mystère de l'incarnation). On a spécifié ici six erreurs (anathématismes 2 à 7) :

> 2. « …que toutes les hypostases humaines sont contenues dans la chair assumée du Seigneur » : c'est une conséquence absurde de la thèse orthodoxe que la nature humaine du Christ, c'est la nature humaine commune, pas celle d'un individu humain.
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> 3. la déification du corps du Christ après sa résurrection seulement (c.à.d., le changement du corps du Christ au moment de la

(10) N. Garsoïan, L'abjuration du moine Nil de Calabre, *Byzantinoslavica* 35 (1974) 12–27. L'hypothèse de l'auteur ne se fond sur aucun témoignage d'une thèse « physéthésite » dans les milieux pauliciens ou arméniens monophysites, tout en se limitant des conjectures. Elle est donc falsifiable par une simple indication de l'existence d'une doctrine « physéthésite » dans les milieux constantinopolitains de l'époque, autres que le cercle des disciples directes de Jean Italos.

résurrection)[11] : en effet, l'unité de nature entre tous les hommes et le Christ fait un embarras dont le changement du corps est un moyen facile de débarrasser. C'est une doctrine bien connue dans l'iconoclasme et bien avant celui-ci, au VIe siècle.[12] Cependant, elle n'a pas été anathématisée officiellement avant ce moment.

4. « …que les hommes vertueux sont divinisés de la même divinisation que le Christ » : encore une conclusion peu orthodoxe du fait que la nature humaine du Christ est la nature commune.

5. doctrine de deux Christs et deux Fils, l'erreur de Nestorius : encore un moyen trop facile d'expliquer le fait de la nature humaine commune dans le Christ.

6. union des fidèles avec le Christ par l'hypostase : une variante de l'erreur mentionnée ci-dessus (point 3).

7. la Théotokos n'est pas la Mère de Dieu au sens propre (κυρίως) : encore une fois, l'erreur de Nestorius.

Il ne faut pas comprendre tous ses points comme énumérant les erreurs actuelles du moine Nil. Il était d'habitude d'anathématiser, avec ses erreurs réelles, quelques extrêmes opposants, afin de se protéger de tout côté.

Derrière tous ces points, on reconnaît une conception christologique byzantine dont la vivacité, depuis le VIe siècle, on ne saurait pas laisser s'étonner. Son fondement n'est que quatre positions principales : (1) l'humanité du Christ est la nature humaine commune (c.à.d., Jésus n'est pas un individu humain), (2) le Christ est Dieu par nature (φύσει), (3) la déification de la nature humaine n'est pas possible que par adoption (θέσει), (4) la résurrection du Christ doive donc présupposer un changement du corps humain ordinaire à un corps « spirituel », complètement distinct de celui des autres hommes, mais identique à ceux que les personnes sauvées recevront au moment de la résurrection finale. Les positions (1) et (2) sont communes avec la doctrine orthodoxe (dans le sens maximien), la position (3) ignore la

(11) « Quiconque énonce cette ineptie que, après la résurrection, Notre Seigneur Jésus-Christ a connu l'apothéose et a reçu la divinisation (ἀποθεωθῆναι... καὶ λαβεῖν τὴν θέωσιν) en récompense de sa vie vertueuse, anathème » (p. 300/301).

(12) V. : B. Lourie, Le second iconoclasme en recherche de la vraie doctrine, *SP* 34 (2000) 145–169 ; V. Baranov, Origen and the Iconoclastic Controversy, dans : L. Perrone et al. (eds.), *Origeniana Octava* (Leuven, 2004) (BETL 164) 1043–1052 ; idem, The Theological Background of Iconoclastic Church Programmes, *SP* 40 (2006) 165–175. Pour un contexte plus large, v. : *Лурье*, Баранов, *История византийской философии…*

possibilité de l'union hypostatique (au sens distinct de l'union « par nature »), la position (4) contient la négation de la déification du corps du Christ du moment de la conception. Tout cela amène à une confusion entre la déification finale des personnes sauvées et du Christ et à la séparation du corps né par Marie de la déification et du Dieu. Par exemple, tel était l'argumentation des iconoclastes : certes, il est possible de faire des images du corps né par Marie, mais les images de celui-ci ne seront pas celles du corps de Dieu.

C'était une christologie d'Eutychius, patriarche de Constantinople (552–565 et 577–582) deux fois déposé pour l'hérésie, renouvelée par une partie des monothélites dans le VIIe siècle et renouvelée encore une fois par les iconoclastes. Maxime visait cette christologie dans sa synthèse doctrinale, surtout dans ces conceptions de l'union hypostatique et de la déification, mais ces aspects de sa doctrine n'étaient jamais promulgués par les synodes.[13]

On ne voit, dans le « Livret » du moine Nil, aucune nouvelle idée par rapport aux christologies d'Eutychius et des iconoclastes. En effet, la christologie de l'iconoclasme n'a été examinée en détails ni en 787, ni en 843. Elle continuait coexister avec celle de Maxime le Confesseur jusqu'à l'XIe siècle.

Chez Nil, nous ne voyons d'ailleurs aucun trait du platonisme de Proclus, qui était en vogue à l'époque et dont un promoteur éminent était Jean Italos. Cependant, même la condamnation de la théologie platonicienne de Jean Italos commence par la thèse « physéthésite » qu'elle avait en commun avec la doctrine du moine Nil.

Une proximité entre Nil et Jean Italos est importante à évaluer comment la christologie « physéthésite » était autoritaire à l'époque. Il nous faut donc en chercher des témoignages davantage. Et cette recherche nous amène à Michel Psellos.

2. Psellos comme un « physéthésite »

Psellos[14] composait une série des commentaires à Grégoire de Nazianze qu'il est difficile de ne pas nommer les « anti-*Ambigua* », telle

(13) Pour ces aspects de la théologie maximienne, v. : Лурье, Баранов, *История византийской философии…*

(14) La meilleure introduction à la personnalité et l'œuvre de Psellos a été préparée par Yakov Lubarsky (« Michel Psellos : personnalité et l'œuvre » ; 1978) qui suivait, à son tour, l'étude de P. Bezobrazov (« L'écrivain et l'homme d'état byzantin Michel Psellos » ; 1890). Les deux études ne sont accessibles qu'en russe. Les deux sont rééditées récemment sous la même couverture :

était leur acuité polémique contre Maxime le Confesseur.[15] Dans ces opuscules théologiques adressés, pour la plupart, à ses disciples, Psellos s'explique franchement et sans équivoques, ce qui fait ces opuscules la source principale pour comprendre la théologie de Psellos.

Il faut cependant admettre que Psellos savait bien la doctrine maximienne. Pour lui, c'est un auteur classique, quoique pas un saint Père d'Église. Il le cite souvent, soit sous le nom de « sage Maxime », soit sans aucun nom (comme il était d'habitude de citer les manuels de classe), pour quelques définitions philosophiques nécessaires dans les formulations des dogmes ou bien pour certains exégèses scripturaires.[16] Parfois on saurait saisir, chez Psellos, un peu d'irritation à son adresse.[17]

П. В. Безобразов, *Византийский писатель и государственный деятель Михаил Пселл*; Я. Н. Любарский, *Михаил Пселл: личность и творчество* (Санкт-Петербург, 2001) (Византийская библиотека. Исследования). Malheureusement, personne n'a présenté une étude approfondie de la théologie de Psellos. D'ailleurs, une pareille étude serait prématurée avant la publication des *Theologica* (v. la note suivante).

(15) Ce ne sont que les opuscules groupés dans deux cycles qui ont été édités récemment sous le nom *Theologica* qui seront relevants pour notre analyse : P. Gautier, Michaelis Pselli *Theologica* I (Leipzig, 1989) (BSGRT) ; L. G. Westerink, J. M. Duffy, Michael Psellos, *Theologica* II (München—Leipzig, 2002) (BSGRT). Cité ci-dessous par le numéro du volume (chiffre romain), numéro de l'opuscule (chiffre arabe), numéro de la ligne de l'opuscule (chiffre arabe après le point) et page. Les opuscules du volume *Theol* II ne sont intéressants, pour notre but, que par la manière de citer Maxime dans les œuvres propédeutiques. On y voit que plusieurs textes maximiens ont été considérés comme des sources des définitions pour les manuels de théologie. Le reste de l'héritage littéraire et même théologique de Psellos est, pour l'étude de sa christologie, d'importance secondaire. Du moins, ses idées christologiques originales et peu patristiques n'y sont guère perceptibles. On devra cependant relire les œuvres théologiques et philosophiques de Psellos dans leur totalité pour ce prononcer sur la triadologie de Psellos et surtout sur son platonisme qui n'était pas limité de la philosophie. Celui qui entreprendra une pareille étude devra prendre pour le point de départ les deux tomes des œuvres philosophiques : J. M. Duffy, Michaelis Pselli *Philosophica minora*, vol. 1 (Leipzig, 1992) (BSGRT); D. J. O'Meara, Michaelis Pselli *Philosophica minora*, vol. 2 (Leipzig, 1989) (BSGRT).

(16) V. les index dans les deux volumes des *Theologica*, sous le nom de Maxime.

(17) Un des « anti-*Ambigua* » pselliens est consacré à l'exégèse des nombres dans les miracles évangéliques avec la multiplication des pains, sur

Mais, en outre, il y a quelques instances où Maxime est cité comme « Maxime le Philosophe » à titre de l'adressé principal de la polémique dogmatique. Sur-le-champ, nous nous trouvons précisément au cœur de la polémique sur le « physéthétisme ».

Psellos (I, 59) commente la formulation du principe *tantum-quantum* de la déification humaine chez Grégoire de Nazianze (*Oratio* XL, *PG* 36, 424 B), finissant par une escapade contre Maxime le Confesseur. Nous le citons en parallèle avec Maxime, *Ambigua ad Thomam*, 3 (trad. Larchet[18]) :

Psellos (I, 59.160–170, p. 234)	**Traduction**	**Maxime, *AmbTh* 3**
'῞Ινα γένωμαι τοσοῦτον θεὸς ὅσον ἐκεῖνος ἄνθρωπος'. <…> τὸ 'γίνομαι' ἐπὶ τούτων τῶν ῥητῶν οὐ τὸν καθ' ἕνα δηλοῖ ἄνθρωπον, ἐπεὶ μηδὲ δυνατὸν ἄνθρωπόν	'Afin que je devienne Dieu autant que Lui est devenu homme.' <…> 'Devenir' dans cette phrase ne porte pas sur l'homme individuel, car il n'est pas possible à un certain	Ces mots : 'afin que je devienne Dieu autant que Lui est devenu homme', ce n'est pas à moi de les dire, souillé que je suis par le péché <…>, mais plutôt à vous que la grâce a

Grégoire de Nazianze, *Oratio* XLI, *PG* 36, 433 C. Le parallèle maximien est *Ambigua*, *PG* 91, 1396 B–1404 C. Psellos base son commentaire sur le symbolisme des nombres chez Proclus, dans son *Commentaire à* Timée *de Platon*. Il en va sans dire que le résulte en est peu maximien. Psellos le remarque lui-même dans les mots suivants : Οὐκ ἀγνοῶ δὲ οἷα Μάξιμος ὁ φιλόσοφος περὶ τοὺς ἀριθμοὺς τούτους ἐπραγματεύσατο καὶ ὡς ἄλλα ἐπ' ἄλλοις ἐπάγων ἀποκναίειν ποιεῖ τὸν ἀκροατήν· ἀλλ' ἡμεῖς γε τὴν ἀκριβεστέραν θεωρίαν ἐκ πασῶν τῶν ἀναγωγῶν συλλεξάμενοι ὁμοῦ τε τῷ χρόνῳ καὶ τῷ μέτρῳ τῆς ὑμετέρας ψυχῆς συνεμετρήσαμεν τὴν ἐξήγησιν. (*Theol* I, 78.114–117, p. 316) ; traduction : « Je ne suis pas ignorant que Maxime le Philosophe se préoccupa des ces nombres et, se référant de l'un à l'autre, exténua l'auditeur. Mais, quant à nous, ayant collectionnée la théorie [c.à.d., l'interprétation] plus exacte de toutes les exégèses, nous avons mesuré notre commentaire par le temps aussi bien que par la mesure de notre âme ». Un autre exemple est l'opuscule I, 79.73–89, p. 319 où Psellos cite une exégèse maximienne (*Quaestiones ad Thalassium*, II) sans la réfuter, mais en l'introduisant comme trop artificielle (l. 73 : Μάξιμος δὲ ὁ φιλόσοφος, βιαιότερον τοῦ λόγου ἁπτόμενος…).

(18) Cité d'après J.-Cl. Larchet, *La divinisation de l'homme selon saint Maxime le Confesseur* (Paris, 1996) (Cogitatio Fidei, 194) [ci-dessous : Larchet] 377 ; on y trouvera, dans la même monographie, l'exposé de la doctrine maximienne de la déification de l'homme d'après le principe de *tantum-quantum*.

τινα δυνηθῆναι γενέσθαι τοσοῦτον θεὸν ὅσον ὁ θεὸς ἄνθρωπος ἐγένετο δι' ἡμᾶς· ὁ μὲν γὰρ **φύσει καὶ οὐσίᾳ** κατὰ πάντα ἄνθρωπος γέγονεν, ἄνθρωπος δέ, κἂν εἰς αὐτὸ τῆς ἀρετῆς φθάσῃ τὸ ἀκρότατον, **θέσει** μόνῃ χρηματίζει θεός. ὅθεν καὶ θαυμάζω ὅπως ποτὲ Μάξιμος ὁ φιλόσοφος τοῦτον τὸν λόγον ἐρωτηθείς, ἀπεριμερίμνως πρὸς τὸν εἰρηκότα ἀπεκρίνατο, αὐτὸ τοῦτο φήσας, ὅπερ ἡμεῖς νῦν εὐθύναντες ἐξηλέγξαμεν.

homme [terme aristotélicien pour l'individu : ἄνθρωπός τινος] être capable devenir Dieu autant que Dieu est devenu homme pour nous, parce que Dieu est devenu homme sous tous les aspects **par nature et par essence**, mais l'homme, même s'il parvient à l'extrême vertu elle-même, s'appellera 'Dieu' seulement **par adoption**. C'est pourquoi je m'émerveille de ce que Maxime le Philosophe, étant questionné sur cette même phrase, ait répondu nonchalamment à celui qui posa la question, disant cette même chose que nous maintenant venons de réfuter, en la corrigeant.

complètement détachés de la nature et qui allez, avec elle, autant faire éclairer Sa puissance que Celui qui est Dieu par nature a partagé, incarné, notre faiblesse, la divinisation des sauvés par grâce étant donnée, comme Lui le sait, en échange de Sa *kénose*, [ceux-ci] devenant déiformes, recevant Dieu tout entier et reposant en Dieu seul.

Il est intéressant de voir ici une doctrine « physéthésite » formulée dans le cours de la polémique directe contre Maxime, cette fois, à propos sa doctrine de la déification.

Les deux doctrines, celle de la déification humaine et celle de l'incarnation de Dieu, sont dépendantes l'un à l'autre chez tous les théologiens, soit chez Maxime, soit chez les auteurs « physéthésites ». Or, il n'aurait pas été sans danger d'attaquer directement la christologie de Maxime que tout le monde considérait comme approuvée par le Sixième Concile Œcuménique. Il fallait donc d'en approcher de la coté opposante, celle de la doctrine de la déification humaine. À vrai dire, il est bien possible que Psellos ne se fût pas rendu compte de la distance qui l'avait séparé de la christologie maximienne.

Quoi qu'il en soit, la théologie du fragment ci-dessus est bel et bien celle du « physéthésitisme ». La déification de l'humanité du Christ est déclaré distincte de la déification humaine par l'opposition φύσει /

θέσει, sans aucune trace d'une discussion du rôle spécifique de l'hypostase. C'est précisément la doctrine condamnée dans les cas d'Italos et de Nil : l'humanité du Christ n'est pas l'humanité d'un individu humain et, contrairement à celui-ci, est déifiée par nature.

Il en va sans dire que la doctrine maximienne de la déification humaine selon le principe *tantum-quantum* doit être rejetée. La distinction nécessaire entre les hypostases des déifiés et de celle du Logos est devenue hors de la discussion comme superflue ; en effet, la distinction entre φύσει et θέσει elle seule suffit pour ne pas confondre les deux déifications, dans le Christ et dans les personnes sauvées.

3. L' « hypostatique » comme l' « essentiel » — au lieu du théopaschisme orthodoxe et de la « Théotokos » au sens littéral

Mais il est temps d'examiner en détails la doctrine psellienne de l'humanité du Christ. Il est clair *a priori* que nous n'y trouverons pas les précisions concernant les idiomes hypostatiques humains de Jésus adoptés par l'hypostase du Logos directement. (Telles étaient les précisions de la christologie maximienne données par Théodore le Stoudite au cours de la polémique contre les iconoclastes[19]). Mais quelle était, chez Psellos, la doctrine de « l'adopté », c'est-à-dire, du προσλημμα humain ?

Un des opuscules pselliens a le front d'en s'expliquer ouvertement. C'est le numéro *Theol* I, 65 (p. 252–256), sur la phrase de Grégoire de Nazianze « voir le Dieu crucifié » (*Oratio* XLIII, *PG* 36, 581 A).

Psellos explique longuement qu'une pareille phrase ne serait possible que par un des trois tropes : synecdoque (συνεκδοχικῶς), métonymie (κατὰ τὸν τρόπον τῆς ἀντιδόδεως), assimilation (πρὸς οἰκειότητος) (I, 65.14–16, p. 253). La synecdoque suppose qu'on simplement omet la mention de la nature humaine qui est, en réalité, l'unique capable d'être crucifiée. La métonymie suppose qu'on substitue la mention de la nature humaine par la nature divine. L'assimilation présuppose qu'on tend de dire de l'une nature de la même manière que d'une autre. Bien sûr, cette manière de dire ne se limite pas de l'unique phrase du « Dieu crucifié », mais s'étend sur plusieurs autres cas.

Il est intéressant de noter que Psellos mentionne, entre autres, la naissance de l'humanité du Dieu de Sa Mère : « …il n'était pas qu'il n'existait pas le Logos incarné, mais l'assumé est postérieur et 'commencé de Marie' » (οὐκ ἦν ὅτε οὐκ ἦν ὁ σαρκωθεὶς λόγος, τὸ δὲ πρόσ-

(19) V. Lourie, Le second iconoclasme en recherche de la vraie doctrine...

λημμα ὕστερον καὶ ‘ἀπὸ Μαρίας ἀρχόμενον’ [citation de Grégoire de Nazianze, *Oratio* XXXIII, *PG* 36, 236A]) (I, 65.102–104, p. 256). — Il est légitime de dire, d’après Psellos, de l’existence éternelle du Logos incarné, mais avec une réserve que Sa chair pour l’incarnation ait prit son commencement de Marie.

Dans le contexte de l’opuscule on ne saurait pas interpréter cette thèse autrement qu’un parallèle exacte à la négation du théopaschisme : Marie n’est pas la Théotokos au sens propre.

Qu’on rappelle maintenant l’anathématisme 7e contre l’hérésie du moine Nil : « Quiconque n’appelle pas mère de Dieu au sens propre la sainte Vierge Marie digne de toute louange, qu’il soit anathème (Εἴ τις μὴ θεοτόκον κυρίως ὀνομάζοι τὴν ἁγίαν καὶ πανύμνητον παρθένον Μαρίαν, ἔστω ἀνάθεμα) » (p. 302/303).

Psellos nous fait comprendre quels sont les sens autres que le sens propre pour nommer la sainte Vierge Marie « Théotokos » : par synecdoque, par métonymie, par assimilation. On saurait d’ailleurs lui concéder de l’envie d’éviter la discussion prolongée d’une pareille thème, beaucoup plus épineuse que celle du « Dieu crucifié ».

Les arguments « physéthétiques » ne manquent pas dans le même opuscule (I, 65.89–91, p. 256) :

τὸ γὰρ προσληφθὲν ὑποστατικόν φαμεν, ἀλλ’ οὐχ ὑπόστασιν, κατὰ τὴν ἀκριβῆ θεολογίαν, καὶ ἑτεροϋπόστατον, ἀλλ’ οὐχ ὡς συμβεβηκός, ἀλλ’ ὡς οὐσιῶδες· ἐν γὰρ τῇ τοῦ θεοῦ ὑποστάσει ἥδρασται.

…car l’assumé [= humanité du Christ] nous nommons « hypostatique », mais non « hypostase », d’après la théologie exacte, et « hétérohypostatique » [= appartenant à une autre hypostase], mais pas comme accidentel, mais comme essentiel, parce qu’il est établi dans une hypostase du Dieu.

L’humanité assumée du Christ, tout en étant « hypostatique », n’est pas une hypostase séparée, ni quelque chose appartenant à une autre hypostase que l’hypostase du Logos, enfin, elle n’est pas une addition accidentelle au Dieu, mais elle est unie au Logos comme l’essentiel. Ce passage établie une équation entre « hypostatique » et « essentiel ».

Dans ce passage-là, Psellos ne visent pas qu’une opposition entre l’accidentel et l’essentiel, sans introduire la troisième possibilité de l’hypostatique qui ne saurait être ni l’accidentel, ni l’essentiel. Par contre, il explique sa compréhension de l’hypostatique comme l’essentiel. Ce n’est qu’une hérésie du « physéthésisme ».

Dans un autre opuscule (*Theol* I, 11.83–86, p. 45), Psellos fait l'usage du terme « essentiellement » (οὐσιωδῶς) en l'appliquant directement au mode de l'incarnation, précisément au lieu du terme « hypostatiquement » de la tradition maximienne :

ἡ μία ὑπόστασις τῆς τριαδικῆς ἐλλάμψεως, ἐπὶ τὴν ἰδίαν εἰκόνα οὐσιωδῶς κεχώρηκεν, οὐκ ἐλλάμψας ἡμῖν τὴν αὐτοῦ θεοφάνειαν, ἀλλὰ τῷ ἑαυτοῦ προσώπῳ οὐσιωδῶς τὴν ἡμετέραν φύσιν ὑποστησάμενος.

L'une hypostase de l'éclat trinitaire s'avança essentiellement vers sa propre image, n'ayant pas éclaté à nous par sa théophanie, mais ayant hypostasiée essentiellement notre nature à sa propre personne

La phrase « hypostasier essentiellement », c'est, avec toute probabilité, l'invention de Psellos, quoique dans la ligne de l'expression de Grégoire de Nazianze « οὐσιωδῶς » à propos du Saint-Esprit au jour de la Pentecôte (*Oratio* XLI, *PG* 36, 445A). Dans le contexte de la tradition maximienne, une pareille terminologie paraîtrait un oxymoron. Mais nous sommes au-dedans d'une autre tradition, là où on tend à identifier l'hypostase et la nature.

4. Le Christ comme une espèce unique — au lieu de la communicatio idiomatum

Or, Psellos sait bien que le terme ἀντίδοσις ait une valeur christologique bien établie, visant l'union réelle entre les deux natures dans le Christ, loin d'être une simple métonymie. Il a consacré à ce terme un opuscule *Theol* I, 12 (p. 47–51) à peu près tout entier. C'est un commentaire sur le 3me tropaire de l'ode IX du canon de Cosmas le Mélode pour le Jeudi Saint : Ὡς ἄνθρωπος ὑπάρχω, οὐσίᾳ οὐ φαντασίᾳ, οὕτω Θεὸς **τῷ τρόπῳ τῆς ἀντιδόσεως**, ἡ φύσις ἡ ἑνωθεῖσά μοί. Χριστὸν ἕνα, διὸ με γνῶτε, τὰ ἐξ ὧν, ἐν οἷς, ἅπερ πέφυκα σῴζοντα.

En effet, ce tropaire n'est guère compréhensible sans la christologie maximienne qu'il résume et dont la terminologie très technique il utilise. Sa traduction littérale est le suivant : « De même que Je suis homme par l'essence, non par apparence, ainsi la nature qui M'est unie par le mode de communication (ἀντίδοσις) est Dieu. Aussi reconnaissez-Moi comme un seul Christ qui est devenu, en sauvant, ce qui est desquelles, en lesquelles, et lesquelles ». Le sens de la phrase finale est que les deux natures du Christ sont ceux « desquelles, en lesquelles, et lesquelles » est le Christ. Le Mélode dit ici que l'unique Christ est devenu les deux natures (sous-entendues ici par τὰ, « ce ») « desquelles,

en lesquelles, et lesquelles » il est. Ce qu'il s'agit vraiment de ces deux natures est parfaitement claire à quiconque qui sait reconnaître cette célèbre formule maximienne qu'on rencontre une dizaine fois dans ses œuvres qui subsistent en grec.[20] Psellos lui-même, quoique sans mentionner Maxime explicitement, attribue cette formule à « un autre théologien » que Cosmas le Mélode.[21]

Mais c'est l'explication christologique de la notion de l'ἀντίδοσις (« communication » : chez Cosmas, ayant un sens très maximien[22]) qui occupe dans l'opuscule la place centrale. Son traitement chez Psellos, quoique christologique, n'a rien de voir avec la conception maximienne de la *communicatio idiomatum*, au point qu'on est autorisé d'en conclure qu'il s'agit, encore une fois, d'une polémique contre Maxime le Confesseur.

La définition de l'ἀντίδοσις au sens christologique est, chez Psellos, rédigée dans le sillage de Maxime :

Psellos (I, 12.75–80, p. 50)[23]	**Traduction**	**Quelques parallèles maximiens**
ἀντίδοσις δέ ἐστιν ἡ τῶν φύσεων πρὸς ἀλλήλας ἀντιπεριχώρη-	La communication, c'est une pénétration mutuelle des natures	τῷ ἀποῤῥήτῳ τρόπῳ τῆς εἰς ἀλλήλας τῶν Χριστοῦ φύσεων περι-

(20) Pas seulement en l'unique instance dans la *Disputatio cum Pyrrho* référée par l'éditeur (p. 51, note aux lignes 106–109). Pour une liste complète, v. Larchet, 330, n. 211 ; cf. Larchet, 327–332, pour le sens original de cette formule chez Maxime qui a été son auteur (« desquelles » provient de Cyrille d'Alexandrie, « en lesquelles » provient du Concile de Chalcédoine, « lesquelles » est introduite par Maxime lui-même).

(21) Cette formule, « …le Mélode l'ajouta, ayant emprunté d'un autre théologien cette parole inspirée par Dieu, ou plutôt, ayant pris en totalité la phrase toute entière, comme elle fut [*sc.*, dans l'original], et ayant changé un peu les mots afin de les harmoniser avec la mélodie » […προσῆψεν ὁ μελῳδός, ἐξ ἑτέρου θεολόγου τὴν τοιαύτην θεηγορίαν ἐρανισάμενος, μᾶλλον δὲ συνημμένως ὅλην λαβὼν τὴν περίοδον, ὡς ἴστε, καὶ μεταλλάξας μικρὸν τὰ ὀνόματα διὰ τὴν πρὸς τὴν ἁρμονίαν ἠχώ (I, 12.106–108, p. 51)].

(22) Cf., chez Maxime (*Ambigua ad Thomam*, 5.266–267 ; le texte établi par B. Janssens, Maximi Confessoris *Ambigua ad Thomam una cum Epistula secunda ad eundem* (Turnhout, 2002) (CCSG 48) 3–34, d'après la publication en ligne dans *TLG* 2892.050) : ἵνα δείξῃ τὸν κατὰ τὴν ἀπόῤῥητον ἕνωσιν τῆς ἀντιδόσεως τρόπον (trad. Larchet, 338 : « pour montrer le mode de communication selon l'union ineffable »).

(23) Cf. une formulation très proche dans I, 12.57–62, p. 49.

σις καί, ὡς ἄν τις εἴπη, ἀμοιβή τις καὶ μετάδοσις· ὥσπερ γὰρ ἄνθρωπος, φησί, γέγονα τέλειος, μείνας θεὸς ὅπερ ἦν, οὕτω δὴ καὶ ἡ ἑνωθεῖσά μοι φύσις θεὸς γέγονε τέλειος, μείνασα σὰρξ ὅπερ ἦν. τοιοῦτον γὰρ τὸ καθ' ἡμᾶς δόγμα· αὐτόν τε γὰρ τὸν θεὸν θαρρούντως ἄνθρωπον

entre elles et, comme on saurait dire, un échange réciproque. Car, dit-Il [Christ], de même manière que Je suis devenu l'homme parfait, tout en restant Dieu comme J'étais, la nature qui se fut unie à Moi est devenue Dieu parfait, tout en restant chair comme elle était. Telle est la doctrine qui est la nôtre. C'est pourquoi nous nommons audacieusement le Dieu Lui-même « homme » et l'homme « Dieu ».

χωρήσεως <…> καὶ τὸν τρόπον τῆς κατὰ τὴν ἀπόῤῥητον ἕνωσιν ἀντιδόσεως.[24]

<...> διὰ τὴν ἕνωσιν, τὰ ἑκατέρας ἴδια φύσεως κατὰ ἀντίδοσιν τῇ ἑτέρᾳ προσάπτομεν· ἐξ οὗ καὶ Θεὸν παθητὸν κατὰ τῆς ἁμαρτίας φαμέν καὶ σάρκα· «προσειλημμένην καὶ γενομένην ὅπερ τὸ χρίσαν· καὶ θαῤῥῶ λέγειν, ὁμόθεον», κατὰ τὸν θεολόγον Γρηγόριον.[25]

Cette structure maximienne des définitions chez Psellos ne servit qu'à atténuer la divergence principale entre les deux théologiens. D'abord, nous ne verrons jamais, chez Psellos, l'expression sur l'hypostase du Christ comme l'unique sujet des actions divines et humaines, si familière à chacun lecteur de Maxime.[26] Psellos, par contre, se limite des phrases banales sur l'unité de l'hypostase du Christ dans le contexte de la polémique anti-nestorienne (I, 12.15–26, p. 48 ; I, 12.64, p. 49).

D'ailleurs, la tendance de traiter la notion d'*ἀντίδοσις* comme un mode d'expression, une sorte de métonymie, est apparente chez Psellos. Par exemple, immédiatement après le passage cité, Psellos continue : « C'est pourquoi nous nommons audacieusement le Dieu Lui-même 'homme' et l'homme 'Dieu'. Nous utilisons donc comme nous

(24) *Disputatio cum Pyrrho*, *PG* 91, 345 D–348 A.

(25) *Opuscula theologica et polemica*, 9, *PG* 91, 120 A ; citation de Grégoire de Nazianze est celle de l'*Oratio* XLV, *PG* 36, 641 A. On saurait saisir des échos de cette phrase de Grégoire de Nazianze aussi bien dans notre opuscule psellien : cf. θαρρούντως … ὀνομάζομεν chez Psellos et θαῤῥῶ λέγειν chez Grégoire dans la citation chez Maxime. Cf. encore *Theol* I.12.30 *sqq* , cité ci-dessous.

(26) Larchet, 333–346, en donne une exposé très commode sous le titre « La périchorèse des natures dans l'hypostase du Verbe, principe de la divinisation ».

voulons les noms visant les choses réelles, lorsque nous disons que le Dieu fut cloué à la croix, tandis que l'homme ressuscita Lazare… ».[27] Il ne s'agit, chez Psellos, que d'une simple façon de parler, pas d'une unité réelle d'un sujet hypostatique dont parle Maxime.

Un autre principe christologique que celui de l'union hypostatique au sens maximien est cependant explicite chez Psellos. Cette place très importante se trouve dans *Theol* I, 12.30–41 (p. 48) :

ἐπὶ μὲν γὰρ τοῦ μερικοῦ ἀνθρώπου ἰδιαζόντως τὸ σῶμα καὶ ἡ ψυχὴ λέγεται, καὶ οὔτε ἡ ψυχὴ σῶμα ἂν κληθείη ποτὲ οὔτε τὸ σῶμα ψυχὴ προσαγορευθείη· ἐπὶ δὲ τῆς τοῦ θεοῦ καθ' ἡμᾶς ὑποστάσεως καὶ τὸν θεὸν θαρρούντως ἂν εἴπη τις ἄνθρωπον καὶ τὸν ἄνθρωπον θεόν, μεταχωρούντων ἀλλήλοις τῶν ὀνομάτων καὶ ἀντιδιδομένων κατὰ τὴν ἄρρητον συμφυΐαν καὶ σύγκρασιν.

En ce qui concerne l'homme particulier, on en dit 'corps' et 'âme' séparément, ainsi qu'on n'appelle jamais l'âme 'corps', ni dénomme le corps 'âme'. Mais en ce qui concerne l'hypostase de Dieu selon nous,[30] on saurait en dire audacieusement le Dieu 'homme' et l'homme 'Dieu', [en vertu de] l'interpénétration mutuelle entre les noms et leur communication, d'après l'ineffable soudure et fusion [à noter cette terminologie, συμφυΐαν καὶ σύγκρασιν, qui saurait apparaître très monophysite, sinon elle ne visait que les noms, pas les natures elles-mêmes ! — *B. L.*].

καὶ τῶν μὲν μερικῶν ἀνθρώπων ἔστι τι κοινὸν εἶδος, διὸ ἀπαράλλακτα κατὰ τοῦτο τὰ μερικὰ λέγονται· οἱ γὰρ κατὰ μέρος ἄνθρωποι τοῖς χαρακτῆρσι διεστηκότες τὴν

Mais les hommes particuliers ont une certaine espèce commune, selon laquelle on dit que les particuliers sont inaltérables, car les hommes particuliers, tout en se divergeant par les caractères,[31]

(27) <…> διὰ τοῦτο κἂν τοῖς πράγμασιν ὡς βουλόμεθα χρώμεθα τοῖς ὀνόμασι, καὶ τὸν μὲν θεὸς διατετρῆσθαι λέγομεν ἐπὶ τοῦ σταυροῦ, τὸν δὲ ἄνθρωπον ἀναστῆσαι τὸν Λάζαρον ... (I, 12.80–83, p. 50).

(28) La lecture τῆς δὲ θείας ἐκείνης τῶν φύσεων ὑποστάσεως est commune à tous les trois manuscrits utilisés pour cet opuscule dans l'édition critique.

(29) Grégoire de Nazianze, *Oratio* XXXVIII, *PG* 36, 325B.

(30) Une expression assez étrange ; on peut la traduire encore de façon moins littéraire « l'hypostase de Dieu qui est la nôtre » ou tout simplement « notre hypostase de Dieu ».

(31) Le terme utilisé est χαρακτήρ, une notion très populaire dans le langage théologique après la victoire des défenseurs des saintes icônes au IXe siècle. Il s'agit de la totalité des idiomes hypostatiques, c.à.d. des traits particuliers qui diffèrent les hypostases de la même nature entre elles-mêmes.

ἀπαραλλαξίαν κατὰ τὸ εἶδος ἔχουσι. τῆς δὲ θείας ἐκείνης τῶν φύσεων ὑποστάσεως[28] οὐκ ἔστι τι κοινὸν ὄνομα Χριστὸς ὀνομαζόμενον, ὥσπερ ἐφ' ἡμῶν ἄνθρωπος, ὅτι μηδὲ πολλοὶ οὕτως Χριστοί, ἀλλ' εἷς, 'ὁ τοῦ πατρὸς ὅρος καὶ λόγος',[29] τῇ θεότητι μίξας τὴν ἀνθρωπότητα.

ont l'inaltérabilité selon l'espèce. Mais pour cette divine hypostase des natures [sic !], il n'y a aucun nom commun nommé 'Christ', comme il en est pour un homme comme nous, parce qu'il n'y a pas d'une même manière plusieurs Christs, mais l'un, 'le terme et le verbe du Père', qui mêla à la divinité l'humanité.

Il est frappant, tout d'abord, que, pour l'hypostase du Christ, Psellos n'accepte pas, à titre de la notion commune, la nature divine elle-même. Certes, il sait que le Christ est le Logos du Père, comme il dit ici en citant Grégoire de Nazianze, mais l'hypostase du Christ n'est plus un particulier dans le commun de la nature de la Trinité.

D'ailleurs, il appelle l'hypostase du Christ d'une manière étrange : « l'hypostase de Dieu selon nous » et « l'hypostase divine des natures ».

Psellos concevoit le Christ comme un être qui est l'unique dans son espèce. Un peu plus haut, nous avons déjà cité, d'après *Theol* I, 65.89–91, l'équation psellienne entre l' « hypostatique » et l' « essentiel ». Cette équation suivait d'une alternative fausse entre l'essentiel et l'accidentel, où l'hypostatique comme le *tertium quid* (comme il en est chez Maxime) n'était point admis. Dans cette optique, un traitement de l'unicité du Christ comme l'unicité d'espèce devait être attendu.

Une pareille argumentation a reçu sa forme classique au VI[e] siècle, chez un très grand penseur de l'époque Jean Philopon. Quoique Philopon lui-même ait appartenu au camp monophysite et, même dans ce champ-là, à une partie marginale, son influence était énorme, dans le champ des adversaires du Chalcédoine aussi bien que dans celui des ses adhérents. C'était une figure encore peu évaluée dans le monde théologique avant Maxime le Confesseur. À mon avis, ce Philopon qui a catalysé la formation des systèmes théologiques diophysites que Maxime réfutait, y compris le monothélisme.[32]

(32) Et, antérieurs au monothélisme, ceux d'Eutychius de Constantinople et de Léonce de Byzance. La démonstration de cette thèse est devenu le but central de la monographie Лурье, Баранов, *История визинтийской философии…*

Il est aussi certain que Psellos a connu, du moins, les commentaires de Philopon sur Aristote que qu'il n'avait jamais admis son monophysisme.

Voici un exemple de la logique philoponienne appliquée au Christ (*Arbiter*, II ; version syriaque dans la traduction d'Uwe Michael Lang) :

> « <…> they say that the name 'Christ' is indicative of the end-product of the two natures. They should then say what this end-product of the divine nature and the human nature is. For again this will necessarily be either a mere name or a reality. And if it is a reality, it is either a substance [ܟܝܢܐ = οὐσία = essence. — *B. L.*] (and nature [ܛܒܥ = φύσις]) or some accident accompanying a substance [essence. — *B. L.*]. <…> it follows that there will be one substance [essence. — *B. L.*] or composite nature, known by the name 'Christ'. And thus Christ, being numerically one, will be one nature, to be known by that name, but evidently composite and not simple… ».[33]

Les points de contact avec Psellos sont évidents : aucun *tertium quid* réel entre l'essentiel et l'accidentel, le Christ, étant numériquement un, est une espèce unique.

Les différences sont évidentes elles aussi.

Première : l'espèce unique du Christ est la nature composée chez Philopon, tandis que, chez Psellos, ce n'est pas une nature.

Pour les monophysites, les natures « desquelles » Christ n'existent plus dans le Christ comme les natures distinctes (c'est pourquoi ils disent du Christ comme d'une nouvelle nature composée). Chez Psellos, bien entendu, les deux natures continuent d'exister comme distinctes : elles sont pas seulement « desquelles », mais aussi bien « en lesquelles » et « lesquelles » le Christ. L'espèce du Christ n'a donc pas, chez Psellos, l'ordre de nature. Mais on voit, dans sa christologie, le même schème logique que chez Philopon.

Seconde : le Christ n'est pas un individu de l'essence trinitaire, étant donc distinct (du moins, dans quelques aspects) du Fils.

Dans le monophysisme, ont eu lieu des querelles longues et ramifiées sur le rapport précis entre la nature composé du Logos incarné

(33) U. M. Lang, *John Philoponus and the Controversies over Chalcedon in the Sixth Century. A Study and Translation of the* Arbiter (Leuven, 2001) (Spicilegium Sacrum Lovaniense. Études et documents, 47) 181–182. Cf. le texte syriaque dans : A. Sanda [Šanda], Ioannis Philoponi *Opuscula monophysitica* (Beryti Phœniciorum, 1930) 11–12 (pagination de la partie syriaque).

et la nature simple de la Trinité[34]. Des pareilles discussions deviennent inévitables lorsqu'on tend d'attribuer au Christ une sorte quelconque de l'espèce unique. Dans le champ diophysite, on saurait recoller Eutychius de Constantinople, influencé par Philopon…[35]

Tout cela nous fait penser que Psellos n'a été pas étranger aux problèmes de la même sorte, portants sur la notion de nature et la théologie trinitaire. Linos Benakis avait jadis remarqué que la notion de nature, chez Psellos, a été vraiment très spécifique (φύσις comme un niveau ontologique inférieur par rapport à ψυχή qui est, à son tour, inférieure par rapport à νοῦς).[36] Cependant, personne n'a tracé ce concept dans la théologie de Psellos, Benakis lui-même s'ayant borné aux traités philosophiques. Tout ce problème doit être repris dans la lumière des publications des textes pselliens de la vingtaine d'années dernières. Malheureusement, une pareille tache dépasse l'auteur présent.

Finalement, on peut rappeler un moment dans la biographie de Psellos qui nous laisse penser qu'il a rencontré quelques problèmes vers 1055, juste avant son retrait forcé au monastère d'Olympe et sa tonsure monacale. Sa confession de foi, adressée à ce moment-là à l'empereur Constantin IX Monomachus, quoique n'étant, à peu près, qu'une simple paraphrase de Jean Damascène, est centrée sur les questions trinitaires, surtout en leurs rapports avec la christologie. Comme l'a noté l'éditeur moderne, Antonio Garzya, « The Trinity dogma seems to be the pivot around which his [Psellos'] greatest attention turns ».[37]

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(34) V., pour les détailles, Лурье, Баранов, *История византийской философии…*

(35) V. Lourie, Le second iconoclasme… et Лурье, Баранов, *История византийской философии…*

(36) L. Benakis, Studien zu den Aristoteles-Kommentaren des Michael Psellos. I. Teil: Ein unedierter Kommentar zur Physik des Aristoteles von Michael Psellos, *Archiv für Philosophie* 43 (1961) 215–238; idem., II. Teil: Die aristotelischen Begriffe Physis, Materie, Form nach Michael Psellus, *Archiv für Philosophie* 44 (1962) 33–61; L. Benakis, Michael Psellos' Kritik an Aristoteles und seine eigene Lehre zur „Physis"- und „Materie–Form"-Problematik, *BZ* 65 (1963) 213–227. Il y a encore quelques publications de Linos Benakis relevantes pour ce thème : Λ. Γ. Μπενακης, Μιχαήλ Ψελλοῦ, *Περὶ τῶν ἰδεῶν, ἃς ὁ Πλάτων λέγει*. Εισαγωγή, κριτική έκδοση καί νεοελληνική μετάφραση, *Φιλοσοφία* 5–6 (1975–1976) 393–423 ; cf. en outre : Λ. Γ. Μπενακης, Νικιφόρου Χούμνου, *Περὶ τῆς ὕλης καὶ τῶν ἰδεῶν*. Εισαγωγή, κριτική έκδοση καί νεοελληνική μετάφραση, *Φιλοσοφία* 3 (1973) 339–381.

(37) A. Garzya, On Michael Psellus' Admission of Faith, *Ἐπετηρὶς Ἑταιρείας Βυζαντινῶν Σπουδῶν* 35 (1966) 41–46 [réimprimé dans : A. Gar-

Probablement, nous sommes ici en présence d'un écho lointain d'un scandale dogmatique que l'empereur a su éteindre tout au début.

5. Le **noûs** *du Christ comme l'intermédiaire de la déification de son corps*

Des idées « physéthésites avant la lettre » étaient connues dans tous les systèmes théologiques diophysites qui niaient ou simplement ne présupposaient pas le concept de l'union hypostatique. Tel était le cas des iconoclastes des VIIIe et IXe siècles. Dans leur milieu, a eu lieu une doctrine qui n'était pas explicitement condamnée et qui a certain rapport au cas de Psellos. C'est une doctrine que le corps humain du Christ ait été déifié par l'intermédiaire de l'âme, car l'âme est plus proche par nature au Dieu.[38]

La réponse de la tradition maximienne et des défenseurs des icônes consistait en ce que le Dieu sait déifier le corps aussi bien que l'âme, c'est pourquoi le corps, pour sa déification, n'a pas besoin de l'âme. Cette doctrine était important pour le traitement de l'état du corps mort du Christ dans le cercueil : était-il ou non déifié ?

L'insistance sur la déification du corps mort du Christ est devenue importante pour l'XIe siècle : on en peut juger par l'iconographie nouvelle de la Crucifixion[39] et de l'interprétation du rite du *zéon* par Nicétas Stéthatos dans sa discussion avec les Latins en 1054.[40] Psellos n'a laissé que l'unique ecphrase d'une Crucifixion qui ne contient aucune discussion spéciale de ce sujet sauf un accent constant sur les allusions à la valeur vivifiante de la mort du Christ.[41] Toutefois, il s'est prononcé clairement (*Theol* I, 59.126–129, p. 233) en ce qui concerne la théorie de la déification de la chair par l'intermédiaire de l'âme (dans la terminologie psellienne, du *noûs*) :

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zya, *Storia e interpretazione di testi bizantini. Saggi e ricerche* (London, 1974) (Variorum Reprints, CS 28) ch. VI], cité p. 42. Le texte de la confession de foi est réimprimé comme l'opuscule *Theol* II, 35, p. 133–136.

(38) V. Baranov, B. Lourié, The Role of Christ's Soul-Mediator in the Iconoclastic Christology, dans : Gy. Heidl, R. Somos (eds.), *Origeniana Nonna* (Leuven, à paraître) (BETL). Cf. *Лурье*, Баранов, *История византийской философии…*

(39) L. J. Grondijs, *L'iconographie byzantine du Crucifié mort sur la croix* (Bruxelles—Leiden, ²1947).

(40) Ibid., 251–273.

(41) P. Gautier, Un discours inédit de Michel Psellos sur la Crucifixion, *RÉB* 49 (1991) 5–66.

ἐπειδὴ ὁ ἡμέτερος νοῦς μέσος ἐστὶ σώματος καὶ θεοῦ, τοῦ μὲν λεπτότερος, ἐκείνου δὲ πῶς ἂν παχύτερος εἴποιμι συγκριτικῶς, ὁ τὸ ἡμέτερον προσλαβόμενος διὰ μέσου τοῦ νοῦ τὴν ἡμετέραν σάρκα προσείληφεν.

…parce que notre *noûs* est un milieu entre le corps et le Dieu, ainsi que je saurais dire, en les comparant, qu'il est plus léger que le premier et plus grossier que le second, Celui qui assumait le nôtre, assuma notre chair par l'intermédiaire du *noûs*.

Il est évident que cette théorie explique le mode de la déification du corps du Christ dès le moment de la conception. Il est principal, dans le cadre de cette théorie-là, que le corps reste « plus grossier » (παχύτερος) que le *noûs*. Mais la situation s'est changée après la résurrection. Qu'on rappelle maintenant l'anathématisme 3me contre le moine Nil : « Quiconque énonce cette ineptie que, après la résurrection, Notre Seigneur Jésus-Christ a connu l'apothéose et a reçu la divinisation en récompense de sa vie vertueuse, anathème ». Est-elle applicable dans le cas de Psellos ?

À vrai dire, il est toujours difficile de trouver la frontière qui sépare l'un de l'autre la thèse d'Eutychius de Constantinople (pour laquelle il a été déposé) que le Christ ait reçu un nouveau corps spirituel et léger et la thèse parfaitement orthodoxe que le corps du Christ s'est changé après la résurrection. Nous avons démontré qu'un « eutychianisme » verbal est resté intact dans l'acolouthie du Dimanche d'Antipâque (le huitième jour après la Pâque, celui de la mémoire de l'assurance de Thomas).[42]

Il faut donc être prudent pour ne pas dépasser, dans ses efforces de comprendre la compréhension psellienne du corps ressuscité du Seigneur, le contexte authentique de la théologie de Psellos.

Or, Psellos lui-même ne nous laissera pas sans son aide, car sa terminologie est très conséquente. Nous venons de voir qu'il qualifiait la grossièreté du corps du Christ avant la résurrection comme une qualité fondamentale. C'est précisément la grossièreté qui est devenue le sujet de changement dans la résurrection. Nous citons l'opuscule 46 (p. 174–177) dont le but central est de démontrer que le Christ ne cessa pas être avec le corps même après la résurrection. Il faut cependant préciser quel est devenu ce corps-là (notre citation *Theol* I, 46.19–23, p. 175) :

(42) Lourie, Le second iconoclasme…

‘μή μου’ γὰρ ‘ἅπτου’, φησὶ τῇ Μαγδαληνῇ· ἐπειδὴ γὰρ ἐκείνη οὕτως ἁπλῶς προσήρχετο καὶ περιπλέκειν ἔμελλε τὸν τὴν τοῦ σώματος ἐκπεφευγότα παχύτητα, ἀναστέλλει ταύτην τῆς ὁρμῆς, ὡς δὴ πρὸς τὸ κρεῖττον τὴν φύσιν μεταβαλών.

Car Il dit à Madeleine : ‘Ne me retiens pas!’ [Jn 20, 17]. Parce qu’elle s’approcha ainsi tout simplement et allait embrasser celui qui fuit la grossièreté du corps, Il retint le mouvement de celle-ci, car Il eut déjà changé la nature au meilleur.

Donc, en résulte de la résurrection, d’après Psellos, une qualité fondamentale du corps humaine, sa grossièreté, a disparue, tandis que la nature humaine, quoique restant la nature humaine qu’elle était, s’est changée. Nous avons nommé la grossièreté une qualité fondamentale, d’après Psellos, parce qu’elle empêchait au corps humain d’être déifié directement, sans l’intermédiaire. Mais le corps du Christ ressuscité, est-il devenu possible à lui d’être déifié directement ?

Une autre exégèse psellienne de la même place évangélique (Jean 20, 17) nous fait penser qu’oui. Citons l’opuscule 15.87–90 (p. 63)[43] :

‘μή μου’ φησίν ‘ἅπτου’· οὐ γὰρ τοιοῦτον, φησί, μοι τὸ σῶμα ὁποῖον τὸ πρότερον, ἀλλὰ καὶ τὴν φύσιν τετήρηκε, καὶ πρὸς τὸ ἀθάνατον μετηλλοίωται· ἑνὸς τούτου μόνου, τῆς θείας ἐνέδει φύσεως, τῆς ἀθανασίας, τἄλλα τυγχάνον ὁμόθεον.

‘Ne me retiens pas !’ dit-Il. Car Mon corps, dit-Il, n’est pas tel qu’il était autrefois, mais il préserva sa nature, tout en s’ayant modifié à l’immortalité. Il ne Me manquait plus, par rapport à la nature divine, que seulement cette unique chose, l’immortalité, tout le reste se trouvant co-divin[44].

On ne saurait se hâter de se prononcer à propos du sens de la modification de la « nature » humaine du Christ dont parle Psellos dans les deux citations dernières. Certes, il dit qu’elle est devenue « co-divine », c’est-à-dire, à peu près identique à la nature divine, mais la nature divine, c’est un concept dont le sens chez Psellos nous reste inconnu, comme nous avons constaté plus haut. Dans l’état présent des études, nous ne sommes pas capables de résoudre cette équation à deux inconnues que se présente la comparaison de la nature humaine du Christ ressuscité avec la nature divine.

(43) Il y a encore la troisième exégèse psellienne de la même place évangélique, *Theol* I, 82, p. 329–332, qui pourtant n’apport rien pour notre but.

(44) Pour le terme ὁμόθεος que Grégoire de Nazianze a crée par analogie avec l’ὁμοούσιος, voir ci-dessus la citation de Maxime le Confesseur, *Opuscula theologica et polemica*, 9.

En revanche, il est suffisamment clair que ce corps devenu « co-divin » n'a pas besoin d'un intermédiaire pour sa déification. Il est devenu déifié immédiatement. La nécessité de l'intermédiaire pour la déification du corps ne résultait que de sa grossièreté qui a disparu après la résurrection.

Cela nous suffit pour reconnaître dans la christologie psellienne un objet du 3me anathématisme contre le moine Nil. Maintenant nous sommes autorisés de répondre positivement à notre question s'il est applicable à Psellos.

6. Déification de l'homme à travers le corps ressuscité du Christ

Le corps du Christ n'est, d'après Psellos, déifié actuellement qu'après la résurrection lorsqu'il est devenu « co-divin » tout entier. Or, le Christ se présente une espèce séparée ne comportant qu'un individu unique. Évidemment, la déification de son corps se diffère de celle des personnes humaines sauvées. Psellos ne s'arrêt pas au ce point et procède à l'explication des relations mutuelles des deux déifications entre elles.

Ici, nous entrons en terrain complètement étranger à la théologie maximienne, car celle-ci ne sait pas discerner entre la nature humaine dans le Christ et celle de tous les sauvés. Il nous faut revenir au début de notre étude et continuer la citation de l'opuscule 59, où Psellos explique de sa manière anti-maximienne le principe de la déification *tantum–quantum*. Notre citation suivante (I, 59.174–185, p. 234) est à peu près la continuation immédiate de notre première citation de cet opuscule :

οὐ περὶ ἑαυτοῦ τὸ ‘ἵνα γένωμαι’ λέγων, ἀλλὰ τοῦ προσλήμματος· συγκεφαλαίωσις γὰρ ἐκεῖνο τῆς ἡμετέρας φύσεως καὶ οὐδὲν παρ’ ἡμᾶς. διὰ τοῦτο γοῦν γέγονεν εἷς ὁ θεός, τοῦ κρείττονος τὸ χεῖρον νικήσαντος, ἵνα, ὅσον ὁ θεὸς ἄνθρωπος γέγονε, τοσοῦτον ὁ ἄνθρωπος θεὸς γένηται. ἴσος γὰρ ὁ τρόπος τῆς ἀντιδόσεως· εἰ γὰρ ὁ θεὸς ἄνθρωπος τέλειος μὴ φαντάσας τὴν σάρκα, καὶ ὁ

Ce n'est pas à propos de lui-même qu'Il [*sc.*, Grégoire de Nazianze] dit ‘afin que je devienne’, mais à propos de l'[humanité] assumée. Car celle-ci est la récapitulation de notre nature et rien autre que nous.[45] C'est pourquoi le Dieu est devenu l'un [*sc.*, avec cette humanité assumée], en vainquant le pire par le meilleur, afin que l'homme devienne Dieu autant que le Dieu a été devenu homme. Car le mode de communication est égal : si le Dieu

(45) On saurait traduire οὐδὲν παρ’ ἡμᾶς d'une autre manière, mais le sens général doit se retenir dans le cadre d'une explication pourquoi S. Grégoire fait l'usage de la première personne lorsqu'il dit d'une autre humanité que celle des personnes sauvées.

ἄνθρωπος ὁ προσληφθεὶς θεὸς τέλειος, ἀλλ' οὔτε ὁ θεὸς ἄνθρωπος γενόμενος τέλειος μετηλλάγη τὴν φύσιν τῆς οἰκείας θεότητος, ἀλλ' ἔμεινεν ὅπερ ἦν γενόμενος ὅπερ οὐκ ἦν, οὔτε ὁ προσληφθεὶς ἄνθρωπος θεὸς γενόμενος τέλειος τῆς οἰκείας οὐσίας ἐστέρηται, ἀλλὰ κἀκεῖνος ἔμεινεν ὅπερ ἦν, ἄνθρωπος, γενόμενος ὅπερ οὐκ ἦν, θεός, καὶ γέγονε τῶν φύσεων ἀντιπαραχώρησις ἄρρητος.

est homme parfait selon la chaire non imaginaire, l'homme assumé [sic ! à noter cette expression. — *B. L.*] est donc Dieu parfait. Cependant le Dieu est devenu homme parfait sans modifier la nature de Sa divinité, mais Il resta ce qu'Il était, tout en devenant ce qu'Il n'était pas. Et l'homme assumé est devenu Dieu parfait sans se priver de son essence propre, mais il aussi, il resta ce qu'il était, homme, tout en devenant ce qu'il n'était pas, Dieu. Et se fit l'interpénétration des natures ineffable.

Ce l'homme assumé, c'est un personnage quelque peu nouveau pour la théologie chalcédonienne, quoique parfaitement à sa place dans la tradition nestorienne, où l'humanité de Jésus est devenue, naturellement, le moyen de la déification, secondaire et inférieure, de tous les sauvés[46].

Cependant, « l'homme assumé » de Psellos n'est pas un homme Jésus de la théologie nestorienne. Psellos plusieurs fois démontre son orthodoxie parfait lorsqu'il dit que la nature humaine du Christ est la nature commune, pas une nature particulière : « …[la notion de] l'homme est soit en particulier, soit en général ; mais nous disons que le Seigneur assuma l'homme en général (…ὁ ἄνθρωπος ἢ μερικός ἐστιν ἢ καθόλου, ἡμεῖς δέ φαμεν τὸν καθόλου ἄνθρωπον ἀνειληφέναι τὸν κύριον) » (*Theol* I, 12.55–56, p. 49). Cette thèse sépare la christologie psellienne du nestorianisme aussi bien que du monophysisme[47]. Or, qu'est-ce que veut dire la qualité de la nature humaine assumée d'être une « récapitulation » de la nature humaine tout entière ? Pour le moment, il est impossible de répondre : encore une fois, c'est une étude approfondie de la notion de « nature » chez Psellos qui nous

(46) Pour les détailles et les variantes de cette doctrine au-dedans la tradition nestorienne, cf. : R. Beulay, *Lumière sans forme. Introduction à l'étude de la mystique chrétienne syro-orientale* (Chevetogne, [1986]).

(47) Pour l'histoire de la thèse dogmatique que l'humanité de Jésus soit la nature humaine commune, v. Лурье, Баранов, *История византийской философии…* C'était une des questions christologiques centrales pour la polémique dogmatique dès Sévère d'Antioche et son vis-à-vis chalcédonien Jean le Grammairien de Césarée jusqu'à Maxime le Confesseur.

manque pour cela. Ce n'est pas seulement la notion de la nature divine qui nous fait un problème, mais celle de la nature humaine aussi, surtout dans son état « co-divin ».

Dans un autre opuscule (très court et dédié complètement à la même phrase de Grégoire de Nazianze, mais, cette fois, appliquée à un chrétien, pas à l' « homme assumé ») Psellos dit explicitement que l'humanité personnelle du Christ soit le moyen de la déification du chrétien. Tu comprends, dit Psellos, à la mesure de ta déification (ἀναλόγως τῆς θεώσεως), « l'humanité du Christ » (τὴν ἀνθρωπότητα τοῦ Χριστοῦ) (I, 63.4–5, p. 247). Et ensuite il conclut (I, 63.8–9, p. 247) :

… ὅσον θεωθῆς, τοσοῦτον ἐν τῇ σῇ γνώσει πίστει καταλαμβάνεται ἡ τοῦ Χριστοῦ ἀνθρωπότης.	...autant que tu seras déifié, tu comprendras dans ta connaissance, par la foi, l'humanité du Christ.

La déification, comme la comprend Psellos, est un équivalent de la connaissance de l'humanité du Christ.

Psellos a consacré un long opuscule à sa conception de la connaissance de Dieu (*Theol* I, 64, p. 247–252). L'opuscule est construit comme un commentaire sur le passage de Grégoire de Nazianze où le principe de la déification *tantum-quantum* (τοσοῦτον ὅσον) a été appliqué à la connaissance de Dieu : « …le Dieu uni avec dieux et connu par eux, probablement, autant qu'Il Lui-même connaît ceux qu'Il connut » (*Oratio* XXXVIII, *PG* 36, 317C ; cf. *Oratio* XLV, *PG* 36, 628A). Grégoire, à son tour, paraphrasait ici *1 Cor* 13, 12 : « je connaîtrai comme je suis connu ».

Psellos répond à la question « Qu'est-ce l'union du Dieu avec nous » (τίς ἡ πρὸς ἡμᾶς τοῦ θεοῦ ἕνωσις; I, 64.74, p. 249), en la reformulant d'une manière platonicienne[48] et en paraphrasant Proclos.[49] Les détailles de la doctrine platonicienne de la connaissance du Dieu et de l'union avec le Dieu chez Psellos ne sont pas intéressants pour notre but.[50] Il nous suffit de marquer le point où l'approche de Psellos

(48) Dans la note aux lignes I, 64.76–78, p. 249, l'éditeur (P. Gautier) indique comme la source Platon, *Phaedon* 85 c 7 – d 4.

(49) L'éditeur indique Proclus, *Decem dubitationes circa Providentiam* 16, 12–32 ; 23, 1 – 24, 9 et *Elementa theologiae* 122 comme les sources des lignes I, 64.78–89, p. 249–250. P. Gautier cite également un parallèle psellien : *De omnifaria doctrina*, 95.

(50) Ils deviendront intéressants, toutefois, lorsqu'on essayera de relire les œuvres de Psellos sur la prière et surtout sur certaines pratiques ascétiques (contre les euchites et les bogomiles). Il est bien possible qu'il ait visé, dans certains cas, les hésychastes orthodoxes comme Syméon le Nouveau Théologien ou Nicétas Stéthatos.

se diverge avec celle de Maxime. Notre opuscule 64 en est très net (I, 64.138–141, p. 251) :

οὐχ ὅσον οὖν θεὸς γνωρίζει ἄνθρωπον, καὶ ἄνθρωπος γνωρίζει θεόν, ἀλλ' ὅσῳ δὴ μέτρῳ ἥνωται πρὸς θεὸν ἄνθρωπος καὶ ᾧκείωται, τοσούτῳ δὴ καὶ θεὸς ἀνθρώπῳ γνωρίζεται· πρὸς γὰρ τὴν τοῦ ἀνθρώπου ἄνοδον καὶ ἡ τοῦ θείου γίνεται κάθοδος.

Ce n'est pas autant que le Dieu connaît l'homme, l'homme, lui aussi, connaît le Dieu, mais à la mesure dans laquelle l'homme s'unie avec le Dieu et lui devient le sien, le Dieu devient compris par l'homme. Car c'est selon l'ascendance de l'homme que se fit la descendance divine.

Il est implicitement exclu, dans ce raisonnement-là, que l'homme puisse connaître le Dieu par la même connaissance divine accessible à ceux qui sont devenus Dieu au sens réel, quoique par la grâce. Psellos ne pense que des capacités purement humaines, quoique quelque part améliorées par l'union intellectuelle avec le Dieu. Ici, encore une fois, Psellos contredit à la doctrine maximienne de la déification réelle et ontologique.

Tel était donc le sens du mot « connaissance » dans la notion psellienne « connaissance de l'humanité du Christ ». Nous sommes maintenant en position de résumer la doctrine de Psellos sur le rôle sotériologique de l'incarnation du Dieu :

1. le corps du Christ ressuscité est devenu « co-divin » au sens qu'il accepta toutes les qualités de la nature divine par l'union avec la nature divine (à noter que nous sommes en terrain de la christologie où l'union « hypostatique » n'a autre sens que « essentielle »),
2. ce corps du Christ est le moyen de la déification de l'homme qui peut l'accéder par la vie virtuelle et surtout par la connaissance, tout en restant dans le cadre de la nature humaine, c'est-à-dire, sans devenir co-divin.

6. Conclusion

Nos premières fouilles de recherche de la théologie de Psellos n'abordent pas ses conceptions triadologiques, bien qu'il soit à attendre que son platonisme s'y manifestera le plus. Il fallait d'abord étudier son fondement beaucoup plus traditionnel, au-dedans de la tradition théologique antérieure. Il s'agit de la tradition christologique formée dans certains milieux chalcédoniens du VIe siècle dont le représentatif le plus marquant est Eutychius patriarche de Constantinople, influencé, à son tour, par le monophysite Jean Philopon. Maxime le Confesseur réfutait cette tradition au fond, sans se limiter par telle

ou telle conclusion doctrinale enracinée dans celle-ci. Cependant, les conciles contre les monothélites et les iconoclastes ne lui suivaient pas si loin. C'est pourquoi la christologie maximienne tout entière n'a pas été acceptée d'une manière officielle. Le chemin vers les nouveaux avatars des doctrines « physéthésites » restait ouvert.

L'existence d'une pareille tradition est le fait qui nous permit d'expliquer une série d'autres faits, connus depuis longtemps, mais pas expliqués jusqu'ici. D'abord, ce sont les discussions des thèmes « physéthésites », sous divers aspects, dans la Byzance des XIe et XIIe siècles. Ensuite, c'est le fait d'une renaissance maximienne à l'époque des Comnènes, à laquelle nous sommes obligés du corpus des textes maximiens dont nous disposons en grec.

L'apparition du « physéthésisme » n'était que naturelle là où la doctrine maximienne n'était pas obligatoire. D'ailleurs, ce sont les luttes contre le « physéthésisme », sous divers aspects, qui ont fait établir, vers la fin du XIe siècle, une « vénération théologique » de Maxime telle que nous est familière dans la Byzance tardive.

Le « physéthésisme » n'était ni un avatar du monophysisme, ni un avatar du nestorianisme, ni un étrange mélange des deux — en dépit ce qu'en pensaient des historiens de la théologie byzantine. C'était une doctrine nouvelle sur le fondement ancien — une christologie de l'incarnation dans un homme particulier au lieu de la nature humaine commune, quoique sans les traits les plus marquants de ses prédécesseurs comme le langage du monothélisme ou les conclusions pratiques de l'iconoclasme. Psellos a lui donné un impulse nouvel en la greffant sur la tradition du platonisme de Proclus. C'était un moyen effectif de légitimer le platonisme païen dans les milieux chrétiens. La crise du néopaganisme byzantin ne s'éclatera qu'un siècle après Psellos, lorsque la théologie de Proclus deviendra l'objet direct de la réfutation produite par Nicolas, l'évêque de Méthone.[51]

Psellos avait ses disciples, directs et indirects, qui continuaient la tradition du « physéthésisme », soit dans le cadre d'une théologie platonicienne (comme Jean Italos), soit dans l'état purifié du platonisme explicite (comme Eustrate de Nicée). Après la condamnation finale de Jean Italos en 1082, n'importe quelle christologie ouvertement platonicienne est devenue illégale. Toutes les formes du « physéthésisme »

(51) A. D. Angelou, Nicholas of Methone, *"Refutation of Proclus' Elements of Theology"* (Athens—Leiden, 1984) (Corpus Philosophorum Medii Aevi, Philosophi Byzantini 1).

qu'il était nécessaire de condamner ensuite, n'avaient aucun goût spécifique de Proclus ou du platonisme. Dans cette ligne, le moine Nil était le premier et Michel Glykas, vers l'année 1200, le dernier.

Les prédécesseurs directs de Psellos nous sont inconnus. Ce n'est que naturel dans l'état présent des nos connaissances de la pensée byzantine du début du Xe siècle à la moitié d'XIe siècle. On peut cependant nommer une figure dont l'influence théologique sur Psellos mérite d'être étudiée. C'est Jean Géomètre, actif vers la fin du Xe siècle, dont les œuvres sont malheureusement très peu éditées, sans dire étudiées. Quelques fois Psellos fait référence à lui en périphrasant ses œuvres (non identifiables), y compris, du moins, une fois, dans le contexte christologique.[52]

On ne saurait guère mettre en doute que Psellos ait été une figure tournante pour la théologie byzantine, comparable à celui de Jean Philopon dans les discussions de l'époque pré-maximienne, dans le VIe siècle.[53]

SUMMARY

As a first step toward the reconstruction of the theology of Michael Psellus, a sketch of his Christological teaching has been drawn. Psellus heavily depended on the Byzantine tradition, going back to Eutychius of Constantinople and John Philoponus of the 6th century, which became the main challenge to Maximus the Confessor one century later. In turn, Psellus explicitly criticized Maximus. Despite the fact that Psellus managed to avoid any official condemnation of his teaching (which was mostly held as esoteric, in a narrow circle of disciples), some similar Christological views were condemned one generation later and labelled by a generalising name of the heresy of the "physethesites." The corresponding discussions on the two kinds of deification, φύσει and θέσει, both in Christ and in humans, become the main theological agenda since the process of John Italos in the 1070s and were not interrupted up to the fall of Constantinople in 1204. The Greek corpus of Maximus the Confessor known to us was edited in the beginning of these discussions and was used for refutation of the "physethesites." This use of Maximus' works turned out to be the final step in the protracted process of the official reception of his theology as a whole.

(52) *Theol* I, 82.102.101–107, p. 332; cf. I, 47.83–105, p. 180–181.

(53) Je voudrais remercier Kirill Khrustalev, Alexandre Larionov et Oleg Rodionov qui m'aidaient au temps de la préparation de cette étude et Liz Miller pour avoir révisé mon français.

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HISTORICAL AND LITERARY CONTEXT OF MICHAEL PSELLOS' *THEOLOGICA 59.*[1*]

In this article I would like to discuss the following, interconnected issues that together create a literary and theological context for the analysis of some of Michael Psellos' ideas expressed in *Theologica* 59:

1. The patristic origins of Psellos' terminology used by him to describe the Incarnation of the Logos and possible patristic roots of Psellos' concept that the deification of Christ's humanity is mediated by *nous*.

2. The broader reception of Gregory the Theologian's terminology used by Psellos in the contemporaneous Orthodox tradition, including liturgical texts.

3. Different opinions, which existed in patristic and Byzantine literature concerning the moment of complete and perfect deification of Christ's humanity. This issue is directly related to Psellos' ideas about the mediation of *nous* in the process of deification and is reflected, among other places, in a well-known liturgical text attributed to Symeon Metaphrastes. Symeon lived slightly earlier than Psellos and was considered authoritative by the latter.

4. The way in which the theme of the mediation of the *nous* was reflected in the works of Nicodemus Hagiorites in the eighteenth century. Nicodemus was not just an expert in patristic theology but also its perceptive interpreter. His remarks regarding the passage from Gregory the Theologian may indicate a particular tradition of Orthodox interpretation of this type of ambivalent statement. The interpretation, I must add, falls within the tradition of Maximus Confessor's theology, whose authority for Nicodemus was absolute.

In *Theol. 59* Michael Psellos observes that the *nous* "mediates" between the human body and God during the deification of Christ's humanity:

> ἐπειδὴ ὁ ἡμέτερος νοῦς μέσος ἐστὶ σώματος καὶ θεοῦ, τοῦ μὲν λεπτότερος, ἐκείνου δὲ πῶς ἂν παχύτερος εἴποιμι συγκριτικῶς,

(1) * I would like to thank Prof. Alexei Sivertsev of DePaul University for his help in writing this article and translating it into English.

> ὁ τὸ ἡμέτερον προσλαβόμενος διὰ μέσου τοῦ νοῦ τὴν ἡμετέραν σάρκα προσείληφεν.[2]

I shall now consider the traditionalism of such an understanding of deification for patristic writings. It is worth pointing out that when patristic and Byzantine authors discuss union between saints and God they often talk about the mediating role of *nous*. One immediately thinks of a well-known passage from St. Gregory Palamas' letter to Xene:

> Ἀλλ᾽ ὁ κατηξιωμένος τοῦ φωτὸς ἐκείνου νοῦς καὶ πρὸς τὸ συνημμένον σῶμα πολλὰ διαπορθμεύει τοῦ θείου κάλλους τεκμήρια, *χάριτί τε θείᾳ καὶ σαρκὸς παχύτητι μεσιτεύων* καὶ δύναμιν τῶν ἀδυνάτων ἐντιθείς.[3]

Here Palamas observes that the *nous*, having received the vision of divine light, passes on the acquired grace to the body connected with the *nous.* In the process the *nous* serves as a mediator between divine grace and the "coarse body." The same idea can be found in Palamas' *Triads*.[4]

Unlike Palamas Psellos talks about humanity deified by the Incarnate Logos, and yet the vocabulary he uses is almost exactly the same. It seems that in both cases the terminology can be traced back to St. Gregory the Theologian. In *Theol* 59 (p. 232–233) Psellos provides the following interpretation of Gregory the Theologian:

> Διὰ τοῦτο περιφρονεῖς θεότητα, ὅτι τὴν σὴν παχύτητα κατεδέξατο, διὰ μέσου νοὸς ὁμιλήσας σαρκί, καὶ γενόμενος ἄνθρωπος ὁ κάτω θεός, ἐπειδὴ συνενεκράθη θεῷ, καὶ γέγονεν εἷς, τοῦ κρείττονος ἐκνικήσαντος, ἵνα γένωμαι τοσοῦτον θεὸς ὅσον ἐκεῖνος ἄνθρωπος.[5]

In his other writings Gregory the Theologian makes the same observation at least two more times:

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(2) *Theol* I, 59.126–129, P. Gautier (éd.), Michaelis Pselli *Theologica* I (Leipzig, 1989) (Bibliotheca scriptorum graecorum et romanorum Teubneriana [= BSGRT]) 233.

(3) Γρηγορίου τοῦ Παλαμᾶ *Συγγράμματα*, t. 5 (Θεσσαλονίκη, 1992) 225–226 (= *Φιλοκαλία*, τ. Δ΄ (Ἀθῆναι, 1991) 112).

(4) Cf. Triads II, 2, § 9, Γρηγορίου τοῦ Παλαμᾶ *Συγγράμματα*, t. 1 (Θεσσαλονίκη, 1988²) 514.26–515.10.

(5) *Theol* I, 59, p. 232=*De filio*, orat. 29. 100A = P. Gallay (éd.), Grégoire de Nazianze, *Discours* 27–31 (Discours théologiques) (Paris, 1978) (Sources Chrétiennes 250) 216–218. See also 218–219, n. 1.

> 1. Greg. Naz. In Theophania (orat. 38.13): ...ὁ ἀχώρητος χωρεῖται, διὰ μέσης ψυχῆς νοερᾶς μεσιτευούσης θεότητι, καὶ σαρκὸς παχύτητι.[6]
> 2. Greg. Naz. Epistulae Theologicae. Ep. 101. 49: Ὁ νοῦς τῷ νοΐ μίγνυται, ὡς ἐγγυτέρῳ καὶ οἰκειοτέρῳ καὶ διὰ τούτου σαρκὶ μεσιτεύοντος θεότητι καὶ παχύτητι.[7]

All three of these quotes can be seen as sources of Psellos' interpretation referred to in the beginning of the article. Moreover, this terminology was included into the Eastern Orthodox rite, particularly into the *Stauroanastasimos Kanon* of the first tone:

> Νοῦς ὢν ἀπαθὴς καὶ ἄϋλος, μίγνυται Χριστὸς ὁ Θεὸς τῷ ἀνθρωπίνῳ νοΐ, μεσιτεύοντι θείᾳ φύσει σαρκός τε παχύτητι, καὶ ὅλῳ μοι ἀτρέπτως ὅλος ἥνωται, ἵνα σωτηρίαν ὅλῳ μοι τῷ πεσόντι ὀρέξῃ σταυρούμενος.[8]

The use of Gregory the Theologian's terminology by the *Stauroanastasimos Kanon* of the first tone reflects, first and foremost, the acceptance of Gregory's terminology for the description of the deification of God the Word by later tradition. The exact dating of *Stauroanastasimoi Kanones* of the *Oktoechos* is uncertain. Yet, there is a good chance that these canons can be dated *before* the tenth century, even though they are not as old as the Sunday canons reliably attributed to John of Damascus.

While quoting the Acts of the Iconoclast Council in Hiereia, John Meyendorff mentions: « le rôle joué par l'âme du Christ dans la christologie du concile de 754 est exactement celui que lui attribuait Origène... ».[9] The Greek of the passage referred to by Meyendorff reads as follows:

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(6) *PG* 36, 325C = Cl. Moreschini (éd.), Grégoire de Nazianze, *Discours* 38–41 (Paris, 1990) (Sources Chrétiennes 358) 134. See also ibid., introduction, 53–54, for the interpretation of this idea. According to it, Gregory the Theologian emphasized the existence of *nous* and noetic soul in the humanity of the Logos against Apollinarius. But I do not find this interpretation sufficient.

(7) P. Gallay (éd.), Grégoire de Nazianze, *Lettres Théologiques* (Paris, 1998) (Sources Chrétiennes 208) 56. See also 57, n. 5.

(8) *Παρακλητική* (Ρώμη 1885) 16: Κανὼν σταυροαναστάσιμος, ἦχος α΄, ᾠδὴ στ΄, τρ. 1.

(9) J. Meyendorff, *Le Christ dans la théologie byzantine* (Paris, 1969) 247, n. 23.

> …ὡσαύτως δὲ ἔχει καὶ ἐπὶ τῆς αὐτοῦ ἁγίας ψυχῆς. προσλαβούσης γὰρ τῆς τοῦ υἱοῦ θεότητος ἐν τῇ ἰδίᾳ ὑποστάσει τὴν τοῦ σαρκὸς φύσιν, ἡ ψυχὴ ἐμεσίτευσε θεότητι καὶ σαρκὸς παχύτητι, καὶ ὥσπερ ἅμα σάρξ, ἅμα Θεοῦ λόγου σάρξ· οὕτως ἅμα ψυχή· ἅμα Θεοῦ λόγου ψυχή· καὶ ἀμφότερα ἅμα, τεθεωμένης δηλονότι τῆς ψυχῆς, ὡς καὶ τοῦ σώματος, καὶ ἀχωρίστου τούτων τῆς θεότητος ὑπαρχούσης, καὶ ἐν αὐτῇ τῇ διαζεύξει τῆς ψυχῆς ἀπὸ τοῦ σώματος ἐν τῷ ἑκουσίῳ πάθει. ὅπου γὰρ ψυχὴ Χριστοῦ, ἐκεῖ καὶ ἡ θεότης· καὶ ὅπου σῶμα Χριστοῦ, ἐκεῖ καὶ ἡ θεότης.[10]

This passage seems to contain an allusion to (if not a direct quote from) Gregory the Theologian. Apparently in his discussion Psellos engages a particular tradition which could potentially be open to a non-Orthodox interpretation.

It is possible that another example of the same tradition can be found in the writings of Symeon Metaphrastes, and specifically, in his prayer before Holy Communion (the eighth by the Greek count, the third — by the Russian). Unlike other prayers from the same *akolouthia*, this text is probably not a pseudepigraphon. Both older (Leo Allatius)[11] and more recent researchers[12] of Symeon Metaphrastes' literary heritage did not doubt its authenticity. As far as I know, the manuscript tradition (either Greek or translated, including Church Slavonic) contains no alternative attributions, as opposed, for example, to another prayer from the same *akolouthia* which is also ascribed to Symeon Metaphrastes in modern liturgical books. In any case, this text could not have been written after the eleventh century. The excerpt that concerns us here runs as follows:

> Ὁ τῇ ἐνδόξῳ σου ἀναλήψει τῆς σαρκὸς θεώσας τὸ πρόσλημμα καὶ τοῦτο τῇ δεξιᾷ καθέδρᾳ τιμήσας τοῦ Πατρός...

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(10) Mansi, *Collectio conciliorum*, t. XIII, 257AB. [On the principle of mediating soul of Christ in Iconoclastic Christology, see V. A. Baranov, B. Lourié, The Role of Christ's Soul-Mediator in the Iconoclastic Christology, in: *Origeniana Nona* (Leuven: Peeters) (in print). For the Christian Platonist tradition of Christ's soul as a mediating principle, see V. A. Baranov, *Byzantine Iconoclasm (726-843): A Study of Theological Method*, Doctoral Dissertation (Budapest: Central-European University, 2004) 136f. — *NdlR.*]

(11) Leo Allatii *De Symeonis Metaphrastae scriptis diatriba*, *PG* 114, 19–158.

(12) See Ch. Høgel, *Symeon Metaphrastes: Rewriting and Canonization* (Copenhagen: Museum Tusculanum Press, 2002) 86–87.

> Thou Who by Thy glorious Ascension didst deify our nature which Thou hadst assumed and didst honor it by Thy session at the right hand of the Father…

The apparent meaning of this phrase is that the ultimate deification of Christ's body takes place only after his Ascension. This contradicts the Orthodox tradition which is most explicitly stated in John of Damascus' *De Fide Orthodoxa*, namely that Christ's humanity was deified from the moment of the Annunciation onward. On the other hand this statement comes very close to some of Psellos' ideas.[13]

Its *literal* meaning implies the notion of incomplete deification of Christ's body during Christ's earthly life. This notion in turn becomes possible when one assumes the mediating role of the *nous* in the deification of the body. In this case the "perfect" or "final" deification of Christ's body takes place only after the Resurrection or perhaps even after the Ascension, as may be implied by Symeon Metaphrastes' statement. As a result the issue of the mediating role of the *nous* and the issue of the "final" deification of Christ's humanity become closely related.

In other words Symeon's prayer may be interpreted within the philosophical tradition that embraces the concept of the mediating role of the *nous* in the deification of Christ's humanity. Psellos' writings quoted throughout this article reflect this tradition most explicitly. Unfortunately, given the current state of our knowledge it is almost impossible to fully understand the theology of Symeon Metaphrastes. Many of his writings remain unpublished, preventing the accurate reconstruction of Symeon's teachings.[14] In this situation it would be a mistake to overinterpret one sentence from the prayer attributed to Symeon. Still it is possible that the theological tradition reflected in the writings of Michael Psellos found another expression in the fragment from Symeon quoted above.

At the same time generations of Orthodox Christians have given these words of Symeon Metaphrastes traditional Orthodox meaning. Symeon was venerated as a saint by Psellos, who composed a service for him, as well as by St. Mark of Ephesus, whose service for Symeon

(13) Cf. *Theol* I, 46.19–23, p. 175.

(14) See Ch. Høgel, *Symeon Metaphrastes*, 86–87.

has also come down to us.[15] The relics of St. Symeon were venerated in the monastery of Hodegon during the fourteenth and fifteenth centuries. Unlike Psellos, Symeon Metaphrastes had the reputation of an authoritative and pious Orthodox author. This should encourage us to look for alternative interpretations for his more ambivalent ideas, expressed among other things in the prayer before the Holy Communion.

The analysis of Orthodox interpretations of the passages from Gregory the Theologian used by Psellos in his writings could provide one possible starting point for such an interpretation of Symeon Metaphrastes. As follows from the excerpts quoted above, Gregory the Theologian himself did not assume that deification was exclusively mediated by *nous*, and that the divinity as a result was no longer present in Christ's body after his death on the cross. The excerpt from the Iconoclast Council in Hiereia also refers to the divine presence in the body of Christ.

In other words it seems likely that Gregory the Theologian attempts to construct "the mechanics of deification," suggesting that the *nous* served as a tool that allowed to achieve union between the humanity and divinity of Christ. Later, however, both the *nous* and the body equally shared in Christ's divinity, since both of them belonged to the Incarnate Logos. As a result neither could be alienated from the Logos' divinity.

Remarkably, several centuries later, in the early 1800s, St. Nicodemus Hagiorites interpreted Gregory the Theologian in a similar way.[16] According to him the deification of the *nous* and the body took place simultaneously κατὰ χρόνον but not κατὰ τάξιν. In order of priorities (but not in chronological order) God first united with the "noetic soul" and then through the noetic soul with the body. Nicodemus concludes with the following observation:

> Οὐδεὶς δὲ δύναται νοῆσαι ἢ εἰπεῖν τὴν τάξιν τῶν ἀνωτέρω· μόνος γὰρ ὁ τὸ Μυστήριον τοῦτο ἐνεργήσας, μᾶλλον δὲ αὐτουργήσας, αὐτὸς οἶδε καὶ τὴν τάξιν, καθ᾽ ἣν τοῦτο ἐνήργησε καὶ αὐτούργησεν.

(15) Published in: Εβελίνα Μινεβα, *Το υμνογραφικό έργο του Μάρκου Ευγενικού* (Αθήνα, 2004) 390–409; see also ιβιδ, 407–409 for the synaxarion of Symeon Metaphrastes, also composed by Mark of Ephesus.

(16) See *Ἑορτοδρόμιον* (Ἀθῆναι, 1836) 220–221, σημ. 1.

> No one is able to grasp or express the order of the highest. Only the One who has acted this mystery, or better to say, self-acted it, knows the order in accordance with which He has acted and self-acted it.

Nicodemus does not follow Psellos' assertion that the deification of the *nous* takes place chronologically prior to the deification of the body. Nicodemus also does not share the belief in the "partial deification" of Christ's body prior to the resurrection. On the contrary throughout his writings Nicodemus emphasizes the complete deification of Christ's humanity since the moment of the Annunciation and stresses that Christ's body after the burial was inseparable from the divinity thus remaining the continuous source of life. Nicodemus refers to Christ's body laying in the tomb as *"theohypostatos"* and to the burial itself as *"theosomos."* In light of this it is even more remarkable that he uses the passage from Gregory the Theologian that I have mentioned above.

SUMMARY

Psellos' ideas about the mediation of *nous* in the process of deification are examined in their possible historical context, including Gregory of Nazianze (quoted by Psellos explicitly) and Symeon Metaphrastes.

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THE TARGET OF GEORGE PACHYMERES' POLEMICS IN HIS TREATISE ON THE HOLY SPIRIT

Modern Byzantine scholarship has not paid adequate attention to the treatise in question.[1] This is particularly true regarding Russian scholarship: neither in *The Orthodox Encyclopedia* nor in *Hesychasm, an Annotated Bibliography,* can we find comprehensive data about the author or the text. G. Podskalsky simply notes in passing that Pachymeres is comparable only to Blemmydes, concerning their respective command of mundane sciences (and one would find it difficult to dispute this argument), referring solely to P. Tannery's edition of Pachymeres' treatise *Quadrivium*.[2] This being the case, Pachymeres' theological (especially triadological) views seem to be usually passed over.

Such a discouraging state of affairs partially hinges on a rather common opinion which has its roots in the minds of some Byzantine scholars that the history of the late Medieval controversy over the procession of the Holy Spirit must have been rather stiff and crude, now and then lit with the speculations of such radiant defenders of the vision of God as Gregory of Cyprus and Gregory Palamas. This was not the case. Had there not been an uninterrupted tradition of second-rank theologians (such as Pachymeres), the prominent theologians would have been faced with much greater difficulties in their attempt to convey their argument to their contemporaries in an understandable language. This explains why this short treatise of George Pachy-

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(1) The author considers his pleasant duty to thank all those who have in any way contributed to the completion of this paper, especially Vladimir A. Baranov, Albert G. Bondatch, Arkadi M. Choufrine, Archim. Maximos Lavriotes, Kseniya I. Lobovikova, Basil Lourié, Denis A. Pospelov.

George Pachymeres, *Adversus eos qui dicunt ideo dici Spiritum Filii, quod habeat eamdem atque ille naturam vel quod dignis ab eo suppeditatur*, *PG* 144, 924B–928D.

(2) G. Podskalsky, *Theologie und Philosophie in Byzanz. Der Streit um die theologische Methodik in der spätbyzantinischen Geistesgeschichte (14./15. Jahrhundert), seine systematischen Grundlagen und seine historische Entwicklung* (München, 1977) 59.

meres, who is widely known as a historian and philosopher as well as a public figure, theologian and commentator of Pseudo-Dionysius's writings,[3] really deserves our attention.

But who, then, was Pachymeres' target? Beck can only say that "…*entscheidet er sich für die damaskenische Formel* δι᾽ Υἱοῦ, *blieb aber ein Gegner der Union*."[4] This assertion is justified if we compare Pachymeres' work with his contemporaries' writings. It seems most likely indeed that the work was directed *against the theological speculations of the Patriarch John Beccus and/or his entourage*. The question raised by Pachymeres had become basic for Orthodox triadology from the time of Photius: can we possibly have recourse to *a time — involving relation* between the Holy Spirit and the Son (supposedly initiated by the former when it was sent forth to creatures through the latter, see John 20:22; etc.) in our quest for the *reason* for their *timeless* connection, and thus regard the Spirit as the property of the Son from eternity?[5] — The mere fact, — Pachymeres argued — that *the Spirit is given to the Saints by the Son in time* (τὸ χορηγεῖσθαι παρὰ τοῦ Υἱοῦ) does not allow for speculation upon the Trinity's *eternal* modes of existence; no eternal mode of divine existence whatsoever could be theologically legitimate if surmised by anyone reduced to conjectures and involving time.[6] This argument succinctly points out that Pachymeres' theological mindset was shaped according to long-established Orthodox principles. He sticks to these principles not only in this particular point, but in the whole treatise as well. Although John of Damascus in a similar vein, viz. Ch. I.8 of the *Expositio fidei Orthodoxae*, had used the verb μεταδίδοσθαι,[7] Pachymeres prefers χορηγεῖσθαι, with the proposition παρὰ while debating upon triadological issues; such an instance refers us back to the influential tradition of Athanasius the

(3) The synopsis of a recent thesis is most welcome in this context: М. С. Деминцев, *Политические воззрения Георгия Пахимера* (Автореферат… кандидата исторических наук) (Тюмень, 2004).

(4) H.-G. Веск, *Kirche und theologische Literatur im byzantinischen Reich* (München, 1977) 679. Cf. John of Damascus, *De fide orthodoxa*, I. 8, *PG* 94, 821C, 833A. Cf. "Ἐκ τοῦ Υἱοῦ δὲ τὸ Πνεῦμα οὐ λέγομεν" (*PG* 94, 832B). The last passage is cited in Blemmydes (M. Στανκου, Le premier traité de Nicéphore Blemmydès sur la procession du Saint-Esprit, *OCP* 61 (2001) 128.23.16).

(5) *PG* 144, 925C

(6) Ibid.

(7) Cf. n. 12 below.

Great,[8] which had played a key role in Nikephoros Blemmydes' and Gregory of Cyprus' arguments.[9]

Moreover, the metaphor of the sun, ray and light which is not only central in Pachymeres' treatise, but also lies in the heart of the whole Orthodox Triadology, is construed as consistent with the spirit of John of Damascus, i.e., *as opposed to the pro-Filioque usage of this same metaphor by Beccus.* In fact, Pachymeres' text contains not only some other clear vestiges of its author's polemics against Beccus, but also a highly probable allusion to the *Letter to James of Bulgaria* by Nikephoros Blemmydes, so as to make it possible for scholars to presume both Pachymeres' Orthodoxy and *his active involvement in the controversy against the Byzantine defenders of the Lyons union and the Filioque,* Beccus and his adherents leading the latter. To determine their precise circle and the specific character of their ideas in the late thirteenth — first quarter of the fourteenth century also seems to me to be one of the pressing tasks which contemporary Patristic and Byzantine scholarship is confronted with.

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(8) See one of the decisive passages: Athanasius of Alexandria, *Epistola ad Serapionem*, I. 20, *PG* 26, 580A; J. Lebon, Introduction. IV. La Pneumatologie de Saint Athanase, in: Idem. (intr. et trad.), Athanase d'Alexandrie, *Lettres à Serapion sur la divinité du Saint-Esprit* (Paris, 1947) (SC 15) 70, 74 and n. 2 (with a reference to *PG* 26, 588C), 75; etc. Lebon, referring to Athanasius, on the procession of the Spirit παρὰ τοῦ Πατρὸς, adduces the following places from the latter's writings: *PG* 26, 533B, 560B, 580A. For the usage of χορηγεῖσθαι / χορηγεῖν in Athanasius, see also Athanasius of Alexandria, *Orationes adversus Arianos*, III.24, *PG* 26, 373B but cf. also "the John of Damascus formula" in Ibid. III.13, *PG* 26, 349B; Gregory of Cyprus, *Expositio fidei contra Veccum*, *PG* 142, 243A; Gregory of Cyprus, *De processione Spiritus Sancti*, *PG* 142, 275B, 300B; *Philothei Contra Gregoram*, VI, *PG* 151, 917CD, etc. However, in Philotheos one can come across the language "of John of Damascus", which certainly had been no less significant among the Palaiologean theologians. As a matter of fact, these theological jargons interpenetrate one another. See, e.g.: κατὰ τὴν μετάδοσιν τῶν θείων χαρισμάτων… (*Philothei Contra Gregoram*… VI, *PG* 151, 917D).

(9) So far not many works are available on this subject; the latest being J. van Rossum, Athanasius and the *Filioque*: *Ad Serapionem* I, 20 in Nikephoros Blemmydes and Gregory of Cyprus, in: E. A. Livingstone (ed.), *SP* 32 (Leuven, 1997) 53–58. This author's conclusions are rather inaccurate, thus, he doesn't see the corruption in the text of this very quotation in question by Blemmydes in comparison with Athanasius' original text, a point which I hope to demonstrate in upcoming works.

Let us now try to demonstrate the aforementioned statements by means of the two tables followed by the necessary comments.

Table 1. The metaphor of the sun, ray and light[10] in John Beccus and George Pachymeres: compatibility or divergence?

John Beccus, *In Tomum Cyprii et novas ejusdem haereses de improviso dictatas*[11]	George Pachymeres, *Adversus eos qui dicunt…*[12]
καὶ τὴν ἐκ τοῦ ἡλίου **διὰ τῆς ἀκτῖνος** πρόοδον τοῦ φωτὸς εἰς τὴν **διὰ τῆς ἀκτῖνος** ὕπαρξιν ἐξηγοῦμαι, ἵνα… καὶ **ἐξ ἀμφοῖν**, τοῦ ἡλίου δηλονότι καὶ τῆς ἀκτῖνος, τὸ φῶς εἶναι λέγοιμι, καὶ ἵνα **καὶ τὴν ἀκτῖνα** λέγειν **πηγὴν φωτὸς** ἔχοιμι.	Εἰ ὁμοούσιον τὸ φῶς τῇ ἀκτῖνι; Ἄμφω γὰρ ἅμα **ἐκ τοῦ ἡλίου**, καὶ φῶς μὲν ἀκτῖνος λέγεται, καθάπερ ἀμέλει καὶ ἡλίου. **Ἀκτὶς δὲ φωτὸς οὐ λέγεται**, εἰ μὴ διεσταλμένως, **φωτὸς παρεκτική**.

On the basis of the comparative analysis of these two texts one may draw a number of conclusions of considerable importance. Pachymeres' language is traditionally Orthodox, as is clearly indicated with

(10) The very notion of the ray was applied to God the Son many centuries before Beccus. See, for example, John of Damascus' *Apology against the Calumniators of Divine Images* I, 11, B. Kotter (Hrsg.), *Contra imaginum calumniatores orationes tres*, Die Schriften des Johannes von Damaskos III (Berlin, 1975) (Patristische Texte und Studien 17) 85, 26; Idem., *Sermon on the Transfiguration*, *PG* 96, 564B; the corresponding fragment from St. John was to be quoted, e.g., by John VI Cantacuzenus in the 14th century (E. Voordeckers, F. Tinnefeld (eds.), Ioannes Cantacuzenus, *Refutationes duae Prochori Cydonii et Disputatio cum Paulo patriarcha latino epistulis septem tradita, nunc primum editae* (Turnhout; Leuven, 1987) (CCSG, 16) 100, 34–37); cf. an analogous excerpt from St. Andrew of Crete, *Oratio VII. In Domini nostri transfigurationem*, *PG* 97, 949BC, quoted in: Ioannes Cantacuzenus, *Refutationes duae…*, 103.32f. An important passage is ch. 146 of *The One Hundred and Fifty Chapters* by Gregory Palamas (R. E. Sinkewicz C.S.B. (ed., trans. and study), Gregory Palamas, *The One Hundred and Fifty Chapters* (Toronto, 1988) 250.146.9–10).

(11) *PG* 141, 880C. The same fundamental ideas are repeated by Beccus in a passage very close in meaning to the one under consideration: John Beccus, *Refutatio libri a Photio contra Latinos ad philosophum quemdam Eusebium conscripti, cui titulus: "De sacra Sanctissimi Spiritus doctrina,"* *PG* 141, 781A.

(12) *PG* 144, 925D.

the "marker-word" or, in Riccardo Picchio's terms,[13] the *thematic clue* of triadology: ὁμοούσιον; this was not the case with Beccus. Instead, the latter apparently followed the decree of the Second Council of Lyons (1274), according to which, the Holy Spirit "…*aeternaliter* ***ex Patre et Filio****, non tanquam ex duobus principiis, sed* ***tanquam ex uno principio****, non duabus spirationibus, sed unica spiratione, procedit*."[14] In his dogmatic Epistle to Pope John [XXI], Beccus substituted *fons* for *spiratio*, employing thus the former term to designate both the Father and the Son as *a single entity* and therefore a *common source* of the Spirit, which perfectly reciprocated the message and disposition of the Filioque doctrine formulated in Lyons.[15] In accordance with this kind of reasoning the pro-Latin Patriarch could infer that the Spirit eternally proceeded from a single origin, which safeguarded Its unique mode of existence; accordingly, John considered both the Father and the Son as constituting *in common* one Source from which proceeds the Spirit, but not two distinct sources.[16]

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(13) See R. Picchio, The Function of Biblical Thematic Clues in the Literary Code of *Slavia* Orthodoxa, in: *Slavica Hierosolymitana. Slavic Studies of the Hebrew University*, vol. 1 (Jerusalem, 1997) 1–33; Russian translation: Р. Пиккио, Функция библейских тематических ключей в литературном коде православного славянства, in: Idem, *Slavia Orthodoxa. Литература и язык* (Москва, 2003) (Studia Philologica) 431–473, esp. 433–446, 450–457, 463–466.

(14) N. P. Tanner (ed.), *Concilium Lugdunense II — 1274. Constitutiones. II. De summa Trinitate et fide catholica*, in: *Decrees of the Ecumenical Councils*, vol. 1: *Nicaea I to Lateran V* (London—Washington, D.C., 1990) 314. Referring to this Constitution in a recent article, A. V. Vlasov overlooked a misprint of page number (see А. В. Власов, Византийская Церковь в XIII в. и Лионская уния (1274 г.), *Мир Православия* 6 (Волгоград, 2006) 161, n. 70 where, instead of "p. 320," one should read "p. 314"). The Roman Church had been dubbed in this Constitution *mater omnium fidelium et magistra* (Decrees…, 314), and such a posture was heartily welcomed by Beccus; see: *Joannis Becci… Epistola ad Joannem papam*, *PG* 141, 945D: between the Roman and the Greek Churches *… nulla differentia fidei est*…). It was against this Western doctrine that the 7th point of Beccus's condemnation at the Blachernae Council of 1285 was directed (Gregory of Cyprus, *Expositio fidei contra Veccum*, *PG* 142, 241C). A useful general survey of the late 13th C. situation from a historical standpoint can be found in А. В. Власов, Византийская Церковь в XIII в…, passim.

(15) John Beccus, *Epistola ad Joannem papam. Cum professione fidei et recognitione primates*, *PG* 141, 946CD.

(16) "… procedit, quemadmodum a fonte, Deo et Patre… et ab ipso Filio, quemadmodum a fonte, velut utique et ex ipso Deo et Patre… et Filius fons Spiritus sit; non tamen duo fontes Spiritus sunt Pater et Filius." (Ibid.)

Beccus almost explicitly stated his argument by employing the metaphor of the *Sun* (signifying the Father) and the *Ray* (signifying the Son) as *sharing* their function in being the source of *Light* (signifying the Spirit) whence the *Filioque* doctrine is immediately recognizable. From Patriarch's words it becomes obvious that he considered the preposition *ab* as tantamount to *ex* (the Greek prepositions are, respectively, παρὰ (along with διὰ) and ἐκ, a method condemned at the Council of Blachernae (1285) presided over by Gregory of Cyprus. The Council justified its condemnation of Beccus and his followers by pointing out that these prepositions were indicative of intra-Trinitarian *distinctions* of Persons, whereas it was only the second of them, that is *ex*, that had some bearing on (and hinted at) the tenet of the hypostatic procession of the Holy Spirit from the Father alone.[17] In the meantime the Latin counterargument to this tenet, that is, the idea of the Father and the Son being together one Source of the Spirit, had been apparently taken for granted in Beccus' *Epistle to the Pope* as well as in the dogmatic Constitution *De summa Trinitate et fide catholica* of the Second Council of Lyons. That is why it was not supported by logical argumentation. The image of the ray being at the same time the source of light as it appeared in the treatise of Beccus, which (it should be borne in mind) was especially written as a refutation of the Synodal Tome of 1285, had already become a powerful illustration of that counterargument.

Evidently, it was Pachymeres' turn to defend the Orthodox standpoint of Gregory of Cyprus and his adherents who championed the ideas pronounced in 1285 and took up this challenge (apparently after Beccus had written his *In Tomum Cyprii…*, i.e. probably in the final years of the 13th century) in order to express once again his personal support for the 1285 Tome and its doctrine. In concordance with the latter, and as it turns out to be, with the whole mainstream of Greek Orthodox triadology since Photius — no confusion whatsoever must be made between the eternal, non time-involving intra-Trinitarian *distinction* of each Hypostasis on the one hand and the sending of the Holy Spirit in the course of time to the creatures on the other; utterly faithful to this Orthodox line, Pachymeres refused to call *Ray* the cause of *Light.* We have already seen that it was only in a metaphorical sense that George of Cyprus tolerated and agreed to accept such a descrip-

(17) Gregory of Cyprus, *Expositio fidei contra Veccum*, points 4–5, *PG* 142, 240BC; A. Papadakis, *A Crisis in Byzantium. The Filioque Controversy in the Patriarchate of Gregory II of Cyprus (1283–1289)* (New York, 1983) 67.

tion, that is, that the Son sends forth the Spirit to creatures like a ray radiates light without being its cause. Pachymeres states this in the end of his treatise quite definitely, leaving no room for doubt: "λέγοντες **διὰ τῆς ἀκτῖνος**[18] ἐκ τοῦ ἡλίου τὸ φῶς καὶ **τὴν μεσιτείαν τῆς ἀκτῖνος** δηλοῦμεν καὶ **τὸν αἴτιον τοῦ φωτὸς** παριστῶμεν **τὸν ἥλιον**."[19]

Thus he expounds in a few words the fundamental Orthodox teaching on the monarchy of God the Father, upholding the view of the Patristic tradition in its entirety, with the doctrine of Gregory of Cyprus[20] fully retaining its meaning as a touchstone of Orthodoxy in his own time. The term μεσιτεία, on its part, is also a *thematic clue*, quite explicitly indicating, whether one refers to Palaiologan times or to our own, once more his prominent and authoritative sources of triadological doctrine coinciding with Gregory of Nyssa's, as has been particularly expounded in his letter, *That there are not three gods*, addressed *to Ablabius*. For Gregory *mesiteia* means the Son's "intermediary" presence in the hypostatical procession of the Spirit, insofar as the latter from eternity takes its rest in the former.[21] This doctrine together with the Trinitarian views of Athanasius the Great[22] comprised almost

(18) This sounds like a response to Beccus's phrase quoted in Table 1.

(19) *PG* 144, 928D.

(20) Gregory of Cyprus, *De processione Spiritus Sancti* I, *PG* 142, 269B–300B, passim. The idea of the Holy Spirit taking its rest in the Son, which makes itself manifest here, was also present in Photius' *On the Mystagogy of the Holy Spirit*, 85, *PG* 102, 372B–373A, as well as, for example, in Andrew of Crete even more significantly, in his sermon *On the Transfiguration* which ultimately supported the Hesychastic view (Andrew of Crete, *Hom. VII. In Transfigurationem Domini nostri Christi*, *PG* 97, 953B, where we find the term ὁμοούσιον as well; it can serve as additional, though indirect, evidence that this sermon was possibly included into Pachymeres's potential list of readings and/or florilegium of Patristic quotations on the topic that he might have composed while preparing to write the treatise here in question). Cf. Gregory of Cyprus, *Expositio fidei contra Veccum*, *PG* 142, 240BC, directly censuring the opinion shared by Beccus and his followers that the Spirit eternally shines forth through the Son, "as light [shines forth] from the sun through the agency (διὰ) of the ray." Gregory's critical attitude towards this line of reasoning has been adopted by Pachymeres.

(21) Gregory of Nyssa, *Quod non sint tres Dii, ad Ablabium*, *PG* 45, 133BC.

(22) According to this Father, the Spirit does proceed *from* (ἐκ) the Father, but, certainly, in no way from the Son (Athanasius of Alexandria, *Ad Serapionem*, I. 21, *PG* 26, 581B; J. Lebon, Introduction. IV. La pneumatologie de saint Athanase…, 63, 71; cf. 73 on the co-inherence of the Hypostases, quoting Ibid., 565B); Lebon points out to 1 Cor 2:12 as the source of the doctrine (Lebon, Introduction…, 70).

the most notable source of Gregory of Cyprus' argument on the eternal shining forth of the Holy Spirit; the relevant fragment from *That there are not three gods* was quoted and differently interpreted by Gregory of Cyprus,[23] on the one hand, and Beccus,[24] on the other; (needless to say, it was the latter who did his best to distort it as if Gregory of Nyssa had ever defended the *Filioque*!).

It becomes clear, then, that from Pachymeres' viewpoint, if one calls sunlight the *light of a ray*, strictly speaking he is not merely inaccurate, he has made a mistake. The metaphor in question confuses the hypostatic *property of each Person*, with their *consubstantiality within the very same unique nature*. Pachymeres gives the following example: "Οἶκος γὰρ οὗτος Σωκράτους καὶ θρόνος Πλάτωνος ἀλλ᾽ οὐχ ὁμοούσιος ὁ οἶκος ἢ θρόνος τοῖς φιλοσόφοις ἐκείνοις."[25] From this angle, Beccus' blunder is not only doctrinal, but also logical, if one takes into account his tendency to conclude — on the premise that the Spirit is called in the Scripture (Gal 4,6;[26] cf. Mk 2,8; Rom 8,9) the Spirit of the Son — that the Son eternally causes the Spirit's procession *from His own Hypostasis*. Keeping in mind the Photian argument, we can properly understand the particular emphasis in Pachymeres' argument that *consubstantiality has nothing to do with causality*: "῾Ὁμοούσιος γὰρ Πέτρος Παύλῳ καὶ Παῦλος Πέτρῳ. Ἀλλ᾽ οὔτε ὁ Παῦλος Πέτρου οὔτε ὁ Πέτρος τοῦ Παύλου."[27] The Spirit's *shining forth* from eternity, as a focal point in

(23) Gregory of Cyprus, *De processione Spiritus Sancti…*, *PG* 142, 279AC. This extract was used by St. Gregory of Cyprus to confirm that both the Son and the Spirit are αἰτιατά, whereas the only Cause (αἴτιος — the same term can be found in Pachymeres) — is the Father. Gregory's criticism of the misconception of the Son as the Second Cause in the Trinity (*PG* 142, 281AB; cf. n. 51 below) is also important; it seems to have been the immediate source of Pachymeres' argument in his own promulgation of the Trinitarian doctrine.

(24) John Beccus, *Refutatio libri a Photio… conscripti…*, *PG* 141, 741BC, 789C, 845C, 872D, etc. For his misconception, see also *PG* 141, 745AB, 748D and passim.

(25) *PG* 144, 928A.

(26) Cf. Photius' exegesis of this passage: Photius, *On the Mystagogy of the Holy Spirit…*, *PG* 102, 328A–329C. Were the Father called Father of the Son, this would not be on account of the former being generated from the latter, but on account of their consubstantiality. The same is the case between the Spirit and the Son, and Pachymeres tries to demonstrate it following Photius' argument.

(27) *PG* 144, 928A.

both main triadological treatises of Gregory of Cyprus,[28] serves to establish the Spirit's *consubstantiality* with the Son; nevertheless, on account of such consubstantiality one must not infer that the Son is the Spirit's Cause of being.[29] Pachymeres' reasoning evidently took this course.

Beccus, conversely, confused essence with hypostasis — the same way as he did with the prepositions ἐκ, and διὰ. He thought, to begin with, that the Holy Spirit proceeded from both the Hypostases as well as from the common Essence of the Father and the Son, even from the Essence of the Son alone.[30] So he asked Gregory of Cyprus in a polemical fervor: "τί γὰρ τὴν ἔκ τινος οὐσίωσιν[31] παραστήσεις εἰ μὴ τὸ ἐκ τοῦδέ τινος τόδε τι φυσικῶς ὑπάρχειν καὶ οὐσιωδῶς;"[32] This definition seemed to Beccus meaningful to such an extent that we see him repeatedly applying it when speaking about the Spirit's *procession from the Son as well*.[33]

Of course, when the question of something proceeding or being generated from something else was touched upon on the level of formal logic and common sense, Beccus admitted that any two human beings were consubstantial with each other not on account of the for-

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(28) Gregory of Cyprus, *Expositio fidei contra Veccum*, *PG* 142, 241A; Idem., *De processione Spiritus Sancti…*, *PG* 142, 275C, 284B, 287D, 290C, 293B, 300AB. For Blemmydes, see Stavrou, Le premier traité de Nicéphore Blemmydès…, 92, 13–14 (see Table 2 below). Pachymeres is consistent in following the same view.

(29) Gregory of Cyprus, *Expositio fidei contra Veccum*, *PG* 142, 236 C; etc.

(30) This claim runs through the whole text of Beccus' *Refutation of the Book… written by Photius…* (see John Beccus, *Refutatio libri a Photio… conscripti…*, *PG* 141, 741BC, 748C, 753CD, 756CD, 781D etc.; and Idem., *Ad Agallianum dominum Alexium Magnae Ecclesiae diaconum Epistola*, *PG* 141, 276C).

(31) On the meaning of the word οὐσίωσις see Lampe: "1. in gen. — bringing into being, origination… 2. subsistence, existence as a substance or entity…" (G. W. Lampe, *A Patristic Greek Lexicon* (Oxford, 1991), 987; see 988 for other possible connotations).

(32) John Beccus, *In Tomum Cyprii…*, *PG* 141, 908D.

(33) Idem., *Refutatio libri a Photio… conscripti…*, *PG* 141, 761D, 773A; against this stand, see Photius, *On the Mystagogy of the Holy Spirit…*, *PG* 102, 289A. The pair of adverbs φυσικῶς and οὐσιωδῶς above, in the main body of the text was opposed by Beccus to another pair: σχετικῶς and δοτῶς (Ibid. 773A) — so that he could ascribe to Photius the assumption that the Spirit is received by the creatures whenever given to them by the Son in this second way. It is obviously a distortion of Photius' original argument.

mer being the father of the latter or vice versa, but only in comparison to their ὁμοειδές.[34] Nevertheless, when triadology came up for discussion Beccus' doctrine was found not only to be at odds with Orthodox teaching but also to be at variance with his own philosophy, which was based on non-refined Aristotelianism. Pachymeres presumably took it for granted (and not without good reason) that, according to Beccus, the procession of the Spirit *ex Patre Filioque* must be a corollary of the consubstantiality of the Hypostases.[35] Pachymeres' logical arguments are directed against this presumption.

All this proves that we are faced here with the conflict between the Orthodox and the Scholastic way of perceiving the Trinitarian doctrine as well as with a conceptualization of those of its aspects transcending the power of human logic; this divergence of theological criteria between the East and West was of paramount significance in the early Palaiologean period, though its roots could be easily traced back to Photius. To be precise, it is only with a certain mental disposition that Beccus' approach to the problem can be dubbed Scholastic or pro-Scholastic, and even now much remains to be done to shed additional light on some obscure edges of his neo-Eunomianism as well as of his "anti-Palamism before the anti-Palamites." But it is generally seen as the conflict in which Pachymeres took part, employing his entire intellectual armoury, to defend the Orthodox teaching on this dogma by invoking nonetheless traditional images and assertions and thus

(34) John Beccus, *Ad Agallianum dominum Alexium Magnae Ecclesiae diaconum Epistola*, *PG* 141, 277A.

(35) It is, of course, a kind of over-simplification to put Beccus' intricate theology in this way. J. Meyendorff has already seen it in such a fashion (his well-known work on this subject has been available to us in a recent translation: И. Мейендорф, Богословие в тринадцатом столетии. Методологические контрасты, in: Ibem., *Рим — Константинополь — Москва. Исторические и богословские исследования* (Москва, 2005) 115). In fact, a scholar is struck by the scarcity of ὁμοούσιος and its cognates in Beccus' works. See, for example, a passage where the absence of it especially stands out leaving one to make conjectures as to whether Beccus believed at all in the identity of essence of the Father and the Son: John Beccus, *Refutatio libri a Photio… conscripti…*, *PG* 141, 792BC, but cf. Ibid., 800BC, where ὁμοούσιος is used, — a passage favouring Pachymeres' reading in his opponent's text, though not thoroughly, as a consequence of Beccus' total confusion of the notions *essence* (nature) and *hypostasis* eventuating in his triplex division of God's essence. Such a confusion is typical in many passages of Beccus; see, for example, *PG* 141, 900C–905A.

warding off doctrinal dissent. But his weapons were not restricted to the traditional theological method: at least one probable allusion to Blemmydes' grand theological work (written "long after 1250," according to Stavrou)[36] — the *Letter to James of Bulgaria* — can, in my view, be tracked down to Pachymeres' short treatise, and it is with this fact that I would conclude this article (see Table 2):

Table 2. The probable allusion to the Letter to James of Bulgaria by Blemmydes in Pachymeres' Treatise.

Nikephoros Blemmydes[37]	George Pachymeres[41]
"'Ως μὲν οὖν **ἐνέργεια** τοῦ Υἱοῦ καὶ Θεοῦ Λόγου, τὸ Πνεῦμα τὸ ἅγιον **ἀϊδίως** ἐκλάμπει παῤ αὐτοῦ,[38] ταυτὸν δ' εἰπεῖν, **δι' αὐτοῦ**[39] παρὰ τοῦ Πατρός, ὡς δὲ δωρεὰ καὶ ἀποστέλλεται καὶ δίδοται **φυσικῶς**"[40]	The Holy Spirit is called the Spirit of the Son ἀϊδίως καὶ φυσικῶς.

I would like to suggest that the corresponding passage in Pachymeres is a kind of abstract of Blemmydes' work. But in writing so Blemmydes himself was producing, in principle, something like a synopsis of Athanasius' work. One is led into thinking this, partly because pivotal notions are identical (both Athanasius and Nikephoros call the Spirit "ἐνέργεια," and "δωρεὰ"), and partly because of their employing the same three main verbs ("ἐκλάμπει… ἀποστέλλεται… δίδοται"). Meanwhile what is missing from Athanasius' work makes itself manifest in Blemmydes: a) the idea of the *eternal* character of the Spirit's shining forth through the Son (Athanasius refers only to the

(36) Stavrou, Le premier traité de Nicéphore Blemmydès…, 51.

(37) Ibid., 92, 13–15.

(38) The same expression is used by Pachymeres in *Adversus eos qui dicunt…*, *PG* 144, 925C.

(39) Cf. Pachymeres' way of thinking in the treatise in question: the Holy Spirit proceeds "…ἐκ τοῦ Πατρὸς διὰ τοῦ Υἱοῦ" (PG 144, 928D). It is evident that both Blemmydes and Pachymeres try to safeguard the difference in meaning between these prepositions against Beccus' attempts to conflate their subtle difference.

(40) Cf. Athanasius of Alexandria, *Epistola ad Serapionem…* I. 20, *PG* 26, 577C–580A.

(41) *PG* 144, 928C. If not in brackets, the words are not a quotation but only a re-telling of the source.

Economy of salvation when speaking of Its radiance); b) both adverbs which occur in Blemmydes as well as in Pachymeres' work.

Trying to clarify Blemmydes' standpoint, Meyendorff put forward a rather unfounded idea of the Spirit's coming through Christ as the manifestation of God's eternal life, that is of the non time-involving common activities of the Hypostases.[42] One may well object to Meyendorff's view by pointing out that God's eternal life, being as energy the outcome of Divine Essence, is always made manifest in **all** Three Persons (cf. John 5:26) as all biblical theophanies have succinctly established. It is more than likely that Pachymeres, who had carefully read Gregory of Cyprus and had followed his main points as well as details (which I have at least partly shown in this paper), was able to disclose the original source of views like those of Blemmydes. On the other hand, the latter's role in the intellectual formation of Beccus had been attested to by the ex-patriarch himself,[43] so it was more than appropriate for a theologian keen on opposing some pro-Latin and pro-Eunomian distortions of Orthodox triadology to make use of Patristic texts,[44] as well as treatises expounding the Orthodox doctrine as expounded by the *doctores Ecclesiae* (among which one could possibly rank Blemmydes). What is also important is the fact that Orthodox theologians use the expression "φυσικῶς," as opposed to "ὑποστατικῶς," in order to keep the uncreated energies and activities always connected directly with their natural source which is the divine *essence or nature* and never a particular Person of the Trinity. And this, I suppose, might (and must) have been one more — additional — motive for Pachymeres to turn even to those who were almost his contemporaries — Gregory of Cyprus and Nikephoros Blemmydes. The influence of both can be deemed decisive in his case. One cannot exclude *a priori,* although it seems less probable, that George derived this couple

(42) Мейендорф, *Богословие в тринадцатом столетии*…, 116.

(43) The necessary fragments of his own have been adduced by Stavrou in corroboration of this fact (Stavrou, Le premier traité de Nicéphore Blemmydès…, 44–45, n. 15–16).

(44) Especially the expression "the Spirit of Christ" has been attested to in St. Athanasius (*PG* 26, 557A; Lebon, Introduction. IV. La pneumatologie de saint Athanase…, 71). This does not mean, as is reluctantly recognized by Lebon, that the Trinitarian doctrine of Athanasius has contributed to the assertion, or even asseveration, of the *Filioque.* One may only be reminded that there were such misunderstandings with other Orthodox Fathers, such as Gregory of Nyssa, Cyril of Alexandria and Maximus the Confessor.

of adverbs from the tradition of the "Latinophrones"[45] such as Beccus, with the firm intention of re-interpreting them in an Orthodox perspective.

Be this as it may, Pachymeres gave his readers an instructive example of a thoughtful adherence to mainstream Patristic triadology, whereas Beccus, who had also read and studied Blemmydes, displayed an ill-conceived pattern of a truncated and fairly inadequate assimilation of Orthodox tradition — a process accompanied by rejection of many of its vital elements.[46] However changeable his attitude towards Orthodox standards could have been, it is, probably, not by chance that during the stormy 14th and 15th centuries — a period of the *Krise des byzantinischen Weltbildes* (H.-G. Beck)[47] — his approach to matters of triadology was to gain ground and weight, attracting a number of new followers.[48] As it has been adequately shown that both

(45) See Table 2.

(46) The hostility of Beccus and his circle (with George Metochites first among them) towards Photius, which strongly resembles that of the humanist thinkers of the 14th century towards the Hesychasts, is a matter of common knowledge (see V. Laurent, Le cas de Photius dans l'apologétique du patriarche Jean XI Beccos (1275–1282) au lendemain du deuxième concile de Lyon, *EO* 29 (1930) 397, cf. 405–406, 409). It was George Metochites, who wrote about Photius' imaginary lust for power and intolerance (*PG* 141, 1409D, 1417B, 1420A).

(47) Well-known also as the "Church's take-over in leadership," to use the winning phrase of Ruth Macrides (see: R. Macrides, Saints and Sainthood in the Early Palaiologan Period, in: S. Hackel (ed.), *The Byzantine Saint* (New York—Crestwood, N.Y., 2001) 68, cf. 82). Cf. P. Magdalino, The Byzantine Holy Man in the Twelfth Century, in: Ibid., 66.

(48) For example: George of Trebizond, *Ad Joannem Cuboclesium de processione Spiritus Sancti*, *PG* 161, 772B, where the Son is shown to be the Second Cause of the Holy Spirit's procession in such a way that this procession be called "natural and essential": the same couple of epithets are obviously taken here in Beccus' sense. One should certainly remember that George of Trebizond converted to Catholicism in 1426 (see Р. М. Шукуров, Имя и власть на византийском Понте (чужое, принятое за свое), in: Idem (под ред.), *Чужое: опыты преодоления. Очерки из истории культуры Средиземноморья* (Москва, 1999) 232; К. И. Лобовикова, Георгий Трапезундский, in: *Православная Энциклопедия*, т. 11 (Москва, 2006) 82). It would be also helpful to bear in mind the pro-ecumenist sentiments of this philosopher so that we may properly appreciate that remarkable convergence of trajectories of Beccus and similarly minded writers, on the one hand, and of George of Trebizond, on the other. To cut the matter short, the case of Bessarion of Nicaea, the car-

his method of examination of theological issues and his arguments (characteristically fostered by John Cheilas, Metropolitan of Ephesus in the late 13th century), prove his substantial distance from all Orthodox theologians, one is not likely to consider Beccus another Gregory of Cyprus.[49]

SUMMARY

The present article considers the short treatise by George Pachymeres (*PG* 144, 924B–928D), dated presumably to the turn of the XIIIth and XIVth centuries and dedicated to the procession of the Holy Spirit from the Father *through* the Son in the course of the history of the salvation of mankind (*oikonomia*), thus being in line with the main reasoning of the Greek Orthodox Triadology from St. Photius to St. Gregory of Cyprus and later on to modern times. Its goal was to attack John Beccus and, in all appearances, other adversaries of St. Gregory (such as John Cheilas of Ephesos) and to overturn their pro-Latin triadological teaching which, in its turn, fit well into the basic tenets of the Second Council of Lyons (1274). More particularly, Pachymeres might have been influenced by St. Athanasius of Alexandria in the Blemmydean interpretation of the latter's writings such as the famous letters *Ad Serapionem*.

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dinal-"renegade", who composed "during the final phase of the Council of Florence" a pamphlet *Against Palamas' Refutation of Beccus (Bekkos)*, where he consistently aligned himself with Beccus in the main triadological problems, is far from being accidental (S. Ronchey, Orthodoxy on Sale: the Last Byzantine, and the Lost Crusade, in: *Proceedings of the 21st International Congress of Byzantine Studies. London, 21–26 August 2006*, vol. 1: Plenary Papers (Ashgate, 2006) 319–320). It will be even more disappointing if we recall that Bessarion read Palamas in his early years and tried to assimilate the Saint's line of reasoning (Ibid.). It may be classified as another possible analogy for the pair Beccus–Blemmydes. Was it possibly here that this very lust for power, which Beccus and his henchmen tried to decry and denounce in the case of Photius, came into play?

(49) See a characteristic passage: *Joannis Chilae, metropolitae Ephesini, ad imperatorem*, *PG* 142, 245C: the Spirit's shining forth is told here to be equal to the hypostatic being of the Spirit; cf. the same argument in Beccus (*PG* 141, 916A).

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ICONOCLASTIC FRAGMENT OF THE *APOLOGETIC NOTE* BY JOHN ITALOS

If we try to define a theological issue in which pagan Neoplatonism and Byzantine Church Fathers are considered to differ unconditionally, irrespective of the degree of Platonic influence they experienced, it would be the issue of the relationship between an image and its prototype. Generally, we can formulate the pagan vision of this relationship as a particular intellectual nature's *mimesis* of the deity, which by itself is an intelligible nature. According to this position, the distinctive features of the image (e.g., each material component if we speak of a work of art) become temporal and accidental, and the subject of *mimesis* loses his entire content: the Intellect appears to be everywhere.[1] This is why in the eleventh century, when the minds of Byzantine intellectuals once again became preoccupied with pagan concepts, the idea of this paradigm gained special significance. Its main trait was the relationship with the mind as a primeval divine substance. If Michael Psellos, when arguing with Maximus the Confessor and John Damascene, simply insisted that the mind was a special dominating substance and not merely part of the soul or its tool, though it is eternally present within the soul,[2] John Italos taught that the human mind

(1) Cf. e. g. the saying of Plotinus that the soul even in its external appearances produces all its manifestations as through dispersed thoughts when imitating thinking and intellect. Referring to the prototype (ἀρχέτῠπον), the soul produces the prototype's vague likeness (ἀμυδρὰν εἰκόνα) (Plot. *Enn*. V.3.7, 25–34; cf. Plot. *Enn*. V.9.3, 33–37).

(2) According to Maximus the Confessor, the soul has two parts — rational and vital, and the rational one, in turn, is divided into active and contemplative. The contemplative part of the soul is the mind (Max. *Myst*. 5). John Damascene reproduces this teaching in his *Expositio fidei* (*De fide orthodoxa* 26 [II, 12], 48–49). He quotes Galenus' expression which he learned through Nemesius of Emessa (*Nemes. nat. hom*. I), that "like an eye in the body the mind is present in the soul." Disputing this, Psellos says that the mind "is not *dynamis* of the soul, it is rather a primary and eternal essence, surpassing the soul in power, in beauty and in all other order; it (the Nous) does not belong to the soul but rather fashions in after itself, it does not have its abode" (*Mi-*

is already divine by its nature,[3] being a participant in the hypostasis of the Intellect, similar to the participation of all individual beings in the hypostasis of the One, and of an individual soul — in the hypostasis of the Soul.[4] Thus Italos following these apparently pagan views, was referring to the Neoplatonic doctrine of ascension from sensual things to the ideal, as he expounded his attitude toward material images.

Although among eleven anathemas of the Synodicon,[5] there is no position which is related to the veneration of icons; the unorthodox character of philosopher John Italos' ideas concerning sacred icons was detected during his trial — a fact recorded in the materials of the case.[6]

The last point of the Note submitted by Italos for the consideration of the Emperor, contains some statements about icons. This Note is the most important document on this problem, firstly, because it is the

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chaelis Pselli philosophica minora, vol. 2 (Leipzig, 1989) 95). George Karahalios pays special attention to this text and represents it in his brilliant dissertation (G. Karahalios, *The Philosophical Trilogy of Michael Psellos: God-Kosmos-Man*, diss. (Heidelberg, 1970) 129–130; cf. Γ. Α. Καραχαλιος, *Η Ανθρωπολογια του Μιχαηλ Ψελλου* (Andover, 1990) 167–168). However, Karahalios did not notice the polemical element of this saying — indirectly Psellos is disputing with Maximus the Confessor's anthropology and directly with Symeon the New Theologian's doctrine of partaking of the light (see e.g. *Hymn*. 1.29sqq; 12.8–14; 17.66–68; 18.120; 42.201). For the latter author the entire connection to Christ is important, which is contradicted by Psellos' doctrine of "anthropological emanation," when the light is received directly only by the mind, while the soul takes it only as a participant in the mind.

(3) See Н. Н. Кечакмадзе (ред.), Иоанн Итал, *Сочинения* (Тбилиси, 1966) 49.

(4) Ibid., 184–185. In the treatise *Περὶ τῆς τριττῆς ὑποστάσεως*, Italos mentions certain "οί τῶν Ἑλλήνων θεολογώτατοι" and "οί ἔξω σοφοί," while not accepting and not rejecting their ideas. But in his next work *Τρεῖς αί ἀνώταται δόξαι περὶ θεοῦ ἀναρχία καὶ πολυαρχία καὶ μοναρχία* (Иоанн Итал, *Сочинения*, 185–188) he exposes the traditional doctrine of emanation as his own. For this reason we are inclined to think that he rather presents his own views than retells those of others in the treatise we referred to as well.

(5) J. Gouillard, Le Synodikon de l'Orthodoxie. Édition et commentaire, *Travaux et mémoires* 2 (1967) 56–61.

(6) J. Gouillard, Le Procès officiel de Jean l'Italien. Les actes et leurs sous-entendus, *Travaux et mémoires* 9 (1985) 133–174; cf. S. Salaville, Le procès de Jean Italos, *EO* 29 (1930) 141–146; L. Clucas, *The Trial of John Italos and the Crisis of Intellectual Values in Byzantium in the Eleventh Century* (Munich, 1981) (Miscellanea Byzantina Monacensia 26).

only source where we can find Italos' opinion about sacred icons — all other evidence is obscure. Secondly, even those writings that contain triadological and cosmological views of Italos, do not provide such an obvious form of his teaching, which helps us to understand the philosopher's attitude towards icons. As Kimon Giorkanis notes, "with men like Psellus and Italos it is also extremely difficult to determine whether they are merely giving an account of a philosophical position and defending it in terms of its own inner logic or whether they are asserting what they consider to be a philosophical truth."[7] This is why the text of the "Legal Proceedings" is indispensable. The situation compels John to speak for himself.

Here is the text of the Note:

> From the last of [his] heretical chapters we learn thus: he said that he served the icon of the incarnated Son of God not remaining among the shadows but rendering honour to the prototype (Τελευταῖον τῆς κακοδοξίας κεφαλάιον ἐγνώσθη καὶ τοῦτο· εἶπε γὰρ αὐτος λατρεύειν τὴν εἰκόνα τοῦ σαρκωθέντος υἱοῦ Θεοῦ οὐ ταῖς σκιαῖς ἐμμένων ἀλλ᾽ ἐπὶ τὸ πρωτότυπον τὴν τιμὴν ἀναφέρων), which is clearly recognized as discordant with orthodox faith along with his other chapters.[8]

Quite naturally the investigation focused on the term *λατρεία*, pointing out, first, that after the Seventh Ecumenical Council:

> worship in the proper sense of the word is related to God's nature and we are called οἱ *λατρευταὶ* in relation to God, while the icons are to be relatively venerated because of the honour given to the prototype

secondly, referring to the authority of the Scripture and the Church Tradition:

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(7) K. Giorkanis, Eustratius of Nicaea᾽s defense of the doctrine of ideas, *Franciscan Studies* 24 (1964) 167.

(8) Gouillard, Le Procès..., 153. The term *σκιά* seems to have been borrowed by the Iconoclasts from Plato through Origen (V. A. Baranov, Origen and the Iconoclastic Controversy, in: L. Perrone et al (eds.), *Origeniana Octava, Origen and the Alexandrian Tradition*, vol. 2 (Leuven, 2003) (BETL 164) 1044). On the other hand, in the Platonist tradition the usage of *εἰκών* in relation to a single thing, which goes back to the *Timaeus*, was commonplace; this also concerns the Alexandrian School which had an immediate influence upon Italos (Т. И. *Долидзе*, Вопрос о функции *λογική πραγματεία* в комментариях школы Аммония, *Труды Тбилисского Университета* 249 (1984) 330). Therefore it is difficult to resolve the question of terminological influences.

> the Scripture has never allowed anything of this kind,… we never confessed 'latria' as related to the sacred icons as well as we did not receive this from the canons of holy fathers, and moreover there is no such expression about the sacred icons in any place of the Synodicon.

Then the investigation reminds that:

> There already occurred a great controversy about the sacred icons, and the admirers of them used to be slandered by the otherwise-minded as if they were icon-worshippers; when finally the honour of sacred icons prevailed with great difficulty according to God's Providence, and they were given reverence and admiration.[9]

All that was said is clear. In fact, Italos had no reason for using this term if he wanted to be in accord with tradition. However, the fact that Italos resorted to the patristic formula "from the image" (being understood one way or another) "to the prototype" (being understood one way or another), testifies that he did not want to conflict with the Church on this matter. On the other hand, Italos was certainly acquainted with Scripture; he actively quotes it in the letter to Emperor Michael Ducas[10] and in other writings. Third, it is hard and even impossible to suppose that Italos did not know the theological debates of the previous epoch.[11] And at last the main point — Italos did not challenge the authority of the Church, since he himself requested an investigation and submitted the Note with the exposition of his views to the trial.

Thus, if Italos did not reject what was condemned and at the same time completely recognized the authority of his judges, it means that he proceeded from other premises not only allowing the use of the word *λατρεία* as applied to the deity but also to the image of God. Let us consider Italos' Note more closely.

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(9) Gouillard, Le Procès..., 153.

(10) *Иоанн Итал*, *Сочинения...*, 129. It is necessary to mention that there are no more than ten such quotations in all of Italos' writings.

(11) We can firmly maintain that Italos was quite well acquainted with the works of John Damascene and thus he was aware of the Iconodules' position at the time of the first Iconoclasm. But in general, knowledge of the Iconoclast controversy in the eleventh century was rather vague (see B. Lourié, Une dispute sans justes: Léon de Chalcédoine, Eustrate de Nicée et la troisième querelle sur les images sacrées, *SP* 42 (2006) 321–340).

First of all, it is necessary to identify the external sources of the text, because this may assist in examining Italos' thought due to the fact that he must have borrowed certain notions which fitted his reasoning. The fact that Italos modified the patristic formula "from a sensible image to the supersensible prototype" is notable because of the use of the rejected term λατρεία. And the application of the patristic formula testifies to the fact that Italos did not reject patristic authority. Hence we can state that Italos neither neglects the tradition nor yet fully follows it. According to what was said above, the notion of λατρεία is used by Italos exactly on the basis of the patristic doctrine that only the divine nature deserves "worship." Therefore Italos thought that he borrowed the term from tradition; and his use was not by accident, but deliberate. This word is indeed often used in Scripture.[12] In Heb. 8:5, the apostle speaks about the earthly priesthood: "Who serve (λατρεύουσιν) according to the model (ὑπόδειγμα) and shadow (σκιά) of heavenly things." Italos certainly could rely on this text. From Heb. 10:1 it follows that ὑπόδειγμα καί σκιά means the Law and, according to the same Heb. 8:5, — the tabernacle of Moses. In Heb. 13:10 we find οἱ τῇ σκηνῇ λατρεύοντες ("those who serve the tabernacle"), but it is said of the true tabernacle — Christ, — and of his true servants, Christians. The apostle contrasts Christ to earthly priests yet he does not assert that this priesthood is no longer relevant. Thus the Scripture uses the verb λατρεύω in the context of the duality of "earthly service (the Law of the Old Testament)" and "Christian service," in other words, the very service of Levitical priests is the ὑπόδειγμα καί σκιά. We may interpret this place in a negative sense for the Old Testament priests — serving the Law, they serve it as something replacing God. Since "the service of the true tabernacle'' is the service to Christ, in the figure of the New Testament priest the service of "the tabernacle according to the vision on Mount Sinai," that is the service of the image, and the true service coincide. And if the priest serves only the Law, that is "the earthly tabernacle," then his service is limited to the tabernacle and becomes εἰδωλολατρεία.

In this case the word "service" could be used, first, in relation to God,[13] and, second, when it is said of service as the image of true ser-

(12) E.g. Ex. 12:25,26; 1 Par. 28:13; Jo. 16:2; Rom. 9:4.

(13) See, for example, the words of Theodoret of Cyrrus who thus interprets Heb. 13:10: "One is much more honourable from ancient times, for the other one is the shadow. The other one is perceived as an irrational sacrifice, while the first one as rational and divine" (*PG* 82, 781C).

vice, that is, of service not in its proper sense.[14] Which of these meanings was closer to Italos? It seems to be the first one, because if he had used the term in the second meaning, there would have been no contradiction to tradition in his words, and Italos would not have been condemned.

Below in the text of the "Legal Proceedings" we may find the following words:

> Being exposed as holding the views which he expounded contrary to the accuracy of the Church, John was brought to complete silence and confessed himself in front of everyone, and expressed full readiness to anathematize them[15]

Thus Italos listened to the arguments of the accusers. However, the arguments chiefly consisted of repeating the main definition of the Seventh Ecumenical Council — "service to God, veneration of God's icon," and referring to the Scripture, to patristic statements and to the text of the Synodicon, that is to the texts of which Italos could not be ignorant. It is possible to infer from this that Italos was persuaded not by these arguments; moreover, since Italos already knew the arguments of which the investigator reminded him, he changed his view not concerning how the term *λατρεία* should be used, but in his relation to the very subject of serving. Otherwise we cannot explain his change of mind.

Since we cannot explain Italos' deviation from Orthodoxy through inner Church tradition, which he accepted, consequently, rejecting what had been previously condemned by the Church, maybe we can detect in the Note something which might belong to the tradition not in its pure form but undergoing a certain transformation.

The Note uses the term σκιά, which means "a shadow, a phantom." It occurs in the Scripture in two places already mentioned (Heb. 8:5; Heb. 10:1), and in Col. 2:17.[16] In all cases the stipulations of the old Law

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(14) See the interpretation of Heb. 8:5 in John Chrysostom, *Hom. 14 in Heb. 1–2*; *PG* 63, 111–112; cf. John Damascene, *De fide orthodoxa*, 89. It is not by accident that Origen interprets this place distinctively in a negative way: The servants in the tabernacle served the image and shadow" (Or. fr. sel. in Ezech. 28; *PG* 13, 821B).

(15) Gouillard, Le Procès..., 155.

(16) Μὴ οὖν τις ὑμᾶς κρινέτω ἐν βρώσει καὶ ἐν πόσει ἢ ἐν μέρει ἑορτῆς ἢ νεομηνίας ἢ σαββάτων, ἅ ἐστιν σκιὰ τῶν μελλόντων, τὸ δὲ σῶμα τοῦ Χριστοῦ.

and the Law itself are named by this word. As was mentioned above, something is designated as σκιά as far as service rendered to it is concerned, but not relative veneration (and that the service to the shadow is cancelled in favour of true service). Italos certainly uses the term not because he thinks shadows deserve service; it comes from what was said above — Italos uses λατρεία in its proper meaning. Therefore we may look for the doctrine that was behind Italos' assertions not in the patristic thought. It is also notable that in the Scripture σκιά is used in the singular, while Italos uses the word in the plural. This is connected with the context of the word: the Scripture speaks of an uncountable and immaterial notion and Italos — of visible individual things. We may therefore seek for a text external to the Orthodox tradition where σκιά is used in the plural and in the sense of something, opposed to the thing whose "shadow" it is. This text immediately comes to mind: the symbol of the Cave from the seventh book of Plato's *Republic*.

It is important to briefly take into consideration the interpretation of the passage in the Platonic tradition. Proclus' voluminous treatise was the last Commentary on the *Republic* and it was closest to the time of Italos. It is of great interest to see in which sense the notion of σκιά appears in the text. Yet first we should turn to the original text of Plato, because the text of the Note does not allow us to make any far reaching conclusions on which text Italos relied upon, on that of Plato or on Proclus' Commentary.

If we remember Plato's symbol of the Cave, first we hear the description of the fire up high,[17] which is the metaphor of the Good,[18] and the upper road, fenced by a low wall, above which some people carry various objects. Plato calls it the realm of the intelligible.[19] Then the narrative turns to the Cave, where the prisoners are kept. They

> resemble us … for do you think … the people see anything, be it their or other's, but the shadows (τὰς σκιάς) cast down by the fire onto the wall in front of them?[20]

Here Plato speaks about the realm of things pertaining to sensible vision.[21] After that the following words express the ascension from the sensible to the intelligible, to the light of the Being:

(17) *R. p.*, 514a, 1–515a, 3.
(18) Ibid., 517c, 1.
(19) Ibid., 517b, 5.
(20) Ibid., 515a, 5–8.
(21) Ibid., 517b, 2.

> And first he will see the shadows (τὰς σκιάς) best, next the reflections (τά εἴδωλα) of men and other objects in the water, and then the objects themselves (τά αὐτά)[22]

By the "shadows" Plato means 1) the sensible, 2) the thing not in and of itself (this results from the former, because according to Plato the true Being is intelligible)[23] and 3) something which is related to the preceding Being. The shadow is only linked to the ideal thing and is not anything substantial in and of itself as the very word connotes. We may briefly say that the shadow is the ideal reality manifested in a sensible and somewhat deceptive manner.[24]

In the form of an epistemological conclusion, it is clear that sensual perception according to Plato is a necessary point for ascension to the contemplation of the Being. Indeed the visible is the idea which is expressed by means of something other than itself. Therefore the ascension consists not of renouncing one thing in favour of another, but of sublimating the sensual that was introduced into the presence of the ideal. Thus all relations with sensual things are relations with the ideal, but the relation of such a kind that has to be overcome in so far as it is connected with the sensual presence.

And another important thing: Plato thinks that the first two beings are self-subsisting.[25] The One could be identified with the Sun and the realm of the intelligible — with the objects in the opening of the Cave. It is also clear that the shadow is the idea manifested in another manner, for it already contains something of the ideal realm, but does not by itself belong there, because the shadow is the shadow of the thing and not of the Sun. Therefore it is an intellectual kind of relation that characterizes the connection between the thing and its shadow. Indeed the intellectual is able to put into being the other thing which is not self-subsisting. This not self-hypostatic other, which is the shadow, is nothing else but a particular or special *eidos*, which is manifested sensually. Thus the relation of the shadow is not the relation to the very

(22) *R. p.*, 516a, 6–8.

(23) E. g.: *Phaedr*. 247de.

(24) *Phaed*. 83a, 3–5: "…It is known to those who aspire for knowledge… to what degree the eyesight is deceptive, and the hearing with the other senses are deceptive…"

(25) *Tim.*, 30 b 6–c 1.

idea but to a particular *eidos*,[26] which by itself subsists in as much as it participates in the idea. Conversely, in as much as it is separated from the idea and set in the sensual, it lacks self-sufficient being.

Finally we should consider the definition of the term in Proclus' Commentary.[27] Italos has a reference to the Commentary, although not very explicit: Proclus quotes and comments Homer,[28] and Italos, when mentioning some "symbolic interpretations" of that very place in the "Iliad,"[29] refers to Proclus. It can be affirmed that Italos might have been acquainted with this Commentary.[30]

If according to Plato every sensual thing is a step towards the contemplation of the Good-in-itself, Proclus says that there are things which man especially creates for this. Plato also had this thought, for example, implied in the words about the poet in the ideal state.[31] The main thing is that Proclus made this thought explicit, and Italos seems to have borrowed it from him.

We should try to reconstruct the doctrine of Italos from his Note on the basis of all of the above. First of all, he used the notion of λατρεία while realizing that only God has to be served and worshipped. Second, he admits the necessity of icons or otherwise he would look like

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(26) As Italos apprehended Plato not directly but through the prism of the Platonist tradition of commentaries, I would "attribute" to Plato both three hypostases and particular *eidoses*, the developed doctrine of which appears only in Plotinus' "Enneads" as a content of the hypostasis of the Soul (see, for example, Plot. *Enn.* I.1.8). On the influence of pre-Proclusean Platonist tradition on the Byzantine thought of the 11th–12th centuries in this respect, see Giorkanis, Eustratius of Nicaea's defense...; G. Karahalios, *The Philosophical Trilogy of Michael Psellos...*

(27) "…τίνας εἶναι βούλεται τὰς εἰκόνας, καὶ ὡς τὰς ἀπὸ τῶν φωτιζόντων ἀποτελουμένας ἐν φωτιζομένοις, τὰς τε σκιάς καὶ ἐμφάσεις τὰς τε ἐν ὕδασιν καὶ τὰς ἐν τοῖς ἐν ἄλλοις ἐνόπτροις" (Procl. *In rep*. I.289.23–26).

(28) *Hom*. Il. XXIV, 527.

(29) Иоанн Итал, *Сочинения...*, 193.

(30) How well the writings of Proclus were known in the 11th century is revealed by the fact that one of the few sources for the fragments of Proclus' commentary on Plotinus' *Enneads* became the work of Psellos, *De Omnifaria Doctrina* (L. G. Westerink, Exzerpte aus Proklos' Enneadenkommentar bei Psellus, *BZ* 52 (1959) 1).

(31) In *Rep*. 596 a5 – 598 d6 Plato says that the poet creates phantoms and in this he is likened to the painter. On the other hand, art is the imitation of the *eidos*. The poet can also produce a phantom which might serve for the strengthening of virtue and not for the wicked dispositions of the soul.

an iconoclast. Italos calls the icon σκιά, that is something deprived of self-subsistence. Therefore if one renders service to an icon, this happens not because it is a deity in and of itself, but precisely because it has no content of its own. On the other hand, however, the relation to the icon is a constant overstepping of its mere contemplation. Indeed if through an icon I appeal to God Himself, in the first moment of communication I have to remit the need of observing His shadow. To put it more strictly, the movement towards God is at the same time the complete renunciation of His likenesses. Thus the seeming contradiction between the need of rendering service to the icon and the renunciation of sensually perceived shadows is resolved by the fact that both actions are the same in nature. Furthermore, if both actions are necessarily linked, it is for no other reason than that they are predicated to the things of the same nature. And the nature, which gives substantial being to the other is the intellectual nature. This is the way John Italos comprehends the relationship between the image and the prototype as that of the intellectual nature to the form relevant to it (that is the ideal form).

The arguments of the investigators who refuted other positions of Italos' Note, namely those concerning the doctrine of deity, were more than a simple reference to authority,[32] and perhaps this was the reason that made Italos change his mind about icons.

The views of Italos were typical for a Platonist, for whom the teaching on the contemplation of sensual things is the first degree of ascent to the Good. So we cannot insist on any distinct succession between Italos and the Iconoclasts of the 8th–9th centuries. More probably here

(32) The following charges were brought against Italos concerning his Trinitarian doctrine: 1) using the terms ἐπιστροφή and τό γέγονεν referring not to the hypostasis of the Son (as it was in Gregory of Nazianzus and Cyril of Alexandria: indeed "there was a time" when the Son of God was born according to his humanity), but to God's essence. The first term merges hypostases together, the second one identifies the birth of the Son before the ages and historical birth from the Virgin. The council identified these ideas as Arian; 2) application of expressions such as "one uncreated" or "one incomprehensible" without adding the name "God," that testified to Sabellianism, for the expression "one uncreated God" means the unity of the essence since the name "God" is also applied to the hypostasis, while the mentioned expressions point to abstract unity negating substantial threeness; 3) indivisibility of the Father, the Son and the Holy Spirit that is obvious Sabellianism (see Gouillard, Le Procès…, 145–149).

we see the "iconoclast mode of thinking," for which the writings of great "external philosophers" gave an appropriate argumentation.[33]

SUMMARY

The ideological paradigm, a significant feature of which was a concept of mind as an originally divine substance, was formed in the 11th C. The doctrine of the divine origin of the human mind may already be present in the works of Michael Psellos, but it is very clearly expressed in the works of his disciple John Italos. This article considers one of the consequences of the general anthropological framework — the teachings of the relationship between the image and the prototype. In 1082 during his trial on charges of heresy John Italos compiled a note with an outline of his theological views. One of the points of the note is related to the doctrine of icons. The philosopher, drawing on Neoplatonic epistemology going back to the "Cave metaphor" from Plato's *Republic*, relegates icons as sensual things to the lower epistemological level and calls them "shadows" (σκιαί). On the other hand, since sensual things are the emanations of the divine mind, in the opinion of Italos icons just like God deserve "worship" (λατρεία) which the human mind conducts by rising from lower intellectual substances to the higher.

(33) The earlier and more expanded version of this paper was published in Russian as Т. Щукин, Иконоборчество Иоанна Итала, *Проблемы теологии* 3, вып. 2 (Екатеринбург, 2006) 77–98.

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LA CONFESSION DE THÉODORE ET THÉOPHANE LES GRAPTOI : REMARQUES ET PRÉCISIONS

La *Vie* anonyme de Michel le Syncelle[1] parle non seulement de St. Michel mais nous donne beaucoup de renseignements sur la vie de ses compagnons saints Théodore et Théophane Graptoi; ce sont sur ces renseignements-là que se fondent l'*Éloge* en l'honneur de Théodore écrite par Théophane de Césarée[2] et la *Vie* du même Théodore composée par Syméon le Métaphraste.[3] En même temps la *Vie* métaphrastique de St. Théodore porte à notre connaissance une source très importante — une lettre du confesseur à St. Jean, évêque de Cyzique,[4] où Théodore décrit les souffrances que son frère et lui ont subi sous le règne de l'empereur Théophile en juillet de 836. M. Cunningham a déjà noté que la *Vie* de Michel le Syncelle, en ce qui concerne la confession des Graptoi, reproduit en grande partie les *topoi* des Vies rédigées dans le genre des *passions épiques*[5] et ajoute différents détails au récit de Théodore pour accentuer la cruauté des hérétiques et la fermeté des confesseurs.[6] D'ailleurs Cunningham, en

(1) L'édition critique: M. B. Cunningham (ed.), *The Life of Michael the Synkellos* (Belfast, 1991) (Belfast Byzantine Texts and Translations 1) ; plus loin — *LMS*. Il y en a une traduction russe : Жизнь, деяния и подвиги святого отца нашего и исповедника Михаила, пресвитера и синкелла града Иерусалима, dans : С. В. Полякова (изд.), *Византийские легенды* (Ленинград, 1972; репр. Санкт-Петербург, 2004) (Литературные памятники) 114–139.

(2) J.-M. Featherstone, The Praise of Theodore Graptos by Theophanes of Caesarea, *AB* 98 (1980) 93–150.

(3) *Theodori Grapti vita et conversatio*, *PG* 116, 653–684 ; plus loin — *VThGr*.

(4) *VThGr*, 672B–680A.

(5) D'après la classification de H. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs et les genres littéraires* (Bruxelles, 1966²) (Subsidia Hagiographica 13 B) 171–226.

(6) *LMS*, 26–28.

traduisant la *Vie*, s'est bornée à donner les références aux passages parallèles de la lettre de Théodore le Graptos, sans les comparer en détail. Cependant une telle comparaison que j'ai l'intention de faire plus bas, peut montrer clairement comment la *passion historique*[7] se transforme sous la plume de l'hagiographe en un mélange de panégyrique[8] et de la *passion épique*.

Mais en premier lieu je voudrais proposer une nouvelle traduction française de la lettre de Théodore parce que la traduction faite par S. Vailhé[9] est à mon sens assez décevante ; je ne sais même pas pourquoi l'auteur a appellé « traduction » ce qui est plutôt un exposé libre.[10] Ce texte est utile pour s'informer de l'histoire des Graptoi, mais on ne peut pas le considérer comme une traduction au sens propre ; de plus Vailhé n'a pas traduit le commencement et la fin de la lettre. Ainsi, nous pouvons constater que nous n'avons pas eu jusqu'à présent de traduction complète de la lettre de Théodore le Graptos.

(7) Sur la *passion historique* cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 15–131.

(8) Sur les traits de ce genre cf. ibid., 133–169.

(9) S. Vailhé, Saint Michel le Syncelle et les deux frères Grapti, *ROC* 6 (1901) 313–332, 610–642, cf. 618–623.

(10) Par exemple, le passage : Ὁ τηνικαῦτα τοίνυν τοῖς βασιλικοῖς ἐξυπηρετούμενος προστάγμασιν ἐλθὼν, καὶ τῇ νήσῳ ἐπιβὰς Ἀφουσίᾳ, σὺν πολλῷ τῷ τάχει ἐξαρπάσας ἡμᾶς, ἦγεν ἐπὶ τὴν πόλιν· τὴν αἰτίαν ὅτου χάριν ἐλκόμεθα, διαβεβαιούμενος ἀγνοεῖν· πλὴν ὅτι μετὰ πολλοῦ τοῦ τάχους, καὶ πολλῆς τῆς ἐπείξεως ἔφασκεν ἀπεστάλθαι. Εἰς τὴν πόλιν οὖν ἤλθομεν ἤδη τοῦ Ἰουλίου ὀγδόην ἐπέχοντος· καὶ τῷ βασιλεῖ μόνος ἐμφανισθεὶς ὁ ἡμᾶς ἀγαγὼν, εὐθὺς ἐκελεύσθη καθείρξειν ἡμᾶς εἰς τὸ πραιτώριον (*PG* 116, 672BC), dans la traduction de Vailhé s'est transformé en un texte suivant (les mots en italique sont absents dans le texte de la lettre) : « Le délégué *de Théophile* arriva *brusquement de Constantinople* à l'île Aphousia, il se saisit de nous *sans avertissement préalable et nous mit de force sur un bateau qui vogua vers la capitale*. *Comme nous lui demandions le motif d'un voyage aussi inattendu,* il nous répondit qu'il n'en savait rien, qu'il avait *des ordres formels* et devait s'y conformer le plus vite possible. Le 8 juillet nous arrivions donc *à Constantinople* et, *tandis qu'on* nous enfermait au Prétoire, le délégué se présentait devant l'empereur *pour lui rendre compte de sa mission* » (Vailhé, Saint Michel le Syncelle…, 618–619). Je pense que dans tous les cas il est trop osé de traduire de cette façon une source historique.

1. La traduction de la lettre de Théodore le Graptos à Jean, évêque de Cyzique[11]

1. (23).[12] Je commetrais un péché extrême si je taisais ce qui nous est arrivé, alors que nombreux sont ceux qui désirent en entendre le récit pour s'instruire. Et en premier lieu, que ce que l'on dit et ce que l'on entend puisse servir à la gloire de Dieu et au profit de plusieurs, et non moins à déshonorer les impies et à dénoncer le vice et les manœuvres astucieuses de leur dogme. *Et un peu après il dit ainsi* :[13] Quand l'exécuteur des ordres impériaux est arrivé et a posé le pied à l'île Aphousia,[14]

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(11) À juger par la lettre de Théodore, cet évêque était iconophile, et cela pose un problème : le dernier évêque de Cyzique ordonné avant le second iconoclasme était S. Émilien de Cyzique qui a pris part à la conférence sur la vénération des icônes, convoquée au palais par l'empereur Léon V Arménien en 815 ; Émilien a été exilé on ne sait où et y a trouvé sa mort (probablement avant 820 ; cf. R.-J. Lilie, C. Ludwig, Th. Pratsch, I. Rochow (Hrsg.), *Prosopographie der Mittelbyzantinischen Zeit*. Erste Abteilung (641–867) (Berlin, 1998) # 153) ; qui et quand donc aurait ordonné Jean de Cyzique ? Il est peu vraisemblable que cela se soit passé avant 821 ; une date entre 821 et 829, période quand les persécutions avaient cessé et les orthodoxes pouvaient se rencontrer assez librement, est plus probable ; mais les cas de l'ordination d'un évêque avant la Restauration de l'Orthodoxie nous sont inconnus. Selon J. R. Martindale, éditeur du *Prosopography of the Byzantine Empire*, I (641–867) (London, 1993; CD-éd.), on pourrait identifier ce Jean avec l'anonyme évêque de Cyzique (*Anonymus 565* à l'édition de Martindale) mentionné dans la *Vie* de Saint Joannice le Grand écrite par Pierre (J. van den Gheyn (ed.), Petri *Vita Ioannicii*, § 70, dans : *Acta Sanctorum*. Novembris. II.1 (Paris, 1894) 432B). Mais dans ce cas encore Jean devait être ordonné non par le patriarche Méthode, mais avant 836 car au moment où Théodore le Graptos lui écrivait il était déjà évêque : la *Vie* de Saint Théodore dit que la lettre était adressé Ἰωάννῃ τῷ τῆς κατὰ Κύζικον ἐκκλησίας προέδρῳ, καὶ τῷ λοιπῷ πλήθει τῶν ὀρθοδόξων (*VThGr*, 669D (§ 22)). Ainsi, on peut conclure que les ordinations des évêques iconophiles avaient lieu avant 843 ; ce n'est point impossible car les évêques ordonnés avant 815 quittaient la vie successivement : Jean de Chalcédoine († vers 825), Michel de Synnada († 826), Pierre de Nicée († 826), patriarche Nicéphore († 828), Euthyme de Sardes († 831) ; et les orthodoxes devaient prendre soin de la succession de leur hiérarchie.

(12) La numeration d'après les paragraphes de la *Vie* de Théodore est donnée entre parenthèses.

(13) Ici en italique c'est le texte de Syméon le Métaphraste. Cette remarque fait voir que Syméon n'a pas inséré la lettre toute entière dans la *Vie.*

(14) Cette île (à présent Afsa) se trouve à la Propontide (Marmara), près de la presqu'île de Cysique ; probablement les Graptoi étaient en correspon-

nous ayant saisi précipitamment, il nous a amené dans la Ville,[15] en affirmant qu'il ne savait pas pourquoi on nous y traînait ; il disait seulement qu'il avait été envoyé très vite et en toute hâte. Nous sommes donc arrivés dans la Ville dans la journée du huit juillet, et notre guide s'est présenté seul devant l'empereur et a reçu l'ordre de nous enfermer au Prétoire.[16]

Et voilà, six jours plus tard, le quatorzième jour du même mois, on nous appelle chez l'empereur. Et notre arrivée, annoncée d'avance, occupait déjà les pensées de tous ceux qui attendaient notre comparution devant l'empereur, parce que nous avions à subir un châtiment inévitable. Et on ne voyait et n'entendait rien d'autre qu'atrocités et menaces de la part de ceux qui nous parlaient : « Ohé, sans tarder ni contredire soumettez-vous aux ordres de l'empereur », — et les uns nous auguraient de cruelles souffrances si nous n'obéissions pas, les autres disaient : « Vous avez un démon »,[17] et d'autres paroles semblables et encore pires qui envahissaient en vain nos oreilles.

2 (24). Nous avions entendu celà avant d'être venus dans la salle dite Dorée ;[18] et quand, conduits par l'éparque,[19] nous y sommes arrivés et sommes entrés par les portes, l'empereur s'est présenté devant nos yeux, excessivement terrible et transporté de colère, beaucoup de gens se tenant debout des deux côtés. C'était environ la dixième heure,[20] et, étant allé jusqu'là, l'éparque a reculé et nous a laissés seuls devant les

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dance avec l'évêque de Cyzique pendant leur exil en Aphousia, c'est pourquoi ils ont voulu lui faire connaître ce qui leur était arrivé.

(15) C'est à dire à Constantinople : pour les byzantins, la capitale était la Ville par excellence, c'est pourquoi elle est souvent appelée par le mot πόλις, sans nom.

(16) Le Prétoire avec sa prison se trouvaient près de la Mésè, entre le palais de Lausus et le forum de Constantin, et devraient être localisés dans l'ancienne municipalité d'Istanbul ; cf. R. Janin, *Constantinople byzantine. Développement urbain et répertoire topographique* (Paris, 1964) (Archives de l'Orient Chrétien 4A) 166–169.

(17) Δαιμόνιον ἔχετε. On pourrait y voir une allusion à Δαιμόνιον ἔχεις d'Évangile (John 8 : 48), mais il serait assez étrange qu'on ait sciemment injurié les Graptoi de la même façon que les Juifs avaient déshonoré le Christ. Il reste à penser que les insulteurs voulaient tout simplement dire que les deux frères étaient démoniaques.

(18) Le *Chrysotriclinos*, la salle principale du Grand Palais, construite par Justin II.

(19) ὁ ἔπαρχος, le préfet de Constantinople.

(20) C'est à dire, la quatrième heure de l'après-midi.

yeux de l'empereur. Et lorsque nous nous sommes prosternés, il nous a ordonné d'approcher, sévèrement et d'un ton hautain. Quand nous nous sommes donc trouvés devant lui, il a demandé : « De quel pays êtes-vous natifs ? » Quand nous avons répondu : « De la Moabitide »,[21] il a demandé de la même façon : « Pourquoi êtes-vous venus ici ? » Et avant que nous ayons répondu, il a ordonné de nous frapper sur le visage. Et l'on nous a porté bien des coups violents à tour de bras, de sorte que nous avions le vertige et que nous avons commencé à tomber par terre. Et si je n'avais pas saisi la tunique sur la poitrine de celui qui me frappait, je serais tombé tout droit aux pieds de l'empereur. Et tenant les vêtements, j'ai reçu les coups sans me détourner, jusqu'à ce que le souverain ait ordonné de cesser de nous frapper. Et lorsque ceux qui nous frappaient s'étaient arrêtés, l'empereur a demandé de nouveau : « Pour quoi faire êtes-vous venus ici ? » Et par cette parole il voulait dire : « Pourquoi êtes-vous venus habiter ici, si vous ne désirez adopter notre foi ? »

3 (25). Et comme nous gardions le silence, la tête baissée et les yeux fixés à terre, il s'est tourné impatiemment et avec le regard menaçant vers l'éparque qui se tenait près et, d'une voix sévère et avec une grande colère, a proféré ce qui suit : « Emmène-les et grave-leur les ïambes sur le visage, et remets-les l'un et l'autre aux Sarrasins,[22] et que ceux-ci les conduisent dans leur pays ». Et celui qui avait ces ïambes et qui les avait composé, prénommé Christodule,[23] était près ; l'empereur lui a ordonné de les lire en ajoutant : « S'ils ne sont pas beaux, ne t'en inquiète pas ». Il a dit cela sachant la plus grande exactitude avec laquelle nous nous tenions aux mesures du vers, et pour ainsi se moquer de nous.[24] C'est pourquoi l'un des assistants, pour lui faire plaisir, a ajouté à ses paroles : « Ils ne sont pas dignes, ô souverain, que les ïambes soient meilleurs. Beaux sont ceux qui existent ».[25]

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(21) Une région dans la Palestine, à l'est de la mer Morte.

(22) C'est à dire aux Arabes.

(23) Ce personnage n'est connu que par les *Vies* de Michel le Syncelle et de Théodore le Graptos. Plus bas dans la lettre de Théodore est mentionné le père de ce Christodule ce qui montre que l'auteur des ïambes pourrait être assez jeune et aurait commencé à faire sa carrière dans la cour impériale.

(24) Cf. la 3ème partie de l'article présent.

(25) C. G. Pitsakis, en interprétant cet épisode, dit que « cette attribution n'est pas définitive » : selon lui, « la phrase ὃς ἦν καὶ τούτους σκεψάμενος ... pourrait également signifier, tout simplement, "celui qui a pris l'initiative de ce truc-là", "celui qui en a eu l'idée" — ce qui n'exclut certainement

« Comme tous désirent se rendre à la ville
Où pour l'arrangement de l'univers les pièds
Tous purs du Verbe de Dieu étaient posés,[26]
Ceux-ci sont arrivés à l'endroit sacré.
Des vases de vice, d'égarement vilain et diabolique,
Ils y ont fait beaucoup de choses honteuses,
Affreuses, par l'ignorance et par l'esprit impie.
On les a expulsés de là comme apostats,
Mais ils se sont enfuis dans la Ville royale[27]
Sans renoncer à leur criminelle folie.
Aussi comme malfaiteurs, avec la face gravée,
Ils sont condamnés et chassés de nouveau ».[28]

4 (26). Les ïambes étant lus, il[29] a ordonné de nous reconduire au Prétoire. Et lorsque nous étions déjà sortis et arrivés au lieu dit Thermastra,[30] un homme venu là avant a ordonné que nous revenions, et avec une grande hâte il nous a présenté devant l'empereur. Dès qu'il nous eût vus, celui-ci a dit littéralement ainsi : « Étant partis, vous direz peut-être là-bas : "Nous avons bafoué l'empereur". Mais c'est moi qui me moquerai de vous le premier et qui vous expédierai ensuite ». Ayant dit cela, il a ordonné de nous déshabiller. Et voilà, nous ayant

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pas la paternité aussi des vers eux-mêmes, mais ne l'implique pas nécessairement non plus ». Cependant cette interprétation me paraît forcée. Pitsakis estime comme étrange « la "fausse modestie" de l'empereur pour le compte d'autrui, quant à la qualité des vers », et demande : « pourquoi cette insulte gratuite contre Christodule, ce pauvre courtisan fidèle, et en présence même des condamnés? » (C. G. Pitsakis, Aristéalos, poète byzantin inexistant: à propos de l'auteur des vers cravés sur les frères Graptoi, *Вспомогательные исторические дисциплины* / *Auxiliari historical disciplines* 30 (2007) 79). Il pense que les chronistes attribuant les vers à Théophile lui-même peuvent avoir raison, mais finalement il ne se prononce pas nettement sur ce problème (cf. ibid., 76–77, 80). Pour ma part, je crois qu'il n'y a pas de raison pour ôter la paternité des vers à Christodule ; en tout cas, l'histoire de l'empereur « insultant » son courtisan semble bien plus vraisemblable que celle d'un courtisan faisant une maladroite flatterie à son souverain à propos de sa poésie.

(26) C'est à dire à Jérusalem.

(27) C'est à dire à Constantinople.

(28) Sur ces vers cf. en détail la partie suivante de l'article.

(29) L'empereur.

(30) Θερμάστρα — un passage entre le Grand Palais et l'hippodrome ; cf. R. Guilland, *Étude de topographie de Constantinople byzantine* (Berlin, 1969) (Berliner Byzantinische Arbeiten 37) I, 120–129.

dévêtis, on me battait, pendant que l'empereur criait sans cesse et adjurait les fouettants par lui-même : « C'est ainsi que tu m'aime ?![31] Frappe-le bien ! » C'est pourquoi on me frappait le dos et la poitrine sans aucune compassion ni humanité. Et frappé longtemps, je criais : « Nous n'avons en rien péché contre ton règne ! » et encore : « Seigneur, aie pitié de nous ! » et « Sainte Mère de Dieu, viens à notre aide ! » Après moi, ils se sont mis à frapper mon frère qui criait pareillement et appelait : « Sainte Mère de Dieu, tu as fui en Égypte toi-même, en portant ton fils ;[32] regarde sur moi qui est puni pour la fuite semblable à la tienne ! Seigneur, Seigneur, "toi qui délivre le petit du plus fort",[33] ne nous ôte pas ton aide ! » Et après nous avoir battu ainsi autant qu'il voulait, il nous a ordonné de partir. Mais un autre homme est venu de nouveau et nous a rattrapés en disant de revenir.[34]

5 (27). Et quelqu'un envoyé par l'empereur nous questionnait : « Pourquoi vous réjouissiez-vous de la mort de Léon[35] ? Et pourquoi, ayant cherché refuge auprès de lui, vous n'embrassez pas sa foi ? » Sur quoi nous avons répondu : « Nous ne nous sommes pas réjouis de la mort de Léon, et nous n'avons pas cherché de refuge auprès de lui. Et nous ne nous permettrons point de répudier entièrement ou changer notre foi pour vous qui changez en conformité avec les temps ». Et quand il a demandé : « Est-ce que vous n'êtes pas venus ici sous Léon ? » — nous avons dit : « Bien sûr que non ! Mais nous y sommes venus sous celui qui avait régné avant lui ».[36] Il a dit : « C'est bien ! c'est bien ! » et il est parti. C'était le logothète du drome.[37] Alors, nous sommes allés au Prétoire ; il faisait déjà nuit.

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(31) Ou bien : « C'est ainsi que tu m'es fidèle ?! »

(32) Cf. Matt 2 : 13.

(33) Cf. Ps 35 : 10 (BGT Ps 34 : 10).

(34) À juger par le passage suivant, ce fonctionnaire a ordonné aux Graptoi de revenir non pas chez l'empereur, mais dans une autre salle, pour être interrogés par le logothète du drome.

(35) C'est à dire de Léon l'Arménien.

(36) Les Graptoi avec St. Michel le Syncelle sont arrivés à Constantinople sous l'empereur Michel I Rhangabé, en 812 ou 813. Pour la date et les raisons de leur arrivée, cf. *LMS*, 11–13.

(37) On ne sait qui était alors le logothète du drome ; mais il est possible que ce fût le même logothète qui avait flagellé S. Euthyme de Sardes en 831, c'est à dire Arsaber, mari de Kalomaria, soeur de l'impératrice Théodora. Cf. Т. А. Сенина (монахиня Кассия), Несколько замечаний по поводу *Жития* св. Евфимия Сардского, *Scr* 2 (2006) 408–411.

6 (28). Quatre jours plus tard,[38] on nous amène devant l'éparque. Celui-ci, nous ayant effrayés par la menace de nombreux supplices et ayant dit qu'il nous châtierait, graverait nos visages et puis nous remettrait aux Sarrasins, nous exhortait à faire ce que l'empereur désirait. Christodule et son père y étaient eux aussi. Et comme nous refusions ferme et disions que nous souffririons volontiers d'innombrables morts et que nous ne nous souillerions jamais par la communion ni même par l'adhésion avec ceux qui avaient rejeté la foi et la confession des chrétiens, même si l'on nous arrachait les yeux et brûlait nos corps par le feu, le père de Christodule, à titre de grâce, s'adressant à ceux qui nous faisaient face, a dit à l'éparque : « Ils n'ont jamais vénéré une icône. Et ils sont venus ici après qu'il leur soit arrivé quelque chose, je ne sais quoi ». Mais je lui ai dit sévèrement : « Va-t'en, toi qui ne sais ni ce que tu dis, ni de quoi tu te fais champion ».[39]

7 (29). Et l'éparque nous a dit de nouveau obséquieusement : « Communiez avec nous une seule fois, une seule petite fois, nous ne demandons rien d'autre ! J'irai donc à l'église avec vous, et ensuite vous partirez où vous désirez ».[40] Ayant ri, je lui ai répondu : « Seigneur éparque, tu parles à peu près comme quelqu'un qui, voulant attirer quelqu'un d'autre, lui dirait : « Je ne te demande rien d'autre que de te laisser couper la tête, et après, vas où tu veux ». Sache donc que, pour nous, c'est déjà un déshonneur si quelqu'un ose nous pousser à la communion à laquelle tu, sans l'apercevoir, nous exhortes d'entrer. Un tel homme s'assurera bien qu'il lui est plus facile de soulever la terre là-haut et de faire descendre le ciel que de nous détourner de la piété ». Alors il a ordonné de nous graver les visages. Et voilà, bien que nos plaies de fouets fussent encore enflammées et nous causassent

(38) Le 18 juillet.

(39) Cf. 1 Tim 1 : 7.

(40) Les iconoclastes ont inventé cette mesure de la séduction des iconophiles sous Léon l'Arménien, en 816 : on a proposé aux orthodoxes de communier une seule fois avec le patriarche iconoclaste Théodote, après quoi il leur était permis de revenir à leur couvents et d'y vivre en vénérant les icônes ; plusieurs orthodoxes se sont laissés tenter, par example saint Nicétas de Medikion dont la *Vie* raconte d'une manière assez détaillée cette invention des iconoclastes (cf. Theostericti *Vita Nicetae Medicii*, § 40–41, dans : Acta Sanctorum, Apr. I (3e éd.) Appendix. XXVI (sur Internet : http://www.doaks.org/saints2/TEXTS/30.html) ; la traduction russe : Д. Е. Афиногенов, *Житие преподобного отца нашего Константина, что из иудеев. Житие св. исповедника Никиты, игумена Мидикийского* (Москва, 2001) (Святоотеческая письменность) 130–131).

des supplices insupportables, on nous a étendus sur les banc et on a commencé à nous graver les visages. Et on a percé nos visages longtemps ;[41] mais le soleil s'étant caché, l'obscurité venue a mis un terme à cette opération, quoiqu'ils ne le voulussent pas.

8 (30). Et nous allant partir, nous avons dit à l'éparque et à ceux qui étaient là : « Sachez donc que les chérubins en voyant ces inscriptions reculeront, et le glaive de flamme nous tournera le dos et nous ouvrira l'entrée dans le Paradis,[42] en vénérant nos visages qui ont été gravés si indignement pour notre Maître commun. Car depuis des temps anciens c'est à nous seuls qu'on a fait cela, et pour nous seuls qu'on a inventé cette innovation, bien que vous ayez déclaré humains tous ceux qui avaient commencé à faire des folies contre notre dogme divin. Et vous ne manquerez pas de reconnaître ces inscriptions qui vous seront présentées à lire sur le visage du Christ, car il a dit : « Ce que vous avez fait à l'un de ces plus petits, c'est à moi que vous l'avez fait ».[43]

9 (31). On dit que l'empereur, ayant appris de l'éparque cette parole et étant frappé, je pense, par la clarté de notre raisonnement, a prononcé : « Si je savais que c'est vrai, j'écrirais cela sur tout mon peuple ! »[44] Ainsi, quoiqu'il ait eu lieu beaucoup d'autres choses,[45] nous

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(41) ἐπὶ πολλὴν δὲ τὴν ὥραν ἐκκεντούντων τὰ πρόσωπα. Il paraît que c'était un tatouage et non pas une pyrogravure, un travail fin qui exigeait beaucoup de temps.

(42) Cette comparaison prenant sa source à Gen 3 : 24 se présente souvent dans l'hymnographie ; cf., par exemple, l'acolouthie de la Nativité du Christ, la 1ère stichère à « Seigneur, j'ai crié vers Toi ». Saint Théophane le Graptos a employé cette comparaison juste dans le 1er tropaire du canon composé par lui en l'honneur de son frère saint Théodore († 840) qui était mort en exil : cf. son acolouthie le 27 décembre.

(43) Cf. Matt 25 : 40.

(44) Un épisode vraiment intéressant qui témoigne que Théophile doutait dans une certaine mesure du dogme iconoclaste, ce que reflètent les *Vies* de saint patriarche Méthode (*Vita Methodii Patriarchae*, § 9, *PG* 100, 1252C ; la traduction russe : Записка о богоугодном житии иже во святых отца нашего Мефодия, архиепископа Константинопольского, dans : *Д.* Е. Афиногенов, *«Повесть о прощении императора Феофила» и Торжество Православия* (Москва, 2004) (Scrinium Philocalicum 4) 153–161, cf. 156) et de saint Joannikios le Grand (Sabae *Vita Ioannicii*, § 45 ; cf. éd. J. Van den Gheyn, dans : Acta Sanctorum, Nov. II.1 371A ; sur Internet : http://www.doaks.org/saints2/TEXTS/13.html).

(45) On ne sait pas de quoi saint Théodore parle ici. Le Continuateur de Théophane raconte d'une discussion des Graptoi avec l'empereur Théophile

l'avons communiqué plus brièvement parce que nous avons bien de témoins de ce qu'on nous avait fait. Je sais bien que chacun prendra garde de raconter mieux que nous, davantage et d'une manière plus certaine, ce qui a été fait et dit alors. « Car ce n'est pas dans un coin » ni d'une manière secrète « que cela s'est passé »[46] mais en spectacle[47] et au milieu de l'univers.

2. Les ïambes

Le vers que l'on a gravés sur les visages des confesseurs nous sont parvenus dans 13 textes, et je fais ici une comparaison pour montrer d'une manière évidente leurs divergences et leurs rapports.[48]

Lettre de Théodore le Graptos[49]
(836, dans la source de X s.)

Πάντων ποθούντων προστρέχειν *πρὸς τὴν πόλιν*,
Ὅπου πάναγνοι τοῦ Θεοῦ Λόγου πόδες
Ἔστησαν εἰς *σύστασιν* τῆς οἰκουμένης,
Ὤφθησαν οὗτοι τῷ σεβασμίῳ τόπῳ,
Σκεύη πονηρὰ **δυσειδαίμονος** πλάνης,
Ἐκεῖσε πολλὰ λοιπὸν ἐξ **ἀγνωσίας**
Πράξαντες *αἰσχρὰ, δεινὰ*, *δυσσεβοφρόνως*,
Ἐκεῖθεν ἠλάθησαν ὡς ἀποστάται.
Πρὸς τὴν πόλιν δὲ τοῦ κράτους πεφευγότες,
Οὐκ ἐξαφῆκαν τὰς ἀθέσμους μωρίας.
Ὅθεν γραφέντες ὡς κακοῦργοι *τὴν θέαν*
Κατακρίνονται καὶ διώκονται πάλιν.

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sur la vénération des icônes, mais il est difficile de déterminer son authenticité ; voir plus bas, la 6ème partie de l'article présent.

(46) Cf. Act 26 : 26.

(47) ἐν θεάτρῳ — cf. 1 Co 4 : 9.

(48) Les versions différentes de ces vers ont montré dans l'édition : T. Büttner-Wobst, Ioannis Zonarae *epitomae historiarum* libri XVIII, vol. III (Bonnae, 1897) (CSHB) 366, mais l'éditeur n'a pas tenu compte de toutes les sources.

(49) *VThGr*, 673D = F. Combefis, *Manipulus originum rerumque Constantinopolitanarum variis auctoribus graece erutus &c.* (Paris, 1664) 206–207.

***Vie* de Michel le Syncelle[50] (avant 867) = Zonaras[51] (XII s.) = Kédrènos[52] (XI–XII s.)**

Σκεύη πονηρὰ **δεισιδαίμονος** πλάνης,
Ἐκεῖσε πολλὰ λοιπὸν ἐξ **ἀπιστίας**

Georges le Moine[53] (vers 846) = Georges le Moine Continué[54] (X s.)

Σκεύη πονηρὰ **δεισιδαίμονος** πλάνης,
Ἐκεῖσε πολλὰ λοιπὸν ἐξ ***ἀτοπίας*** …
Οὐκ ἐξαφῆκαν τὰς *ἀθέμιτους* μωρίας.

***Vie* des Syméon, David et Géorgios de Lesbos[55] (IX s.)**

Ἔστησαν εἰς *σύστημα* τῆς οἰκουμένης,
Ὤφθησαν οὗτοι τῷ σεβασμίῳ τόπῳ,
Σκεύη πονηρὰ **δεισιδαίμονος** πλάνης,
Κἀκεῖσε πολλὰ λοιπὸν ἐξ **ἀπιστίας**

Continuateur de Théophane[56] (913–959) = Skylitsa[57] (fin de XI s.)

Ἔστησαν εἰς *σύστημα* τῆς οἰκουμένης, …

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(50) *LMS* 86, l. 6–17. Cette rédaction des vers est insérée dans E. Cougny, *Epigrammatum anthologia Palatina cum Planudeis et appendice nova*, t. 3 (Paris, 1890) Epigrammata demonstrativa, ep. 308 ; mais Cougny, contre l'évidence des sources, a attribué les ïambes à l'empereur Théophile.

(51) Büttner-Wobst, Ioannis Zonarae *epitome*..., 366, l. 1–12. Sur les sources citées ici-bas cf. L. Brubaker, J. Haldon, *Byzantium in the Iconoclast Era (ca 680–850): the Sources. An annotaded survey* (Aldershot—Burlington—Singapore—Sydney, 2001) (Birmingham Byzantine and Ottoman Monographs 7) 172–178.

(52) Ed. I. Bekker, Cedrenus *compendium historiarum*, t. II (Bonnae, 1839) (CSHB) 115, l. 21 – 116, l. 10.

(53) Georgius Monachus, *Chronicon breve*, *PG* 110, 1025CD, 1028A.

(54) *Vitae recentiorum imperatorum*, dans : I. Bekker, *Theophanes Continuatus, Ioannes Cameniata, Symeon Magister, Georgius Monachus* (Bonnae, 1838) (CSHB) 807, l. 10–21.

(55) J. van den Gheyn, Acta graeca ss. Davidis, Symeonis et Georgii Mitylenae in insula Lesbo, *AB* 18 (1899) 239. Je ne sais pourquoi S. Vailhé, en traduisant *la lettre de Théodore le Graptos*, a cité les ïambes d'après le texte de ces *Acta.*

(56) Theophanes Continuatus, dans : Bekker, *Theophanes Continuatus*..., 105, l. 16 – 106, l. 3 (III, § 14) ; la traduction russe : Я. Н. *Любарский*, Продолжатель Феофана, *Жизнеописания византийских царей* (Москва, 1993) (*Л*итературные памятники) 50.

(57) J. Thurn (ed.), Ioannis Scylitzae *synopsis historiarum* (Berlin, 1973) (CFHB SB 5) Theoph. 10, l. 124–135.

Σκεύη πονηρὰ **δεισιδαίμονος** πλάνης,
Ἐκεῖσε πολλὰ λοιπὸν ἐξ **ἀπιστίας**

Pseudo-Syméon[58] (X s.)

Πάντων ποθούντων προστρέχειν *ἐν τῇ πόλει* …
Σκεύη πονηρὰ **δεισιδαίμονος** πλάνης,
Ἐκεῖσε πολλὰ λοιπὸν ἐξ **ἀπιστίας** ...
Ὅθεν γραφέντες ὡς κακοῦργοι *τὰς ὄψεις*

Théodora Palaeologina[59] (XIII s.)

Ἔστησαν πρὸς σύστασιν τῆς οἰκουμένης
Σκεύη πονηρὰ **δεισιδαίμονος** πλάνης·
Ἐκεῖσε πολλὰ λοιπὸν ἐξ **ἀπιστίας**
Πράξαντες αἰσχρὰ, δεινὰ, *εὐσεβοφρόνοι*

Théodore Skutariotes[60] (XIII s.)

Ἔστησαν_[61]σύστασιν τῆς οἰκουμένης, …
Σκεύη πονηρὰ **δεισιδαίμονος** πλάνης,
Ἐκεῖσε πολλὰ λοιπὸν ἐξ **ἀπιστίας**

***Synaxaire* dans les Ménées, le 27 décembre, la mémoire de St Théodore le Graptos[62] (la date est imprécise)**

Σκεύη πονηρὰ **δεισιδαίμονος** πλάνης,
Ἐκεῖσε πολλὰ λοιπὸν ἐξ **ἀπιστίας**
Πράξαντες *δεινὰ, αἰσχρὰ*, δυσσεβοφρόνως

On voit que la rédaction la plus proche de la lettre de Théodore le Graptos est celle de la *Vie* de Michel le Syncelle ; les rédactions contenant le plus de variantes sont celles de la *Vie* de Syméon, David et Géorgios, de Pseudo-Syméon et de Théodora Palaeologina. Mais tou-

(58) Symeonis Magistri *Annales*, dans : Bekker, *Theophanes Continuatus*..., 641, l. 20 – 642, l. 8.

(59) *Βίος καὶ πολιτεῖα τοῦ ὁσίου πατρὸς ἡμῶν Θεοφάνους τοῦ ὁμολογήτου καὶ τοῦ αὐταδελφοῦ αὐτοῦ Θεοδώρου* συγγραφεὶς παρὰ Θεοδώρας Ῥαυλαίνης Κατακουζηνῆς τῆς Παλαιολογίνης, dans : Γ. Ι. Παπαδοπουλος-Κεραμευς (ἐκδ.), Ἀνάλεκτα Ἱεροσολυμιτικῆς σταχυολογίας ἢ Συλλογὴ ἀνεκδότων καὶ σπανίων ἑλληνικῶν συγγραφῶν περὶ τῶν κατὰ τὴν Ἑῴαν ὀρθοδόξων ἐκκλησιῶν καὶ μάλιστα τῆς τῶν Παλαιστινῶν, τ. IV (Πετρούπολις, 1897) 213.

(60) *Ἀνονύμου Σύνοψις Χρονική*, dans : K. N. Σαθα (ἐκδ.), *Μεσαιωνικὴ Βιβλιοθήκη / Bibliotheca Graeca Medii Aevi*, vol. VII (Paris, 1894) 133.

(61) La préposition εἰς est omise.

(62) *Μηναῖα τοῦ ὅλου ἐνιαυτοῦ*. Τ. Β', Νοεβρίου καὶ Δεκεμβρίου (Ἐν Ρώμη, 1889) 702.

tes les rédactions sauf celle de la lettre donnent δεισιδαίμονος au lieu de δυσειδαίμονος, et ἀπιστίας ou ἀτοπίας (variante de Georges le Moine) au lieu d'ἀγνωσίας. On trouve l'expression τῆς δεισιδαίμονος πλάνης souvent dans les textes des auteurs byzantins,[63] alors que le mot δυσειδαίμονος dans la lettre de Théodore est à ma connaissance un *hapax legomenon*. Mais il existe les mots δυσδαίμων « malheureux, malencontreux » et δυσείδεια « laideur, hideur », et l'on trouve chez saint Cyrille d'Alexandrie l'expression [τῆς] δυσειδαιμονίας Ἑλληνικῆς.[64] Il serait donc possible d'admettre que le mot δυσειδαίμονος dans la lettre de Théodore chez le Métaphraste n'est pas une mauvaise leçon, résultat d'une faute du copiste, mais se présente comme la rédaction authentique que tous les autres auteurs auraient « corrigée » conformément à l'expression plus habituelle. Pourtant la deuxième leçon — ἀπιστίας / ἀτοπίας au lieu d'ἀγνωσίας — semble ôter le crédit de cette hypothèse : en effet, on imagine à peine que tous les auteurs byzantins en copiant les ïambes aient commis deux fautes identiques ; de ce point de vue, on devrait estimer authentique la rédaction des vers dans la *Vie* de saint Michel dont l'auteur adaptait la lettre de Théodore. Mais, d'autre part, nous ne savons pas exactement par quelles voies ces ïambes se sont trouvés dans nos textes, et le problème de la rédaction authentique reste irrésolu.

Les vers parlent d'« ignorance », d'« esprit impie » et de « criminelle folie » des Graptoi, mais ne nomment pas leur iconophilie, et cela amène une sorte d'ambiguïté : on peut prendre les deux frères soit pour des hérétiques, soit pour des criminels qui « ont fait beaucoup de choses honteuses ». On rencontre la même ambiguïté avec la mention de leur expulsion de Jérusalem dont la cause pourrait être soit leur foi, soit leur « vice » : l'auteur semble laisser aux lecteurs l'interprétation de ces vers. Il apparaît que cette ambiguïté soit propre aux iconoclastes sous Théophile ; on peut se rappeler les accusations que saint Méthode, futur patriarche, adresse à Théophile dans la *Vie* de S. Euthyme de Sardes à propos des questions posées à l'archévêque par les envoyés de l'empereur qui flagellaient Euthyme : « les tyrans du jours, qui arrêtent les nôtres, ... escamotant le véritable grief qu'ils ont contre eux, — je veux dire celui des saintes images ..., — incapables d'ouvrir même une discussion là-dessus, parce que la doctrine sur les saintes images est inat-

(63) Chez les saints Grégoire le Théologien, Jean Damascène et patriarche Nicéphore, et surtout chez Eusèbe dans le *Praeparatio evangelica*.

(64) *Epistulae paschales* 30.4, *PG* 77, 980, l. 31–32.

taquable et parce que tous les nôtres sont résolus à mourir avec courage pour cette cause, se livrent à un simulacre d'enquête : "Qui as-tu fréquenté ?" ou "Qui est venu te visiter ?" ..., et ces insensés, ces séducteurs, ces criminels triomphent ».[65] Les iconoclastes représentaient les procès des confesseurs orthodoxes comme affaires plutôt politiques : il est à savoir dans quelle mesure les actions du gouvernement sous Théophile impliquaient l'intérêt proprement religieux.[66]

3. La transformation de la passion historique *en* passion épique

M. Cunningham a déjà noté que l'auteur de la *Vie* de Michel le Syncelle n'a pas développé les dialogues entre l'empereur et les confesseurs comme cela est habituel aux auteurs des *passions épiques*.[67] Ce-

(65) J. Gouillard, La Vie d'Euthyme de Sardes († 831), une œuvre du patriarche Méthode, *Travaux et Mémoires* 10 (1987) 77 et 79 (texte grec), 76 et 78 (traduction française que je cite ici).

(66) Les faits suggèrent que le dernier empereur iconoclaste en rejetant la politique de tolérance de son père n'est pas toutefois entièrement revenu à la politique de Léon l'Arménien : les persécutions des iconophiles étaient réalisées sous Théophile assez sélectivement et sous le prétexte des intérêts politiques ; cf. J. Rosser, Theophilus (829–842): Popular Sovereign, Hated Persecutor, *Βυζαντιακά* 3 (1983) 41–43 ; Афиногенов, «*Повесть о прощении императора Феофила*»…, 52–53. V. N. Vlyssidou, L'empereur Théophile « chérissant les nations » et ses relations avec la classe supérieure de la société byzantine, dans : *Οἱ σκοτεινοί αἰώνες τοῦ Βυζαντίου* (Athen, 2001) 443–453, pense que Théophile était préoccupé en premier lieu par la « lutte pour s'imposer à une classe supérieure, habituée à se comporter d'une façon arbitraire, sans se soucier de l'existence des lois impériales » (p. 447), et que ses persécutions avait un caractère politique. Voir aussi ci-dessous, les parties 4 et 5 de cet article.

(67) *LMS*, 27. Toutefois, en parlant de ces dialogues, Cunningham affirme que l'on trouve le *topos* hagiographique même dans la lettre de Théodore le Graptos (Ibid., 27–28); je ne vois pas de juste motif pour cette affirmation : si quelque chose que l'on raconte a l'air d'un *topos*, cela ne veut pas dire encore que le narrateur avait absolument celui-ci en vue. Par exemple, en lisant la *Vie* de saint Michel, on peut considérer comme un *topos* l'ordre de l'empereur de faire revenir les confesseurs et leur flagellation (§ 21, *LMS*, 88, l. 26–31, et 90, l. 1–24 ; sur ce moyen d'allongement de la partie dialoguée des Acts cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*… 185) ; mais la lettre de saint Théodore nous montre que cet épisode est tout à fait autentique (*VThGr*, 673D–676B, § 26). En général, sur le procès des Graptoi tel qu'il était en réalité, on peut répéter les mots de H. Delehaye sur les procès des martyrs : « … rien n'était plus

pendant l'hagiographe a trouvé d'autres moyens de transformer les faits historiques de la lettre selon les lois du genre. Ici je présente les passages parallèles de la lettre de Théodore et de la *Vie* de Michel pour démontrer d'une manière évidente comment l'hagiographe a travaillé le matériau historique présenté dans la lettre.[68]

Lettre de Théodore le Graptos	***Vie* de Michel le Syncelle**
Καὶ οὐδὲν ἦν ἕτερον ἰδεῖν ἢ ἀκούειν ἀλλ᾽ ἢ φόβους καὶ ἀπειλάς, τῶν μὲν λεγόντων, «Συντόμως, *ὦ οὗτοι*, καὶ ἄνευ πάσης ἀντιλογίας ὑποκύψατε τοῖς βασιλικοῖς διατάγμασι»· τῶν δὲ τὰ ἀνήκεστα παθεῖν, «εἰ παρακούσοιτε», προμαρτυρουμένων· ἕτερον δὲ φασκόντων· «Δαιμόνιον ἔχετε», καὶ ἕτερα *τοιαῦτα*, καὶ χείρονα *κενῶν ταῖς ἀκοαῖς ἡμῶν παραπίπτοντα*.[69]	...οὐδὲν ἦν ἄλλο ἰδεῖν καὶ ἀκοῦσαι ἀλλ᾽ ἢ φόβους καὶ ἀπειλάς, **ἃς οἱ ὑπηρέται τοῦ παμπονήρου βασιλέως προσῆγον αὐτοῖς,**[70] οἱ μὲν ***ἀπηνῶς***[71] λέγοντες πρὸς αὐτούς· «Συντόμως καὶ ἄνευ πάσης ἀντιλογίας ὑποκύψατε τοῖς βασιλικοῖς θεσπίσμασιν, ***ὦ δυστυχέστατοι,***[72] **καὶ μὴ θελήσητε τῇ ὑμῶν ἀπονοίᾳ κακῶς ἀπολέσθαι**», τῶν δὲ ἀνήκεστα παθεῖν λεγόντων, εἰ παρακούσωσι τοῦ βασιλέως διαμαρτυρόμενοι, ἕτερον δὲ φασκόντων· «᾽Δαιμόνιον ἔχετε᾽· **μὴ ὑμεῖς σοφώτεροί ἐστε τῶν τῆς ἐκκλησίας ἀρχιερέων καὶ τοῦ θεοστέπτου ἄνακτος;**»[73] Καὶ ἕτερα

simple que le procès des chrétiens. Il ne fallait pas de longues recherches, pas de confrontations, pas d'auditions de témoins, pour établir le délit. … Dans les Actes historiques l'interrogatoire est bref et serré ; les discours de quelque étendue sont l'exception » (Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 183–184).

(68) Je ne note que les variantes qui présentent un intéret du point de vue de la transformation de la *passion historique* de la lettre en une *passion épique* de la *Vie.* Dans la lettre : 1) les mots omis par l'auteur de la *Vie* sont soulignés, 2) les mots remplacés d'autres par l'hagiographe sont en italique. Dans la *Vie* : 1) les mots par lesquels l'hagiographe remplace les mots correspondants de la lettre sont en italique et en caractères gras, 2) les mots ajoutés par l'hagiographe sont en caractères gras.

(69) § 23 : *VThGr*, 672CD.

(70) L'hagiographe insère une injure à l'adresse de l'empereur-iconoclaste qui doit assurément être « tout vicieux ».

(71) « Sévèrement ».

(72) « ô les plus malheureux » au lieu de « ohé ».

(73) Les serviteurs de l'empereur appellent les saints à ne pas penser qu'ils sont plus sages que les évêques (naturellement iconoclastes, les évêques de l'église « officielle ») et le « souverain couronné par Dieu ». L'exi-

	πάμπολλα[74] καὶ χείρονα τούτων **οἱ τοῦ βασιλέως κάκιστοι ὑπηρέται**[75] ***προσῆγον αὐτοῖς, τοῦτο μὲν παραινοῦντες, τοῦτο δὲ ἐκφοβοῦντες***[76].[77]
(...) ὤφθη ἡμῖν ὁ βασιλεὺς φοβερὸς ἄγαν[78] καὶ θυμοῦ πνέων (...) καὶ μέχρι τούτου ἐλθὼν δεέστη ἡμῶν ὁ ἔπαρχος, μόνους ἡμᾶς ἐν ὀφθαλμοῖς τοῦ βασιλέως καταλιπών. Καὶ δὴ προσκυνήσαντας,[79] ἐγγύτερον	...ὤφθη αὐτοῖς ὁ βασιλεὺς **πολλοῦ** θυμοῦ **καὶ ὀργῆς** πνέων[80] (...) Ὡς δὲ μέχρι τούτου ἦλθεν ὁ ἔπαρχος, ἀπέστη ἀπ᾽ αὐτῶν μόνους αὐτοὺς καταλείψας ἐνώπιον τῶν βασιλέως ὀφθαλμῶν. **Εἰσῆλθον δὲ οἱ ἅγιοι μετὰ πολλοῦ τοῦ θάρσους μηδὲν δειλιῶντες, ἔχοντες ἐν ἑαυτοῖς τὸν τοῦ Θεοῦ φόβον τοῦ**

gence de l'obéissance à l'empereur était un des arguments préférés des iconoclastes ; cf., par exemple : Νουθεσία γέροντος περὶ τῶν ἁγίων εἰκόνων (Б. Мелиоранский, *Георгий Кипрянин и Иоанн Иерусалимлянин* (Санкт-Петербург, 1901) XVIII) ; G. Fatouros (ed.), Theodori Studitae *epistulae*, vol. 1–2 (Berlin; New York, 1992) (CFHB SB 31) vol. 2, 566 (Ep. 407, l. 60) (la traduction russe cf. Преподобный Феодор Студит, *Послания*, кн. 1 (Москва, 2003) (Святоотеческое наследие) 347 ; I. van den Gheyn, S. Macarii monasterii Pelecetes hegumeni acta graeca, *AB* 16 (1897) 155 (§ 11 de la *Vie*). C'est d'ailleurs un *topos* hagiographique ; cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs…*, 184–185. Cf. В. А. Баранов, Богословская интерпретация иконоборческой надписи в Халки, dans : *История и теория культуры в высоком образовании*, вып. 2 (Новосибирск, 2004) 181–186, прим. 14.

(74) « beaucoup de choses », « les choses variées ».

(75) D'après les *topoi* de la *passion épique*, les serviteurs d'un empereur impie sont toujours « l'instrument des colères impériales » (Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs…*, 173) ; naturellement, il ne peuvent être que « les plus méchants ».

(76) L'hagiographe renforce les couleurs : les iconoclastes tachent de convaincre ou d'intimider les confesseurs.

(77) § 18 : *LMS*, 82, l. 7–16.

(78) « Excessivement terrible », l'hagiographe a omis ces deux mots, sans doute pour la raison que les saints ne devraient pas être terrifiés par l'empereur quelque terrible qu'il soit ; on notera que un peu plus bas l'hagiographe dit que les Graptoi « sont entrés avec une grande hardiesse », etc.

(79) L'hagiographe omet la mention de la vénération de l'empereur par les saints ; cette vénération était nécessaire selon l'étiquette de la cour.

(80) D'après l'hagiographe, l'empreur n'est pas « terrible » ; en revanche, il est « transporté » non seulement de colère, mais « d'une grande colère et de fureur » qui cependant ne terrifieront point les confesseurs.

παραστῆναι θρασυτέρᾳ τῇ φωνῇ σὺν αὐστηρίᾳ παρεκελεύετο. Μέχρι οὖν αὐτοῦ γενομένους,[81] ἤρετο, «Ἐν ποίᾳ χώρᾳ», εἰπὼν, «ἐγεννήθητε;» Ἡμῶν ἀποκρινομένων, «Ἐν Μωαβίτιδι», πάλιν ἐκεῖνος *αὐτοῖς ῥήμασι*, «Διατὶ ἤλθετε ὧδε;» Καὶ πρὶν ἀποκρίνασθαι, ἐπέτρεψεν ἡμῶν παίεσθαι τὰς ὄψεις. Πολλὰς δὲ τὰς πληγὰς οἱ παίοντες ἐντείναντες καὶ *βαρείας*, ὡς σκοτοδίνης ἡμᾶς πληροῦσθαι καὶ πίπτειν χαμαί. Καὶ *γὰρ εἰ μὴ τοῦ πρὸς τῷ στήθει χιτῶνος ἐδραξάμην τοῦ παίοντος*, εἰς τὸ τοῦ βασιλέως ἂν ὑποπόδιον εὐθὺς κατεβλήθην.[82] Κατέχων δὲ τὸ ἱμάτιον, ἐδεχόμην *ἀμεταστρεπτὶ* τὰς πληγὰς, ἕως παύσασθαι τοῦ **εἰπόντος· «Μὴ φοβεῖσθε ἀπὸ τῶν ἀποκτεινόντων τὸ σῶμα, τὴν δὲ ψυχὴν μὴ δυναμένων ἀποκτεῖναι· φοβήθητε δὲ μᾶλλον τὸν δυνάμενον μετὰ τὸ ἀποκτεῖναι ἐμβαλεῖν εἰς γέενναν», ὥστε ἐκ τῆς ὄψεως αὐτῶν ἔκθαμβον γενέσθαι τὸν βασιλέα. Εἰσῆλθον γὰρ οὐχ ὡς εἰς ἆθλον ἢ παγκράτιον, ἀλλ᾽ ὡς εἰς γάμον κληθέντες.**[83] Ὡς δὲ παρέστησαν τῷ βασιλεῖ, προσεγγίσαι αὐτοὺς αὐστηρᾷ καὶ θρασείᾳ φωνῇ παρακελεύσατο καὶ μέχρις αὐτοῦ ἐλθεῖν. Καὶ λέγει αὐτοῖς· « Ποίας χώρας ἐστέ;» Λέγουσιν αὐτῷ οἱ ἅγιοι· «Τῆς Μωαβίτιδος». Πάλιν ***σκληροτέρως***[84] ἀποκριθεὶς ἔφη αὐτοῖς· «Καὶ διὰ τί ἤλθετε ἐνταῦθα;» καὶ πρὶν τούτους ἀπολογίσασθαι, ἐπέτρεψεν **ἄνδρας ἰσχυροὺς τῇ ῥώμῃ**[85] παίειν αὐτῶν τὰς ὄψεις. Ῥαπιζομένων δὲ τῶν ἁγίων **ἀνηλεῶς ἐπὶ πολλὴν ὥραν**[86] καὶ μὴ δυναμένων αὐτῶν ἵστασθαι ἐκ τῶν

(81) L'auteur de la *Vie* omet un témoignage de la soumission des confesseurs à l'ordre de l'empereur.

(82) L'hagiographe omet l'indication que tout cela se passait aux pieds de l'empereur, probablement comme humiliante pour les confesseurs.

(83) La traduction de M. Cunningham : « But the saints entered courageously, fearing nothing, as they possessed within themselves the fear of God, Who said: 'And fear not them which kill the body, but are not able to destroy the soul: but rather fear him which is able to destroy both soul and body in hell.' The emperor was struck with amazement at their appearance. For they entered not as if summoned to a contest or a wrestling match, but as if to a marriage feast » (*LMS*, 83). Ce passage ajouté par l'hagiographe est typique surtout pour le genre de panégyrique; cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs…*, 149–150. À en juger par la lettre de Théodore, Théophile n'était pas du tout « struck » à la vue des confesseurs.

(84) « plus sévèrement » au lieu de « de la même façon »; l'hagiographe renforce les couleurs de nouveau.

(85) L'hagiographe précise que les hommes qui battaient les confesseurs étaient vigoureux, et que l'empereur a ordonné de battre fort.

(86) L'hagiographe dit qu'on a battu les Graptoi « beaucoup d'heures » ; mais cela semble fort douteux et ressemble plutôt à un *topos*, cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs…*, 204–205.

παίειν ἐκέλευσεν ὁ κρατῶν. Παυσαμένων δὲ τῶν παιόντων, ἤρετο πάλιν ὁ βασιλεύς· «Τίνος χάριν ἐληλύθατε ἐνταυθα;» Ἐβούλετο δὲ ὁ λόγος αὐτῷ, «*Ὅτου χάριν τὴν αὐτὴν ἡμῖν ἀσπάσεσθαι πίστιν οὐ βουλόμενοι, τὴν μεθ᾽ ἡμῶν οἴκησιν ἠσμενίσατε;*»[87]

ἀφορήτων[88] πληγῶν (ἐσκοτίζοντο γὰρ τῇ φορᾷ τῶν μαστίγων, ὥστε πίπτειν αὐτοὺς **καὶ ἀνίστασθαι κατὰ τὸν θεῖον Ἐλεάζαρον, ὃν λὰξ γέτοι κατὰ τῶν κενεώνων ἔτυπτον, ὅπως ἐξανίστατο πίπτων**[89]) ***ἐκράτησεν ἕκαστος αὐτῶν τοῦ στήθους τοῦ παίοντος αὐτόν***,[90] καὶ οὕτως **ἑδραίως ἱστάμενοι** ἐδέχοντο τὰς **διὰ Χριστὸν**[91] μάστιγας ***ἀμετάστρεπτοι***,[92] ἕως ἂν παύσασθαι τοὺς παίοντας ὁ βασιλεὺς ἐκέλευσεν.

Τί τούτου κοσμιώτερον καὶ παραδοξότερον, ὥστε ἐξισωθῆναι τῇ ἀθλήσει τῷ ἑαυτῶν ποιητῇ; Ὡς γὰρ ὁ ἐμὸς Χριστὸς κατὰ πρόσωπον Πιλάτου ἑστὼς ἐρραπίσθη, οὕτω καὶ οἱ αὐτοῦ γνήσιοι θεράποντες δι᾽ αὐτὸν καὶ τὴν αὐτοῦ εἰκόνα τὰς ὄψεις

(87) § 24 : *VThGr*, 672D–673B.

(88) L'hagiographe remplace l'épithète plus neutre pour les coups reçus par les confesseurs βαρύς « violent » par le mot plus expressif ἀφόρητος « insupportable ».

(89) La traduction de M. Cunningham : « so that they fell and were made to stand again in the manner of the divine Eleazar, who was beaten on the flanks even while underfoot, so that he arose again after falling » (*LMS*, 85) ; cf. 4 Macc 6 : 8. Cette comparaison avec Eleazar insérée par l'hagiographe est liée à l'influence exercée sur le genre de la *passion épique* par le 4e livre des Machabées (cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 226). Notons que les frères Graptoi étaient, tout comme Eléazar, assez agés au moment où ils ont été présentés devant l'empereur Théophile : Théodore avait 61 ans, et Théophane 58.

(90) Dans la lettre Théodore ne parle que sur lui-même quand il mentionne qu'il était forcé de saisir la tunique sur la poitrine de celui qui le frappait pour ne pas tomber ; l'hagiographe dit la même chose déjà sur les deux saints.

(91) C'est une précision hagiographique : bien sûr, les confesseurs ne peuvent être battus que pour le Christ.

(92) Si Théodore le Graptos dit tout simplement qu'il recevait les coups « sans se détourner » (ἀμεταστρεπτὶ), l'hagiographe ajoute de l'héroïsme au recit : les confesseurs sont debout sans bouger (ἑδραίως ἱστάμενοι), inébranlables devant leurs tourmenteurs.

χαίροντες ἐπαίοντο.[93] Παυσαμένων δὲ τῶν παιόντων, λέγει πρὸς αὐτοὺς ὁ βασιλεὺς· «Τίνος χάριν ἐληλύθατε ἐνταῦθα, **ἀνόσιοι**;[94]« Ἐβούλετο δὲ ***αὐτῶν ἀκοῦσαι***· «***Ὅτι τὴν αὐτὴν ὑμῖν ἀσπάσασθαι πίστιν βουλόμενοι τὴν μεθ᾽ ὑμῶν οἴκησιν ἠσμενίσαμεν***»[95].[96]

Ἡμῶν δὲ σιωπησάντων, καὶ εἰς γῆν νενευκότων, πρὸς τὸν ἔπαρχον ἐγγύθεν ἑστῶτα, ἱταμῷ τῷ λόγῳ καὶ βλοσυρῷ τῷ ὄμματι ἀποτεινάμενος, λόγον τοιόνδε μετὰ πολλοῦ τοῦ θυμοῦ καὶ τραχείας τῆς φωνῆς[97]

Τῶν δὲ ἁγίων σιωπησάντων **καὶ μηδ᾽ ὅλως αὐτῷ ἀποκριναμένων**[98] καὶ εἰς γῆν νενευκότων, ἔφη πρὸς τὸν ὕπαρχον ὁ βασιλεύς· «Ἄρον ***τοὺς ἀνοσίους τούτους***[99] καὶ γράψον τὰ πρόσωπα αὐτῶν, ἐγκολάψας τούσδε τοὺς ἰάμβους (...)».[100]

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(93) La traduction de M. Cunningham : « What is more fitting and marvellous than this, that they were made equal to their Creator in contest? Just as my Christ was smitten as He stood in the presence of Pilate, so His true servants rejoiced as their countenances were struck for His sake and for the sake of His icon » (*LMS*, 85). L'imitation du Christ était l'idée générale de la vie chrétienne dès l'origine ; cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 20–21.

(94) L'hagiographe ajoute une injure des saints par l'empreur : « impies, criminels ».

(95) Théodore explique le sens de la question de l'empereur : « Pourquoi êtes-vous venus habiter ici, si vous ne désirez adopter notre foi ? » Mais l'hagiographe précise que l'empereur *voulait entendre* que les saints étaient venus à Constantinople parce qu'ils désiraient adopter l'iconoclasme : ce petit changement pourrait montrer le « tyran » plus intéressé par la conversion des Graptoi dans sa foi. Une discussion sur la religion c'est encore un *topos* de la *passion épique* (cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 188) ; voir aussi plus bas, la 6ème partie de l'article présent.

(96) § 19 : *LMS*, 82, l. 19, 21–30; 84, l. 1–18.

(97) En racontant l'ordre de l'empereur, l'hagiographe omet une caractéristique assez détaillée de sa manière de parler, ce qui peut paraître étrange : pourquoi ne pas mentionner la colère et la voix sévère du persécuteur ? Peut-être l'auteur de la *Vie* ne voulait pas ici parler trop de lui, ainsi que de l'éparque.

(98) L'hagiographe ajoute que les saints non seuleument se taisaient mais « ne répondaient absolument rien » ; peut-être c'est une allusion sur le silence du Christ devant Pilate (Matt 27 : 14 ; Mk 15 : 5 ; John 19 : 9).

(99) Dans la Vie les saints se transforment pour l'empereur de « ceux-ci » en « ces impies ».

(100) *LMS*, 84, l. 19–21.

ἀπεφθέγξατο· «Ἄρον *αὐτοὺς*, καὶ γράψον τὰ πρόσωπα αὐτῶν, ἐγκολάψας τούσδε τοὺς ἰάμβους (...)».[101]

(...)[102] ὃς καὶ ἰδὼν ἡμᾶς, πρὸς λέξιν οὑτωσὶ ἔφη· «Εἰκὸς ὑμᾶς ἀπελθόντας λέγειν ἐκεῖσε, ὡς τῷ βασιλεῖ ἐνεπαίξαμεν· αλλ᾽ ἐγὼ πρότερον καταπαίξας ὑμᾶς, *ἀπολύσω*». Οὕτω λέξας περιδυθῆναι ἡμᾶς ἐκέλευεν. *Ἐκδυθέντων οὖν ἀμφοτέρων, ἐτυπτόμην ἐγώ, τοῦ βασιλέως ἀπαύστως οὑτωσὶ κράζοντος, καὶ εἰς ἑαυτὸν ὀρκίζοντος τοὺς μαστίζοντας· «Οὕτως ἔχεις ἐμέ; Δὸς καλά»*. Ἐτυπτον γοῦν καὶ νῶτα καὶ στὴθη χωρὶς οἴκτου παντὸς καὶ φιλανθρωπίας. Ἐγὼ δὲ ἐπὶ Ὡς δὲ εἶδεν τούτους, ὁ βασιλεὺς λέγει πρὸς αὐτούς· «Εἰκὸς ὑμᾶς ἀπελθόντας **ἐν τῇ ὑμῶν γαίῃ** λέγειν ὅτι τὸν βασιλέα **Ῥωμαίων** ἐνεπαίξαμεν·[103] αλλ᾽ ἐγὼ πρότερον καταπαίξας ὑμᾶς ***καὶ δεινῶς βασανίσας οὕτως οἴκαδε*** *ἀπολύσω*».[104] Καὶ κελεύει ἐκδυθῆναι τοὺς ἁγίους τὰς αὐτῶν ἐσθῆτας **καὶ γυμνοῦς στῆναι ἔμπροσθεν αὐτοῦ.**[105] Ὡς δὲ ἐξεδύθησαν οἱ ἅγιοι τοῦ Χριστοῦ μάρτυρες, **ἐκέλευσεν ὁ βασιλεὺς ἄνδρας δυνατοὺς τῇ ἰσχύϊ ἱμᾶσι λεπτοῖς δήσαντας αὐτῶν τὰς χεῖρας τεῖναι ἐπὶ πολὺ ἀνὰ ἓξ ἑκάστῳ αὐτῶν, ὅπως μὴ ἰσχύωσι τυπτόμενοι κλονεῖσθαι ὧδε κἀκεῖσε. Ταθέντων δὲ τῶν ἁγίων σφοδρῶς, ἐκέλευσεν ἕνα ἔμπροσθεν καὶ ἕνα**

(101) Après la citation des ïambes, l'hagiographe se lance dans des digressions : il réproche à Théophile les tourments des Graptoi et l'hérésie iconoclaste, menace l'empereur des peines éternelles etc. (cf. *LMS*, 86, l. 18–32 ; 88, l. 1–25), comme s'il complétait le manque de rhétorique dans le dialogue entre les confesseurs et Théophile ; l'auteur de la *Vie* ne suit pas toutefois toutes les règles des *passions épiques* et ne fait pas ses héros prononcer devant l'empereur de longs discours sur la foi etc. (cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs…*, 184–185).

(102) Le passage suivant raconte la deuxième audience des confesseurs devant Théophile : on les a fait revenir après qu'ils soient allés jusqu'à Thermastra.

(103) Ici l'hagiographe précise le sens des paroles de l'empereur : Théophile veut dire que le pays des Graptoi n'est pas l'Empire de *Romaioi*, mais les terres des Arabes à qui les confesseurs pourraient dire qu'ils ont bafoué l'empereur byzantin.

(104) L'auteur de la *Vie* ajoute une menace de la part Théophile contre les confesseurs.

(105) La mention de la nudité des confesseurs devant l'empereur impie est due probablement à un *topos* propre au panégyrique et à la *passion épique* : les martyres sont des athlètes, et ceux-ci luttent étant nus ; cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs…*, 153, 172.

πολὺ μαστιζόμενος, ἐβόων· «Οὐδὲν ἡμάρτομεν εἰς τὴν βασιλείαν σου»·[106] καὶ πάλιν· «Κύριε, ἐλέησον»· καὶ, «Ἁγία Θεοτόκε, ἐλθὲ εἰς τὴν βοήθειαν ἡμῶν». Ἔπειτα καὶ τὸν ἀδελφὸν ἔτυπτον παραπλησίως βοῶντα καὶ «Ἁγία Θεοτόκε», λέγοντα, «καὶ αὐτὴ εἰς Αἴγυπτον ἔφυγες βαστάζουσα τὸν Υἱόν· ἔπιδε ἐπ᾽ ἐμὲ τὸν διὰ τὴν ὁμοίαν σοι **ὄπισθεν σταθέντας βουνεύροις τύπτειν αὐτοὺς ἀφειδῶς. Ἐπὶ τοσοῦτον δὲ αὐτοὺς ἔτυψαν, ὥστε ἀλλαγῆναι ἑνὶ ἑκάστῳ αὐτῶν ἀνὰ τεσσάρων στρατιωτῶν.**[107] Τυπτομένων δὲ τῶν ἁγίων τά τε νῶτα αὐτῶν καὶ στήθη, **οὐδὲν ἄλλο παρ᾽ αὐτῶν ἠκούετο ἢ**[108] τὸ «Κύριε, ἐλέησον» καὶ τὸ «Ἁγία Θεοτόκε, ἐλθὲ εἰς βοήθειαν ἡμῶν». ***Ὁ δὲ βασιλεὺς ταῦτα ἀκούσας εὐχομένων τῶν ἁγίων, θυμομαχῶν καὶ ἀπαύστως βοῶν καὶ καθ᾽ ἑαυτὸν ἐνορκῶν, τοὺς τύ-***

(106) Ces mots du confesseur sont omis par l'auteur de la *Vie*, et sela se comprend : un martyr ne doit pas se justifier devant le tyran. Selon les règles des *passions épiques*, il ne convient point à un confesseur de jouer le rôle de victime résignée (Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 191–192). Cf. aussi n. 108. I. Ševčenko, Hagiography of the Iconoclast Period, dans : A. Bryer, J. Herrin (eds.), *Iconoclasm. Papers given at the Ninth Spring Symposium of Byzantine Studies. University of Birmingham. March 1975* (Birmingham, 1977) 129, a déjà noté cette difference entre la vie réelle et la vie hagiographique : « Since the victims of the iconoclastic struggle were likened to the martyrs of the early centuries, their later biographies were patterned on the Acts of the early martyres, most of which are late lucubrations of the fifth and later centuries. Such is the source from which spring the portraits of Iconoclast tyrants on the throne and of arrogant Iconodules defying them. These worthies easily outdisputed... John the Grammarian; on their own they sought out Iconoclast emperors and heaped abuse upon them. Contrast this with the authentic letter of Theodore Graptos, which tells us how he ain his brother prostrated themselves before Emperor Theophilos, how they kept silence when he insulted them, and how, after prolonged beating, on of them exlaimed: 'we committed no sin against Your Majesty' ».

(107) Cette description ajoutée dans la *Vie* réflète probablement des détails réels des flagellations des iconodules connus sans aucun doute à notre hagiographe, mais en même temps ce passage en tant que tel présente une chose sur laquelle Delehaye a écrit : « Qu'on ne l'oublie pas : la précision du détail n'est pas, par elle-même, un critère de véracité, et un certain étalage d'informations exactes doit au contraire provoquer la défiance. La seule chose qui importe, c'est de découvrir la source à laquelle l'hagiographe a puisé » (Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 315).

(108) Non seulement l'hagiographe omet la mention des mots « compromettants » de Théodore (cf. plus haut, n. 106), mais il insiste que l'on n'entendait les saints que prier Dieu.

φυγὴν κολαζόμενον. Κύριε, Κύριε, ὁ ῥυόμενος πτωχὸν ἐκ χειρὸς τῶν στερεωτέρων αὐτοῦ, μὴ μακρύνῃς τὴν βοήθειάν σου ἀφ᾽ ἡμῶν».[109] *Καὶ οὕτω συγκόψας ἀμφοτέρους ἐφ᾽ ὅσον ἤθελε, προσέταττεν ἐξιέναι.*[110]

πτοντας ἐπέτρεπεν οὑτωσὶ λέγων· «Ὡς ἐχεις ἐμέ, δὸς καλά».[111]

Ὡς δὲ κατέτεμον τοὺς ἁγίους ἐπὶ πο-λύ, ὥστε μὴ ἰσχύειν ἀνταποκρίνεσθαι, καὶ τοῦ αἵματος αὐτῶν οἱοτεὶ ποταμίου ῥεύματος τὸ ἔδαφος ἅπαν καταχρώσαντος, συρῆναι ἐκέλευσε τούτους καὶ οὕτως ἀπαχθῆναι ἐν τῇ φυλακῇ. Ἐξελθόντων δὲ τῶν ἁγίων, μόλις ἴσχυον βαδίζειν ἐκ τῶν ἀφορήτων πληγῶν[112].[113]

Καί τις ἀπὸ τοῦ βασιλέως πεμφθεὶς, ἐπυνθάνετο, «Τίνος χάριν τῷ θανάτῳ τοῦ Λέοντος ἐπεχάρητε, καὶ διατί προσφυγόντες αὐτῷ, τὴν αὐτὴν ἐκείνῳ *μὴ ἀσπάζεσθε* πίστιν;» Πρὸς ταῦτα ἡμεῖς,

Ὡς δὲ οὐκ ἴσχυον ἀνθυποστρέψαι οἱ ἅγιοι,[114] ἐξελθών τις ἀπὸ τοῦ βασιλέως ἀποσταλείς, ἐπυνθάνετο παρ᾽ αὐτῶν λέγων· «Τίνος χάριν τῷ θανάτῳ Λέοντος τοῦ βασιλέως ἐπεχάρητε; Καὶ διὰ τὶ προσφυγόντες αὐτῷ τὴν αὐτὴν αὐτῷ ***οὐκ ἐκρατήσατε*** πίστιν;» Πρὸς ὃν οἱ ἅγιοι

(109) L'hagiographe retranche ces prières de Théophane, et ce n'est point étonnant : ici le confesseur dit qu'on le punit pour une fuite semblable à celle de la Mère de Dieu qui avait fui en Égypte en échappant à Hérode, c'est-à-dire pour la fuite devant les Arabes ; cela suggère que Théophile était en colère contre les Graptoi pour une raison plutôt politique que religieuse. Cf. aussi plus bas, les 4ème et 5ème parties de l'article présent.

(110) § 26 : *VThGr*, 673D–676B.

(111) L'auteur de la *Vie* « précise » que l'empereur a commencé à exciter les battants après avoir entendu que les saints priaient, sans doute pour souligner le caractère « démoniaque » du « tyran ».

(112) L'hagiographe entre de nouveau dans des détails épouvantables. Il est un peu étrange que M. Cunningham qui note elle-même que la *Vie* « is rather by the "epic" passions of the early Christian martyrs » (*LMS*, 26) pense toutefois que de pareilles insertions de l'hagiographe puissent être dignes de confiance (cf. plus bas, p. 286 et n. 144). Sur les supplices exagérées des *passions épiques* cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 202–205.

(113) *LMS*, 90, l. 3–25.

(114) Dans sa lettre saint Théodore dit qu'après l'entretien avec Théophile et la flagellation, l'empereur leur a ordonné de partir, « mais un autre homme est venu de nouveau et nous a rattrapés en disant de revenir » (*VThGr*, 676B), et puis raconte le dialogue avec le logothète du drome ; l'hagiographe ajoute que les confesseurs n'étaient à même de revenir pour montrer qu'ils étaient battus très cruellement.

«Οὔτε τῷ θανάτῳ», φησί, «τοῦ Λέοντος ἐπεχάρημεν, οὔτε μὴν αὐτῷ προσεφύγομεν· *οὐδὲ τὴν πίστιν δι᾽ ὑμᾶς τοὺς τοῖς καιροῖς συμμεταβαλλομένους ἀθετεῖν ἄλως ἢ καινοτομεῖν ἀνεχόμεθα*». Τούτου δὲ ἀνθυπενεγκόντος· «Τέως γοῦν οὐκ ἐπὶ τοῦ Λέοντος ἤλθετε;» «Οὔκουν», ἔφημεν, «ἀλλ᾽ ἐπὶ τοῦ πρὸ αὐτοῦ βασιλεύσαντος». Ὁ δὲ, «Καλῶς, καλῶς», ἔφη, καὶ πορεύεσθε.[115] Ὁ λογοθέτης δὲ οὗτος ἦν τοῦ δρόμου.[116]

μόλις ἀποκριθέντες[117] εἶπον· «Οὔτε τῷ θανάτῳ Λέοντος ἐπεχάρημεν, ***οὔτε τὴν αὐτοῦ εἱλόμεθα πίστιν, μᾶλλον δὲ θεομάχον αἵρεσιν,***[118] ***κρατῆσαι***». Ὁ λογοθέτης δὲ ἦν ὁ τοῦ δρόμου ὁ ταῦτα αὐτοὺς ἐρωτῶν.[119]

Πρὸς ὃν[120] αὐστηρῶς ἐγὼ, «Ἀπόστα», ἔφην, «ἐντεῦθεν· οὐκ οἶδας τί λέγεις, οὐδὲ περὶ τίνων διαβεβαιοῦσαι».
Ὁ δὲ ἔπαρχος αὖθις θωπείαις χρώμενος, «Μίαν», εἶπε, «μίαν μόνον καινωνήσατε,

Πρὸς ὃν αὐστηρᾷ τῇ φωνῇ ὁ τοῦ Χριστοῦ μάρτυς Θεοφάνης[121] εἶπεν· «Ἀπόστα ἀφ᾽ ἡμῶν, **ἐχθρὲ τῆς ἀληθείας**·[122] οὐ γὰρ οἶδας τί λέγεις, οὔτε περὶ τίνων διαβεβαιοῖ· **ἡμεῖς γὰρ καὶ ὁμολογοῦμεν καὶ σεβόμεθα καὶ προσκυνοῦμεν τὸν ἀληθινὸν ἡμῶν Θεὸν τὸν Κύριον**

(115) L'hagiographe omet la mention du fait que les Graptoi, aussi bien que saint Michel le Syncelle, sont venus à Constantinople sous Michel I et non pas sous Léon l'Arménien, parce qu'il dit plus haut (*LMS*, 58, l. 10–16) que l'un des buts de leur visite était la dénonciation de l'hérésie de l'empereur Léon, ce qui ne correspondait point à la réalité.

(116) § 27 : *VThGr*, 676BC.

(117) L'hagiographe précise que les saints « repondaient à peine », bien sûr à cause de leurs plaies.

(118) Une précision anticonomaque : la foi des iconoclastes est « une hérésie luttante contre Dieu ».

(119) *LMS*, 90, l. 26–32; 92, l. 1.

(120) Théodore s'adresse au père de Christodule qui a dit que les Graptoi « n'ont jamais vénéré une icône » ; l'action se passe au Prétoire devant l'éparque, 4 jours après la rencontre avec Théophile.

(121) Réellement, c'est Théodore qui répond au père de Christodule, comme cela se voit dans sa lettre ; mais l'hagiographe donne la parole à Théophane pour qu'il se montre ferme aussi.

(122) L'auteur de la *Vie* fait le confesseur nommer son adversaire « ennemi de la vérité » : une insulte envers le juge, encore un topos des *passions épiques*, cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs…*, 191–192.

καὶ ἕτερον οὐκ ἀπαιτοῦμεν· καὶ ἔρχομαι καὶ ἐγὼ μεθ᾽ ὑμῶν εἰς τὴν ἐκκλησίαν,[123] καὶ πορεύεσθε ὅποι φίλον ὑμῖν». Ἐγὼ δὲ πρὸς αὐτὸν γελάσας,[124] (...) εἶπον, «(...) Γίνωσκε τοίνυν, ὡς ἡμῖν καὶ τοῦτο δι᾽ αἰσχύνης ἐστὶ, τὸ τολμᾶν τινα ὅλως πρός κοινωνίαν ἡμᾶς προτρέπεσθαι, πρὸς ἣν αὐτὸς οὐκ οἶδ᾽ ὅπως[125] **Ἰησοῦν Χριστὸν καὶ τὴν αὐτοῦ εἰκόνα καὶ τῆς αὐτοῦ μητρὸς καὶ τῶν αὐτοῦ ἁγίων, εὖ εἰδότες, ὅτι ἡ τῆς εἰκόνος τιμὴ ἐπὶ τὸ πρωτότυπον ἀνάγει τὴν τιμήν. Καὶ ὑπὲρ αὐτοῦ καὶ τῆς αὐτοῦ εἰκόνος ἀποθνήσκομεν καὶ τὸ αἷμα ἡμῶν ἐκχέομεν**».[126] Ὡς δὲ τούτων ἀκήκοεν ὁ ἔπαρχος, θωπείαις χρώμενος λέγει πρὸς αὐτούς· «Μίαν μόνον ἅπαξ κοινωνήσατε, καὶ ἕτερον οὐ θέλω, **καὶ**

(123) L'éparque voulait aller à l'église avec les confesseur ; l'hagiographe omet ce détail, peut-être comme montrant l'éparque plus bon que l'auteur de la *Vie* ne le veuille.

(124) Théodore le Graptos répond à l'éparque « ayant ri », mais l'hagiographe retranche ce mot, probablement pour la raison qu'un saint ne doit pas rire ; cf., par exemple, une apophtegme anonyme de la Collection systématique : « Un père, à la vue d'un homme riant, a dit : "Nous rendrons compte de toute notre vie devant le ciel et la terre, et tu ris !" » (la traduction est la mienne; l'édition critique m'est restée inaccessible : J.-C. Guy, *Les apophtegmes des pères.* Collection systématique, chapitres I–IX (Paris, 1993) (SC 387) ; les traductions russes : *Древний Патерик*, изложенный по главам (Москва, 1899; repr. Москва, 1991) 42 (Гл. 3, № 40); А. В. Марков, *Д.* А. Поспелов (изд.), *Великий Патерик, или Великое собрание изречений старцев*. Систематическая коллекция, т. 1 (Москва, 2005) (Bibliotheca hesychastica 1) 110 (Гл. III, № 58)).

(125) Théodore dit à l'éparque qu'il les exhorte d'entrer en communion avec les iconoclastes « sans apercevoir », c'est-à-dire que l'éparque ne comprend pas qu'un seul cas de communion avec les hérétiques est égal à la communion permanente ; en effet, beaucoup de byzantins de l'époque, et même des confesseurs de l'orthodoxie, ne le comprenaient pas, comme cela se voit, par exemple, d'après une lettre de S. Théodore le Stoudite : Fatouros, Theodori Studitae *epistulae*, vol. 2, 639–641 (Ep. 452) (la traduction russe cf. Преподобный Феодор Студит, *Послания*…, кн. 2, 52–55), où le confesseur démontre à S. Nicétas de Medikion que l'eucharistie signifie la communion et réfute les mots d'un certain Maximin qui disait : Μετέλαβον, ἀλλ᾽ οὐκ ἐκοινώνησα ; Maximine (et S. Nicétas, comme cela se voit de cette lettre de S. Théodore) estimait qu'une telle attitude était l'*oikonomia* et non pas l'apostasie.

(126) La traduction de M. Cunningham : « For we confess, honour and worship our true God, the Lord Jesus Christ, and His icon and those of His Mother and His saint, knowing full well that the honour of the icon brings honour to its prototype. We shall die and shed our blood on behalf of Him and His icon » (*LMS*, 93). Cet exposé de doctrine placé par l'hagiographe dans la

παραινεῖς ἐλθεῖν, *καὶ μὴ πόῤῥωθεν πεπεῖσθαι τὸν τοιοῦτον*, ὡς ῥᾷον αὐτῷ γῆν καὶ οὐρανὸν ἄνωθεν καὶ κάτωθεν ποιεῖν, ἥπερ ἡμᾶς *μετατιθέναι τῆς εὐσεβείας*». Τότε γραφῆναι τὰς ὄψεις ἡμῶν ἐκέλευε. (...) Ἐπὶ πολλὴν δὲ τὴν ὥραν ἐκκεντούντων τὰ πρόσωπα, σκότος ἐγένετο δεδυκότος ἡλίου· ὃ καὶ μὴ βοθλομένων, τὴν εἰς τέλος ἐπέσχε γραφήν[127].[128]

ἀπολύω ὑμᾶς,[129] καὶ πορεύεσθε ὅπου φίλον ὑμῖν ἐστιν». Ἀποκριθεὶς δὲ ὁ τοῦ Χριστοῦ μάρτυς Θεόδωρος ἔφη πρὸς αὐτόν· «(...) Γίνωσκε τοίνυν ὡς ἡμεῖς αἰσχύνην ἡγούμεθα τὸ τολμᾶν τινα πρὸς κοινωνίαν ἡμᾶς προτρέπεσθαι, πρὸς ἣν αὐτὸς ἡμᾶς παραινεῖς ἐλθεῖν. ***Θαυμάζω δὲ ὅτι μὴ πόρρωθεν καὶ ἐξακοῆς πέπεισταί ὁ τοιοῦτος***[130] ὡς ῥᾷον αὐτῷ τὸν οὐρανὸν γῆν καὶ γῆν τὸν οὐρανὸν γενέσθαι ἢ ἡμᾶς ***μεταστῆσαι τῆς ἡμῶν ὁμολογίας καὶ πίστεως***·[131] **καὶ ὥσπερ ἀδύνατόν ἐστιν ἄνθρωπον ὄντα εἰς οὐρανὸν ἱππάσασθαι, οὕτως ἀδύνατόν ἐστιν ποιῆσαι ἡμᾶς ὃ λέγεις. Ποίει οὖν ὃ θέλεις. Τῶν γὰρ σωμάτων κύριος εἶ, τῶν δὲ ψυχῶν ἡμῶν ὁ Χριστὸς ὑπάρχει κύριος**».[132]

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bouche du confesseur est tout à fait typique pour les *passion épiques*, cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 192–195 ; voir aussi plus bas, la 6ème partie de l'article présent.

(127) Le soleil s'étant caché, les bourreaux étaient obligés de finir le supplice ; peut-être le tatouage n'était pas donc tout à fait achevé. L'auteur de la *Vie* omet ce détail.

(128) § 28–29 : *VThGr*, 677A–C.

(129) L'hagiographe ajoute plus de séduction aux promesses de l'éparque ; sur ce *topos* hagiographique cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 186–187.

(130) Le confesseur dans la *Vie* « s'étonne » que l'éparque ne comprenne pas son attitude : encore un moyen de montrer « la sottise » des iconoclastes.

(131) L'hagiographe remplace τῆς εὐσεβείας « de la piété » par τῆς ἡμῶν ὁμολογίας καὶ πίστεως « de notre confession et foi » : un procédé du panégyrique.

(132) La traduction de M. Cunningham : « Just as it is impossible for a man to reach haeven on horseback, so it is impossible for us to do what you say. Do then what you will. For whereas you are the master of our bodies, Christ is Lord of our souls » (*LMS*, 95). Cunningham pense que le confesseur fait allusion à un mythe de Mahomet qui aurait atteint le paradis à l'aide d'un animal ailé imaginaire nommé Burraq (*LMS*, 159, n. 158). S'il en est ainsi, cette attaque contre l'Islam est certainement explicable, car les musulmans présentaient au IXe siècle la plus grande menace pour la Byzance. La dernière phrase du passage fait allusion à l'Evangile Mat 10 : 28 et Lk 12 : 4–5.

Τότε κελεύει ὁ ὕπαρχος τὰς ὄψεις αὐτῶν γραφῆναι. (...) Καὶ ἐπὶ πολλὴν ὥραν κεντοῦντες τὰ πρόσωπα αὐτῶν, ἔγραφον τοὺς ἰάμβους ἐπ᾽ αὐτοῖς. **Ὡς δὲ ἐτέλεσαν γράφοντες, ἀνέστησαν αὐτοὺς καὶ ἀπὸ τῆς ἡμέρας ἐκείνης οὐδὲν ἕτερον αὐτοῖς λελάληκαν**[133].[134]

«(...)[135] καὶ φιλανθρώπους ἀπεδείξατε πάντας, ὅσοι κατὰ τοῦ θείου ἡμῶν ἐμάνησας δόγματος».[136]

«(...) Φιλανθρώπους δὲ ἀπεδείξατε πάντας ὅσοι κατὰ τοῦ θείου ἡμῶν δόγματος ἐμάνησαν, **ὡμότεροι τούτων φανέντες**».[140]

(...)[138] Ἡμεῖς μὲν οὖν ταῦτα, πολλῶν ὄντων καὶ ἄλλων, ἐπιτομώτερον δεληλώκαμεν, τῶν πραχθέντων πολλοὺς ἔχοντες μάρτυρας·[139] *οἵτινες, εὖ οἶδα, καὶ τούτων πλείονα*

(...) ***Καὶ μοι, παρακαλῶ, μηδεῖς ἀπιστείτω ὡς τι τῆς ἀληθείας προχαράξαντι ἢ ὃ μὴ πρόσεστι πεπονθέναι τοῖς τοῦ Χριστοῦ μάρτυσι ταύτῃ μου τῇ διηγήσει ἐνθεῖναι θελήσαντι***.[141]

(133) Probablement l'hagiographe veut dire que les arguments des confesseurs étaient si irréfutables que les iconoclastes n'espéraient plus les convertir.

(134) *LMS*, 92, l. 18–29,31–32 – 94, l. 1–7,10–13.

(135) C'est un passage du discours des confesseurs devant l'éparque avant leur sortie : « Car depuis des temps anciens c'est à nous seuls qu'on a fait cela, et pour nous seuls qu'on a inventé cette innovation, *bien que vous ayez déclaré humains tous ceux qui avaient commencé à faire des folies contre notre dogme divin* ». Sans aucun doute, il s'agit des empereurs Léon III et Constantin V. Dans la *Vie* les confesseurs « ajoutent » que les iconoclastes de leur époque sont encore plus cruels.

(136) § 30 *VThGr*, 677CD.

(137) *LMS*, 94, l. 20–21.

(138) Saint Théodore et l'auteur de la *Vie* citent également les mots des Graptoi « ... les chérubins en voyant ces inscriptions reculeront, et le glaive de flamme nous tournera le dos et nous ouvrira l'entrée dans le Paradis ... », et la réaction de Théophile : « Si je savais que c'est vrai, j'écrirais cela sur tout mon peuple ! »

(139) Il ne reste qu'à émettre des hypothèses sur ces « beaucoup d'autres chose » qui sont arrivées aux Graptoi et si cela pouvait être, par exemple, le débat avec l'empereur Théophile sur un livre corrompu par les iconoclaste (cf. la 6ème partie de l'article présent).

(140) *LMS*, 94, l. 20–21.

(141) *LMS*, 94, l. 27–28 – 96, l. 1.

καὶ σαφέστερον διηγήσονται, τὰ πεπραγμένα τότε καὶ λελεγμένα κρεῖττον ἢ ἡμεῖς φυλάττοντες. Καὶ γὰρ οὐκ ἐν γωνίᾳ, οὐδ᾽ ἐν παραβύστῳ τινὶ πέπρακται, ἀλλ᾽ ἐν θεάτρῳ, καὶ μέσῃ τῇ οἰκουμένῃ[142].[143]

M. Cunningham semble croire que le recit « développé » de la confession des Graptoi dans la *Vie* de Michel le Syncelle a un fondement historique : elle ne comprend pas comment, après une flagellation aussi cruelle que l'hagiographe la décrit (jusqu'à l'effusion « des flots de sang »), le logothète a pu néanmoins « rattraper et interroger » les deux frères. « If this account is true, it may indicate the emperor's puzzlement at the obstinacy of the saints and his desire to break their resolve before administering his bizarre punishment », dit Cunningham.[144] Cependant je pense que dans les cas où l'auteur de la *Vie* ajoute au recit de St. Théodore des détails qui doivent montrer la cruauté des tortures, la rage de l'empereur et la fermeté des confesseurs, nous sommes en présence d'une pure fantaisie hagiographique.

4. Pourquoi Théophile voulait remettre les Graptoi aux Arabes.

M. Cunningham note[145] que l'ordre impérial de remettre Théodore et Théophane « aux Sarrasins », pour que « ceux-ci les conduisent dans leur pays », qui n'était pas au bout du compte exécuté, est « an interesting one » et suppose que son but était l'humiliation des saints, soit « on the grounds that the saints were not worthy to have intercourse

(142) Cf. Act 26 : 26. La fin de la lettre de Théodore le Graptos montre un exemple de rhétorique. L'hagiographe omet ce passage bien qu'il soit tout à fait convenable pour le genre de *passion épique* (où l'on juge un martyr toujours devant une foule immense et non pas devant un public restreint, cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 181), probablement parce qu'il a ajouté quelque chose au récit des confesseurs quoique S. Théodore se soit énoncé très clairement : « nous avons bien de témoins de ce qu'on nous avait fait », et « chacun prendra garde de raconter mieux que nous, davantage et d'une manière plus certaine, ce qui a été fait et dit alors ». En revanche, l'auteur de la *Vie* assure ses lecteurs qu'il leur dit toute la vérité.

(143) § 31 *VThGr*, 677D–680A.

(144) *LMS*, 28.

(145) *LMS*, 157, n. 142.

with other Christians », c'est-à-dire avec les iconoclastes, soit « in the knowledge that Muslims would be particularly harsh towards iconophile », soit « to suggest the brothers' alien status as Palestinians and thus their affinity with the Arabs ». Cependant le motif de cet « ordre intéressant », à mon sens, serait autre. Étant donné que Théophile a déclaré lui-même qu'il voulait se moquer des confesseurs,[146] son ordre pouvait relever de sa moquerie : les moines avaient quitté la Palestine afin de ne pas tomber entre les mains des Sarrasins, et c'est justement pour cette raison que l'empereur ordonne de remettre les saints aux Arabes. En effet, Théophane le Graptos, en priant pendant la flagellation, compare leur fuite de la Palestine avec celle de la Mère de Dieu en Égypte,[147] ce qui montre que l'invasion musulmane était une des causes de l'arrivée des moines à Constantinople, peut-être une cause essentielle.[148]

La colère de l'empereur contre les « étrangers » est tout à fait compréhensible : on peut se souvenir de l'irritation exprimée par ce même Théophile et son père Michel II en 824 dans la lettre envoyée à Louis le Pieux où les deux empereurs blâmaient certains gens qui avaient fui de l'Empire à Rome pour proférer des calomnies au sujet de l'Etat et de l'Église bysantins ;[149] n'oublions pas non plus que le futur patriarche

(146) Cf. § 4 (26) de la lettre de Théodore et § 21 de la *Vie* de Michel (*LMS*, 90, l. 5–6).

(147) Cf. plus haut, n. 109.

(148) Le nombre des réfugiés orthodoxes était si grand que l'empereur Michel I (sous lequel les Graptoi et Michel le Syncelle sont venus à la Byzance) a donné aux moines paléstiniens le monastère de Chora comme résidence (cf. C. de Boor, Theophanis *Chronographia*, t. I (Lipsiae, 1883) 484–499 ; sur Chora cf. R. Janin, *Le siège de Constantinople et le Patriarcat Oecuménique. Les églises et les monastères* (Paris, 1969) (Géographie ecclésiastique de l'Empire Byzantin) 531–538), et dans la *Vie* de saint Michel on lit que lui et ses disciples ont habité à Chora dès l'arrivée à Constantinople jusqu'à leur emprisonnement. La *Vie* nomme trois raisons de la visite des confesseurs à la Ville de Constantin dont deux sont religieuses (cf. *LMS*, 54–61, § 6–8 de la *Vie*), mais ne mentionne point la fuite devant les Arabes ; les saints eux-mêmes indiquent dans leur prières notamment celle-ci. M. Cunningham ne fait pas état de ces indications dans la lettre de Théodore quand elle analyse les raisons de l'arrivée des saints à la Byzance (cf. *LMS*, 10–13).

(149) Cf. Michaelis Balbi et Theophili impp. Constantinopp. *epistola ad Lodovicum Pium imp. Romanorum de anno D. DCCCXXIV*, dans : J. D. Mansi, *Sacrorum Conciliorum nova et amplissima collectio*, t. XIV (Venetiis, MDCCLXIX) 419–422.

Méthode était arrivé en 821 de l'Ancienne Rome à la Nouvelle avec la « propagande » de l'iconophilie pour laquelle il avait été mis en prison par l'empereur Michel II ;[150] les Graptoi sont encore des « fugitifs » qui rôdent dans la Byzance et, pour ainsi dire, « mettent le trouble dans la nation » (Lk 23 : 2). Ainsi donc, les Graptoi sont aux yeux de Théophile en premier lieu de criminels politiques troublant la paix de l'Etat.[151]

On ne sait pas pourquoi le dessein de Théophile n'a pas été réalisé, mais je m'incline à admettre que l'empereur a révoqué son ordre étant frappé de la phrase des Graptoi que l'inscription faite sur leurs visages leur « ouvrira l'entrée au Paradis ».[152]

5. Pourquoi des vers comme punition?

M. Cunningham appelle le châtiment inventé par Théophile pour les Graptoi « bizarre punishment ».[153] Il peut vraiment sembler très original comme l'ont dit les confesseurs eux-même : « Depuis des temps anciens c'est à nous seuls qu'on a fait cela, et pour nous seuls qu'on a inventé cette innovation » ;[154] et, à ma connaissance, on n'a pas su établir la raison de cette invention.[155] D'ailleurs, je pense qu'on peut

(150) Cf., par exemple : *Д.* Е. Афиногенов, *Константинопольский Патриархат и иконоборческий кризис в Византии (784–847)* (Москва, 1997) 83–84.

(151) Je reviendrai à ce sujet plus bas, voir la partie suivante de l'article. Je note en passant que saint Euthyme de Sardes était martyrisé sous Théophile également pour une raison plutôt politique que religieuse ; cf. Gouillard, La Vie d'Euthyme de Sardes..., 8 ; Сенина, Несколько замечаний по поводу *Жития* св. Евфимия Сардского…, 416–417. M. Cunningham est surprise par l'hostilité de Théophile envers les Graptoi à cause de leur origine palestinienne (*LMS*, 16) ; en prenant en considération ce qu'on a dit plus haut, cela ne doit pas, à mon sens, paraître étrange.

(152) Cela correspondrait aux témoignages des sources que Théophile, sans compter l'hérésie iconoclaste, était très pieux ; cf., par ex., Theophanes Continuatus..., 86, l. 19 – 88, l. 3 (III, § 2–3) ; Διηγήσις διαλαμβάνουσα περὶ τῶν ἁγίων καὶ σεπτῶν εἰκόνων καὶ ὅπως καὶ δι᾽ ἣν αἰτίαν παρέλαβε τὴν ὀρθοδοξίαν ἐτησίως τελεῖν τῇ πρώτῃ κυριακῇ τῶν ἁγίων νηστειῶν ἡ ἁγία τοῦ θεοῦ καθολικὴ καὶ μεγάλη ἐκκλησία, l. 393–461, texte grec d'après le codex *Atheniensis Metochii* 48 (M) et traduction russe cf. Афиногенов, *«Повесть о прощении императора Феофила»*..., 110–115.

(153) *LMS*, 28.

(154) *VThGr*, 677C ; cf. *LMS*, 94, l. 18–19.

(155) Pitsakis, Aristéalos..., 74, dit seulement que cette torture a été choisie « par ironie méchante, en raison de la production littéraire importante, surtout poétique/hymnographique, des deux frères », sans autres précisions.

s'approcher de la solution en prenant en considération les témoignages du Continuateur de Théophane et de Génésios qui font mention de certains vers raillant l'empereur Léon l'Arménien.

Le Continuateur décrit[156] la visite de Léon V chez un moine habitant dans le portique de Mauriane qui a prédit à l'empereur un long règne si celui-ci condamnait les icônes. Léon, selon le Continuateur de Théophane, « excité et frappé par ces paroles », dès lors « était attaché aux discours du moine » ; ἀλλὰ ταῦτα μὲν εἴρηται καὶ τοῖς πρὸ ἡμῶν διὰ μέτρου ποιήσεως, conclut le chroniste.[157] Génésios racontant le même sujet mentionne le nom de l'auteur de ces μέτρα — « le confesseur Théophane » : ὡς καὶ παρὰ τοῦ μακαρίτου Θεοφάνους καὶ ὁμολογητοῦ ταῦτα δι᾽ ἐμμέτρου ποιήσεως ἐστηλίτευτο.[158] Ya. N. Lubarsky me semble avoir raison en supposant qu'il s'agit ici de Théophane le Graptos,[159] dont le don poétique est bien connu.

Ainsi, Théophane se présente comme l'auteur de quelques vers, apparemment railleurs, sur Léon l'Arménien. Si ces vers étaient connus de Théophile, et s'il supposait ou savait que c'était une œuvre des Graptoi, l'irritation de l'empereur contre les deux frères et le choix du châtiment pour eux deviennent tout à fait compréhensibles. On sait que l'empereur était déjà fâché à cause de certains pamphlets qui avaient prédit la mort proche d'abord à Léon l'Arménien, puis au père de Théophile Michel II, et enfin à Théophile lui-même.[160] Léon V était de surcroît le parrain de Théophile, et sa mémoire lui était chère, comme le montre l'histoire de la révélation et de l'exécution des meurtriers de Léon après la mort de Michel II.[161] Notons qu'après la deuxième audience des Graptoi devant Théophile et leur flagellation,

(156) Cf. Theophanes Continuatus..., 27–28 (I, § 16).

(157) Ibid., 28, l. 14–15.

(158) I. Lesmüller-Werner, I. Thurn, Iosephi Genesii *Regum libri quattuor* (Berlin, 1978) (CFHB SB 14) I, § 13, l. 39–40.

(159) *Любарский*, Продолжатель Феофана…, 271, прим. 60. On sait encore l'autre Théophane le Confesseur, higoumène de Mégas Agros ; mais ce Théophane le Chronographe n'était point poète, à la différence de Théophane le Graptos.

(160) Cf. Gouillard, La Vie d'Euthyme de Sardes... 8, 14, 38–40. S. Euthyme était martyrisé justement pour la participation dans la rédaction ou la diffusion du pamphlet contre Théophile.

(161) Cf. Theophanes Continuatus..., 85, l. 3 – 86, l. 6 (III, § 1) ; Lesmüller-Werner, Thurn, Iosephi Genesii *Regum*..., III, § 1, l. 1–12 ; I. Bekker, Leonis Grammatici *Chronographia* (Bonn, 1842) (CSHB) 214, l. 9 – 215, l. 3.

le logothète du drome envoyé par l'empereur leur a posé une question remarquable : « Pourquoi vous réjouissiez-vous de la mort de Léon ? »[162] Il est évident que leur attitude envers Léon l'Arménien préoccupait Théophile, et le châtiment qu'il a inventé pour les confesseurs semble alors avoir de l'esprit : *les vers pour les vers*.

S'il en est ainsi, nous voyons ici encore un motif de la persécution des Graptoi sous Théophile, et ce motif apparaît en premier lieu comme politique.[163]

6. L'épisode avec un livre corrompu par les iconoclastes chez le Continuateur de Théophane

Dans quelle mesure le passage du Continuateur de Théophane où l'on voit l'empereur Théophile disputer avec les Graptoi sur une citation d'Isaïe correspond-il à la réalité ?[164] Théophile aurait demandé aux confesseurs de citer quelques témoignages des prophètes sur la vénération des images, et Théophane lui cite un passage d'Isaïe, mais l'empereur réplique que ce mot se présente autrement et lit le même passage dans son propre livre. Toutefois Théophane aurait convaincu courageusement Théophile de la fraude des livres, après quoi l'empereur, fort irrité, aurait ordonné de graver les visages des deux frères. Cependant, dans la lettre de Théodore le Graptos il n'y a aucune allusion à cette histoire pittoresque. Bien que Théodore dise en finissant sa lettre : « *quoiqu'il ait eu lieu beaucoup d'autres choses*, nous l'avons communiqué plus brièvement parce que nous avons bien de témoins de ce qu'on nous avait fait »,[165] on imagine mal le confesseur omettre un détail aussi important qu'une discussion publique sur les images avec l'empereur iconoclaste, et πολλῶν ὄντων καὶ ἄλλων devrait concer-

(162) Cf. § 5 (27) de la lettre de St. Théodore : *VThGr*, 676B ; *LMS*, 90, l. 27–28.

(163) Bien sûr, les convictions iconophiles des Graptoi jouaient aussi leur rôle, mais il faut noter encore une fois que l'empereur lui-même ne parle point avec les confesseurs sur les images ; c'est le logothète qui leur demande pourquoi « ayant cherché un refuge » auprès de Léon l'Arménien, ils « n'embrassent pas sa foi » ; et c'est l'éparque qui leur propose de communier avec les iconomaques. Notons aussi que le logothète ayant reçu la réponse des confesseurs sur leur attitude envers la mort de Léon, sur la date de leur arrivée à Constantinople et sur leur foi, pose une nouvelle question concernant l'empereur Léon et ne dit plus rien sur l'iconophilie des saints (cf. *VThGr*, 676BC).

(164) Theophanes Continuatus..., 104, l. 4 – 106, l. 7 (III, § 14).

(165) § 9 (31).

ner quelques injures ou peut-être supplices supportés par les Graptoi. Ainsi donc, cette histoire ressemble plutôt à un *topos* de la *passion épique*[166] qu'à un fait réel.

Par ailleurs, cette discussion autour d'une citation d'Isaïe n'est pas dépourvue d'intérêt. À présent, on sait que l'empereur Léon III, l'initiateur du premier iconoclasme, avant et probablement après son avènement, était lié avec le couropalate Sembat Bagratouni, chef des Nakharars arméniens, qui était un fils spirituel du Catholicos Sahak III.[167] Sahak refutait toutes les images sacrées à l'exception de la Croix et dans son exhortation adressée à Sembat Bagratouni l'appellait à ne pas adorer les icônes : « ... ne laisse pas de place à tout cela qui a détruit la tradition des saints Pères, ... et ne te corromps pas avec leur icônolatrie ou toute autre chose, car Dieu nous a donné comme image la croix de Dieu à adorer ... En effet, toute autre image Dieu lui-même l'a interdite en disant : *Quelle ressemblance vois-tu en moi ?* [Isa 40 : 18] Ceux donc qui fabriquent d'autres images agissent selon la coutume des païens, et non selon les lois de l'adoration de Dieu qui nous est donnée en précepte par les Saintes Écritures ».[168]

Comme l'ont démontré V. Baranov et B. Lourié, l'iconoclasme à Byzance suivait la tradition de l'origénisme byzantin,[169] et cette tradition était influencée par la tradition iconoclaste venue de l'Arménie à l'époque de Léon III.[170] B. Lourié suppose que le problème de l'interaction de ces deux traditions est un sujet de futures recherches. En attendant celles-ci, je voudrais faire une petite observation. M. van Esbroek

(166) Cf. plus haut, n. 95 et 101.

(167) Cf. M. van Esbroeck, Le discours du Catholicos Sahak III en 691 et quelques documents arméniens annexes au Quinisexte, dans : G. Nedungatt, M. Featherstone (eds.), *The Council in Trullo Revisited* (Roma, 1995) (Κανονικά 6) 323–454 ; idem, La politique arménienne de Byzance de Justinien II à Léon III, *Studi sull'Oriente Cristiano* 2.2 (1998) 111–120 ; idem, L'alternance politico-religieuse de Justinien II à Léon III, *Scr* 2 (2006) 3–6.

(168) van Esbroeck, Le discours du Catholicos Sahak III..., 438.

(169) Cf. V. A. Baranov, *The Theology of Byzantine Iconoclasm (726–843): A Study in Theological Method*. Doctoral Dissertation (Medieval Studies Department, Central-European University; Budapest, 2002) ; В. М. *Лурье*, при участии В. А. Баранова, *История византийской философии. Формативный период* (Санкт-Петербург, 2006) 445–475.

(170) Cf. ibid., 526–529 (Addenda III : *Лев* III и иконоборчество армянских монофизитов). B. Lourié fait remarquer que Sembat Bagratouni a été en vie à peu près jusqu'à 726, c'est à dire jusqu'au début de la politique iconoclaste de Léon III.

n'a pas prêté attention à ce que Sahak cite ce passage d'Isaïe dans une autre rédaction que celle qui existe dans la Septante où l'on lit : τίνι ὡμοιώσατε κύριον καὶ τίνι ὁμαιώματι ὡμοιώσατε αὐτόν; « À qui comparer Dieu, et quelle image pourriez-vous en fournir ? ». Or, on peut supposer que les iconomaques byzantins aient eu à la main justement la rédaction que cite Sahak dans son exhortation ; ils pouvaient même l'estimer plus correcte, et les iconophiles la considéraient certainement comme une « altération ». L'histoire racontée par le Contuateur de Théophane pourrait alors refléter l'existence de la « rédaction arménienne » du Livre d'Isaïe.[171]

* * *

Bien sûr, la *Vie* de Michel le Syncelle n'est point une *passion épique* dans le sens classique ;[172] dans l'ensemble, c'est une *passion historique* contenant des éléments du panégyrique et de la *passion épique*.[173] Sur cette œuvre hagiographique nous pouvons répéter les mots de H. Delehaye : « Les récits hagiographiques nous mettent souvent en présence d'une combinaison de deux traditions de valeur très inégale, l'une très précieuse, empruntée à la vie de tous les jours ..., l'autre, de formation récente et artificielle, qui en fait le théâtre d'une action déterminée ».[174]

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(171) Que cette citation d'Isaïa était en tout cas un argument important pour les iconoclastes, on le voit en lisant un autre passage du Continuateur où il décrit le début de la politique iconomaque de Léon V : le supérieur du clergé de palais épiait une occasion pour détourner l'empereur de l'iconophilie et quand une fois dans l'église de Pharos on lisait pendant un office divin le passage : τίνι ὡμοιώσατε κύριον καὶ τίνι ὁμαιώματι ὡμοιώσατε αὐτόν; μὴ εἰκόνα ἐποίησε τέκτων, ἢ χρυσοχόος χωνεύσας χρυσίον περιεχρύσωσεν αὐτόν, ἢ ὁμοίωμα κατεσκεύασεν αὐτόν (Isa 40 : 18–19), il a dit à Léon : σύνες ὅ τι λέγει, ὦ βασιλεῦ, τὸ ἱερὸν λόγιον· καὶ μηδείς σοι μετάμελος ἐπὶ τοῖς ἐναρχθεῖσιν ἔστω, ἀλλ᾽ ἅπαν θεῖον δοκοῦν ἐκποδὼν ποιήσας εἰκόνισμα τῆς ὀρθῆς ἔχου λατρείας τῶν μὴ σεβομένων αὐτά « Comprends ce que dit la parole sainte, ô empereur, et qu'aucun repentir n'arrive à tes entreprises, mais ayant enlevé entièrement les images qui font semblant d'être divines, tiens le vrai culte de ceux qui ne les adorent pas » (Theophanes Continuatus..., 32, l. 16 – 33, l. 4 (I, § 20).

(172) Par exemple, l'hagiographe n'a pas recours aux recits traditonnels sur les miracles des saints, les vision ou le chatiment des persécuteurs. Sur le rôle des miracles pour les *passion épiques* cf. Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 207–218.

(173) Pour la forme littéraire de la *Vie* cf. *LMS*, 23–30.

(174) Delehaye, *Les passions des martyrs*…, 314.

L'annexe : la traduction russe de la lettre de Théodore le Graptos

Письмо св. Феодора Начертанного епископу Кизическому Иоанну[1]

1 (23). Я крайне погрешил бы, если бы предал молчанию бывшее с нами, тогда как многие стремятся услышать (об этом) ради поучения.[2] И прежде всего, пусть послужит говоримое и слышимое во славу Божию и на пользу многих, не менее же того направляясь и к бесчестию нечестивых, и к обличению порочности и хитросплетения их догмата. *И немного спустя он говорит так:* Когда же прибыл исполнитель императорских повелений и ступил на остров Афусию, то, с большой поспешностью схватив нас, доставил в Город, утверждая, что не знает, чего ради нас туда повлекли; он только говорил, что был послан очень быстро и с великой спешкой. Итак, мы прибыли в Город когда уже настало восьмое июля; и наш провожатый, один представ перед императором, получил приказ заключить нас в Преторий.

И вот, через шесть дней, в четырнадцатый день того же месяца нас вызывают к императору; и наш приход, заранее возвещенный, был уже в мыслях у всех, ожидавших, как мы явимся к императору, ведь нам неизбежно предстояло подвергнуться каре. И ничего другого было не видно и не слышно, кроме ужасов и угроз от говоривших (нам): «Эй вы, немедленно и без всяких возражений покоритесь повелениям императора», — и одни предвещали нам жестокие страдания, «если не послушаетесь», а другие говорили: «Беса имеете», и иное подобное и еще худшее, попусту вторгавшееся в уши наши.

2 (24). Это мы выслушивали перед тем, как пришли в так называемый Золотой триклин; когда же мы прибыли туда и вошли в двери, ведомые эпархом, нашим взорам предстал император, чрезвычайно грозный и пылающий гневом, а с обеих сторон стояло множество людей. Было же около десятого часа, и, дойдя до того места, отступил от нас эпарх, оставив нас одних пред очами императора. Когда же мы поклонились, более надменным голосом он сурово приказал нам приблизиться. И вот, когда мы оказались перед ним, он спросил: «Из какой страны вы родом?» Когда

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(1) Основные примечания см. к французскому переводу письма. Слова в скобках вставлены для лучшего понимания текста.

(2) Буквально: «услышать и поучиться».

мы ответили: «Из Моавитиды», — он спросил снова так же: «Зачем вы пришли сюда?» И прежде чем мы ответили, он приказал бить нас по лицу. И нам нанесли много тяжких ударов с размаху, так что у нас закружилась голова, и мы стали падать наземь. И если б я не схватился за хитон на груди бившего, то упал бы прямо к ногам императора. И держась за одежду, я принимал удары, не отворачиваясь, пока державный не приказал прекратить избиение. Когда же бившие остановились, император опять спросил: «Чего ради вы пришли сюда?» Слово же это у него значило: «Чего ради вы пришли сюда на жительство, если не желаете принять нашу веру?»

3 (25). Поскольку же мы молчали, опустив лица к земле, то он, с грозным взором, нетерпеливо обратился к стоявшему вблизи эпарху и суровым голосом с великим гневом изрек следующее слово: «Уведи их и начертай им лица, написав на них ямбы, и передай их обоих сарацинам, и пусть те уведут их в свою землю». Стоял же рядом и тот, у кого были ямбы, который и приготовил их, именем Христодул; ему-то он и приказал зачитать их, прибавив еще вот что: «Если они и не хороши, пусть тебя это не заботит». Сказал же он это, зная, с какой величайшей строгостью мы соблюдали стихотворные размеры, и желая таким образом насмеяться над нами. Потому и некто из присутствовавших в угоду ему прибавил к сказанному: «Они и не достойны, о владыка, чтобы ямбы были лучше. Хороши и те, что есть».

«Поскольку все желают в град придти,
Где ради устроения вселенной ноги
Всечистые ступали Слова Божия,
Они пришли в священные места,
Сосуд порока, безобразной и бесовской льсти,
И нечестивомысленно в безбожии свершили
Там множество постыдных страшных дел.
Оттуда, как отступников, изгнали их,
Они же в царственный сбежали Град,
От беззаконного безумья не отстав.
И потому с лицом начертанным они,
Вновь как злодеи на изгнание осуждены».[3]

(3) Буквальный перевод таков:
«Поскольку все желают придти к городу,
Где всенепорочные ноги Божия Слова
Стояли ради устроение вселенной,

4 (26). Когда ямбы были зачитаны, он приказал увести нас в Преторий. И когда мы вышли и уже достигли так называемой Термастры, некто, предварив, приказал возвратиться и со многой поспешностью представил нас императору. Он же, увидев нас, сказал дословно следующее: «Возможно, вы, уйдя, будете говорить там: "Мы поглумились над императором". Но я первый посмеюсь над вами, а потом отошлю вас». Сказав это, он приказал раздеть нас. И вот, когда нас обоих раздели, меня стали бить, а император беспрерывно кричал и самим собой заклинал бичующих: «Так-то ты меня любишь?![4] Дай хорошенько!» Поэтому били и по спине, и по груди без всякого сострадания и человеколюбия. Я же, бичуемый долгое время, кричал: «Мы ничем не согрешили против твоей власти!» — и еще: «Господи, помилуй!» и «Святая Богородице, приди на помощь нам!» После этого стали бить и брата, подобным же образом кричавшего и взывавшего: «Святая Богородице, Ты Сама бежала в Египет, унося Сына;[5] призри на меня, мучимого ради подобного Твоему бегства! Господи, Господи, "избавляющий нищего от руки сильнейших его",[6] не удали помощь Твою от нас![7]» И таким образом избив нас обоих, сколько хотел, он приказал нам уходить. Другой же (посланец императора), вновь придя, выбранил нас, приказывая возвращаться.

5 (27). И некто, посланный от императора, расспрашивал: «Почему вы радовались смерти Льва? И почему, взыскав у него убежища, вы не преданы одной с ним вере?» На это мы сказали: «Мы ни смерти Льва не радовались, ни убежища у него не искали, и не

Пришли эти в священное место,
Сосуд лукавый (*или:* порочный) мерзкой демонской лести
(*или:* обмана),
И там много вследствие язычества
(*также:* неведения, ереси, безбожия)
Свершив постыдного и ужасного, нечестивомысленно,
Оттуда были изгнаны как отступники.
В Город же царственный прибежав,
Не избавились от беззаконного безумия.
Поэтому видом начертанные, как злодеи,
Они осуждаются и изгоняются вновь».

(4) Возможен вариант: «Так-то ты верен мне?!».

(5) Ср. Мф. 2:13–15.

(6) Пс. 34:10.

(7) Ср. Пс. 21:20.

допустим себя до того, чтобы всецело отвергнуть или изменить веру из-за вас, меняющихся в угоду времени». Когда же он спросил: «Значит, в то время вы приходили не ко Льву?» — мы сказали: «Конечно, нет, но к царствовавшему до него». Он же сказал: «Хорошо, хорошо», — и ушел. Был же это логофет дрома. Тогда мы отправились в Преторий, уже при наступлении темноты.

6 (28). И по прошествии четырех дней нас приводят в присутствие к эпарху. Он же, попугав угрозами многих мучений, и сказав, что прежде покарает (нас), а потом начертает лица и отдаст сарацинам, увещевал сотворить угодное императору. Были же с ним и Христодул, и его отец. И поскольку мы твердо отказывались, и говорили, что охотно претерпим бесчисленные смерти и никогда не осквернимся через общение или хотя бы согласие с отвергшими христианскую веру и исповедание, даже если они и глаза нам вырвут, и тела сожгут огнем, отец Христодула, желая для нас милости, обращая слово к нашим противникам, сказал эпарху: «Они никогда не поклонялись иконе, но когда с ними что-то случилось — не знаю, что, — они пришли сюда». Я же сурово сказал ему: «Отойди отсюда, не знающий, ни что говоришь, ни о чем утверждаешь!»[8]

7 (29). Эпарх же опять сказал льстиво: «Один, один только раз вступите в общение, и другого мы не требуем. Вот, я пойду вместе с вами в церковь, а (потом) вы пойдете, куда вам угодно». Я же, рассмеявшись, сказал ему: «Ты, господин эпарх, говоришь что-то подобное тому, как если бы некто, желая завлечь другого, сказал: “Я ничего не прошу у тебя, только отрубить тебе голову, а после этого иди, куда хочешь”. Знай же, что для нас уже и то является бесчестием, когда вообще кто-либо осмеливается склонить нас к общению, в которое ты увещеваешь (нас) вступить, сам не понимаешь, как; и таковой не издалека убедится, что легче ему землю поднять наверх, а небо свести вниз, нежели нас отвратить от благочестия». Тогда он повелел начертать нам лица. И вот, хотя раны от бичей у нас еще были воспалены и причиняли невыносимые муки, растянув нас на скамьях, стали начертывать (нам) лица. И долгое время прокалывали (нам) лица; но когда солнце скрылось, настала тьма, которая положила конец начертанию, хотя они и не хотели.

(8) Ср. I Тим. 1:7.

8 (30). Собираясь же уйти, мы сказали эпарху и бывшим там: «Знайте же, что, увидев эти надписи, херувимы отступят и пламенный меч, отвратившись, откроет нам вход в рай, устыдившись наших лиц, вот так позорно начертанными ради общего Владыки. Ибо от века с нами одними сотворили это, и было придумано это новшество, хотя вы и провозгласили человеколюбивыми всех тех, которые стали безумствовать против нашего божественного догмата. И вы непременно узнаете эти надписи на лице Христа, выставленные вам на прочтение. Ибо Он сказал: "То, что вы сотворили единому от малых сих, Мне сотворили"[9]».

9 (31). Император, когда узнал от эпарха об этих словах, говорят, сказал, пораженный, как я думаю, ясностью рассуждения: «Если б я знал, что это истинно, я бы начертал так на всем моем народе». Итак, хотя было много и другого, мы сообщили об этом покороче, поскольку имеем много свидетелей сделанного; хорошо знаю, что всякий поостережется рассказать лучше, чем мы, больше этого и достовернее о содеянном тогда и сказанном. Ибо это «произошло не в углу»[10] и не как-то тайно, но на всеобщем обозрении, посреди вселенной.

(9) Ср. Мф. 25:40.

(10) Деян. 26:26.

SUMMARY

The anonymous author of the "Life of Michael Synkellos" in his account about the act of confession of the brothers Theodore and Theophanus Graptoi uses a genuine document, a letter of Theodore, where the confessor describes what he and his brother suffered in 836. A new French translation of this letter is included in the article because the previous translation by S. Vailhé (the only translation into an European language) is not complete and sometimes incorrect (in the appendix a Russian translation of the same letter is added). The present author compares two versions of the same event, that of the letter of Theodore and that of the "Life of Michael Synkellos." The comparison shows that, in the hand of the anonymous hagiographer, the story becomes transformed into a panegyric or even a *Passion épique*. All the known versions of the iambic verses written about the faces of the confessors are compared. A hypothesis has been put forward that the cause of such an unusual punishment was the satyrical verses written by Theophanus Graptos about Emperor Leo the Armenian. Probably, Theophilus' idea of giving the brothers to the Arabs was a mockery provoked by the fact that the brothers left Palestine because of a fear of the Arabs. The reasons for Theophilus' irritation with the brothers were of rather political than religious nature. An episode in the Continuator of Theophanus with a discussion held between St Theophanus and Emperor Theophilus about the Book of Isaiah allegedly "corrupted" by the iconoclast is also reconsidered. It is very probable that it is fictitious (because Theodore Graptos in his letter did not mention it), but, in any case, it may correspond to some "Armenian" version of the Greek text of Isaiah: at least, such a corrupted quotation from Isaiah is to be read in a harsh iconoclastic document, the Testament of the Armenian Catholicos Sahak III, whose spiritual son Smbat Bagratuni was a close friend of the first iconoclast Emperor Leo III.

Notes

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SOME NOTES ABOUT THE RELIGIOUS POLICY OF JUSTINIAN THE GREAT

The greatness of Justinian I (527–565) and his activity has traditionally attracted the attention of researchers. Nobody can say that his religious policy has not been studied. All scholars believe that the concept of the symphony of Church and State powers was the great achievement of this Emperor, but as a rule they say nothing about the reasons for the appearance of this concept. Let's try to discover these reasons and to see regularity in Justinian's religious policy, in which all issues were connected.

It is a known fact that the restoration of the Great Roman Empire in the first–second centuries, was the guiding principle of Justinian's policy. So the emperor wrote in 534: "hoc etiam deprecantes exoramus precibus sanctae et gloriosae semper virginis et dei genetricis mariae, ut, quidquid minus est rei publicae nostrae, per nos, ultimos servos suos, restituat in suo nomine deus et dignos nos faciat servitium eius adimplere" (CJ.I.27.1.9).[1]

Political unity demands the ideological unity, that is the unity of faith or religion. This unity was understood as the unity of worship and devotion which took place in the pagan tradition. And if some branch of Christianity deviated from this unity, this branch was considered heretical. Justinian also thought so at the beginning of his ruling that's why he promulgated some antiheretical laws (C.J.1.5, 10). Yet later he realized that all Christians including heretics were Christians, that is, they had the essential unity of faith. Thus the Emperor began to fight against pagans, Jews and other non-Christian religions. So in 529 the teaching Academy of Plato of Athens was placed under state control by order of Justinian; paganism was greatly suppressed (CJ.1.10–11). According to Justinian laws, Orthodox children could not be disinherited by their Jewish parents (CJ.1.5.13.), no Jew was allowed to possess and to own Christian slaves, or slaves desiring to

(1) *Codex Justinianus* (Berlin, 1880) (Corpus Juris Civilis 2) (hereafter CJ).

become Christian (CJ.1.3.54; CJ.1.10.2). Complete destruction of Samaritan synagogues was ordered (CJ.1.5.17); synagogues were to be turned into churches (nov. 37); Jews might not build new synagogues and they were not allowed to lease Orthodox property (nov. 131).

At the same time Justinian understood that dissension within the Christian Church undermined the unity of the Church and thereby the unity of the Empire. The Emperor embodied this unity of the Empire. And Justinian wanted the figure of the emperor to be beyond the religious fight. That's why he displaced the emperor from participation in this fight. And that's why he divided some authorities between the priesthood (ἱερωσύνη) and the kingdom (βασιλεία) in the famous preface for his 6th Novella (New Constitution):

> Μέγιστα ἐν ἀνθρώποις ἐστὶ δῶρα θεοῦ παρὰ τῆς ἄνωθεν δεδομένα φιλανθρωπίας ἱερωσύνη τε καὶ βασιλεία, ἡ μὲν τοῖς θείοις ὑπηρετουμένη, ἡ δὲ τῶν ἀνθρωπίνων ἐξάρχουσά τε καὶ ἐπιμελομένη, καὶ ἐκ μιᾶς τε καὶ τῆς αὐτῆς ἀρχῆς ἑκατέρα προιοῦσα καὶ τὸν ἀνθρώπινον κατακοσμοῦσα βίον ὥστε οὐδὲν οὕτως ἂν εἴη περισπούδαστον βασιλεῦσιν ὡς ἡ τῶν ἱερέων σεμνότης, εἴγε καὶ ὑπὲρ αὐτῶν ἐκείνων ἀεὶ τὸν θεὸν ἱκετεύουσιν. Εἰ γὰρ ἡ μὲν ἄμεμπτος εἴη πανταχόθεν καὶ τῆς πρὸς θεὸν μετέχοι παρρησίας, ἡ δὲ ὀρθῶς τε καὶ προσηκόντως κατακοσμοίη τὴν παραδοθεῖσαν αὐτῇ πολιτείαν, ἔσται συμφωνία τις ἀγαθή, πᾶν εἴ τι χρηστὸν τῷ ἀνθρωπίνῳ χαριζομένη γένει[2] (nov. 6, preface).

Thus, the priesthood embodies the spiritual sphere and the kingdom embodies the material sphere. Both of them arise from one source, both of them are gifts of God so they are equal. It seems that Justinian emphasized this equality. The kingdom takes care of human matters and the emperor has to think about the affairs of state, especially about keeping peace in the united Empire. Meanwhile the priesthood has to serve God's matters and to keep peace in the Church. Then Justinian talks about consent (συμφωνία) between both the kingdom and the priesthood.

It seems to me that Justinian's brilliant idea is contained in this well-known fragment. Firstly the figure of emperor was exonerated from fault for Church dissension and secondly the figure of Emperor was relieved from the position of *pontifex maximus*. Although Gratian

(2) R. Scholl and W. Kroll (eds.), *Flavius JUSTINIANUS Imperator. Novellae* (Berlin: Weidmann, 1895, repr. 1968) (Corpus iuris civilis 3) 1–795.

resigned from this title in 382, it was done only formally and the policy of the next emperors shows that they tried to control the religious life of their subjects. Now all duties of the great pontific were passed to the Church. But it was not a complete deviation of the Emperor from religious matters. He continued to take part in these matters because the majority of his subjects were Christians and Christianity really became the ideological basis of the Byzantine empire. Justinian's New Constitutions are real evidence of his participation in the religious life. But this intervention received definite limits and if these limits were broken it would be a reason for conflicts between the Emperor and clergy. If the Emperor formerly symbolized the religious unity as *pontifex maximus*, henceforth he began to symbolize only political unity as a supreme ruler unlike *rex* or *princeps.* And religious dissension couldn't undermine both the unity of the Empire and the perception of this unity.

When Justinian underlined one source for the kingdom and the priesthood (ἐκ μιᾶς τε καὶ τῆς αὐτῆς ἀρχῆς) he spoke about the equal role of each of them in keeping the Empire's unity because the emperor cares for political unity and the Church cares for religious unity. It means that Justinian refused *of his own free will* to be responsible for the spiritual sphere of life of his subjects in favour of the Church. In other words the Emperor determined his duties *personally* thereby rejecting caesarepapism. Also Justinian did not give the Church representational powers, that is, the powers to personify the unity of the empire. So he emphasized the impossibility of papocaesarism, that is, subjecting the state to the Church. And when he spoke about symphony he had in mind only the unity of the State and Church.

But the majority of researchers consider that it was Justinian who tried to subject the Church to the State. So S. Runcimen considered that Justinian's rule was the time of the highest power of the Emperor over the Church.[3] V. Asmus insists that Justinian had formulated the concept of the symphony of the kingdom and the priesthood in reply to doctrines of the Roman Popes of the fifth and the sixth centuries concerning the superiority of the priesthood. The researcher had seen in the 6th Novella that the emperor "takes care of true dogma, of the honour of priests, of observance of canons, in other words of the

(3) С. Рансимен, *Восточная схизма. Византийская теократия* (Москва, 1998) 165.

Church establishment."[4] According to A. Kartashev, Justinian was a bishop of Church domestic affairs.[5]

All accusations against Justinian are based on the position that there are detail regulations of ecclesiastical property, election and rights of bishops, priests and abbots, monastic life, residential obligations of the clergy, conduct of the divine service, episcopal jurisdiction in the *Codex* and *Novellae*. I agree with D. Simon that Justinian believed that through law it was possible to subject all conflict resolution in his society to a written set of rules.[6] Therefore all problems of the Church, which was part of society, would be solved with the help of laws. And the Emperor equated Church canons with laws, causing historians to accuse him of attempting to submit the Church to the State. He said that the sacred canons have the same power as public laws in the state… and crimes against canons are not endurable in a state according to the laws of the state. In 545 Justinian wrote which canons had to be public laws.

> Θεσπίζομεν τοίνυν, τάξιν νόμων ἐπέχειν τοὺς ἁγίους ἐκκλησιαστικοὺς κανόνας τοὺς ὑπὸ τῶν ἁγίων τεσσάρων συνόδων ἐκτεθέντας ἢ βεβαιωθέντας, τουτέστι τῆς ἐν Νικαίᾳ τῶν τιη καὶ τῆς ἐν Κωνσταντινουπόλει τῶν ἁγίων ρν πατέρων καὶ τῆς ἐν Ἐφέσῳ πρώτης, ἐν ᾗ Νεστόριος κατεκρίθη, καὶ τῆς ἐν Καλχηδόνι, καθ᾽ ἣν Εὐτυχὴς μετὰ Νεστορίου ἀνεθεματίσθη. τῶν γὰρ προειρημένων ἁγίων δ συνόδων καὶ τὰ δόγματα καθάπερ τὰς θείας γραφὰς δεχόμεθα καὶ τοὺς κανόνας ὡς νόμους φυλάττομεν" (nov. 131, cap. 1).

So when Justinian said that he cared for the sacred canons as public laws, firstly he grounded his intervention in Church matters and secondly he equalized the kingdom and priesthood, again confirming the consent between them.

In other words Justinian tried to follow his model of symphony in his legacy. And due to him caesaropapism in Byzantium *de jure* be-

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(4) В. Асмус, Церковные полномочия византийских императоров, in: *Православная государственность: 12 писем об империи* (Санкт-Петербург, 2003) 35.

(5) A. B. Карташев, *Вселенские соборы* (Клин, 2002) 458.

(6) D. Simon, Legislation as both a World Order and a Legal Order, in: A. Laiou and D. Simon (eds.), *Law and Society in Byzantium: Ninth–Twelfth Centuries* (Washington, D.C.: Dumbarton Oaks Research Library and Collection, 1994) 9.

came impossible. But *de facto* powerful emperors always tended to control all matters including ecclesiastical life, weak emperors were to be controlled by Constantinople patriarchs and wise emperors tended to follow the model of the symphony.

As for Justinian himself we can see that he was so mighty a figure that it was very hard for him not to weaken his powers which were determined by himself. But all his prescriptions relating to dogmatic problems as a rule were discussed by bishops. And it's difficult to agree with A. Velichko with his interpretation of the 6th Novella (New Constitution), who believes that Justinian did not set off the kingdom against the priesthood because the Emperor considered that all humanity was the Church and the Emperor himself had to care both for the Churches and the nation.[7] I think that Justinian wanted to express only the words that he had written, but different constructions of his concept of the symphony of Church and State powers mean that this problem is quite urgent nowadays.

(7) А. М. Величко, *Церковь и император в византийской и русской истории* (Санкт-Петербург, 2006) 56–57.

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THE SOGDIAN "ANCIENT LETTERS" (I–III)[1]

The "Ancient Sogdian Letters" in Iranian Studies are the letters written on Chinese paper that were found by Aurel Stein in 1907 in the ruins of watchtower T.XIIIa of the Chinese Wall. The tower was situated to the west of Dunkhuan near the "Jasper Gates."

The garrison of the tower guarded the section of the Silk Road between Dunkhuan (Sogd. δrw'n/ δrw''n / *θruwān*/, θροάνα by Claudius Ptolemaeus) and Loulyan (Sogd. Kr'wr'n / Krōrān/). Six letters were preserved entirely, and there were found some fragments of three other letters. Each letter was folded up several times; the names of the sender and addressee were written on the front side. The second letter, wrapped in silk cloth and packaged in a rough flax cover, was addressed to Samarkand (Sogd. Sm'(')rknδh / Smārkanθ(ā)), 3800 km to the west of Dunkhuan.

According to the text of the letters we can say that at least two of them were written in Dunkhuan and one in Gutszan. We can suppose that a mailman on his way from the East to the West lost or maybe threw away a bag with the letters. The second, fourth, and fifth letters contain business information for Sogdian merchants from their contractors who were making trade deals in China. The first and third letters (that are translated below) were dictated by a woman named Mēwnāy (lit. "tiger cub"), who had been left by her husband Nanaiδat ("Created by goddess Nanai") in Dunkhuan.

The "Ancient Letters" are the earliest Sogdian handwritten texts. Like other Sogdian documents, found or purchased by Stein, they are kept at the British Library in London.

The letters are dated to ca. 312–313, as was established by W. B. Henning. He analyzed the second letter which spoke about events that took place in China at that time: a war with the Huns (Sogd. *xwn* /*xūn*/), a fire in the western capital Louyang (Sogd. *srγ* /*Saraγ*/), destruction of Louyang and E (Sogd. *'nkp'* /*Ankapă*/), flight of the Emperor. Henning has shown that the letters were written after the capture of city E by

(1) This article was written with the financial support of RGSF; project 06-01-00463 A.

the Huns in 307 and Louyang in 311.[2] J. Harmatta suggested dating the letters to the year 196,[3] but F. Grenet and N. Sims-Williams have proved the dating offered by Henning.[4]

Sogdian trading stations in Chinese cities in the beginning of the 4th century were rather significant. In "Ancient Letters" a "hundred noble men" from Samarkand are mentioned, being in a city whose name was not preserved. In Chuchan (Chinese Tsintsjuan) there were forty Sogdian men.

The second letter was addressed to Samarkand; the other four were sent, apparently, to Louyang and other cities of Western China. Three letters describe commercial transactions made by Sogdian merchants. Purchase of silks (Sogd. *pyrcyk /pīrčīk/*), lit. "concerning the silkworm,"[5] linen and course fabrics, musk, pepper, camphor, wheat, lead, and gold products are mentioned. The prices for the goods are reported in silver staters (values of their weight and costs are the same as in Central Asia of this period) or at the rate of the bronze coins which were issued in China.

The first letter was sent from Dunkhuan. It was dictated by Mēwnāy and was addressed to her mother Chatise (*ctysh /Čatis/*). The name is Indian, it can be found in Prakrit documents of the 3th century from Niya (Kroraina). The third letter was addressed to Nanaiδat, the husband of Mēwnāy. In the third letter the address was written on behalf of Shēn (*šyn*), daughter of Mēwnāy and Nanaiδat. Lines 27–35 in this letter were an addition dictated by Shēn. There was no data in the first

(2) W. B. Henning, The Date of the Sogdian Ancient Letters, *Bulletin of the School of Oriental and African Studies* 12.3/4 (1948) 601–615.

(3) J. Harmatta, Eine neue Quelle zur Geschichte der Seidenstrasse, *Jahrbuch für Wirtenschaftsgeschichte* 2 (Berlin, 1971) 135–143; Idem, The Archaeological Evidence for the Date of the Sogdian "Ancient Letters," in: J. Harmatta (ed.), *Studies in the sources on the history of pre-Islamic Central Asia* (Budapest, 1979) 75–90; Idem, Sir Aurel Stein and the Date of the Sogdian "Ancient Letters," in: E. Apor (ed.), *Jubilee Volume of the Oriental Collection 1951–1976* (Budapest, 1978) 73–88.

(4) F. Grenet and N. Sims-Williams, The Historical Context of the Sogdian Ancient Letters, in: *Transition Periods in Iranian History. Actes du Symposium de Friburg-en-Brisgau (22–24 mai 1985)* (Leuven, 1987) (Studia Iranica. Cahier 5) 101–122.

(5) Cf. Khot. *pira* — "a worm, a silkworm" (see P. O. Skjærvø, Sogdian Notes, *Acta Orientalia* 37 (Copenhagen, 1976) 113–114.

letter. The third letter was written on the third day of the tenth month of the Sogdian calendar (that is the 21th of April of 313 or 314).[6]

Translation of the first letter:

"(1)From (her) daughter, noble Mēwnāy, to (her) dear [mother] Chatise — blessing (and) respect. It (would be) (2) a fine day for one who could [see] you healthy and flourishing. And for me such a day would be the best if we could see you (3) in good health. I wish very much to see you, [but] I have not [such a] happiness. I asked (4) the adviser Saγa[ra]k, but the adviser has told me: "there is nobody here [among relatives] closer to [your] husband Nanaiδat, than (5) Artivan". And I asked Artivan, [but] he says: "Farnkhund…(*lacuna*), (6) and I refuse to hurry, I refuse (*lacuna*)…" Farnkhund (7) says: "If relatives of [your] husband do not agree that you return to your mother, (8) how can I take you? Wait till [he] will come, maybe [your husband] Nanaiδat (9) will come." And I live hapless without clothes, without money. I ask to lend me money, (10) but nobody has agreed to lend me so I have been compelled to beg from the priest. [He told me]: "If (11) you go [to your mother], I shall give you a camel, and a person [chosen by me] will go [with you], and [thus during] the way (12) I can constantly watch [you]." Should he do this for me while you [= Chatise] send me a letter?"

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(6) About the content of the first letter and its connection with the third letter see W. B. Henning, Date, 615. The first edition of the transliteration of texts and partial German translation of the "Ancient Letters" is H. Reichelt, Die soghdischen Handschriftenreste des Britischen Museums II (Heidelberg, 1931) 1–56; for the transliteration of the text of the first letter and commented English translation see N. Sims-Williams, Towards a New Edition of the Sogdian Ancient Letters. Ancient letter I, in: *Les Sogdiens en Chine* (Paris, 2005) (Études thématiques 17) 181–193; see also F. Rosenberg, Zu Reichelt's Ausgabe der Soghdischen Handschriftenreste des Britischen Museums II. *Orientalstische Literaturzeitung* 12 (1932) 758–763; Ф. А. Розенберг, Согдийские «Старые письма». К ранней истории согдийских колоний Центральной Азии, *Известия АН СССР*, VII серия, Отделение общественных наук 5 (*Ленинград*, 1934) 445–469; H. H. Schaeder, Beiträge zur mitteiranischen Schrift — und Sprachgeschichte, *Zeitschrift der Deutschen Morgenländischen Gesellschaft* 96 (Leipzig, 1942) 1–22. About the date of the third letter, see W. B. Henning, Date, 615; F. Grenet, N. Sims-Williams, È. De la Vaissière, The Sogdian Ancient Letter V, in: O. Bopearachchi, C. Altman, F. Grenet (eds.), *Alexander's Legacy in the East. Studies in honor of Paul Bernard. Bulletin of the Asia Institute* 12 (1998 [2001]) 102.

Translation of lines 1–26 of the third letter.[7] The address was dictated by the daughter, but the first 26 lines of the letter were written on behalf of Mēwnāy.

The address (on the back side of the page): "From [his] daughter Shēn, from the slave, to lord, sovereign, Nanaiδat"

Text of the letter:

"(1) To lord, sovereign, the son of gods Nanaiδat blessing [and] paying genuflectory obeisance and respect, such as (2) gods receive.[8] And it would be fine day when I could see you healthy, joyful, without illnesses, together with all [related] (3) people. And, sovereign, when I hear about [your good] health I consider myself (4) happy.[9] But here [I] am in trouble, I feel rotten, very bad, and I consider myself [almost] dead (5). Over and over again I send you letters, but I do not receive any letter from you, and I have lost (6) any hope to see you. And in such trouble I have been living for three years in Dunkhuan because of your favour. (7) The first, second and fifth time the road from here has been [opened], (8) but they have not agreed to go with me, so they have told me: "In this case there is no opportunity to accompany you". Then I [asked] them to (9) allocate me to Farnkhund or [which is better] to [my] husband for I would not remain in Dunkhuan any more. (10) But Farnkhund told [me] thus: "I am not a servant of Nanaiδat [and] I have no means to accompany you." And then… (*lacuna*). [And I said]: (11–12) "Allocate me to [my] mother." And then [relatives of my husband] (13) told me thus: "In Dunkhuan there is no closer relative [of your husband] than Artivan." But Artivan [sa]id to Farnkhund thus: (14) "…(*lacuna*)." [And I said thus]: "If [I do not have] instruction for me [on how to act], if there is no trusteeship [over me], then let me [be allocated] to father… (*lacuna*)… (15–16) In fact what can be better than [to be] with father? If I am not [allocated to father] I will [have to] go to serve Chineses." And [then] a noble (17–18) person Afrakhtak who was confident with Chineses and had good [lady's?] cloth, helped [me]. And you, [Nanaiδat], write to me when you will take me away [from here] (19) and that are you going [to do it]. And if you do not take [me] away from here, also write to me [about it]. (20) And I think

(7) I could not translate lines 27–34, dictated by the daughter.

(8) About the meaning of this segment of the letter, see W. B. Henning, Sogdisch βγ''n, *Zeitschrift der Deutschen Morgenländischen Gesellschaft* 90 (Leipzig, 1936) 197–199.

(9) Lit. "and immortal."

that if you do not take me away, I will have to become the servant of Chineses, I will need to learn how to serve Chineses… (*lacuna*). (21) In fact, all these three years I carried out your orders, (22) I have come to Dunkhuan despite objections of my mother and brothers, (23) (*lacuna*) I exactly followed your words. But then [I shall tell you] thus: (24) "It would be better for me to become the wife of a dog or a pig, than yours — now I consider so. (25–26) It is sent from [your] slave Mēwnāy . This letter is written on the tenth of the third month."

In a postscript to the letter, dictated by the daughter, it is clear only that Farnkhund has done some crime. In the end of the postscript it is said thus (line 35): "And because of the offence of Farkhund we became servants of Chineses — me, and also my mother (= Mēwnāy)."

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GREEK (CHRYSOSTOM) AND SYRIAC (EPHREM) ASPECTS OF "AUTHORITY" AS THE IMAGE OF GOD

1. Introduction

This topic has become prominent in current Patristic Studies due to the number of researchers, pursuing the problem of Greek-Syriac bilingualism.[1] And it is of great importance to investigate the interaction of ideas which are contained in these languages themselves. This idea that can be found in the traditions which are often classed together as "Antiochene," can give the answer to the key question of Christian anthropology: What is the image of God in human beings? "Antiochene" writers in both Greek and Syriac give the same answer to the problem of the *imago Dei*: it is "authority." It would be quite difficult to discover the origin of this idea, but at least we can suppose that it was based on a literal exegesis of Gen. 1:26–28. It means that the verses "Let us create man in our image and likeness," and "have dominion over the fish of the sea and over the birds of the air and over the cattle and over the whole earth and over every crawling living thing that crawls upon the earth," were closely connected and the former was interpreted through the latter. One can find such an interpretation in the works of two of the most distinguished representatives of "Antiochene" Christianity: St. John Chrysostom and St. Ephrem the Syrian. Both of them are excellent examples showing Greek and Syriac aspects of the *imago Dei* concept, since they are well-known for a perfect command of their native languages. Chrysostom was a genius of Attic Greek, a brilliant rhetorician, philosopher, and theologian and Ephrem was the greatest poet of the patristic age and the most famous Syriac theologian. Both of them considered the image of God in humans as being "authority." However, they understood the idea in different ways because of lan-

(1) For example, see S. Brock, *From Ephrem to Romanos: Interactions between Syriac and Greek in Late Antiquity* (Aldershot, 1999); R. B ter Haar Romeny, *A Syrian in Greek Dress. The Use of Greek, Hebrew, and Syriac Biblical Texts in Eusebius of Emesa's Commentary on Genesis* (Leuven, 1997).

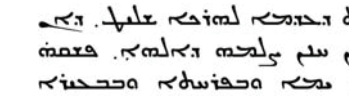
guage differences: Ephrem named it ܫܘܼܠܛܳܢܳܐ (shulṭana) and Chrysostom called it ἀρχή.

2. *ἀρχή and* ܫܘܠܛܳܢ

First of all, the original meanings of both terms should be reconstructed. Since the background of the "Antiochene" concept of the *imago Dei* is Semitic, the Syriac ܫܘܠܛܳܢ ought to be analysed first. The way it is used in the theology and philosophy of St. Ephrem was thoroughly investigated by Robert Murray, S.J.[2] He argued that ܫܘܠܛܳܢ unites three ideas: 1) kingship; 2) free will, and 3) responsibility. Being such a complicated term, ܫܘܠܛܳܢ lost some implicit meanings, when entering Greek-speaking Antioch as ἀρχή. At the same time, the Greek term has its own independent scope of meaning. The best approach for a philosophical sense of ἀρχή was proposed by German hermeneutist Martin Heidegger.[3] He showed that ἀρχή has two key meanings: 1) „das, von woher etwas seinen Ausgang und Anfang nimmt;" and 2) „das, was zugleich als dieser Ausgang und Anfang über das Andere, was von ihm ausgeht, weggreift und so es einbehält und damit beherrscht."[4] Thus, ἀρχή — is not just authority, but it is that kind of authority, which keeps in itself its own origin (αἰτία). In Chrysostom's theology and philosophy ἀρχή is composed of Semitic ideas of ܫܘܠܛܳܢ, on the one hand, and its original sense in Greek philosophy, on the other. The origins of these semantic interactions can be discovered by means of a point-by-point comparison of their spheres of usage, as follows.

2.1. King of Animals

In the world view of St. Ephrem ܫܘܠܛܳܢ generally means kingship, or rather, an honorable position of God's viceroys, who were endowed with authority over the external world, especially over creatures. At the same time for Ephrem, free will and authority are both essential aspects of the *imago Dei* in humankind:



(2) R. Murray, S. J., The Ephremic Tradition and the Theology of the Environment, *Hugoye* 2.1 (1999); accessed at http://syrcom.cua.edu/Hugoye/Vol2No1/HV2N1Murray.html on Dec. 21, 2007.

(3) M. Heidegger, Vom Wesen und Begriff der Physis, in: Idem, *Wegmarken* (Frankfurt am Main, 1967) 309–371.

(4) Heidegger, Vom Wesen und Begriff der Physis... 317.

ܠܟܠ ܡܕܡ ܕܒܪܝܬ ܠܗ ܫܘܠܛܢ ܕܒܥܠ ܡܢ ܕܫܠܝܛ ܒܟܠ ܡܕܡ ܕܒܥܠ ܠܗ ܫܘܠܛܢ ܡܢ ܕܡܠܟ

Anyhow in his works ܚܠܦܐ relates both to human freedom and to the image of kingship with a strong emphasis on the latter:

ܐܝܟ ܡܢ ܚܠܦܐ ܕܥܒܕ ܠܗ ܚܠܦ ܡܢ ܟܠ ܡܕܡ ܕܐܝܬ ܒ

συγχύσεως αἴτιον.[12] Ephrem did not speak about the relationship of authority and subordination, but supposed a kind of network of mutual needs which binds humankind and all other creatures together:

ܐܦ ܒܥܠܡܐ ܕܠܐ ܡܬܢܛܪ ܐܝܬ ܠܡ ܚܕ ܡܢ ܗܠܝܢ ܕܒܕܒܪܐ ܐܝ ܒܕܒܪ ܕܢܚܠܐ ܐܝ ܒܕܒܪ ܕܬܘܪܐ ܐܝ ܒܕܒܪ ܕܥܦܪܐ ܐܝ ܒܕܒܪ ܕܢܘܢܐ ܐܦ ܒܕܒܪ ܕܝܡܐ ܐܦ ܒܕܒܪ ܕܒܥܠ ܡܫܬ

ἔδωκεν, καὶ ἀνθρώποις, τοῖς μὲν τὸ κατὰ σάρκα, τοῖς δὲ τὸν Θεὸν Λόγον.[15] This unity is similar to conjugal relations, where the husband is the head (ἀρχή) and wife is the body,[16] while they are a united being with one image of God. Just as in the "full human" the head (Christ) is ἀρχή since He is the origin and initiator of everything in it, in the same way in marriage man is ἀρχή: ὁ ἀνὴρ εἰκὼν τοῦ Θεοῦ, ἐπειδὴ οὐδὲνα ἔχει ἀνώτερον, καθάπερ οὐδὲ τοῦ Θεοῦ ἀνώτερος τίς ἐστιν, ἀλλὰ πάντων ἄρχει.[17]

3. Conclusions

In this short article a first step has been made concerning the greater problem — a complete comparison of the origins of "Antiochene" anthropologies, including the Greek and Syriac traditions. The importance of this problem can hardly be overestimated: here lies the origin of controversies between these traditions and here also lies the key to solving it. It is easy to see that the free will concept, which was implicit in Ephrem's ܫܘܠܛܢܐ, became later explicit in Greek Antiochene theology. Thus free will was no longer connected with the image of God, since it was considered as ἀρχή. Kingship, which was also implicit in ܫܘܠܛܢܐ (and here one can hear the later Muslim term "sultan"), was not important for the theological and philosophical approach of Chrysostom. When he thought of ἀρχή he envisioned the notion of headship, but headship as an origin.

(15) "[God] has made many authorities and forms of subordination; such as, for instance, of man and wife, that of son and father, that of old men and young, that of slave and free, that of ruler and ruled, that of master and disciple" (John Chrys., *Hom. in ep. ad Rom.* 23; *PG* 60, 615); NPNF 1–11, 511).

(16) John Chrys., *Hom. in ep. ad II Thes*. 5; *PG* 62, 499–500.

(17) "Man is the image of God, since there is nobody over him, the same as there is no one above God, but he originates everything" (John Chrys., *Hom. in Gen*. 2; *PG* 54, 589).

SUMMARY

In Patristic Studies the problem of Greek-Syriac bilingualism has currently become prominent, especially concerning the interaction of ideas, contained in these languages themselves, such as the concept of *imago Dei*. "Antiochene" writers in both Greek and Syriac consider the *imago Dei* in humans as being "authority." However St. John Chrysostom and St. Ephrem, outstanding "Antiochene" thinkers, understood the idea in different ways because of the language differences: Ephrem named it ܫܘܠܛܢܐ (shulṭana) and Chrysostom called it ἀρχή. The background of the concept is Semitic and is presented in Syriac ܫܘܠܛܢܐ in the best way. But this term lost some implicit meanings, while entering Greek-speaking Antioch as ἀρχή. At the same time, ἀρχή has its own independent scope of meaning. Thus, in Chrysostom's works ἀρχή is composed of Semitic ideas and its original sense in Greek philosophy.

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NOTICES SUR L'ATMOSPHÈRE INTELLECTUELLE À L'ÉPOQUE DU SECOND ICONOCLASME

I. Le fondement théologique du dialogue des frères Graptoi et Jean le Grammairien dans la *Vie* de Michel le Syncelle

Dans la *Vie* de Michel le Syncelle, § 13,[1] on trouve un épisode où il s'agit de la rencontre des frères Graptoi avec « un savant capable de parler et d'écouter »,[2] qui tentait de les convertir à l'iconoclasme. M. Cunningham estime,[3] à la suite d'I. Ševčenko,[4] que ce savant était le fameux ἀσεβάρχης, « chef de l'hérésie » Jean le Grammairien, patriarche iconoclaste en 837–843.[5]

Jean demande à Théodore et Théophane pourquoi ils ne se soumettent pas à la définition de « l'orthodoxe Concile qui a condamné l'idolâtrie et l'a chassée de l'Église de Dieu ».[6] Et ensuite il cite le Psaume 113 : 13–15[7] où il s'agit des idoles : « Elles ont une bouche et ne parlent pas, elles ont des yeux et ne voient pas, elles ont des oreilles et n'entendent pas, elles ont un nez et ne sentent pas. Leurs mains, mais elles ne touchent point, leurs pieds, mais ils ne marchent point, de leur gosier, pas un murmure! » — et il ajoute : « Vos choses sacrées, ne sont-elles

(1) M. B. Cunningham, *The Life of Michael the Synkellos* (Belfast, 1991) (Belfast Byzantine Texts and Translations 1) 68–71.

(2) διά τινος λογίου δυναμένου λέγειν τε καὶ ἀκούειν (Ibid., 68.22).

(3) Ibid., 150, n. 103.

(4) I. Ševčenko, Hagiography of the Iconoclast Period, dans : A. Bryer, J. Herrin (eds.), *Iconoclasm. Papers given at the Ninth Spring Symposium of Byzantine Studies. University of Birmingham, March 1975* (Birmingham, 1977) 113–131, cf. 116, n. 19.

(5) L'hagiographe de St. Michel dit qu'il « passera sciemment sous silence » le nom de ce « savant » — οὗ τὸ ὄνομα ἑκὼν ὑπερβήσομαι. Ševčenko pense que la raison en est que Jean vivait encore au moment où la *Vie* a été écrite.

(6) Cunningham, *The Life of Michael the Synkellos*…, 68.25–26. Il s'agit du Concile iconoclaste de Sainte Sophie de 815.

(7) FBJ Ps 115 : 5–7.

pas comme cela ? »[8] En cas de soumission, Jean promet aux deux frères de les combler d'honneurs et même de les faire évêques, et dans le cas contraire, il les menace de mort ; naturellement, Théodore et Théophane refusent d'obéir.

Au premier regard cet épisode ne semble être qu'un *topos* hagiographique n'ayant même pas de rapport établi avec la réalité : on sait que les iconoclastes de la deuxième période avaient décidé de ne pas considérer les icônes comme idoles, et cela a été mentionné justement dans la définition du Concile dont parle Jean le Grammairien.[9] De plus, on peut trouver étrange que Jean, pour montrer qu'il ne convenait pas de vénérer les icônes, ait choisi une citation des Saintes Écritures sur l'absence de la vie dans les idoles.[10]

Cependant, la citation du Ps. 113 pourrait indiquer une particularité de la théologie des iconoclastes et notamment de Jean le Grammairien. L'idée que les images du Christ et des saints sont sans âme (ἄψυχαι) et par conséquent privées de la divinité et indignes d'adoration, était un

(8) Οὐχι καὶ τὰ ὑμῶν σεβάσματα τοιαῦτα εἰσιν; (Cunningham, *The Life of Michael the Synkellos*…, 70.3–4).

(9) Le Concile de 815 proclame son adhésion aux dogmes du Concile de 754 et déclare que la fabrication des icônes est « inutile », mais fait une réserve : il ne faut pas les appeler « idoles » parce qu'il existe « une distinction entre deux maux » — εἴδωλα δὲ ταύτας εἰπεῖν φεισάμενοι· ἔστι γαρ καὶ κακοῦ πρὸς κακὸν ἡ διάκρισις ; cf. P. J. Alexander, The Iconoclastic Council of St. Sophia (815) and Its Definition (*Horos*), *DOP* 7 (1953) 60 (§ 16).

(10) Notons que le même psaume, juste devant la citation faite par Jean, dit que les idôles des païens sont « or et argent, une œuvre de main d'homme » (113 : 12) — τὰ εἴδωλα τῶν ἐθνῶν ἀργύριον καὶ χρυσίον ἔργα χειρῶν ἀνθρώπων, ce qui invoque un des arguments préférés des iconoclastes qui refusaient d'« adorer les choses faites de la main d'homme », προσκυνεῖν χειροποίτα ; le terme jouait un rôle particulier dans la doctrine iconoclaste, surtout au VIII[e] siècle ; cf. V. A. Baranov, *The Theology of Byzantine Iconoclasm (726–843): A Study in Theological Method.* Doctoral Dissertation (Medieval Studies Department, Central-European University; Budapest, 2002) 241–243 (je remercie V. A. Baranov pour la possibilité qu'il m'a donnée, de prendre connaissance de sa dissertation sous forme électronique ; un aperçu de cette dissertation cf. V. Baranov, Byzantine Iconoclasm (726–843): A Study in Theological Method, dans : K. Szende, J. A. Ranson (eds.), *Annual of Medieval Studies at CEU 11* (Budapest, 2005) 275–277); В. А. Баранов, Иконоборческие споры и богословское значение Нерукотворного образа, dans : *Мир Православия* 7 (Волгоград , 2008), à paraître; В. М. *Лурье*, при участии В. А. Баранова, *История византийской философии. Формативный период* (Санкт-Петербург, 2006) 464–466.

des arguments préférés des iconoclastes depuis l'empereur Léon III.[11] Jean le Grammairien développe la même idée des « icônes sans âme » dans une autre direction : selon lui, une image faite en couleurs ne peut représenter un homme de façon exacte, il n'est possible de le faire qu'avec des mots : « Il n'y a pas moyen de décrire l'individu par un autre expédient que l'exposé discursif, lequel permet de saisir chaque être à la manière d'une définition » ;[12] l'homme « se définit : être raisonnable, mortel, capable d'intelligence et de savoir, comment serait-il possible de confier à des ouvrages inanimés et inertes de présenter le mouvement vital ... Les adorateurs du Verbe ne sauraient qualifier mortel ni capable d'intelligence quelconque ou de savoir ce monstre pictural ».[13] Une icône est donc incapable de représenter « le mouvement vital » et comme telle n'est qu'un « monstre pictural » et non pas une vraie image.[14]

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(11) D'après les iconoclastes, la déification du corps du Christ se fait par l'intermédiaire de son âme, mais il est impossible de représenter l'âme sur l'icône, c'est pourquoi les icônes ne peuvent être vénérées car elles sont les images de la chair *morte* ; cette doctine a été énoncée déjà dans l'inscription par laquelle (avec la Croix) on a remplacé l'icône du Christ au-dessus de la porte de Chalcè (*PG* 99, 435–478) ; cette inscription affirme que le Christ ne doit être représenté « muet et inanimé » (ἄφωνον εἶδος καὶ πνοῆς ἐξηρμένον). Pour les détails, cf. В. А. Баранов, Богословская интерпретация иконоборческой надписи в Халки, dans : *История и теория культуры в высоком образовании*, вып. 2 (Новосибирск, 2004) 181–186. Baranov a démontré que cette inscription avait été faite par Léon III au début du premier iconoclasme. Cf. aussi V. A. Baranov, The Role of Christ's Soul-Mediator in the Iconoclastic Christology, dans : G. Heidl, R. Somos (eds.), *Origeniana Nonna* (Leuven, 2008), à paraître.

(12) Le fragment II de Jean publié par J. Gouillard, Fragments inédits d'un antirrhétique de Jean le Grammarien, *RÉB* 24 (1966) 171–181; voir 173–174 (texte grec) et 175 (traduction citée ici).

(13) Le fragment III, ibid., 174 (texte) et 176 (traduction). Dans ce fragment, il s'agit de l'impossibilité de décrire « l'homme en général (ὁ καθόλου ἄνθρωπος) » ; que l'humanité du Christ est incirconscriptible comme une nature commune, c'était l'argument attribué à Jean le Grammairien lui-même ; cf. B. Lourié, Le second iconoclasme en recherche de la vraie doctrine, *SP* 34 (2001) 150–155 ; l'auteur montre qu'une source possible dont Jean aurait peu s'inspirer était la doctrine origéniste du patriarche Eutychius de Constantinople ; cf. Лурье, *История византийской философии*…, 471–475.

(14) V. A. Baranov montre bien que Jean le Grammairien utilisait les œuvres d'Aristote pour son argumentation : В. А. Баранов, Аристотель в иконоборческом споре: на чьей стороне?, dans : С. Н. Малахов (ред.), Н. Д. Барабанов (сост.), *Византия: общество и Церковь* (Армавир, 2005) 134–

Ainsi, la citation du Ps. 113 sur les idoles sans mouvement attribuée dans la *Vie* de Michel le Syncelle au « savant » iconoclaste correspond à la doctrine iconoclaste sur les icônes comme images sans mouvement et sans âme,[15] et par là même confirme l'hypothèse que l'interlocuteur des frères *Graptoi* mentionné dans la *Vie* de Michel le Syncelle n'était autre que Jean le Grammarien.

II. Jean le Grammairien et le monastère de Théotokos τῶν Ψιχᾶ

On sait que le dernier patriarche iconoclaste Jean VII, détrôné en 843, a achevé ses jours dans sa maison de campagne, τὸ προάστειον αὐτοῦ, qui se trouvait à l'endroit nommé τὰ Ψιχά.[1] Il est possible que Jean s'y soit rendu après avoir passé quelque temps dans le monastère du Kleidion[2] où il avait été exilé en 843.[3] P. Lemerle croyait, à mon sens

146. À propos de la doctrine des iconoclastes sur les icônes privées du « mouvement vital » cf. Baranov, *The Theology of Byzantine Iconoclasm*..., 73–76 (Motionless Idols: Fifth Parallel). Comme Baranov fait remarquer, « "le mouvement vital (ζωτικὸς κίνησις)" de Jean le Grammairien peut être identifié avec l'âme car il est fondé sur un raisonnement sur l'âme de *Phèdre* de Platon où elle est définie comme la vie et le mouvement » (Баранов, Аристотель в иконоборческом споре..., 139).

(15) Cette citation était évidemment parmi les arguments préférés des iconoclastes, car dans le Psautier *Pantokrator 61* il y a même une miniature qui présente David le Psalmiste disputant avec Jean le Grammairien sur la juste interprétation de ce psaume ; cf. L. Brubaker, J. Haldon, *Byzantium in the Iconoclast Era (*ca *680–850): the Sources. An annotated survey* (Aldershot, 2001) (Birmingham Byzantine and Ottoman Monographs 7) 46–47.

(1) Theophanes Continuatus, *Chronographia*, dans : I. Bekker (ed.), *Theophanes Continuatus, Ioannes Cameniata, Symeon Magister, Georgius Monachus* (Bonn, 1838) (CFHB) 151.16–17 ; Symeon Magister, *Chronographia*, dans : ibid., 649.4–5.

(2) Ce monastère, μονὴ τοῦ Κλειδίου, se trouvait probablement sur la rive européenne du Bosphore : R. Janin, *Constantinople byzantine. Développement urbain et répertoire topographique* (Paris, 1964) (Archives de l'Orient Chrétien 4A) 472 ; idem, *Le siège de Constantinople et le Patriarcat Oecuménique. Les églises et les monastères* (Paris, 1969) (Géographie ecclésiastique de l'Empire Byzantin) 280–281.

(3) Tous les recits sur le sort de Jean après sa dépositon mentionnés par les chronistes sont examinés chez P. Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin. Notes et remarques sur enseignement et culture à Byzance des origines au Xe siècle* (Paris, 1972) (Bibliothèque Byzantine: Études 6) 144–145, n. 152.

justement, qu'« en fait, il y a toutes raisons de penser que Théodora ne persécuta point Jean, et que celui-ci acheva tranquillement ses jours dans sa propriété de Psicha ».[4]

Mais où se trouvait τὰ Ψιχά ? R. Janin place la propriété de Jean sur la côte européenne du Bosphore, en l'identifiant avec celle d'Arsabère, frère de Jean,[5] où le Grammairien aurait pratiqué la divination.[6] R.-J. Lilie est plus prudent : la dernière résidence du patriarche détrôné était « ein Landgut des Ioannes oder seiner Familie in Psicha ».[7] Je pense qu'il ne faut pas confondre les propriétés de Jean et d'Arsabère. Le Continuateur de Théophane, en parlant de toutes les deux, se prononce assez nettement : la propriété magnifique où ὁ πατριάρχης [Jean] συχνὰς ποιῶν καταγωγὰς,[8] appartenait à son frère Arsabère,[9] et plus tard celui-ci l'a vendue au futur empereur Basile I qui l'a transformée en monastère de Saint-Phocas ;[10] or la propriété à Psicha où Jean le Grammairien a fini ses jours était *la sienne*, τὸ προάστειον αὐτοῦ.[11]

Evidemment, non loin de cette propriété de Jean se situait le couvent de Théotokos τῶν Ψιχᾶ[12] dont l'higoumène était saint Jean le Psichaïte, confesseur de l'époque du second iconoclasme, mort peu après 820.[13] À en juger de sa *Vie*, son couvent, dévasté par les Bulgares en 813,[14] se trouvait en dehors de Constantinople ; R. Janin le place dans la région de Saint-Phocas[15] pour la raison que c'est là qu'il faut cher-

(4) Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin...*, 144–145, n. 152.

(5) Janin, *Constantinople byzantin...*, 478 ; idem, *Le siège de Constantinople...*, 243.

(6) Theophanes Continuatus, *Chronographia...*, 156–157 (§ 8).

(7) R.-J. Lilie, Ioannes VII. (837–843), dans : idem (Hrsg.), *Die Patriarchen der ikonoklastischen Zeit. Germanos I. — Methodios I. (715–847)* (Frankfurt am Main—Berlin—Bern—New York—Paris—Wien, 1999) (Berliner byzantinistische Studien 5) 177.

(8) Theophanes Continuatus, *Chronographia...*, 156.21.

(9) Ibid., 156.16–20.

(10) Ibid., 157.9–12. Ce monastère se trouvait à l'Ortaköy d'aujourd'hui ; cf. Janin, *Le siège de Constantinople...*, 498–499.

(11) Theophanes Continuatus, *Chronographia...*, 151.16.

(12) Janin, *Le siège de Constantinople...*, 242–243.

(13) La Vie de ce saint cf. P. van den Ven, La vie grecque de saint Jean le Psichaïte, confesseur sous le règne de Léon l'Arménien (813–820), *Le Muséon* 21 (1902) 103–125.

(14) Ibid., 112–113 (§ 6).

(15) Janin, *Le siège de Constantinople...*, 243.

cher le site de la propriété de Jean le Grammairien et donc de Psicha ; mais on a vu que cette identification est incertaine.

En revanche, à propos de la *Vie* de St. Jean le Psichaïte on peut faire une observation intéressante. Ce texte contient une invective contre les sciences profanes : l'hagiographe déclare que St. Jean se préoccupait des « sciences divines » jour et nuit et n'avait point besoin de la grammaire, ni des « niaiseries d'Homère » avec ses « mythes, fiction et culte des démons », ni du « mensonge de rhétorique » avec ses « sophismes », ni de l'astronomie, ni de la géométrie, ni de l'arithmétique ; il dédaignait tout cela ὡς ἀνυπάρκτων ὄντων. L'auteur de la *Vie* finit cette philippique à l'adresse des sciences profanes par une insulte à Platon.[16] On se rappelle tout de suite que le fameux « voisin » du monastère de Psicha, Jean le Grammairien avait la réputation d'un homme très instruit et d'un redoutable disputeur, fort en rhétorique et connaissait bien les œuvres des auteurs antiques. Comme l'a dit P. Lemerle, « il n'y a pas de raison de refuser le témoignage d'un canon chanté en l'honneur du rétablissement des images, faussement attribué à Théodore Stoudite, et qui doit être du patriarche Méthode » ;[17] l'auteur de ce canon[18] dit que Jean « modifiait par écrit » les dogmes des Pères et des Apôtres (ode 6, tropaire 4), « s'est montré l'égal des Hellènes en s'enorgueillant de la connaissance de leurs oeuvres » (ode 7, tr. 4), et qu'il aurait dû s'appeler, non pas Jean, mais « Pythagore, Kronos ou Apollon » (ode 7, tr. 6).[19]

On peut donc supposer que les invectives de la *Vie* de Saint Jean le Psichaïte contre les sciences profanes soient en rapport avec la personne de Jean le Grammairien ; peut-être le célèbre ἀσεβάρχης et « sophiste » était encore en vie et habitait près du couvent de Psicha quand le biographe de son saint higoumène écrivait les dénigrements

(16) van den Ven, La vie grecque de saint Jean le Psichaïte..., 109–110.

(17) Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin*..., 142. Sur ce canon qui est en effet une œuvre de S. Méthode, cf. J. Gouillard, Deux figures mal connues du seconde iconoclasme, *Byzantion* 31.2 (1961) 380–384.

(18) Cf. Τριώδιον κατανυκτικόν, περιέχον ἅπασαν τὴν ἀνήκουσαν αὐτῷ ἀκολουθίαν τῆς ἁγίας καὶ μεγάλης Τεσσαρακοστῆς (Ἐν Ρώμῃ, 1879) 233–240.

(19) À ce propos Lemerle, non sans moquerie, note : « On aimerait à croire que ce fut, à l'inverse, l'une des raisons pour lesquelles Michel II (820–829) en fit le précepteur de son fils, Théophile » (Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin*..., 143).

à l'adresse de la rhétorique, la grammaire et la sagesse « des Hellènes ».[20]

III. Saint Théodore le Stoudite, l'empereur Michel II et Thomas le Slave

Notes en marge d'un livre de D. Afinogenov

D. Afinogenov a déjà publié deux livres traitant diverses questions de la période du deuxième iconoclasme.[1] Je me propose de faire une analyse détaillée des idées et des interprétations de l'auteur dans un article à part, et ici je me bornerai à un sujet concernant les relations entre St Théodore le Stoudite et l'empereur Michel II pendant la révolte de Thomas le Slave.

Afinogenov pense que S. Théodore n'était pas loyal envers Michel le Bègue parce qu'il « ne s'est pas montré trop sévère » à l'égard de Thomas.[2] Les arguments de l'auteur sont les suivants : 1) Michel est entré en pourparlers avec Grégoire Ptérôtos à l'aide d'un moine studite ; 2) au début de la révolte de Thomas, Michel n'a fait venir à Constantinople que « Théodore et ses gens » et non pas le patriarche Nicéphore et « son entourage » parce que ceux-ci « étaient hostiles à Thomas sans compromis » ; 3) dans une de ses catéchèses Théodore montre une attitude « étonnement neutre » envers le rebelle.[3]

Tous ces arguments ne sont pas convaincants.

1) On croira difficilement que l'empereur a pu envoyer un homme qui ne lui était pas loyal avec une mission aussi importante que les pourparlers avec un révolté. Et de plus, d'après le Continuateur de

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(20) Jean le Grammairien était encore en vie en 847 (cf. Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin*..., 144, n. 151) et même pouvait rester en vie jusqu'à 856 ou 863; cf. R.-J. Lilie, C. Ludwig, Th. Pratsch, I. Rochow (Hrsg.), *Prosopographie der Mittelbyzantinischen Zeit*. Erste Abteilung (641–867) (Berlin, 1998) 327–328, # 3199.

(1) *Д.* Е. Афиногенов, *Константинопольский Патриархат и иконоборческий кризис в Византии (784–847)* (Москва, 1997), et idem, *«Повесть о прощении императора Феофила» и Торжество Православия* (Москва, 2004) (Scrinium Philocalicum IV).

(2) Афиногенов, *«Повесть о прощении императора Феофила»*…, 41 ; l'auteur y développe les idées tracées dans son *Константинопольский Патриархат*…, 137.

(3) Афиногенов, *«Повесть о прощении императора Феофила»*…, 43–44.

Théophane, la femme et les enfants de Grégoire étaient emprisonnés, et Ptérôtos cherchait à obtenir la grâce pour lui-même et pour ses proches ;[4] il aurait été étrange s'il avait pu, dans ces conditions, laisser sans réponse un envoyé de l'empereur en raison de sa loyauté « trop grande » envers Michel.

2) Ce point de l'argumentation d'Afinogenov repose sur le fait que S. Nicéphore est resté en dehors de la Ville pendant la révolte et a retenu chez lui S. Nicétas de Medikion, selon la *Vie* de Nicétas. À cette raison, Afinogenov déduit que « l'ordre impérial ne concernait pas tous les militants de la résistance orthodoxe ». Mais l'auteur de cette même *Vie* de Nicétas dit que « *tous* les pères théophores sont entrés à Byzantion » en fuyant Thomas, quant à Nicéphore il a appelé Nicétas etc.[5] On ne sait pas pourquoi l'indication de la *Vie* de Théodore le Stoudite (*Vita B*) que « l'ordre impérial a réuni les partisans de Nicéphore, patriarche inspiré par Dieu, à Constantinople » semble à Afinogenov « une tentative de dissimuler quelque chose » (parce que le chef de ces partisans est resté en dehors de la capitale), alors que la phrase identique de la *Vie* de Nicétas (et même avec la précision « tous » !) n'éveille pas de pareils soupçons. Avec le même résultat peut-on supposer que « les partisans du patriarche » de la *Vie* de Théodore indiquent purement et simplement les orthodoxes, et que Michel II n'a pas fait venir le patriarche disgracié à Constantinople par crainte de sa propagande en faveur de Thomas parmi les habitants de la capitale. Pour ma part, je pense que Nicéphore a pu retenir Nicétas par crainte que l'hégoumène ne soit entraîné de nouveau par les iconoclastes.[6] Il nous manque

(4) Theophanes Continuatus, dans : I. Bekker, *Theophanes Continuatus, Ioannes Cameniata, Symeon Magister, Georgius Monachus* (Bonnae, 1838) (CSHB) 63.5–8.

(5) Ce passage n'est conservé que dans la *Vie* slavonne de Nicétas ; D. Afinogenov a traduit cette *Vie* en russe d'après les textes grec et slavon : *Д. Е. Афиногенов, Житие преподобного отца нашего Константина, что из иудеев. Житие св. исповедника Никиты, игумена Мидикийского* (Москва, 2001) (Святоотеческая письменность) 97–146 ; le passage en question est situé à la page 137 (§ 48).

(6) On sait que Nicétas est tombé dans la communion avec les hérétiques (cf. Theosterict *Vita Nicetae Medicii*, § 40–41) et que même après sa repentance il n'était pas tout à fait ferme : par exemple, il trouvait admissible la conduite de certain Maximine que S. Théodore le Stoudite estimait comme absolument intolérable pour un orthodoxe (pour les détails cf. mon article dans le volume présent : La confession de Théophane et Théodore les Graptoi : remarques et précisions, p. 283, n. 125).

des données pour accepter les conclusions d'Afinogenov dont la base est de plus assez fragile comme on va voir.

3) En raison d'une phrase de S. Théodore : ὧδε ἡμεῖς ἄλλον βασιλέα κηρύσσομεν, οἱ ἀδελφοὶ ἡμῶν ἔξω ἕτερον « Nous proclamons ici un empereur, et nos frères en dehors un autre »,[7] Afinogenov conclut qu'« une déclaration si étonnement neutre inspire des doutes sérieux sur la loyauté absolue de Théodore à Michel ». L'auteur répète cet argument d'un livre à l'autre[8] sans s'apercevoir que ces mots du Stoudite n'ont aucun rapport avec la révolte de Thomas. Les « Grandes Catéchèses » datent de la période avant le second iconoclasme, et la Catéchèse 3, aussi bien que les suivantes, parle d'une vie normale dans le monastère, et en outre Théodore y mentionne constamment « les prières de notre père », c'est à dire de Platon qui était alors encore en vie.[9] Mais pour la Cat. 3 nous pouvons établir une date précise : au début des Catéchèses 4, 5 et 6 Théodore fait mention de la même révolte et dans la Cat. 6 dit : κατὰ τὰς ἁμαρτίας μου, ἐν αἷς ἀφῄρηται τὸ καλὸν τῆς εἰρήνης, εἰσαχθείσης διχονοίας ἐν τοῖς χριστιανοῖς, καὶ ἄρτι ἠσφάλισται ἡ πόλις καὶ φρουρεῖται ὑπὸ στρατιωτικῆς χειρὸς ἐπὶ πᾶν αὐτῆς μέρος, **ἐπὶ τῷ Χρυσοπόλεως περάματι παρεμβαλόντων τῶν ἀνταράντων ἀδελφῶν ἡμῶν καὶ ὁπλιζομένων καταλήψεσθαι τὴν πόλιν ὡς νοσσιάν.**[10] Cette Catéchèse est la dernière où S. Théodore mentionne cette révolte. Mais on sait que les troupes de Thomas ne se sont jamais installés sous Chrysopolis : le rebelle a installé son camp près du monastère des Saints Anargyres (le Cosmidion) qui était situé sur la Corne d'Or, en face des Blachernes. En revanche, on lit chez Théophane le Confesseur qu'en 803, τῇ δὲ ιθ τοῦ Ἰουλίου μηνός ... Βαρδάνης, ὁ πατρίκιος καὶ στρατηγὸς τῶν ἀνατολικῶν, ὁ ἐπίκλην Τοῦρκος, **ἀνηγορεύθη εἰς βασιλέα** ὑπὸ τῶν περατικῶν θεμάτων· ... καὶ **κατελθὼν ἕως Χρυσοπόλεως** καὶ **περιπολεύσας**

(7) Νικοδήμου Σκρέττα, Ὁσίου πατρός ἡμῶν Θεοδώρου Στουδίτου, *Μεγάλη Κατηχήσις*, Βιβλίον δεύτερον (Θεσσαλονίκη, ²1987) 33–34 (Κατ. 3) (désormais : *Μεγάλη Κατηχήσις*).

(8) *Д.* Е. Афиногенов, Об идейно-политической ориентации «Хроники» Георгия Амартола, dans : *Византийские очерки. Труды российских ученых к XIX международному Конгрессу византинистов* (Москва, 1996) 94 ; idem, *Константинопольский Патриархат*… 137 ; idem, *«Повесть о прощении императора Феофила»*…, 43.

(9) Cela se voit de la Cat. 7 : εἰ μὴ φόβος πολὺς παρακοῆς με **τοῦ κοινοῦ πατρὸς** ἐπίεζε (*Μεγάλη Κατηχήσις*, 47).

(10) *Μεγάλη Κατηχήσις*, 42.

ἡμέρας η καὶ μὴ δεχθεὶς ὑπὸ τῆς πόλεως ὑπέστρεψεν ἕως τῶν Μαλαγίνων,[11] et après cela la révolte de Bardanès Tourkos était finie. Voici donc « ici un empereur, et en dehors un autre », Chrysopolis et quelques (pour le moins 8) jours pendant lesquels Théodore a prononcé ses Catéchèses 3–6 de la 2ème partie de Μεγάλη Κατηχήσις. Nous sommes en juillet 803, 18 ans avant la révolte de Thomas. S'il est possible de parler de manque de loyauté envers un empereur chez S. Théodore, c'est envers Nicéphore I, ce qui est tout à fait compréhensible, surtout pour l'année 803 : l'homme qui venait de détrôner l'impératrice S. Irène, grande amie des Stoudites, ne pouvait pas avoir la sympathie de ceux-ci.

Nous découvrirons davantage en lisant les «Petites Catéchèses» que S. Théodore a prononcé en 821–826. Au commencement de la Cat. 124 l'hégoumène dit : « Frères et pères, assez de temps est passé depuis que nous avons suspendu les catéchèses habituelles et notre ordre commun, dispersés çà et là à cause de l'incursion des Hagrites ».[12] Cela veut dire, en premier lieu, que pendant son séjour dans la capitale en 821–823 S. Théodore n'a point prononcé ses catéchèses parce que ses moines étaient assurément dispersés, et en second lieu, que pour les Stoudites les révoltés (leurs compatriotes tout de même !) étaient pareils *aux Arabes* : un vrai signe de manque de sévérité envers Thomas ![13]

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(11) C. de Boor, Theophanis *Chronographia*, vol. 1 (Leipzig, 1883) 479.15–20.

(12) Ἀδελφοὶ καὶ πατέρες, ἱκανὸν χρόνος παρελήλυθεν ἀφ᾽ οὗπερ διεκόπημεν τῆς συνήθους κατηχήσεως καὶ τῆς ἐν τοῖς ἀλλήλοις εὐταξίας, ἐκ τοῦ ὧδε κἀκεῖσε περιφέρεσθαι τῇ τῶν Ἀγαρηνῶν ἐπιδρομῇ (Νικοδήμου Σκρέττα, Τοῦ ὁσίου πατρός ἡμῶν Θεοδώρου Στουδίτου, *Μικρὰ Κατηχήσις*, (Θεσσαλονίκη, 1984) 315) ; Skretta pense, sûrement à tort, qu'il s'agit des vrais Arabes (cf. p. 374, n. 1).

(13) Que le nom « Arabes » pour les révoltés était habituel chez Théodore, on le voit de sa lettre à Pierre, évêque de Nicée, où la rébellion de Thomas est nommée ἡ τῶν Ἀράβων ἔφοδος (G. Fatouros (ed.), Theodori Studitae *Epistulae*, 2 vols. (Berlin—New York, 1992) (CFHB SB 31) vol. 2, 683 (Ep. 475.3)) ; cf. Th. Pratsch, *Theodoros Studites (759–826) — zwischen Dogma und Pragma. Der Abt des Studiosklosters in Konstantinopel im Spannungsfeld von Patriarch, Kaiser und eigenem Anspruch* (Frankfurt am Main—Berlin—Bern—New York—Paris—Wien, 1998) (Berliner byzantinistische Studien 4) 273. On peut ajouter que S. Théodore était en correspondance avec le patrice Olbianos, stratège du thème des Arméniaques sous Michel II, qui est resté fidèle à l'empereur ; cf. Theodori Studitae *Epistulae*..., vol. 2, 816–818 (Ep. 541), et les notes de Fatouros, vol. 1, 479*–480*, qui date cette lettre de 823.

Ainsi on peut conclure que S. Théodore pendant la révolte de Thomas le Slave était tout à fait loyal envers l'empereur Michel et ne montrait aucune sympathie pour les révoltés.

IV. Le Philosophe et le Théologien : à propos de l'homélie de Léon le Mathématicien sur l'Annonciation

L'homélie sur l'Annonciation, œuvre de Léon le Mathématicien et Philosophe, une grande figure du IXe siècle,[1] éditée par V. Laurent,[2] a été fort sévèrement appréciée par son éditeur ainsi que par P. Lemerle : « elle est tout à fait singulière », « ne témoigne pas d'un grand souci d'édification », nous sommes en présence d'un discours « plus d'un érudit que d'un pasteur », « davantage l'œuvre d'un savant et curieux antiquaire que d'un pieux ecclésiastique » ;[3] cette homélie « nous lais-

(1) Les données et la bibliographie sur Léon cf. R.-J. Lilie, C. Ludwig, Th. Pratsch, I. Rochow (Hrsg.), *Prosopographie der Mittelbyzantinischen Zeit*. Erste Abteilung (641–867) (Berlin, 1998) # 4440. Pour le moment, la meilleure étude sur Léon reste, à mon sens, le chapitre VI de l'excellent livre de P. Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin. Notes et remarques sur enseignement et culture à Byzance des origines au Xe siècle* (Paris, 1972) (Bibliothèque Byzantine: Études 6) 148–176 (Léon le Philosophe (ou le Mathématicien) et son temps); traduction anglaise: P. Lemerle, *Byzantine Humanism. The First Phase. Notes and remarks on education and culture in Byzantium from its origins to the 10th century* (Canberra, 1986) (Byzantina Australiensia 3) 171–204. Malgré son passé iconoclaste et sa déposition en 843, Léon était fort estimé par ses contemporains, et sa mémoire est même avec les saints : d'après le *Synaxaire de Constantinople*, on la célèbre 30 octobre (cf. C. De Smedt, I. De Backer, F. Van Ortroy, I. Van den Gheym, H. Delehaye, A. Poncelet (eds.), *Propylaeum ad Acta Sanctorum Novembris. Synaxarium Ecclesiae Constantinopolitanae* (Bruxellis, MDCCCCII; CD-éd.: Cambridge, 2002) 178.35–36).

(2) V. Laurent, Une homélie inédite de l'archevêque de Thessalonique Léon le Philosophe sur l'Annonciation, 25 mars 842, dans : *Mélanges E. Tisserant*, II (Città del Vaticano, 1964) (Studi e Testi 232) 281–302 (texte cf. p. 297–302) ; cf. ma traduction russe de cette homélie : Монахиня Кассия (Т. А. Сенина), Слово Льва Математика и Философа, сказанное на праздник Благовещения Пресвятой Богородицы, 25 марта 842 г. Перевод с древнегреческого и комментарий, dans : *Межвузовский периодический сборник научных трудов «История и теория культуры в вузовском образовании»*, вып. 4 (Новосибирск, 2008) 227–232.

(3) Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin*…, 157.

serait plutôt une assez piètre idée de l'orateur sacré » qui se présente comme un « élève de Pythagore ».[4]

Cependant cette appréciation me paraît tout à fait injuste. Du premier regard, on voit que l'archevêque de Thessalonique imite S. Grégoire le Théologien dont les discours servaient de modèle à tous les orateurs byzantins. Léon commence son homélie par l'aperçu de toutes les fêtes du Seigneur ; comment ne pas se rappeler les mots de S. Grégoire : « Que de solennité pour moi dans chacun des mystères du Christ ! »[5] Le Théologien, on le sait, commençait souvent ses homélies « quelque peu de loin », tellement de loin que les auditeurs montraient de l'impatience, et l'orateur remarquait d'un ton railleur : «Ἀλλὰ τί τούτων ἡμῖν;» τάχα ἂν εἴποι τις τῶν λίαν φιλεόρτων καὶ θερμοτέρων, «Κέντει τὸν πῶλον περὶ τὴν νύσσαν. Τὰ τῆς ἑορτῆς ἡμῖν φιλοσόφει, καὶ οἷς προκαθεζόμεθα σήμερον». *Τοῦτο δὴ καὶ ποιήσω, καὶ εἰ μικρὸν ἄνωθεν ἠρξάμην, οὕτω τοῦ πόθου καὶ τοῦ λόγου βιασαμένων*.[6] C'est justement ce que fait le Philosophe devant les Thessaloniciens 25 mars 842.

Mais l'imitation de Grégoire par Léon ne finit point là. Dans la partie de l'homélie qui semble particulièrement « singulière » aux savants français, le Philosophe suit le Théologien si strictement qu'il cite à plusieurs reprises ses homélies sur Pâques et surtout sur la Pentecôte. Ces citations sont restées inaperçues par V. Laurent et P. Lemerle. Ici je voudrais les montrer en présentant les passages parallèles des homélies de Léon et de Grégoire.[7]

L'homélie de S. Léon	**Les homélies de S. Grégoire**
§ 2, de Pâques	Orat. 45, *In Sanctum Pascha*
Πάσχα, ὃ μετά μικρὸν πανηγυρίζομεν, **τὸ μέγα τε καὶ σεβάσμιον** *Φασὲκ*[8] **τοῖς**	Τὸ **Πάσχα** τοῦτο, **τὸ μέγα τε καὶ σεβάσμιον,** *Φάσκα* **τοῖς**

(4) Laurent, Un homélie inédite…, 286.

(5) Πόσαι μοι πανηγύρεις καθ᾽ ἕκαστον τῶν τοῦ Χριστοῦ μυστηρίων! (Orat. 38, *In Theophania*, *PG* 36, 329.40–41.)

(6) Cf., par exemple : Ibid., 321, l. 27–33, ou Orat. 45, *In Sanctum Pascha*, Ibid., 636.18–23.

(7) Les parallèles littérales sont en caractères gras ; les parallèles non littérales sont en italique. Pour l'homélie de S. Léon j'indique les pages et les lignes de l'édition de V. Laurent ; pour les homélies de S. Grégoire, les colonnes et les lignes de *PG* 36.

(8) Léon emploie ici le mot désignant la Pâques israélite dans la traduction grecque de *2 Chronicles* : 30 : 1–2,5,15,17–18, variante Φασέχ — 35 : 1,6–

Ἑβραίοις *προσαγορευόμενον* **κατὰ τὴν ἐκείνων φωνήν· δηλοῖ δὲ ἡ φωνὴ τὴν διάβασιν, ἱστορικῶς μὲν διὰ τὴν ἐξ Αἰγύπτου πρὸς τὴν Χαναναίαν φυγὴν καὶ μετανάστασιν, πνευματικῶς δὲ διὰ** τὴν ἐκ τοῦ σκότους (τοῦτο γὰρ Αἴγυπτος ἑρμηνεύεται) εἰς τὸ φῶς τῆς εὐσεβείας μετάβασιν καὶ **τὴν ἐκ τῶν κάτω πρὸς τὰ ἄνω καὶ τὴν γῆν τῆς ἐπαγγελίας πρόοδον καὶ ἀνάβασιν·**[9]

Ἑβραίοις *προσαγορεύεται* **κατὰ τὴν ἐκείνων φωνήν· δηλοῖ δὲ ἡ φωνὴ τὴν διάβασιν· ἱστορικῶς μὲν διὰ τὴν ἐξ Αἰγύπτου πρὸς τὴν Χαναναίαν φυγὴν καὶ μετανάστασιν· πνευματικῶς δὲ διὰ τὴν ἐκ τῶν κάτω πρὸς τὰ ἄνω καὶ τὴν γῆν τῆς ἐπαγγελίας πρόοδον καὶ ἀνάβασιν·**[10]

§ 3, de la Pentecôte

Orat. 41, *In Pentecosten*

Τὴν δὲ **Πεντηκοστὴν ἡμέραν τιμῶσι μὲν Ἑβραῖοι, τιμῶμεν δὲ καὶ ἡμεῖς, ὥσπερ ἐστί τινα καὶ ἄλλα τῶν Ἑβραϊκῶν τυπικῶς μὲν παρ᾽ ἐκείνοις τελούμενα, μυστικῶς δὲ ἡμῖν ἀποκαθιστάμενα·** κατὰ γὰρ τὴν **Πεντηκοστὴν Πνεύματος ἐπιδημίαν** ἡμεῖς **ἑορτάζομεν, Ἑβραίων** δὲ **παῖδες τὴν ἑβδομάδα τιμῶσιν ἐκ τῆς Μοϋσέως νομοθεσίας** καί **οἱ Πυθαγορικοὶ** δὲ **τὴν τετρακτὺν ὕστερον καὶ τὴν ὀγδοάδα καὶ** τὴν **τριακάδα οἱ ἀπὸ Σίμωνος καὶ Μαρκίωνος, οἷς δὴ καὶ ἰσαρίθμους αἰῶνας ἐπονομάζουσι.** Τιμῶσι δ᾽ οὖν Ἑβραῖοι τὴν ἑβδόμην· **ἡ τιμὴ δὲ αὐτοῖς οὐκ ἐν ἡμέραις μόνον, ἀλλὰ καὶ εἰς** *ἑβδομάδας ἐνιαυτῶν* **φθάνουσα.** *Ἐν ἡμέραις μὲν οὖν* τιμάται **τὸ σάββατον·** ἑβδομὴ γὰρ ἀπὸ τῆς πρώτης ἐστίν, *εἰς ἐνιαυτοὺς δὲ* **ὁ ἑβδοματικὸς ἐνιαυτὸς τῆς ἀφέσεως· αἱ** δὲ **τῶν ἡμερῶν ἑβδομάδες γεννῶ-**

<…> τιμῶσι μὲν Ἑβραῖοι τὴν Πεντηκοστὴν ἡμέραν, τιμῶμεν δὲ καὶ ἡμεῖς· ὥσπερ ἐστί καὶ ἄλλα τινὰ τῶν Ἑβραϊκῶν, τυπικῶς μὲν παρ᾽ ἐκείνοις τελούμενα, μυστικῶς δὲ ἡμῖν ἀποκαθιστάμενα·[11] **<…> Πεντηκοστὴν ἑορτάζομεν, καὶ Πνεύματος ἐπιδημίαν**[12] **<…> Τὴν ἑβδομάδα τιμῶσιν Ἑβραίων παῖδες ἐκ τῆς Μοϋσέως νομοθεσίας,** ὥσπερ **οἱ Πυθαγορικοὶ τὴν τετρακτὺν ὕστερον,** ἣν δὴ καὶ ὅρκον πεποίηνται· **καὶ τὴν ὀγδοάδα καὶ τριακάδα οἱ ἀπὸ Σίμωνος καὶ Μαρκίωνος, οἷς δὴ καὶ ἰσαρίθμους τινὰς αἰῶνας ἐπονομάζουσι.**[13] **<…> Ἡ τιμὴ δὲ αὐτοῖς οὐκ ἐν ἡμέραις**

9,11,13,16–18; cf. aussi Jer 38 : 8. Dans d'autres passages des Saintes Écritures le mot hébreu פֶּסַח se traduit par le mot grec Πάσχα.

(9) 297.5–10.

(10) 636.27–33.

(11) 436.7–11; le fin de § 4.

(12) 436.15–16; le début de § 5.

(13) 429.33–38; § 2.

σι τὴν Πεντηκοστὴν κλητὴν ἁγίαν ἡμέραν· ὁ γὰρ ἑπτὰ ἀριθμὸς *ἐφ᾽* **ἑαυτὸν συντιθέμενος** μθ᾽ ποιεῖ. <...> Ἐπειδὴ δὲ διατυπῶν ὁ νόμος σκιαγραφεῖ τὴν ἀλήθειαν, ᾠκονόμησε τὸ Πνεῦμα μίαν αὐτοῖς προστιθέναι τοῖς μθ᾽ καὶ τὴν Πεντηκοστὴν ἑορτάζειν, προδηλώσαντος τοῦ δεσπότου Θεοῦ διὰ τῆς *προληφθείσης* **μιᾶς ἡμέρας·** ἣν ἑορτάζομεν ἡμέραν πνευματικῶς οἱ πιστοί.[14] <...> Διὰ τούτο, ὡς προείρηται, καὶ ὁ Κύριος ἡμῶν Ἰησοῦς ὁ Χριστὸς κατὰ **τὴν ὀγδόην καὶ πρώτην** τῶν ἡμερῶν ἐκ νεκρῶν ἀνέστη· ὡσαύτως δὲ κατὰ **τὴν πρώτην καὶ ὀγδόην** τῶν ἑβδομάδων, ἥτις ἐστὶν ἡ Πεντηκοστή, τὸ ἅγιον ἡμῖν ἐπεδήμησε Πνεῦμα, ἵνα μάθωμεν, δι᾽ ὧν ἐν τῷ βίῳ τούτῳ σαρκικῶς καὶ **πνευματικῶς** *ἑορτάζομεν*, ὡς μετὰ τὸ πληρωθῆναι τὸν ἑβδοματικὸν τοῦτον κόσμον ἐν τῷ ὑπὲρ χρόνον καὶ μέτρον αἰῶνι πανηγυρίσωμεν ἀκαταπαύστως ὅσοι κατὰ τὸ εἰρημένον ἑτοιμάσωμεν τὰ ἔργα ἡμῶν εἰς τὴν ἔξοδον, **ὡς δοθῆναι μερίδα τοῖς ἑπτὰ καί γε τοῖς ὀκτὼ καθὼς** καὶ *Σολομῶντι* δοκεῖ. Ὥσπερ δὲ ἐν ἑβδομάσιν οὕτως καὶ ἐν ἔτεσι συντιθέντες τὸν ἑπτὰ ἐφ᾽ ἑαυτὸν ἀριθμὸν τὸ τεσσαρακοστὸν ἔννατον ἔτος παραδραμόντες τὸ πεντηκοστὸν ἔτος ἑορτάζουσιν αἰνιττομένου καὶ ἐν τούτῳ τοῦ νόμου τὴν πρῶτην καὶ ὀγδόην τοῦ μέλλοντος αἰῶνος ἡμέραν. **ἰωβηλαῖον** δὲ τοῦτον τὸν ἐνιαυτὸν *ὀνομάζουσι* **γῆς τε ἄφεσιν ἐχοντα καὶ δούλων ἐλευθερίαν καὶ κτήσεων ὠνητῶν ἀναχώρησιν**.[15]

μόνον, ἀλλὰ καὶ εἰς *ἐνιαυτοὺς* **φθάνουσα.** *Ἡ μὲν οὖν τῶν ἡμερῶν*, **τὸ Σάββατον**, τοῦτο δηλοῖ τὸ συνεχῶς παρ᾽ αὐτοῖς τιμώμενον, καθὸ καὶ ἡ τῆς ζύμης ἄρσις ἰσάριθμος· *ἡ δὲ τῶν ἐτῶν*, **ὁ ἑβδοματικὸς ἐναυτὸς τῆς ἀφέσεως**.[16] ... Αἱ μὲν οὖν **τῶν ἡμερῶν ἑβδομάδες γεννῶσι τὴν Πεντηκοστὴν κλητὴν ἁγίαν** παρ᾽ αὐτοῖς **ἡμέραν**·[17] <...> **ὁ γὰρ ἑπτὰ** *ἐπὶ* **ἑαυτὸν συντιθέμενος**, γεννᾷ τὸν πεντήκοντα, **μιᾶς** δεούσης **ἡμέρας**, ἣν ἐκ τοῦ μέλλοντος αἰῶνος *προσειλήφαμεν*, **ὀγδόην** τε οὖσαν **τὴν** αὐτὴν **καὶ πρώτην**, μᾶλλον δὲ μίαν καὶ ἀκατάλυτον. Δεῖ γὰρ ἐκεῖσε καταλῆξαι τὸν ἐνταῦθα Σαββατισμὸν τῶν ψυχῶν, **ὡς δοθῆναι μερὶδα τοῖς ἑπτὰ καί γε τοῖς ὀκτὼ καθὼς** ἤδη τινὲς τῶν πρὸ ἡμῶν τὸ *Σολομώντειον* ἐξειλήφασι.[18]

Διὰ ταῦτα μὲν οὖν *ἑορταστέον* **πνευματικῶς**.[19]

<...> αἱ δὲ τῶν ἐτῶν, τὸν **Ἰωβυλαῖον** παρ᾽ αὐτοῖς *ὀνομαζόμενον*, ὁμοίως **γῆς τε ἄφεσιν ἐχοντα, καὶ δούλων ἐλευθερίαν, καὶ κτήσεων ὠνητῶν ἀναχώρησιν.**[20]

(14) 297.13–298.29.
(15) 298.43–299.56.
(16) 429.49–50; 432.1–4; § 2.
(17) 432.6–8; § 2.
(18) 432.15–23; le fin de § 2.
(19) 429.29; le début de § 2.
(20) 432.8–11; § 2.

§ 5, de l'Annonciation	Orat. 45, *In Sanctum Pascha*
Αὕτη [l'Annonciation] *οὖν* **ἡμῖν** εἰκότως **ἑορτῶν ἑορτή**, αὕτη **πανήγυρις πανηγύρεων**, αὕτη πηγὴ τῶν ἑορτῶν·[21]	**Αὕτη** [les Pâques] **ἑορτῶν ἡμῖν ἑορτή, καὶ πανήγυρις πανηγύρεων**[22] <...>

Notons encore que Léon nomme la Nativité d'une manière un peu archaïque : Γενέθλια, et non Γέννεσις, — justement comme le fait S. Grégoire.[23]

Probablement, si les savants français avaient aperçu ces parallèles, Léon aurait été en butte à de nouveaux reproches, cette fois de plagiat. Mais une pareille critique serait injuste elle aussi. La citation était propre aux œuvres des Byzantins : ils *pensaient par citations* et connaissaient par cœur une grande quantité de textes, non seulement des Saintes Écritures, mais aussi des Pères.[24] Assurément, les auditeurs de Léon devaient reconnaître les citations des sermons de S. Grégoire, mais je doute que cela ait pu les irriter ; au contraire, ils auraient plutôt été ravis en voyant l'art avec lequel l'archevêque relie les citations et les insère dans son homélie.

En examinant des œuvres pareilles, il faut prendre en considération qu'il ne s'agit pas de « singularités » des auteurs ni de plagiat en tant que tel ; c'est un style déterminé, une manière tout à fait habituelle pour les byzantins qui aimaient et savaient reconnaître les citations des Écritures et des auteurs préférés, chrétiens comme profanes.[25] Bien entendu, les homélies byzantines se distinguent des sermons que l'on peut entendre à l'Église de nos jours : les hommes d'aujourd'hui trouvent excessif ce que les byzantins considéraient comme plaisant et

(21) 299.86–87.

(22) 624.30–31. Cf. l'hirmos de la 8e ode du canon des Pâques : Αὕτη ἡ κλητὴ καὶ ἁγία ἡμέρα ... ἑορτῶν ἑορτὴ, καὶ πανήγυρίς ἐστι πανηγύρεων...

(23) Cf., par exemple : Orat. 38, *In theophania*, *PG* 36, 313.35 et 44.

(24) Cette pratique était l'effet de la *méditation sur les Écriture divines*, une des occupations principales des moines ; cf. pour les détails B. M. Лурье, *Призвание Авраама. Идея монашества и ее воплощение в Египте* (Санкт-Петербург, 2000) (Богословская и церковно-историческая библиотека) 48–53.

(25) On peut se rappeler l'épisode de la *Chronographie* de Michel Psellos où un flatteur de la cour, en citant deux mots d'Homère seulement, a su calmer l'indignation des courtisans obligés d'escorter Sclérène, maîtresse de l'empereur Constantin IX ; cf. E. Renauld, Michel Psellos, *Chronographie ou histoire d'un siècle de Byzance (976–1077)*, t. I–II (Paris, 1926–1928) t. I, 146 (ch. 6, sect. 61.1–10) ; trad. russe : Я. Н. Любарский, Михаил Пселл, *Хронография. Краткая история* (Санкт-Петербург, 2003) (Византийская библиотека) 90.

gracieux. Ainsi, S. Grégoire le Théologien dans son *Homélie sur la Pentecôte*, en commençant ses raisonnements sur la symbolique des nombres,[26] dit : « Car il faut parler, même si notre parole s'écarte un peu du sujet, sur ce qui est l'objet du zèle des amateurs des sciences, pour que nous ajoutions à la fête quelques délices ».[27]

V. Ἡ γυνὴ φιλόσοφος: S. Cassia de Constantinople et Platon

Les sources des épigrammes de Cassia et la façon dont elle les remanie ont été jusqu'à présent insuffisamment étudiées, malgré que les vers profanes de cette poétesse byzantine aient été examinés dans quelques études.[1] M. Lauxtermann a mis en évidence quelques sources

(26) Justement ceux que Léon le Mathématicien a répétés et pour lequels il est devenu l'objet d'une critique si sévère.

(27) *PG* 36, 439.30–33 : Ῥητέον γὰρ, καὶ εἰ μικρόν τι παρεκβατικώτερος ἡμῖν ὁ λόγος, καὶ φιλοπονητέον τοῖς φιλολόγοις, ἵν᾽ ὥσπερ ἥδυσμά τι τῇ πανηγύρει συγκαταμίξωμεν.

(1) Toute la bibliographie antérieure à 1967 est ramassée dans I. Rochow, *Studien zu der Person, den Werken und dem Nachleben der Dichterin Kassia* (Berlin, 1967) (Berliner Byzantinische Arbeiten 38) 59–72 et les notes. L'ouvrage d'A. Tripolitis, *Kassia: the Legend, the Woman, and her Work* (New York—London, 1992) contient la traduction anglaise de tous les vers de Cassia (p. 106–141), mais presque rien (et au moins rien de nouveau) sur ses sources. Les épigrammes de Cassia ont été examinées d'une manière assez détaillée par M. D. Lauxtermann, *The Byzantine Epigram in the Ninth and Tenth Centuries. A Generic Study of Epigrams and Some Other Forms of Poetry* (Amsterdam, 1994) 110–127. Une très belle étude a été consacrée aux vers profanes de Cassia par E. V. Malteze, Una contemporanea di Fozio, Cassia. Osservazione sui versi profani, dans : M. Salvadore (a cura di), *La poesia tardoantica e medievale. Atti del I Convegno Internazionale di Studi. Macerata, 4–5 maggio 1998* (Alessandria, 2001) 71–83 ; l'auteur soumet à la critique (qui me semble juste) certaines conclusions de Lauxtermann. Cf. aussi l'étude E. V. Maltese, Lettura di Cassia, dans : F. De Martino (a cura di), *Rose di Pieria* (Bari, 1991) 339–361. Les travaux de Maltese semblent être restés inconnus à l'auteur d'un article récent sur Cassia : A. M. Silvas, Kassia the Nun c. 810 – c. 865: an appreciation, dans : L. Garland (ed.), *Byzantin Women: Varieties of Experience 800–1200* (Aldershot, 2006) 17–40 (je remercie bien Dr. Silvas qui a voulu m'envoyer son article en fichier). A. Silvas cite une étude qui me reste inaccessible : J. A. Bentzen, *A Study of the Liturgical and Secular Works of Blessed Kassia, Byzantine Nun and Poet* (Unpublished MA Thesis: University of New England, Australia, 1994).

de l'œuvre de Cassia : ce sont la tradition ésopique, Ménandre, Euripide, S. Grégoire le Théologien, la Bible et la tradition dite monastique, en premier lieu S. Jean Climaque. E. Malteze a fait remarquer quelques procédés caractéristiques de la poétesse et quelques sources de ses épigrammes qui n'avaient pas été relevées dans les études antérieures.[2]

Dans l'étude présente je voudrais mettre en relief encore une source possible des vers de Cassia et la méthode du remaniement de ces sources propre à la poétesse.

Une série de ses épigrammes commence par le mot κρεῖσσον. Il y en a quatre qui se succèdent et semblent représenter un bloc :[3]

Κρεῖσσον μόνωσις τῆς κακῆς συνουσίας.
« La solitude plutôt qu'une vicieuse[4] société ».

Κρεῖσσον καὶ νόσος τῆς κακῆς εὐεξίας.
« Et une maladie plutôt qu'une vicieuse santé ».[5]

Κρεῖσσον ἀσθενεῖν ἢ κακῶς ὑγιαίνειν.
« Il vaut mieux être infirme qu'être sain mal ».

Κρεῖσσον σιωπᾶν ἢ λαλεῖν ἃ μὴ θέμις.
ἐκ σιωπῆς γὰρ οὐ κίνδυνος, οὐ μῶμος,
οὐ μετάμελος, οὐκ ἔγκλησις, οὐχ ὅρκος.
« Il vaut mieux se taire que dire des choses inconvenantes.[6]

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(2) Par exemple, il a relevé une parallèle avec le roman d'Achille Tatius « Leucippe et Clitophon » (Maltese, Una contemporanea di Fozio, Cassia…, 77–78) ; cela me paraît important pour l'examen des relations de Cassia avec ses contemporains illustres, tels que Photius et Léon le Mathématicien, cf. plus bas.

(3) Cod. Brit. Mus. Addit. 10072, édition de K. Krumbacher, Kasia, *Sitzungsberichte der philosophisch-philologischen und der historischen Classe der k.b. Academie der Wissenschaften* (1887) Heft. 1, 360.77–82.

(4) On verra plus bas pourquoi je traduis κακῆς de Cassia comme 'vicieuse' et non pas 'mauvaise', par exemple, comme l'ont fait A. Tripolitis (*Kassia*..., 131.22) et E. Lipšic (« дурное » en russe : Е. Э. *Липшиц*, *Очерки истории византийского общества и культуры VIII – первая половина IX века* (Москва—*Л*енинград, 1961) 323, №№ 39–40).

(5) Tripolitis traduit ce vers comme « Illness is better than poor *ability* » (Tripolitis, *Kassia*..., 131.23), et Lipšic comme « *Л*учше и болезнь, чем дурное *благополучие* [c'est-a-dire *prospérité*] » (*Л*ипшиц, *Очерки истории византийского общества и культуры*..., 323, № 40) ; à mon avis, cela ne reflète pas le sens de l'original, surtout en tenant compte de la source de ce vers, cf. plus bas.

(6) C'est une citation de *Comparatio Menandri et Philistionis* : κρεῖττον σιωπᾶν ἢ λαλεῖν ἃ μὴ θέμις (S. Jäkel, Menandri *Sententiae* (Leipzig, 1964) Sect. 1.129). Mais cf. 2 Macc. 12 : 14: λαλοῦντες ἃ μὴ θέμις.

Car dans le silence il n'y a ni danger, ni défaut,[7]
ni regret,[8] ni accusation, ni jure ».[9]

Μέγα τὸ κέρδος τῆς καλῆς συμμετρίας.
« Un grand gain est dans une belle proportion ».[10]

Les 2ème et 3ème épigrammes sont très intéressantes à cause d'une parallèle possible avec Respublica de Platon:

Κρεῖσσον καὶ νόσος τῆς **κακῆς εὐεξίας.**
Κρεῖσσον *ἀσθενεῖν* ἢ **κακῶς *ὑγιαίνειν*.**

Ἀρετὴ μὲν ἄρα, ὡς ἔοικεν, ***ὑγίειά*** τέ τις ἂν εἴη καὶ κάλλος καὶ **εὐεξία** ψυχῆς, **κακία** δὲ νόσος τε καὶ αἶσχος καὶ *ἀσθένεια*.[11]

« Par suite, la vertu est, ce semble, santé, beauté, bonne disposition de l'âme, et le vice[12] maladie, laideur et faiblesse ».[13]

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(7) Le mot μῶμος « défaut, tare, infirmité, tache » est employé assez souvent dans l'Ancien Testament (Lev 21 : 17–18,21,23 ; 22 : 20–21,25 ; Deut 15 : 21 ; 17 : 1 ; Num 19 : 2 ; Song 4 : 7 ; Sir 11 : 31,33 ; 18 : 15 ; 33 : 23 ; 47 : 20). Il semble que la parallèle la plus proche est Sir 20:24: μῶμος πονηρὸς ἐν ἀνθρώπῳ ψεῦδος ἐν στόματι ἀπαιδεύτων ἐνδελεχισθήσεται « C'est une grave souillure pour un homme que le mensonge, il est ressassé par les ignorants ». Cf. la même expression — μῶμος πονηρὸς — en Deut 15 : 21 employée pour indiquer quel animal on ne doit pas immoler à Dieu.

(8) Une allusion possible aux mots de S. Arsène le Grand: λαλήσας, πολλάκις μετεμελήθην, σιωπήσας δὲ οὐδέποτε — « Après avoir parlé je le regrettais souvent, et jamais après m'être tu » (Περὶ τοῦ ἀββᾶ Ἀρσενίου, 40 — *Apophthegmata patrum* (collectio alphabetica); *PG* 65, 105C).

(9) C'est apparemment une allusion à la défense aux chrétiens de jurer: Jam 5 : 12; cf. Matt 5 : 35.

(10) Bien que cette dernière épigramme commence autrement, je pense qu'on doit la rapporter au même bloc (et aussi par la façon dont elle est composée, voir plus bas), tandis que l'épigramme qui la suit — Εἰ μισεῖς τὸ ψέγεσθαι, τινὰ μὴ ψέξῃς « Si tu hais d'être reproché, ne reproche pas à personne » (l. 84) — semble se rapporter au bloc suivant d'épigrammes (l. 85–92) qui toutes commencent par le mot μισῶ « je hais ».

(11) Livre IV, 444de; l'édition de J. Burnet, Platonis *Opera*, vol. 4 (Oxford, 1902; repr. 1968).

(12) Ici κακία chez Platon signifie 'le vice' ; c'est pourquoi j'ai gardé cette parallèle en traduisant les vers de Cassia, voir n. 4.

(13) Je cite la traduction du prof. E. Chambry qui se trouve sur Internet sur le site *L'antiquité grecque et latine* :
http://remacle.org/bloodwolf/philosophes/platon/loisindex.htm#REP

Cette parallèle suggère que la célèbre poétesse byzantine non seulement lisait Platon, mais utilisait ses œuvres de façon créative. On voit que Cassia remanie Platon en employant ses mots et ses idées pour exprimer un autre sens. Platon parle de l'âme, de sa santé et de sa maladie, et ce qu'il en dit n'est point contradictoire au christianisme ; cependant Cassia parle de la santé et de la maladie du corps et veut dire que si un homme est vicieux, la santé lui est inutile ; elle souligne que pour l'homme la santé de l'âme est beaucoup plus importante que la santé du corps.[14]

On ne sait pas si Cassia a lu les œuvres de Platon dans le texte ou dans une anthologie. Le texte de *Respublica* est inséré, par exemple, dans l'anthologie de Jean Stobeus[15] que le patriarche Photius examine dans le codex 167 de sa *Bibliothèque*. Quoi qu'il en soit, Cassia était sans doute liée avec les cercles de Photius et de Léon le Mathématicien, et ils lisaient évidemment les mêmes livres.[16]

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(14) Ces deux épigrammes montrent les particularités caractéristiques de la méthode de Cassia notées par E. Malteze : elle partage les composantes de la sentence modèle en faisant deux gnomes isolées (cf. Maltese, Una contemporanea di Fozio, Cassia…, 74, sur le remaniement d'une sentence de Climent d'Alexandrie par Cassia) et change l'idéologie du texte qu'elle emploie (cf. ibid., 79, sur l'épigramme des femmes créée par Cassia d'après le texte de 1 Ezras 3 : 12).

(15) C. Wachsmuth, O. Hense, Ioannis Stobaei *Anthologium*, 5 vols. (Berlin, 1–2 : 1884 ; 3 : 1894 ; 4 : 1909 ; 5 : 1912) ; le passage que nous intéresse se trouve dans le livre 3, ch. 9, sect. 61.131–133.

(16) Il y en a un témoignage qui me semble assez clair : tous les trois ont lu le roman d'Achille Tatius sur Leucippe et Clitophon — une lecture apparemment peu typique pour les pieux byzantins, surtout pour les moines. Photius a estimé le roman comme indécent et vicieux (Cod. 87 de la *Bibliothèque*) ; mais Léon a écrit sur le roman une épigramme où il indique le moyen de tirer profit de la lecture, en interprétant l'histoire des héros d'une façon allégorique (H. Beckby, *Anthologia Graeca*, t. 3 (München, 1975) 124 ; cf. P. Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin. Notes et remarques sur enseignement et culture à Byzance des origines au Xe siècle* (Paris, 1972) (Bibliothèque Byzantine : études 6) 169) ; Cassia a utilisé le roman pour écrire deux épigrammes-paraphrases (cf. plus haut, n. 2). J'en ai déjà fait mention dans mon article sur Cassia et Théophile : T. A. Сенина (монахиня Кассия), *Диалог Феофила и Кассии: литературная выдумка или реальность?*, *Scr* 2 (2006) 240–272, cf. 244–245, n. 25. Sur l'intérêt de Léon le Mathématicien et de Photius pour la philosophie grecque antique cf., par ex. : J. Irigoin, Survie et renouveau de la littérature antique à Constantinople (IXe siècle), *Cahier de Civilisation Médievale X^e–XIIe siècles* 5 (1962) 292–300, et Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin*...,

Cependant on peut trouver une partielle parallèle avec ces épigrammes de Cassia dans Sirach 30:14–15, où il s'agit de la supériorité de la santé sur tous les biens du monde ; ces versets sont insérés dans *Sacra parallela* de Jean Damascène avec le sous-titre Περὶ ὑγείας· καὶ ὅτι πάντων διαφέρει — « Sur la santé et qu'elle surpasse tout » :

> **Κρείσσων** πτωχὸς ὑγιὴς, ἢ πλούσιος μεμαστιγωμένος εἰς σῶμα αὐτοῦ.
> *Ὑγεία* καὶ **εὐεξία** παντὸς χρυσίου βελτίω· σῶμα εὔρωστον, ἢ ὄλβος ἄμετρος.[17]
>
> « Mieux vaut un pauvre sain qu'un riche éprouvé dans son corps.
> Santé et vigueur[18] valent mieux que tout l'or du monde, mieux qu'une immense fortune ».

Les première et troisième épigrammes représentent peut-être une autre parallèle avec *Sacra parallela* :

> Πολλαὶ μὲν τοῦ βίου τοῦ πολυπαθοῦς αἱ ὁδοί· ἄλλη δὲ ἀλλοίαις βλάβαις συμμίσγεται· (...) ἡ **μόνωσις** δὲ, *ἀσθένεια*.[19]
>
> « Il y a beaucoup de voies dans la vie remplie de souffrances, et chacune est liée avec son mal : (...) la solitude avec une infirmité ».

Il est possible que Cassia ait employé en même temps Platon et *Sacra parallela* ;[20] mais on voit qu'elle « discute » avec les sources où elle puise ses allusions en changeant le sens de ses modèles.

La 4ème épigramme du bloc est un exemple d'une méthode propre non seulement à Cassia mais aux auteurs de gnomes en général : la

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167–176 (Léon), 189–204 (Photius); Photius avait cependant plus de réserve à l'égard de Platon que Léon.

(17) *PG* 96, 380B.

(18) Ici le sens du mot εὐεξία est plus proche de sa traduction dans le vers de Cassia proposée par Tripolitis ; d'ailleurs je crois que le sens des épigrammes indique une autre signification, ce qui affirme que la poétesse avait Platon comme source de son inspiration.

(19) *PG* 95, 1124C.

(20) M. D. Lauxtermann (*The byzantine Epigram…*, 122) a noté que *Sacra parallela* jouaient une grande rôle pour la tradition monastique ; mais je ne sais pourquoi il appelle ce recueil «one of the most popular Byzantine gnomologies», car c'est tout de même un autre genre, non pas de diverses épigrammes mais des citations des Saintes Ecritures et des Pères d'Église classeés selon les sujets.

première partie de l'épigramme est une citation, le reste représente un développement exégétique de l'extrait.[21]

Enfin, la dernière épigramme semble résumer tous les gnomes de ce groupe. Après avoir examiné les cas où un bien apparent (relations avec les gens, santé) est pire que son contraire (solitude, maladie ou infirmité, silence), Cassia dit que le meilleur est « une belle proportion ». M. Lauxtermann pense que cette épigramme appartient à la tradition ésopique ;[22] mais je pense que cette question est discutable, à en juger par le contexte qui est pour ce groupe d'épigrammes plutôt philosophique. La notion de proportion, συμμετρία, est une des notions fondamentales dans la philosophie grecque antique : Platon dit que « c'est dans la mesure et la proportion que se trouvent partout la beauté et la vertu » ;[23] Aristote développe ce sujet en détail dans son *Éthique de Nicomaque* (Livre II), mais il emploie la notion de moyenne, τὸ μέσον ou ἡ μεσότης : la vertu est « la juste moyenne entre deux extrémités fâcheuses, l'une par excès, l'autre par défaut ».[24] Les notions de συμμετρία et de μεσότης sont passées dans l'ascétique chrétienne ; par exemple, S. Isidore de Péluse dans une lettre dit : « ... le sommet de la beauté de l'âme est la proportion des vertus. Car les extrémités tombent en vice, comme certains des sages ont démontré ... C'est pourquoi ils ont défini la vertu comme la moyenne ».[25] On trouve aussi un passage parallèle au groupe d'épigrammes en question dans le *Timée* de Platon : « Par rapport à la santé et à la maladie, à la vertu et au vice, il n'y a rien de plus important que la proportion ou la disproportion entre l'âme comme telle et le corps comme tel » — πρὸς γὰρ ὑγιείας

(21) Cf. Maltese, Una contemporanea di Fozio, Cassia…, 76.

(22) Lauxtermann, *The Byzantine Epigram*…, 118–119.

(23) Platon, *Philèbe* (Burnet, Platonis *Opera*..., vol. 2, 64e.6–7) : μετριότης γὰρ καὶ συμμετρία κάλλος δήπου καὶ ἀρετὴ πανταχοῦ συμβαίνει γίγνεσθαι ; je donne la traduction française du prof. E. Chambry :
http://remacle.org/bloodwolf/philosophes/platon/philebefr.htm.

(24) I. Bywater, *Aristotelis ethica Nicomachea* (Oxford, 1894 ; repr. 1962) 1107a.2–3 : μεσότης δὲ δύο κακιῶν, τῆς μὲν καθ᾽ ὑπερβολὴν τῆς δὲ κατ᾽ ἔλλειψιν ; trad. fr. de J. Voilquin :
http://remacle.org/bloodwolf/philosophes/Aristote/nicom2.htm#V.

(25) Livre III, lettre 131, à l'évêque Lampétios (*PG* 78, 832AB) : τοῦ ψυχικοῦ κάλλους ἔσχατος ὅρος, ἡ τῶν ἀρετῶν συμμετρία. Εἰ γὰρ αἱ ἀκρότητες εἰς κακίαν ἐκπίπτουσιν, ὥς τινες τῶν σοφῶν ἀπεφήναντο ... Διὸ καὶ μεσότητας εἶναι τὰς ἀρετὰς ὡρίσαντο.

καὶ νόσους, ἀρετάς τε καὶ κακίας οὐδεμία συμμετρέα καὶ ἀμετρία μείζων ἢ ψυχῆς αὐτῆς πρὸς σῶμα αὐτό.[26]

Ces allusions possibles sur Platon dans l'œuvre de Cassia nous amènent à une question fort intéressante. P. Lemerle suppose que Léon le Mathématicien et Photius avaient chacun son cercle d'élèves[27] et que Constantin le Sicilien qui a attaqué Léon pour son attachement à la science hellénique est l'auteur de l'épigramme sur sa « conversion » par Photius.[28] Il remarque que Photius montrait beaucoup plus de réserve envers les auteurs profanes que Léon,[29] « un véritable "homme de la Renaissance" »[30] dont un des surnoms était même *Hellène*,[31] alors que Photius, malgré son vif intérêt pour toutes les sciences, se présente en premier lieu comme « l'homme de foi qui l'emporte en lui ... et l'homme d'Église ».[32] S'il en est ainsi, on peut supposer que le cercle de Léon était plus « hellénique » et, pour ainsi dire, plus libéral que celui de Photius.[33] À en juger par les vers de Cassia où elle montre de l'intérêt pour Platon, comme on vient de voir, et ne se montre pas sévère à la littérature antique,[34] la poétesse byzantine était liée plus étroitement

(26) Burnet, Platonis *Opera*..., vol. 4, 87d.1–3.

(27) Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin*..., 164–165.

(28) Ibid., 172–173, et n. 95.

(29) Cela se voit dans l'attitude de l'un et de l'autre envers le roman d'Achille Tatios (cf. ci-dessus, n. 16) ; Photius se montre sévère envers Platon avec sa théorie des Idées et plus favorable à Aristote, mais « partout la science sacrée est exaltée, la science profane rabaissée, et parfois en termes plus brutaux que nous ne l'attendrions » (Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin*..., 201–202). Léon, au contraire, a entrepris la *diorthôsis* du texte de Platon (cf. ibid., 167–169) et nous a laissé une épigramme sur lui-même pleine d'allusions sur la littérature antique (cf. ibid., 175–176).

(30) Ibid., 148.

(31) Ibid., 175.

(32) Ibid., 202.

(33) Il reste à savoir si la lettre de Photius concernant une tournure pléonastique employée dans l'Écriture (= n° 106 des *Amphilochia*), sévère au destinataire coupable d'avoir critiqué la langue des Écritures (donc un « libéral »), est adressée à Léon le Mathématicien ; cf. ibid., 168, n. 72.

(34) Ses épigrammes-paraphrases sur le roman d'Achille Tatios suggèrent qu'elle ne trouvait pas ce livre trop « indécent », à la différence de Photius, mais l'a traité avec certain humour. Est-ce encore l'attitude un peu « libérale » dans son épigramme-paraphrase de 1 Ezras 3 : 12 ?.. Cf. Maltese, Una contemporanea di Fozio, Cassia…, 79, qui remarque que ἀλήθεια ayant la valeur absolue chez Ezras se transforme en μετὰ τῆς ἀληθείας chez Cassia.

avec le cercle de Léon. Bien entendu, ni Cassia ni Léon n'étaient des « libéraux d'église » dans le sens moderne,[35] mais ils étaient apparemment plus « hellénistes » que beaucoup de leurs contemporains.

Dans ce contexte, on pourrait considérer d'un autre point de vue les vers de Cassia contenant des accusations passionnées des sots. Ce qui semble être une attaque contre la folie (μωρία) au sens biblique,[36] contre l'empereur Théophile[37] ou même contre Michel III,[38] pouvait être réaction d'une nouvelle Hypatie aux fanatiques tels comme Constantin le Sicilien qui envoyait Léon le Mathématicien « dans l'Hadès, avec sa science et son impiété, retrouver Chrysippe et Socrate, Proklos et Platon, Aristote et Épicure, et ses chers amis les Euclide et les Πτολεμαστρονόμοι en compagnie d'Homère, Hésiode et Aratos : les philosophes, les savants, les poètes de la Grèce ».[39]

(35) Cela se voit clairement dans les œuvres hymnographiques de Cassia et dans la seule homélie conservée de Léon où il se montre un pieux chrétien et de plus un excellent connaisseur de S. Grégoire le Théologien (cf. plus haut ma notice : Le Philosophe et le Théologien : à propos de l'homélie de Léon le Mathématicien sur l'Annonciation).

(36) Lauxtermann, *The Byzantine Epigram*…, 126.

(37) Comme pense Lipšic (*Липшиц, Очерки истории византийского общества и культуры*..., 321) ; j'ai déjà montré ailleurs pourquoi cette hypothèse doit être écartée : Сенина, *Диалог Феофила и Кассии*…, 268 et n. 119.

(38) Comme suppose A. Silvas (Silvas, Kassia the Nun...). La « stupidité » et l'« ivrognerie » de Michel ont été assurément exagérées par les chronistes (cf. H. Grégoire, Études sur le neuvième siècle, *Byzantion* 8 (1933) 531–538 ; R. Jenkins, Constantine VII's Portrait of Michael III, dans : idem, *Studies on Byzantine History of the 9th and 10th Centuries* (London, 1970) (Variorum Reprints) 71–77 ; Я. Н. *Любарский*, Царь-мим (К проблеме образа византийского императора Михаила III), dans : *Византия и Русь* (Москва, 1989) 56–64), cependent même chez le Continuateur de Théophane Michel, en proposant de proclamer empereur Basilikin au lieu de Basil récite les vers, probablement de sa propre rédaction et à l'impromptu (*Theophanes Continuatus*, dans : I. Bekker, *Theophanes Continuatus, Ioannes Cameniata, Symeon Magister, Georgius Monachus* (Bonnae, 1838) (CSHB) 208.10–20), et cet épisode peut déjà ôter crédit à la version sur l'empereur qui « a perdu l'esprit ».

(39) Lemerle, *Le Premier humanisme byzantin*..., 173.

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ICONOCLASTS AND KHAZARS, A NOTE

The date of the Khazar conversion to Judaism has been a matter of debate for a long time.[1] Now we can date the conversion more or less precisely, for recently Khazar *dirham*s minted in 837–838, found in Sweden, which bear the Arabic inscription *la Ilâha illâ-LLâh wa Mûsâ rasûlu ALLâh* ("there is no god but God, and Moses is his messenger," instead of *wa Muhammada rasûlu ALLâh*, "and Muhammad is his messenger") and a *tamğa,* intended for circulation in the Caliphate and proclaiming the Biblical identity of the Khazars,[2] assure that the conversion to Judaism took place not later than the first half of the ninth century. This disconnects the date of the conversion with the mission of the Thessalonica / Solun' brothers (861).[3]

However, a Byzantine Iconoclast dimension of the Khazar conversion to Judaism should be considered.[4] Emperor Leo III the Isaurian (r. 717–741) had special connections with the Khazars throughout almost all of his career, beginning with his service under Justinian II (who had a Khazar wife) starting in 705 and his mission to Lazica, in order to forge a coalition against al-Walîd I; while an Emperor, he fought the

(1) For the survey of the previous views and a new dating, see P. B. Golden, The Conversion of the Khazars to Judaism, in: H. Ben-Shammai, P. B. Golden, A. Roná-Tas (eds.), *The World of the Khazars: New Perspectives. Selected Papers from the Jerusalem 1999 International Khazar Colloquium* (Leiden: Brill, 2007) 123–162.

(2) R. K. Kovalev, What Does Historical Numismatics Suggest About the Monetary History of Khazaria in the Ninth Century? — Question Revisited, *AEMA* 13 (2004) 97–129; Idem, Creating Khazar Identity through Coins: The Special Issue Dirhams of 837/8, in: F. Curta (ed.), *East Central Europe in the Early Middle Ages* (Ann Arbor, 2005) 220–253.

(3) As reconstructed in C. Zuckerman, On the Date of the Khazars' Conversion to Judaism and the Chronology of the Kings of the Rus' Oleg and Igor. A Study of the Anonymous Khazar Letter from the Genizah of Cairo, *RÉB* 53 (1995) 237–270. See also: D. D. Y. Shapira, Notes on Early Jewish History in Eastern and Central Europe: The Rus', Khazar and Bulgar Dimensions, *AEMA* 16 (2006–2007) forthcoming; see also J. Howard-Johnston, Byzantine Sources for Khazar History, in: Ben-Shammai, Golden, Roná-Tas, *The World of the Khazars...*, 163–194; C. Zuckerman, The Khazars and Byzantium — The First Encounter, in: Ben-Shammai, Golden, Roná-Tas, *The World of the Khazars...*, 399–432.

(4) I am grateful to Kassia Senina, who drew my attention to this aspect.

Arabs as an ally of the Khazar Qağan. Leo initiated conversions of Jews and heretics in 722 and Iconoclasm in 726–729, apparently aiming, *i.a.*, both to attract the forcibly converted Jews to a non-image-worshipping form of Christianity and being influenced by the military successes of the Muslims who did not worship images.[5] During the period of 730–780 (corresponding to the first Iconoclastic Period in Byzantium), many Iconodule monks found themselves in areas beyond Byzantium on the fringes of the Empire, including Georgia, Khazaria and the Crimea; as for the Jews, they may have fled following the forced conversion of 722. Following the great Khazar invasion into the lands of the Khalifate and their victories at Ardabîl, Diyâr Bakr and Mosul (730),[6] Leo chose

(5) On the possible impact of Islam on Byzantine Iconoclasm, see P. Crone, Islam, Judeo-Christianity and Byzantine Iconoclasm, *Jerusalem Studies in Arabic and Islam* 2 (1980) 59–95. On the Jews of the Empire, see J. Starr, *Jews in the Byzantine Empire 641–1204* (Athens, 1939); S. B. Bowman, *The Jews of Byzantium, 1204–1453* (Tuscaloosa, AL: The University of Alabama Press, 1985); see also D. Obolensky, *The Byzantine Commonwealth: Eastern Europe, 500–1453* (London: Weidenfeld and Nicolson, 1971; Crestwood, NY: St. Vladimir's Seminary Press, 1982). Islam and Iconoclasm were frequently seen by the "Orthodox" as two similar forces, see D. Sahas, The Arab Character of the Christian disputation with Islam. The case of John of Damascus (ca. 655 – ca. 749), in: B. Lewis, F. Niewöhner, O. Harrassowitz (Hrsg.), *Religionsgespräche im Mittelalter* (Wiesbaden, 1992) 185–205, p. 192.

(6) It is curious that more than two centuries later, the battle of Ardabil (730) was seen by the Khazar king as a turning point in the conversion to Judaism. According to the Long Version of the Reply of King Joseph sent to Hisdai ibn Shaprut in Cordoba, Spain, after Bulan and the Khazars converted 340 (!) years ago, God spoke to Bulan and ordered him to build a temple in the name of God to dwell therein; Bulan answered that he had no silver and gold, then God spoke to Bulan ordering him to be strong and firm and to go with all his army to the path of Dar-i Alân (Darial passage) to the earth of Ardewil (Ardabîl), where God had prepared for Bulan two treasures, one full of silver and one full of gold; Bulan did as he was told (albeit the Arab sources name the commander of the 730 invasion Barjik, the son of the Qağan), waged many wars and destroyed the city, taking much booty; he sanctified this booty / dedicated it to God and built from this booty the tabernacle (*ohel*), the ark (*aron*), the *menorah*, the table, the altars and the holy vessels, which, by the mercy of H' and by the strength of Shaddai (note the correct distribution of the aspects of the mercy and power between two names of God used), are still held and kept with the author of the Reply, King Joseph. It was *thereafter* that the King of *Edom* (Rome, Byzantium) and the King of the Ishmaelites sent their ambassadors to the Khazars and a religious dispute followed, in which a Rabbi won. The chronology and the sequence of events are heavily distorted here, and no mention is made

for his son and co-ruler, Constantine V (s.c. Copronymus, r. 718–775),[7] a Khazar wife, daughter of the Qağan; originally named Tzitzak,[8] she was baptized as Irene in 732. Some five years later, after having been defeated on the shores of the Volga by Marwân ibn Muhammad, her father (or brother?) forcibly accepted Islam for a short while, certainly not longer than until 746 or even earlier. Leo's victory over the forces of Hishâm ibn Abd al-Malik at Akroinon in 740, together with that of Charles Martel in 732 at Poitiers / Tours and the Khazar stand in 737, stopped the Arab advance into Europe, and Constantine, together with his Khazar relatives and allies, went on offensive against the Arabs in 746–752 and against the Bulgars, in 754–775.[9] Tzitzak-Irene bore Constanine V one son, Leo IV the Khazar (co-ruler of his father from 751, r. 775–780). His death marked the end of the First Iconoclastic Period, and it was about the end of the First Iconoclastic Period that Muslim Abo of Tbilisi was able to convert to Christianity in the midst of shamanistic Täŋri-worshipping Khazars. In the description of Khazar ways of life about 780 as found in Abo's *Vita* are the following observations: the "Khazars Sons of Magog" were Mongoloid (*sašinel p'irita*, "with horrible faces"), pagan ("having no religious law"), blood-eating and savage (*k'ac velur*). However, there is no bias in this description; they worshipped the Creator (*šemokmedi*), the Turkic God of the Heavens *Täŋri*, and there is no word about their Judaism.[10]

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of a conversion to Islam in 737. The Hebrew text and Russian translation are in: П. К. Коковцов, *Еврейско-хазарская переписка в X веке* (Ленинград, 1932).

(7) Admonished at length by Constantine Porphyrogennetos in chapter 13 of the *De Administrando Imperio* (Gy. Moravcsik (ed.), R. J. H. Jenkins (trans.), Constantine Porphyrogenitus, *De administrando imperio*, rev. ed., (Washington, D.C.: Dumbarton Oaks Center for Byzantine Studies, 1967) (CFHB) for his Khazar and Iconoclast connections.

(8) The name is generally explained as Turkic **čiček*, "flower;" some explain it as a Hebrew word for the fringes attached to the ritual shawl.

(9) On Bulgaria and Byzantium, see R. Browning, *Byzantium and Bulgaria* (London, 1975), and Obolensky, *The Byzantine Commonwealth…*

(10) Text: I. V. Abuladze [Abulaje] (ed.), *Jveli kartuli agiograp'iuli literaturis jeglebi* [Monuments of the Old Georgian Hagiographic Literature] (Tbilisi, 1964) I, 46–81; studies and translations: K. Schultze, Das Martyrium des heiligen Abo von Tiflis, *Texte und Untersuchungen zur Geschichte der Altchristlichen Literatur, NF* 13.4 (1905) 4–41; P. Peeters, Les Khazars dans la Passion de S. Abo de Tiflis, *AB* 52.1–2 (1934) 21–56; H. Grégoire, La vérité sur le Judaïsme des Khazars, *Byzantion* 9 (1934) 484–488 (review of the previous item); D. M. Lang, *Lives and Legends of the Georgian Saints* (London, 1956) 115–133;

Emperor Leo V the Armenian initiated the Second Iconoclastic Period in Byzantium (815–842) after a series of humiliating defeats at the hands of the Bulgarian Khan Krum,[11] and after a group of soldiers broke into the imperial mausoleum, opened the sarcophagus of Con-

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M. Bíró, Abo's Georgian *Vita*, *Acta Orientalia Academiae Scientiarum Hungariae*, 31 (2) (1977) 247–260; D. D. Y. Shapira, Armenian and Georgian Sources on the Khazars: A Re-Evaluation, in: Ben-Shammai, Golden, Roná-Tas, *The World of the Khazars...*, 307–352 (347–349).

There is not a word about Khazar Judaism in the *vita* of St. John of Gothia from the Crimea, who led a rebellion against the Khazars who captured the Gothic fortress of Doros in 786/7, well after the end of the First Iconoclast Period. John spent some time in the Khazar prison at Phoullae; he died on 26.06.791, shortly after the Khazar ruler, who had persecuted the saint, was killed in a revolt; see *Acta Sanctorum, Junii Tomus*, VII, 167–171; В. Г. Васильевский, *Житие Иоанна Готского*, in: *Труды*, т. 2, вып. 2 (Санкт-Петербург, 1912) 396–400 = Житие Иоанна Готского, Русско-византийские отрывки VII, *Журнал Министерства Народного Просвещения* (январь 1878); В. Мошин, *Eparxia Gothias* в Хазарии в XIII в., in: *Труды IV съезда русских академических организаций заграницей*, т. 1 (Белград, 1929) 149–156; on the Crimean Goths see A. A. Vasiliev, *The Goths in the Crimea* (Cambridge, MA: The Mediaeval Academy of America, 1936); for a new evaluation of the linguistic evidence for allegedly Gothic speech in the Ottoman Crimea (first noted in Augerius Gislenius Busbequius, *De legatione Turcicae epistolae quatuor ...* (Paris, 1589)), see M. Stearns, *Crimean Gothic. Analysis and Etymology of the Corpus* (Stanford: Anma Libri, 1978) (Studia Linguistica et Philologica, 6); on a forged Byzantine text from the Crimea, see I. Ševčenko, The Date and Author of the So-Called Fragments of Toparcha Gothicus, in: Idem, *Byzantium and the Slavs* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University, 1991) 353–478; on some aspects of Khazar-Byzantine interaction in the Crimea, see Th. S. Noonan, The Khazar-Byzantine World of the Crimea in the Early Middle Ages: The Religious Dimension, *AEMA* 10 (1998–1999) 207–230.

Both Poullae and Doros have been identified as Mangup; other identifications include Eski-Kermen for Doros and Qarasubazar / Belogorsk for Phoullae, etc. In the early 1840s, Avraham Firkowicz forged a series of marginalia and colophons; in a couple of them mentions were made of the Khazars being Jewish in 786/7, while "liberating" Dori / Doros. Firkowicz took the date from the *Vita* of St. John of Gothia. New evidence for these texts as being forgeries made by Firkowicz is to be found in *Д.* Шапира, Нынешнее состояние ряда приписок и колофонов на библейских рукописей из Первого Собрания А. С. Фирковича, in: *Материалы Одиннадцатой Ежегодной Международной Междисциплинарной Конференции по Иудаике. Ч. 1. Сэфер* 16 (Москва, 2004) 102–130.

(11) On aspects of the traditional Khazar-Bulgar rivalry and their role in the Khazar conversion, see D. Shapira, Bulgar-Khazar Rivalry: Notes on Ethnical Historio-Psychology, in: *Хазарский Альманах*, vol. 1 *(Proceedings of the Third International Khazar Colloquium)* (Харьков, 2002) 214–224; Idem, Notes

stantine V (the husband of Tzitzak-Irene), and implored him to return and save the empire; the successor of Leo V, Michael II the Amorian, or Psellos (r. 820–829; sometimes described — wrongly — as of Judeo-Christian background[12]), was an Iconoclast, who in 824 even lamented image veneration in a letter to the Carolingian emperor Louis the Pious; and it was during this Second Iconoclastic Period — when all three Monotheistic religions of the East shared Iconoclastic tendencies — that the Khazar elite converted to Judaism.

The Iconoclasm came to an end during the reign of Michael III (r. 840–867), after the iconodule Methodius was appointed the Patriarch of Constantinople in 843. Michael III was successful in waging a war against the Abbasids in Anatolia and in 859 he laid siege on Samosata, but these efforts were brought to naught by the first recorded Rus' assault on Constantinople in June 860 (ironically, a century later, Syria and Palestine were spared from a successful Byzantine Crusade by a Svjatoslav-led Rus' invasion into Bulgaria). The actual text of the *Russian Primary Chronicle* containing dates begins with the phrase that it was in the days of Michael that the name of Rus' first became known,[13] an echo of the remarks of Patriarch Photius in his Second Homily, 2.[14] Guided by Photius, thought by some to have a Khazar ancestry,[15] Michael exerted considerable effort in reconstructing church life and opening closed monasteries, reorganizing the imperial university and going on a project to christianize the Bulgars, Slavs and Khazars. This was the background for the mission of the Thessaloniki (Solun') brothers Cyrill and Methodius, sent to the Khazar Qağan in 861 in order to stop the recent expansion of Judaism in Khazaria and to gain the Qağan's support against possible attacks by Rus'. It is clear

on Early Jewish History in Eastern and Central Europe: The Rus', Khazar and Bulgar Dimensions, *AEMA* 16 (2006–2007) forthcoming.

(12) On the "heresy" on his background, see J. Starr, An Eastern Christian Sect: The Athinganoi: To the Memory of Prof. Andreas Michael Andreades (1877–1935), *The Harvard Theological Review* 29.2 (1936) 93–106.

(13) "Въ лѣто 6360 индикта 15 день наченшю Михаилу царствовати нача ся прозывати Руска земля о семь бо увѣдахомъ яко при семь цари приходиша Русь на Царьгородъ яко же пишется в лѣтописаньи гречестѣмь." The date given by the editor of the Chronicle (852CE) is notoriously wrong, as are almost all the dates prior to the rule of St. Vladimir.

(14) Cf. C. Mango (trans., intro., and comm.), *The Homilies of Photius, Patriarch of Constantinople* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1958).

(15) Cf. D. M. Dunlop, *History of the Jewish Khazars* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1954) 194.

that there was some connection between the end of the Iconoclasm and the sending of the brothers on their Khazar mission. The *Vita* of St. Cyril[16] does not say implicitly that the Khazars were already Judaized, nevertheless, in the religious disputation described in this text — one of the many debates imprinted on the memory of generations of Christians, Jews, and Muslims of Western Eurasia[17] — the Qağan said to the brothers, among other things, that "we all speak of the same things: the only difference between us is that you worship the Trinity, and we, the One God, as we have been taught by our books." This conciliatory tone is reminiscent of the well-known tolerance in questions of religion displayed by the Khazars after their Judaization, although the mention

(16) P. J. Šafarik, *Památky drevního pismenictví Juhoslovanův v Praze*, 1851, 1873; F. Miklosich, *Die Legende vom heiligen Cyrillus* (Wien 1870); А. Е. Балан, *Кирил и Методи. 1. Свезка първа: Житие на Кирила и Методия и похвални тем слова* (София, 1920); Б. Н. Флоря (intro, trans, and comm.), *Сказания о начале славянской письменности* (Москва, 1981); Ю. Трифонов, Константин Философ (св. Кирил) като царски пратеник при сарацини и хазари, in: *Сборник в чест на проф. Л. Милетич* (София, 1933) 33–44; F. Dvornik, *Les legendes de Constantin et de Methode, vues de Byzance* (Prague, 1933).

(17) For different account on the disputations, see Dunlop, *History of the Jewish Khazars*… 89–170 (chapters V and VI). In the mid-19th century, the Karaite-Jewish manuscript-hunter, Avraham Firkowicz, created the fortituous figure of a Jewish sage, who converted the Khazars, whom he called "Isaac Sangari." Strange enough, even Avraham Harkavy believed, at least for a while, in the reality of this "Isaac Sangari," see А. Гаркави, Заметка о Сангари, in: В. А. Бильбасов, *Кирилл и Мефодий*, т. 2 (Санкт-Петербург, 1871) 376–383. On the "Sangari's tomb" and other Firkowicz' forgeries, see D. Shapira, Yitshaq Sangari, Sangarit, Bezalel Stern, and Avraham Firkowicz: Notes on Two Forged Inscriptions, *AEMA* 12 (2002–2003) 223–260); a Russian version in: *Материалы по археологии, истории и этнографии Таврии* 10 (Симферополь, 2003) 535–555; another slightly different Russian version: Ицхак Сангари, Сангарит, Бецалель Штерн и Авраам Фиркович: история двух поддельных надписей [Yitshaq Sangari, Sangarit, Bezalel Stern and Avraham Firkowicz: The History of Two Forged Inscriptions], *Параллели* הקבלות, 2–3 (Москва, 2003) 363–388; on the forged Hebrew document said to be telling the story of the religious dispute in Kiev, based in fact on the Russian Primary Chronicle s.a. 986, see D. D. Y. Shapira, Remarks on Avraham Firkowicz and the Hebrew *Mejelis "Document," Acta Orientalia Academiae Scientiarum Hungaricae* 59.2 (2006) 131–180; a fuller version: Ibid., The Mejelis "Document" and Tapani Harvianen: On Scholarship, Firkowicz and Forgeries, in: Mehmet Alpargu and Yücel Öztürk (eds.), *Omeljan Pritsak Armağanı* [A Tribute to Omeljan Pritsak] (Sakarya, 2007) 303–393; on the marginalia, containing pseudo-historical information on the Khazars, forged by A. Firkowicz, see my paper mentioned at the end of note 10.

of "teaching by books" sounds strange coming from a nomadic Qağan in 861 and brings to mind the motifs of the "cave of books" in *Sefer Kozari* of Yehuda Halevi and the finding of Jewish books in a cave in the Letter of King Joseph, both still insufficiently explained. On the other hand, the Khazars boast before the missionary brothers of carrying their wisdom in their bellies, unlike the Greeks who find their wisdom in books. Finally, the Khazars pride themselves on the fact that all power in their country reposes in a single family, unlike the Greeks with their constantly changing dynasties. Moreover, the description of the mission in the Qağan's capital suggests that a certain advisor to the Qağan already enjoyed a very different status from all other subjects; it is not hard to identify this advisor with the *bek*, who would soon eclipse the Qağan. All this suggests that the rulers of Khazaria had already been Judaized, at least, to some extent.

Probably this silence about the Judaism of the Khazars in all the Byzantine literature, including the Vita of St. Cyril, was due to embarrassment over the fact that the brothers failed exactly when the veneration of icons and the restoration of Orthodoxy had been achieved. Although the religious part of their mission was a failure, their next mission in 863 secured the conversion of Great Moravia / Slavic Pannonia, where the brothers devised a Slavic alphabet (Glagolitic, not "Cyrillic") and established a school of translation. About this time Khan Boris I of Bulgaria converted, too, first to the Roman rite, and then to the Byzantine one, after Michael III and the Caesar Bardas invaded his country in 864.[18]

So, it seems that there was at least some overlapping of the Khazar-Byzantine *entente*, directed against the Khalifate, with the periods of Iconoclam in Byzantium. However, further Byzantinicist research in this direction is a *desideratum*.

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(18) The manoeuvrings of Boris / Bogoris / Michael I of Bulgaria between Constantinople and Rome provoked the so-called *Photian Schism*. About 864, a Benedictine monk in Corvei, Westphalia, called Christian Druthmar, or Christian of Stavelot, wrote in his commentary on Matthew 24:14: "At the present time we know of no nation under the heavens where Christians do not live. For [Christians are even found] in the lands of Gog and Magog — who are a Hunnic race and are called Gazari ... are circumcized and observing the whole of Judaism (quae sunt gentes Hunnorum, quae ab eis Gazari vocantur… circumcisa est et omnem Judaismum observat). The Bulgars, however, who are of the same seven tribes [as the Khazars], are now becoming baptized" (*Expositio in Matthaeum Evangelistam*, in: *PL*, ser. 2, t. 106, col. 1456).

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Liste des abréviations

AB — Analecta Bollandiana
JTS — The Journal of Theological Studies
Mus — Le Muséon
OrChr — Oriens Christianus
OCP — Orientalia Christiana Periodica
REArm — Revue des Études Arméniennes

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1. Алексей Муравьев, Мишель ван Эсбрук, SJ (17.06.1934–21.11. 2003), *Символ. Журнал славянской культуры, основанный Славянской библиотекой в Париже,* № 52 (Париж—Москва, 2007), pp. 323–339.[2]

2. Scholasate [le pseudonyme de Stéphane Verhelst comme un auteur de la Wikipedia], Michel van Esbroeck http://fr.wikipedia.org/wiki/Van_Esbroeck.

UN LIVRE À PARAÎTRE

Lūlīanos, *Die arabische Übersetzung der Juliansage.* Hrsg. von M. van Esbroeck und A. V. Muraviev (Louvain) (CSCO).

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(1) Voir la liste bibliographique publiée dans *Scrinium* 2 (2006), pp. xxxi–xlvi.

(2) L'article a été repéré dans *Scrinium* 2 (2006), p. xxxi, comme étant à paraître.

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(3) Cf. *Scrinium* 2 (2006), p. lviii, n° 425.

(4) Cf. *Scrinium* 2 (2006), p. lviii, n° 424.

(5) Cf. *Scrinium* 2 (2006), p. lviii, n° 426.

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RUSSIAN HAGIOGRAPHY. REVIEW OF MAJOR SCHOLARLY STUDIES PUBLISHED IN ST. PETERSBURG FROM 2002–2007

The study of Russian hagiography, almost halted in the Soviet years under the conditions of the antireligious propaganda and censorship, has been obviously experiencing a revival over the last fifteen or twenty years. This is readily seen in the publications of the Department of Old Russian Literature at the Institute of Russian Literature and Art (Pushkinsky Dom) of the Russian Academy of Sciences and St. Petersburg State University, considered to be the most authoritative institutions in this field in St. Petersburg. Since they publish research work made by scholars from different regions of Russia and other countries, their publications can give a rather wide view of what has been going on in this sphere. The major aim of this review is to present the situation in Russian hagiography studies as seen in St. Petersburg publications and highlight the main achievements; we are also going to discuss some shortcomings of the works reviewed here, where we can and think necessary to do so.

ARTICLES

The most significant event in research on Russian hagiography over the last several years was the publication of the long awaited collection of articles *Русская агиография: исследования, публикации, полемика* [Russian Hagiography: Studies. Publications. Polemics]. Санкт-Петербург, 2005. The collection was edited by two specialists from the Department of Old Russian Literature at the Institute of Russian Literature and Art, T. R. Rudi and S. A. Semyachko. Consisting of twenty five articles written by scholars, mostly philologists, from St. Petersburg, Novosibirsk, Syktyvkar, Moscow, Tver, and Pskov, the Collection begins with works devoted to general questions of Russian hagiography studies and articles on peculiarities of regional hagiographical traditions followed by the studies and publications of lives and services of individual saints. The latter block of articles fills about

two thirds of the book. Most of the hagiographical texts in this Collection have been published for the first time. The following review presents the articles in the order they are arranged in the Collection. Some articles first published in the Collection were later included by their authors in monographs now published, so it seemed reasonable to review them together with the rest of the monograph in the **Books** section of this Review.

О. В. Творогов (Санкт-Петербург), О "Своде древнерусских житий". — O. V. Tvorogov (St. Petersburg), On "The Code of Old Russian Lives of Saints"

The article consists of two parts, the first being an introduction to the main part — the survey of 164 lives of Russian saints with author's comments on the existing publications and recent studies of each life. In the introduction to the survey the author argues that textual analysis remains the basis for any other kind of study of hagiographical writings and has to be established on examination of all existing copies of the text. To meet this demand the Department of Old Russian Literature at the Institute of Russian Literature and Art (Pushkinsky Dom) has initiated a project to detect all existing copies of texts of Russian lives of saints and compile a catalogue of them, thus continuing the work of the nineteenth century Russian scholar N. Barsukov, who published a catalogue of texts of Russian lives and services known to him (*Источники русской агиографии* [Sources of Russian Hagiography]. Санкт-Петербург, 1882). The future catalogue will become the first step towards the more important and voluminous goal — the publication of lives and related texts in accordance with modern rules, accompanied by textual, historical and literary study. Hagiographical writings composed by the Old Believers from the middle of the seventeenth century on will not be included in the catalogue; considered to be a very special tradition, they will be catalogued and published separately. The survey in the second part of the article shows where we are now with the existing publications and studies of the lives of saints. The appearance of such a survey is very actual, as there was no such thing since *Словарь книжников и книжности Древней Руси* [Dictionary of Writers and Books of Old Russia] was published in 1987–1998. However, the survey has a certain shortcoming: of all the new studies printed up to the moment of the survey publication (2005) it mentions in full only those that were published by the Department of Old Russian Literature at the Institute of Russian Literature and Art or

by scholars of the same department, and also texts of hagiographical writings edited by A. S. Gerd and published by the St. Petersburg University Press in the Series "Памятники русской агиографической литературы" [Monuments of Russian Hagiographic Literature]. All other studies and publications of texts mentioned in the survey are dated not later than 2002, and some earlier printed works are not mentioned at all. The worst presented are provincial publications, while articles about Russian saints published through 2005 in volumes of the new *Orthodox Encyclopedia* and often containing the newest results of hagiographical studies are not mentioned at all and no notice about their omission is given.

Т. Р. Руди (Санкт-Петербург), Топика русских житий (вопросы типологии). — T. R. Rudi (St. Petersburg), Topoi of Russian Lives of Saints (Questions of Typology)

Topoi of Russian lives of saints are an almost unexplored field, and this article, devoted to their specifics and classification, represents a very important move in Russian hagiography studies. The author views the article as the preparatory stage for a future comprehensive study. Rudi considers as a *topos* any repeated element of a text, be it a short literary formula, a motive, a plot, or an idea. The choice of a *topos* is based on the two major principles: following "the literary etiquette" (a notion introduced by D. S. Likhachev) and focus on models (*imitatio*). The author examines how the *topoi* are used in Russian hagiographical writings devoted to representatives of this or that major type of sanctity (martyrs, holy bishops, holy monks, holy wives). The main conclusion she makes is that, while the *topoi* of *imitatio* of a certain kind are not firmly attached to a specific type of lives — for example, the *imitatio Christi* motive is common to all types of lives, since Christ is a sacral model for all types of saints, and the *imitatio angeli* and *imitatio Mariae* motives are not specific to the lives of the holy monks or holy wives respectively, — each type of sanctity has its major spiritual model, which determines the choice of the hagiographical *topoi* in each case. Looking ahead the author points out that further analysis and systematization of hagiographical *topoi* should aim to study the *topoi* "serving the hagiographical scheme." Rudi herself has performed an investigation of this kind studying the lives of the holy monks. She published the results in an article on the composition of the *topoi* in lives of the holy monks ("О композиции и топике житий преподобных") in *Труды Отдела древнерусской ли-*

тературы [Works of the Department of Old Russian Literature], volume 57 (Санкт-Петербург, 2006). In this article she gives a detailed account of motives, ideas, and concrete literary formulas with numerous examples from Russian hagiographies of the holy monks and also of the founders of monasteries. At the end of her article Rudi suggests that such studies could be greatly promoted by compiling a dictionary of hagiographical *topoi*.

Е. В. Крушельницкая (Санкт-Петербург), К вопросу об автобиографизме в древнерусской литературе. — E. V. Krushelnitskaya (St. Petersburg), Concerning Autobiographic Traits in Old Russian Literature

The main goal of the article was to explain the author's method used in her earlier study of the genetics of autobiographic traits in Old Russian literature (*Автобиография и житие в древнерусской литературе* [Autobiography and Vita in Old Russian Literature]. Санкт-Петербург, 1996). The article was triggered by criticism on the part of O. N. Bakhtina who questioned the efficiency of E. V. Krushelnitskaya's method and her objective of finding autobiographic features in Old Russian hagiographical writings (О. Н. Бахтина. *Старообрядческая литература и традиции христианского понимания слова* [Old Believers' Literature and Traditions of Christian Understanding of the Word]. Томск, 1999). The conflict is imbedded in the differences of approaches. In her study O. N. Bakhtina considers a number of writings produced by the Old Believers together with several Old Russian writings composed before the Schism in the Russian Church and society. As E. V. Krushelnitskaya puts it, the problem is that treating all of these writings from the point of view of moral philosophy, O. N. Bakhtina stresses the common features, but does not discover the differences due to the turmoil of the epoch. E. V. Krushelnitskaya's own approach is based on genre differentiation and functional characteristics of hagiographical writings. In the article she examines three groups of writings related to hagiography and dated from the time before the Schism: 1) reports of witnesses gathered after some relics had been found; 2) "memoirs about venerated spiritual leaders," and 3) testaments of hegumen-founders of monasteries, containing monastic rules. The *genre* and functional analysis allow the author to argue that up to the middle of the seventeenth century pure autobiography was absent from Old Russian literature having no *genre* form, since narration about oneself was never the main goal

of an author. On the contrary, the writings produced by the leaders of the Old Believers Epifany and Avvakum had distinct genre features brought about by the new concept of the main hero who was not passively contemplating any more, but acting and talking about himself. In the attachment to the article E. V. Krushelnitskaya publishes for the first time the narrative on "the death of elder Theodosy" (died in 1563) written by his disciple Evfimy Turkov (Ms. Russian State Library, fund 113, no. 512).

С. А. Семячко (Санкт-Петербург), Проблемы изучения региональных агиографических традиций (на примере вологодской агиографии). — S. A. Semyachko (St. Petersburg), The Problems of Studying Regional Hagiographical Traditions (the Case of the Vologda Hagiographical Writings)

The author makes an attempt to establish the signs of a local hagiographical tradition using the case of the rather numerous Vologda hagiographical writings. S. A. Semyachko rejects the geographical (but in fact administrative) attribution used by other scholars who studied the question because the geographical content of what is now the Vologda region has been changing from century to century. Instead she argues for textological ties between the texts as the basis for reconstruction of a local tradition and offers a scheme for these ties in the lives of Vologda saints. Admitting the obvious merit of this approach — the focus on hagiography as a tradition preserved in texts, — one has to note that the group of lives studied by the scholar contains just the lives of the holy monks, and there should be some textual links based on typological ties. Besides, there are recognized textual connections between the hagiographical writings of the Vologda region and lives of the holy monks written in other parts of Russia, in particular, in the North, and this is not considered in the article either.

Е. К. Ромодановская (Новосибирск), «Святой из гробницы». О некоторых особенностях сибирской и севернорусской агиографии. — E. K. Romodanovskaya (Novosibirsk), "Saints from the Tombs." On Some Special Features of Siberian and Northern Russian Hagiography

The author studies a peculiar type of hagiographical writings which she calls "saints from the tombs." This type has not been previously selected and examined as special in Russian hagiographical studies. The scholar points out the common features of these texts: the story of the appearance of a tomb with a body considered to be the relics of a

saint, a rather long period during which the saint remains anonymous, and a special structure of the text, that does not contain a life per se, but shows definite genetic ties with documentary records. The name of the saint and a few details about his life are revealed by the saint himself when he appears before someone who then reports these facts to be written. The following publication of the text of miracles of such a saint — Peter of Cherevkovo — illustrates the author's observations. However, the author's supposition that this type of hagiographical writings was mostly special to the Russian North and Siberia is not quite right, since there is evidence of similar cults developed in other parts of the Orthodox Christian world, for example, the veneration of some relics in the Crimea described by the priest Iakov Lyzlov in the 1630s.

Е. А. Рыжова (Сыктывкар), Жанр видений в севернорусской агиографии. — E. A. Ryzhova (Syktyvkar), The Genre of Visions in Northern Russian Hagiography

The author points out that themes of visions in Russian hagiography have not yet been fully studied and types of visions have not been defined. In great detail she describes peculiarities of form and content of visions focusing mostly on descriptions of post-mortem miracles of saintly founders of northern Russian monasteries. The author shows that saints in these miracles are presented as kind patrons of the people of the North, saving them from troubles, curing diseases, solving financial problems, helping in farming and trades. Ryzhova argues that the situations described in these miracles are very real, the "miraculous atmosphere" being created by the usage of special topoi at the appearance and disappearance of a saint. Throughout the text of the article she refers to the study of European folk culture of the Middle Ages done by A. Ya. Gurevich (*Проблемы средневековой народной культуры* [Problems of Medieval Popular Culture]. Москва, 1981) to show that the themes of visions are quite common in different regional traditions. What is different between them is the content of the visions, for it is defined by the tradition of veneration of a particular saint and relics preserved in a monastery, and also "by the process of the spreading of a saint's veneration among the local people." The conclusions seem to lack examples of how the tradition of veneration and the process of the spreading of veneration actually influenced the content of the visions, but, unfortunately, this remains unclear from the article.

Е. А. Рыжова (Сыктывкар), Виршевые редакции северно-русских житий. — E. A. Ryzhova (Syktyvkar), Verse Recensions of the Lives of Northern Russian Saints

The article presents the results of the first study of the form, content, date, authorship, and textual relations of verse recensions of lives of three northern Russian saints — Antony Sijsky, Nikodim Kozheozersky, and Loggin Koryazhemsky. In the appendix to the article texts of these lives written in verse are published for the first time.

Т. Ф. Волкова (Сыктывкар), Древнерусская и старообрядческая агиография в печорской рукописной традиции. — T. F. Volkova (Syktyvkar), Old Russian and Old Believers' Hagiography in the Pechora Manuscript Tradition

The author studies Russian hagiographical writings composed before the Old Believer Schism and those written by the Old Believers themselves in the manuscript tradition of the peasant community of Old Believers at Ust'-Tsilema, being a part of a large region around Pechora river to the northwest of the Urals inhabited by Old Believers. The article is considered to be the first step of research and presents a review of manuscripts and general classification of hagiographical writings in manuscripts originating at Pechora and preserved now in collections at the Institute of Russian Literature and Art (St. Petersburg), Syktyvkar University Library, and the Library of the Academy of Sciences (St. Petersburg). The article is accompanied by a catalogue of hagiographical writings found in the Pechora manuscripts, showing dates of the manuscripts and the existing scholarly descriptions and studies.

О. А. Белоброва (Санкт-Петербург), Об изучении и публикации лицевых списков житий русских святых. — O. A. Belobrova (St. Petersburg), On Research and Publication of Illuminated Manuscripts of Lives of Russian Saints

The author points out that while the illuminated manuscripts containing historical writings such as chronicles were fairly well studied in the Soviet years, the illuminated manuscripts of lives of Russian saints have no catalogue at all, and some even remain unknown to scholars. The author describes the principles used for the few publications of illuminated manuscripts with lives of Russian saints (St. Sergius of Radonezh, Boris and Gleb, Metropolitan Alexij, St. Nifont, St. Evfrosinia of Suzdal', Peter and Fevronia, and St. Zosima and Sav-

vaty of Solovki, most published before 1917), and argues for publishing artworks together with the text of a manuscript and for compiling catalogues of such illuminated manuscripts.

А. А. Пичхадзе (Москва), В. А. Ромодановская (Санкт-Петербург), Е. К. Ромодановская (Новосибирск), Жития княгини Ольги, Варяжских мучеников и князя Владимира в составе Синайского палимпсеста (РНБ, Q. п. I. 63). — A. A. Pichkhadze (Moscow), V. A. Romodanovskaya (St. Petersburg) and E. K. Romodanovskaya (Novosibirsk), The Lives of Princess Olga, the Varangian Martyrs and Prince Vladimir in the Sinai Palimpsest (Russian National Library, Q. p. I. 63)

The three synaxary ("prologue") lives of Russian saints are studied in the context of the contents of the Sinai palimpsest from the Russian National Library, where they are found among apocrypha and edifying writings. The authors argue that although the three lives are taken from a Prologue they do not represent some part of a prologue but rather a deliberate selection from it. This suggests a hypothesis that this selection reflects the traces of the eleventh century *Story of the Spreading of Christianity in Russia* detected by D. S. Likhachev within the most ancient layers of the Primary Chronicle. The manuscript dating to the thirteenth century and being a Bulgarian copy of a Russian protograph allows one to consider that the three lives were composed earlier than it was thought previously. The authors believe that these lives could have been composed in the eleventh century to be included in the *Story*, and were edited later to be included in the Church service. The publication of the three lives along with the article is accompanied by comments of codicological and language features of the manuscript and a publication of the corresponding fragment from the Russian Prologue of the sixteenth century from the Russian National Library, F. I. 495.

М. А. Федотова (Санкт-Петербург), Житие Никиты Столпника Переяславского (рукописная традиция Жития). — M. A. Fedotova (St. Petersburg), The Life of Nikita the Stylite of Pereyaslavl' (the Manuscript Tradition)

The article presents a reconsideration of the history of the text of *The Life of Nikita Stylite of Pereyaslavl'* previously believed to exist in just one recension. Fedotova argues for three recensions: the Short recension (the earliest of the three), the Main recension (with four types and several groups inside each type), and the Prologue recension. She

also reconsiders different opinions on the dating of the Panegyric to St. Nikita and gives reasons to believe that it was written at the same time as the Life, not before and not much later than it, and was included in the text of the Life by the end of the fifteenth century together with the description of the miraculous cure of prince Mikhail of Chernigov. The text of the Main recension (type A, group three, according to Fedotova) from the fifteenth century manuscript of the Russian State Library is published in the appendix to the article.

А. Е. Смирнова (Санкт-Петербург), Службы Макарию Калязинскому: рукописная традиция, проблемы источников, датировки и атрибуции. — A. E. Smirnova (St. Petersburg), Services to St. Makary Kalyazinsky: Manuscript Tradition, the Problem of Sources, Date, and Attribution

The impetus for this study was given by the acrostic with the abridged name of the Russian hagiographer and hymnographer of the sixteenth century Markell Bezborody (the Beardless) found by the scholar from Tver' G. S. Gadalova in several manuscript copies of the Prayer Service for the feast of St. Makary Kalyazinsky. The finding was readily caught up by A. E. Smirnova since at that time she was studying writings by Markell for her dissertation defended in December 2005. The article presents a reconstruction of the process of the hagiographer's work on the Service for the feast of Makary Kalyazinsky. Smirnova studied thirty six manuscripts dating from the sixteenth and the seventeenth centuries of the two liturgical cycles devoted to this saint — the Service for the feast of finding his relics (the first of the two services) and the Service for his memorial day (his death day), — and established three recensions of each service. Most of the article deals with the latter Service where the acrostic "MRKL" or "MAKL" is found in one of the two or in both Canons of the Service. Comparing this Service to the texts of the Service for the feast of St. Savva Krypetsky and the Service for the feast of St. Savva Storozhevsky, Smirnova argues that it was the author of the Service for the feast of St. Savva Krypetsky who borrowed fragments of the text from the latter services, not the other way around. In Smirnova's opinion the text of the Service for the feast of St. Makary Kalyazinsky is original, except for some minor borrowings from the Service for the feast of St. Varlaam Khutynsky and from the prayers in honor of those saints that have no proper office found in the Menologion. She also argues that the Service in question depends on the Prologue hagiography of St. Makary Kalyazinsky for some special data about the saint contained in the Service. Unlike G. S. Gadalova,

who previously suggested that Markell Bezborody was just the editor, not the author of the Service, and added the acrostic with his abridged name while editing it, since some of the manuscripts do not contain this acrostic, Smirnova argues that Markell could have been the author of the whole Service writing both Canons and a later version of his own work, as well as adding the acrostic. To support her argument she offers some observations concerning the way the Service is edited and also speculates on the reasons for its editing and adding the acrostic with the name of the author. The most probable reason for the editing was in her opinion the change in the functional designation of the Service — the attempt to introduce it for use on the day of the feast of finding Makary's relics instead of the memorial feast day. This is suggested by the fact that the text containing the acrostic is placed on the day of the feast of finding the relics, not on the memorial feast day, where the earlier edition of the Service belonged.

Г. С. Гадалова (Тверь), Службы преподобному Макарию Калязинскому: к вопросу о комплексном подходе в изучении памятников. Публикация списков. — G. S. Gadalova (Tver'), Services to St. Makary Kalyazinsky: on the Question of a Complex Research Approach. Publication of the Manuscripts

G. S. Gadalova published the text of the Service for the memorial feast of St. Makary Kalyazinsky containing the acrostic with the abridged name of Markell Bezborody. The basic text of the publication is that of the manuscript from the Scientific Library of Moscow State University (МГУ НБОР и ОРК, № 1308) written in the 1590s. It is supplemented with variants drawn from five other manuscripts; a description of the manuscripts is published along with the article. Gadalova accepts the opinion that Markell might not have been just the editor, but also the author of the Service for the memorial feast of St. Makary and suggests that he also might have been the author of the Life, although she gives no support for this hypothesis.

Ю. Г. Фефилова (Санкт-Петербург), Повесть о Петре и Февронии в контексте традиционной обрядовой практики. — Yu. G. Fefilova (St. Petersburg), The Narration of Peter and Fevronia in the Context of Traditional Ritual Practice

The author argues that the ambiguity of the content of the *Narration of Peter and Fevronia*, which is very unusual among Old-Russian writings, can be explained by the fact that although conceived as a hagiography, the Narration uses the language of folklore. Keeping this in mind one

has to view the "marriage theme" that makes up the basis of the Narration as an allusion to the Eucharist, while the pagan component should be interpreted in the context of the ethnographic data on the rituals of the wedding and celebrating the Whitsun and Midsummer Night. The article is an attempt to bring all this together into a coherent interpretation.

В. И. Охотникова (Псков), Житие Всеволода-Гавриила в составе Степенной книги. — V. I. Okhotnikova (Pskov), The Life of Vsevolod-Gavriil as a part of the Book of Degrees

The article was included by the author in the first volume of her book *Псковская агиография XIV–XVII веков: Исследования и тексты* [Pskov Hagiography of the Fourteenth — Seventeenth Centuries: Studies and Texts], Санкт-Петербург, 2007, reviewed further in the **Books** section.

Т. Б. Карбасова (Санкт-Петербург), История почитания преподобного Кирилла Новоезерского. — T. B. Karbasova (St. Petersburg), The History of the Veneration of St. Kirill Novoyezersky

Except for some general works published before 1917, studies in the history of the veneration of Russian saints are quite rare in Russian scholarship. This study in the history of veneration of St. Kirill Novoyezersky, the founder of a monastery in the Russian North, is based on careful analysis of the data of his Life, the text of the Prayer Service for his feast, menologies, documentary records (the letter of donation, monastery inventories, receipts and expenditure books), and iconography. The author argues that the veneration of Kirill Novoyezersky started soon after his death in 1532 and passed through several stages. Karbasova reconsiders the opinion of E. E. Golubinsky who suggested that the official canonization of Kirill Novoyezersky took place only in the middle of the seventeenth century after the finding of Kirill's relics. According to Karbasova, the official canonization occurred at the beginning of the year 1628, while the finding of the relics years later just contributed to the rise of his glory. The article is amended with the publication of the three miracles of Kirill Novoyezersky dating from the year 1627; their report in Moscow became, as Karbasova argues, the reason for the official canonization of the saint. She also publishes here the *Oration on the finding of the relics* of St. Kirill Novoyezersky in its first version.

Karbasova, who has been studying the Life of Kirill Novoyezersky and the Service for his feast for several years now has published sev-

eral articles on the texts related to this saint. For example, there is a textological study and publication of the text of the Primary recension of the Life in *Труды Отдела древнерусской литературы* [Works at the Department of Old Russian Literature], volume 57 (Санкт-Петербург, 2006).

И. А. Лобакова (Санкт-Петербург), Памятник византийской учительной литературы «Поучение благого царства» Агапита и «Житие митрополита Филиппа». — I. A. Lobakova (St. Petersburg), Byzantine Exhortations "Chapters of Admonition" by Agapetus the Deacon and "The Life of Metropolitan Philip"

The article was included by the author in her book *Житие митрополита Филиппа*: *Исследования и тексты* [The Life of Metropolitan Philip: Study and Texts], published in St. Petersburg in 2006 and reviewed in the **Books** section.

О. С. Сапожникова (Санкт-Петербург), Сказание о яренгских чудотворцах и методы работы древнерусского автора. — O. S. Sapozhnikova (St. Petersburg), Narration of the Yarenga Wonderworkers and Literary Techniques of an Old-Russian Author

The author studies literary techniques used by prominent Solovki writer and editor Sergey Shelonin in his *Narration about Miracles of Yarenga Worderworkers St. Ioann and Loggin* composed on the basis of records of miracles — a special kind of source material combining literary and documentary features. This is rare luck for a scholar of Old-Russian hagiography — two volumes containing materials and documents related to veneration of the Yarenga wonderworkers and two authorized manuscripts with the text of the *Narration*. They are preserved among manuscripts of the Solovki library, now at the Russian National Library, and at the Nikandrova Hermitage Fund of the Pskov Museum, enabling a study of the process of Shelonin's work. Sapozhnikova examines origins of insertions and thus reveals additional sources used by Shelonin to create a text that could put the cult of the Yarenga wonderworkers in the canonical tradition. To do so she uses well preserved books from Shelonin's own library containing his remarks. Sapozhnikova also gives attention to the analysis of the role of Sergey Shelonin in the context of the Russian book culture of the seventeenth century, comparing Shelonin's manner of writing to that of his contemporary — archpriest Avvakum. She argues that

while both of them were fond of studying and using in their writings recently printed texts of Church Fathers not known in the Russian manuscript tradition before, their attitudes toward the rules of the genre were different: while Avvakum was struggling for truthful reflection of the life around him and by doing this was actually destroying the genre, Shelonin found new resources within the traditional structure of hagiography by enriching his hagiographical writings with the best Byzantine works previously absent from this popular genre. In the appendices to the article Sapozhnikova publishes for the first time the text of the *Narration* as it is in the Pskov manuscript with variants drawn from the Solovki manuscript (Russian National Library) with her commentaries, and also Sergey Shelonin's *Note* on the translation of the relics of Ioann and Loggin of Yarenga from the only manuscript at the Solovki Library (RNL), and the text of a charter with description of a miracle which occurred with Solovki iconographer Feodorit Gubasty (Thick-lipped), also from the Solovki library manuscript.

А. А. Романова (Санкт-Петербург), Житие Вассы (Феодоры) Нижегородской: Пространная (Компилятивная) редакция. — A. A. Romanova (St. Petersburg), The Life of Vassa (Feodora) of Nizhny Novgorod: the Long (Compiled) Recension

A. A. Romanova publishes the text of the Long, or Compiled, recension of the Life of Vassa (Feodora) of Nizhny Novgorod using one of the two known manuscripts of this recension of the Life as a basic text and drawing variants from the other manuscript. Peculiarities of this recension in comparison to the Short recension of the same Life are discussed in the article going with the publication. Observing the compiling character of this recension Romanova points to the Life of Eufrosinia of Polotsk as the main source for borrowings.

Е. А. Рыжова (Сыктывкар), Житие Варлаама Важского (Пинежского) в рукописно-книжной традиции 16–19 вв. — E. A. Ryzhova (Syktyvkar), The Life of Varlaam Vazhsky (Pinezhsky) in the Manuscript Tradition of the Sixteenth–Nineteenth Centuries

The article is the first published work specially devoted to the manuscript tradition of the Life of Varlaam Vazhsky, a Novgorod boyar who established a monastery in the northeastern part of European Russia in the first half of the fifteenth century, his Life being written more than a century after his death. Ryzhova names twenty

five manuscripts containing the text of the Life in different recensions. She gives a very detailed description of the Main recension preserved in nineteen manuscripts and divides manuscripts with text in this recension into two branches with a special variant belonging to one of the branches. She also gives textological reasons for considering one of the branches to be a more accurate reflection of the original text than the other. Each of the five other manuscripts presents a new recension, three of them making a chain of extensions of the Main recension. The main features distinguishing these recensions are the new miracles and some new data that allow the scholar to connect these new recensions to the monastery founded by Varlaam and to call them "Northern recensions." The two other manuscripts represent two different Short recensions, one composed on the basis of some branch of the Main recension, the other — on the basis of the third Northern recension. One more manuscript contains a short extract from the Life seeming to be a historical note. Ryzhova admits that she could not examine all the manuscripts she named, and there are some more manuscripts containing the Life of Varlaam Vazhsky that were not included in her list. It also remains desirable to trace more accurately the relations between the manuscripts of different recensions and to extend the analysis of the relations between the manuscripts within the Main recension. These remarks aside, the article is a solid first step in studying the manuscript tradition of this piece of Russian hagiography.

Е. В. Крушельницкая (Санкт-Петербург), Житие Филиппа Ирапского: Вторая редакция (публикация текста). — E. V. Krushelnitskaya (St. Petersburg), The Life of Philip Irapsky: The Second Recension (Publication of the Text)

Having found several previously unknown manuscripts containing the text of the Life of Philip Irapsky, E. V. Krushelnitskaya publishes the text of the Second recension (type B, according to her identification) of this writing taken from the only preserved manuscript dating from the end of the eighteenth century. In the article accompanying the publication the scholar describes three versions of the Life. She argues that the difference between them is due to gradual perfection of the text with respect to style and composition, and also in reinforcement of special features of hagiography as a genre: the three recensions show the shift from personal recollections about the saintly man towards an impersonal hagiography with all sources fully integrated into the text.

Е. М. Юхименко (Москва), Выговские похвальные слова Александру Свирскому. — E. M. Yukhimenko (Moscow), Panegyrics of Alexander Svirsky Composed by the Vyg Authors

Three Panegyrics of St. Alexander Svirsky composed by three eighteenth-century writers of the Vyg Old Believers' community are analyzed in the context of other Old Believer records of the time, and are published here. The first Panegyric was authored by the famous Old Believer writer Andrey Denisov in 1720. It shows what facts about Alexander Svirsky's life could make this saint especially dear to the members of the Vyg community. Yukhimenko argues that the second Panegyric composed by an anonymous writer was a revision of Denisov's text with extensive inserts that helped to strengthen main topics of the Old Believers' polemics, reflected their bitterness about the rejection they met on the part of the government and Church hierarchy, and also called Old Believers of the Vyg community to improve their life, repent and pray for help and protection. From the scholar's point of view, these features of the second Panegyric place it well within other writings produced or edited at the Vyg community in the 1740s, particularly the second version of the *Pomorsky Torzhestvennik* [*Pomor Homeliary*], thus suggesting the tentative date of the Panegyric. The third Panegyric was written by another famous Vyg author Trifon Petrov; Yukhimenko dates it not later than the 1730s and points out that like other writings by this author the Panegyric is distinguished by prevalence of general Christian values instead of a narrow Vyg orientation.

В. И. Охотникова (Псков), Поздние редакции Жития Псковского князя Всеволода-Гавриила. — V. I. Okhotnikova (Pskov), Late Recensions of the Life of Pskov Prince Vsevolod-Gavriil

The article was included by the author in the first volume of her book *Псковская агиография XIV—XVII веков: Исследования и тексты* [Pskov Hagiography of the Fourteenth–Seventeenth Centuries: studies and texts], published in St. Petersburg in 2007, and is reviewed in the **Books** section.

Е. Э. Шевченко (Санкт-Петербург), История создания Жития преподобного Нила Сорского. — E. E. Shevchenko (St. Petersburg), The History of the Life of St. Nil Sorsky

Shevchenko presents a study of several manuscripts of the Manuscript Department of the Russian National Library (St. Petersburg)

containing a group of writings devoted to St. Nil Sorsky, his life, death, and miracles, some of them published but not studied before. Among these writings there are short records about Nil Sorsky's death written in the middle of the sixteenth century, first records of his miracles dating from the end of the seventeenth century, the *Narration of Nil Sorsky's skete* composed by I. I. Pleshkov, short biographical texts, records of miracles dating from the turn of the nineteenth century, and, eventually, the Life of Nil written by hieromonk Nikon (Prikhudailov) in the 1840s. The main approach used by the scholar is to examine these texts in chronological order, trying to uncover ties between them. Shevchenko sees them as related stages of the process of selecting materials, the probable aim being canonization of Nil Sorsky. The date of his canonization and the process that led to it are subjects of dispute. This article does not give the answer to this question, but Shevchenko doubts the date suggested by another scholar — E. V. Romanenko, who argued that the canonization took place at the end of the seventeenth century (*Нил Сорский и традиции русского монашества* [Nil Sorsky and Russian monastic traditions]. Москва, 2003. 194–195). The difference in opinions is due to the fact that Shevchenko is inclined to consider as accurate one record about a funeral service (*панихида*) for Nil Sorsky in the manuscript dated not earlier than 1808 according to watermarks of the paper (date "1808"). Despite the fact that there are two other manuscripts dating from the end of the eighteenth century and the 1820s that include a Troparion, Kontakion, and Oikos in honor of Nil Sorsky, she argues that the contents of the former manuscript are better structured, and for that reason its text represents a new stage in development of the corpus of writings devoted to Nil Sorsky. While Romanenko believes that the record about a funeral service (*панихида*) for Nil Sorsky in this manuscript could be an accidental repeat of some old note, Shevchenko refutes this possibility. It follows from this that Nil Sorsky was not canonized yet when the manuscript was written in about 1808. The article is amended with the publication of miracles of Nil Sorsky from the manuscript of the second third of the eighteenth century from the Russian National Library previously published by A. S. Arkhangelsky at the end of the nineteenth century, now printed according to modern rules accepted for publications at the Department of Old Russian Literature at the Institute of Russian Literature and Art.

И. А. Лобакова (Санкт-Петербург), Заметки по текстологии «Повестей о Николе Заразском» (Отклик на концепцию Б. М. Клосса). — I. A. Lobakova (St. Petersburg), Notes on Textology of "Narrations about Nikola Zarazsky" (Response to the Concept of B. M. Kloss)

The author comments on the concept of the date and sources of "Narrations about Nikola Zarazsky" recently advocated by B. M. Kloss, a Moscow scholar famous for his surprising ideas that break away from traditional approaches. Lobakova sees the root of the problem with this concept in the fact that Kloss does not separate two different texts united in the Zarazsky cycle: «Сказание о перенесении Николина образа из Корсуни в Рязань» ("The Narration of Transferring Nikola's Image from Korsun to Ryazan") and «Повесть о разорении Рязани Батыем» ("The Narration of the Destruction of Ryazan by Batu Khan"). Studying them as a single text, Kloss ascribes specific fifteenth and sixteenth century features characteristic of the former text to the whole cycle and thus to the latter Narration. Lobakova also attacks Kloss' textological methods that led, in Lobakova's opinion, to complete confusion and false results. The last part of the article is devoted to criticism of Kloss' assertion that "The Narration of the Destruction of Ryazan" was composed on the basis of the so called *Московский летописный свод* [*Moscow Chronological Collection*] or Moscow Codex of 1479. Lobakova argues that the opposite is more probable.

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Similar to the articles published in the "Russian hagiography" collection, other recently published studies deal mostly with the literary history of Russian hagiographical texts and accompany long-awaited publications of these texts. Several such publications appeared in recent volumes of *Труды Отдела древнерусской литературы* [Works at the Department of Old Russian Literature]. However, recent years witnessed certain development in studying intertextual features of Russian hagiography. The most significant publications in this area are the two articles by T. R. Rudi reviewed above, and the article by ***O. V. Panchenko (St. Petersburg), Поэтика уподоблений (к вопросу о «типологическом» методе в древнерусской агиографии, эпидейктике и гимнографии)*** [Poetics of assimilation (concerning the question of "typological" method in Old Russian hagiography, epideictics, and hym-

nography)], published in *Труды Отдела древнерусской литературы* [Works of the Department of Old Russian Literature], volume 54 (Санкт-Петербург, 2004). Although it is commonplace that assimilation of new saints to the tradition by likening them with biblical heroes and earlier saints are basic features of hagiographic texts, the article by Panchenko is the first special study of main assimilation principles in Russia. The article begins with discussion of the notion of a "hagiological model," or "hagiotype" as Panchenko calls it, and two methods of assimilation. The scholar supports the idea of a concrete and individual character of the "hagiological model" in Russian hagiography suggested by V. N. Toporov in his book *Святость и святые в русской духовной культуре* [Sanctity and Saints in Russian Spiritual Culture] published in Moscow in 1995, as opposed to the categorization of the hagiographical model characteristic of Western hagiography. Panchenko uses the term "hagiotype" or "hagiological model" for Christian saints who could be perceived as models. The ways of assimilation of the model could be, in Panchenko's words "verbal" — through comparison, syncrisis, or *translatio nominis*, or "non-verbal" — through borrowing fragments of some canonical text and substituting the new character for the hagiological model. Panchenko has also compiled a list of hagiotypes of some Russian saints detected by other scholars, followed by a brief overview of the theme of likening (or assimilation) in patristic writings which leads to the conclusion that the "literary method of assimilation with 'hagiological models' reflects the long standing spiritual experience of Christian anthropology" (p. 501). The second part of the article is devoted to the use of biblical models in hagiography and is largely based on the ideas of Friedrich Ohly. In the third and largest part of the article Panchenko shows how the assimilation principle was used by one of the prominent Russian writers of the seventeenth century Sergey Shelonin to select hagiological and biblical models and create literary likeness in his «Похвальное слово русским преподобным» ("Panegyric of the Russian holy monks") written according to the model of the «Похвальное слово преподобным отцам и женам» ("Panegyric of the holy fathers and nuns") by the fourteenth-fifteenth century Bulgarian writer Gregory Tsamblak. Panchenko detects thirteen different reasons used by Sergey Shelonin to make his choice for this or that Christian hagiotype or biblical type. The article is completed with a table showing the "verbal" models (hagiotypes and biblical types) of Russian saints in Shelonin's Panegyric and their "hidden hagiotypes" from the Panegyric by Gregory Tsamblak along with the reason for every choice.

BOOKS

The last several years have been especially fruitful in the field of the long awaited publication of texts of Russian hagiographical writings, making them more accessible to scholars. Some of the publications aim at publishing just one recension of the text, others present different recensions. The latter are accompanied by a more or less profound study of literary tradition and, sometimes, of other aspects as well.

A series of publications of lives of Russian saints which was begun in 2000 by a group of scholars from the department of philology of St. Petersburg State University, has been continued over recent years. So far the group has published lives of several northern Russian saints of the fourteenth—sixteenth centuries: Kirill Belozersky (2000), Alexander Svirsky (2002), Antony Sijsky (2003), Kirill Novoyezersky (2003), Dimitry Prilutsky, Dionisy Glushitsky, and Gregory Pelshemsky (2003), Kornily Komelsky (2004), Pavel Obnorsky and Sergey Nuromsky (2005), Ioasaph Kamensky, Alexander Kushtsky, and Euphymy Syanzhemsky (2007).[1] Each publication is based on one manuscript and preserves the peculiarities of its spelling, accentuation, and punctuation. The editors separate words, written in pre-modern Russian manuscripts without spaces in between, but do not disclose abridged words offering corresponding readings from other manuscripts when interpretation of the text is vague. Each text is accompanied by a word index and a short article on the manuscript tradition. The books published in 2004, 2005, and 2007 are amended with articles on the history of Vologda monasteries. These publications are definitely intended for philologists, but possess a certain merit for historians too, since most of the lives either had no earlier publications at all, or were published in a way far from any scholarly approach.

(1) И. В. Азарова, Е. Л. Алексеева, Л. А. Захарова, К. Н. Лемешева (сост.), А. С. Герд (ред.), *Житие Александра Свирского* (Санкт-Петербург: Издательство Санкт-Петербургского университета, 2002); idem, *Житие Кирилла Новоезерского* (Санкт-Петербург: Издательство Санкт-Петербургского университета, 2003; idem, *Жития Димитрия Прилуцкого, Дионисия Глушицкого и Григория Пельшемского* (Санкт-Петербург: Издательство Санкт-Петербургского университета, 2003); А. С. Герд (ред.), *Житие Корнилия Комельского* (Санкт-Петербург: Издательство Санкт-Петербургского университета, 2004); idem, *Жития Павла Обнорского и Сергия Нуромского* (Санкт-Петербург: Издательство Санкт-Петербургского университета, 2005); idem, *Жития Иоасафа Каменского, Александра Куштского и Евфимия Сянжемского* (Санкт-Петербург: Издательство Санкт-Петербургского университета, 2007).

Г. М. Прохоров и С. А. Семячко (подготовка изд.), ***Святые подвижники и обители Русского Севера: Усть-Шехонский Троицкий, Спасо-Каменный, Дионисьев Глушицкий и Александров Куштский монастыри и их обитатели*** **(Санкт-Петербург, 2005). — G. M. Prokhorov and S. A. Semyachko (eds.),** ***Saintly Hermits and Monasteries of the Russian North: Ust'-Shekhonsky Trinity Monastery, St. Saviour of the Stone Monastery, Dionisy Glushitsky Monastery, and Aleksander Kushtsky Monastery and Their Inhabitants*** **(St. Petersburg, 2005)**

The book is devoted to the history of several monasteries of the Vologda region and saintly monks who established or lived in them. The editors' main goal was to publish narrative and documentary texts related to these monasteries. These texts include a number of hagiographical writings: the "Life of Ioasaph Kamensky" (studied and published by Prokhorov), the "Life of Dionisy Glushitsky" in ten versions, two different texts of the "Life of Amphilokhy Glushitsky," the "Life of Alexander Kushtsky" in six versions, and the joint "Life of Alexander Kushtsky and Euphimy Syanzhemsky" (all studied and published by Semyachko). The publication of each life is introduced by a study devoted to the history of the corresponding monastery and literary history of these lives. The articles cannot be considered comprehensive; however, they definitely advance the study of the subject. This is especially true about the two articles by Semyachko devoted to the "Life of Dionisy Glushitsky" and the "Life of Alexander Kushtsky." The scholar names many more manuscripts containing these two pieces of hagiography than the number known to prerevolutionary scholars, reconsiders old opinions concerning their literary history, and introduces a new view of it. The "Life of Dionisy Glushitsky" in this edition is published from the same manuscript as in the publication of 2003 reviewed above, but, as Semyachko notes, she checked the text again for this new publication, and some passages were interpreted differently by her. The "Life of Dionisy Glushitsky" is also presented in this edition with a translation into modern Russian made by Prokhorov.

Н. В. Рамазанова (подготовка текста и исследование), ***Святые русские римляне: Антоний Римский и Меркурий Смоленский*** **(Санкт-Петербург, 2005). — N. V. Ramazanova (publication of text and study),** ***Saintly Russian Romans: Antony of Rome and Merkury of Smolensk*** **(St. Petersburg, 2005)**

Ramazanova accomplished a study of hagiographical writings and prayer services devoted to two Russian saints different in their hagio-

graphical status (one being a warrior, the other — a monk), but having one feature in common — their "Roman" origin. Previous studies of these hagiographical texts treated them separately, while Ramazanova compares them and examines the role of the "Roman" origin in each case. The scholar points to the fact that Roman relics in Novgorod are first mentioned in Russian (Novgorod) literature at the end of the sixteenth century (besides relics related to Antony of Rome, there were several others), while the spear and the shield of Merkury of Smolensk, as well as the saint himself, are mentioned first already in the 1530s. Despite the opinion of other scholars, who studied the *Life of Antony of Rome*, Ramazanova argues that there is nothing in it that could suggest a separatist, anti-Moscow trend. From her point of view the Roman relics in Novgorod had to do more with the rise in status of the Novgorod church organization, the head of which became a metropolitan in 1589, than with the reaction to the loss of political independence of Novgorod. So, Roman relics added to the spiritual authority of Novgorod. The texts related to Merkury of Smolensk appeared after the conquest of Smolensk by the Russian army and the incorporation of the city into Muscovy. The constant military threat and proximity of Western lands stimulated the veneration of this saintly warrior. Ramazanova also suggests that Merkury's Roman origin can be connected to the legendary genealogy of Russian tsars descending from Roman emperors; the theory was well known in the sixteenth century. Very interesting is the question of naming enemies in the texts devoted to Merkury of Smolensk. Ramazanova notes that there is a certain pattern in the use of words naming enemies: for example, there is no such word as "Tatars" in the whole cycle. As Ramazanova explains, at the time when the cycle was composed the Tatars were Russian allies in the struggle against the Lithuanians, and for that reason even the warriors of Khan Batu are called not Tatars, but "evil barbarians". The fact that none of the real ethnic groups are named as enemies (except for the "Pechenegs" — nomads who vanished in the eleventh century, whose name remained in Russian literature to call any non-Christian enemies) is due, in Ramazanova's opinion, to Merkury's peculiar ability acquired after his death: when summoned by the Mother of God, he comes to defend Smolensk from any foe. Although there are strong local motives in Merkury's cycle, Ramazanova points to features in the texts that make him, as well as Antony, an all-Russian saint. The scholar ties the emergence of these two saints with Roman origin in the Russian hagiographical tradition with "Moscow the third Rome" theory developed in the course of the late fifteenth and sixteenth centuries.

И. А. Лобакова, *Житие митрополита Филиппа* (Санкт-Петербург, 2006). — I. A. Lobakova, *The Life of Metropolitan Philip* (St. Petersburg, 2006)

Lobakova presents a study of the literary history of a very popular hagiographical text devoted to one of the most prominent Russian Church leaders — Metropolitan Philip, who lived in the sixteenth century and was murdered on the order of Ivan the Terrible. The scholar describes six recensions of the *Life of Metropolitan Philip* and argues that the short recension of the Life was composed earlier than the long recension, previously thought to be the basis for the short one. Discussing literary sources of the *Life of Metropolitan Philip*, Lobakova compares the text of the Life to the text of exhortations composed in Byzantium in the sixth century by Agapetus the Deacon and known as *Поучение благого царства* (Chapters of Admonition / ΕΚΘΕΣΙΣ ΚΕΦΑΛΑΙΩΝ ΠΑΡΑΙΝΕΤΙΚΩΝ). She argues that the Byzantine text was an important source for the author of the *Life of Metropolitan Philip* in the so called *Tulupov Menology* (the Tulupov Menology recension), who cited Agapetus' work twenty three times and, as a rule, incorporated whole chapters of the Byzantine author into his text. Lobakova also notes that the authors of the two earlier recensions of the Life — the Short recension and the Milyutinskaya recension — included phrases from this Byzantine source in their texts independently from each other. This, in her opinion, can be an additional argument to support Ihor Ševčenko's hypothesis that the *Chapters of Admonition* by Agapetus the Deacon were one of the sources of real exhortations with which Metropolitan Philip addressed Ivan the Terrible.

В. И. Охотникова, *Псковская агиография XIV–XVII веков: Исследования и тексты. 2 тома* (Санкт-Петербург, 2007). — V. I. Okhotnikova, *Pskov Hagiography of the Fourteenth–Seventeenth Centuries: Studies and Texts. 2 vols* (St. Petersburg, 2007)

This voluminous study is unique in Russian hagiography scholarship as it embraces the most important texts of one regional hagiographical tradition and covers the whole period of its existence (the study does not really stop at the 17th century, but includes also eighteenth and nineteenth century recensions of earlier hagiographical texts). Its other merit is incorporation of prayer services into the study. In these two volumes Okhotnikova presents her studies of literary tradition and literary sources of lives and prayer services devot-

ed to prince Vsevolod-Gavriil, Dovmont, Euphrosin Polotsky, Savva Kryptesky, and Nikandr Pskovsky. The study of each recension is accompanied by a description of manuscripts and a publication of its text. The scholar also makes many interesting observations concerning ideas expressed in different recensions of these hagiographical writings. The great volume of the study and limited space here compel us to keep from discussing them.

* * *

When trying to analyze the results of the recent development of Russian hagiography studies found in Saint Petersburg publications, one can see several features specific to this new period. First, it is obvious that most of the studies present publications of hagiographical texts that either have not been published before, or had some prerevolutionary publication that does not correspond to modern scholarly rules and aims. This very urgent task is well understood by scholars. Secondly, along with publication the hagiographical texts are being analyzed using textological methods. There is still a lot of work to do, as many pieces of hagiography still lack publication and proper textological analysis. Thirdly, it is very satisfying that the scholars do not confine their studies to mere textological questions. Some attempts are made to study regional hagiographical traditions; of course, these attempts appear more sound when anticipated or accompanied by publications and textological studies of all texts thought to belong to one tradition. Several attempts have been made to discover some special types of hagiographical texts within the Northern Russian tradition and to study their characteristic features. Drawing hymnographical material into analysis of hagiographical writings also seems rather fruitful. Recent years have also seen the beginnings of intertextual analysis of such features of hagiography as *topoi* and assimilation principles — areas that until now remained untouched in Russian scholarship. It seems that Russian hagiography studies are experiencing a definite revival after decades of prohibition and neglect, although it is equally clear that we are witnessing just the beginning of the process.

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Москва

ДЕКОНСТРУКЦИЯ ДЕКОНСТРУКЦИИ

О книге Т. Л. Вилкул по истории древнерусского веча.*

Я, новому ученью
Отдавшись без раздела,
Хочу, чтоб в песнопенье
Всегда сквозило дело.

Служите ж делу, струны!
Уймите праздный ропот!
Российская коммуна,
Прими мой первый опыт!

(А. К. Толстой, «Порой веселой мая»)

Книга украинской исследовательницы Т. Л. Вилкул посвящена проблеме древнерусского веча и участию «народа» в управлении государством в домонгольскую эпоху, которая в последнее время, на первый взгляд, несколько неожиданно, вновь стала актуальной. За последние несколько лет это уже третья монография на эту тему: в 1999 г. опубликована книга польского историка П. Бороня, представляющая собой исследование западно- и восточнославянских «племенных» собраний», а в 2004 г. — работа шведского автора Ю. Гранберга, в которой рассматривается, главным образом, термин «вече» в древнерусских источниках.

Т. Л. Вилкул с самого начала противопоставляет свою методику работы всей предшествующей историографической традиции, более того, с явным сожалением замечает, что «к рассмотрению традиционных взглядов» (т.е. историографии вопроса) ей «порой приходится возвращаться» (с. 8). Что же собой представляют «нетрадиционные» взгляды украинской исследовательницы? Выявить их оказывается делом непростым. С одной стороны, автор вроде бы *explicite* пишет о том, что «исповеду-

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* Т. Л. Вилкул, *«Людье» и князь в конструкциях летописцев XI–XIII вв.* (Киев: Інститут історії України НАН України, 2007) (Ruthenica. Supplementum 1), ISBN 978-966-02-4407-8.

ет нарративизм» (с. 17), под которым, судя по сочувственному цитированию Х. Уайта и других теоретиков «деконструкции», подразумевается восприятие повествовательных источников (в данном случае, русских летописей) как текстов, отражающих не реальность, а риторические стратегии их авторов. «Нарративы», как подчеркивает Т. Л. Вилкул, «не отражают события в обычном понимании этого термина», «в нарративах действительность сконструирована» (с. 8). Однако несколькими страницами ниже мы читаем, что автор все-таки против идеи о полной непроницаемости текста, а «специфика профессии историка — полагать, что тексты каким-то образом коррелируют с реалиями» (с. 17). Но не будем придираться к теоретической путанице. Посмотрим, что на практике представляет собой работа украинского автора, тем более что в завершающей книгу главке с несколько игривым названием «Вместо эпилога» она сама призывает читателей судить об удаче или неудаче ее попытки именно «практического исследования нарративного конструирования на частном примере одного типа сюжетов — описаний взаимоотношений народа и правителя» (с. 341).

В результате внимательного чтения книги Т. Л. Вилкул выясняется, однако, что выполнить ее просьбу — оценить удачу или неудачу ее попытки — не так просто. Дело в том, что, с одной стороны, в ее книге блестяще применена методика «деконструкции» (только в несколько ином отношении, чем было, по-видимому, задумано автором). С другой стороны, в рамках «традиционной» историографии эта методика вообще не может быть сочтена научной, поскольку, как будет показано ниже, основывается сплошь на внутренних противоречиях, натяжках и грубых ошибках. Это обстоятельство до крайности затрудняет работу рецензента, потому что анализ всех огрехов, допущенных Т. Л. Вилкул в своей «нетрадиционной» монографии, потребовал бы написания новой книги, специально посвященной ее разбору.

Поэтому приходится сосредоточиться на основных принципах работы украинской исследовательницы, иллюстрируя их наиболее яркими примерами. Эти принципы, собственно, сводятся к последовательно проводимым, но, к сожалению, прямо не заявляемым способам «деконструкции» традиционных методов исследования, применяющихся учеными любых научных взглядов (позитивистами и марксистами, последователями школы «Анналов» и сторонниками «микроистории»). Среди них выделяются следующие.

Деконструкция историографии.

Выше уже отмечалось высокомерное отношение автора к предшествующей историографии, позволяющее, по ее мнению, в собственной монографии «ограничиться сравнительно кратким обзором» (с. 8). Но подразумевает ли «нетрадиционная» концепция *знание* работ историков, писавших до тебя? Как из «сравнительно краткого обзора», так и из текста глав монографии, следует, увы, отрицательный ответ. Славянофилам приписывается формула «самодержавие и народность» (с. 8) (хотя даже из школьных учебников можно было бы узнать, что она принадлежит официальным идеологам эпохи царствования Николая I, прежде всего, С. С. Уварову, а отнюдь не оппозиционно настроенным славянофилам). Славянофилы «разрабатывают теорию общины» якобы «в противовес немецкой школе права» (с. 9) (трудно поверить, но автор, по-видимому, не знает о немецкой «общинной» теории Г. Л. Маурера и его последователей, оказавшей огромное влияние на русскую историографию).

Другой пример уже не из «сравнительно краткого обзора», а из собственно исследовательского текста. «Деконструируя» летописные сообщения о вечевых расправах и пытаясь истолковать их с чисто литературной точки зрения (с. 301–306), украинская исследовательница из-за незнания историографии вопроса (прежде всего, зарубежной) игнорирует прекрасную возможность верификации таких свидетельств. Между тем, многие ее сомнения развеялись бы, если бы она познакомилась хотя бы с небольшой статьей по этому вопросу Анджея Поппе.[1] Ведь такого рода явления фиксируются практически во всей Центральной и Восточной Европе, и описываются в «нарративах» примерно схожим образом.

Обращение к историографии помогло бы автору преодолеть чрезмерный пессимизм в оценке летописных сообщений о пирах, описания которых, по ее мнению, «могли иметь своим образцом переводные сочинения» (с. 310). Даже если не говорить о работах XIX в., обращение к относительно недавней монографии Б. Н. Флори[2] могло бы обратить ее внимание на примечательный факт: полоцкий пир 1158 г., явно связанный с вечевым собрани-

(1) A. Poppe, Potok i grabież, в: *Słownik starożytności słowiańskich* (Wrocław, 1970) T. IV.

(2) См.: Б. Н. Флоря, *Отношения государства и церкви у восточных и западных славян* (Эпоха средневековья) (Москва, 1992) 85.

ем, называется точно так же («братчиной»), как и крестьянские общинные пиры, зафиксированные в делопроизводственной документации XVII в.

Слабое знание историографии — большой недостаток. Однако гораздо хуже ее сознательное искажение. Вот пример. Рассуждая о словосочетании «от мала и до велика», Т. Л. Вилкул пишет: «В современной литературе это, можно сказать, своеобразный символ вечевых собраний. По крайней мере, в популярных изложениях истории представительских органов на Руси, написанных в конце XIX–XX вв., само собой разумелось, что в вече принимали участие все "от мала и до велика"» (с. 66). Само по себе это заявление абсолютно не соответствует действительности. Более того, берусь утверждать, что не было ни одного сколько-нибудь серьезного историка, который бы высказывал абсурдное мнение о том, что в вечевых собраниях участвовали буквально все люди «от мала и до велика». Но это не главное. Главное в том, что в качестве единственного примера «популярных изложений» украинская исследовательница приводит недавно вышедшую работу В. Я. Петрухина. Однако, обратившись к ней, мы видим нечто совсем иное. Соглашаясь с мнением В. Т. Пашуто об условности выражений типа «от мала и до велика», историк высказывает предположение о том, что «эта условность имела особый правовой характер, указывала на правомочность отношений, установленных от имени "всей" общины».[3] Т. Л. Вилкул не просто грубо исказила, а примитивизировала мысль В. Я. Петрухина. А ведь речь идет не о каком-то малоизвестном авторе «конца XIX в.», а о современном активно работающем исследователе, научную репутацию которого автор ничтоже сумняшеся ставит под вопрос. Вопиющий характер этой «нарративной» процедуры становится еще более очевидным, если принять во внимание то обстоятельство, что Т. Л. Вилкул проигнорировала прямую ссылку В. Я. Петрухина на В. Т. Пашуто, который и без всякого «нарративизма» писал об условности подобных летописных выражений. Возникает сразу же подозрение о том, что новаторский характер «единственно верного учения», которое проповедует Т. Л. Вилкул, может быть признан, только если для его внедрения будут применяться те же меры, что и предыдущего.

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(3) В. Я. Петрухин, Древняя Русь: народ, князья, религия, в: *Из истории русской культуры*, т. 1, *Древняя Русь* (Москва, 2000) 106.

Помимо искажения мнений предшественников, используется и такой «нарративный» прием, как умолчание. Так, Т. Л. Вилкул успешно борется с ветряными мельницами, опровергая тезис о владимиро-суздальском «самовластии» и отсутствии там вечевого уклада (с. 141), забывая сообщить, что он давно был уже опровергнут А. Н. Насоновым,[4] мнение которого впоследствии было неоднократно повторено (Ю. А. Лимоновым, И. Я. Фрояновым и др.).

Кстати о Насонове. В начале монографии автор заявляет, что при анализе летописных известий она следует традиционным текстологическим схемам, за одним исключением, касающимся соотношения текстов Ип. и Лавр. Здесь Т. Л. Вилкул ссылается на «проведенное … текстологическое исследование», которое «позволило сделать заключение о существовании общего протографа, различным образом, а в других случаях дополненного при редактировании в каждом из двух сохранившихся источников». Текст Лавр., по ее словам, «оказывается не сокращенным вариантом» Ип., а равноправным, и даже в некоторых случаях более предпочтительным источником для реконструкции протографа (с. 18–19). К сожалению, читателю предлагается принять результаты «проведенного исследования» практически на веру, поскольку речь идет о статье, опубликованной в достаточно труднодоступном издании, а в самой монографии эта важнейшая источниковедческая «кухня» оказалась спрятанной. В XII в., как известно, больше всего упоминаний вечевых собраний содержится в «Киевском своде» в составе Ип. Бóльшую их часть Т. Л. Вилкул относит к позднейшим вставкам (II глава, passim). Между тем, практически *ни разу* не приводятся классические показатели вставок, типа текстологических «швов», повторов и т.п. Все строится на общих рассуждениях и отсылках к «проведенному исследованию». Это обстоятельство чрезвычайно затрудняет адекватную оценку построений автора в тех местах книги, где предлагается сопоставление рассказов Ип. и Лавр.[5] Но кое-что сказать все же можно. Дело в том, что сопоставление текстов за XII в. в Ип. и Лавр. как раз проводил упоминав-

(4) А. Н. Насонов, Князь и город в Ростово-Суздальской земле, в: *«Века». Исторический сборник*, вып. 1 (Петроград, 1924). Эта важнейшая работа вообще не учтена автором, что, конечно, позволяет ей сделать ряд «открытий».

(5) Читателям предлагаем самостоятельно ответить на вопрос: идет ли речь о скромности украинской исследовательницы, по неизвестной причине решившей не включать в довольно объемную монографию

шийся выше А. Н. Насонов. Автор знает об этом (с. 201), но вот как она передает его основную мысль: «А. Н. Насонов сравнивал тексты, но он считал Лавр. сокращением Ипат.» (с. 301, сноска). Не проявляя ригоризма, согласимся для начала, что Т. Л. Вилкул просто неудачно выразилась, и не приписывала А. Н. Насонову абсурдную идею о том, что *вся* Лавр. — сокращение Ип. Но вот к какому выводу на самом деле пришел этот историк. Он, действительно, полагал, что «южнорусский текст XII в.» в Лавр. до 1157 г. основывался на подвергшемся сокращению киевском источнике, который в более полном виде отразился в Ип. (и подтверждал этот тезис не ссылками на «проведенное исследование», а конкретными примерами), однако оговаривался при этом: «Несомненно также, что этот киевский летописный источник, хотя был очень близок к Ипатьевской летописи, однако несколько отличался от текста последней, *представляя более раннюю редакцию* /курсив мой. — *П. Л.*/, и не имел вставок из черниговского источника».[6] Таким образом, точка зрения А. Н. Насонова грубо примитивизируется, и на этом фоне расцветают достижения автора. Однако, в действительности, как мы видим, А. Н. Насонов еще задолго до Т. Л. Вилкул пришел к выводу и о наличии в «Киевском своде» вставок (и даже определил их происхождение), и о том, что текст Лавр., отражая по сравнению с Ип. более раннюю редакцию, может содержать лучшие чтения (и опять-таки приводил конкретные примеры таких чтений).[7]

Трудно сказать, кто из крупных историков не пострадал от украинской исследовательницы. Вот, обсуждая события 1259 г. о «числе» в Новгороде, она удивляется, что до нее «никогда не предпринималось попыток объяснить сообщение о "лихих" намерениях атаковать Новгород с двух сторон» (с. 246). И сама Т. Л. Вилкул на следующей же странице пишет, что такое объяснение было дано В. Л. Яниным, предположившим, что на обе стороны Новгорода планировали напасть князь Александр Невский и татары. Эта интерпретация не нравится автору (она даже обвиняет В. Л. Янина в том, что он «приписал враждебные намерения князю», с. 247,

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(33,9 п.л.!) традиционный источниковедческий раздел, или о «нарративном» приеме умолчания.

(6) А. Н. Насонов, *История русского летописания XI – начала XVIII века. Очерки и исследования* (Москва, 1969) 111.

(7) См.: Там же, 80–110.

сноска), но не объясняет, почему. Между тем, она не противоречит источнику.

Деконструкция текстологии

Текстологические вопросы тоже решаются вполне «нетрадиционно». Рассказ о событиях 1015 г. в Новгороде НПЛ мл., по Т. Л. Вилкул, является «примером текстуальной зависимости» от ПВЛ (с. 29), хотя в первом есть очевидные лучшие чтения, а во втором — столь же очевидная вставка. Со ссылкой на А. А. Гиппиуса автор утверждает, что упоминание веча в НПЛ мл. под 1193 г. находится во «вставке, не принадлежащей первоначальному тексту» (с. 30, 33). Это верно, но почему-то умалчивается о том, что, согласно тому же А. А. Гиппиусу, вставка была сделана всего шестью годами спустя, т.е. явно современником событий.[8]

Вообще, для текстологических суждений Т. Л. Вилкул характерна предельная лаконичность, аргументами она читателя не балует. Выводы, тем не менее, делаются далеко идущие. Выполним за автора его работу и разберем здесь одно такое место. Т. Л. Вилкул пишет, что в Ип. «под 1147 г. приведены ошибочные сведения о Ростиславе /Мстиславиче. — *П. Л.*/, указывающее /sic!/ на позднее происхождение этой версии текста…» (с. 61). В сноске в качестве обоснования приводится указание на то, что «Ростислав здесь распоряжается “смольнянами” и “новгородцами”», тогда как Новгород, как отмечает украинская исследовательница, находился в то время под контролем Изяслава Мстиславича (с. 61, сноска). Между тем, чтобы убедиться в абсурдности рассуждений Т. Л. Вилкул, не надо даже специальной проверки. Достаточно просто открыть летопись в указанном месте и прочитать, что Ростислав не только не «распоряжался» новгородцами, но именно Изяслав приказал ему «нарядить» против Юрия Долгорукого, кроме новгородцев, еще и смолян — жителей земли, в которой княжил сам Ростислав.[9] «Ценность» подобных «аргументов» очевидна. Но остаются открытыми другие вопросы: имеем ли мы дело с сознательной … «нарративной стратегией» (трудно себе представить, что Т. Л. Вилкул просто не заметила прямого летописного указания), а, главное, на кого рассчитаны подобные «аргументы»?

(8) См.: А. А. Гиппиус, К истории сложения текста Новгородской первой летописи, в: *Новгородский исторический сборник*, вып. 6 (16) (Санкт-Петербург, 1997) 26–27.

(9) *ПСРЛ*, т. 2, стб. 347.

Еще один пример — «расправа» с известием Московского летописного свода конца XV в. о созыве Всеволодом Большое Гнездо т. н. собора во Владимире в 1211 г. Автор считает, что известие о нем — позднего происхождения. Аргумента два: ссылка на мнение А. Е. Преснякова и заявление о том, что «несомненно, перед нами сочинение московского книжника, бравшего за образец современную ему практику» (с. 103, сноска). Оба аргумента, несмотря на уверенность Т. Л. Вилкул, несостоятельны: книга А. Е. Преснякова была написана *до* основополагающих открытий в области текстологии древнерусского летописания, и его мнение по данному вопросу не представляет ценности; никакой даже отдаленно похожей на этот «собор» «современной практики» в Русском государстве XV в. не существовало (первые земские соборы, и то ограниченного состава, начинают созываться только с середины XVI в.). Украинская исследовательница полностью проигнорировала работу А. Н. Насонова, убедительно показавшего, что это известие относится к своду владимирского князя Юрия Всеволодича,[10] подвергшегося затем тенденциозному редактированию (его результаты отразились в Лавр. и сводах, которые на ней основываются). Здесь нужно оговориться. Безусловно, Т. Л. Вилкул (как и любой другой ученый) вправе не соглашаться с реконструкцией А. Н. Насонова. Но для этого надо опровергнуть его аргументацию, а не отделываться несколькими неубедительными фразами, притом курьезным образом противоречащими известным историческим фактам.

Как уже говорилось, Т. Л. Вилкул во многих случаях при анализе летописных известий за XII в. предпочитает Лавр., а не Ип. Аргументацию она обычно оставляет «за кадром», но некоторые доводы иногда приводит. Увы, они подчас оказываются совершенно надуманными. Даже если признать, что в Лавр. имеется «последовательное одобрение и обеливание» Всеволода Ольговича (с. 169, сноска), утверждать, что это ранний текст, поскольку после 1146 г. (смерти Всеволода) «такая тенденция вряд ли могла проявиться», нет никаких оснований: ведь в Киеве и во второй половине XII в. княжили Ольговичи, в частности, сын Всеволода Святослав — один из героев повествования. Но самое интересное

(10) Насонов, *История русского летописания*…, 210–211. Впервые мнение об отражении в МЛС древнего владимиро-суздальского источника было высказано А. А. Шахматовым.

в другом. По Т. Л. Вилкул, один и тот же факт может свидетельствовать о прямо противоположных явлениях; если в Ип. положительно оценивается Изяслав Мстиславич, это значит, что мы имеем дело с поздней компиляцией, если в Лавр. (как ей кажется) — Всеволод Ольгович — это ранний текст, потому что не могли же положительно оценивать князя, умершего в 1146 г…

«Игра в одни ворота» — фирменный текстологический метод украинской исследовательницы. Вот она совершенно справедливо отмечает грамматический сбой в рассказе о битве на Руте и ее последствиях в Ип. и его отсутствие в Лавр. (с. 201). Сразу же следует глобальный вывод: «Эти и другие неувязки позволяют рассматривать тексты Лавр и Ипат не только как параллельные источники, но как первоначальную и вторичную версию». Между тем, противоположную ситуацию *в той же летописной статье* Т. Л. Вилкул почему-то не замечает и не комментирует (ссылок на ранее «проведенное исследование» также нет): в Лавр. грамматические и смысловые сбои, в Ип. — нормальные формы. Речь идет о об известном эпизоде борьбы между Изяславом Мстиславичем и Юрием Долгоруким за Киев — речной битве на Днепре. В Лавр.: «Гюргеви же со Олговичи хотящю поступити внизъ к Витечевьскому броду, не смѣющим же имъ пустити лодеи мимо Кыевъ, но пустиша и в озеро Долобьское, и оттуда волочиша и берегом в Золотьчю. По Золотьчи же внидоша въ Днѣпръ лодьѣ ихъ. Полци же Гюргеви идяхуть по лугу».[11] Допустим, это изначальный, ранний текст. Но тогда непонятно, кого («и») пускали в озеро, а потом волочили берегом в Золотчу? Как могли полки Юрия Долгорукого одновременно двигаться и по воде на ладьях, и по суше? Варианты Радзивиловской и Академической летописей (далее соответственно Р и А) показывают, что мы, скорее всего, имеем дело не с индивидуальными ошибками переписчика Лавр. списка, а со сбоями в протографе, свидетельствующими о не вполне удачной редакционной правке, которая по-разному устранялась (или, как в Лавр. списке, *не* устранялась в основывающихся на нем текстах). Местоимение «и» там всюду опущено, а вместо «полци» в А стоит «Половци»[12] (в Р — «[п]олци»[13]). Между тем, именно в Ип. при-

(11) *ПСРЛ*, т. 1, стб. 331.

(12) Там же, стб. 331–332, варианты.

(13) *Радзивиловская летопись* (Санкт-Петербург—Москва, 1994), *Л*. 189 об.

сутствуют бесспорно правильные чтения («ѣ» вместо «и», «половци» вместо «полци»[14]).

В этой же статье Т. Л. Вилкул в словах киевлян, обращенных к князьям: «Пакы ли хто не поидет, намъ же и даи, ать мы сами побьемы», усматривает заимствование из обращения новгородцев к Ярославу перед сражением со Святополком Окаянным в ПВЛ: «Аще кто не поидеть с нами, сами потнемъ» (с. 202, 291). Но ведь фразы-то разные! Если бы вторая, действительно, была «образцом» для первой, как считает автор, то летописец более позднего времени просто переписал бы ее из более раннего текста, и обе фразы полностью бы совпали. Глагол «потяти» употребляется в Ип.,[15] так что заменять его на «побити» было не нужно.

Предпримем теперь небольшой опыт текстологии в духе Т. Л. Вилкул. Украинская исследовательница высказывает предположение (с. 208) о том, что «необычные» обозначения, встречающиеся в статьях Лавр. и Ип. 30-х гг. XII в. «людье кияне» и «людие черниговци» являются «характерным выражением одного из ранних летописцев». Это, в частности, склоняет автора к мнению о том, что запись Лавр. о вокняжении в Киеве Ярополка Владимировича «ближе к первоначальной», а в Ип., «как и во многих других случаях, текст сильнее отредактирован». Однако есть пример, когда обозначение такого типа есть в Ип. и отсутствует в Лавр.: «люди Голядь» под 6655 г.[16] Неужели это тот же «ранний летописец», работавший, как выясняется, и во второй половине 40-х гг. XII в., и результаты его деятельности фиксируются то в одной, то в другой летописи? Так кто же кого редактировал? А главное: почему Т. Л. Вилкул обозначения одного и того же типа — одно (в Лавр.) выносит на первый план, а другое (в Ип.) игнорирует? Боюсь, что мы опять имеем дело с типичным случаем «нарративного конструирования».

Деконструкция церковной письменности

Т. Л. Вилкул очень любит библейские, гимнографические и другие церковные тексты. Именно они служат тем, по выражению Люсьена Февра, ключом, которым она стремится открыть все двери: именно там находится резервуар «топики», ссылаясь

(14) *ПСРЛ*, т. 2, стб. 424.

(15) Там же, стб. 558.

(16) Там же, стб. 339.

на которую, автор пытается доказать литературный характер летописных «нарративов». Между тем церковные тексты, к сожалению, не отвечают ей взаимностью, о чем свидетельствуют ошибки в их характеристике. Так, лексема «вѣча» в Успенском сборнике XII в. присутствует не в «отрывке евангельских чтений» (с. 23), а в Чтении св. Андрея Критского на Лазареву субботу; «вѣче» в Супрасльской рукописи — не в «Страсти мученика Артемия» (с. 26), а в «Слове» свт. Иоанна Златоуста на Великий Четверг. Благодаря «открытию» Т. Л. Вилкул, в Библии обнаружилась «1-я книга Судей» (с. 48) (очевидно, есть 2-я, 3-я…).

Сплошь и рядом Т. Л. Вилкул обнаруживает в летописях заимствования из библейских текстов, но при избранной ей методике их поиска в древнерусских текстах можно найти заимствования откуда угодно. Выражаясь ее словами, приведем «всего несколько примеров» (с. 47).

Автор доказывает, что словосочетания типа «все кияне» не надо понимать буквально («наполнения» таких обозначений, по ее мнению, «были ситуативными»). Для доказательства этого тезиса Т. Л. Вилкул использует свой излюбленный козырь — библейские заимствования: «Подобные явления прослеживаются уже в древнеславянских переводах Библии и могли быть позаимствованы оттуда». В качестве примера используется эпизод из Деяний апостолов, а именно — проповедь ап. Павла в афинском ареопаге. Как утверждает украинская исследовательница, апостол «обращается ко “всем афинянам”, хотя известно, что в Ареопаге были представлены не все, но избранные афинские граждане» (с. 47). Между тем, для любого человека, имеющего представление не только о достижениях «нарратологии», но и о содержании новозаветного текста, сразу становится понятно, что здесь какое-то недоразумение. Действительно, если мы откроем русский перевод Нового Завета, увидим, что там написано следующее: «Ведь для всех афинян и иностранцев, живущих в городе, нет большего развлечения, чем узнавать и обсуждать все новейшие идеи. Павел, представ перед Ареопагом, заговорил...» (Деян. 17: 21–22). Ясно, что, на самом деле, «все афиняне» — это просто жители Афин, и к членам Ареопага они никакого отношения не имеют. Но откуда же взялась «интерпретация» Т. Л. Вилкул? Выясняется, что ее основой послужил славянский перевод Апостола, который автор цитирует следующим образом: «Афинее же вси приходяще и страннии (все афинские граждане и неафи-

няне — *Т. В.*)... став же Павел посредѣ Ариева леда рече: мужие афинеистии...». Таким образом, Т. Л. Вилкул, во-первых, не поняла элементарного славянского текста, а, во-вторых, по-видимому, незнакома с содержанием Деяний апостолов. Особенно курьезно в связи с этим выглядит глубокомысленный комментарий автора, призванный, очевидно, продемонстрировать энциклопедический характер ее познаний: «Ареопаг — древний афинский суд, происхождение которого неясно. Состав участников — аристократический, Солон ввел в Ареопаг бывших архонтов» (с. 47, сноска).[17]

Ниже автор утверждает, что в ветхозаветной Книге Судей «одни и те же действия — избиение 70 братьев Авимелеха — приписаны сначала самому Авимелеху, а ниже — «мужам сикхемским», принявшим его на царство» (с. 48). На самом деле, никакой «нарративной конструкции» в библейском тексте нет, и, если бы украинская исследовательница прочитала рассказ об Авимелехе полностью, она бы увидела, что в нем совершенно эксплицитно говорится о том, что Авимелех совершил убийство 70 человек, естественно, не один, а вместе с «праздными и своевольными людьми», которые и были сихемскими «мужами» (Суд. 9:4). На основании этого недоразумения делается «существенный» вывод о том, что «властитель (царь) … может представлять землю» (с. 47–48).

На с. 89 к числу «книжных памятников» отнесены договоры Руси с Византией. На с. 130 Т. Л. Вилкул обнаруживает неизвестный церковный праздник — Вознесение креста (и так удивляется своему открытию, что ставит восклицательный знак): не иначе, имеем дело с «нарратологической» контаминацией Воздвижения Креста Господня и Вознесения Господня. На с. 143 неверно трактуется позиция ростовского епископа Леона в вопросе о постах, как она отражена в Лавр.: по Т. Л. Вилкул, епископ якобы «запрещает праздновать в великие праздники», тогда как на деле речь шла о необходимости поста на Рождество или Крещение Господни, если они приходятся на среду и пятницу. На с. 145 автор путает Пятидесятницу (праздник св. Троицы) и праздник Всех Святых, которые приходятся на разные дни церковного календаря. Непонятно, на каком основании делается вывод о том, что в словах

(17) Это место так понравилось Т. Л. Вилкул, что она повторила свои рассуждения по его поводу (в т. ч. информацию о Солоне и бывших архонтах) практически без изменений в другой главе (с. 231).

пророка Исаии о «князьях содомских» и «людях гоморских» идет речь о «группах людей равного статуса» (с. 232).

На с. 211 мы встречаемся, скорее, не с путаницей, а с очередным случаем «нарративного конструирования». Украинская исследовательница высказывает мысль о том, что речь новгородцев из Ип., обращенная к Изяславу Мстиславичу, «стилизована под текст Александрии /Хронографической. — *П. Л.*/, а также под речи римлян из "Истории иудейской войны" Иосифа Флавия» (с. 211, сноска). Приведем для наглядности три фразы из этих текстов (так, как они даны у Т. Л. Вилкул) в виде небольшой таблицы:

Ип.	*Александрия*	*Иудейская война*
Ты наш князь, ты наш Володимиръ, ты наш Мьстиславъ	Нынѣ вемъ Александъра новаго Дария соуща намъ… своего нынѣ Дария видѣхомъ — Александра великаго царя	Ты благодателникъ намъ, ты еси спасъ, ты еси избавитель нашъ, ты единъ достоинъ кесарства римскаго… и вси по ряду кликаху, весь же град бѣ яко яко церкви исплъненъ…

Нетрудно заметить, что общего между этими фразами мало. Вторая по форме вообще ничего общего не имеет с первой, поэтому ее в качестве образца стилизации можно отвести сразу. Третья внешне похожа несколько больше, но зато принципиально отличается по содержанию: там, где в русской летописи представлено классическое «мифологическое отождествление»,[18] в переводе «Иудейской войны» люди награждают героя-освободителя вполне рациональными эпитетами. Для выявления таких стилизаций подойдет практически любой источник. Чтобы не быть голословным, предложу свой вариант. Возьмем текст из великого славословия: «…Ты еси един Свят, Ты еси един Господь, Иисус Христос, в славу Бога Отца». В чем тут преимущество — это известнейший литургический текст, который, конечно, летописцы знали наизусть. А по форме он не менее похож на Ип., чем две другие фразы.

Односторонность автора легко выявляется там, где она отказывается от своего эскизного стиля и, действительно, предлагает сопоставление текстов. Приведем для полноты картины один из

(18) См.: Б. А. Успенский, Царь и самозванец: самозванчество в России как культурно-исторический феномен, в: Он же, *Избранные труды*, т. 1 (Москва, 1994) (Семиотика истории. Семиотика культуры) 82.

«выгодных» для нее примеров. Вот она сопоставляет фразу из Иосифа Флавия и Ип. (с. 229–230):

Ип.	*Иудейская война*
Не можемъ на Володимере племя рукы възняти.	От земець никто же не въсхотѣ воздвигати рукъ противу

Даже если мы допустим, что выражение «не мочь рукы възняти» — топос (хотя это и не очевидно) — ясно, что главное в летописной фразе (представления киевлян или летописца о верности роду Владимира Мономаха) — остается в комментарии Т. Л. Вилкул «за кадром». Максимум, на что может претендовать (и то в очень немногих случаях, и в более качественном, чем у Т. Л. Вилкул, исполнении) «нарратология», — это наблюдения над литературной техникой древнерусских летописцев, но никак не на решение исторических проблем *en tant que tels*.

В поисках литературных заимствований украинская исследовательница ищет их даже в словах «жены и дети» («при упоминаниях “жен и детей” с высокой степенью вероятности можно предполагать использование книжниками библейской топики», с. 226), не замечая, что это полностью обессмысливает все ее построения. Ведь если такие обиходные слова относятся к «топике», то к ней можно относить все что угодно, не глядя. Возникает вопрос, как летописец должен был бы охарактеризовать пострадавших «некомбаттантов», чтобы не быть заподозренным в заимствовании «топики»? Возникает и второй вопрос. Переводчики Библии на славянский язык такие слова, как «жены» и «дети», брали откуда? Неужели это кальки с греческого (типа «нарочитых мужей»)? А, может быть, они брали их из живого узуса? Такие мысли, очевидно, в голову «нарратолога» не приходят. У нее все просто — есть в переводных памятниках, значит, «топика».

Итогом рассуждений автора о разнообразных заимствованиях из церковной письменности становится фраза: «Как видим, в переводных текстах “коллективные органы власти” предстают приблизительно такими, какими видим их в летописи» (с. 238). Увы, не видим. Украинской исследовательнице не только не удалось доказать свою гипотезу, но она даже не смогла удовлетворительно объяснить то весьма примечательное обстоятельство, что в переводных текстах практически не встречается само слово «вѣче». Ведь, казалось бы, этого не могло произойти при «копировании выражений»? Почему же летописцы столь упорно его использовали? При обычной научной (а не «нарратологической) логике

единственным приемлемым объяснением было бы признание того, что они его почерпнули из реальной жизни, а обозначало оно, следовательно, вполне реальное явление, которое изображалось в повествовательных источниках с помощью различных литературных приемов. Однако такой ответ для Т. Л. Вилкул неприемлем, поэтому она предпочитает проблему всерьез не обсуждать.

Стремление автора найти следы церковной письменности везде, где только можно (и очень часто, увы, где нельзя), очевидно. Однако слабое ее знание сплошь и рядом подводит Т. Л. Вилкул. Один из таких ляпсусов — в самом конце книги. На с. 338 она рассуждает об изображении в летописях наказаний князьями подвластных им людей и пишет: «В зависимости от обстоятельств, может встретиться и теоретическое обоснование покараний» и приводит фразу из паремийного чтения о свв. Борисе и Глебе (которая названа «Паремией о Ярославе и новгородцах», хотя в древнерусское время Ярослав канонизирован не был, а о святых новгородцах — участниках событий 1015 г. ничего не известно): «Князь бо не туне носить мечь, слуга Божии бо есть». Т. Л. Вилкул называет ее «пассажем» и обнаруживает заимствование из паремии в рассказах Лавр. и Ип. об убийстве Андрея Боголюбского. Количество таких заимствований можно легко умножить и превратить «Паремию о Ярославе и новгородцах» в важнейший текст русского средневековья. Если, конечно, не знать, что приведенный автором «пассаж» — хрестоматийная цитата из Рим. 13: 4 (украинская исследовательница даже не заметила, что в летописных рассказах есть прямая ссылка на ап. Павла).[19]

Деконструкция лингвистики

Хотя Т. Л. Вилкул считает себя историком, эту область знаний она тоже не обходит своим вниманием. «Нетрадиционный» подход находит себе применение и в отношении лексики, и синтаксиса, и грамматики. Так, в Успенском сборнике XII в. есть фраза: «Рече еи /Марфе — *П. Л.*/ Исусъ: “въстанеть братъ ти”, радостьно слово и соугоубь имѣя цѣльбоу, не тъчию съблажнение исправляя, нъ и великоу печаль гася; “въстанеть ти братъ”, не кычения дѣльма не вѣча: “азъ въставлю братъ ти”, нъ нарочьно “въстанеть” рекыи, искоушая еи вѣроу».[20] Т. Л. Вилкул обрубает ее при ци-

(19) *ПСРЛ*, т. 2, стб. 592; т. 1, стб. 370.

(20) *Успенский сборник XII–XIII вв.* (Москва, 1971) 376.

тировании и неправильно расставляет знаки препинания: «Рече еи Исусъ … въстанеть ти братъ не кычения дѣльма, не вѣча азъ въставлю братъ ти, нъ нарочьно въстанеть» (с. 23), а потом удивляется, что «синтаксическая конструкция далеко не прозрачна». Еще бы! Не так уж легко понять, что означает «нарочьно въстанетъ»! Но не это самое главное. Слабое знание древнерусского языка обычно вынуждает «традиционных» историков обходить лингвистические проблемы, но для адепта «нарративизма» это не помеха. И Т. Л. Вилкул высказывает в связи с этим фрагментом глубокомысленные предположения. Оказывается, древнерусское «въстати» имело значение не только «воскреснуть», но и «восстать». И это, наряду с «непрозрачным синтаксисом», могло «спровоцировать» появление восточнославянской формы «вѣча» вместо «вѣща». Непонятно, только, как мог русский переводчик (переписчик) иметь в виду значение «восстать» в данном конкретном случае — применительно к Лазарю Четверодневному. Против кого он мог восстать? Или древнерусский книжник не знал этого хрестоматийного евангельского рассказа?

Вопреки Т. Л. Вилкул, содержащая «дательный самостоятельный» фраза из Галицко-Волынской летописи: «Самому же Данилу созвавшу вѣче, оставьшуся въ 18 отрокъ вѣрнихъ … и рече…», как бы ее ни понимать, не может означать сама по себе, что Даниил созвал вече в составе 18 отроков (с. 25).

Регулярно Т. Л. Вилкул неправильно восстанавливает древнерусские формы именительного падежа множественного числа (например, «бояры» вместо «бояре» (с. 90, 93 и др.), путая их, очевидно, с винительным. В другом месте возникает слово «лодѣиниць» как вин. мн. (с. 242) — от «лодѣиници» — воины на кораблях.

Иногда непонимание автором простейшего древнерусского текста просто поражает. Увидев в договоре Новгорода с князем Ярославом Ярославичем слова «от мала и от велика», Т. Л. Вилкул трактует его как «некое наиболее полное перечисление предметов и идеальных явлений /?!/, а не только /!/ людей». И в сноске: «…используется для обозначения “нелюбья”, т.е. ‘трений’, ‘раздора’» (с. 67). Докончание (вообще-то юридический документ, составлявшийся с конкретной практической целью), таким образом, оказывается какой-то туманной литературщиной. Но туман быстро рассеивается, если обратиться к самому тексту договора. В соответствующей статье читаем: «А что, къняже, тобе было гнѣва на посадника и на всь Новгородъ, то ти, княже, все нелю-

бье отложити и от мала и от велика, не мщати ти ни судомь, ни чим же».[21] Комментарии, полагаю, тут не требуются. Но вот что интересно для характеристики, так сказать, творческой «лаборатории» Т. Л. Вилкул. Даже при скромных лингвистических познаниях было достаточно перелистнуть несколько страниц того же издания и обнаружить грамоту Новгорода сыну Ярослава Михаилу с условиями договора, где такая же по типу клаузула сформулирована несколько иначе: «А нелюбие, княже, тобѣ отложити и от старѣишихъ, и от мьншихъ, и от всѣх».[22] Итак, «малые» и «великие» — это то же самое, что «старейшие» и «меньшие», т.е., разумеется, *только* люди, а не «предметы» и «идеальные явления».

Одним из способов демонстрации того, что летописный рассказ характеризуется «использованием книжной топики» (с. 51) служит для автора наличие в нем «редкой книжной лексики». Под последней подразумеваются слова, которые а) редко встречаются в Лавр., Ип. и НПЛ; б) встречаются в переводных текстах. Такой простой (до элементарности) подход приводит к неизбежным казусам. Так, к «редкой книжной лексике» Т. Л. Вилкул относит глагол «прѣтити» (с. 51, сноска), хотя он присутствует в говорах.[23] Иной раз деконструкция лингвистики идет рука об руку с деконструкцией палеографии, и тогда возникают открытия (правда, в сфере «нарративного конструирования», а не науки). На с. 92 мы узнаем, что в Ип. имеется «редкостное перечисление: “бояре и мсции”», которое становится поводом для нового полета авторской мысли. Оказывается, под «мсции», «вероятно, следует понимать “мѣстичей”». В Хлебниковском списке читается «мсцеи». Слово, как полагает украинская исследовательница, «искажено в обоих списках — И и Хл.». Поскольку «мѣстичи» в дальнейшем упоминаются лишь в конце XIII в. в Галицко-Волынской летописи, автор выдвигает предположение о том, что «мсции» — результат позднего редактирования «Киевского свода» галицким летописцем (здесь, как мы видим, имеется уже тонкое текстологическое наблюдение). Каково же будет наше разочарование, если мы обратимся к прозе жизни (т.е. непосредственно к источнику).

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(21) С. Н. Валк (ред.), *Грамоты Великого Новгорода и Пскова* (Москва—Ленинград, 1949) 13 (далее — *ГВНП*).

(22) *ГВНП*, 18.

(23) *Словарь русских народных говоров*, вып. 31 (*Почестно-присуть*) (Санкт-Петербург, 1997) 97.

Оставим в стороне вопрос о том, как Т. Л. Вилкул удалось восстановить из формы «мсции» (где «с» — выносная) форму «мѣстичи» (сказано ведь, в обоих списках слово искажено, — чего не бывает!). Но как ей удалось не заметить титла над «и» перед словом «мсции»?! Уж это-то, казалось бы, могло навести на мысль о том, что в интерпретации что-то не то (даже если не знать такого хрестоматийного факта, что «м(ѣ)с(я)ции» — никакое не искажение, а вполне нормальная древняя форма родительного падежа существительных м.р. с основой на –ь мн. ч.[24])? Таким образом, фраза из «редкостной» становится вполне стандартной и не нуждающейся ни в каком «нарратологическом» комментарии: «…выбѣже княгини изь Галича въ Ляхи … и мнози боярѣ с нею быша тамо 8 м(ѣ)с(я)ции».[25]

Что реально означает для концепции книги Т. Л. Вилкул непонимание ей древнерусских текстов, которыми она стремится заниматься, можно проиллюстрировать на примере раздела о слове «дружина» (с. 72–86). Как подчеркивает сама исследовательница, он понадобился ей только из-за того, что существует напрасно якобы не отмеченное словарями древнерусского языка значение слова «дружина» — «участники веча». Но в действительности составители словарей поступали совершенно верно, не отмечая этого фантастического значения. Дело в том, что все примеры, которые приводит в подтверждение своего тезиса Т. Л. Вилкул, либо опять-таки основаны на элементарном непонимании текста, либо на его неправильной (или неполной) интерпретации. Прежде всего, исследовательница смогла найти только один пример, в котором есть само слово «вѣче», — известие ПВЛ под 1015 г. о конфликте Ярослава и новгородцев. В нем, по утверждению автора, «“новгородцы”, «собравшиеся на вече, в речи князя названы также “дружиной”» (с. 72, 294). Однако в источнике — совсем другое. Существует два варианта известия, в одном, в составе Лавр., читается: «Заутра же собравъ избытокъ Новгородець, Ярославъ реч(е): “о люба моя дружина, юже вчера избихъ на вѣчи, от(ь)ць мои умерлъ…”»; другое с небольшими отличиями сохранилось в Р, А и Ип., цитирую по Р.: «Наутра же собравъ избытоко новгородцевъ, Ярославъ реч(е): “о любимая дружина, юже вчера избихъ, а н(ы)нѣ быша надобе”. Утерлъ слезъ и реч(е) имъ на вѣчи: “от(ь)ць

(24) См.: А. И. Соболевский, *Лекции по истории русского языка* (Москва, 2005) 175–176.

(25) *ПСРЛ*, т. 2, стб. 564.

мои умре…”».[26] Л. Мюллер уже отмечал очевидную ошибочность чтения Лавр.[27] (в самом деле, вряд ли Ярослав мог рассказывать о событиях в Киеве перебитой накануне дружине). Т. Л. Вилкул явно принимает чтение большинства списков ПВЛ (поскольку в Лавр. «дружиной» названы не новгородцы, а убитые «нарочитые мужи»), но в этой версии «дружина» не обозначает участников веча, а представляет собой риторическое восклицание сетующего о гибели «нарочитых мужей» Ярослава. Все же остальные примеры отождествления веча и дружины, приводимые автором, в принципе, не имеют отношения к делу: во-первых, вече в них вообще не упоминается, во-вторых, во всех случаях слово «дружина» можно легко объяснить вполне традиционно (достаточно допустить, например, что во фразах типа «рекша своеи дружинѣ Кианомъ и Смолняном» киевляне и смоляне — это киевские и смоленские дружинники соответствующих князей, и идея Т. Л. Вилкул о «неучтенном» словарями значении мгновенно отсекается «бритвой Оккама»). Вообще, рассматривать столь однобоко такие фразы можно, только забыв о том, что в оригиналах летописей, откуда они берутся, отсутствуют знаки препинания, и что расстановка их — задача исследователя, причем сделать он обязан это не максимально выгодно для своей концепции, а максимально *невыгодно*, иначе все его построения не будут иметь ни малейшей ценности.

Деконструкция иностранных языков

Обычно «нетрадиционные» направления приходили в отечественную историографию с Запада, и «нарративизм» здесь не является исключением. Тем удивительнее обращение автора с текстами на иностранных языках и трагикомические курьезы, непрестанно с ней случающиеся при обращении к ним. Английский историк Гай Хэлсолл (Guy Halsall) почему-то переименован в «Гея» (Gay Halsall), и не в одном месте, а всюду в тексте (даже в указателе и библиографическом списке) (с. 18, 29, 220, 366, 383). Не повезло в книге Т. Л. Вилкул и немецкому историку Клаусу Цернаку. Его фамилия регулярно передается, как Zernak (правильно:

(26) *ПСРЛ*, т. 1, стб. 140–141.

(27) *Die Nestorchronik: die altrussiche Chronik zugeschrieben dem Mönch des Kiever Höhlenklosters Nestor, in der Redaktion des Abtes Sil'vestr aus dem Jahre 1116, rekonstruiert nach den Handschriften Lavrent'evskaja, Radzivilovskaja, Akademičeskaja, Troickaja, Ipat'evskaja und Khlebnikovskaja, ins Deutsche übersetzt* von Ludolf Müller (München, 2001) (Forum Slavicum 56) 175.

Zernack), а по-русски он один раз назван «Цорнаком» (с. 14). Книга его и в библиографическом списке, и в сносках иногда фигурирует как *Die burgstädtischen versammlungen bei den Ost- und Westlaven* вместо правильного *Die burgstädtischen Volksversammlungen bei den Ost- und Westslaven. Studien zur verfassungsgeschichtlichen Bedeutung des Veče* (автор, очевидно, не вполне в курсе того обстоятельства, что существительные в немецком языке пишутся с большой буквы). Но хуже всего то, что ему приписываются мнения, которых он не придерживался. На с. 73 Т. *Л.* Вилкул пишет, что немецкий историк якобы принял предположение А. Е. Преснякова о том, что в статье Ип. под 6655 г. в словах «и всю дроужину свою Кияне»[28] «кияне» — то же что и «дружина своя», а союза «и» между этими понятиями ставить не надо (с. 73, сноска). На самом деле, К. Цернак придерживался прямо противоположного мнения, и даже писал, что чтение Воскресенской летописи, связывающее «дружину» и «киян» союзом «и», «логичнее» (*sinngemässer*).[29] Как Т. *Л.* Вилкул, дав ссылку именно на эту страницу монографии немецкого ученого, умудрилась принципиально исказить его позицию, остается загадкой.

С древними языками дело обстоит еще хуже. В последнее время в моду входит цитирование в научных работах греческих текстов в оригинале. Действительно, прихотливый греческий шрифт придает публикации известное очарование. Но с Т. *Л.* Вилкул он сыграл злую шутку. Так, она пишет (с. 23), что в ряде переводных текстов слово «вѣче» «имеет такие значения: «восставать», «собираться», «решать», «люди» («народы»), «совет». Греческие соответствия — στασιάζειν, βουλευτήριον, λέγω, σύλλογος, δήμος, βουλεύω» (а в сноске замечает: «в тех формах, в каких они читаются в памятниках: στασιάζοθσιν, ἐν τῷ βουλευτερίῳ, εἶπεν, δῆμοι, βουλεύεσθαι». Ошибки здесь буквально в каждом слове. Так, βουλεύεσθαι («советоваться, совещаться, решать») — это не просто «форма» глагола βουλεύω («советовать») (с. 23), а медиальный залог с *другим* значением. Аорист 3-его *л.* S. εἶπεν соответствует не вечу как собранию, а форме «вѣча», т.е. также аористу древнерусского глагола «вѣчати» (вѣщати). Разумеется, лексема «вѣче» ни-

(28) *ПСРЛ*, т. 2, стб. 343–344.

(29) K. Zernack, *Die burgstädtischen Volksversammlungen bei den Ost- und Westslaven. Studien zur verfassungsgeschichtlichen Bedeutung des Veče* (Wiesbaden, 1967) (Giessener Abhandlungen zur Agrar- und Wirtschaftsforschung des Europäischen Ostens 33) 68.

как не может соответствовать словосочетанию ἐν τῷ βουλευτερίῳ, на самом деле, ему соответствует словосочетание «въ вѣчи», кроме того, греческое словосочетание никак не может быть «формой» существительного βουλευτήριον. Для греческой лексемы σύλλογος (собрание) в списке русских соответствий аналога нет, как и для русского «собираться» отсутствует греческий аналог.

Еще более вопиющий пример, с несомненностью обнаруживающий методику «работы» Т. Л. Вилкул с греческими текстами, — в цитате из «Истории» Никиты Хониата. Византийский историк рассказывает, в частности, о собрании в Софийском соборе в Константинополе во время его осады крестоносцами в 1204 г. Украинская исследовательница в сноске приводит фразу из оригинала: «συνδρομῆς δ' ὁτι πλείστης ἐς τὸν Μέγαν γινομένης Νεὼν ἠναγκάζετο καὶ ἡ τε τῶν ἀρχιερέων ὁμήγυρις», а в основном тексте, цитируя старый русский перевод, переизданный в 2003 г. А. И. Цепковым в Рязани, пишет: «…в Софии … состоялось "чрезвычайно огромное собрание", куда "заставили явиться сенат, собор архиереев и прочее духовенство"» (с. 252). Нетрудно заметить, что в цитате из источника отсутствует «прочее духовенство». При обращении к изданию Никиты Хониата, именно тому, которым, судя по ссылке, пользовалась Т. Л. Вилкул, выясняется, что после «собора архиереев» там упоминается не «прочее», а «почетное духовенство» (οἱ τοῦ βήματος λόγιμοι). Эти слова отсутствуют в цитате из оригинала, приведенной украинской исследовательницей; она их взяла из рязанского издания (именно там содержится ошибочное чтение «прочее»), а окончание греческой фразы отрезала. Понятно, что реальным источником для Т. Л. Вилкул служил не оригинальный греческий текст, а «рязанское издание». Зачем же тогда нужны цитаты на греческом языке? Для имитации «научности»? Разумеется, при продемонстрированном украинской исследовательницей уровне знания греческого языка в источниках можно обнаружить и не такие «примечательные смысловые смещения» (с. 255).

Достается от Т. Л. Вилкул и латыни. Название сборника Mediaevalia Ucrainica передается ей неправильно — Mediaevalia Ucrainika, хотя в латыни буква k практически не употребляется и тем более невозможна в этой позиции (с. 56, сноска). Хронист Сигиберт Гемблаценский (или Сигиберт из Жамблу) именуется Зигебертом и объявляется немцем (с. 159), хотя родился и подвизался он в Намюре (современная Бельгия). Это, конечно, можно счесть

мелочью, но эти «мелочи» образуют систему. И вот украинская исследовательница не замечает грубейшей ошибки в цитируемом ей переводе: «После того, как два брата, короли руссов, столкнулись в борьбе за власть, старший из них, изгнанный всей страной, докучает императору Генриху…». В оригинале — не «старший», а *alter*,[30] т. е. «один из двух».

Деконструкция исторического анализа

Как уже отмечалось, для Т. Л. Вилкул главным инструментом доказательства «нарративного конструирования» в русских летописях являются предполагаемые заимствования из переводных памятников. Когда то или иное слово или выражение часто встречается в них, автоматически делается вывод о том, что данное слово или выражение — «книжное», относится к сфере «топики» и т. п. (естественная мысль о том, что слово могло браться переводчиками из живого языка, автору, судя по всему, в голову не приходит). Вроде бы отсюда должно следовать, что, если какое либо слово или выражение употребляется в переводных источниках редко, а в оригинальных часто, его нужно относить к сфере реального узуса? Но нет, такая «традиционная» логика украинской исследовательнице не подходит, и мы читаем, что «редкое употребление слова «вѣче» в славянских переводных памятниках «связано с тем, что на раннем этапе формирования славянских книжных языков в книгах Священного Писания и переводной литературе» за референтами типа «собрание», «совет» и т.п. закрепились другие обозначения (с. 23–24). И здесь налицо настоящая «нарративная стратегия» (правда, не в источниках, а в тексте самой Т. Л. Вилкул), к тому же хорошо известная с давних времен — в конце концов, пословицу «закон, что дышло, куда повернешь, туда и вышло» придумали отнюдь не «нарратологи».

Та же «логика» — и в рассуждении о лексеме «народ», «церковно-книжной», как считает автор. Тот факт, что она редко встречается в летописных текстах, свидетельствует … конечно же, о том, что «составитель ПВЛ ориентировался на славянские переводы Ветхого Завета, где преобладает лексема "людие", и заложил традицию использования этого обозначения» (с. 59). Непонятно, зачем для использования слова «людие» летописцам надо было

(30) G. H. Pertz (ed.), *Chronica et annales aevi Salici* (Hannover, 1844) (Monumenta Germaniae Historica. Scriptorum VI) 362.

непременно обращаться к каким бы то ни было переводам, если оно, несомненно, было фактом живой речи, о чем свидетельствует, в частности, материал берестяных грамот (в которых слово «людие» в разных графических вариантах упоминается многократно[31]). Здесь мы, безусловно, имеем дело, используя «нетрадиционную» терминологию автора, с «нарративной техникой» (а если применить терминологию традиционную — с сознательным передергиванием), поскольку там, где ей выгодно, Т. Л. Вилкул не забывает сослаться на берестяные грамоты (так, она здесь же скрупулезно подмечает, что в них не встречается слово «народ»).

В рассказе о белгородском киселе (ПВЛ под 997 г.) старейшины градские и «люди», разумеется, не отождествляются, а составляют разные группы населения, что прямо вытекает из слов самих старейшин: «Не стерпять людье глада». Комментарии автора только запутывают вполне ясный текст. Сообщение о том, что старцу, который не был на вече, «людье повѣдаша … яко утро хотят ся людье предати Печенѣгом», Т. Л. Вилкул снабжает такой ремаркой: «людье (собеседники старца — *Т. В.*) повѣдаша … яко утро хотят ся людье (на этот раз участники веча) предати Печенѣгом».[32] Простая мысль о том, что собеседники старца наверняка тоже были участниками веча, очевидно, не приходит украинской исследовательнице в голову. Столь ущербный фундамент не мешает Т. Л. Вилкул строить на нем далеко идущие выводы о «принципе репрезентативности» в летописных текстах и т. п. (с. 48).

Все случаи поиска мнимых противоречий в летописных известиях, позволяющих автору пространно распространяться о «нарративном конструировании», невозможно перечислить. Здесь можно легко выбирать любой эпизод наугад. Вот Т. Л. Вилкул пишет о борьбе за Киев после смерти Изяслава Мстиславича и, естественно, сразу же в рассказах о ней целую россыпь «неувязок» (с. 149). Летописи, например, сообщают о приглашении киевлянами на княжение Изяслава Давыдовича из-за страха перед половцами. Автор удивляется: ведь «половцы находились как раз в войске Изяслава и угроза исходила именно от него». Что здесь удивительного, непонятно. Киевляне, естественно, боялись погрома своего города степняками — союзниками Изяслава — и, стремясь его избежать, вынуждены были признать его князем. В дру-

(31) См.: А. А. Зализняк, *Древненовгородский диалект* (Москва, 2004) 756.

(32) *ПСРЛ*, т. 1, стб. 127.

гом месте, в письме Владимира Мономаха Олегу Святославичу, автор усматривает «косвенное свидетельство» того, что приглашение сына Мономаха Мстислава новгородцами — результат «нарративного конструирования». Об этом якобы говорит фраза из послания: «Да то ти сѣдить сынъ свои хрьстныи с малым братомъ своимь, хлѣбъ ѣдучи дѣдень…» (с. 154–155). Т. Л. Вилкул пишет по этому поводу, что «“хлеб деда” дети Мономаха могли есть в Ростове, а не в Новгороде». Но в ПВЛ прямым текстом сказано об уходе Мстислава из Новгорода и его причинах, более того, приведено обращение Мстислава к Олегу Святославичу, в котором недвусмысленно говорится о том, что Мстислав считал Суздальскую землю «волостью» потомков Всеволода Ярославича.[33] Немедленные подозрения у автора возникают, когда в источнике говорится о собраниях в ночное время; такие сообщения она считает литературной деталью: «срабатывает символика светлого и темного, ясного, честного и скрытого» (с. 162). Но зачем нужна эта эзотерика, если в разбираемом известии прямо говорится о том, что ночное собрание представляло собой тайный заговор против князя «по дворомъ»? Неужели заговорщики, чтобы постсоветский «нарратолог» не заподозрил «конструирование», обязаны были собираться открыто, при дневном свете? После смерти Юрия Долгорукого в Киеве началась смута, и участники беспорядков, согласно Ип. «избивахуть суждалци». Для украинской исследовательницы это, как обычно, становится поводом для развития «нарратологических» гипотез (восстание против Суздальцев — якобы «фантом коррекции», с. 198); она заявляет: «сторонники Юрия называются “суздальцами”, хотя значительную часть дружины киевского князя всегда составляли киевляне» (с. 197). Это так, но кто мешал восставшим убивать именно суздальских чужаков? В 1255 г. новгородцы ожидали нападения на город Александра Невского с войском и поставили полки «за Рожествомь Христовомь в конци» (имеется в виду церковь Рождества на кладбище) и «от святого Ильи противу Городища» (имеется в виду церковь Ильи на Славне). Далее говорится о вече у Николо-Дворищенского собора.[34]

(33) *ПСРЛ*, т. 1, стб. 237–238. Примечательно, между прочим, что Т. Л. Вилкул не разбирает не надуманный, а реальный и, действительно, непростой вопрос о том, кто был «малым братом» Мстислава (ср.: В. А. Кучкин, *Формирование территории Северо-Восточной Руси в X–XIV вв.* (Москва 1984) 67–69).

(34) *ПСРЛ*, т. 3, 80–81.

Т. Л. Вилкул усматривает тут противоречие и основание искать «какой-то иной код для прочтения» (с. 245). Но для человека, хотя бы раз бывавшего в Великом Новгороде и представляющего себе расстояния от указанных пунктов до Ярославова дворища, «иной код» не требуется: даже пешие новгородцы (взрослые мужчины-воины), не говоря уже о конниках, без особых затруднений могли прийти на вече, выставив дозор, как это делалось в подобных случаях, а потом вернуться обратно.[35]

«Запутывание» ясных свидетельств источника — не единственный прием в «нарративе» украинской исследовательницы. Не меньшую роль играет и такой старый (но недобрый) метод, как «выборочное» (в свою пользу) цитирование, меняющее подчас смысл текста на противоположный. Вот автор стремится доказать небуквальный характер словосочетания «весь град» и утверждает, что в житии св. Авраамия Смоленского оно упомянуто в двух разных значениях «в соседних фразах в описании судилища над святым» (с. 66). В первой из них «весь град от мала и до велика», как уверяет Т. Л. Вилкул, — «это князья, бояре и клирики, собравшиеся на дворе у владыки судить святого». Фраза цитируется следующим образом: «Събраша же ся вси от мала и до велика, **весь градъ** на нь (Авраамия — *Т. В.*)… Всем же собравшимся на дворъ владыченъ, игуменомъ же и попомъ, и черньцемъ, княземъ и боляромъ, диакони и вси церьковници…» (и далее говорится о суде). А вот что скрывается за первым многоточием: «Събраша же ся вси от мала и до велика, весь градъ нань, *инии глаголють заточити, а инии къ стѣнѣ тоу пригвоздити и зажещи, а дроузии потопити и, проведше въсквозѣ градъ*. Всем же собравшимся…».[36] Нетрудно заметить, что «весь град» лишь требовал расправы с Авраамием, а к судившим его это словосочетание не применяется.

Еще один «деконструктивный» способ, применяемый Т. Л. Вилкул, очень прост (так и хочется сказать, до неприличия). Назовем его методом глухих ссылок. Автор, скажем, утверждает, что в «Киевском своде» в составе Ип. «есть перечисления, где дружина отделена от степняков, и такие, где степняки … включаются в состав дружины» (с. 81). Вывод очень любопытный и, действительно, но-

(35) Ср. описание такого ухода новгородских воинов на вече во время военного похода в 1217 г.: *ПСРЛ*, т. 3, 57.

(36) С. П. Розанов (пригот. к печати), *Жития преподобного Авраамия Смоленского и службы ему* (Санкт-Петербург, 1912) (Памятники древнерусской литературы. Вып. 1) 10.

вый: конечно, многие историки писали об иноэтничных элементах в составе дружины, но никому раньше не приходило в голову, что черные клобуки могли быть частью княжеской дружины *in corpore*. В подтверждение данного тезиса Т. Л. Вилкул приводит три упоминания «под 1151 г., где дружина — общее название для киян и черных клобуков» (с. 81, сноска) — на стб. 424, 426, 428 шахматовского издания Ип. Первое и третье упоминания даются в глухих ссылках, второе приводится в весьма своеобразном виде (об этом ниже). Обратимся к летописному тексту. Стб. 424: «Вячьславъ же, и Изяславъ съ братомъ своим Ростиславомъ, и съ Изяславомъ Давыдовичемъ, и съ Ярославомъ братом своимъ, и с Городеньским княземъ, и с дроужиною своею, и с Кияны, и с Черными Клобукы … поидоша…». Характеризуется состав войска: сначала перечисляются князья, потом упоминается дружина, потом киевляне, потом черные клобуки. Ни малейших оснований считать последних частью дружины нет. Стб. 428: «И тако нарядъ створше в собѣ князи, и дроужина, и Чернии Клобоуци, и Кияне…». То же самое: перечисляются составные части войска, дружина одна из них. Что же заставило Т. Л. Вилкул предложить столь абсурдную интерпретацию? Лучшим объяснением было бы предположение о том, что она не в состоянии уяснить для себя смысл летописного текста (и тогда этот фрагмент следовало бы перенести в раздел о деконструкции лингвистики), но, увы, ее комментарий к стб. 426 приводит к другому, худшему, заключению. Это упоминание автор цитирует так: «дружина же Вячеславля и Изяславля и Ростиславля рекоша … послушавше дружины своея и киянъ и черных клобуковъ». Прежде всего, Т. Л. Вилкул дала неточную отсылку: вторая часть цитаты находится на стб. 427. Но дело не в этом. Вот что на самом деле написано в источнике: «Дроужина же Вячеславля, и Изяславля, и Ростиславля, и всих князии оустягывахоуть от того /военных действий. — *П. Л.*/, и Кияне, наипаче же Чернии Клобоуци от того оустягоша, рекоуче… Вячеславъ же, Изяславъ и Ростиславъ послоушавше дроужины своея, и Киянъ, и Черных Клобоуковъ, и тако отрядиша Володимера брата свое…». Во-первых, как и в двух других упоминаниях, дружина здесь — часть войска, черные клобуки в нее, разумеется, не входят (более того, здесь как будто специально уточняется, что черные клобуки не хотели воевать больше, чем другие («наипаче»): дружинники и киевляне). Во-вторых, выясняется, как «работает» с источниками Т. Л. Вилкул: летописную фразу она отредактировала (заменила

«рекоуче» на «рекоша», так чтобы получилось полноценное сказуемое), а «ненужную» информацию (упоминание в первой части киевлян и черных клобуков) просто выкинула. Таким образом, речь в данном случае идет не о тривиальной безграмотности, а о сознательной манипуляции («нарративном конструировании»?), в результате которой возникает, выражаясь словами автора, «нарративная фикция».

Одним из центральных моментов монографии Т. Л. Вилкул является демонстрация «нарративного конструирования» в параллельных текстах, т.е. рассказов в разных летописях об одном и том же событии (этому посвящена вся вторая глава). Основная задача автора — в сущности та же, что и всегда — показать, что даже такие свидетельства не свидетельствуют ни о чем, кроме этого самого «нарративного конструирования». И методы те же самые: натяжки, замалчивание одних данных, выпячивание других, «выгодных»… Вот пример. Подробный рассказ о вокняжении Владимира Мономаха в Киеве сохранился в Ип. Украинская исследовательница стремится доказать, что он является плодом «нарративного конструирования» и противопоставляет ему как более аутентичное краткое известие Лавр. на том основании, что там есть точная дата вокняжения Мономаха — 20 апреля 1113 г. (с. 126). Для профана это выглядит убедительно, но человек, который найдет время заглянуть в Ип., обнаружит там тоже точную дату — 17 апреля 1113 г.[37] («совет» киевлян и приглашение Владимира Всеволодича в Киев). Наличие *этой* точной даты Т. Л. Вилкул никак не комментируется.

Другой пример — известие о выступлении «простой чади» в Новгороде в 1228 г. Автор любыми способами стремится элиминировать довольно очевидные социальные коннотации этого термина и предлагает понимать «простую чадь» как «простецов», мирян (с. 243), упрекая Б. Н. Флорю за то, что он не рассмотрел возможность этой интерпретации. Формально такое понимание, действительно, возможно. Однако достаточно заглянуть в конец НПЛ старшего извода и обнаружить там еще одно упоминание «простой чади» в известии о борьбе за новгородскую архимандритию, в которой с обеих сторон явно участвовали в том числе и

(37) *ПСРЛ*, т. 2, стб. 275.

духовные лица (так, инициатором действий «простой чади» оказывается «старый архимандрит» Лаврентий).[38]

Вариантом этой же методики можно считать замалчивание другого источника. По мнению Т. Л. Вилкул, «буквальная интерпретация» понятий «вячшие» и «меньшие» в статьях НПЛ за XIII в. «едва ли позволительна» (с. 245). Ниже украинская исследовательница даже пишет, что это были «ситуативные» группы «разных людей», а не представители «определенных социальных страт» (с. 335). Даже если вновь простить автору неуклюжую формулировку (не хочется даже и думать, что означает «буквальная интерпретация» слова «меньшие»), умолчание об упоминании этих понятий в других источниках, причем не нарративных, уже совершенно не простительно. Такие (или подобные) категории людей неоднократно выступают в договорах Новгорода с князьями. Разница только в том, что в летописи говорится о «вячших» и «меньших», а в договорах — о «старѣиших» и «меньших» (так в договорах с Ярославом Ярославичем, Михаилом Ярославичем, Александром Михайловичем, Михаилом Александровичем).[39] О том, что это именно социальные категории (естественно, в широком, а не в догматическом «классовом» смысле), ясно свидетельствует то обстоятельство, что в 70-е гг. XIV в. им на смену приходят не какие-то «нарративные фикции», а совершенно конкретные для того времени социальные обозначения групп новгородского населения: бояре, житьи, черные люди (см., например, грамоту об условиях договора с Михаилом Александровичем[40]). Этот важный (и вновь, словно по какому-то совпадению, «невыгодный» для гипотезы украинской исследовательницы) факт почему-то ускользнул от ее внимания. Между тем автору хорошо известен, например, договор Новгорода с Ярославом Ярославичем, и в других случаях она на него ссылается (с. 67, 218, 296, 298, 301). Кроме того, это изменение терминологии уже довольно давно отмечено и проанализировано в статье Ю. Г. Алексеева,[41] которая опять-таки украинской исследовательнице известна. Обвинение Всеволода Мстиславича новгородцами в 1136 г. за то, что он «не блюдеть смердъ», по Т. Л. Вилкул, — риторическая фигура (с. 284),

(38) *ПСРЛ*, т. 3, стб. 100.

(39) *ГВНП*, 12, 15, 16, 19, 21, 29.

(40) Там же, 32.

(41) Ю. Г. Алексеев, «Черные люди» Новгорода и Пскова, *Исторические записки* 103 (1979).

хотя начиная с договоров Новгорода с Ярославом Ярославичем в таких документах содержится запрет князю принимать новгородских смердов в закладники; смерды связываются в них с погостами.[42] Это не оставляет никаких сомнений в том, что смерды были вполне реальной категорией населения Новгородской земли, сельскими жителями, способными приносить доход. Такие данные автором игнорируются; точно так же она, вопреки обыкновению, не акцентирует внимания на том, упоминаются ли смерды в переводных памятниках или нет.

Иногда в таких случаях украинская исследовательница даже не замалчивает «невыгодные» факты, и оставляет их в цитатах, но как бы их «не замечает». Так обстоит дело, в частности, с «параллельными сюжетами» о захвате Всеволодом Большое Гнездо Торжка в НПЛ и Лавр. Для Лавр. якобы характерна «пассивная роль князя» (с. 147). Между тем, там совершенно эксплицитно сказано (как и в НПЛ): «Князь же Всеволодъ взя городъ Торжекъ…», отличие только в том, что в Лавр., где повествование более подробно, говорится специально о роли дружины. Т. Л. Вилкул цитирует эту фразу, но почему-то предлагает ей совершенно искусственное и бездоказательное объяснение, предполагая позднейшее редактирование (с. 147, сноска), хотя никаких противоречий в том, что при взятии города действуют и князь, и дружина нет.

В качестве доказательства «узкого состава» вечевых собраний украинская исследовательница ссылается на «сравнительно небольшие» площади древнерусских городов (с. 221), но никаких расчетов их размеров и вместимости не приводит, что делает этот довод голословным. Указывая на свидетельство Ип. о том, что во время собрания у Туровой божницы в 1146 г. киевляне были на конях, Т. Л. Вилкул никак не комментирует его отсутствия в соответствующей статье МЛС, где есть подробности, отсутствующие в Ип. Между тем, согласно А. Н. Насонову, данная статья МЛС относится к «очищенному тексту южнорусского источника», близкому к «Киевскому своду» в составе Ип., но имеющему лучшие чтения.[43] В этом конкретном случае есть все основания подозревать дублировку сообщений в Ип.: «Святославъ же съсѣдъ с коня», «Кияне же вси съсѣдше с конь».[44] Тот факт, что новгородцы «до дѣтии»

(42) Алексеев, «Черные люди»..., 11, 13.

(43) Насонов, *История русского летописания*…, 288.

(44) *ПСРЛ*, т. 2, стб. 322.

в 1218 г. участвовали в междоусобных столкновениях, вообще не имеет никакого отношения к составу вечевых собраний, поскольку в источнике не говорится об участии в них «детей», но просто говорится: «и тако быша вѣча по всю недѣлю».[45] Особенно выделяется рассуждение на с. 223–224: «…в 1196 г. Всеволод Юрьевич потребовал от них /новгородцев. — *П. Л.*/ прийти в Великие Луки… Снова-таки речь идет не о массовом исходе всего населения города». Здесь применен уже хорошо нам известный прием запутывания абсолютно ясного свидетельства источника. В НП*Л*, действительно, говорится о «новгородцах»,[46] но не о «всех новгородцах», и в том же смысле, в котором в современных «нарративах» говорится: «Русские победили Наполеона при Малоярославце» (имея в виду, что в этом сражении участвовал не весь русский народ). Кстати, такая фраза могла бы стать для украинской исследовательницы источником рассуждений о том, что правитель во Франции отождествлял общность, следовательно, мы не имеем права говорить о том, что в этой стране в начале XIX в. существовали органы местного самоуправления и выборный Законодательный корпус… Разумеется, в результате подобного хода мысли может получиться только «неустраняемая противоречивость» (с. 224).

Примеры таких «заимствований», повторяю, можно умножать до бесконечности, благо они встречаются почти на каждой странице книги Т. *Л*. Вилкул. Однако, пожалуй, особенно даже на общем ярком фоне выделяется гипотеза о заимствовании упоминания торговища из рассказа ПВ*Л* о событиях 1068–1069 гг. в Киеве из «Деяний апостолов» (16:19–20). Автора не смущает ни то, что в Деян. не говорится ни о собрании, ни то, что в славянском переводе упоминается не «торговище», а «торг», ни, то, что «уникальное на фоне остальных летописных известий» (с. 231) известие начального летописания о вече на киевском торговище уникально только потому, что после этих бурных событий князь перенес его на «Гору», т.е., фактически, уничтожил торговище как место вечевых собраний…

Конечно, в почти 400-страничной монографии Т. *Л*. Вилкул есть отдельные интересные наблюдения: ей удалось обнаружить неизвестное доселе упоминание слово «вѣче» в переводном источнике (Хроника Иоанна Малалы) (с. 23, сноска); украинской исследова-

(45) *ПСРЛ*, т. 3, 59.

(46) Там же, 43.

тельнице принадлежит честь открытия непосредственного источника сентенции о «дивих зверях» в известии НПЛ мл. о татарском «числе» (с. 247–248, сноска); как уже говорилось выше, заслуживают внимания некоторые отмеченные автором свидетельства отражения в Лавр. более ранней редакции киевского свода, чем тот, который присутствует в Ип… И всё же не это, увы, определяет впечатление от книги.

Вывод, которым автор завершает одну из глав («реальное … места веча в политической системе, к сожалению, не может быть определено даже в общих чертах», с. 313), типичен для книги в целом. И совершенно закономерен. Избранная Т. Л. Вилкул методика и не могла привести к другому результату. Однако, как уже говорилось выше, завершает монографию небольшой текст под названием «Вместо эпилога», где снова содержатся рассуждения о единственно верном учении «нарративизма». Там же можно прочитать заявление, по своей несколько наивной претенциозности напоминающее известное высказывание неизвестного поэта: «Тему любви я закрыл». «Итак, оставим наконец в покое людей и вече: надолго, или, быть может, навсегда» (с. 341), — пишет автор. Мы тоже оставим монографию Т. Л. Вилкул «надолго или, быть может, навсегда» и «вместо эпилога» попробуем поразмышлять о феномене, который она собой представляет.

Прежде всего, надо сразу сказать, что возникающий соблазн связать, скажем так, особенности книги Т. Л. Вилкул с пороками теории, которую она пропагандирует («нарративизм»), следует, на мой взгляд, отвергнуть. Хейден Уайт и другие, главным образом, заокеанские ученые не могут нести ответственность за то, как их «интерпретируют» на постсоветском пространстве. Однако в самом обращении таких авторов, как Т. Л. Вилкул, к «нарративизму» и «деконструкции» есть, как представляется, определенная закономерность. Как было показано, редкие «вылазки на территорию противника» (т.е. попытки реконструкции реальности) у Т. Л. Вилкул оказываются, мягко говоря, крайне неудачными (вспомним хотя бы несчастных «мсции»). Но когда нужда выдается за добродетель, и звучат лозунги о «новом методе», «оптика», как сказала бы сама украинская исследовательница, резко меняется. Теперь мы имеем дело не с низкокачественным текстом, где не сходятся концы с концами, а с работой, выполненной «в новых техниках». Какие могут быть претензии, когда речь идет «почти что о “сознательном уклонении” от анализа реальности» (с. 341)?

Возникает только один вопрос. Авторы «нарратологических штудий» не вполне последовательны, они почему-то не горят желанием ответить на вопрос, сформулированный несколько лет назад публицистом И. Смирновым: «Почему вотумы недоверия научному познанию вы оформляете в статьи и монографии (а не в шаманские пляски) и подписываете учеными степенями»?[47] Ответ, на самом деле, очевиден. Мы имеем дело и не с банальным «культурологическим» словоблудием, и не с научным исследованием в настоящем смысле слова, а с *имитацией* последнего, претендующей на то, чтобы «деконструировать» якобы устаревшую позитивную науку и подменить ее вульгарной идеологией (в рамках которой критерии, определяющие подлинное знание, будут размыты); только на сей раз в роли единственно верного учения выступает не «исторический материализм», а «новые техники», вроде продемонстрированного в книге Т. Л. Вилкул «нарративизма».

SUMMARY

Pavel V. Lukin

DECONSTRUCTION OF DECONSTRUCTION

About the Book by Tatyana L. Vilkul on the History of the Old Rus' Veche (Political Assembly)

This is a review on the monograph of the Ukrainian historian Tatyana L. Vilkul, *The "Liudie" and the Prince in the 12th–13th Century Constructions of the Annalists*, printed in Kiev in 2007. The main idea of the book is to analyze various problems connected with the political assemblies of Old Rus' in light of the concept of "narrativity" (Vilkul refers here to the works of American scholars, first of all, Hayden White). This concept, according to Vilkul, implies that narratives on *veche* in chronicles do not reflect reality directly but construct it, mainly using borrowings from the Holy Scripture and Old Slavonic ecclesiastical literature. However the attempt of the Ukrainian scholar to apply the concept of "narrativity" to the study of political assemblies of Old Rus' turns out to be almost completely unsuccessful. A great deal of errors and inaccuracies in her linguistic and fontological analysis, a lack of knowledge of foreign languages (especially of Greek) and of ecclesiastical literature, as well as numerous stretches in interpretations have predetermined the failure of Vilkul's attempt.

(47) http://www.screen.ru/Smirnov/12.htm.

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DOES GOD HAVE A BODY?

Some thoughts on a recent book:

Dmitrij Bumazhnov, *Der Mensch als Gottes Bild im christlichen Ägypten* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 2006) (Studien und Texte zu Antike und Christentum, 34). X + 262 S.
ISBN 3-16-148658-7; ISBN-13 978-3-16-148658-6.

The author provides a comprehensive introduction to the whole problem of the "anthropomorphite" issue, in a way that his work should be referred to by everybody when dealing with both theological and ascetical teachings of fourth and early fifth century Egypt. His approach is basically a philological one. The monograph focuses on two sources and, therefore, is subdivided into two main parts, the first one dedicated to an ancient homily *De anima et corpore* (chapter I) and the second one dedicated to the *Life* of Apa Aphou of Oxyrynchus, or, in Coptic, Pemdje (chapter II). Both parts contain commented German translations of the corresponding sources.

The author thoroughly examines all the textual evidences of his sources that are preserved in a condition far from ideal, while their textual problems are of a rather different nature. The homily is preserved in several recensions and in different languages, and so, the problem is to figure out its original shape.[1] The *Life of Apa Aphou* is available only in Coptic but some reflections of its text are traceable in both Coptic and Greek monastic literature of Egypt.

The homily *De anima et corpore* became especially popular in patristic studies after 1972, when M. van Esbroeck extracted a treatise of Melito of Sardes from its Georgian version (cf. *CPG* 1093.13: *De anima et corpore* by Melito of Sardes). By the way, van Esbroeck restituted the homily to Athanasius of Alexandria, as it is subscribed in the Georgian version as well as in the Coptic one published by E. Wallis Budge in

(1) Here the author makes use of the unpublished thesis of Gregor Wurst, *Die Homilie* De anima et corpore*, ein Werk des Meliton von Sardes? Einleitung, synoptische Edition, Übersetzung, Kommentar*, 2 vols. (Freiburg/Schweiz, 2000), accepting his reconstruction of the Greek *Vorlage* of the homily (and reproducing it as *Anhang II* to Chapter I (p. 125–134)) while not accepting the attribution to Melito of Sardes.

1910 (and translated here into German by Bumazhnov).[2] Bumazhnov renders justice to this attribution preserved in most of the manuscript tradition calling the homily Pseudo-Athanasian. However, the homily still continues to be referred to as a genuine work of Alexander of Alexandria in *CPG*, not only in volume 2 (1974) published long ago, but even in the *Supplementum* (1998) (see *CPG* 2004).[3] In his conclusions Bumazhnov supports, although in his own way, Tito Orlandi's verdict that the homily is a monastic work of Egyptian origin, slightly differing with him in dating and localisation (Middle Egypt, fourth centusry, according to Orlandi, Middle or Upper Egypt, fourth or fifth century, but, most probably, the middle of the fifth century according to Bumazhnov; p. 108–109).

The main goal of Bumazhnov's analysis is, in the cases of both his main sources, the views on the mutual relations between the soul and the body and the notion of the image of God in man. For both sources, he admits that the sources share an anti-Origenist inspiration, without going so far as adopting an "anthropomorphite" heterodoxy. Here, in the main lines of his theological analysis, Bumazhnov seems to be quite persuasive.

Two points, however, need further discussion.[4]

First: the applicability of the Coptic theological treatise published by T. Orlandi (1985) under the title "Shenute. *Contra origenistas*" in establishing of the *immediate* context of the polemics against Origenism in the fourth and fifth century. The author of the present review proposed (in 1998) for this treatise as its *Sitz im Leben* the literary and theological circle of Damian, Coptic Patriarch of Alexandria (577/578–606/607). Bumazhnov rejects this attribution without discussion, limiting himself (p. 21, note 95) to the reference to the review of my book (2000) by A. Khosroev (2001). However, my book contained but a brief summing up of the argumentation, and my reviewer was writing without

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(2) Now Tito Orlanidi's edition has appeared (still unavailable to Bumazhnov when writing his monograph): T. Orlandi, *Omelia De anima et corpore*. Testo, traduzione, introduzione e note (Roma, 2003), also in the electronic database of the *Corpus dei Manoscritti Copti Letterari* http://cmcl.let.uniroma1.it where are published also the other Coptic texts mentioned below.

(3) Continuous references to *CPG* could contribute to make Bumzhnov's monograph a bit more user-friendly.

(4) In the following I will use bibliographical references in an abbreviated form where the missing bibliographical data could be easily found in Bumazhnov's monograph.

first-hand knowledge of my main publications on the topics. This is why I would like to readdress the issue in the postscript to the present review. In any case, the impossibility of attributing to neither Shenute nor the epoch of Shenute does not affect the applicability of this work to the study of Origenism in Egypt, even if not exactly in such a way as Bumazhnov does.

The second point is more delicate. It concerns Apa Aphou's understanding of the image of God in man: does it mean that God, too, has, in some sense, a body? The previous researchers starting with E. Drioton (1915–1917) were unanimous in the basically affirmative answer to this question, while, of course, they have disagreed in further details. Drioton has recognized in Apa Aphou a representative of the condemned heresy of the anthropomorphites, some others (including G. Florovsky) have proposed more sophisticated decisions and, finally, Alexander Golitzin, in a series of recent publications,[5] has interpreted Apa Aphou's argumentation in the lines of Jewish mysticism going back to Ezekiel through the Second Temple Jewish traditions like *Shi'ur Qomah* whose continuation in early Christianity is an established fact. This is the latter interpretation that is the main target of Bumazhnov's criticism, while Bumazhnov, together with Golitzin, seconds the scholarly consensus that the *Life of Apa Aphou* has been directed against some "Hellenizing" trends in Christianity.

The very *crux interpretatorum* is here paragraph 9,8 of the *Life* (Bumazhnov's translation): "Denn (γάϱ) Derjenige, Der sagte ‚Ich bin das Brot, das vom Himmel gekommen ist' [Jn 6:41], ist Derselbe, Der auch sagte: ‚Wer Menschenblut vergießt, dessen <Blut> wird dafür vergossen werden, weil der Mensch im Ebenbild (εἰκών) Gottes geschaffen wurde.' [Gen 9:6]."

Bumazhnov believes (rightly, I think) that "[d]ie Kenntnis des Kontextes der zitierten Bibelstelle wird vorausgesetzt" (p. 212). But this consideration is irrelevant. Yes, the literal context of both biblical quotes has nothing to do with any doctrine considering the flesh and the blood as the features that form the image of God in man. Nevertheless, the habitual manner to quote the Bible in Egyptian monasticism has never been restricted by such formalities. For instance, *Liber Orsiesii*, 87, does not hesitate to quote Is 5:26–28 (description of the people

(5) One of whom that is, probably, the most representative (A. Golitzin, *«The Demons Suggest an Illusion of God's Glory in a Form»: Controversy over the Divine Body and Vision of Glory in Some Late Fourth, Early Fifth Century Monastic Literature [2002]*), is now reprinted in *Scr* 3 (2007) 49–82.

of the enemies of Israel) applying to the people of (New) Israel, that is, changing its literal meaning to the exact opposite.

Therefore, the only relevant context of the quotes from the Bible is that of our source itself. Bumazhnov insists (again, rightly, I think) that Gen 9:6 is quoted here, at the end of an answer of Apa Aphou to his opponent, for its explicit mention of the image of God in man, being one of the rare biblical places where such a claim is formulated explicitly. Apa Aphou used every such biblical place, and, in the case of our citation from Gen 9:6, there is no specific interest in blood.[6]

Probably, I would have nothing to object to, if our source was a theological tractate whose language might be approached to the ideal of the "extensional language" of science by Rudolf Carnap. In fact, such an ideal is not so far from the language of the book of Bumazhnov himself, but it is hardly applicable to his source which is close to the hagiographical genre of panegyric. The language of panegyric is highly intensional. The intuition of the previous scholars was sensitive to this, and so, not one of them ignored the mention of blood in Apa Aphou's discussion of the notion of the image of God. It seems *a priori* impossible that the mention of blood is here meaningless. And this seems especially impossible next to the citation from Jn 6:41, on the bread from Heaven, whose meaning as body is enforced by the whole previous discussion (in ch. 9 of the *Life*) of the real presence in the Eucharist. So, we have here, in paragraph 9,8, not only a mention of blood, but the complete pair of body and blood mentioned in the context of explanation of the image of God in man.

Of course, we still have no logical definition, such as "the image of God is this or that", but such definitions in the panegyric would be rather an exception than a rule. A more poetical language, without detailed logical explanations, is much more natural. So, with due respect to the strictness of Bumazhnov's logical formalism, I still prefer to read his source in a more poetical (intensional) way, as a flow of continuous explanation as to what the image of God in man is. Then, I see, in the words of Apa Aphou, that the very nature of body and blood is the image of God.

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(6) Here I formulate Bumazhnov's proposal in a more direct way than it is formulated in his book. I am grateful to Dmitrij for a fruitful discussion of all these topics during my staying in Tübingen in 2008.

…And, if so, God still does have body and blood, in the sense that it has been seen by Ezekiel on the river of Chobar and by Golitzin in the *Life of Apa Aphou*.

This disagreement with the author does not prevent me from applauding his study.

Postscript
«Shenute, *Contra Origenistas*»: Once More

In my 1998 article I proposed to establish the *Sitz im Leben* of the treatise by the date of its triadological polemics rather than judging from its anti-Origenist contents. The latter has no features than could be presently interpreted in precise connection with any known episode of Origenist quarrels. Moreover, the issue of Origenism continued to remain actual in Egypt, at least, until the end of the sixth century, if not until the Arab conquest (the very name of John Philoponus is a sufficient proof to this). Since 1998, as well as before this date, nobody has paid attention to the triadological polemics of the anonymous Coptic author.

The most interesting is the attitude of the author himself. The key phrase in his exposition contains some difficulty that passed unnoticed by Orlandi (the only translator of the whole text of the treatise and, especially, of this passage) and Khosroev (my not too meticulous reviewer) and, I must admit, not explained in a proper manner by myself (while, in my opinion, I managed to translate the text in the right sense). Now I am trying to fill up this lacuna. The following is Orlandi's translation (p. 54, § 0475) where I have left untranslated the passage containing a syntactical ambiguity: "…Perché il Figlio non è per nulla diverso dal Padre, nè il Padre è diverso [dal Figlio]. *oupn[eum]a on pe pšere.* Ed è Dio da Dio, e Figlio dal Padre che l'ha generato."

The syntactic ambiguity is caused by the indefinite article *ou-* that is used here as the marker of predicate in a nominal phrase, and so, does not inform us about the (in)definiteness of the noun *pneuma* ("spirit"). This phrase theoretically can be translated into Italian in three different ways: 1. "Il Figlio è anche uno spirito" (Orlandi's option, supported by Khosroev without specific argumentation), 2. "Il Figlio è anche S(s)pirito", 3. "Il Figlio è anche lo S(s)pirito".

Orlandi's translation is the most literal (because it renders an indefinite article with an indefinite article), but the most problematic. The existence of "uno spirito" within the Holy Trinity would presuppose some kind of diversity of "spirits" in God. It is hardly plausible that

this is the sense our author meant. Orlandi himself has left this passage without comments. Two other possibilities of translation presuppose, correspondingly, either an application to the Son of the Gospel saying "God is spirit" (Jn 4:24; in the Italian Bible: "Dio è spirito"[7]) or an equation of the Son to the person of the Holy Spirit.

However, in the larger context of the ambiguous phrase (the whole passage quoted above), it is absolutely clear that it is the person of the Holy Spirit that is meant. Indeed, the whole passage enumerates all the three persons of the Trinity insisting that they have no difference from each other. Namely, in the case of the Father and the Son, the author declares that there is no difference between them. Then, he proceeds to the Spirit declaring that the Spirit, in turn, is identical to the Son. Thus, the context of the ambiguous phrase is unambiguous. The third syntactically possible translation is the only one allowed by the context. The phrase does not deal with "spirit" as a common quality of three persons, but is quite precise in equating the person of the Son with the person of the Spirit. Such an interpretation of the passage would seem natural, unless one hesitates to acknowledge the triadological teaching that is not widely known among scholars (and hardly attributable to Shenute).

A triadological teaching denying any ontological difference between the three hypostases was proclaimed in Egypt by Patriarch Damian (in the 580s) in the course of polemics against the "tritheism" of John Philoponus, on the one hand, and against a more traditional triadology of monophysite Patriarch of Antioch Peter of Callinicium, on the other. In the seventh century, such a triadology was considered as an established mainstream in monophysite Egypt.[8]

The peculiar exact wording of our passage where the ontological identity of the three hypostases is explained through their equality to the person of the Holy Spirit is, however, unknown in other Egyptian documents in Coptic, Greek, and Arabic. No wonder, given a fragmentary and certainly not representative nature of our source base relating to the corresponding triadological doctrine. Notwithstanding, the same wording reappears in a homily of the Ethiopian theologian

(7) Probably, it is in this sense that the passage was understood by Orlandi and, certainly, by Khosroev (who explained his understanding). However, in modern Italian Bible translations, unlike the English ones, the use of the indefinite article before "spirit" in Jn 4:24 is uncommon.

(8) See B. Lourié, Damian of Alexandria, in: *EA*, II, 77–78 (with further bibliography).

of the early fifteenth century, Giyorgis Saglāwi, who has continued this line of the Egyptian theology.[9] Let us compare (I quote the Italian translation of the editor): "Nel Padre abbiamo trovato, pur essendo questi Spirito Santo secondo la sua personalità e nella sua sostanza, la denominazione di Padre; anche nel Figlio abbiamo trovato, pur essendo questi Spirito Santo secondo la sua personalità e consustanziale al Padre, la denominazione di Figlio; per il Paraclito, invece, non abbiamo trovato un padre per chiamarlo figlio; e, per chiamarlo padre, non gli abbiamo trovato un figlio; perciò Egli è perennemente chiamato Spirito Santo" (*Homily* XXIX).[10] This passage explains to us why it is the person of the Spirit that has been chosen as the "common denominator" in this Unitarian, so to speak, triadology.

Our Coptic anonym belongs to an intellectual milieu responsible for shaping the ideology on a large scale, as it is clear from the contents of his work. Such a task is compatible with such a triadology in either the circle of Damian and his disciples (as I supposed in 1998) or a later patriarchal or monastic centre in Egypt. The *terminus post quem* are the 580s.

(9) See, in details, my B. *Лурье*, Авва Георгий из Саглы и история юлианизма в Эфиопии [B. Lourié, Abbas Giyorgis from Saglā and the history of the Julianism in Ethiopia], *XB* 1 (7) (1999) 317–358, here p. 331–332, where I have revisited, among other parallels to Abbas Giyorgis, the Coptic text published by Orlandi. Cf. B. Lourié, Julianism, in: *EA*, III, 308–310 (with further bibliography).

(10) Yaqob Beyene, Giyorgis di Saglā, *Il Libro del Mistero* (Maṣḥafa Mesṭir). Parte seconda (Lovanii, 1993) (CSCO 533 / Aeth 98) 149–150. Capitalisation of "S" in the two first occurrences of "Spirito Santo" is mine.

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THE THIRD LEVEL OF ETHIOPIAN COMMENTARIES ON THE APOCALYPSE: ILLUMINATED MANUSCRIPTS

Robin McEwan, *Picturing the Apocalypse at Gondär: A Study of the Two Known Sets of Ethiopian Illuminations of the Revelation of St John and the Life and Death of John*. Edited [posthumously] by Dorothea McEwan (Torino: Nino Aragno Editore, 2005) X + 252 pp., 142 figs. ISBN 88-419-296-X.

This book on Ethiopian art is of interest to all who deal with either Ethiopia or early Christian studies. Its late author, Robin McEwan, managed to frame the facts of the history of book illumination in the context of Ethiopian culture of the 18th and 19th centuries as a whole. Moreover, his commentary on the miniatures continuously refers to texts that preserve early Christian traditions of both commentaries on the Apocalypse and the life of apostle John. His wife, Dorothea McEwan who has now published his work, is herself a scholar who is very sensitive to such an approach. She is known, among other things, from her paper summing up findings in the field of Ethiopian illuminated manuscripts on the Apocalypse.[1]

So far, our knowledge of the Ethiopian exegetical tradition of the Apocalypse was basically limited to two commentaries, one in Ge'ez (*Tergwame Qalamsis*, translated from a lost Arabic original of Coptic origin somewhere in the 16th c.) and another in Amharic (*Andemta*).[2]

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(1) D. McEwan, Illuminierte Manuskripte in Äthiopien: Entstehung, Bedeutung und Herstellung der beiden Manuskriptbücher der Apokalypse in Qwesqwam und Därasgä Maryam, *Kirche und Schule in Äthiopien. Mitteilungsblatt der Tabor Society Heidelberg*, Heft 59 (2006) 39–50. See an enlarged English original ("Illuminated Manuscripts in Ethiopia: Origin, Meaning and Manufacture of Two Manuscripts Illuminating the Apocalypse in Qwesqwam and Däräsge Maryam") on the website of Tabor Society:
http://www.tabor-society.de/Literatur.html. Posted 25/01/2007.

(2) Cf., on all of this: Roger W. Cowley, *The Traditional Interpretation of the Apocalypse of St John in the Ethiopian Orthodox Church* (Cambridge, 1983) (Uni-

The latter was written down in the 19th century but could contain much earlier material than the former. The Ethiopian scribes and traditional scholars are famous for their ability to know by heart enormous amounts of text, and this is why their oral tradition is surely not less stable than the written one. As I have been told by those who have worked with Ethiopian Church scholars, it was common until recently in Ethiopia, that if a manuscript reading turned out to be at variance with a text known by an authoritative teacher by heart, one would make preference to the reading known by the teacher. Be that as it may, the two sets of illustrations to the Apocalypse published by McEwan predate the writing of the *Andemta*, and so, are an important third evidence of the Ethiopian exegesis. This is why I dare to coin them the "third level" of the Ethiopian traditional commentary to the Apocalypse, beside two former "levels" of the *Tergwame Qalamsis* (below: *TQ*) and *Andemta* (below: *A*). Besides, both Ethiopian illumination sets cover the *Acta Iohannis* (*CANT* 218) known in many recensions and languages including Ethiopic (*BHO* 470).

Both Ethiopian illuminated manuscripts represent the same tradition of illumination, with very small variants. The manuscript of the church Däräsge Maryam (19th c.) is now preserved in this church, in a remote part of Ethiopia. The color photographs were taken on location by the author. Its illuminations are reproduced without exception. Another manuscript is that of the British Library (BL) Or. 533 (first half of the 18th c.). Most of its illuminations (in total 24), while not all, are reproduced, the others being described verbally. Probably, such a decision is reasonable from the viewpoint of an art historian, while I regret this from my own viewpoint of a historian of exegesis. For instance, I would be very interested to see the illustration of "Babylon" (Rev. 14:8) that is available on the miniature of the BL manuscript only (cf. p. 155–156). Unlike most of the European exegesis where this fallen Babylon is Rome, the Ethiopian exegesis (both *TQ* and *A*) preserves an early tradition where Babylon is Jerusalem.[3] What does "a Gondärine castle" mean, as McEwan describes this fallen city on the BL manuscript miniature (p. 156)?[4]

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versity of Cambridge Oriental Publications No. 33). Includes a publication of the *Tergwame Qalamsis* as well as the translation of the *Andemta* according to a printed edition of the Ethiopian Church.

(3) On this, see my notices in: В. *Лурье*, [review of]: Don K. Preston, Who is this Babylon? (Ardmore, 1999), *XB* 2 (8) (2000) 497–499 (in Russian).

(4) It is interesting to note that, in some difficult points, the illustrations are ambiguous. Thus, it is impossible to decide who is the second person, be-

The mutual relationship between the two illuminated manuscripts is the following: "Unless the painter had access to another set of illuminations, which was very similar to that of BL Or. 533 but which no longer exists or has not come to light, the resemblance suggests compellingly that he knew the Or. 533 set itself" (p. 69). In turn, the earliest manuscript was produced (between 1732 and 1740) by the order of Empress Mentewwab (or, according to her royal name, Mogäsa) for the church Däbrä Sehay at Qwesqwam, her residence and a new Church capital near Gondär.

The book contains an important introduction to the epoch of Mentewwab (ch. 2, p. 10–23, and also ch. 5 and 6, p. 40–66) and to the Ethiopian painting (ch. 3, p. 24–31) which make the book easily accessible to a large audience and simply a fascinating reading on the history of Ethiopia. Ch. 4 (p. 32–39), dedicated to apocalyptic and messianic ideas in Ethiopia (I would prefer to use the term *Reichseschatologie* by Gerhard Podskalsky[5]) is of special interest to all students of medieval apocalypticism, that is, to the traditions of the "historical eschatology". It is unfortunate, although quite natural, that the author ignores a brilliant historical analysis of this epoch provided by the late Sevir Chernetsov and published by him in Russian only.[6]

It is difficult to judge whether the illumination exegesis of the epoch of Mentewwab had anything to do with the hot dogmatic discussions of that time, when the Christology of *Qəbat* became predomi-

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side Elias, in the pair of the "two witnesses" (Rev 11:3–7), Moses (as in *TQ*) or Enoch (as in *A* and most of the Christian exegetical traditions). The figures on the miniatures are equally compatible with both (p. 131–132).

(5) G. Podskalsky, *Byzantinische Reicheschatologie. Die Periodisierung der Weltgeschichte in den vier Grossreichen (Daniel 2 und 7) und dem tausendjährigen Friedensreiche (Apok. 20). Eine motivgeschichtliche Untersuchung* (München, 1972) (Münchener Universitäts-Schriften. Reihe der philosophischen Fakultät, 9).

(6) In his commentaries to the translation of the official royal chronicles of this period: *Эфиопские хроники XVII–XVIII веков*. Введ. и заключ., пер. с эфиопского и комм. С. Б. Чернецова (Москва, 1989) [*Ethiopian Chronicles of the 17th and 18th centuries. Introduction and conclusion, translation from Ethiopic and commentaries by Sevir Chernetsov* (Moscow, 1989)]. Chernetsov published two monographs on the history of the Ethiopian Solomonide monarchy covering the period from the 13th to the 17th century and commented translations (in three volumes) of the whole corpus of royal chronicles up to the 18th century inclusively. See the details in his bibliography in *Scr* 1 (2005) xxviii–xli.

nant.[7] However, a very indirect relation can be noticed. In fact, the *Qəbat* Christology was a reestablishment, in Ethiopia, of the mainstream monophysite theology of the Coptic Church.[8] But the very name of the Church capital of Mentewwab, Qwesqwam, refers to the quite important shrine in Egypt, Mount Qussqam, considered as the main abode of the Holy Family during their stay in Egypt. Therefore, an orientation of the Church politics of Mentewwab towards Egypt is without doubt. The illuminations of the Apocalypse are also a fruit of her Church politics, while we do not know whether these illustrations have any predecessors in the Coptic world.

All of us, the students of either Ethiopian culture or early Christian exegetical traditions, have to be very grateful to the author and the publishers of the beautiful book, and especially to Dorothea McEwan for her efforts to make this work known to the larger scholarly audience.

(7) As the best introduction to this Christology, see: Getatchew Haile, Materials on the theology of Qebat or unction, in: G. Goldenberg (ed.), *Ethiopian Studies. Proceedings of the Sixth International Conference, Tel-Aviv, 14–17 April 1980* (Rotterdam, 1986) 205–250.

(8) As it has been especially testified to by two Arabic letters of Coptic patriarchs of the 18th century (published but, unfortunately, never translated into European languages): M. Kamil, Letters to Ethiopia from the Coptic Patriarchs, Yo'annas XVIII (1770–1796) and Morqos VIII (1796–1809), *Bulletin de la Société d'archéologie copte* 6 (1940) 89–143.

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THE TENTH CENTURY: FROM *ROMAN HAGIOGRAPHIQUE* TO *ROMAN ANTHOLOGIQUE*

Toward the publication of the hagiographical dossier of St Gregentios

Albrecht Berger (ed.), *Life and Works of Saint Gregentios, Archbishop of Taphar*. Introduction, Critical Edition and Translation. With a contribution by Gianfranco Fiaccadori (Berlin — New York: Walter de Gruyter, 2006) (Millenium-Studien zu Kultur und Geschichte des ersten Jahrtausends n. Chr. Vol. 7) x + 915 pp. ISBN-13: 978-3-11-018445-7; ISBN-10: 3-11-018445-1.

The hagiographical novel, *le roman hagiographique* (H. Delehaye), arose in the Second Temple Jewish culture with the books such as *Judith* or *Esther*. Later, in Christian hagiography, it has always been a productive genre. Nevertheless, in tenth century Byzantium, it reaches a new level: it becomes anthological. Such works of the tenth century as *Barlaam and Ioasaph*, the *Life of St Andrew the Fool*, the *Life of St Basil the Younger* contain enormous quantities of material of various origin and dates — such as anthologies of didactical stories, Christian apologies, catecheses, apocalyptics, and so on. The resulting texts, having a loose structure to a great extent independent from the plot, became compendia of corresponding knowledge for centuries. Indeed, they are still novels, but of a specific kind: I would dare to say, *les romans anthologiques*. Such novels accumulate a great variety of earlier sources, sometimes very early and unique (*e. g.*, the *Apology* of Aristide in *Barlaam and Ioasaph*). This is certainly enough reason to consider these novels as interesting also for all those who are seeking for sources from the pre-tenth century Christian tradition, including the early Christian period. Of course, such sources are not easily available to the students of early Christianity, but here appears one more field for productive interdisciplinary cooperation. Incidentally, the present book of Albrecht Berger is a good example of such cooperation, containing a chapter on South Arabia and the

Homerites by Gianfranco Fiaccadori ("Gregentios and the Land of the Homerites", p. 48–82).[1]

Even against the background of the tenth century the case of the *Life of St Gregentios of Taphar* looks exceptional. The hagiographical dossier critically published now as a whole contains not only the *Life* (*Bios*) as such (including its short recensions) and the Byzantine liturgical service, but also two great sections inserted into the *Life* unique to this dossier: *Nomoi* (*Laws*) allegedly given by Gregentios to the Homerites (that is, inhabitants of Ḥimyar) and *Dialexis* (*Disputation*) between Gregentios and the Jew Herban (a huge piece of Jewish-Christian polemics, *CPG* 7009), the final part of the *Dialexis* being at the same time the end of the *Life*.

This is not the only exceptional difficulty of this particular hagiographical dossier. Another one is its geographical complexity. There is a kind of hagiographical novel that has much to do with geography, and for our *romans anthologiques* this is especially a rule. The plot could be, more or less, fictive, but the geography is certainly not. That is, the novel represents some realities of locations involved while not necessarily contemporaneous to each other. Thus, in our case, the *Life* provides us many details of the Mediterranean lands of the tenth century, both of East and West (including Slovenia: the native town of Gregentios is identified as Ljubljana), while its Yemen parts reflect the history of the sixth century that reached tenth century Byzantium through an Arabic speaking milieu. "If Gregentios' person has a historical core at all, this must have been the anonymous bishop uncanonically elected by the Homerites" (Fiaccadori, p. 76).

The dossier is also interesting (and so, also difficult) in its language, an object of the detailed study by Berger (p. 135–140).

Berger dedicates a part of his long introduction to the *Nomoi* (p. 82–91) and a much greater part to the *Dialexis* (p. 91–134). As for the *Nomoi*, he confirms the dating of the whole collection to the tenth

(1) Now, dealing with the South Arabian parts of Gregentios' dossier, we have to take into account an important monograph published simultaneously: Alessandro Bausi, Alessandro Gori, *Tradizioni orientali del "Martirio di Areta". La prima recensione arabe e la versione etiopica. Edizione critica e traduzione.* Presentazione di Paolo Marrassini (Firenze, 2006) (Quaderni di semitistica 27) [reviewed by Tedros Abraha in the present tome of *Scr*, p. 450–460].

century[2], while admitting the possibility of later additions in the form transmitted to us. As for the *Dialexis*, Berger rejects the sixth century dating (recently reaffirmed by Vincent Déroche and, after him, Andreas Külzer) and, following Jean Juster's (1913) approach but going further, attributes it to the same hagiographer, presuming, however, that the *Dialexis* was initially written as an independent text and that its relation to Gregentios' dossier is secondary and rather artificial.

Berger's study of the *Dialexis* proves that this text is a depository of early Christian traditions. Especially interesting are Berger's list of the *agrapha* used here (p. 129) and his thoughts about Gregentios' use of an early source with an anti-Jewish tradition of the exegesis of the *Book of Isaiah* (especially ch. 60). Berger proposes a convincing etymology of the name "Herban" < **ha-rabbān* "the lord", that is, an appellative used as a personal name (p. 108).

To sum up, the book is extremely helpful, as both a critical edition and a true encyclopaedia of Byzantine Church life till the tenth century, including its early Christian roots and South Arabia connections. Gregentios' dossier was an encyclopaedic source for its own time. Its present edition is the same for ours.

Some minor points need to be corrected.

1. "Maurousians" among the four peoples ("pagans, Jews, Homerites and Maurousians" (*Bios* **6**, 148)) that have to be baptized by Gregentios under the jurisdiction of Proterius, pope of Alexandria (p. 338/339 txt/tr., p. 47 discussion). Berger is probably right when explaining here this ethnonym as covering "non-Ethiopian black people in Africa" or even "the Islamic Arabs". However, the underlying hagiographical legend here certainly deals with a Nubian state Makuria converted into the Chalcedonian faith in the late 560s. Confusion between "Makurians" and "Mauretanians" becomes common in later times, if not already in the sixth century. The *Life of Gregentios* contains a Chalcedonian rewriting of the history of the conversion

(2) One correction that does not affect the whole line of argumentation: the *Letter of Christ fallen from Heaven* mentioned as one of the predecessors of the *Nomoi*, now is not "dated to the eighth and ninth centuries" (p. 90). In M. van Esbroeck's (1989) paper referred to by Berger himself the date of the sixth century is proven. There is another case of imprecise dating, while also without affecting the argumentation: "…the *Synaxarion* of the church of Constantinople was compiled in the tenth century" (p. 41). The earliest recension of this *Synaxarion* goes back to the ninth century (see especially Andrea Luzzi, *Studi sul Sinassario di Costantinopoli* (Roma, 1995) (Testi e studi bizantino-neoellenici VIII) 5–6, note 3).

of South Arabia, and the name of Proterius, while in a quite anachronistic way, emphasises this fact (as Fiaccadori and Berger show). The conversion of Makuria is a very close and contemporaneous topic, also having an anthological hagiographical novel of its own, *Barlaam and Ioasaph*[3].

2. The formula "that [Holy Spirit] proceeds from God the Father and rests… in his Son" is not an invention of our hagiographer that "…seems not to appear in any other texts" (cf. Berger's discussion, p. 95). The formula goes back to the Prologue to the *Passio Andreae* (*CANT* 226 / *BHL* 428 / *BHG* 93–94) and has been often used in the Byzantine polemics against the *Filioque*[4]. Nevertheless, the formula appeared long before the discussion on the *Filioque* (most probably, in the West, while accepted without any difficulty in the East), and so, it is doubtful that its use in our text has anything to do with the debates between the Greeks and the Latins. Berger shares the common opinion that the corresponding passages in the *Bios* reflect these polemics, but I consider this opinion as unfounded.

3. In the apparatus to *Dialexis* **Δ** 1130 (p. 734/735 and note 112 on p. 735) concerning the phrase "…[the Holy Ghost] proceeds from God the Father and rests uninterruptedly, indivisibly, and undividedly (ἀδιασπάστως, ἀμερίστως καὶ ἀδιαιρέτως)" Berger is certainly right when seeing in this wording a reflection of a Christological formula, but the ultimate source here is not John of Damaskos but the Chalcedonian *Horos* (Christ "ἐν δύο φύσεσιν ἀσυγχύτως ἀτρέπτως ἀδιαιρέτως ἀχωρίστως γνωριζόμενον"; *ACO* II, I, 2, p. 129.30–31). Unfortunately, there is, to my knowledge, no study that traces the long tradition of such formulations of Christological origin applied to the Trinity.

(3) See, in details, including the problem of confusion between "Makuria" and "Mauretania": B. Lourié, India "far beyond Egypt": *Barlaam and Ioasaph* and Nubia in the sixth century, in: Alexander Toepel *et al.*, eds. [FS Stephen Gerö] (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 2009) (to appear).

(4) I have sketched its use in: В. *Лурье*, Догматическая алхимия. К характеристике источников и догматического содержания послания пресвитера Василия из Дольней Руси, 1511 года [B. Lourié, A Dogmatic Alchemy: Toward the characteristic of the sources and the dogmatic contents of the Epistle of Presbyter Basil from Low Russia, 1511], in: *Мир Православия.* Вып. 6 (Волгоград, 2006) [*World of Orthodoxy*. Issue 6 (Volgograd, 2006)] 224–242.

Alessandro Bausi e Alessandro Gori (a cura di), *Tradizioni Orientali del «Martirio di Areta». La prima recensione araba e la versione etiopica. Edizione critica e traduzione. Presentazione di Paolo Marrassini* (Firenze, 2006) (Quaderni di Semitistica 27) XXVIII + 306 pp.

Questa edizione di A. Bausi e di A. Gori è un lavoro fine che tra l'altro, rinfresca la memoria di studiosi illustri e ci riproietta nei contributi di specialisti poliedrici come, "Die im Äthiopischen, Arabischen und Koptischen erhaltenen Visionen Apa Schenute's von Atripe. Text und Übersetzung", *Zeitschrift der Deutschen Morgenländischen Gesellschaft* 67, 1913, di Adolf Grohmann (1887–1977). L'iniziativa dei due studiosi rievoca i medesimi obiettivi che hanno dato origine all'autorevole *Grammatik der äthiopischen Sprache*, Leipzig 1857 e soprattutto all'insuperato *Lexicon linguae aethiopicae cum indice latino*, Leipsiae 1865 di Christian Friedrich August Dillmann (1823–1894). Questi ultimi sono lavori inossidabili, proposti senza cedere all'auto-compiacimento o a esternazioni di disistima nei confronti di colleghi o di lavori altrui. Tanto sudore, profuso senza la pretesa di avere il monopolio della scienza né dei metodi per impartirla. Sono classici che si sono imposti unicamente per il loro spessore scientifico che ha egregiamente retto all'usura del tempo ed alla crescita dello scibile. Dillmann, Guidi (1844–1935), Kidanä Wäld Kəfle (1870?–1944), sono alcuni dei protagonisti di spicco che insieme a tanti altri studiosi, hanno svolto un immane e certosino lavoro di contestualizzazione della lingua e della letteratura gə'əz nell'alveo storico e culturale che ne hanno plasmato l'identità e con il quale hanno interagito per secoli. Un quadro geo-storico che oltre all'Egitto e ad alcune parti del Mediterraneo, abbraccia le due sponde del Mar Rosso e oltre. Il volume, pubblicato *in tandem* da Bausi e Gori sembra dunque rispondere a questo anelito che ha interessato molti etio-semitisti, soprattutto negli ultimi due secoli. È un contributo con varie originalità scientifiche che mira alla ricostruzione, almeno in parte (la Presentazione preannuncia l'edizione dell'opera in altre lingue), della tradizione di un testo agiografico, peraltro già noto (anche come *Storia della gente di Nāgrān*) a diversi studiosi e che è stato oggetto di attente ricerche: il *Martirio di Areta*, un Arabo dell'alta nobiltà dell'oasi di Naǧrān. Areta, o meglio, Al-Ḥāriṯ morì martire nel VI secolo ad opera di Ḏū Nāwas, re giudeo degli Ḥimyariti. Nella letteratura agiografica gə'əz, il nome arabo al-Ḥāriṯ subisce un'alterazione e appare come Ḫirut, l'appellativo con cui il Sinassario del 26 di Ḫədar ne cele-

bra la memoria. Il martirio di Ḫirut e la strage dei cristiani di Nağrān provocò lo zelo del re aksumita Kaleb (= Ἐλεσβαάς), che organizzò una spedizione punitiva contro il re giudeo, responsabile dei massacri e della devastazione della comunità cristiana sudarabica. La campagna di Kaleb si concluse in gloria e il re, in seguito a questa vittoria si recò direttamente a Gerusalemme, depose la sua corona presso il Santo Sepolcro e si ritirò a vita eremitica. Nel *Martirio di Areta*, la figura di Kaleb è piuttosto marginale, ma le sue gesta sono state una perenne fonte di ispirazione nella spiritualità etiopica e non sono mancati re, regine e persone dell'alta nobiltà che ne hanno emulato il gesto eroico di abdicare al potere terreno per la povertà della vita monastico-eremitica. Inoltre, Kaleb e la testimonianza dei martiri di Nagran sono stati al centro di molte composizioni ad uso liturgico, soprattutto nei *qəne* (composizioni poetiche *impromptu*).

Nel cammino in questo volume dai contenuti che impegnano la mente, ma che allo stesso tempo la affascinano, il lettore viene aiutato da un'introduzione (pp. 4-18) ricca e concisa, nella quale Bausi tratteggia la storia del testo e le principali questioni attinenti e connesse ad esso. Bausi si sofferma brevemente sulle varie fonti del *Martirio di Areta* e non perde l'occasione per puntualizzare che il ricordo della "vittoriosa spedizione sudarabica da parte degli Etiopi giunti a Firenze nell'Agosto del 1441 per il Concilio — riferita da Flavio Biondo — è la più antica menzione in fonti occidentali del Martirio di Areta" (pp. 5–6). Prosegue con un veloce resoconto critico degli studi relativi al *Martirio di Areta*, stila un elenco delle pubblicazioni del testo gə'əz del *Martirio* e di altri testi vicini ad esso, come i *Gädl* di Arägawi e Pantaleone (due membri della celebre comitiva dei cosiddetti "nove santi romani") e la famosa epopea salomonide, nota come *Kəbrä Nägäst*. Nell'Introduzione ci sono due affermazioni conclusive importanti. Bausi dice: "Consapevoli della considerevole complessità sia della tradizione delle fonti sui "fatti di Nağrān" sia del *Martirio di Areta* in particolare ... in nessun modo si è cercato di fornire con questo lavoro, non solo nuove risposte, ma nemmeno un quadro esauriente delle questioni in sospeso". Infine, Bausi dichiara: "... si è cercato di mettere a disposizione in edizione critica, per il momento, due testimoni della tradizione orientale del *Martirio di Areta*: l'uno ancora inedito e solo parzialmente noto, qui indicato come la Prima recensione araba; l'altro, la *Versione etiopica* dello stesso *Martirio*, già edito da F. M. E. Pereira nel 1899, ma riproposto qui in una edizione critica non priva di novità" (pp. 17–18). La nuova edizione consta dunque di due parti principali: la prima parte

è l'edizione critica con traduzione italiana della "prima recensione" araba del Martirio di Areta (pp. 30–89). Gori sostiene che questa sia "più prossima alla versione etiopica" (p. 21). L'edizione critica del testo arabo si è servita di quattro manoscritti, il primo del secolo XI, e gli altri del secolo XIII. L'editore riconosce a studiosi precedenti il merito di aver "non solamente rintracciato ma analizzato, riassumendolo, il contenuto di quattro manoscritti arabi sinaitici contenenti il *Martirio di Areta*" (p. 21). Nelle pp. 22–26, Gori offre una descrizione succinta e densa dei codici usati e alcune "osservazioni linguistiche". Nella pagina seguente, l'editore espone le caratteristiche dell'apparato critico. Nella traduzione italiana, uno degli aspetti che colpiscono maggiormente è la parsimonia nelle note esplicative. Una edizione interlineare dell'arabo e del gə'əz sarebbe stata opportuna per vedere meglio il grado di parentela che realmente intercorre tra le due versioni. Infatti, il testo gə'əz, non sembra così "ancillare" rispetto all'arabo, come sembra insinuare Marrassini (p. VIII). D'altronde solo chi non si è mai confrontato direttamente con opere monumentali come il *Dəgg*^{w}*a*, che al registro dell'anagrafe della tradizione reclama come data di nascita il VI secolo, può affermare che la letteratura etiopica non ha una sua propria identità. Che senza stampelle (estere) non regge. È segno di grave *deficit* di informazione, qualificare "ancillari" ("ancillare" da *ancilla* = nel mondo romano, la schiava addetta al servizio delle matrone; poi per estensione, serva, cameriera) i testi etiopici a cominciare poi da quelli liturgici (p. VIII). La chiesa etiopica dispone di almeno venti preghiere eucaristiche: il numero di anafore più alto nelle chiese orientali, dopo quello della chiesa siro-antiochena. Le anafore etiopiche sono quasi tutte composizioni di alto livello letterario, prodotte *in loco*, da letterati etiopici. È una letteratura che spesso e volentieri non si permette di essere "ancillare" neanche di se stessa. Nessun *qəne* può essere recitato per due volte: dev'essere sempre fresco. Nemmeno il suo compositore può riproporlo, pena l'infamia di plagio. D'altronde, l'epiteto "ancillare", rivolto alla letteratura etiopica (ma neanche gli obelischi di Aksum e le chiese di Lalibela sono scampati a questo verdetto) non è nuovo. Si tratta di una riedizione della concezione che fu ventilata alla fine dell'800. Credo che sia il caso di ricordarla: "La letteratura abissina, che dunque consta di opere ge'ez e in piccola parte, di opere amariche, non ha certo l'importanza e la vastità della letteratura araba o delle nostre europee, e neppure della siriaca. Non è vera espressione del genio nazionale: non poesia epica, non lirica, non un solo canto d'amore: scarse le opere originali, scarsissime quelle di carattere non

religioso: per una parte cospicua, è sin frutto di fatiche di stranieri passati in Etiopia. La rappresentano prevalentemente traduzioni: anzi traduzioni di opere ecclesiastiche. Altrimenti non poteva essere in un paese che mai non raggiunse un grado relativamente elevato di civiltà; in un paese, ove per un continuo stato di guerra latente o palese, imposto dal cozzo di tante e sì diverse razze, da un irrequieto sistema feudale, dalla naturale asprezza dei luoghi, inestinguibile eccitamento alla rivolta, la spada doveva scacciare il calamo. Nei conventi doveva, quindi, riparare la debole facella della cultura indigena: soltanto lo spirito religioso a volte indusse qualche re a proteggere e promuovere studi letterari. Senza il Cristianesimo, la letteratura abissina non esisterebbe: verisimilmente, senza il cristianesimo, sia pur rozzo, sia pur corrotto come l'abissino, da gran tempo non esisterebbe neppure un impero etiopico"[1] (Conti Rossini, C.: "Note per la storia letteraria abissina", *Rendiconti della Reale Accademia dei Lincei*, serie V, vol. VIII, 1899, pp. 283–284). È ovviamente una concezione che risente dei limiti dei tempi (coloniali) in cui è stata confezionata. Non avere un vasto corpo di letteratura scritta non è automaticamente un distintivo di ignoranza né di barbarie. Lo prova il fatto che lo stesso Conti Rossini ha pubblicato un volume sul diritto consuetudinario eritreo di 802 pagine.

Il blocco più ampio del volume (pp. 93–306) consiste nella versione etiopica, curata da A. Bausi. L'editore mette a frutto la sua ben nota dimestichezza con il materiale che ha messo a disposizione del pubblico. La comunità dei cultori della lingua e della letteratura gəʿəz delle origini non può che rallegrarsi per il "nuovo parto". Infatti, la versione etiopica del *Martirio di Areta* che è parte integrante di una collezione agiografica più ampia, direi "enciclopedica", nota come *Gädlä Säma'ətat* (= Agone dei martiri), rappresenta una ricca riserva dello strato più antico (finora conosciuto) della lingua gəʿəz. In questo testo, ed in altri simili ad esso, si profila una fisionomia ormai facilmente riconoscibile del gəʿəz arcaico. Per la sua edizione, Bausi ha utilizzato undici manoscritti "tra catalogati e non" (p. 94) che appartengono ad un periodo che va dal XIV al XVIII secolo. L'editore rievoca "la fortunata menzione (*del Martirio di Areta*) in un inventario nel ms. EMML 1832 di Dabra Ḫayq ʾEsṭifānos (con) data *ante* 1291/92" (p. 94). La descrizione dei codici, eccetto per il ms. "M", è lapidaria. Non poteva mancare una discussione sulla *Vorlage*. L'editore, dopo aver affermato che "la

(1) Non so che cosa rimarrebbe nella civiltà occidentale, senza il Cristianesimo.

tradizione diretta del *Martirio di Areta* è unitaria", abbraccia la tesi di studiosi precedenti che hanno sostenuto la dipendenza del testo etiopico da una *Vorlage* araba. Il primo motivo addotto per dimostrare la parentela sono "i fraintendimenti di nomi propri." Le altre piste perseguite per rintracciare l'identità del testo sono le aggiunte, le omissioni, la forma *difficilior*, e così via. Si tratta ovviamente dei consueti metodi impiegati per la ricostruzione di un testo. Dai vari tornanti dialettici che cercano di sondare il mistero della natura esatta del testo, emerge l'ipotesi che "la *Versione etiopica del Martirio di Areta* riposa dunque su una *Vorlage* araba, affine, ma certamente non identificabile, con la Prima recensione araba ...". Bausi aggiunge: "Uno stemma completo che ne permetta la costruzione meccanica — anticipo alcune conclusioni — non risulta tracciabile: siamo quindi di fronte a una recensione 'aperta'" (p. 98). La natura e l'evoluzione del testo in questione vengono scrutinate con professionalità, con gli strumenti delle scienze di critica testuale che l'editore ha ritenuto più idonei. Tuttavia il *textus* = "il prodotto di tessitura", è una creatura elusiva, difficile da ingabbiare; è un mosaico complesso che mantiene sempre un alone di mistero che spiazza le metodologie più sosfisticate della critica testuale, che è pur sempre una scienza empirica. Lo dimostrano le molteplici chiose, come "probabilmente ...; non sembra ...; non hanno forza probante ..." che affiancano opportunamente diversi tentativi di formulare ipotesi riguardanti la natura del testo. Mi sembra legittimo domandarsi sul valore di additare "tesi" e "antitesi" per poi approdare puntualmente in "ipotesi." Trovo saggio il teorema di William di Ockham, "entia non sunt multiplicanda praeter necessitatem", che nel nostro caso può essere riletto, "interpretationes non sunt multiplicandae praeter necessitatem." Da rilevare, per inciso, che non ci possono essere dogmi di critica testuale: si può parlare di **principi** e non di fortini o "battaglie" di critica testuale (p. X). La *Critica Textus* è uno strumento di lavoro. I punti di vista espressi nella Presentazione (pp. VII–X),[2] ma soprattutto il tono con cui sono stati formulati, invitano necessariamente a una riflessione. L'armamentario cognitivo dello studioso, dispiegato con *acribia* metodologica e tecnica non deve essere usato per schernire e intimidire "i comuni mortali" (pp. IX–X). Credo che sia più proficuo parlare del campo delle ricerche, in termini, non di un'arena di "lotta" ma di una grande "ekklesia" nella quale tutte le persone di buona volontà

(2) La prefazione porta la firma di P. Marrassini, pertanto gli editori, Bausi e Gori, non ne sono responsabili.

e di buona fede hanno diritto di cittadinanza. Ognuno fa secondo quello che sa e che può. Gli etiopisti non saranno mai abbastanza grati per lo sterminato apporto di studiosi (con preparazione ecumenica), come Ernst Alfred Wallis Budge (1857–1934), che hanno reso un servizio impagabile alla conoscenza e diffusione di numerosi testi gə'əz: senza attendere di vivere sette vite per confrontarsi con tutti i relativi codici e per fare paragoni con eventuali originali. Non trovo accademicamente onesto indulgere nel dileggio di lavori, costati energie e tempo, perché ad esempio, "manca" la *Vorlage*. Il minuzioso lavoro del filologo che fruga tra le varie pieghe del testo, può e deve convivere serenamente con le offerte del "produttore all'ingrosso". Magari avessimo edizioni basate anche su un singolo esemplare di tanti testi necessari, ma inaccessibili perché relegati al congelatore del codice manoscritto! Ugualmente legittimo, a mio avviso interrogarsi se le tecniche e i metodi della filologia classica e romanza siano necessariamente "il paradigma" per trattare tradizioni di altre aree culturali.

Bausi dichiara che l'edizione gə'əz del *Martirio di Areta* "è stata condotta secondo il metodo ricostruttivo neo-lachmanniano. ... L'apparato dell'edizione si compone di quattro fasce distinte. La prima fascia contiene l'informazione sulla base tradizionale del testo, cioè su quali sono i testimoni presenti (i «Testes») punto per punto. La seconda fascia contiene testi paralleli al *Martirio di Areta*: passi dal *Sinassario* e dagli *Atti di Panṭalēwon*. La terza fascia contiene l'apparato delle varianti dei testimoni. La quarta fascia riporta l'interpunzione e le *subscriptiones*" (p. 111). Non si può esagerare il valore e la portata di questa edizione e del sacrificio che ha richiesto. La scelta di comporre un apparato con le quattro fasce non è un lusso ma un ulteriore supporto che aiuterà ad avere una vasta gamma di informazioni sul testo. Ci si auspica che il formato di questa edizione possa avere un impatto su futuri lavori analoghi. Bausi rimette al centro dell'attenzione alcuni aspetti molto importanti, come l'interpunzione, che a prima vista potrebbero sembrare di poca rilevanza. L'edizione gə'əz di questo testo è un contributo importante che ha il potenziale di prestarsi ad ulteriori approfondimenti, soprattutto per quanto riguarda la storia /evoluzione della scrittura (ad esempio: p. 116 **እስኬ**; p. 134 **አረጋይ**; p. 144 **አቤር**; p. 184 **ወእማእኮ**; p. 282 **እልኵተ**; p. 126 **ይሖር**; p. 168 **ወኢእፈቅድ**; p. 172 **ታአምራ**; 192 **ኢእሰምዕ ...፣ ወኢእገብር ...፣ ወኢእክሕዶ ...**; p. 238 **ተማህሩ**), della quale l'editore fornisce alcuni accenni (pp. 113–114). Un resoconto, fosse anche solo statistico, di fenomeni riguardanti la morfologia e la sintassi del gə'əz che cesseranno di apparire nei co-

dici post-medievali, rimane un *desideratum*. Ad esempio: **ቦ**, **አልቦ**, **አኮ** con l'accusativo come a p. 122 **እለ፡ አልቦሙ፡ ሖልቄ**; p. 168 **ብኪ፡ ብዙኀ፡ ክብረ፡ ወብዕለ**. Ci sono passi con sintassi problematica: p. 166 **ሰሚዐ፡ ቃሉ** invece di **ሰሚዐ፡ ቃሎ**; p. 196 **እሁብ፡ ሠለስተ፡ አህጉረ፡ ዘይኄይስ፡ እምኵሎን፡ አህጉርየ**; p. 214 **መኑሃ፡ ታፈቅር**; p. 298 **ሚመ፡ ላዕሌሆሙ፡ ብእሴ፡ ክርስቲያናዌ፡ ጠቢበ፡ ወለባዌ፡ ዘስሙ፡ አብርሃም፡ ወአንበረ፡ ኀቤሁ፡ ወኀበ፡ ኤጲስ፡ ቆጶስ፡ እልፍ፡ ብእሴ፡ መስተቃትላን፡ ኀያላን፡ ወጽኑዓን** quest'ultimo, un fenomeno di accusativo multiplo. Ci sono casi di fraseggi opinabili, come a p. 120 **ወመልአ፡ ኵላ፡ ምድረ፡ በአሚን፡ እግዚእነ፡** che può essere reso con **ወኵሉ፡ ምድር፡ መልአ፡ አሚን፡ በእግዚእነ**. È chiaro dunque che per gli studiosi della lingua gə'əz, questa edizione rappresenta un piatto prelibato. Alcune citazioni bibliche sono campioni utili per fare verifiche incrociate su testi non ancora pubblicati o in via di elaborazione. È il caso, ad esempio, di 1 Cor 7,9, a p. 172: **ይኄይስ፡ አውስቦ፡ እምዘምዎ**. Si tratta di un testimone esterno della fase più antica conosciuta del testo paolino, mentre poi esso subirà revisioni graduali, per cui **እምዘምዎ** sarà sostituito con **እምዋዕይ፡ በእሳት**, per culminare con **እምዋዕይ፡ በፍትወት** che diventerà il *Textus Receptus*. Purtroppo la traduzione italiana del *Martirio di Areta* pare essere un'altra storia. Nell'italiano non abbiamo una traduzione fedele, rispettosa dell'originale, ma una versione intenzionalmente romanzata. Talvolta ben oltre la provocazione. I lavori precedenti e anche la presente edizione suggeriscono che il traduttore possiede una buona conoscenza, non solo del gə'əz ma anche di altre lingue etiopiche. A p. XVI, Bausi invece della forma usuale Dastā scrive Dasstā che riflette l'inflessione più aulica del nome. Ecco perché mi azzardo a dire che la sua traduzione è "intenzionalmente romanzata". Spesso, troppo spesso, il traduttore ha fatto dire al testo quello che ha voluto lui. Nel lessico gə'əz non si riscontra l'esuberante floridezza linguistica che appare nella versione italiana di Bausi. La sobrietà dell'originale doveva essere mantenuta anche nella traduzione. Altrimenti, il lettore doveva essere informato sulle scelte di traduzione. Si tratta di un giudizio che può sembrare troppo severo e ingeneroso per cui dev'essere necessariamente suffragato da prove. Il fenomeno ricorre ad ogni piè sospinto, per cui è impossibile offrire un censimento esaustivo delle traduzioni arbitrarie, di quelle lontane dall'originale e in alcuni casi erronee. I comportamenti di traduzione ("patterns of translation") inquietanti, possono essere enucleati come segue:

a) Mancanza di uniformità. Lo stesso termine gə'əz viene reso (senza motivo) in maniere differenti. Ad esempio, Orit: a p. 121 risulta

come “Legge Mosaica”. Questa traduzione è accompagnata da una nota a piè di pagina che dice: “ ’Orit vale a indicare concretamente l’Ottateuco.” C’è da aggiungere che in senso lato, “Orit” indica anche, sia il testo che l’Economia dell’Antico Testamento nella sua interezza. A p. 135 la traduzione del medesimo termine è: Orit (quindi, una mera traslitterazione), e a p. 137 abbiamo “Pentateuco”. A p. 168 **ጠባብ** viene reso con “intelligente” anziché “saggia”, come appare a p. 175 dove giustamente abbiamo “vergini sagge” per **ደናግል፡ ጠባባት**, e “saggio” per **ጠቢብ** a p. 299; p. 160 **ንቅድም፡ በዊአ፡ ውስተ፡ ስምዕ** ... **ንቀድምክን፡ በውስቴ፡ ቅድስት**: “**subiamo per prime** il martirio ... **noi vi precediamo** nella santa”. Altre frequenti vittime di questo tipo di trattamento sono le particelle, le preposizioni, gli avverbi come **ወእምዝ** (p. 132); **ወይእዜኒ** (p. 136). Queste parti del discorso, quando non vengono soppresse, appaiono sotto le più disparate forme di traduzione. **ናሁ** è ignorato a p. 141, a p. 147 diventa “finalmente”, a p. 182 “ecco”; a p. 124 **ወእምድኅሬዝ** ricorre due volte. **ወእምድኅሬዝ** che è composto di quattro elementi, ossia, **ወ፡ እም፡ ድኅረ፡ ዝ**, prima viene tradotto “in seguito”, la seconda volta con “poi.”

b) Sono molto numerose le aggiunte e omissioni a discrezione del traduttore. A p. 125 nessuna traccia di **በህየ** e di **ንጉሥ** (**ካሌብ**) nella traduzione; p. 128 **ኀዋኅዊሃ** “alle porte” invece di “alle sue porte”; a p. 131 nella traduzione manca all’appello **ኀቤሆሙ**; p. 137 “senza contare le donne” per **ዘእንበለ፡ አንስት**; p. 174 **በገማዕይሆን** viene reso con: nelle ampolle (manca “loro”) ... **ርኢክን፡ ገጽየ፡ ክልኤ፡ ጊዜ** “avete visto il mio volto due sole volte” (“sole” è un’aggiunta); p. 177 **እምኔሃ** viene scartato.

c) Traduzioni “sfida”. Uno dei casi più eclatanti è la traduzione di **ክረምት** con “inverno” (p. 127). L’inverno è una realtà ed una nozione totalmente estranea ad un’area geografica che giace fra il Tropico del Cancro e quello dell’Equatore. In Etiopia ci sono i periodi delle piogge che però non equivalgono all’inverno. Dillmann (col. 834) rende correttamente il termine **ክረምት** con *tempus pluvium*; pp. 138–139 **ዐመፀ፡ ዐማፂ** (in riferimento a un giudeo), reso questa volta univocamente con “agire perfidamente”, “perfido”. Perché pescare proprio la “perfidia”, con la storia (dolorosa) che questo linguaggio rievoca, mentre si poteva tranquillamente tradurre diversamente, ad esempio con “nuocere, malvagio ...” ? Un’altra traduzione impossibile è **ፈላሲ** (p. 232) reso con “pio.” Un esercizio inutile la nota n. 76 (p. 233) che discetta sul significato di **ፈላሲ**. Energia sprecata, almeno per coloro nelle cui vene scorre sangue gə’əz. In gə’əz **ፈላሲ** vuol dire: “peregrino, viandante, colui

che sale al *däbr* per farsi monaco o eremita." È vero, con la speranza di essere "pio", ma il passaggio tra le due cose non è scontato. Sarebbe giustamente un'impertinenza se io volessi insegnare il fiorentino a Dante. A p. 254 si legge **ጸሊማነ፡ ዕደው** che viene reso con "uomini di colore". Si tratta di un eufemismo per "uomini neri/scuri." Per essere coerenti si doveva tradurre **ጸሊመ፡ ዐረረ** (p. 273) non "piombo nero" bensì "piombo di colore."

d) Traduzioni approssimative. Ci sono molti superlativi "gratuiti". A p. 133 **ጽኑዐ፡ ቀትል** viene reso con "massacri durissimi". Innanzitutto bisognava rispettare il singolare del testo, e poi come si spiega il superlativo "durissimi"? Per ottenerlo, l'aggettivo doveva essere accompagnato, per esempio, da **ጥቀ** o **ፈድፋደ**. Lo stesso discorso vale per **ሠናይ፡ ላሕየ፡ ራእይኪ** a p. 168, tradotto con "bellissimo aspetto". A p. 192, Bausi traduce **ቃልክ** (singolare) con "le tue parole". Si poteva mantenere il testo traducendo con: "il tuo discorso"; p. 135 "a testa" anziché "a ciascun uomo" per **ለለ፡ አሐዱ፡ ብእሲ**.

e) Traduzioni irriconoscibili: p. 146 **ኢንገብር፡ ዘንተ፡ ነገረ** = non faremo una professione del genere; p. 150 **ሶቤሰ፡ ኮነንከነ፡ ዘዘዚአሁ፡ ኮኑኔ** = quand'anche tu avessi decretato per ciascuno di noi una pena diversa; p. 164 **ወበትሕትና** = con atteggiamento dimesso; p. 174 **ነገር** = parole; p. 176 **አንቲሰ፡ አብዛኀኪ፡ ነቢበ፡ ዘአልቦ፡ በቀኖ። አውሥአት፡ ይእቲ፡ ብእሲት** = ma tu hai straparlato senza alcun costrutto. La donna rispose dicendogli: ...; p. 190 **ወአንተሰ፡ ንጉሥ፡ ሐሳዊ፡ ድኩም** = ma tu sei un re mentitore, privo di autorità; p. 288 **ንኡሳን፡ አሕማር** = scialuppe.

f) Errori: p. 126 **መጠነ፡ ምእት፡ ወሰብዓ፡ ምዕራፍ** = di centoventi stazioni; p. 154 **እስመ** = allora; p. 158 **ወእምዝ፡ አንዝዎን፡ ሐራ፡ ወሰሐብዎን፡ በሥዕርተ፡ ርእሶን፡ ወወሰድዎን** = i soldati le presero e le trascinarono per i capelli bianchi, le trasportarono ... ; p. 166 **ኢያስሕትኪ** = non ti trarrà: una sollecitazione minatoria, da rendere quindi con l'imperativo, "non ti tragga"; p. 206 **የአምኑ፡ እንግድዓሁ** = abbracciando il collo. Qui appare un significato inedito di **እንግድዓ** che significa "petto", come tradurrà Bausi stesso a p. 219; p. 218 **ዐቢየ፡ ብካየ** = copiose lacrime; p. 280 **አላ፡ መሰሎ፡ ከመ፡ ውስተ፡ ካልኣን፡ አሕማር፡ ብዙኃን፡ ሀሎ፡ ይነብር ። ወመጺኦ፡ ኀበ፡ እማንቱ፡ አሕማር** = sembrandogli invece che dovesse trovarsi con l'altro gruppo di navi, che costituiva il grosso della flotta. Giunto alle navi (manca: "quelle").

Nelle note a piè di pagina, lo spazio concesso ai parenti di primo grado del testo, ossia ai testi biblici e liturgici è pressoché inesistente. Troppo poco, rispetto ad esempio, alle dottissime disquisizioni

filologiche. È una omissione importante se si pensa che i richiami e le allusioni biblico-liturgiche sono la vera anima di questa composizione che non è stata concepita come palestra di erudizione ma per obiettivi parenetici e di edificazione. Nessuna segnalazione ai rimandi biblici che hanno plasmato, ad esempio: p. 153 "Molti della popolazione cristiana cercarono rifugio sui monti, nelle caverne e nelle cavità della terra" (Eb 11,38); p. 163 "... e scrivesse i loro nomi nel libro della vita" (Es 32,32–33; Ap 13,8; 20,12, ma anche Lc 10,20); p. 179 "... condanna eterna, il fuoco inestinguibile, il verme che non muore ..." (Is 66,24; Mc 9,48); p. 181 "... Gesù Cristo, Figlio del Dio vivente" (Mt 16,16) ; pp. 197, 199 "chiunque rinnega Cristo di fronte agli uomini, anche Cristo lo rinnegherà di fronte al Padre" (Mt 10,33). Manca il rinvio al passo biblico interessato, per i riferimenti espliciti del testo ad Anania, Azaria e Misaele (p. 139). Rimangono da identificare i numerosi passi tratti da testi liturgici, a loro volta paradigmati sulla Bibbia. A p. 212 si legge **አማሕፀንኩከ፡ ወልድየ፡ ኀበ፡ ክርስቶስ፡ ዘይክል፡ ኵሎ፡ ወአልቦ፡ ዘይሰአኖ**: una supplica modellata su due gruppi di testi biblici, ampiamente usata nella liturgia (cf. *ʾAmmǝstu s̱ äwatǝwä zemawoč*, Addis Ababa 1965, p. 183, coll. 2 e 3). Da rilevare che questa preghiera non si riscontra nella recensione araba, che invece dice: "Egli è in grado di riunirmi a te nel suo regno" (p. 59). Le seguenti intercessioni: **ከመ፡ ይሁበነ፡ ኀይለ፡ ወመዊአ** p. 186; **እግዚአብሔር፡ የሀብከ፡ ኀይለ፡ ወመዊአ፡ ዲበ፡ ጸላእትከ** nelle pp. 270, 282, 286, rielaborano 1 Cor 15,57. Sono formule che si trovano disseminate nei testi liturgici e agiografici. Nelle pp. 188–190 si legge: **ወአጽነነ፡ ሰማያተ፡ ወወረደ፡ ሐመ፡ ውተሰቅለ፡ በእንቲአነ፡ ወሰቀላ፡ ለኀጢአት፡ በውስተ፡ ሥጋ፡ ዘነሥአ፡ እምኔነ፡ ወኮነ፡ መሥዋዕተ፡ ለእግዚአብሔር፡ በእንተ፡ ኵሎሙ፡ እለ፡ የአምኑ፡ ቦቱ።** Questo passo, che non appare nella recensione araba, consta di una catena di citazioni mutuate dalla Bibbia e da testi liturgici (ad esempio, Sal 17(18),9; Rm 6,6; 1 Cor 15,3; Gal 5,24; la settima ed ultima strofa del Wǝddase Maryam del giovedì). Bausi, nella nota n. 56, si limita a segnalare un rinvio di seconda e di terza mano. Lo stesso discorso vale per la ben nota espressione **ዳግሚት፡ ቀመር** (cf. la prima strofa del Wǝddase Maryam della domenica). Nessuno tentativo di risalire alla fonte ma solo la n. 72 che rimanda ancora una volta a bibliografia secondaria. A p. 206 abbiamo un altro testo composito, di matrice biblico-liturgica: **ወእምዝ፡ ተአምኑ፡ በበይናቲሆሙ፡ በብካይ፡ ወበአምኃ፡ ቅድሳት፡ ወዓዲ፡ ይቤ፡ ቅዱስ፡ ኂሩት፡ ሰላመ፡ እግዚአብሔር፡ ዘወሀቦሙ፡ ለአርዳኢሁ፡ ቅዱሳን፡ የሀሉ፡ ምስሌነ፡ ኦኦኀው**; p. 288 **ተመጠዉ፡ እምሥጋሁ፡ ቅዱስ፡ ወደሙ፡ ክቡር፡ ዘእግዚእነ፡**

ወመድኀኒነ፡ ኢየሱስ፡ ክርስቶስ። = preghiera nel *post-communio*. Anche gli ultimi due spezzoni non appaiono nella recensione araba.

È doveroso concludere queste osservazioni, proposte unicamente per costruire, esprimendo un cordiale apprezzamento per questo importante contributo.

Tedros Abraha

Sebastian Brock, *Fire from Heaven: Studies in Syriac Theology and Liturgy* (London: Variorum Reprints, 2006) (Variorum Collected Studies Series, 863) XIV + 352 pp. ISBN-10: 0-7546-5908-9.

The readers of *Scrinium* will need no introduction to Sebastian Brock whose studies make a major contribution to various aspects of Syriac scholarship, ranging from the language and history of the Syriac-speaking world to the history, theology and ritual of the Syrian Churches. The *Fire from Heaven* represents the fourth volume of reprinted articles by Sebastian Brock from the famous Collected Studies Series. Besides the obvious usefulness for Syriac scholars to have articles which were previously published in different editions and periodicals now in one work, for a more general audience of scholars in Patristic and Byzantine Studies and in Church History, the entire collection serves as a perfect introduction to the ecclesiastically divided Syriac spiritual tradition that developed a distinctive outlook in its early stages independently from Greek-speaking Christianity. The appearance of this volume is even more timely since the present scholarly paradigm more and more often requires viewing the Mediterranean and Middle Eastern worlds of late Antiquity with their ethnic and doctrinal variety not as a set of separate entities that need to be studied one-by-one but as one Christian civilization developing in an active and complex interaction across languages, cultures, theological and geographical divisions.

The collection consists of three major sections: a theological part on the Christology and theological terminology employed in the Church of the East, the specific terminology of the invocations to the Holy Spirit in the Syriac liturgical tradition and its underlying doctrines, and three publications of Syriac sources containing brief exegetical pieces of liturgical rites. Although the articles were published on different dates and in different places, they are assembled in a perfect logical order constituting a continuous narrative in the course of the

volume with each subsequent one developing the theme of the previous one. Each article of the leading scholar in Syriac Studies contains not only a pertinent historical overview of materials presented serving as a good reference tool, but in addition contains apt methodological considerations that may enrich a scholar from fields other than Syriac Studies.

Part 1. The Christology of the Church of the East

The 'Nestorian' Church: a Lamentable Misnomer.

The first article serves as an introduction to the whole section on Christology. It is argued that the name "Nestorian Church" sometimes applied to the Church of the East is thoroughly misleading. The author investigates the reason for the sobriquet, aptly pointing that the "Ecumenical Councils" being summoned by the Byzantine Emperors for settling ecclesiastical controversies within the Byzantine Empire, were of no direct concern for the Church of the East located within another, Persian Empire unless the Church of the East subsequently decided to recognize their decisions as it happened with the creed and canons of the First Council of Nicaea eighty five years after the Council was held. Consequently, the rejection of the Council of Ephesus by the Church of the East happened in fact not due to a doctrinal decision (since no definition of faith was issued by the Council) but due to its irregular procedure, and the Council of Chalcedon was viewed by the Church of the East only as an unsatisfactory compromise. Indeed, Nestorius was respected by the Church of the East as "a martyr for the Antiochene Christological cause" and an anaphora attributed to Nestorius exists in the Church of the East yet none of his works except the apologetic *Bazaar of Heraclides* was translated into Syriac and no traces of Nestorius' doctrinal influence can be traced in the formation of the Christological tradition of the Church of the East. Instead, in the fifth century the School of Edessa that attracted many students from the Persian Empire enhanced the interaction between Christians on both sides of the Byzantine-Persian border. Within the milieu of the School with its strict Antiochene Christology many works of Theodore of Mopsuestian in the 420s were translated into Syriac, and after the closing of the School by Emperor Zeno in 489 many teachers moved across the border to Nisibis, whose School became a channel for disseminating the theological influence of Theodore of Mopsuestia in the East making his theology a norm of orthodoxy much the same way as Cyril of Alexandria served as the norm of orthodoxy in West Syria for Severus of Antioch.

The Church of the East in the Sasanian Empire up to the Sixth Century and its Absence from the Councils in the Roman Empire.

This article develops the theme of the previous one from a historical and theological perspective and presents a brief outline of the history of the Church in the Sasanian Empire up to the sixth century with special attention made to the contacts between the Churches and available sources. The author attempts at correcting the "Eusebian" view on Church history as the history of the Church within the Roman Empire and the "Eurocentric" attitude that still permeates works on Church history up to the present day.

The origins of Christianity in the Parthian Empire (up to 224) are mostly legendary. Some sources of the late third century seem to indicate the existence of two Christian groups on the Persian soil that may be native Christians and Christians deported in large numbers by Shapur I in the course of his successful campaign against the Romans. This situation played a part in the greatest persecution of Christians by Shapur II that began in 341 and continued until his death in 379 and was conditioned by the hostilities between the Empires, one of which had just obtained a Christian Emperor, and a fear of the disloyalty of "Greek captivity" communities of the descendants of deported Roman people. The Synod of 410 held by the initiative of the Roman ambassador and Western Syrian bishop proposed a series of reforms on ecclesiastical and calendar issues, accepted the Creed and canons of Nicaea I, and the audience of bishops with the shah after the Council of 410 was the first attempt to regulate the relationship between the Church and the State. It is significant that the acts of the Synod of 410 that are transmitted in both the Eastern *Synodicon Orientale* and in the Western Syriac recension reflect some significant differences in Christological terminology. The next Council of 420 put an end to the interference of "western bishops," but after the persecutions of the early 420s many Christians crossed the border and ended up in the School of Edessa whose Christology from the 420s developed a clear dyophysite character under the influence of the writings of Theodore of Mopsuestia.

It is emphasized over and over again that in order to have a balanced picture of this Christology we need to set aside a simplistic three-fold division of Churches into Nestorian, Monophysite and Chalcedonian and in a careful and unbiased manner examine the terminology of the Church of the East that often did not correspond word-to-word with its Greek equivalents and had serious differences in meaning and in its whole archaic and metaphorical tenor that led and still leads to

misunderstandings when simply equalized with customary Greek theological terms. At the same time Sebastian Brock carefully delineates the similarities in the semantic fields of the terms and underlying concepts, avoiding the pitfall of "it's all the same but named differently," while viewing common or even compatible ideas in a historical perspective as missed opportunities for understanding and unity.

The Christology of the Church of the East.

A more subtle approach to the traditional tripartite distinction between the Monophysites, the Chalcedonians, and the Nestorians is proposed and presented in the form of a seven-fold model:

1. Extreme Antiocheans or true Nestorians, upholding the "two *prosopa*" doctrine,

2. Strict Dyophysites outside of the Roman Empire (Church of the East),

3. Strict Dyophysites within the Roman Empire such as Theodoret, the *Akoimetai*, or the Roman Church,

4. The group which keeps silence on the matters of Chalcedon (for example the *Henoticon*, or Pseudo-Dionysius the Areopagite),

5. Neo-Chalcedonians,

6. "Miaphysites" (Severus of Antioch and others),

7. Extreme Alexandrines (Eutychians or true Monophysites).

However, the author notes that even such a division presents an oversimplified model since even the sevenfold system may be grouped in a different way, depending on the different criteria of orthodoxy applied. Besides the criterion of compliance to Chalcedon's definition of the middle three positions, the author proposes the criteria of a single subject in Christ, and Christ consubstantial with us and the Father that allows one to view in the same theological spectrum both the Oriental Orthodox and the Church of the East, excluding the radical positions of Eutyches and the *two prosopa* doctrine. In this paradigm the author locates the teaching of the Church of the East on salvation effected for humanity through the human nature of Christ (sometimes expressed as "Man" rather than "human nature") and the Alexandrian concept of the full reality of the incarnated God the Word with their different but compatible theological emphases.

Christ 'the Hostage'; a Theme in the East Syriac Liturgical Tradition and its Origins.

A curious doctrine of the assumed humanity of Christ as a hostage for the human race is attested to in several East Syriac sources. In Antiquity the term "hostage" (Gr. ὅμηρος, Syr. hmayrā) did not have the

violent connotation it acquired in our days but designated someone who was given from one side to the other (often a vassal kingdom to the imperial power, Roman or Sasanian) as a pledge of honoring an agreement that had been made. Such a hostage was well treated and received the benefits of life and education at the Imperial court. The article further traces Christological implications and interplay of rich metaphorical meanings of the term in several early writers including Aphrahat and Ephrem: Adam the hostage was taken from Death by Christ, who in turn put on himself Adam's body and became a hostage for the human race. After the epoch of the Christological controversies the West Syrian tradition dropped the usage of the metaphor and term altogether, and even the East Syrian tradition confined its usage to liturgical poetry. The article is followed by a list of passages where the term occurs in a Christological context in the East Syrian *ḥudra* (texts proper to specific festivals).

Part 2. Invocations to the Holy Spirit and their Background

Fire from Heaven: from Abel's Sacrifice to the Eucharist. A Theme in Syriac Christianity.

If the first part of the collected volume served as a general introduction to the theological and terminological setting of the Syrian world with a special emphasis on the East Syrian tradition, the second part of the articles deals with particular aspects of Syrian spirituality and ritual, and acquaints the reader with several little-known doctrines relating to the invocations of the Holy Spirit in the Syriac tradition.

The article contains an analysis of Biblical background and a review of passages on fire descending from heaven in the Syriac tradition. The author treats the pertinent passages from four main points of view: fire as a sign that God has accepted a sacrifice, fire imagery in connection with the Holy Spirit, with the Eucharist and Mary's conception (given that the Eucharist and Incarnation are treated very closely in the Syriac tradition), and, finally, divine fire as an actor in the mystical liturgy of the heart.

'Come, compassionate Mother..., come Holy Spirit:' a Forgotten Aspect of Early Eastern Christian Imagery.

It is natural for religious writers of all kinds and in all times to apply metaphors in describing one or another aspect of God. If in the European tradition we are used to predominantly male imagery, the Syriac tradition was open to female imagery, readily applying in its rich and poetical theological language such metaphors as the Father's

breasts being milked or the Godhead as a wetnurse. In certain writings from northern Mesopotamia in both Greek and Syriac, the Holy Spirit is referred to as a "mother" which is partly due to the feminine grammatical gender of *ruḥa* when referred to the Holy Spirit in Syriac. After about the year 400, the grammatical gender started to be changed to masculine, and the feminine was avoided. The article follows this process both in Syriac translations of the Bible and Syriac theological writings.

The Epiclesis in the Antiochene Baptismal *Ordines*

This article presents a survey and classification of various types of epicleses that occur in the prayers for the consecration of baptismal water in ten baptismal services of Churches using Syriac as the liturgical language: the Church of the East, the Syrian Orthodox, the Maronite, and the Melkite Church. The author, first, studies the formal structure of the baptismal epiclesis, then their content, and Biblical references, comparing, when necessary, baptismal and Eucharistic epicleses of the Antiochene tradition, and providing a wider background from the writings of Greek and Syriac Fathers on baptism, including John Chrysostom, Theodore of Mopsuestia, Ephrem, Narsai, and Jacob of Serugh.

From a structural point of view, epicleses over the baptismal water are divided into four groups depending of the type of their reference to the Holy Spirit (whether the reference is absent, the Holy Spirit is asked to "come," the Father is asked to "send" the Holy Spirit or an epiclesis using some other verb). The more ancient "come"-type epiclesis is the only type found among the East Syrian epicleses (although it is also present in the Greek anaphora of Basil as well as in some West Syrian anaphoras and baptismal epicleses), whereas the "send"-type is found exclusively in West Syrian and Greek texts that reflect a relatively late development in consecratory epiclesis, regular only in the fifth century.

From the point of view of the epicleses' contents, the author singles out eight different themes: reactivation of the Jordan's waters in the font, the baptismal water as "the water of rest" (Ps. 22 (23): 2), baptism as representation of the death and resurrection of Christ, Christ's baptism as a type of his own resurrection, baptismal water as the primeval water (Gen. 1: 2), as a spiritual womb (cf. John 3: 4), as a fulfillment of prefiguration by the water of Bethesda (John 5: 4, 7), as the water that flows from the side of Christ (John 19: 34). The main themes of the epicleses reflect the conflict of opinions concerning the relationship of

Christ's own baptism and his death, and interest in the role of the Holy Spirit in Christ's baptism.

Towards a Typology of the Epicleses in the West Syrian Anaphoras

The study constitutes a compliment to the existing study on East Syrian Anaphoras.[1] The West Syrian tradition (Syrian Orthodox and Maronite) possesses an exceptional quantity of no less than 70 anaphoras, 66 of which are used for the present study. The epicleses are classified according to their basic structure, syntax, verbs describing the Spirit's descent upon the offerings, presence or absence of "on us," the terms of reference to bread and wine within the epiclesis, the place from where the Spirit is sent (heaven, height, etc.), epithets, accompanying the Spirit, paradigmatic actions of the Spirit referred to in the anaphora, and consecratory verbs. The variety of Syriac anaphoras and their complex relationship are presented in three concluding Tables.

Invocations to/for the Holy Spirit in Syriac Liturgical Texts: Some Comparative Approaches

This philologically oriented article surveys the invocation of the Holy Spirit in the anaphoras where verbs "send" (with the Spirit as the object) or "come" (with the Spirit or occasionally the Word as the subject) as well as verbs describing a sanctifying action are present. The author systematizes anaphoras in accordance with three main features: the difference between invocations (whether they are to the Father with a request to send the Spirit or to the Spirit with a request to come); the syntax; and the specific terms describing the actions of the Spirit. The distribution of the more ancient "come" and "send" reflect not a language-based difference (Greek vs. Syriac), but a geographical and to some extent chronological difference. A striking variety of Syriac anaphoras as opposed to few existing Greek ones, and some surviving fragments in Greek and Coptic suggest that a similar diversity of anaphoras might have existed in Greek, and new fragments should not necessarily be directly related to surviving Greek anaphoras. Another methodological point raised by the author concerns the nature of borrowing between the anaphoras. It seems that instead of direct borrowing from one or another existing anaphora, the compilers of anaphoras used, in the words of the author, "a store of formulaic building blocks" similarly to the stock components of epic poetry.

(1) B. Botte, L'Epiclèse dans les liturgies syriennes orientales, *Sacris Erudiri* 6 (1954) 48–72.

These formulaic building blocks, even in the case of their occurring in large numbers in different texts should not be treated as indicators of any generic relationship but rather point to a certain shared tradition. Finally, Sebastian Brock provides evidence for a possible case of the influence of Syriac usage (a technical term *aggen*) on the Greek.

The Lost Old Syriac at Luke 1:35 and the Earliest Syriac Terms for the Incarnation

The article considers early Syriac renderings of the word ἐπελεύσεται from Luke 1: 35. In the absence of Old Syriac manuscripts for this passage, Syriac Diatessaron, the Peshitta, Philoxenian and Harklean all use the verb *aggen* with a manifestly Jewish Aramaic (Tragumim) background. However, in his genuine writings Ephrem quotes the passage using a different verb, *šrā* (reside), another Jewish Aramaic term of saving divine action. This verb instead of *aggen* is also predominant in the liturgical poetry belonging to the fifth/sixth century, including such famous authors as Narsai (d. ca. 500) and Jacob of Serugh (d. 521), as well as in Philoxenus of Mabbug. Sebastian Brock proposes two hypotheses (on the initial presence of each verb in Old Syriac) and concludes that *šrā* does not represent the lost Old Syriac of the passage, and proposes a possible explanation for choosing a less literal translation of the Greek with *aggen*: the translator was aware of the connection between *aggen* and the Hebrew *pāsaḥ* and wanted to connect the Syriac date of 10th Nissan for the conception of Jesus with the Passover narrative (Ex. 12) thus creating "a typological link between the passover lamb and Christ the paschal lamb."

An Early Interpretation *of Pāsaḥ*: *'Aggēn* in the Palestinian Targum

In antiquity there existed at least six interpretations of the verb *pāsaḥ* that occurs three times in the Biblical account of Exodus (Ex. 12:13,23,27). Its Aramaic rendering (*'aggēn*) was not only richer in nuances of meaning than the Hebrew equivalent *higgīn* and specialized *pāsaḥ* but was by itself a technical term for saving divine activity.

Passover, Annunciation and Epiclesis: Some Remarks on the Term *Aggen* in the Syriac Versions of Lk. 1:35

This study continues the exploration of the destiny of the term *aggen* in the Syriac tradition. Its technical meaning of divine action in the Aramaic tradition led to adoption of the term by the earliest translators of the New Testament for rendering a number of Greek words. Third and fourth century Syriac writers seem to have lost the awareness of its original meaning and preferred to use other verbs. The significance of the term *aggen* was revived in the mid fourth century when it was

used for translating the Greek non-Biblical word ἐπιφοιτάω in the epiclesis of the anaphora of James which by itself might have reflected the Aramaic *aggen*. After that the term was actively used among the seventh- and eighth-century East Syriac mystics to describe the activity exercised by the Holy Spirit upon the soul.

From Annunciation to Pentecost: the Travels of a Technical Term

The article contains a chronological survey of the Syriac verb *aggen* ("to tabernacle"). Initially a Jewish Aramaic term for divine saving action present in the Peshitta, it was used for describing divine action in the incarnation in Luke 1:35 and John 1:14. During the fifth and sixth centuries the term spread in usage beyond these passages: Philoxenus uses it for describing the action of the Holy Spirit in the baptism of Christ. Since in the East Syriac tradition the term designated divine action upon human beings, the term was avoided in the case of Christ's Baptism and Transfiguration, most likely to counter possible charges of adoptionism, and among the feasts *aggen* was predominantly used for Pentecost. The term was also used in sanctification of water for Christian baptism, for blessing baptismal candidates and candidates for ordination, in a number of anaphoras, and in the East Syriac mystical tradition for describing inner spiritual experience. The findings of the article are summarized in three Tables tracing its occurrence in Syriac NT, Peshitta OT and Targum, and the chronological development of the term.

The *Ruaḥ Elōhīm* of Gen. 1:2 and its Reception History in the Syriac Tradition

The Syriac tradition reveals a whole variety of solutions for the problem of interpreting the Biblical *ruaḥ elōhīm* of Gen. 1:2. which could mean divine Spirit, generative power or simply "wind." As the accompanying participle for the action of the *ruaḥ* the Peshitta has *raḥḥep* that is associated with the activity of the Holy Spirit thus providing a sacral understanding of *ruaḥ elōhīm*. The understanding of the *ruaḥ* as the Holy Spirit is attested to in the Acts of Thomas; the same interpretation is proposed by a "Syrian" from Basil of Caesaria's *Commentary on Hexaemeron* (II.6) who is now known to be Eusebius of Emessa. The opposite view of *ruaḥ* as referring to wind/air is represented by Ephrem and Theodore of Mopsuestia in their Commentaries on Genesis, whose authority made this view dominant among the students of the School of Edessa and since the seventh century it became a standard interpretation of this passage in the Church of the East. In the West Syriac tradition Jacob of Serugh followed the same view whereas

most writers agree with Basil and his Syrian (whom many wrongly identified with Ephrem). This controversy over interpretation is also reflected in the liturgical texts of different Syriac traditions.

Part 3. Editions and Translations

Some Early Syriac Baptismal Commentaries

Syriac preserves three interrelated fifth-seventh century commentaries on the baptismal service that are collated and published along with their English translation. Their earliest form was likely used by Narsai, and it is attested to in the Mss. of all three Syriac Churches, Chalcedonian (where it is attributed, wrongly, to John Chrysostom), Syrian Orthodox, and Church of the East (where it is preserved in a Sogdian translation). The fact that the commentary must have existed prior to the division of the three ecclesiastical traditions as well as the absence of post-baptismal anointing, becoming widespread in the Antiochene region only in the second half of the fifth century, allows the editor to date the commentary to the beginning of the fifth century. The commentary shows some similarities to Theodore of Mopsuestia yet reveals a more primitive structure of the service which means that both belong to the same catechetical tradition.

An Early Syriac Commentary on the Liturgy

Some Mss. used for the edition of the baptismal commentary in the previous article also contain a commentary on the Eucharistic liturgy, and the edition of this Commentary, its English translation and detailed notes are presented in this article. It is very fortunate that in the present volume these originally separate publications covering a single document can be put side by side. The commentary testifies to the Syrian catechetical tradition around 400, and served as a source for later commentaries of all three Syriac-speaking Churches for many centuries.

Gabriel of Qatar's Commentary on the Liturgy

The publication contains a new English translation of the important but little known Commentary on the Liturgical Services of the Church of the East by Gabriel of Beth Qatraye (early seventh century) that is preserved in a single not quite complete manuscript (British Library, Or. 3336 (13th C.)) as well as the listings of chapters of five Memre of the Ms. This earliest extant East Syriac commentary on the liturgy apart from Narsai's liturgical verse homilies dates from a time before the radical liturgical reforms of Catholicos Isho'yahb III (649–659).

Vladimir Baranov

Владимир М. Кириллин, *Сказание о Тихвинской иконе Богоматери «Одигитрия». Литературная история памятника до XVII века. Его содержательная специфика в связи с культурой эпохи. Тексты* (Москва: Языки славянских культур, 2007) (Studia Philologica) 310 с. + 16 цв. илл.

Vladimir M. Kirillin, *Narratio on the Tikhvin icon of the Mother of God "Hodegetria". Literary history of the work up to the 17th century. Its contents within the cultural context of the epoch. Texts* (Moscow: Languages of Slavic Cultures, 2007) (Studia Philologica) 310 p. + 16 colour ill. ISBN 5-9551-0121-7.

The book represents a summary of the author's studies in the field started as his PhD thesis defended in 1988. So far it is the most comprehensive history of the monument whose earliest recensions go back to the 15th century. Probably, it is not very useful as an excursus in Rus' and Byzantium relations, but certainly is a must-read for anyone who is interested in the cult of the Theotokos in Russia and, especially, in the religious traditions of the Russian Northwest. The book contains critical editions of three (among ten known) recensions of the *Narratio*, including the two earliest ones, plus two diplomatic editions of the recensions known in the unique manuscript. Moreover, the author dedicated a long supplement (p. 269–291) to another monument having no apparent relation to his main topics, "*Narratio* on the icons of the Holy Mountains" (that is, of the famous monastery in the Pskov region, in modern times especially known by the grave of Alexander Pushkin; the Dormition monastery was established here in 1569, after the miracles of the Theotokos described in this *Narratio* of the 17th century). The supplement contains a critical edition of one recension of the *Narratio* (called "Hagiographic" by Kirillin and "Middle" by another scholar of the text, V. I. Okhotnikova) with the most important variant readings of two other recensions.

In his publication of the recension A of the "*Narratio* on the Tikhvin icon" Kirillin repeats (p. 241) his rather unhelpful conjecture to fill up a lacuna in the very last line of the text proposed in his earlier publication of the same text (В. М. Кириллин, Первоначальные редакции Сказания о Тихвинской Одигитрии, in: *Д. С. Лихачев*, отв. ред., *Книжные центры Древней Руси XI–XVI вв. Разные аспекты исследования* (St Petersburg, 1991) 200–219, esp. p. 217). The text as published by Kirillin runs as follows [in the 2007 edition a Slavonic font is used instead of the modern Cyrillic transliteration, and the titles (abbreviation marks) are not uncovered]: За молитвъ пречистые ти

Матери и святого чюдотворца Николы [lacuna] божии — помилуи нас ("By the prayers of Thy Most Pure Mother and holy wonderworker Nicholas […] of God — have mercy on us"). Kirillin thinks that the lacuna might correspond to the word *угодника* (Genitive form of one of the synonyms of "saint" in Church Slavonic and Old Russian, a normal epithet of St Nicholas). Instead, I am sure, the lacuna corresponds to the most common formula of the final clauses of such texts written with the titles, thus in a very compact form and without breaks between words: *ги ие хе сне* ("O Lord Jesus Christ Son"). This phrase contains the same number of letters (nine) as *угодника* (where the initial /u/ might be rendered by the digraph *оу*). If so, the em-dash added by Kirillin is also out of place, and the text must be read as: За молитвъ пречистые ти Матери и святого чюдотворца Николы Господи Иисусе Христе Сыне Божий помилуи нас ("By the prayers of Thy Most Pure Mother and holy wonderworker Nicholas, O Lord Jesus Christ, have mercy on us").

Basil Lourié

Нина В. Синицына, *Сказания о преподобном Максиме Греке (XVI–XVII вв.)* (Москва: Издательство ПСТГУ, 2006) 136 с. [издание ПСТГУ-ИРИ РАН]

Nina Sinitsyna, *Narration on St. Maxim the Greek (XVI–XVII cent.)* (Moscow, St. Tikhon University Publishers, 2006) 136 pp. ISBN 5-7429-0232-8

The book written by prominent Russian scholar Nina Sinitsyna deals with the earliest textual witnesses of the life of Maxim the Greek (Максим Грек) or Maximos Trivolis, an Athonite monk who was invited to Russia in 1518 and died there in 1555. Several pieces of hagiography subsist from the earliest period. All of them are published in the book. These are: *Narratio-praefatio* [сказание из корпуса] by an anonymous author, known in several redactions and *Narratio informans* [Сказаніе извѣстно] known in many mss. The latter was included into the Menaion of the priest Ioann Milyutin (1646–1654).

Two additional text witnesses were added to these texts. One is a small note written down by monk Selivan, a disciple of Maxim (1524), the other by monk Nil Kurlyatev (1552). The main importance of the book however is a new edition of the *Narratio informans* according to the ms. recension of 1587. Now the hagiographical dossier of St. Maxim looks fairly complete. Some minor problems to be mentioned are

related to the spelling of the titlo (abbreviations). Thus дв҃довы on p. 75 is most likely *Давыдовы* and not *давидовы*, likewise дкѧ on p. 89 is very probably a titlo д̂кѧ and should be spelled as *доска*. Nevertheless, a very high level is maintained in the book, which could be labeled as a very helpful addition to the dossier of one of the most famous figures in the religious and cultural history of XVI century Russia.

A. Muraviev

Л. И. Журова, В. Ю. Крутецкий, Н. В. Синицына, Б. Л. Фонкич, К. Хвостова (изд.), *Преподобный Максим Грек. Сочинения*. Том I (Москва: «Индрик», 2008) 568 с. [Российская Академия Наук: Институт Российской Истории, Сибирское отделение РАН: Институт Истории].

L. I. Zhurova, V. Y. Krutetsky, N. V. Sinitsyna, B. L. Fonkich, K. Khvostova (ed.), *Saint Maxim the Greek. Collected Works*. Volume I (Moscow: "Indrik publishers", 2008) 568 pp. [Russian Academy of Sciences: Institute of Russian History; Siberian Branch of RAS: The Institute of History]
ISBN 978-5-85759-445-2.

The first long-awaited volume of the new edition of the works of St Maxim the Greek has been published by renowned Moscow scholar Nina Sinitsyna in collaboration with one of the strongest teams working with pre-Peter texts and the old-believer tradition — the N. Pokrovsky group from Novosibirsk. The volume includes texts of the first period of the life of St Maxim in Russia until the condemnation (1518–1525) as well as works preserved in Greek (with Russian translation), written in Italy and on Mt Athos (1498–1516) by Michael (Maximos) Trivolis. The very identity of St. Maxim the Greek known from the Russian sources remained unclear until I. Denisov identified him as Maksimos Trivolis in 1943; since then his hypothesis has received general acknowledgement.

The first publication of the Greek part of the heritage of St Maxim will strongly contribute to the research of Maxim's relation to the Italian Renaissance. Although the problem itself remains somehow outside the focus of the introductory article, it remains pretty acute and demands tough work with Latin contemporary sources.

The new edition comes almost 150 years after the three-volume edition which was completed in 1859–1862 in the Kazan Theological

Academy. The later edition was a breakthrough, for until that time St Maxim was considered somewhat suspicious. He wrote before the Raskol and in his works Old-believers always found arguments against Nikonian reforms and the new rite in general. The Kazan editors made some alterations in the text and suppressed the most eloquent passages concerning the old-rite practices. Moreover their work has been based on the manuscripts from the end of the XVI–XVII century. Contrary to that the new edition is made on solid scholarly ground and is practically free from confessional censure. The basis for the publication of the new volume are the manuscripts, created in Maxim's lifetime, among them two with the author's handwritten remarks. The manuscript tradition of the texts included in the volume was carefully investigated, and that work is well reflected in the textual commentary. A new principle has been applied — a chronological one. Previous editions of St. Maxim have been compiled along thematic lines. The texts belong for the most part to the epistolographical genre minus several treatises (e.g. a treatise on the monasteries of Mt Athos which was also conceived as a letter to the Great Prince).

The texts published in the volume contribute also to the research of the political ideas and of the *Reichseschatologie* of St Maxim. In his letters to the Great Prince Vasiliy III he developed an idea which according to Nina Sinitsyna is opposed to the *Third-Rome* theory. This concept is called the *Greek idea* and regards the role of Russia only as a mediator for the Greek people in its quest for independence. In this Maxim was an opponent of Philotheos of Pskov. Another group of writings by Maxim is dedicated to the anti-Latin polemic, so that the published works do help to understand in what measure and by what means that tradition of criticizing Latins (= Roman catholics) was translated to Russian Muscovy. In the subsequent history that trend participated actively in the struggle against westernization efforts of the Romanov dynasty. Letters of St Maxim to Feodor Karpov demonstrate another side of the Athonite's activity. He objected strongly to any attempt to introduce or legalize in Russian society astrology which was becoming more and more popular in Europe.

The new edition is a pioneering work in many aspects. However some minor decisions taken by the editors are open to some criticism. The use of the footnote principle with lots of numbers in the text makes reading quite difficult. The use of a traditional apparatus would be more adequate here. Some incorrect and alas! confessionally motivated transcriptions look very unhistorical and make a strange

impression given the participation of the Novosibirsk scholars. These are *Иисус* transcribing ⷭ҃ⷭ (reading impossible before the 17th cent.), ⷣ҃ⷣⷭ transcribed as *Давид* and some others. Nonetheless the total impression from the published volume remains very positive and makes the reader await future volumes with impatience.

A. Muraviev

Монахиня Кассия (Т. А. Сенина) (сост. и комм.), *Столп огненный. Митрополит Нью-Йоркский и Восточно-Американский Филарет (Вознесенский) и Русская Зарубежная Церковь (1964–1985)* (Санкт-Петербург, 2007) (Scriptorium: История Церкви, 1) 608 стр. + 62 фотографии.

Nun Kassia (T. A. Senina) (ed.), *A Pillar of Fire. Metropolitan Philaret (Voznesensky) and the Russian Orthodox Church Abroad (1964–1985)* (St. Petersbourg, 2007) (Scriptorium: History of the Church, 1) 608 pp. + 62 ill. No ISBN.

Metropolitan Filaret (Philaret) (1903–1985) was the third First-Hierarch of the Russian Orthodox Church Outside Russia (ROCOR). His uncorrupted relics were revealed in 1998. He is especially known for his firm stand against ecumenism and his efforts to bring unity between the Russian Church and the Churches of the Greek Old Calendarists. Under his presidency, the Council of the ROCOR anathematized ecumenism as heresy (1983).

The book contains a detailed account of Metropolitan's life, his epistles and private letters, selected sermons, as well as Church documents and materials concerning the history of the ROCOR from 1960s to 1980s, and also some other relevant documents. Some of them have never been published previously; others were published in rare and almost unknown periodicals or leaflets. Several pages of history of the ROCOR, such as the so-called "Revolt of laymen" in the 1960s, are discussed here for the first time. An important collection of photographs (62 pictures in black and white), some of them very rare, accompanies the text. As a supplement, the book contains a liturgical service to St Filaret in Church Slavonic written by the author in 1999 and used now in the Russian Church communities where the cult of St Filaret is established.

The book is a fascinating read for both scholars and laymen interested in the history of the Orthodox Church in the 20th century.

B. L.

Григорий И. Беневич, Дмитрий С. Бирюков, Аркадий М. Шуфрин (сост.), Прп. Максим Исповедник: полемика с оригенизмом и моноэнергизмом (Санкт-Петербург: Изд-во СПбГУ, 2007) 564 с. (Византийская философия. Т. 1; Smaragdos Philocalias).
Gregory Benevich, Dmitri Biryukov, Arkadi Choufrine (comp.), St. Maximus the Confessor: His Polemics against Origenism and Monoenergism (St. Petersburg, Russia: UP, 2007) (Byzantine Philosophy T. 1; Smaragdos Philocalias) 564 p.

The monograph focuses on the two major contributions made by Maximus the Confessor to the theological tradition, namely, his refutations of Origenism and monoenergism, respectively. These aspects of Maximus' thought have been so far treated separately. This is the first attempt to look at them as being in the same context.

The monograph has two parts which correspond, respectively, to the two stages first distinguished in Maximus's life by H. U. von Balthasar. The first part deals with the later stage: from the publication of the monoenergist Pact of Union in 633, which prompted Maximus's entering the arena of Church politics and public theological debate, up to his martyrdom and repose in 662. Its first section consists of an article by Grigory Benevich and Arkadi Choufrine, which, in dialogue with recent Maximus scholarship, traces, stage by stage, the development of Maximus's polemic against monoenergism and monotheletism.

According to a widespread interpretation, the reason for Maximus's rejection of these Christologicial trends was their monophysitic implications: since he believed that both will and energy are manifestations of nature, the assertion of one will or energy in Christ would imply that Christ had no human nature distinguishable from the divine. Indeed, later Maximus does draw a parallel between his opponents and monophysites. However, as the authors argue, he did not, except for a period from 643 to 657, reject unitary formulae as such. This rejection, moreover, was somewhat contrary to his own concept of deification developed before 633, according to which the energy and will of deified humanity are one with those of God.

Benevich and Choufrine argue that a major issue at stake in Maximus' Christological polemic was the correct interpretation of Areopagite's expression "theandric energy." Maximus's view was *not* that the two constituents implied by it were *not* united in any real way (as a too literal reading of the Tome of Leo might suggest), but that they were united in *two* ways (rather than only in the one proposed by his

opponents). For Maximus there were thus two "*theandric*" energies in Christ, one of them being manifested in His miracles and the other in His voluntary passions; rather than just two *natural* energies (one purely human and one purely divine), as has been assumed so far. To make this point, the authors go through all the relevant texts either composed by Maximus or documenting his disputes with his opponents and interrogators.

In addition to this major theme Benevich and Choufrine give attention to the development of Maximus's alliance with Rome as a possible reason for his shift, in 643, to a more rigid theological language. Maximus's ecclesiology, expressed, in particular, in his attributing ecumenical authority to the first Lateran Council and rejecting, in the end, communion with all the local Churches of his time, is also discussed.

Finally, the authors bring to light the suppression of Maximus's memory by the Fathers of the 6th Ecumenical Council and sketch the story of his rehabilitation by the later tradition. In an appendix they analyze the unique ecclesiological situation created by the betrayal of the Orthodox case by pope Vitalian, and the ways this fact has been glossed over in Roman Catholic scholarship.

The second section of the monograph's first part contains a Russian translation of seven texts documenting trials, interrogations, and the exile of Maximus and his disciples. The translation published in the beginning of the 20th century by an outstanding Russian scholar, M. I. Muretov, has been emended and annotated on the basis of the recent edition and annotation of the same texts by P. Allen and B. Neil; one of these texts, extant only in Latin, has been translated into Russian for the first time.

The second part of the monograph, beginning with a short introductory article by Arkadi Choufrine as its first section, focuses on the work representative of the earlier part of Maximus's life, namely, on the seventh chapter of his so-called *Ambigua*. Besides being a polemical treatise, this work, like the others from the same period, is rich in philosophical content and constitutes the part of Maximus's heritage that exercised, despite its complexity, the deepest and most lasting influence on the Byzantine theological tradition as a whole.

The second section of the second part begins with a new Russian interpretative translation and a parallel Greek text of this treatise. The same section includes the commentaries (scholia) on it by Arkadi Choufrine, analyzing the structure and logic of Maximus's argument, the background of the theoretical and dogmatic concepts he uses, and

the peculiarities of his language and style. It is considerably more detailed than the other extant commentaries on the same treatise, namely, those by D. Stăniloae and Cl. Moreschini.

The last, third, section of the second part contains an annotated Russian translation of the still not outdated parts of the two studies on Maximus's refutation of Origenism by P. Sherwood. These studies originally broke the ground for the fuller philosophical analysis of the treatise which is the focus of the second part.

The monograph includes bibliographies of Maximus's works and of the secondary sources used, and indexes of modern authors, figures of antiquity, and toponyms, as well as a thematic index to the scholia.

G. Benevich, A. Choufrine